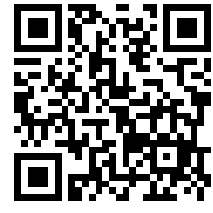
This is a reproduction of a library book that was digitized by Google as part of an ongoing effort to preserve the information in books and make it universally accessible.

Google™ books

http://books.google.com



STUDIA PATRISTICA

VOL. XLIX

Digitized by Google

© Peeters Publishers — Louvain — Belgium 2010

All rights reserved, including the right to translate or to reproduce this book or parts thereof in any form.

D/2010/0602/54
ISBN: 978-90-429-2375-1

A catalogue record for this book is available from the Library of Congress.

Printed in Belgium by Peeters, Leuven

Digitized by Google

STUDIA PATRISTICA

VOL. XLIX

Papers presented at the Fifteenth International Conference
on Patristic Studies held
in Oxford 2007

St. Augustine and his Opponents

Edited by
J. BAUN, A. CAMERON, M. EDWARDS and M. VINZENT

with
Index Auctorum and Table of Contents of Vols. XLIV-XLIX



PEETERS
LEUVEN – PARIS – WALPOLE, MA
2010

Digitized by Google

Digitized by Google

Table of Contents

XIX. ST. AUGUSTINE AND HIS OPPONENTS

Pauline NUGENT, Springfield, Missouri
Patristics and Pedagogy: Jerome and Augustine 3
Matthias SMALBRUGGE, Aerdenhout
Beauty and Grace in Augustine 9
Michael W. TKACZ, Spokane, Washington
Augustine, the *Timaeus* and the Cosmogonical Fallacy 15
Timo NISULA, Helsinki
Continuities and Discrepancies in Augustine's View on Concupiscence and Baptism (410-30) 21
Joshua C. DAVIES, Chattanooga, Tennessee
Signs of the Fall: Exilic Vision in Augustine 27
Larry DURAN, Fort Worth, Texas
Augustine on Begotten but Coeternal – Theological Rationale for the Athanasian Creed 33
Jane E. MERDINGER, Incline Village, Nevada
Conversations and Peregrinations of Augustine with his Closest Friends 39
Christine MCCANN, Northfield, Vermont
Physician of the Soul: Augustine and Spiritual Mentoring 45
Paul VAN GEEST, Tilburg and Amsterdam
Sensory Perceptions as a Mandatory Requirement for the *via negativa* towards God. The Skilful Paradox of Augustine as Mystagogue 51
Marie-Anne VANNIER, Metz
Light and Illumination in Augustine: Revisiting an Old Theme 59
Vittorino GROSSI, Rome
Sul ruolo metodologico del vocabolario nella lettura della teologia agostiniana della grazia (397-428) 65
John Paul HOSKINS, Bakewell
Acts 4:32 in Augustine's Ecclesiology 73
Carles BUENACASA PÉREZ, Barcelona
Augustine on Donatism: Converting a Schism into an Heresy 79
J. Patout BURNS, Nashville
The Holiness of the Church in North African Theology 85
Ryan TOPPING, Oxford
Christ as *disciplina dei* in Augustine's Early Educational Thought .. 101

Digitized by Google

Peter BURNELL, Saskatoon
Justice and War in and before Augustine 107
Siver DAGEMARK, Mölnlycke, Sweden
Medical Art: Some Remarks on Its Limitation and Verification in Augustine 111
Pier Franco BEATRICE, Padua
Augustine's Longing for Holiness and the Problem of Monastic Illiteracy 119
M. Burcht PRANGER, Amsterdam
Frozen Time: The Problem of Perseverance 135
John Peter KENNEY, Colchester, Vermont
Pagan Monotheism and Augustine's Early Works 147
Susan Blackburn GRIFFITH, Oxford
The Figure of Adam in the Sermons of Augustine 161
Stanley P. ROSENBERG, Oxford
Orality, Textuality, and the Memory of the Congregation in Augustine's Sermons 169
Geoffrey D. DUNN, Brisbane
Poverty as a Social Issue in Augustine's Homilies 175
Anthony DUPONT, Leuven
The Position of Gentiles and Pagans and Their Relation to Grace in Augustine's *sermones ad populum* 181
Daniel JONES, Detroit
Relating *Christus Sacerdos* and *Christus Mediator* in St. Augustine's *S.* Dolbeau 26 197
Dorothee ELM VON DER OSTEN, Freiburg i.Br.
Perpetual Felicity: Sermons of Augustine on Female Martyrdom (*s.* 280-282 *auct.* [Erfurt 1]) 203
Elena MARTIN, Durham
Physical Infirmity, Spiritual Strength: Augustine's Female Martyrs 211
Kenneth B. STEINHAUSER, St. Louis, Missouri
Virgil, Cicero and the *rusticanus*: Augustine's *Contra academicos* III 15.34-35 217
Tobias UHLE, Freiburg i.Br.
Truth and Dialectics in Augustine's *Soliloquies* 223
Naoki KAMIMURA, Tokyo
Augustine's Scriptural Exegesis in *De Genesi ad litteram liber unus inperfectus* 229
Francesca COCCHINI, Roma
Note sulla *Inchoata Expositio ad Romanos* di Agostino 235
Johannes BRACHTENDORF, Tübingen
The Human Condition as a Unifying Theme of the *Confessions* 241

Digitized by Google

Tarmo TOOM, Washington, DC
Augustine Becoming Articulate: *Confessions* 1.8.13 253
Ron HAFLIDSON, Halifax, Nova Scotia
The Demands of Service: The Turn to Scriptural Exegesis in Book XI of Augustine's *Confessions* 259
Michael L. CARREKER, Forsyth, Georgia
Divine Simplicity in the *De Trinitate* of St. Augustine..... 265
Wendy ELGERSMA HELLEMAN, Jos, Nigeria
'Christ, the Wisdom of God'. The Logic of Attribution in Augustine's *De Trinitate* 5-7..... 271
Walter A. HANNAM, Saskatoon
The Structure and Purpose of Book VIII of Augustine's *De Trinitate* 279
Kazuhiko DEMURA, Okayama
The Heart as Frame to Reach the Word: Augustine, *De Trinitate* XV 11.20..... 287
Jochen REXER, Tübingen
Die Ostertheologie des Augustinus nach den Briefen *Ad inquisitiones Ianuarii*..... 293
Hildegund MÜLLER, Notre Dame
Movements of a Putrefying Carcass: On Augustine's Use of 'Arians' in *Tractatus in evangelium Iohannis* 301
Alicia SOLER MERENCIANO & Ramon PANACH ROSAT, Valencia
New Perspectives on St Augustine and Priscillianism..... 307
Laurence DALMON, Brest
La correspondance antipélagienne de l'Afrique avec Rome: Présentation d'un dossier de l'Épistolaire augustinien (416-8) 313
Bengt ALEXANDERSON, Jörlanda, Suède
Le commentaire sur les Psaumes de Julien d'Éclane et le texte du Psautier 319
Gerald BONNER, Durham
A Last Apology for Pelagianism?..... 325
Dorothea WEBER, Wien
Beobachtungen zu Augustinus' *Locutiones in Heptateuchum*..... 329
Mickaël RIBREAU, Paris
'*Quos uulgo moriones uocant*' (*Contra Iulianum* III 4, 10): Le traitement des *moriones* (débiles) dans les œuvres antipélagiennes d'Augustin 335
Paula ROSE, Amsterdam
Textual Cohesion in Augustine's *De cura pro mortuis gerenda*..... 341
George A. BEVAN, Kingston
Augustine and the Western Dimension of the Nestorian Controversy 347

Digitized by Google

Alexander Y. HWANG, St. Louis, Missouri
A Reinterpretation of Prosper of Aquitaine's Theological Development 353
Augustine CASIDAY, Lampeter
Prosper the Controversialist 369
Rebecca WEAVER, Richmond, Virginia
Prosper's Theological Legacy and Its Limits 381
Alexander Y. HWANG, St. Louis, Missouri
The Authorship of the Ps.-Augustinian *Hypomnesticon*, Part II 395

Digitized by Google

Abbreviations

AA.SS	see ASS.
AAWG.PH	Abhandlungen der Akademie der Wissenschaften in Göttingen Philologisch-historische Klasse, Göttingen.
AB	Analecta Bollandiana, Brussels.
AC	Antike und Christentum, ed. F.J. Dölger, Münster.
ACL	Antiquité classique, Louvain.
ACO	Acta conciliorum oecumenicorum, ed. E. Schwartz, Berlin.
ACW	Ancient Christian Writers, ed. J. Quasten and J.C. Plumpe, Westminster (Md.)/London.
AHDLMA	Archives d'histoire doctrinale et littéraire du moyen âge, Paris.
AJAH	American Journal of Ancient History, Cambridge, Mass.
AJP	American Journal of Philology, Baltimore.
AKK	Archiv für katholisches Kirchenrecht, Mainz.
AKPAW	Abhandlungen der königlichen Preußischen Akademie der Wissenschaften, Berlin.
ALMA	Archivum Latinitatis Medii Aevi (Bulletin du Cange), Paris/Brussels.
ALW	Archiv für Liturgiewissenschaft, Regensburg.
AnalBoll	Analecta Bollandiana, Brussels.
ANCL	Ante-Nicene Christian Library, Edinburgh.
ANF	Ante-Nicene Fathers, Buffalo/New York.
ANRW	Aufstieg und Niedergang der römischen Welt, ed H. Temporini *et al.*, Berlin.
AnSt	Anatolian Studies, London.
AnThA	Année théologique augustinienne, Paris.
APOT	Apocrypha and Pseudepigrapha of the Old Testament in English, ed. R.E. Charles, Oxford.
AR	Archivum Romanicum, Florence.
ARW	Archiv für Religionswissenschaft, Berlin/Leipzig.
ASS	Acta Sanctorum, ed. the Bollandists, Brussels.
AThANT	Abhandlungen zur Theologie des Alten und Neuen Testaments, Zürich.
Aug	Augustinianum, Rome.
AugSt	Augustinian Studies, Villanova (USA).
AW	Athanasius Werke, ed. H.-G. Opitz *et al.*, Berlin.
AZ	Archäologische Zeitung, Berlin.
BA	Bibliothèque augustinienne, Paris.
BAC	Biblioteca de Autores Cristianos, Madrid.
BASOR	Bulletin of the American Schools of Oriental Research, New Haven, Conn.
BDAG	A Greek-English Lexicon of the New Testament and Other Early Christian Literature, 3rd edn F.W. Danker, Chicago.
BEHE	Bibliothèque de l'École des Hautes Études, Paris.
BETL	Bibliotheca Ephemeridum Theologicarum Lovaniensium, Louvain.
BGL	Benedictinisches Geistesleben, St. Ottilien.
BHG	Bibliotheca Hagiographica Graeca, Brussels.
BHL	Bibliotheca Hagiographica Latina Antiquae et Mediae Aetatis, Brussels.

Digitized by Google

BHO	Bibliotheca Hagiographica Orientalis, Brussels.
BHTh	Beiträge zur historischen Theologie, Tübingen.
BJ	Bursians Jahresbericht über die Fortschritte der klassischen Altertumswissenschaft, Leipzig.
BJRULM	Bulletin of the John Rylands Library, Manchester.
BKV	Bibliothek der Kirchenväter, ed. F.X. Reithmayr and V. Thalhofer, Kempten.
BKV2	Bibliothek der Kirchenväter, ed. O. Bardenhewer, Th. Schermann, and C. Weyman, Kempten/Munich.
BKV3	Bibliothek der Kirchenväter. Zweite Reihe, ed. O. Bardenhewer, J. Zellinger, and J. Martin, Munich.
BLE	Bulletin de littérature ecclésiastique, Toulouse.
BoJ	Bonner Jahrbücher, Bonn.
BS	Bibliotheca sacra, London.
BSL	Bolletino di studi latini, Naples.
BWAT	Beiträge zur Wissenschaft vom Alten Testament, Leipzig/Stuttgart.
Byz	Byzantion, Brussels.
BZ	Byzantinische Zeitschrift, Leipzig.
BZNW	Beihefte zur Zeitschrift für die neutestamentliche Wissenschaft, Berlin.
CAr	Cahiers Archéologique, Paris.
CBQ	Catholic Biblical Quarterly, Washington.
CCCM	Corpus Christianorum, Continuatio Mediaevalis, Turnhout/Paris.
CCG	Corpus Christianorum, Series Graeca, Turnhout/Paris.
CCL	Corpus Christianorum, Series Latina, Turnhout/Paris.
CCSA	Corpus Christianorum, Series Apocryphorum, Turnhout/Paris.
CH	Church History, Chicago.
CIL	Corpus Inscriptionum Latinarum, Berlin.
CP(h)	Classical Philology, Chicago.
CPG	Clavis Patrum Graecorum, ed. M. Geerard, vols. I-Vl, Turnhout.
CPL	Clavis Patrum Latinorum (SE 3), ed. E. Dekkers and A. Gaar, Turnhout.
CQ	Classical Quarterly, London/Oxford.
CR	The Classical Review, London/Oxford.
CSCO	Corpus Scriptorum Christianorum Orientalium, Louvain. Aeth = Scriptores Aethiopici Ar = Scriptores Arabici Arm = Scriptores Armeniaci Copt = Scriptores Coptici Iber = Scriptores Iberici Syr = Scriptores Syri Subs = Subsidia
CSEL	Corpus Scriptorum Ecclesiasticorum Latinorum, Vienna.
CSHB	Corpus Scriptorum Historiae Byzantinae, Bonn.
CTh	Collectanea Theologica, Lvov.
CUF	Collection des Universités de France publiée sous le patronage de l'Association Guillaume Budé, Paris.
CW	Catholic World, New York.
DAC	Dictionary of the Apostolic Church, ed. J. Hastings, Edinburgh.

Digitized by Google

DACL	see DAL
DAL	Dictionnaire d'archéologie chrétienne et de liturgie, ed. F. Cabrol, H. Leclercq, Paris.
DB	Dictionnaire de la Bible, Paris.
DBS	Dictionnaire de la Bible, Supplément, Paris.
DCB	Dictionary of Christian Biography, Literature, Sects, and Doctrines, ed. W. Smith and H. Wace, 4 vols, London.
DHGE	Dictionnaire d'histoire et de géographie ecclésiastique, ed. A. Baudrillart, Paris.
Did	Didaskalia, Lisbon.
DOP	Dumbarton Oaks Papers, Cambridge, Mass., subsequently Washington, D.C.
DOS	Dumbarton Oaks Studies, Cambridge, Mass., subsequently Washington, D.C.
DR	Downside Review, Stratton on the Fosse, Bath.
DS	H.J. Denzinger and A. Schönmetzer, ed., Enchiridion Symbolorum, Barcelona/Freiburg i.B./Rome.
DSp	Dictionnaire de Spiritualité, ed. M. Viller, S.J., and others, Paris.
DTC	Dictionnaire de théologie catholique, ed. A. Vacant, E. Mangenot, and E. Amann, Paris.
EA	Études augustiniennes, Paris.
ECatt	Enciclopedia Cattolica, Rome.
ECQ	Eastern Churches Quarterly, Ramsgate.
EE	Estudios eclesiasticos, Madrid.
EECh	Encyclopedia of the Early Church, ed. A. Di Berardino, Cambridge.
EKK	Evangelisch-Katholischer Kommentar zum Neuen Testament, Neukirchen.
EH	Enchiridion Fontium Historiae Ecclesiasticae Antiquae, ed. Ueding-Kirch, 6th ed., Barcelona.
EO	Échos d'Orient, Paris.
EtByz	Études Byzantines, Paris.
ETL	Ephemerides Theologicae Lovanienses, Louvain.
EWNT	Exegetisches Wörterbuch zum NT, ed. H.R. Balz *et al.*, Stuttgart.
ExpT	The Expository Times, Edinburgh.
FC	The Fathers of the Church, New York.
FGH	Fragmente der griechischen Historiker, Berlin.
FKDG	Forschungen zur Kirchen- und Dogmengeschichte, Göttingen.
FRL	Forschungen zur Religion und Literatur des Alten und Neuen Testaments, Göttingen.
FS	Festschrift.
FThSt	Freiburger theologische Studien, Freiburg i.B.
FTS	Frankfurter theologische Studien, Frankfurt a.M.
FZThPh	Freiburger Zeitschrift für Theologie und Philosophie, Freiburg/Switzerland.
GCS	Die griechischen christlichen Schriftsteller, Leipzig/Berlin.
GDV	Geschichtsschreiber der deutschen Vorzeit, Stuttgart.
GLNT	Grande Lessico del Nuovo Testamento, Genoa.
GNO	Gregorii Nysseni Opera, Leiden.

Digitized by Google

GRBS	Greek, Roman and Byzantine Studies, Cambridge, Mass.
GWV	Geschichte in Wissenschaft und Unterricht, Offenburg.
HbNT	Handbuch zum Neuen Testament. Tübingen.
HDR	Harvard Dissertations in Religion, Missoula.
HJG	Historisches Jahrbuch der Görresgesellschaft, successively Munich, Cologne and Munich/Freiburg i.B.
HKG	Handbuch der Kirchengeschichte, Tübingen.
HNT	Handbuch zum Neuen Testament, Tübingen.
HO	Handbuch der Orientalistik, Leiden.
HSCP	Harvard Studies in Classical Philology, Cambridge, Mass.
HThR	Harvard Theological Review, Cambridge, Mass.
HTS	Harvard Theological Studies, Cambridge, Mass.
HZ	Historische Zeitschrift, Munich/Berlin.
ICC	The International Critical Commentary of the Holy Scriptures of the Old and New Testaments, Edinburgh.
ILCV	Inscriptiones Latinae Christianae Veteres, ed. E. Diehl, Berlin.
ILS	Inscriptiones Latinae Selectae, ed. H. Dessau, Berlin.
J(b)AC	Jahrbuch für Antike und Christentum, Münster.
JBL	Journal of Biblical Literature, Philadelphia, Pa., then various places.
JdI	Jahrbuch des Deutschen Archäologischen Instituts, Berlin.
JECS	Journal of Early Christian Studies, Baltimore.
JEH	The Journal of Ecclesiastical History, London.
JJS	Journal of Jewish Studies, London.
JLH	Jahrbuch für Liturgik und Hymnologie, Kassel.
JPTh	Jahrbücher für protestantische Theologie, Leipzig/Freiburg i.B.
JQR	Jewish Quarterly Review, Philadelphia.
JRS	Journal of Roman Studies, London.
JSJ	Journal for the Study of Judaism in the Persian, Hellenistic and Roman Period, Leiden.
JSOR	Journal of the Society of Oriental Research, Chicago.
JThSt	Journal of Theological Studies, Oxford.
KAV	Kommentar zu den apostolischen Vätern, Göttingen.
KeTh	Kerk en Theologie, 's Gravenhage.
KJ(b)	Kirchliches Jahrbuch für die evangelische Kirche in Deutschland, Gütersloh.
LCL	The Loeb Classical Library, London/Cambridge, Mass.
LNPF	A Select Library of Nicene and Post-Nicene Fathers of the Christian Church, ed. P. Schaff and H. Wace, Buffalo/New York.
L(O)F	Library of Fathers of the Holy Catholic Church, Oxford.
LSJ	H.G. Liddell and R. Scott, A Greek-English Lexicon, new (9th) edn H.S. Jones, Oxford.
LThK	Lexikon für Theologie und Kirche, Freiburg i.B.
MA	Moyen-Âge, Brussels.
MAMA	Monumenta Asiae Minoris Antiqua, London.
Mansi	J.D. Mansi, Sacrorum conciliorum nova et amplissima collectio, Florence, 1759-1798. Reprint and continuation: Paris/Leipzig, 1901-1927.
MBTh	Münsterische Beiträge zur Theologie, Münster.

Digitized by Google

MCom	Miscelanea Comillas, Comillas/Santander.
MGH	Monumenta germaniae historica. Hanover/Berlin.
ML	Mediaevalia Lovaniensia, Louvain.
MPG	See PG.
MSR	Mélanges de science religieuse, Lille.
MThZ	Münchener theologische Zeitschrift, Munich.
Mus	Le Muséon, Louvain.
NGWG	Nachrichten der Gesellschaft der Wissenschaften zu Göttingen.
NH(M)S	Nag Hammadi (and Manichaean) Studies, Leiden.
NovTest	Novum Testamentum, Leiden.
NPNF	See LNPF.
NRSV	New Revised Standard Version.
NRTh	Nouvelle Revue Théologique, Tournai/Louvain/Paris.
NTA	Neutestamentliche Abhandlungen, Münster.
NT.S	Novum Testamentum Supplements, Leiden.
NTS	New Testament Studies, Cambridge/Washington.
OBO	Orbis biblicus et orientalis, Freiburg, Switz.
OCA	Orientalia Christiana Analecta, Rome.
OCP	Orientalia Christiana Periodica, Rome.
OECS	Oxford Early Christian Studies, Oxford.
OLA	Orientalia Lovaniensia Analecta, Louvain.
OLP	Orientalia Lovaniensia Periodica, Louvain.
Or	Orientalia. Commentarii editi a Pontificio Instituto Biblico, Rome.
OrChr	Oriens Christianus, Leipzig, then Wiesbaden.
OrSyr	L'Orient Syrien, Paris.
PG	Migne, Patrologia, series graeca.
PGL	A Patristic Greek Lexicon, ed. G.L. Lampe, Oxford.
PL	Migne, Patrologia, series latina.
PLRE	The Prosopography of the Later Roman Empire, ed. A.H.M. Jones *et al.*, Cambridge.
PLS	Migne, Patrologia, series latina. Supplementum ed. A. Hamman.
PO	Patrologia Orientalis, Paris.
PRE	Paulys Realenzyklopädie der classischen Alterthumswissenschaft, Stuttgart.
PS	Patrologia Syriaca, Paris.
PTA	Papyrologische Texte und Abhandlungen, Bonn.
PThR	Princeton Theological Review, Princeton.
PTS	Patristische Texte und Studien, Berlin.
PW	Paulys Realencyclopädie der classischen Altertumswissenschaft, ed. G. Wissowa, Stuttgart.
QLP	Questions liturgiques et paroissiales, Louvain.
QuLi	Questions liturgiques, Louvain
RAC	Rivista di Archeologia Cristiana, Rome.
RACh	Reallexikon für Antike und Christentum, Stuttgart.
RAM	Revue d'ascétique et de mystique, Paris.
RAug	Recherches Augustiniennes, Paris.
RBen	Revue Bénédictine, Maredsous.
RB(ibl)	Revue biblique, Paris.

Digitized by Google

RE	Realencyklopädie für protestantische Theologie und Kirche, founded by J.J. Herzog, 3e ed. A. Hauck, Leipzig.
REA(ug)	Revue des études Augustiniennes, Paris.
REB	Revue des études byzantines, Paris.
RED	Rerum ecclesiasticarum documenta, Rome.
RÉL	Revue des études latines, Paris.
REG	Revue des études grecques, Paris.
RevSR	Revue des sciences religieuses, Strasbourg.
RevThom	Revue thomiste, Toulouse.
RFIC	Rivista di filologia e d'istruzione classica, Turin.
RGG	Religion in Geschichte und Gegenwart, ed. Gunkel-Zscharnack, Tübingen
RHE	Revue d'histoire ecclésiastique, Louvain.
RhMus	Rheinisches Museum für Philologie, Bonn.
RHR	Revue de l'histoire des religions, Paris.
RHT	Revue d'Histoire des Textes, Paris.
RMAL	Revue du Moyen-Âge Latin, Paris.
ROC	Revue de l'Orient chrétien, Paris.
RPh	Revue de philologie, Paris.
RQ	Römische Quartalschrift, Freiburg i.B.
RQH	Revue des questions historiques, Paris.
RSLR	Rivista di storia e letteratura religiosa, Florence.
RSPT, RSPh	Revue des sciences philosophiques et théologiques, Paris.
RSR	Recherches de science religieuse, Paris.
RTAM	Recherches de théologie ancienne et médiévale, Louvain.
RthL	Revue théologique de Louvain, Louvain.
RTM	Rivista di teologia morale, Bologna.
Sal	Salesianum, Roma.
SBA	Schweizerische Beiträge zur Altertumswissenschaft, Basel.
SBS	Stuttgarter Bibelstudien, Stuttgart.
ScEc	Sciences ecclésiastiques, Bruges.
SCh, SC	Sources chrétiennes, Paris.
SD	Studies and Documents, ed. K. Lake and S. Lake. London/Philadelphia.
SE	Sacris Erudiri, Bruges.
SDHI	Studia et documenta historiae et iuris, Roma.
SH	Subsidia Hagiographica, Brussels.
SHA	Scriptores Historiae Augustae.
SJMS	Speculum. Journal of Mediaeval Studies, Cambridge, Mass.
SM	Studien und Mitteilungen zur Geschichte des Benediktinerordens und seiner Zweige, Munich.
SO	Symbolae Osloenses, Oslo.
SP	Studia Patristica. Papers presented to the International Conference on Patristic Studies held in Oxford, successively Berlin, Kalamazoo, Louvain.
SPM	Stromata Patristica et Mediaevalia, ed. C. Mohrman and J. Quasten, Utrecht.
SQ	Sammlung ausgewählter Quellenschriften zur Kirchen- und Dogmengeschichte, Tübingen.
SQAW	Schriften und Quellen der Alten Welt, Berlin.

Digitized by Google

SSL	Spicilegium Sacrum Lovaniense, Louvain.
StudMed	Studi Medievali, Turin.
SVF	Stoicorum Veterum Fragmenta, ed. J. von Arnim, Leipzig.
TDNT	Theological Dictionary of the New Testament, Grand Rapids, Mich.
TE	Teologia espiritual, Valencia.
ThGl	Theologie und Glaube, Paderborn.
ThJ	Theologische Jahrbücher, Leipzig.
ThLZ	Theologische Literaturzeitung, Leipzig.
ThPh	Theologie und Philosophie, Freiburg i.B.
ThQ	Theologische Quartalschrift, Tübingen.
ThR	Theologische Rundschau, Tübingen.
ThWAT	Theologisches Wörterbuch zum Alten Testament, Stuttgart.
ThWNT	Theologisches Wörterbuch zum Neuen Testament, Stuttgart.
ThZ	Theologische Zeitschrift, Basel.
TLG	Thesaurus Linguae Graecae.
TP	Transactions and Proceedings of the American Philological Association, Lancaster, Pa.
TRE	Theologische Realenzyklopädie, Berlin.
TS	Theological Studies, New York and various places; now Washington, D.C.
TThZ	Trierer theologische Zeitschrift, Trier.
TU	Texte und Untersuchungen, Leipzig/Berlin.
USQR	Union Seminary Quarterly Review, New York.
VC	Vigiliae Christianae, Amsterdam.
VetChr	Vetera Christianorum, Bari (Italy).
VT	Vetus Testamentum, Leiden.
WBC	Word Biblical Commentary, Waco.
WUNT	Wissenschaftliche Untersuchungen zum Neuen Testament, Tübingen.
WZKM	Wiener Zeitschrift für die Kunde des Morgenlandes, Vienna.
YUP	Yale University Press, New Haven.
ZAC	Zeitschrift für Antikes Christentum, Berlin.
ZAM	Zeitschrift für Aszese und Mystik, Innsbruck, then Würzburg.
ZAW	Zeitschrift für die alttestamentliche Wissenschaft, Giessen, then Berlin.
ZDPV	Zeitschrift des Deutschen Palästina-Vereins, Leipzig.
ZKG	Zeitschrift für Kirchengeschichte, Gotha, then Stuttgart.
ZKTh	Zeitschrift für katholische Theologie, Vienna.
ZN(T)W	Zeitschrift für die neutestamentliche Wissenschaft und die Kunde der älteren Kirche, Giessen, then Berlin.
ZRG	Zeitschrift für Rechtsgeschichte, Weimar.
ZThK	Zeitschrift für Theologie und Kirche, Tübingen.

Digitized by Google

Digitized by Google

XIX. St. Augustine and his Opponents

Bengt Alexanderson
Pier Franco Beatrice
George A. Bevan
Gerald Bonner
Johannes Brachtendorf
Carles Buenacasa Pérez
Peter Burnell
J. Patout Burns
Michael L. Carreker
Augustine Casiday
Francesca Cocchini
Siver Dagemark
Laurence Dalmon
Joshua C. Davies
Kazuhiko Demura
Geoffrey D. Dunn
Anthony Dupont
Larry Duran
Wendy Elgersma Helleman
Dorothee Elm von der Osten
Susan Blackburn Griffith
Vittorino Grossi
Ron Haflidson
Walter A. Hannam
John Paul Hoskins
Alexander Y. Hwang
Daniel Jones
Naoki Kamimura
John Peter Kenney
Elena Martin
Christine McCann
Jane E. Merdinger
Hildegund Müller
Timo Nisula
Pauline Nugent
M. Burcht Pranger
Jochen Rexer
Mickaël Ribreau
Paula Rose
Stanley P. Rosenberg
Matthias Smalbrugge
Alicia Soler Merenciano & Ramon Panach Rosat
Kenneth B. Steinhauser
Michael W. Tkacz
Tarmo Toom
Ryan Topping
Tobias Uhle
Paul van Geest
Marie-Anne Vannier
Rebecca Weaver
Dorothea Weber

Digitized by Google

Digitized by Google

Patristics and Pedagogy: Jerome and Augustine

Pauline NUGENT, Springfield, Missouri

Composed at the end of the first century of the common era, Quintilian's *Institute of Oratory* is rightly esteemed the most comprehensive guidebook to classical rhetoric. But even more to the point, Quintilian's work is a teacher's manual, outlining the basic principles of effective pedagogy, the fruit of his two decades in the classroom. Effective pedagogy, in turn, depends on the teacher's ability to create a successful learning environment. Quintilian identified several factors that contribute to this goal, four of which we shall here consider. First, he believed in a person's natural aptitude for learning, and urged teachers to engage students' minds in ways suitable to their age and disposition. He thus obligates the teacher to individualise instruction by identifying each student's motivation. Second, Quintilian enjoins on all prospective teachers the need to motivate students in such a way that 'the student who is not yet old enough to love his studies does not come to hate them.'[1] The third principle underscores the importance of elementary education. Quoting the example of Philip of Macedon who engaged the renowned Aristotle, the greatest philosopher of the day, to teach his son Alexander the Great, Quintilian reminds the teacher that everyone's child deserves no less attention than Alexander.[2] Finally, for our present purposes, Quintilian stresses the teacher's moral and ethical qualities, noting that if students are rightly instructed, their master should become the object of their affection and respect.

Roughly three centuries after Quintilian wrote his great work and at approximately the same time, two little schoolboys, now known as Saints Augustine and Jerome, began their education. Although each was trained in the rigorous tradition explicated by Quintilian, the two future Church Fathers encountered vastly different learning environments. Sir Henry Chadwick noted that Augustine 'never wrote with admiration or gratitude about any of his teachers.'[3] In the *Confessions*, Augustine remembers his schooldays as a time of tedium, leavened with caning.[4] Jerome, for the most part, fondly remembered his early education. Proudly and frequently, Jerome refers to the renowned grammarian Donatus as 'my teacher' and generally presents his

[1] H.E. Butler (transl.), *Quintilian: Institutio Oratoria* (I 1.20), vol. 1 (Cambridge, MS, 1996), 29.
[2] *Inst. Orat.* 31-3.
[3] Henry Chadwick (transl.), *St Augustine Confessions* (Oxford, 1991), 7.
[4] Pine-Coffin, *Confessions* (London, 1961), 34.

Studia Patristica XLIX, 3-7.
© Peeters Publishers, 2010.

Digitized by Google

early education as a thoroughly enjoyable adventure. My examination of selected passages from Augustine and Jerome – patristic literary figures and reflective practitioners of pedagogy – will highlight their divergence from or adherence to Quintilian's norms and, I hope, extract a positive message for those of us who teach today.

Jerome – Augustine's senior by a dozen or so years – did not have a particularly pleasant introduction to education in his local elementary classroom at Stridon. Writing his *Apology against Rufinus* (I 30)[5] from Bethlehem some half century later, Jerome recalls the terror of being snatched from the loving arms of his grandmother to attend the class of an angry Orbilius – Horace's proverbial designation (*Ep.* II 1.71) for the traditionally cruel Roman schoolmaster.[6]

Yet Jerome's memories of what he learned and how he learned it were as fond as they were abundant. Jerome, a student with a photographic memory, possessed excellent qualifications for academic success since most pedagogical approaches in antiquity considered the ability to memorise a *sine qua non* for advancement in the world of academia. In his *Apology against Rufinus* (I 4.30), Jerome gives proof of his wondrously tenacious memory while defending himself against the charge that he had broken a vow he had taken while ill never again to read secular literature. Even in his retort Jerome quotes from memory a passage from one of the 'forbidden pagan texts', Vergil's *Georgics* (II 272) – *adeo in teneris consuescere multum est* – so strong is habit in tender years – to substantiate how well he recalls what he learned as a youth. Referring to that same promise, recorded in his now famous dream (*Ep.* 30.22), Jerome explains that the vow did not signify the abolition of his memory of things past, but rather presaged a promise for his future performance. Emphasising the long-lasting power of memory as exercised in the ancient world, Jerome asks: 'Who among us does not remember his infancy? I shall make you laugh, though you are a person of extreme gravity, ... if I recount the memories of my childhood. ... Believe me, our infancy brings back to us many things most accurately.' Then, addressing Rufinus, his erstwhile schoolmate and former friend now perceived as enemy, Jerome continues:

> Are you astonished that I have not forgotten my Latin books when you learned Greek without a master? I learned the seven forms of Syllogisms in the elements of logic; I learned the meaning of an Axiom, or, as it might be called in Latin a Determination; I learned how every sentence must have in it a verb and a noun. ... I can swear that I never read any of these things after I left school. I suppose that, to escape from having what I learned made into a crime, I must, according to the fables of the poets, go and drink of the river Lethe.[7]

[5] Schaff and Wace (eds.), *Nicene and Post Nicene Fathers*, Second Series, Vol. 3 (Grand Rapids, Michigan, 1983), 498.

[6] H.R. Fairclough, *Horace Satires, Epistles and Ars Poetica*, *Ep.* II 1.71 (London, 1932), 402.

[7] Schaff and Wace (eds.), *NPNF*, 498.

Digitized by Google

In his *Confessions*, Augustine spells out a bleak account of the daily classroom routine in the North African elementary school. The traumatic recollection of learning his times-tables – that hated singsong – plus the elements of reading and writing, and the essentials of beginning Greek remained etched in his memory with nightmarish horror throughout his entire adult life.[8] Even with the advantage of hindsight and the accrued wisdom of some thirty-five years, he still could not fully understand why he hated the Greek language so vehemently, and simultaneously, loved the same subject matter when presented in Vergil's Latin *Aeneid*. Augustine openly admits that he disliked his lessons and hated being forced to study.[9] He was told to pay heed to his teachers, he tells us, and thus do well at his lessons – the one way to achieve respect and wealth in this world. In the *Confessions* he states: 'I was sent to school to learn to read. But I was too small to understand what purpose it might serve, and yet, if I were idle at my studies, I was beaten for it, because beating was favoured by tradition.'[10] He even learned to pray for deliverance from these torments, although his petitions frequently fell on deaf ears. Furthermore, the fact that his parents wholeheartedly endorsed his chastisement posed a major dilemma for the young Augustine, who, nonetheless, acknowledged, with a wry twist of irony:

> We sinned by reading, and writing and studying less than was expected of us. We lacked neither memory nor intelligence, because by your will, O Lord, we had as much of both as was sufficient for our years. But we enjoyed playing games and were punished for them by men who played games themselves. However, grown-up games are known as 'business', and even though boys' games are much the same, their elders punished them for them. ... I cannot believe that a good judge would approve of the beatings I received as a boy on the ground that my games delayed my progress in studying subjects that would enable me to play a less creditable game later in life.[11]

Even writing in maturity Augustine never got beyond the terrors of his schooldays. For instance, in the final chapters of the *City of God* he compares education to the punishment of Job in the Scriptures (*Job* 7:1), and says:

> Folly and ignorance are in themselves no small punishment, and it is rightly considered that they should at all costs be avoided – so much so that children are compelled by dint of painful punishments, either to learn a craft or acquire a literary education. And the process of learning with its attendant punishment is so painful that children not infrequently prefer to endure the punishments designed to compel them to learn, rather than submit to the process of learning. In fact, is there anyone who, faced with the choice between death and a second childhood, would not shrink in dread from the latter prospect and elect to die?[12]

[8] Pine-Coffin, *Confessions*, 35.
[9] *Ibid.*
[10] *Ibid.* 30.
[11] *Ibid.*
[12] Bettenson, *City of God*, 991.

Digitized by Google

By contrast, the view of a mature Jerome concerning elementary education strongly recalls Quintilian's directives about providing a positive learning environment. Answering Gaudentius, an anxious father who sought the saint's advice about rearing his little daughter Pacatula, Jerome urges him to help the girl learn to love her lessons:

> Let her learn the alphabet, spelling, grammar, and syntax. To induce her to repeat her lessons with her little shrill voice, hold out to her as rewards cakes and meads and sweetmeats.[13] She will make haste to perform her task if she hopes afterwards to get some bright bunch of flowers, some glittering bauble, some enchanting doll. ... Then when she has finished her lessons she ought to have some recreation. ... Reward her for singing psalms that she may love what she has to learn. Her task will then become a pleasure for her, and no compulsion will be necessary.[14]

Referring to his own love of learning and his admiration for his teachers, Jerome writes with pride to his friends Pammachius and Oceanus who were concerned about Rufinus' dangerous translation of Origen's *Peri Archon*. The saint notes:

> In my younger days I was carried away with a great passion for learning, yet I was not like some [person] presumptuous enough to teach myself. At Antioch I listened to Apollinaris of Laodicea, and attended his lectures. ... At length my head became sprinkled with gray hairs so that I looked more like a master than a disciple, yet I went on to Alexandria and heard Didymus. And I have much to thank him for; for what I did not know I learned from him, and what I already knew I did not forget; so excellent was his teaching. People fancied that I had now made an end of learning. Yet once more I came to Jerusalem and to Bethlehem. What trouble and expense it cost me to get Baranninas to teach me under cover of night. ... Does a certain person dare to bring forward against me the letter I wrote to Didymus, calling him my master? It is a great crime, it would seem, for me a disciple to give to one both old and learned the name of master (*Ep.* 84.2-3).[15]

Again, hearing that an unskilled monk was translating Jerome's work, *Against Jovinian*, the saint challenged that same unlearned recluse to write out his charges in volumes and prove all he can, because, Jerome retorts: 'I too have had a liberal education, and can readily answer each accusation with equal eloquence.'[16] In this context, he quotes once more a classical source, Juvenal, the bitter Roman satirist, saying, 'I also have often withdrawn my hand from the ferule.'[17]

In conclusion, we have in the works of Augustine and Jerome two contrasting views of the educational system of their day. The former presents an ominous

[13] Horace I *Sat.* 1.1.25.26.
[14] Jerome, *Ep.* 128.1.
[15] Jerome, *Ep.* 84.3.
[16] Jerome, *Ep.* 50.5.
[17] Juvenal, *Sat.* I 15.

Digitized by Google

picture of the terrors of the classroom, the lack of meaning and motivation and a sense of the absurdity of the educational system. The latter, for the most part, gives a glowing and positive image of the classroom experience, and communicates a sense of joy, ambition and exhilaration in learning. Both emphasise the role of memory as a major factor in the learning processes, and underscore the ancient recognition of genius as the possession of a highly tenacious, if not photographic, memory. Given the laborious work of copyists and paucity of manuscripts, it is no wonder that educators in the ancient world drew this connection between memory and intelligence. However, not all teachers, in early patristic times, heeded the practical wisdom of Quintilian, that sage educator who had preached encouragement, motivation and the routine of actively engaging students in their learning process; a master who had frowned upon coercion, compulsion and caning. Indeed, Quintilian went so far as to say that, although flogging was a regularly recognised custom of his day, he himself strongly disapproved of the practice, calling it a disgraceful and insulting form of useless and debasing punishment.[18] He further added some very timely and indeed quite modern advice for those entrusted with the education of youth today, saying, 'that children are helpless and easily victimised, and that therefore no one should be given unlimited power over them'.[19] While Quintilian considered it essential that lessons be meaningful for the student, Augustine, unfortunately, bemoans just such a lack of engagement in his elementary education. Jerome's experience, by contrast, was a much more satisfactory and enjoyable adventure. He relished his lessons, affirmed his teachers, and, in general, was a strong advocate for a positive and enjoyable learning process that largely reflected the wisdom of Quintilian.

And the corollary for today's educators? While Quintilian's advice is as vibrantly applicable in the twenty-first century as it was in the first century of our era it is sobering to note that talented students can succeed with or without our assistance and that the experiences of Jerome, a gifted linguist, and Augustine, an insightful philosopher, return us once again to the age-old debate of nature versus nurture which both enthralled and fascinated the ancient world. Our role as teachers, while positive and enabling, is merely ancillary to our students' achievements and success – a privileged companionship of fellow-learners and a role that one day our students may delight to recall. As Vergil says, *Forsan et haec olim meminisse iuvabit* (*Aen.* I 203).

[18] *Ins. Orat.* I 3.14.
[19] *Ibid.*

Digitized by Google

Digitized by Google

Beauty and Grace in Augustine

Matthias SMALBRUGGE, Aerdenhout

Speaking on beauty according to Augustine, might turn out to be a mere presentation of texts showing how a neoplatonic notion becomes a pillar of Christian theology. I should therefore prefer to start with a rather comic event Augustine refers to in his *c. Iul.* (V 14.51). Talking about original sin, he tells us the story of Dionysus the Tiran who was so shocked by his own ugliness that, during intercourse with his wife, he preferred to wear a beautiful mask. His hope was then to capture beauty in this way and thus to pass it on to the children begotten during this alliance.

The question resulting from this example may be clear: what in fact is beauty? Is it something like an Aristotelian quality, as Julian suggests, that cannot exist outside the subject in which it is present? And secondly, should it therefore be considered impossible that this can be passed on from parents to children? This is the conclusion Julian arrived at. Or are beauty and original sin passed on to other beings in a rather unknown way, as suggested by Augustine? Rather than by *emigratio* or *transmigratio*, but by *affectio* and *contagio*.

Whatever be the answer, what strikes us most in this passage, is the ease with which Augustine juxtaposes original sin and beauty. Why in fact compare such contrary elements? Is it because beauty also represents a danger, namely of becoming absorbed by it, as he states in *conf.* II 5.10 and X 34.53? Or is it that we might forget that only things created by God have real beauty and thus are not comparable to the beauty subsisting in a subject, because He is beauty itself?

Carol Harrison, in her *Beauty and Revelation in the Thought of Augustine*,[1] affirms this risk of beauty, but she also stresses that Augustine is mainly focused on the positive side of beauty. It can lead us to the supreme Beauty which is God. In her view, Augustine intended, when specifically referring to the beauty of the creation of the body and of the universe, to stress his anti-manichaean point of view. He wanted to make clear that Creation is not bound by perversion, when it has been created by a good and beautiful Creator. Carol Harrison's interpretation is in a certain way confirmed by the more recent study of Miles, underlining the view that the anti-manichaean aspect was already present in Plotinus.[2] We are accustomed to a Plotinian loathing of the corporeal

[1] C. Harrison, *Beauty and Revelation in the Thought of Augustine* (Oxford, 1992).

[2] Margaret M. Miles, *Plotinus on Body and Beauty: Society, Philosophy and Religion in Third-century Rome* (Oxford, 1999).

Studia Patristica XLIX, 9-13.
© Peeters Publishers, 2010.

Digitized by Google

world, but Miles points out that this reading is largely due to Porphyre's interpretation of Plotinus. Therefore, Harrison's view seems to be well founded. Not only by the texts of Augustine, but also by Plotinus' study which examines the main source for his concept of beauty.

On the other hand, if Harrison is right, what would be the sense, in the fragment of Dionysus, of the parallel between original sin and beauty? It would only make sense if beauty is so permeated with the negative aspects of created life that it fully lacks the bond with the Good it once possessed. Let us call this a voided beauty. This is an interpretation upheld by Jean Michel Fontanier in his *La beauté selon Saint Augustin*.[3] He puts forward that for Augustine, given the influence he underwent from Plotinus and Plato, beauty is always associated with goodness. But the good and beautiful are only fully present in God and we cannot consider Creation as something good in itself. There is a very wide distance between Creation and Creator and vice versa. The beautiful can only be good in as far as it represents the desire for God. Fontanier therefore pays much more attention to the cleft that separates the earthly world and God. He does not portray Augustine as a Manichean, but he is sensitive to the inevitable void that lies between the Creator and the Creation. Beauty can become perverted and it is not a hidden path leading us to God. His view is supported by Michel Fattal in his *Plotin chez Augustin*.[4] His approach would make much more sense of the passage quoted from the *c. Iul.* Beauty would share in the corruption that characterizes the created world and it could become an empty beauty. It could not escape the doom of original sin.

I therefore would like to examine certain aspects of Augustine's notion of beauty. I will limit myself to the Latin word *pulchritudo* and its derivatives. I will not consider words as *speciosus*, *formosus* or *decorus*.

Augustine speaks in detail about beauty in the *conf.*, the *ciu.*, his *ep.* and his *en. Ps.* His main definition seems to have remained unchanged during the years. On the main question, already quoted, *quid est ergo pulchrum et quid est pulchritudo?* (*conf.* IV 13.20), he answers that beauty is a matter of harmony, *congruentia*, between component parts, combined with the sweetness of colors: *partium congruentia cum quadam coloris suauitate*. That is the way he also states it elsewhere.[5] This harmony can also be called an *ordo* as he does in *en. Ps.* 148.3. This definition however can only be used in connection with corporeal and creational beauty (*conf.* XIII 2.3). It is a beauty that is not only *unique*, but one that has been *unified*. God, on the other hand, is the *pulchritudo pulchrorum* (*conf.* III 6.10), but His beauty cannot be considered as a composition of several elements, even if together they form a harmony. In God *esse est pulchrum esse* and his beauty is *quod per se ipsum* (*conf.* IV 15.24).

[3] Jean-Michel Fontanier, *La beauté selon Saint Augustin* (Rennes, 1998).
[4] Michel Fattal, *Plotin chez Augustin: Suivi de Plotin face aux Gnostiques* (Paris, 2006).
[5] *E.g.* in *ord.* I 7,18; *conf.* XIII 28.43; *trin.* VI 10.11; *ciu.* XXII 19 and *ep.* 3.4.

Digitized by Google

His is the permanent beauty that created the beauty that fades (*s.* 241.2). Creational beauty in fact cries out in one voice: *I didn't make myself, God did* (*en. Ps.* 144.13; 148).

So we have both divine and creational beauty. Both descriptions – beauty as a harmony and divine beauty as *esse est pulchrum esse* – have been taken from *Enneads* I 6.1 and from I 6.3. The link between them is formulated by Plotinus as the 'indivisible exhibited in diversity'.

Concentrating ourselves on the definition of beauty as harmony, which elements comprise this harmony? Augustine does not mention them explicitly, but calls this harmony in *ciu.* XXII 30 also a *rationabilis pulchritudo*, that is to say a beauty characterized by the right proportions. However, we can trace the constituent elements of beauty as a harmony when looking at statements about interiorized beauty. He remarks that beauty first of all contains *justice*, *e.g.* the beauty of the soul of a man is justice, no matter how ugly this man may be: 'justice is a sort of beauty of the soul that makes men beautiful, although many of them have distorted and deformed bodies' (*trin.* VIII 6.9). Even when a man is old and hunchbacked, you can see in him the beauty of justice.[6] So the first of the constituent elements of beauty must be justice. That is not surprising, as beauty, in the Plotinian context, must always be connected to the good. And that which is *good*, must also be *just* in Augustine's view. *Justice* is therefore the first element of the harmony qualifying beauty.

The most illuminating example of this beautiful justice, is, in Augustine's eyes, Christ. We come across many descriptions of Christ's beauty, namely in the *en. Ps.* However, this particular beauty is often contrasted with the state in which mankind lives. On the one hand we have the beauty of Christ, on the other the foulness of man. Once he has defined this extreme contrast however, Augustine transforms it into an allegory of love. Christ is designed as the beautiful groom who desires to cleanse the filth of mankind. So in *en. Ps.* 44.3:

'He loved filthiness in order that it should not remain filthy; he disposed of our foulness and made beauty. To us, who believe in Him, we cannot escape the beauty of this groom. It surrounds us. He was beautiful in Heaven, beautiful on earth, beautiful in the womb, beautiful in the hands of his parents, beautiful in miracles, beautiful under torture, beautiful when inviting at life, beautiful when not curing death, beautiful in laying down his soul, beautiful in taking it again, beautiful on the cross, beautiful in the grave, beautiful in heaven. He is the utterly true beauty of justice. You will not see his beauty anywhere you meet injustice.'

This furnishes us with a second element of the harmony of beauty. When the beauty of Christ is contrasted in the first place with the foulness of men and this antagonism is secondly transformed into an allegory of love, then beauty

[6] *En. Ps.* 32 (II).6: *Iustitiam uiderunt, in qua pulcher est curuus senex. Non enim si procedat senex iustus, est aliquid in eius corpore quod ametur, et tamen amatur ab omnibus.*

Digitized by Google

is not only composed of by *justice*, but also by *love*. Beauty even becomes inexhaustible when *amor* is part of it (*en. Ps.* 83.8).

But there is also a third element. When talking about love as an element of beauty, Augustine also includes *grace* amongst the elements forming the harmony of beauty. However, to be able to do so, he must fall back on the classical meaning of *gratia*: *sweetness*, *loveliness*. Let us look at the following text, taken from *en. Ps.* 103 (I).4: 'You look for beauty, this is good. But ask yourself, soul, why are you looking for beauty? Surely in order that the groom should love you, although your filthiness displeases him. Is he like that? No, his figure is beautiful among the sons of men. And you, filthy soul, you want to kiss this beautiful man? You do not even wait because you are full of iniquities. But from his lips, grace is flowing': *diffusa est gratia in labiis tuis.*

The verse quoted here by Augustine from the 45th *Psalm* clearly speaks of the loveliness of the lips of the groom. But at the same time, given the fact that the foulness of man is to be swept away by the beauty of Christ, it must be understood as grace. It is a play on words and he uses the same pun in the fragment that follows about the soul seen as a woman promised to Christ. He then quotes the *Song of Songs* and says that the soul can only become beautiful when she confesses her faults to Christ who is always beauty. Then the grace of Christ will cleanse and illuminate her: *gratia dealbans et illuminans.* That is grace bestowed upon a sinner. But also sweetness preparing the soul like a woman for her groom! This two-fold meaning of *gratia* rarely occurs in Augustine. In fact Augustine hardly ever uses *gratia* in the sense of beauty, as Drecoll already stated in the Augustinian Lexicon, let alone that he uses it in the double sense of the word. I have only been able to see it in his quotations of *Proverbs* 31:30, *e.g.* in *s.* 37.29, a sermon about the perfect wife. So the beautiful harmony of the non-corporeal world consists of three things: justice, love and grace.

But, do grace and justice support each other? Do they really form a harmony? For, as many argued,[7] justice is always founded on reason. It has to establish an equilibrium between merits and faults. Grace on the other hand, has nothing to do with merits, otherwise it wouldn't be grace but a due. Can these conflicting terms coexist in Christ when considered as elements of his beauty?

In order to answer that question, we return to the mask of Dionysus. He wanted to capture the beauty of the mask and pass it on to his children. But, says Augustine, he wanted to steal it driven by concupiscence: *pulchritudinem concupiscendo quodam modo raperet.* Concupiscence and beauty however do not go together in Augustine's view. Julian of Eclanum was opposed to this idea, a point of view Augustine vividly refuted. Just imagine that concupiscence is something good, then the libido could be considered as its fairest expression,

[7] Most recently Donato Ogliari, *The Relationship Between Grace and Free Will in the Discussion of Augustine with the So-Called Semipelagians* (Louvain, 2003).

Digitized by Google

having as an ultimate consequence that Christ would be the most libidinous person imaginable: *esse in carne libidinosissimus debuit* (*c. Iul. imp.* IV 49). No, he blames Julian for his opinion and does so in several ironical ways. In this ironical tone of voice, the word *pulchritudo* also has a role to play. *E.g.* in *c. Iul. imp.* IV 22 *illa pulchra suscepta concupiscentia* [scilicet *carnis*]. Julian is alone in considering concupiscence as beauty instead of foulness. (*pulchra nimis*), Augustine adds in *c. Iul imp.* II 218. Beauty is profoundly destabilized by concupiscence and then is no longer harmonious. It becomes foulness and can only be used in an ironical way.

Hence, concupiscence is to be condemned as it already was for other reasons. And this destabilized beauty can only be restored by a judgment, by exercising justice, as Augustine states in *Ennar. in Ps.* 91.13.

In conclusion, ultimately the harmonious character of beauty and the fact that it profoundly is an *ordo*, implies a judgment. Therefore, among the composite elements of harmonious beauty (*justice*, *love* and *grace*), *justice* is perhaps the most important. Augustine never abandons the Plotinian and Platonic scheme in which the beautiful is necessarily linked to the good. Beauty therefore has a profoundly moral character and never became for Augustine a notion that escapes the conflict between good and evil and that which illustrates the power of grace. Therefore, the more grace gains importance (after 420), the more beauty loses power. The more Christian themes become important, the more the classical ones fade away.[8] Augustinian beauty is not an element of what will become western esthetics or western art, although western art is unthinkable without the subjectivism of which Augustine traced the first contours. His beauty is essentially pre-modern, a classical element that can be used at best as an aspect of a traditional theodicy. Neither in soteriology nor in epistemology, does beauty imply a hidden path to God. As he puts it in *conf.* XI 4.6, we may see beauty, but it is incomparable to God's beauty. Compared to His knowledge, our knowledge is only ignorance.

Beauty does not exist in itself. It only exists in order to overcome the scattered self and become the expression of the connected self.[9] It has no right to be a reality in its own right; it is God's right.

[8] We therefore do not agree with the thesis recently developed by Carol Harrison of a great continuity in the work of Augustine. There are great fractures. See, Carol Harrison, *Rethinking Augustine's Early Theology: An Argument for Continuity* (Oxford, 2006).

[9] Sandra Lee Dixon, *Augustine: The Scattered and Gathered Self* (St. Louis, 1999).

Digitized by Google

Digitized by Google

Augustine, the *Timaeus* and the Cosmogonical Fallacy

Michael W. Tkacz, Spokane, Washington

Jean Guitton rightly said that for St. Augustine it was precisely with respect to the eternity or non-eternity of the world that we find the frontier between paganism and Christianity.[1] Among the territories commonly found on the pagan side of this frontier is what might be called the Cosmogonical Fallacy, the notion that creation is some sort of passage from potentiality to actuality or that creation involves something presupposed. This fallacy was clearly and consistently rejected by medieval scholastics as incompatible with the notion of creation *ex nihilo*.[2] Yet, it was entertained as a possible way of describing the divine act of creation throughout late antiquity.[3] In the Latin West, an important source for this fallacy was Plato's *Timaeus* provided in the Latin versions of Cicero and Calcidius. Augustine was among the Christian authors who confronted this fallacy in its Timaean form and attempted to correct it according to the requirements of Christian doctrine. In doing so, he helped to establish both the theological doctrine of creation *ex nihilo* as well as its association with the rejection of the Cosmogonical Fallacy.

The purpose of this brief study is to draw attention to Augustine's appropriation of Plato's argument for the existence of a cosmic demiurge at *Timaeus* 27d-28c. In attempting to adapt this argument to a Christian notion of creation, Augustine implicitly confronts the Cosmogonical Fallacy forcing him to make some amendments to Plato's argument in an effort to preserve it as a philosophical model of cosmic origins for the theist.

1. The Cosmogonical Fallacy

The philosophical intelligibility of creation is a significant theme throughout the history of Christian thought. As early as the second century there are indications of the doctrine of creation *ex nihilo*, often stated in contrast to the

[1] Jean Guitton, *Le temps et l'éternité chez Plotin et Saint Augustin* (Paris, 1971), 207.

[2] For references, see Steven Earl Baldner and William E. Carroll, *Aquinas on Creation* (Toronto, 1997).

[3] David T. Runia, Plato's *Timaeus*, First Principle(s), and Creation in Philo and Early Christian Thought, in: *Plato's Timaeus as Cultural Icon*, Gretchen J. Reydams-Schils (ed.) (Notre Dame, Indiana, 2003), 133-51.

Studia Patristica XLIX, 15-20.
© Peeters Publishers, 2010.

Digitized by Google

fabracationist and emanationist teachings of the pagans.[4] Imbedded in the alternative account of the Christians was an implicit or explicit opposition to the mistaken notion of creation as a kind of change or becoming. In its most developed form, the Christian notion of *ex nihilo* creation included two important and distinct claims. First, creation presupposes nothing in the created thing. God's creative agency does not require any pre-existing material stuff nor a pre-existing potentiality of any kind. The attempt to explain creation as the passage from a pre-existing potentiality to the actual production of a new thing confuses natural change with God's unique act of creation. Second, creation is *ex nihilo* because non-being is logically prior to the being of the created thing. Without God's creative agency, the creature does not exist and is, therefore, wholly dependent on God. Creation is, then, a real relation of the created thing to its creator, but not of the creator to the created thing. This relation is grounded in God's efficient agency alone which rules out any relatedness on the part of God toward the creature, while preserving the relation of total dependency of the creature on God. To hold that God is really related to his creation is to confuse natural relations, which are accidental, with the unique relation of absolute dependence of the creature on God, which implies nothing accidental in God.[5]

This fallacious conflation of natural change and creation *ex nihilo* constitutes the Cosmogonical Fallacy. The changes found in the natural world are actualizations of the potentialities found in natural objects. As such they require pre-existing actualities in which the potentialities reside. This is quite different from creation which is the production of something in the whole of its being, presupposing nothing uncreated. God, then, is clearly distinguished from any natural cause and, in so doing, the absolute ontological dependence of everything on a single divine act of creation is preserved. God alone is first cause and this cause is unique in species. Those who conceive the origin of the universe as the work of fabrication by some divine craftsman, such as Plato, commit the Cosmogonical Fallacy. Thus, the Christian philosopher who looks to Plato for an intellectual account of creation, must exercise care lest the doctrine of creation *ex nihilo* be compromised through the commission of the Cosmogonical Fallacy.

Christians came to this clear conception of the Cosmogonical Fallacy only slowly. Even Augustine's careful exegetical and philosophical accounts of creation do not contain a clear and complete account of the fallacy and its implications. Nonetheless, exegesis indicates some care to avoid precisely this error. In marking the difference between the eternal universe of the pagan philosophers

[4] Gerhard May, *Creatio ex nihilo: The Doctrine of Creation out of Nothing in Early Christian Thought* (Edinburgh, 1994).

[5] This is the form of the Cosmogonical Fallacy given by Thomas Aquinas in his *Super Sententiarum Lombardi* 2.1.1 and *Summa Theologica* Ia.45. See Steven Earl Baldner and William E. Carroll, *Aquinas on Creation* (1997) for discussion.

Digitized by Google

and the Christian notion of the origin of the universe *ab initio temporis*, for example, Augustine distinguishes between two aspects of God's causality as creator. In his literal commentary on Genesis, he notes the difference of God's original creation as a single atemporal act and his sustaining administration of creatures existing in time.[6] Both of these divine actions, he insists, are eternal and simple in their divine origin, but are diverse in their effects in creation and, therefore, must be distinguished.[7] Imbedded in this exegetical account is a concern to avoid any conflation of God's causal power with that exercised in the natural world. Prompted by this attempt to distinguish the eternal world of the pagans with the created world of the Christians, Augustine insists on a relation of total dependence of the creature on the creator. Thus, he is aware, at some level of analysis, of the pagans' error in treating God as a species of natural cause.[8]

2. Plato's cosmogonical argument

The *Timaeus* (27d-28c) provides an argument based on perception for the divine origins of the universe that was known to Augustine in the Latin version of Cicero.[9] The intention is to show that four premises concerning the perceptibility and dependency of the contents of the cosmos require the conclusion that the cosmos is divinely made. In outline form, the argument can be summarized in the following manner:

[1] The cosmos is perceptible;
[2] everything perceptible comes into being;
[3] everything that comes into being does so by a causal agent (*actor*);
[4] every causal agent must be a craftsman (*opifex et fabricator*);
[5] therefore, the cosmos comes into being by the agency of a craftsman.[10]

This Platonic argument contains the notion that the cosmos reveals its own origin in the divine craftsmen and that this revelation is accomplished through human perception. This is a notion that Augustine will later emphasize with respect to the *Genesis* account. The divine agency of the craftsman is manifest in things as perceived, for things appear to be made and on the basis of this can be known as made.

[6] *Gn. litt.* 5.11.27 and 4.12.22.

[7] *Gn. litt.* 5.5.12.

[8] See the useful discussion of Steven Earl Baldner and William E. Carroll, *Aquinas on Creation* (1997), 1-11.

[9] Pierre Paul Courcelle, *Late Latin Writers and their Greek Sources*, transl. Harry E. Wedeck (Cambridge, Massachusetts, 1969), 169f.

[10] For the Latin text, see *M. Tulli Ciceronis scripta quae manserunt omnia* (Leipzig, 1975), fasc. 46. For discussion see Carlos Lévy, Cicero and the Timaeus, in: *Plato's Timaeus as Cultural Icon* (2003), 95-110.

Digitized by Google

Another important element of the argument is the notion of matter that is implicitly assumed. Uncreated, pre-existing, and available to the craftsman for imposing the forms, the origin of matter is not here given. Cicero's Latin version gives a special prominence to the Timaean notion of the pre-existing material, by translating Plato's *ousia* by *materia*.[11] Carlos Lévy points out that this shows how difficult it was for Cicero to distance himself from the Stoic conception of matter that was associated with Plato's text in antiquity.[12] In his very source for Plato's argument, then, Augustine was presented with an account of matter that prompted concern about the Cosmogonical Fallacy. It is precisely this that demanded Augustine's adaptations and amendments to the argument.

3. Augustine's amended argument

Augustine provides such an amended argument in book eleven of his *Confessions*, prefacing his account with a prayer asking God to grant him understanding of how in the beginning you made the heaven and the earth (*conf.* XI 3.5).[13] Taking Moses as the author of the Genesis account, in the traditional manner, he expresses a desire to consult the patriarch were he still living and a Latin speaker. As he is not, Augustine will rely on the fact that the heavens and the earth proclaim their own creation (*clamant quod facta sint*),[14] indicating that he clearly takes the Genesis account to be verifiable by reason. Such an indication that signs discernable by the rational observer play a crucial role in both philosophical understanding and the exegesis of the sacred text is a common element in Augustine's thought.[15]

Explicitly connecting the evidence of creation in observable things to their rationally discernable characteristic of changeability, he presents his amended argument:

'[The heavens and the earth] proclaim that they have been made. For they undergo change and variation. Given that a thing has not been made and yet exits, then there is nothing there that was not there before. But it is the very essence of change and variation that something is made that was not there before. [So, the heavens and the earth] proclaim that they did not make themselves: We exist, [they say,] because we have been made and we did not exist before we existed so as to be able to give ourselves existence.

[11] For references, see Noemi Lambardi, *Il Timaeus ciceroniano: Arte e tecnica del vertere*, Quaderni di filologia latina 2 (Florence, 1982), 124-42.

[12] Carlos Lévy, Cicero (2003), 104f.

[13] Christopher Kirwan in his *Augustine* (London, 1989), 152-5, provides a comparative analysis of this text in light of Plato's *Timaeus* argument which I follow in part. On at least one difference between my analysis and that of Kirwan, see my conclusion below.

[14] This is echoed at *conf.* 9.10.25 and 10.6.9. See also *ciu.* 11.4.2 where the term *proclamat* is used.

[15] *doctr. chr.* 2.1.1; *dial.* 5.7.

Digitized by Google

And the voice in which [the heavens and the earth] speak is the visible evidence of their existence. It was you, O Lord, who made them.' (*conf.* XI 4.6)

Based at least partly on the *Timaeus* text as translated by Cicero, this argument is used by Augustine as the core of a longer philosophical argument for a divine creation. To this core argument, he adds three amendments intended to avoid the Cosmogonical Fallacy.

Whereas Plato's argument began with the presumption that the cosmos is perceptible and that every perceptible being is generated, Augustine assumes without argument that the cosmos is subject to change. Thus, Augustine leaves aside Plato's concern to explicitly connect sense perception and generation. Augustine also collapses Plato's two premises that all perceptible being is generated and every generated being is the result of an agent cause into the claim that everything that changes must have been created. This, he indicates is equivalent to the claim that what has not been created is unchangeable. Finally, Augustine provides a variation on Plato's doctrine of the divine craftsman (*dimiourgos*) by substituting creation (*creatio*) in place of the Platonic notion of fabrication (*fabricatio*).

This last amendment to the argument is an attempt to avoid the problem of pre-existing matter, for it was clear to Augustine that Plato's craftsman necessarily worked with already existing material in some sense. In order to distance himself from hint of Cosmogonical Fallacy, Augustine had to rework the proof in such a way that he was not committed to a demiurge that proceeds in his fabrication of the universe by looking to forms that were not of his own making and imprinting them on matter also not of his own making. The *ex nihilo* nature of creation in Christian doctrine meant that God had to be conceived as creating without requiring or using any pre-existing materials. Augustine is quite explicit on this point:

'You, [O God,] are not like a [human] craftsman forming a body from another body by a decision (*arbitratu*) of his soul, which is able to give existence to a form (*speciem*) that it sees in itself by its internal eye.' (*conf.* XI 5.7)

Augustine may also have been concerned to distance himself from the Stoic conception of matter implied by Cicero's decision to render *ousia* as *materia*. Augustine would have been familiar from Cicero's other works with the Stoic doctrine of *ousia* as a passive *prote hyle* upon which *logos* acts in the creation of the cosmos.[16] Confronted in his source text with Cicero's claim that, according to Plato, God created the eternal world from a matter that received everything, Augustine would have been especially careful to insist that matter had no existence independent of the creator.

Confirmation that the amended version of the *Timaeus* argument is an attempt to avoid the Cosmogonical Fallacy can be found in Augustine's own

[16] Carlos Lévy, Cicero (2003), 104.

Digitized by Google

textual commentaries on Genesis. Concerned with Manichaean errors about origins, Augustine insists that any attempt to claim that God did not create the cosmos *ex nihilo* compromises divine omnipotence:

> 'As the builder does not make the wood, but makes something from the wood, so it is with all other craftsmen of this kind. The omnipotent God, however, did not require the assistance of anything he himself had not made in order that his will be done. For if he was assisted in making the things he willed to make by another thing that he had not made, he was not omnipotent and to believe that is sacrilege.' (*Gn. adu. Man.* 1.6.10)

Even in those texts where Augustine speaks of God as creating the heavens and the earth from unformed matter, he is careful to insist that God also creates the matter, because he who provides things with their form (*formam*) also provides the possibility of their being formed (*f. et symb.* 2.2).

4. Conclusion

A recent scholar, Christopher Kirwan, claims that Augustine's replacement of the Platonic notion of fabrication with creation *ex nihilo* rests on a simple dissociation of Platonism from the biblical account rather than argument.[17] Kirwan suggests that whereas Plato can anticipate the Aristotelian doctrine that every change, including coming into existence, imprints pre-existing form on pre-existing matter, Augustine feels compelled by his reading of Genesis to assert that God 'held nothing in his hand from which to make heaven and earth' (*conf.* XI 5.7).

Yet, this does not sufficiently reckon with Augustine's concern to avoid the Cosmogonical Fallacy. The point of Augustine's distinction between fabrication and creation is that, while fabrication may account for the origin of the sensible forms in the cosmos, it cannot account for the existence of the cosmos itself. Plato's approach to origins remains at the level of a cosmology and does not rise to the level of a cosmogony in the true sense. Augustine's amendments to the Timaean argument are prompted by his awareness that a true account of origins cannot leave unanswered questions about the source of what is required to fabricate the cosmos. The only way to account for cosmic existence and avoid the Cosmogonical Fallacy is to mark the distinction between fabricating and creating *ex nihilo*. The difference is discovered in precisely those issues to which the Cosmogonical Fallacy is relevant: the distinction between natural cause and the divine act of creation and the lack of any pre-existing principle of the cosmos. Augustine may not have articulated the Cosmogonical Fallacy in the clear and complete form later provided by Thomas Aquinas, yet it is present and operative in his appropriation of Plato's *Timaeus* argument as a philosophical model for the exegesis of the Genesis account of creation.

[17] Christopher Kirwan, *Augustine* (1989), 154f.

Digitized by Google

Continuities and Discrepancies in Augustine's View on Concupiscence and Baptism (410-30)

Timo NISULA, Helsinki

At the beginning of the fifth century, from 410-420, Augustine introduces and emphasizes the role of concupiscence more explicitly as part of Christian renewal. Augustine's earlier accounts seem to only vaguely refer to the effects of concupiscence upon a Christian *sub gratia*. These accounts tend to depict concupiscence as a menacing and powerful force binding mainly those who do not yet have received the grace of God,[1] but his later view during the Pelagian struggle seems to view concupiscence as 'internalised' by Christians in their lives, articulating more clearly the presence and effects of concupiscence in a baptised Christian.[2]

It is suggested here that this internalising process also appears – somewhat surprisingly and paradoxically – as what is referred to here as a 'domestication of concupiscence'. While consistently maintaining that concupiscence is indeed an evil (*malum*), or a defect of the human soul, Augustine constantly mitigates and qualifies the effects and dangers of concupiscence during Christian renewal in his anti-Pelagian works. In the context of Christian renewal, there are various signs of this process of domestication. These signs are considered in more detail in this paper.

First, on a rather general level, Augustine is very keen to stress the resistibility of concupiscence, as well as its internalisation in Christian renewal. During his debate with Julian of Aeclanum, Augustine refutes all caricatures made by Julian that suggest Augustine would defend a view in which concupiscence makes the Christian helplessly driven by his or her desires. Julian had also claimed that Augustine characterises concupiscence as a (crypto-Manichaean) necessitating force which cannot be resisted. On the contrary, Augustine objects that only under Christian renewal, or *sub gratia*, are we actually able to resist

[1] See *e.g.* Augustine, *Simpl.* 1.1.10. Recently, Carol Harrison has pointed out texts of 390s in which the presence of concupiscence in the Christian is acknowledged, most notably *diu. qu.* 66; *exp. prop. Rm.* 45-6; *exp. Gal.* 46. C. Harrison, *Rethinking Augustine's early theology* (Cambridge, 2006), 130-2. But even these works show ambiguities which are cleared only later: thus, in *diu. qu.* 66,1 (CChr.SL 44A, 152): *spiritus* [...] *facit ut non concupiscamus*; *exp. prop. Rm.* 12 (CSEL 84, 7-8): *spiritus* [...] *fixus in gratia et caritate dei, desinit peccare.*

[2] See E. TeSelle, Exploring the Inner Conflict: Augustine's Sermons on Romans 7 and 8, in: F. van Fleteren and J. Schnaubelt (eds.), *Augustine: Biblical exegete*, CollAug 5 (New York, 2001), 313-45.

Studia Patristica XLIX, 21-25.
© Peeters Publishers, 2010.

Digitized by Google

and conquer the temptations of concupiscence.[3] It is to be noted here that Augustine's objections to these caricatures sound as if he were astonished and incredulous (*c. ep. Pel.* 1.24: *absit ut dicamus sicut iste calumniatur*).[4]

Several motifs recur in Augustine's anti-Pelagian works, accentuating the mitigated status of concupiscence in Christian renewal. The first motif, to name but a few, is concupiscence viewed as a useful sparring partner.[5] The second is an emphasis on a daily repentance of the relatively harmless and temporary lapses in consenting to 'the law of sin'.[6] The third is the notion that the passive and sensed movements of concupiscence are not harmful in the sense that they could be viewed as sins during Christian renewal.[7] Finally, concupiscence is compared to other, much more serious, forms of sin (pride being the foremost example of these).[8] Augustine's pastoral motives are, of course, evident here. His anti-Pelagian works were not intended to be read solely by his opponents, but they were also meant to spur and encourage Augustine's Catholic audience.[9]

Eugene TeSelle has noted how Augustine, in his anti-Pelagian works, 'appropriates and internalizes' concupiscence and 'brings it closer to the centre of the person'.[10] This is, indeed, one of Augustine's central issues during his critique of Pelagian theology. Nevertheless, one has to add the necessary qualification of 'in Christian renewal', for Augustine is now only interested in what happens with concupiscence *sub gratia*. For instance, Augustine never tires in pointing out to his Catholic readers how the temptations of concupiscence are really 'ours', and they happen 'in us'. At first glance, these assertions are of course designed to counter the accusations about Augustine's concealed Manichaeism. But they also give form to Augustine's growing concern that concupiscence actually also belongs to the life of a Christian. This can only be with the reservation that concupiscence is no longer seen as an invincible bond with an iron-grip presence,[11] and which would be able to drive the renewed person to serious crimes and shameful passions. After baptism, Augustine contends, concupiscence can be effectively resisted. For this reason, one can speak of an actual resistance to concupiscence only in Christian renewal; only a Christian has been given the insight to acknowledge concupiscence as something that

[3] *E.g. c. ep. Pel.* 1.13; 1.24; *c. Iul.* 3.49.

[4] Even in *c. Iul. imp.*, Augustine holds to the view of resistibility of *concupiscentia*, despite his sometimes polarized accounts on the necessity of *concupiscentia* in the renewed state. See *c. Iul. imp.* 1.67; 5.50-62; 6.41. Julian's critique (*c. Iul. imp.* 1.71-2, CSEL 85,1, 84) seems here accurate enough: *est peccatum et non peccat, id est una res est et non est.*

[5] *pecc. mer.* 2.4.

[6] *E.g. pecc. mer.* 2.3-4; *spir. et. litt.* 56; 65; *perf. iust.* 18-20; 28; 44; *nupt. et conc.* 1.13; *c. ep. Pel.* 1.27; *c. Iul.* 3.30.

[7] *E.g. cont.* 19-20.

[8] *E.g. cont.* 13; *c. Iul.* 4.10.

[9] This pertains even to *c. Iul. imp.* See Thomas Martin, *Rhetoric and Exegesis in Augustine's interpretation of Romans 7:24-25a* (Lewiston, 2001), 196f.

[10] E. TeSelle, Exploring the Inner Conflict (2001), 323.

[11] For such a view, see *Simpl.* 1.1.10.

Digitized by Google

should be resisted, and only a Christian has, by the grace of Christ, the means to resist concupiscence.[12]

Augustine also advocates his new insights on concupiscence in the state of renewal by certain conceptual innovations and rearrangements. Let us first consider guilt (*reatus*) and then consent (*consensio*).

The idea that the guilt of original sin, transmitted through concupiscence, could be detached from its carrier is first presented in 411/2, in *pecc. mer.*[13] Julian later wages destructive criticism against Augustine's outline of how exactly baptism effects the detachment of guilt from concupiscence,[14] but the most important issue to notice is the motivation for this invention. Detached *reatus* is an auxiliary concept through which Augustine once more emphasizes the neutralized and relatively harmless state of concupiscence in Christian renewal. By this invention, Augustine efficiently reconstructs his former visions of concupiscence as a dangerously compelling, involuntary force in humankind living *sub lege*.[15]

Another auxiliary concept, namely consent, should be counted among the continuities in Augustine's views related to concupiscence. Consent is already present in his earliest accounts on the soul and sin,[16] and plays an equally important part in his later anti-Pelagian works. However, I would venture to suggest that while no changes are apparent in the way Augustine sees the operation of consent, there seems to be a shift in the context in which it appears. If we compare the account of consent in *s. dom. m.* to those appearing in later anti-Pelagian works, a new concern is reflected in Augustine's use of this concept.[17] For now consent is introduced in an expressly Christian *sub gratia* state and nearly always accompanied with mitigating saving clauses. Furthermore, acts of consent to the temptations of concupiscence may not be avoided altogether in this life; even so, during genuine Christian renewal, these are and should be incidental, producing only venial and relatively minor sins (such as when a Christian married couple has intercourse in order to achieve sensual pleasure without intending to procreate).[18] Here the strict analysis of *s. dom. m.*, beginning with *suggestion – delectation – consensio* and proceeding to *cogitatio – factum – consuetudo* in explaining how human beings come to be enslaved under sin's dominion, has given way to a more nuanced and lenient attitude in dealing with consent, at least in a Christian life led under grace.

[12] *cont.* 7.

[13] *pecc. mer.* 2.4; 2.45-6.

[14] See Josef Lössl, *Julian von Aeclanum*, SVigChr 60 (Leiden, 2001), 115f.

[15] The problem of concupiscence as an involuntary evil surfaces explicitly in *c. Iul. imp.* 5.64. At the same time, however, Augustine holds to the critical role of individual consent in determining whether, despite of the presence of an involuntary evil in a Christian, actual sins are committed. See above n. 4.

[16] See *Gn. adu. Man.* 2.20.

[17] *s. dom. m.* 1.34-5, especially the section, in which the actions of Christ's grace take place only after the sequence of consent and sin.

[18] *E.g. nupt. et conc.* 1.13.

Digitized by Google

The most evident discrepancy in Augustine's views on concupiscence is his reading of *Rom.* 7. During the 390s, Augustine thought that Paul's description was only applicable to people living 'under law', but during the 410s, this reading was gradually corrected with another one. By 420, in *c. ep. Pel.*, Augustine explicitly admits having made a mistake: the words of *Rom.* 7 belong to Paul himself, and thereby to a Christian experiencing renewal.[19] This change of reading is of course not an arbitrary event, but related to Augustine's approach to the domestication of concupiscence. Paul admits that there is a 'sin living in me', a 'law of sin' that is situated in him, that is, in his flesh. Hence, Augustine likewise sees concupiscence as being integral to Christian renewal. But how does Augustine explain those details in Paul's description that seem to underline the compulsory and constraining features of concupiscence?

Nupt. et conc. shows how Augustine actively appropriates the renewed Paul of *Rom.* 7 to fit his view of tamed concupiscence. Augustine's tendency is strong and constant: he wishes to downplay all the innuendos of compulsive inclinations to sin found in Paul's narrative. The basic structure of Augustine's interpretation in an extensive section dealing with *Rom.* 7 is to read Paul as exhorting Christians not to lack evil desires, but 'to not obey them'.[20]

Rom. 7 is interpreted completely in terms of concupiscence and its effects on the Christian struggle. Paradoxically, this means for Augustine, that he has to use softening lenses in reading those verses that stress the compulsory nature of sin and its strong grip on humans. The complaints of Paul's *ego* over his involuntary state are seen as complaints of a Christian who yearns for perfection. Paul's plain active verbal forms, claiming to commit sins he does not accept (*quod odi facio*) are interpreted by Augustine as representing a more passive state of 'having' concupiscence.[21]

Rom. 7:23 forms perhaps the most serious challenge to Augustine's reading. For Paul seems here to depict the agony of his renewed self in much more pessimistic tones than suits Augustine's view of the presence of concupiscence in a baptised Christian. Augustine admits that interpreting the words *captivantem me* in a correct way presents difficulties. Augustine's own solution entails a controversial reading, namely, one has to add *'conantem'* in order to fully understand Paul. Augustine would accept the verb *captivare* as referring to the body, and then Paul would mean 'holding my flesh in captivity'. However, as the word *caro* does not appear in the text, and Paul explicitly says that concupiscence

[19] Recent contributions are Bruno Delaroche, *Saint Augustin lecteur et interprète de saint Paul dans le De peccatorum meritis et remissione (hiver 411-412)* (Paris, 1996); E. TeSelle, Exploring the Inner Conflict (2001); Frederick van Fleteren, Augustine's Evolving Exegesis of Romans 7:22-23 in its Pauline Context: *AS* 32 (2001) 89-114; Marleen Verschoren, 'I do the evil that I do not will': Augustine and Julian on Romans 7:5-25 during the second Pelagian controversy (418-430): *Augustiniana* 54 (2004) 223-42.

[20] *nupt. et conc.* 1.30-6.

[21] See the slightly different account in *c. Iul. imp.* 5.59.

Digitized by Google

'holds *me* in captivity', he actually must mean that concupiscence is only trying and attempting to capture 'me' as a renewed Christian.

Augustine concludes his exegesis in *Rom.* 7 by rehearsing the most important points. Paul as well as all Christians fight off and defeat their carnal captivity and the temptations of concupiscence with their new spirit (*lex mentis meae*), even though there is still a presence of evil desires in their mortal bodies. Augustine's goal is evident: he needs to modify and mitigate the effects of the involuntary concupiscence of Paul's narrative and to explain them as being relatively harmless and ineffective. In other words, Augustine argues that it is perfectly possible to control concupiscence by a renewed will that has been given by grace. Augustine eloquently expresses his position in the form of the metaphor taken from warfare. For baptised Christians, concupiscence is a defeated enemy, still waging a desperate guerrilla war in our lives. Even though concupiscence still holds some insignificant ground and has some prisoners-of-war (*aliquid*), it is a weak and defeated force (*victus*); therefore, the renewed Christian has no need to worry of the final outcome of this war.[22]

In conclusion, while Augustine begins to realise that concupiscence needs to be realistically identified as a part of a problem for Christians, he makes concupiscence part of the solution. Therefore, when concupiscence is mentioned in the context of renewal in the earlier works, it is mainly described as being a strong, 'invincible' bond, binding a person who is living 'under law'. The real effects of concupiscence on Christian renewal thus seem to be only lurking in the background. Gradually, Augustine develops his views in this respect and begins to assign concupiscence a distinct role in Christian renewal. This, however, also has its implications: the strength of concupiscence is consequently re-evaluated and effectively downplayed. While concupiscence still remains in the body of a Christian, it is now conceived as only a sparring partner. Certainly the 'movements' of concupiscence are felt, but they are forgiven movements and as such are powerless or harmless, lest one goes with them, once again reconnecting with the old Adamic guilt. Thus Augustine's later emphasis on concupiscence seems to represent a rather qualified and restricted view when compared to his previous ones. Concupiscence begins to look more like a caged and castrated beast, living in the inner courts of the Christian heart, instead of a raging force of nature outside the 'citadel of virtue'.[23]

Nearly all of Augustine's anti-Pelagian works strongly emphasise the abilities of a person under grace to control and rein in concupiscence through God's help. A baptised Christian may therefore live relatively safely with this old adversary, by keeping its leash short, and whenever it manages to bite, to run for a cure in Christ.

[22] *nupt. et conc.* 1.35.

[23] The citadel of virtue is a metaphor Augustine uses in two highly interesting passages: *lib. arb.* 1.20-4 and *c. Iul.* 3.65. In the previous text, *libido* is located outside the virtuous self, in the latter text, such a view is ironised.

Digitized by Google

Digitized by Google

Signs of the Fall: Exilic Vision in Augustine

Joshua C. DAVIES, Chattanooga, Tennessee

Augustine's view onto the perceptible world took the form of a diptych.[1] The first panel abounds in marvels, from the night sky above and the endless variety of colors and tastes below to the singular endowments of the rational animal. He engages such things through an 'interrogation', which discovers them to be signs pointing to the Creator, and through a practice of meditative ascent that is an act of pious praise and a source of spiritual delight countering disordered love of the temporal.[2] The other panel of his vision, on the contrary, is filled with the miseries of human life, including disease, violence, mutilation, the cataclysms of nature, ignorance, and the constant fear of betrayal. These things too bespeak a reality beyond themselves, the prior condemnation of the human race: *omnem mortalium progeniem fuisse damnatam, haec ipsa vita ... tot et tantis malis plena testatur.*[3] Touching on this aspect of his thought, critics have often noted that he turns to one thing or another – especially the unbidden stirrings of sexuality – as evidence of Original Sin.[4] What is lacking in the scholarship is an appreciation of the fact that he also had a moral and ascetic approach to the ensemble of these markers of condemnation.[5] Augustine found it just as useful, ethically and spiritually, to look down into the shadows of deprivation as to gaze up along the shining stairway of substances. His sermons model a meditation upon these signs of the Fall meant as a necessary complement to the contemplative ascent rising through nature towards the Creator.

The Israelite weeping over the waters of Babylon – in the 136th Psalm of the Latin Bible – provided Augustine with a memorable icon of the spectator of sorrows. On the literal level, this captive sits looking down on the streams of exile, grieving so deeply in recollection of Sion that, when requested to sing its songs,

[1] *civ.* 22.22-4 supply the details in this paragraph.

[2] Famously at *conf.* 10.6.9 and 10.40.65.

[3] *civ.* 22.22 (Dombart and Kalb, 1993, 603): '[T]his life itself.., full of sorrows so many and so great, bears witness that the whole race of mortals has been condemned.' All translations are my own.

[4] *E.g.* John Rist, *Augustine: Ancient Thought Baptized* (Cambridge, 1994), 136f.; Paul Griffith, *Lying: An Augustinian Theology of Duplicity* (Grand Rapids, Michigan, 2004), 65.

[5] Even R.A. Markus, *Signs and Meanings* (Liverpool, 1996), says nothing about it. Nor does Cornelius Mayer in *AL* vol. 2 (Basel, 1986-1994), 56-116, 'Creatio, creator, creatura', though he has insightful remarks on Augustine's 'spirituelle Programm' of contemplation through created things (104-8).

Studia Patristica XLIX, 27-31.
© Peeters Publishers, 2010.

Digitized by Google

he hangs up his instrument and lays a curse on himself should he forget Jerusalem. Through a typological interpretation, Augustine explains in his *enarratio* that the Israelite foreshadows the spiritual Christian, the alien land and its rivers symbolize life after the Fall, and Sion represents eternal beatitude in Heaven. Each Christian can become the spiritual fulfillment of this figure: *omnia quae secundum litteram in illa civitate contingebant*, he says, *figuras nostras fuisse*;[6] and *iste homo nos sumus, si volumus*.[7] But how does this come about?

Standard grief, such as tends to follow the sudden loss of temporal things once enjoyed, or such as arises during public disasters, will not do. This amounts merely to Babylonian weeping (*fletu Babylonio*),[8] as Augustine names it: one weeps at finding Babylon in decline rather than at finding oneself in Babylon. The preacher proposes instead that suffering be looked for in the midst of satisfaction: *cum autem bene est tibi, arrident omnia saecularia ... ibi inveni tribulationem, si aliquid potes*.[9] Just as the captive deliberately chose to sit above and apart from his new land, in Augustine's reading, so as to keep more clearly in view its inferiority to Sion, Christians too should look out upon the flow of this life with a kind of exilic vision, noting the deficiency that mars even pleasures and comforts.

Other sermons teach this method of meditation without any reference to Babylon, suggesting various objects for it. The functioning of the body, taken for granted and so close to us that it generally escapes notice, has profound meaning for those who consider carefully. Augustine explains how our very meals are a sign of calamity: *Epulae enim terrae huius medicamenta quotidiana sunt; aegritudini cuidam nostrae, cum qua nascimur, necessaria sunt. Aegritudinem istam sentit quisquis, cum hora reficiendi transierit... Sanitas immortalitas erit*.[10] He attempts to alter common habits of thought by presenting the necessity of death as ever imminent and pathological – because due, in the order of fact, to sin – and by pointing out symptoms that are seldom noticed. A grave illness might normally put us in mind of our condition, but any one of our continuous and compulsive trips to the dinner table should suffice as a sign of it. In another sermon, he turns to an even less conspicuous aspect of bodily life, our inability to remain long in the same posture:

Stando lassatus eras, sedendo reficeris; ipsum sedere medicina est lassitudinis: in ipsa medicina rursus lassaris; diu sedere non poteris. Quidquid est ubi fatigationi succurritur,

[6] *en. Ps.* 136.7 (CChr.SL 40, 1968): 'All the things that happened in that city according to the letter were prefigurations of us.'

[7] *Ibid.* 12 (CChr.SL 40, 1971): 'We are this man, if we wish to be.'

[8] *Ibid.* 5 (CChr.SL 40, 1966).

[9] *Ibid.*: '... when things are well and the whole world smiles upon you... discover distress at that point if you are at all able.'

[10] *s.* 77.9.13 (PL 38, 489): 'The feasts of this earth, indeed, are but daily medications required for a certain illness we are born with. Everyone becomes aware of this illness once the hour for replenishment has passed... [I]mmortality will be health.'

Digitized by Google

alia fatigatio inchoatur ... [S]i non aegrotas, alia cogita; si te aegrotantem languor ipse convincit, prius de salute tua cogita. Salus tua Christus est: Christum ergo cogita.[11]

Working from simple and recurrent experiences, Augustine seeks to forge links that lead the faithful to think as often as possible of the need for salvation and of the Savior. Other passages in his preaching linger on discomforts and necessities found in various walks of life.[12]

The realm of these signs extends from the persons of the fallen to their interaction with the material world. Addressing the farmers in the church of the African city of Cirta, the bishop highlights the laborious and penal character of their work: *Ista [sc. terra] possessorem suum exercet in labore et fatigat in timore. Quid tibi dicitur? 'Surge, ara terram, ut possis habere unde vivas.' Et velis nolis, gemens et suspirans surgis, et operaris, quia sequitur te sententia damnati Adam: In labore vultus tui edes panem tuum* (*Gn.* 3:19).[13] All this exertion, Augustine points out, for merely perishable food, while Christ, who descended in the flesh, will be the imperishable food of those made to ascend with him. In other sermons he sees the biblical curse worked out in a broad range of experiences unrelated to toil in the fields. He speaks of 'worldly thorns, that is, the cares of earthly affairs' (*spinis saecularibus, id est, negotiorum mundanorum curis*)[14] and 'days of Adam' (*dies secundum Adam*).[15] Recalling the punishment of the first man, he remarks, *si est aliud vita nostra, si potes, convertere ad aliquam voluptatem, ubi spinas non sentias.*[16] Much is made of the hardships inherent in various occupations, including commerce, the military, and the law courts.[17] Rhetorical elaborations on the theme aid Augustine's program of exilic meditation: admitting that many look on work with love and passion, he points to its wretched aspects as well as to the paltriness of the

[11] *en. Ps.* 102.6 (CChr.SL 40, 1456): 'You had been wearied by standing and you recover by sitting. The very act of sitting is the medicine for your weariness. But you are wearied in turn by the medicine itself and will not be able to sit very long. Whatever you do to relieve your fatigue, fatigue arises once again... [I]f you are not sick, go ahead and think of other things. If your weakness proves you to be sick, think first of your well-being. Christ is your well-being, so think of Him.'

[12] *E.g. en. Ps.* 35.5, *en. Ps.* 70.s.1.17-18, *s.* 335.2.2, *etc.* For general remarks on Augustine's philosophical and theological approach to pain and toil, see the following *AL* articles. In vol. 2 (Basel, 1996-2002): Klaus Kienzler, art. Difficultas, 425-28; Josef Lössl, art. Dolor (dolere), 581-91. In vol. 3 (Basel, 2004-): Therese Fuhrer, art. Infirmitas, infirmus, 579-601.

[13] *s.* 45.4 (CChr.SL 41, 519): 'This land of yours... taxes its owner with toil and wears him down with fear. What is it that is said to you? "Get up, plow the land that you may have a source of livelihood." Willing or not, you arise groaning and panting, and you work, because the condemnation of Adam follows you: "In the sweat of your face you shall eat your bread."'

[14] *s.* 32.2 (CChr.SL 41, 398).

[15] *en. Ps.* 114.3 (CChr.SL 40, 1648).

[16] *en. Ps.* 102.17 (CChr.SL 40, 1468): '[I]f our life is any different, put yourself, if you can, to some pleasure where you will not feel thorns.'

[17] See passages cited in n. 12.

Digitized by Google

rewards. True vision sees beyond physical to metaphysical shortcomings, as in this invitation to reflection:

Currite animo per quaslibet actiones, videte, si eas parit, nisi necessitas...[P]atrocinia linguae et adiutoria medicinae; ipsae sunt enim in hoc saeculo excellentes actiones; tolle litigatores: quibus opitulatur advocatus? tolle vulnera et morbos: quid curat medicus? ... Arare, seminare, novellare, navigare ..: tolle famem, sitim, nuditatem; cui opus sunt ista omnia?[18]

From this perspective, even the most honored occupations have their foundation literally in emptiness and in a struggle against impending disintegration. Augustine, though, never suggests scorning or abandoning them, because they are necessary and often count as acts of mercy and virtue.[19] Indeed, he includes in this scene even his own work of preaching: *Ecce modo quod loquor et disputo, necessitas parit. Numquid enim ibi talis disputatio erit ... aut vero in illa patria Evangelium recitabitur, ubi ipsum Dei Verbum contemplabitur?*[20] Whether shepherd or member of the flock, anyone fully contented with the preaching of the Gospel has not properly understood it.

At times Augustine remarks more explicitly still on the semiotic dimension of difficulty and deprivation, explaining it as providentially intended. In commenting on *Genesis* against the Manicheans, he says that God cursed the earth to bear thorns:

... ut peccati humani crimen semper hominibus ante oculos poneret, quo admonerentur aliquando averti a peccatis et ad Dei praecepta converti. [21]

Similarly, he speaks in general of the 'difficulties in everything, which need to exist, so that man might be shown what he is' (*difficultatibus rerum, quae necesse est existant, ut ostendatur homini quod homo est*)[22] and maintains that sorrows exist, 'so that through them... the lamentable calamity of this life, and the joy to be longed for in the next, might be shown' (*ut in eis... monstretur huius vitae flenda calamitas et alterius desideranda felicitas*).[23] The book of

[18] *en. Ps.* 83.8 (CChr.SL 39, 1153): 'Run your mind over whatever activities you please, and see whether anything other than necessity gives rise to them... The speeches of patrons and the aid of doctors, these are truly exalted endeavors in this world. But remove litigants, and who will the advocate have to assist? Remove wounds and diseases, and what will the doctor have to cure?... As for plowing, sowing, planting, and shipping..: remove hunger, thirst and nakedness, and what use will these be?'

[19] Sabine MacCormack highlights the positive side of Augustine's view of work in: The virtue of work: an Augustinian transformation: *Antiquité tardive* 9 (2001) 219-37.

[20] *en. Ps.* 83.8 (CChr.SL 39, 1153): 'See, it is necessity that brings me to speak and discuss right now. Surely such discussions will not exist in that place..? Or will the Gospel be recited in the homeland where the Word of God himself will be contemplated?'

[21] *Gn. adu. Man.* 1.13.19 (CSEL 91, 85): '... so that it would put before the eyes of men an accusation of human sin as a warning to turn away from sins at last and be converted to the commandments of God.'

[22] *s.* 351.3.4 (PL 39, 1539).

[23] *civ.* 22.22 (Dombart and Kalb, 1993, 606).

Digitized by Google

Genesis relates that God announced explicitly to Adam and Eve the significance of their suffering as a punishment and visible manifestation of guilt. But Augustine, in debate with those who either rejected the biblical account or disputed his interpretation of it, insists also that the bare sight of our miseries stands by itself as evidence of guilt. In the *City of God* he emphasizes to his pagan audience that human sufferings 'bear witness' to condemnation;[24] and in a sermon he says that the *ratiocinationes* of the Pelagians are swept away by the tears of infants, almost as though proven false by a discourse.[25]

The motivation for fostering so grim an approach to perceptible reality becomes easier to comprehend in view of the moral limitations inherent in the contemplative ascent through creation. Augustine had learned the latter from Neoplatonic masters, whom he judged to have succeeded by the power of reason in seeing God's 'invisible nature', so St. Paul comments (*Rom.* 1:20), 'through the things that have been made'.[26] In itself, this was an achievement, and one that a Christian could strive for as well; and yet, on the whole, it brought no benefit whatsoever to the pagan sages because it fed their pride. Inflated by their capacity to rise above the material, smug in their ability to see, they either felt no need of a mediator, or else preferred demonic imposters of the spiritual realm to the true Mediator who came humbly in the flesh.[27] Augustine finds a way to unite meditation upon the world with the cultivation of humility by turning at times from the marvelous signs of the Creator to the sorrowful signs of the Fall as a complementary form of spiritual exercise.[28] The attentive consideration of pervasive sickness and lack keeps one longing for true fullness and lowly enough to beg mercy of the Savior who emptied himself. When some of the passages above are looked at in isolation, Augustine may seem even to distort his own anthropology, as the need for bodily replenishment and the lack of ontological fullness belonged to the good and provisional condition of Paradise even before sin or punishment. Yet, since such needs were experienced in a far less pressing way,[29] a simple limitation must have mutated into a painful and prolonged deprivation. Given that no roads lead back to Eden but only forward, the exiles can be pardoned if they sometimes refuse to see anything but darkness before them, for they mean in this way to keep in mind the radiance of a home beyond.

[24] *v. supra ad* n. 3

[25] *s.* 294.17.17 (PL 38, 1346). On the pain of newborns in Augustine, see Waclaw Eborowicz, La misère des enfants d'après les Confessions de St. Augustin et ses écrits anti-pélagiens: *SP* 14 (1976) 410-6.

[26] *s. Dolbeau* 26.32-33; 58-62.

[27] *Ibid.* Someone like Pythagoras may have been an exception: Robert Dodaro, Agostino d'Ippona, Sermo Dolbeau 26 e la questione della salus extra ecclesiam: *Lateranum* 68 (2002) 259-66.

[28] On ancient spiritual exercises, see Pierre Hadot (Michael Chase, transl.), *Philosophy as a Way of Life* (Oxford, 1995). He mentions Augustine (esp. *ibid.* 107) but not this practice of exilic vision.

[29] *Gn. litt.* 8.8; *civ.* 14.26.

Digitized by Google

Digitized by Google

Augustine on Begotten but Coeternal – Theological Rationale for the Athanasian Creed

Larry DURAN, Fort Worth, Texas

The objective of this paper is to demonstrate how Augustine's use of two illustrations in one of his sermons on the prologue of the Gospel according to John illumine the meaning and the possibility of the Augustinian doctrine of the eternal generation of the Son that is found in lines 21-28 and 31a of the Athanasian Creed.[1]

1. Sermons on Selected Lessons of the New Testament 67[2]

In his sermon on the prologue of the Gospel according to John, Augustine takes the opportunity to publicly respond to the Arians' persistent inquisition of and opposition to 'orthodox' Trinitarian theology so as to refute the Arians and in so doing to strengthen his Catholic hearers. In the first part of his sermon, Augustine reveals and responds to an argument and a subsequent challenge raised by the Arians regarding the coeternality of the Father and the Son. The Arians' persistent argument, according to Augustine, was that if 'the Son was born to the Father', the Father must have existed 'before' the Son and the Son must have come into existence 'after' the Father 'in time'.[3] In other words, the Arians argued that if the Son was begotten from the Father, the Son could not be coeternal with the Father. Their subsequent challenge was for someone, perhaps Augustine in particular, to provide an 'explanation' for 'how the Son

[1] This paper will presuppose the truth of the major conclusions of J.N.D. Kelly's work, *The Athanasian Creed: The Paddock Lectures for 1962-3* (New York, 1964). In this work, Kelly cogently argues that the Athanasian Creed, or the *Quicunque*, most likely originated in Spain or southern Gaul ca. 435-553 (109-12), by an unknown author (123), 'under the influence of the great see of Arles' (110), in response to two Trinitarian heresies (Germanic Arianism and a form of Sabellianism known as Priscillianism) and two Christological heresies (Apollinarianism and Nestorianism) (76-80; 91-108). In addition, Kelly demonstrates the extensive influence that Augustine's Trinitarian theology (27-9; 80-90) and Vincent of Lerins' Christology exerted upon the theology and the terminology of the Trinitarian section (lines 1-28) and the Christological section (lines 29-42) of the Athanasian Creed (29-31; 91-119).

[2] Augustine, *Sermons on Selected Lessons of the New Testament* 67, trans. R.G. MacMullen, ed. Philip Schaff, Nicene and Post Nicene Fathers, American ed., vol. 6 (Buffalo, 1888 = 2004), 458-65. The Latin text is: 'Sermon 117' (PL 38, 661-71).

[3] *Ibid.*, 67.6.

Studia Patristica XLIX, 33-37.
© Peeters Publishers, 2010.

Digitized by Google

could be born to the Father and yet be coeval with him of whom he was born'.[4] Augustine, however, rejects the use of 'coeval' (*coaeva/vum*) to refer to the relationship between the Father and the Son in favor of 'coeternal' (*coeterna/num*) because he interprets coeval to refer to two (or more) things that once began to exist in time, but are 'not preceded by the other in time';[5] whereas he interprets coeternal to refer to two or more timeless objects that have always existed simultaneously together in eternity.[6] After clarifying the use of terminology, Augustine reinterprets the Arian challenge as a challenge to demonstrate the possibility that the Son may 'be born' from and 'coeternal with' the Father.[7]

1.1. *Two illustrations of coeval causes and effects*

Augustine attempts to meet this Arian challenge by providing two illustrations taken from 'the Scriptures', or *Wisdom* 7:26, which demonstrate the possibility that something which derives its being from another (*Quod autem de alio est*), or is 'born' (*natum*) from another, could be coeval or coeternal with the cause, source, or origin of its being.[8] To be precise, he attempts to establish the analogical possibility of the latter by first establishing the possibility of the former. That is to say, his objective is to use two illustrations of coeval causes and effects as analogies upon which to establish the possibility of a coeternal cause and effect (*similitudine coaeva coaeternis*).[9]

In the first clause of *Wisdom* 7:26, where 'Wisdom herself is called, "The brightness of the everlasting light,"' Augustine discovers the first of two examples of a coeval cause and effect: a flame and its brightness. Augustine uses the lighting of a lamp (*lucerna*) to illustrate how a cause and its effect can both come into existence simultaneously without either a cause necessarily existing in time before its effect or an effect coming into existence in time after its cause. The first premise of Augustine's argument is that brightness (*splendor*) 'comes from', or is born from, the flame of a lamp. In other words, the cause, source, origin, or 'father' of the brightness is the flame of the lamp (*ignem patrem illius splendoris*).[10] The second premise of his argument is that the

[4] *Ibid.*
[5] *Ibid.*, 67.10.
[6] *Ibid.*
[7] *Ibid.*, 67.8.
[8] *Ibid.*, 67.11-2. It is this conception of 'birth' that elsewhere seems to cause Augustine a tremendous deal of difficulty in explaining by reason (in contrast to believing on the basis of Revelation) why the Holy Spirit is not also called a 'son' (*On the Gospel of St. John* 99.9; *Sermons on Selected Lessons of the New Testament* 21.18; *The Trinity* 1.2.8, 2.1.5, 5.3.15, 9.3.17, 15.6.45).
[9] *Ibid.*, 67.11.
[10] *Ibid.*

Digitized by Google

flame of a lamp and the brightness which proceeds from it both begin to exist simultaneously. As Augustine notes, if a lamp has not been lighted, there is neither fire nor brightness, but as soon as the lamp has been lighted 'together with the fire comes forth the brightness also.'[11] From these two premises, Augustine concludes that even though the fire is the cause of the brightness in as much as the brightness derives its being from the fire, the fire and its brightness both begin to exist simultaneously and are, therefore, coeval with one another (i.e., neither begin to exist before or after the other, although they exist in time).

In the third clause of *Wisdom* 7:26, where 'Wisdom... is called, "The Image of the Father"', Augustine discovers the second example of a coeval cause and effect: an object and its image.[12] In this argument, Augustine uses a shrub (*virgultum/virgulto*) that is born alongside a body of water and its image (*imago*) reflected in that body of water to illustrate how a cause and its effect can both come into existence simultaneously.[13] The first premise of his argument is that the image of the shrub 'comes from' (*et tamen imago ab illo*) and is 'begotten of' (*imaginem esse de illo virgulto... genitum*) the shrub.[14] That is to say, the shrub is said to be the cause, source, origin, or father of its image in as much as the image of the shrub is said to derive its being from the shrub.[15] The second premise of his argument is that the shrub and its image both begin to exist simultaneously (*simul esse coeperunt*).[16] From these two premises, Augustine concludes that even though the image of the shrub derives its being from and is caused by the shrub, both the shrub and its image begin to exist simultaneously and are, therefore, coeval with one another.[17]

1.2. *Coeval as an analogy for coeternal*

Having twice established the possibility that something which derives its being from another could be coeval with the cause, source, origin, or father of its being, Augustine's next step is to demonstrate how these two illustrations analogically establish the possibility of 'the Eternal Nativity' (*sempiterna nativitas*).[18] The first premise of his argument is that whereas the brightness of a flame is said to be born from a flame and an image of a shrub is said to be born from a shrub because that which derives its being from another is said to

[11] *Ibid.*
[12] *Ibid.*
[13] *Ibid.*, 67.12.
[14] *Ibid.*
[15] *Ibid.*
[16] *Ibid.*
[17] *Ibid.* While Augustine's understanding of the role of an object in begetting its image is curious, what is clear from the context is that for Augustine the latent image does not become actualized without the presence of some type of reflective surface.
[18] *Ibid.*

Digitized by Google

be 'born of it' (*utique natum est*), Augustine argues that the Son is called 'the Son of God' (*filius Dei*) because 'he derives his being' (*quod habet de quo sit*)[19] and his being God from the Father.[20] The second premise of his argument is that just as it is reasonable to conclude that 'if the shrub had always been, the image would also have always been born from the shrub' (*Si semper virgultum, semper et imago de virgulto*), so also it is reasonable to affirm that the Image of the Father has always been born from and coeternal with the eternal Father.[21] From these two premises, Augustine concludes that it 'is possible then that one that begets might always be, and always be together with that which was born of him' (*Potest ergo simper esse generans, et simper cum illo quod de illo natum ets*).[22] In other words, Augustine's conclusion is that even though the Father may be the cause, source, or origin of the Son's being and his being God, the two illustrations previously discussed provide an analogy for understanding how it is possible that the Son could be born from the Father without the Father necessarily existing before the Son or the Son necessarily coming into existence after the Father in time (*non secundum hoc, quod prior esset Pater, et postea Filius*).[23]

2. Two latent principles

In the final section of this paper, I want to make explicit two principles that emerge in Augustine's argument and to show how these two principles illumine

[19] *Ibid.* Elsewhere Augustine notes that the Father, in begetting the Son, gave the Son 'life' (*Sermons on Selected Lessons of the New Testament* 77.4; *The Trinity* 15.5.47) and that the Father 'is the beginning' of the Son (*On Faith and the Creed* 9.18).

[20] In 67.14, Augustine notes that the Son is God because he is 'born of God'. Elsewhere Augustine notes: 'the Son is God from the Father' (*On the Gospel of St. John* 29.5); 'in begetting the Son; the Father gave Him to be God' (*On the Gospel of St. John* 48.6), 'He from whom the Son has it that he is God – for he is God from God' (*On the Gospel of St. John* 99.8); 'the source of all godhead, or if you prefer, of all deity, is the Father' (*The Trinity* 4.5.29); 'the Father is the source and origin of all deity' (*The Trinity* 4.5.32); 'the Father is the origin with reference to the Son, because he produced or begot him' (*The Trinity* 5.3.15); 'the Son by being born not only gets his being the Son but quite simply his being' and 'the Son gets his being that substance by being born' (*The Trinity* 5.3.16); 'his knowing comes to him from the Father as his being does' (*The Trinity* 15.4.23); and 'just as generation from the Father bestows being on the Son... so does procession from them both bestow being on the Holy Spirit' (*The Trinity* 15.5.47). See also: *Sermons on Selected Lessons of the New Testament* 21.18; *On the Gospel of St. John* 8-9, 29.5, 48.5-6, 54.7, 99.4, 99.8-9, 100.4; *On Faith and the Creed* 4.6, 9.18; *The Trinity* 4.5.28-29, 4.5.32, 15.2.12, 5.3.15-16, 15.4.22-23, 15.5.28-29, 15.5.31, 15.5.38, 15.5.43.

[21] *Ibid.*, 67.12.

[22] *Ibid.*

[23] *Ibid.* Neither temporally before or after: *Exposition on the Psalms* 2.6, 90.2-5; *Sermons on Selected Lessons of the New Testament* 1.8, 38.14, 68.1-2, 69.1, 77.4, 89.3; *On the Gospel of St. John* 20.8, 29.5, 31.5, 99.9; *On Original Sin* 32; *Confessions* 11.7.9, 11.11.13, 11.13.15-16, 11.14.17; *The Trinity* 4.5.30, 5.1.6, 5.2.9, 5.3.17, 15.2.13, 15.4.22-23, 15.4.26, 15.5.26, 15.5.45, *15.5.47-48.

Digitized by Google

the meaning and the possibility of the doctrine of the eternal generation of the Son that is found in Augustine's sermon and in the Athanasian Creed.

2.1. *Ontological priority*

The first principle that needs to be made explicit in Augustine's argument is the following: whatever is the cause, source, origin, or father of the being of another is *ontologically prior* to, or before, that which is derived from it. In Augustine's first illustration, the flame of a lamp is ontologically prior to the brightness which proceeds from it in as much as the flame is said to be the cause, source, or origin of the being of that brightness. In Augustine's second illustration, the shrub is ontologically prior to the image which proceeds from it in as much as the shrub is said to be the cause, source, or origin of the being of its image. With respect to the doctrine of the eternal generation of the Son that is found in Augustine's sermon and in lines 21-28 and 31a of the Athanasian Creed in particular, the Father who is said to derive his being and his being God from none (*Pater a nullo est factus*)[24] is ontologically prior to the Son in as much as the Son's being and his being God is said to be derived from the divine *substantia* of the Father (*Deus est ex substantia Patris ante saecula genitus*).[25] In other words, in as much as the Son is derived from the *substantia* of the Father, the Father must be *ontologically prior* to the Son and the Son must be *ontologically posterior* to the Father.

2.2. *The compatibility of ontological priority and coexistence*

The second principle that needs to be made explicit in Augustine's argument is the following: ontological priority neither necessarily entails *temporal priority*, nor does it exclude coeval or coeternal coexistence. In Augustine's first illustration, even though the flame of a lamp is ontologically prior to the brightness which proceeds from it, both are said to be coeval because they begin to exist simultaneously. In Augustine's second illustration, even though the shrub is ontologically prior to the image which proceeds from it, both are likewise said to be coeval because they begin to exist at the exact same time. With respect to the doctrine of the eternal generation of the Son that is found in Augustine's sermon and in lines 21-28 and 31a of the Athanasian Creed, these two illustrations are extremely significant in that they cogently demonstrate that even if the Father is ontologically prior to the Son, it does not necessarily follow that the Father must have existed temporally before the Son or that the Son must have come into existence after the Father in time. In other words, these two illustrations provide an analogy for understanding how it is possible that the Son could be begotten from and coeternal with the Father.

[24] J.N.D. Kelly, *The Athanasian Creed* (1964), 19 (line 21).
[25] *Ibid.* (line 31a).

Digitized by Google

Digitized by Google

Conversations and Peregrinations of Augustine with his Closest Friends

Jane E. MERDINGER, Incline Village, Nevada

This paper spotlights Augustine's journeys with close friends and discussions that ensued en route. Though very busy, Augustine also traveled extensively throughout his diocese and much of Numidia for ecclesiastical business and pastoral visits. He cherished time with former students who now, as episcopal colleagues, occupied sees far from Hippo. By the late 390s, Alypius had become bishop of Thagaste, sixty miles distant; Severus was presiding over Milevis, 120 miles away; Possidius was installed at Calama, seventy miles from Hippo. When circumstances permitted, they walked or rode together to provincial synods or general councils, conversing for hours. Travelling was no easy matter in late antiquity. Roads could be crowded, the weather beastly, inns rowdy and best avoided.[1] Nonetheless, for Augustine, the camaraderie made it all worthwhile. At home, he guarded his time because of the burdensome nature of his position. On the road, out in the African sunshine, no doubt his mood grew more expansive. Certainly, Augustine allowed no gossiping. Any practices prohibited in his monastery must have been equally disapproved of outside its walls.[2] Though his discussions with comrades are lost to posterity, we can 'eavesdrop', thanks to vestiges in his letters and sermons.

Take, for example, *ep.* 38, written by Augustine in 397 to Profuturus, bishop of Constantine and former pupil at Augustine's monastery at Hippo. Augustine had seen his protégé fairly recently; he and Alypius had journeyed to Constantine to attend Profuturus' consecration in 395 A.D. *Ep.* 38 finds Augustine not at his desk dictating this missive, but in bed, suffering from hemorrhoids. *Ego in lecto sum, nec ambulare enim, nec stare, nec sedere possum, rhagadis uel exochadis dolore et tumore*, he dolefully admits to his friend.[3] Even ill-health, though, cannot prevent Augustine from attending to business. He wants to know what Profuturus has heard about the death of Megalius, the primate of Numidia, and if there is news of a successor. Megalius has been in his grave

[1] Othmar Perler and Jean-Louis Maier, *Les voyages de saint Augustin* (Paris, 1969), 27-48, 108; Serge Lancel, *St. Augustine* (London, 2002), 229.

[2] Possidius, *v. Aug.* 22.

[3] Augustine, *ep.* 38.1 (CSEL 34/2, 64-5): 'I can neither walk nor stand nor sit because of the pain.' Transl. Roland Teske, *Letters II/1, The Works of Saint Augustine: A Translation for the 21st Century* (New York, 2001), 145.

Studia Patristica XLIX, 39-44.
© Peeters Publishers, 2010.

Digitized by Google

little more than three weeks when Augustine composes *ep.* 38. Though short, it is not an easy piece of correspondence to decipher. After asking about the provincial primacy, Augustine becomes cryptic. 'There are scandals, but there is also a refuge. There are sorrows, but there are also consolations. And you very well know, best of brothers, how amid these trials we must be on guard for fear that hatred for anyone should take hold ... of our heart. But it sneaks up on us since no one who is angry thinks that his anger is unjust.'[4]

What is all of this about? Perler and Maier speculated that Augustine was referring to several recent flare-ups between Donatists and Catholics in the diocese of Hippo.[5] I believe that there is a deeper explanation. In the last few lines of *ep.* 38, Augustine guardedly reminds Profuturus: *Recolis certe, qua cura et quanta sollicitudine ista scripserim, si recolis, quid mecum nuper in itinere quodam locutus sis.*[6] Apparently, the two friends recently traveled together somewhere, and frank conversation ensued. I suspect that their conversation centered on the impending death of the aged primate, speculation about a successor, and Augustine's and Megalius' mixed feelings about each other. Recall that Valerius, Augustine's predecessor at Hippo, had never consulted with his provincial primate (Megalius) about elevating Augustine prematurely to the episcopate to prevent his prize presbyter from being nabbed by another congregation. Instead, Valerius wrote secretly to the primate of Africa and obtained his consent.[7] Already discomfited by Augustine's Manichaean past and by unsavory rumors, Megalius responded to the subterfuge by blocking Augustine's nomination to the episcopate. Only after an inquest by an episcopal commission was Augustine allowed to proceed to the episcopate. Several years later, Augustine described the scenario in *c. litt. Pet.* Megalius flew into a rage, Augustine recalls, and harboured hatred against him.[8] Tellingly, Augustine's language in *c. litt. Pet.* mirrors that of *ep.* 38 to Profuturus. In that missive, Augustine admits: '[Anger] sneaks up on us since no one who is angry thinks that his anger is unjust. For, when it takes root in that way, anger becomes hatred ... In receiving unknown guests, after all, we usually say that it is much better to put up with an evil man than perhaps to turn away a good man through ignorance ...'[9]

Is Augustine referring to himself here and implying that Megalius really did not know him well but should not have been swayed by rumours? We may never be privy to the details underlying *ep.* 38, but surely Augustine speaks

[4] *Ep.* 38.2 (CSEL 34/2, 65).

[5] O. Perler and J.-L. Maier, *Les voyages* (1969), 213f.

[6] *Ep.* 38.2 (CSEL 34/2, 66): 'You certainly realize the care and concern with which I write these words if you recall what you spoke about with me recently on a certain journey.' Transl. R. Teske, *Letters II/1* (2001), 146.

[7] Possidius, *v. Aug.* 8.2.

[8] Augustine, *c. litt. Pet.*, 3.16.19.

[9] *Ep.* 38.2 (CSEL 34/2, 66). Transl. R. Teske, *Letters II/1* (2001), 145.

Digitized by Google

here not only about Megalius' emotions but his own as well, in a jumbled mix. Megalius was angry, but so, too, was Augustine because of the turmoil that the aged primate had fomented. It had scarcely been a year since his consecration, and Augustine's scars were still fresh.

Barely discernable as well in *ep.* 38 are signs of trouble brewing over the vacancy caused by Megalius' death. Augustine wished to know if a successor has been named to the primacy. Then he immediately confides: 'There are scandals. There are sorrows. You very well know ... how amid these trials we must be on guard for fear that hatred will take hold.'[10] Augustine's words do double duty here. They tell of the tribulations that he and Megalius have endured, but they also indicate that a fight is brewing over Megalius' replacement.[11] In Numidia, custom dictated that the longest-serving bishop should become the next provincial primate. In reality, ecclesiastical record-keeping there was in a shambles, making it impossible to ascertain episcopal seniority. Bishops had taken advantage of the confusion by jockeying amongst themselves to gain the primacy and other honours. The Council of 402 A.D. would terminate such irregularities by requiring lists of all consecrations be preserved at Constantine and at the primate's see.[12]

Augustine's guarded remarks in *ep.* 38 afford a glimpse of the turmoil surrounding Megalius' death and his successor. In the ancient world, a letter could fall into the wrong hands no matter how responsible its bearer: thus Augustine's discretion concerning such volatile matters. Whatever else Augustine and Profuturus may have conversed about that day as they traversed the Numidian countryside, they certainly discussed ecclesiastical politics and the strong emotions that inevitably arise therefrom.

A minor but jarring incident in 396/7 illustrates the indignities that Augustine occasionally suffered from sectarian animosity while travelling. He recounts the matter in *ep.* 35 to Eusebius, a prominent municipal official at Hippo. Eusebius was a pagan and most likely the procurator of Hippo.[13] The Catholic subdeacon named Primus at Spanianum, an estate near Hippo, has been defrocked because of unseemly conduct toward several nuns.[14] (Spanianum was the possession of a wealthy Catholic woman.) In a fit of fury, Primus has become a Donatist with two of the nuns. The motley trio has joined a drunken and disorderly Circumcellion band that is roving round the countryside. Dismayed, Augustine implores Eusebius to discuss the matter with the Donatist

[10] *Ep.* 38.2 (CSEL 34/2, 66). Transl. R. Teske, *Letters II/1* (2001), 145.

[11] Erika Hermanowicz believes that the controversy was not about a new primate but about making Possidius the new bishop of Calama. See her book, *Possidius of Calama: A Study of the North African Episcopate* (Oxford, 2008).

[12] Canon 86 in C. Munier (ed.) *Concilia Africae a. 345-525*, CChr.SL 149 (Turnhout, 1974), 206.

[13] S. Lancel, *St. Augustine* (2002), 188.

[14] Spanianum most likely was *saltus Hispaniensis*. S. Lancel, *St. Augustine* (2002), 258, n. "i."

Digitized by Google

bishop of Hippo, since the latter refuses to communicate with Augustine himself. Augustine strongly believes that the subdeacon's conduct warrants dismissal from the Donatist clergy as well![15]

That is not the whole story. The daughter of a tenant farmer at Spanianum has also embraced Donatism. Not only has she submitted to rebaptism, she has become a Donatist nun, as well. Her enraged father, a Catholic catechumen, has threatened to beat her back to her senses. At this juncture, Augustine crosses through Spanianum with several companions and attracts a crowd of peasants whose hum-drum day has suddenly waxed exciting with the arrival of the bishop.[16] Has Augustine come to gather further evidence about Primus, or to dispense advice to the daughter threatened with fisticuffs? The narrative does not make his purpose clear, but what happened next is arresting.

Tamen per Spanianum transeuntibus nobis presbyter ipsius stans in medio fundo Catholicae ac laudabilis feminae voce impudentissima post nos clamauit, quod traditores et persecutores essemus.[17] Augustine admits that when he heard the Donatist priest's shouts, he not only had to hold himself back from fighting, but he also had to calm the crowd of people travelling with him. He concedes that attempting to converse with such a zealot usually is fruitless.[18]

It jars our sensibilities, imagining Augustine so angry that he has to make a great effort not to punch someone. His visceral reaction takes us aback. Nor do we normally envisage him physically restraining others from brawling. We are accustomed to picturing the bishop of Hippo calmly dictating treatises at night in his study or animatedly preaching in his basilica, but not acting like a policeman. Nonetheless, with his honour and the lady's honour besmirched, the high-spirited crowd would have started a fight and only desisted thanks to Augustine's quick intervention. At the close of *ep.* 35, he begs the city official, Eusebius, to alert the Donatist bishop of Hippo. 'Let him restrain the insanity of his clerics,' Augustine tersely advises.[19] We do not know how Eusebius responded to Augustine's plea, but we certainly can imagine the mood of the bishop's party as it finished traversing the estate at Spanianum that day. Perhaps Augustine and his companions were not grim, but they must have acknowledged how deep-seated Donatist animosity towards Catholics could be, no matter how well-intentioned the overtures of the latter.

[15] Augustine, *ep.* 35.2 (CSEL 34/2, 30).

[16] *Ep.* 35.4 (CSEL 34/2, 30).

[17] *Ep.* 35.4 (CSEL 34/2, 30): 'When we were passing through Spanianum, a priest of Proculeianus [Donatist bishop of Hippo], standing in the midst of the estate of a Catholic and praiseworthy woman, shouted out after us with a most impudent cry that we were *traditores* and persecutors. He even hurled this abuse at that woman who belongs to our communion and in the midst of whose estate he was standing.' Transl. R. Teske, *Letters II/1* (2001), 123.

[18] *Ep.* 35.4 (CSEL 34/2, 30).

[19] *Ep.* 35.5 (CSEL 34/2, 30). Transl. R. Teske, *Letters II/1* (2001), 123.

Digitized by Google

The years 401-6 A.D. witnessed feverish activity by Augustine. With imperial pressure mounting against the Donatists at the behest of the Catholic Church, he conducted numerous visitations and preaching tours throughout his diocese, the province of Numidia, and at Carthage as well. Thanks to sermons recently discovered by Francois Dolbeau, fresh details about Augustine's prodigious efforts have come to light. He believed that if he could speak personally with unconvinced Catholics and with Donatists, he might win them for the faith. For example, in *s.* 360C from the Dolbeau collection, Augustine admits that it is much harder to convert countryfolk from Donatism than their city cousins.[20] Then again, in *ep.* 56, he concedes that even a person who is not clever at all can be converted. 'For it is not a difficult task even for those who are mentally slow, if they only listen patiently and attentively, to see clearly the unshakable foundations of the proof that refute that error.'[21] Ultimately, Augustine and Aurelius envisaged revitalization of the Catholic Church in Africa. Conversion and renewal of faith formed part of their ambitious programme, together with frequent councils for the instruction of clergy.[22]

What topics did Augustine truly enjoy discussing with close friends as they threaded their way past shimmering olive groves and bristling wheat fields? *Ep.* 84 to Novatus, bishop of Sitifis in Mauretania, offers some clues. In his missive, Augustine laments that he rarely sees their mutual friend, Severus, bishop of Milevis. He is dear to Augustine, but Milevis is far away. When Severus does manage to communicate, quotidian matters take precedence. Severus 'speaks to me now hardly at all or at times with very short messages, and more of them are filled with other cares and concerns than carry to me something from our meadows with the sweetness of Christ.'[23] With this beautiful pastoral image of refreshment and repose, Augustine signals his heart's desire – to speak of things divine, and nothing else, with his dearest friends. And Severus? In *ep.* 109, he simply tells Augustine: 'I confess, my joy is to converse with you.'[24]

For now, such moments with friends are rare. Augustine does not inhabit a serene world. There are cases to adjudicate, treatises to compose, guests to house, officials to greet, parishioners to console, felonious clergy to investigate. Francois Dolbeau, after his prodigious work on the 'new sermons', remains struck by 'the intensity of Augustine's pastoral engagement, by his untiring desire to convince' opponents of the truth.[25] Augustine takes it all in stride.

[20] Augustine, *s.* 360C.2 (Dolbeau 27) (Mainz 63).

[21] Augustine, *ep.* 56.2. Transl. R. Teske, *Letters II/1* (2001), 237.

[22] F.L. Cross, History and Fiction in the African Canons: *JTS 12* (1961) 227-47; J.E. Merdinger, *Rome and the African Church in the Time of Augustine* (New Haven, 1997), ch. 6.

[23] *Ep.* 84.1 (CSEL 34/2, 392). Transl. R. Teske, *Letters II/1* (2001), 339.

[24] Severus, *ep.* 109.1 (CSEL 34/2, 635). Transl. Roland Teske, *Letters II/2* (2003), 83.

[25] F. Dolbeau, *Augustin et la prédiction en Afrique: Recherches sur divers sermons authentiques, apocryphes, ou anonymes* (Paris, 2005), 87.

Digitized by Google

Finally, in a Dolbeau sermon with robust imagery destined to become a hallmark of *de civitate Dei*, Augustine looks forward to his ultimate destination. 'Take note', he says, 'not of how far we have travelled, but of how far we still have to go ... And everywhere en route let us sigh because there will be no joy for us but in our home country. And there we shall be arm in arm with the angels' singing unending hymns of praise.[26]

[26] Augustine, *s.* 159B.15 (Dolbeau 21) (Mainz 54). Transl. E. Hill, *Sermons III/11* (1997), 160.

Digitized by Google

Physician of the Soul: Augustine and Spiritual Mentoring

Christine McCann, Northfield, Vermont

Paulinus of Nola once called Augustine a 'spiritual physician' (*medicus spiritualis*), yet Augustine of Hippo was at best a reluctant spiritual mentor.[1] It is no mistake that his significant writings about Christian instruction focus on preaching and preparation for baptism.[2] As a priest and bishop, his focus was on pastoral care for the wide membership of the Church.

Spiritual mentoring, compared to pastoral care, is a more intimate relationship between individuals dedicated to growing in spiritual maturity. The spiritual mentor ideally is able to tailor her or his advice to the specific concerns and needs of the disciple. The best evidence that we have for Augustine providing such guidance and encouragement to other individual Christians comes from his letters.

Augustine's letter collection contains 249 letters written by Augustine, some of which are responses to requests for spiritual mentoring.[3] Augustine's letters show that he was uncomfortable when potential disciples addressed him in language that suggested that they viewed him as a source of transformative knowledge. Augustine usually encouraged these erstwhile disciples to focus their attention not on himself as a model, but on Christ as the Inner Teacher. He preferred to offer himself as a companion in Scriptural studies to male correspondents.[4] Maureen Tilley has demonstrated that Augustine's letters to women who sought spiritual mentoring followed a different pattern. In these cases, he kept an even greater distance between himself and any female who sought a close relationship. He provided advice, but in such a way as to discourage further correspondence.[5] A busy cleric, Augustine expressed frustration with all of the letters that he received.[6]

[1] *Ep.* 94.4 in Augustine's collection (CSEL 34/2, 501).

[2] I refer to *doctr. chr.* and *cat. rud.*, of course.

[3] *Augustine Through the Ages: An Encyclopedia*, ed. Allan D. Fitzgerald (Grand Rapids, MI and Cambridge, UK, 1999), s.v. '*Epistulae*' by Robert B. Eno.

[4] Christine McCann, 'You know better than I do': The Dynamics of Transformative Knowledge in the Relationship of Augustine of Hippo and Paulinus of Nola: *SP* 43 (2006) 191-4.

[5] Maureen A. Tilley, No Friendly Letters: Augustine's Correspondence with Women, in: *The Cultural Turn in Late Ancient Studies*, Dale B. Martin and Patricia Cox Miller (eds.) (Durham, NC and London, 2005), 40-62.

[6] For example, in a letter addressed to his friend and fellow bishop Severus, he asked Severus and all of their mutual friends not only to refrain from writing letters to him asking for advice, but also to try to keep other people from writing to him. *Ep.* 110.6 (CSEL 34.2, 642).

Studia Patristica XLIX, 45-49.
© Peeters Publishers, 2010.

Digitized by Google

Given his general reluctance to write spiritual mentoring letters to individuals, it is all the more striking that there are a few instances in the letter collection in which Augustine is found *striving* to offer spiritual mentoring. His letters to Licentius and to Dioscorus are examples of Augustine actively exhorting these two young men to a dedicated Christian life.[7] Both letters fit into the genre of protreptic literature, that is, an exhortation to conversion. Yet there is a marked difference in the tone of the two letters. The letter to Licentius is passionate in its call for Licentius to renounce his attachment to 'deadly delights', and to seek God, while the letter to Dioscorus is calmer in tone, outlining the weaknesses of the various philosophical schools and explaining the superiority of Catholic Christianity. Augustine, despite his preference for focusing on a broader audience, took the time to tailor these letters to the needs of these two men. Before analyzing Augustine's methods of attempting to convert them, I will give a brief background synopsis of Licentius and Dioscorus.

Licentius was the son of Augustine's former patron Romanianus. He had been one of Augustine's students and was presented as a participant in the retreat at Cassiciacum in A.D. 386 in Augustine's works *Acad.*, *ord.*, and *beata u.*[8] Clearly both men had known each other for a long time when in A.D. 395 Licentius sent his poem asking for Augustine's guidance as a scholar and for a copy of Augustine's *mus.*[9]

We know much less about Dioscorus and his relationship to Augustine at the time that he wrote ca. A.D. 410. Dioscorus refers to his brother Zenobius in his letter to Augustine.[10] This is possibly the same Zenobius that Augustine knew in Milan and to whom *ord.* was dedicated.[11] If that is so, Augustine might have already known Dioscorus, but it is also possible that he was not acquainted with him at all.

Both letters fit into the genre of protreptic literature. Modern scholars do not agree on the definition of protreptic, but neither did ancient authors. For this paper, I rely on Annemaré Kotzé's explanations offered in her book, *Augustine's Confessions: Communicative Purpose and Audience.*[12] A very simple definition of protreptic is that it encourages its audience to change both their beliefs *and* their conduct.[13] In both letters, Augustine exhorted Licentius and

[7] *Ep.* 26 is addressed to Licentius (CSEL 34/1, 83-95). The letter to Dioscorus is *Ep.* 118. (CSEL 34/2, 665-98).

[8] J.R. Martindale, *The Prosopography of the Later Roman Empire, vol. II* (Cambridge, 1980), s.v. 'Licentius 1.'

[9] See Danuta Shanzer's article, *'Arcanum Varronis iter'*: Licentius's Verse Epistle to Augustine: *Revue des Études Augustiniennes* 37 (1991) 110-43 for an analysis of Licentius's poem.

[10] *Ep.* 117 *(CSEL* 34/2, 663-4).

[11] J.R. Martindale, *The Prosopography* (1980), s.v. 'Zenobius 1.'

[12] Annemaré Kotzé, *Augustine's Confessions: Communicative Purpose and Audience* (Leiden and Boston, 2004).

[13] Protreptic is similar to paraenesis. The main difference is audience. The latter focuses on people who already have the same beliefs as the orator or writer but who have not changed their

Digitized by Google

Dioscorus to change their focus from worldly praise and empty knowledge to the wisdom of Christ. Otherwise, the letters differ in tone and imagery, as Augustine adapted both the elements of protreptic and his knowledge of Licentius and Dioscorus in order to craft letters that suited their needs. A few examples for each follows.

The letter to Licentius is short, about five pages in the CSEL. After a very brief protestation of how busy he is, Augustine devotes the rest of the letter to his concerns for Licentius' salvation, urging Licentius to submit to Christ.[14] He anticipates that Licentius will shrug off his letter as boring 'maxims' but Augustine says that his concern is for how Licentius conducts his life.[15] He exhorts Licentius to listen to his own poem, in which Licentius had said he was waiting for Augustine to 'command' (*iubere*) him. Augustine refuses to do so, except to command Licentius to give himself to Christ.[16]

Licentius included a request for *mus.* in his poem to Augustine, and although Augustine deplored Licentius' misdirected enthusiasm, in his response Augustine recognized Licentius' interest and used musical imagery to show how Licentius should redirect himself: 'If I sing and you dance to another call, I will not be upset. For this song has its own joy, even if it does not start toes tapping, because it is sung in the full key of charity.'[17] He scolded Licentius for being more concerned about his poetic form than the form of his life: 'You think it is more trifling to offend the ears of God by your disorderly behavior than to arouse the criticism of the grammarians by your disordered verses.'[18] Augustine's suggestion that Licentius visit Paulinus of Nola, who had combined the ascetic life with an aptitude for poetry, is another attempt to reach Licentius via his interest in poetry.[19]

At the end of the letter, Augustine switches from berating Licentius to beseeching him. The language is emotional and vivid, as might appeal to a poet: 'Why do you waver? Why do you hesitate? Why do you pay attention to the fantasies of deadly delights, and turn away from us? They lie, they die, and they lead to death. They lie, Licentius!... You give yourself as a drink to Satan! Do not do it, I beg of you.... May you sometime understand with what

ways. Kotzé suggests that scholars could view these hortatory works on a 'sliding scale' between the two genres, rather than requiring rigid division. Annemaré Kotzé, *Augustine's Confessions* (2004), 50-9, gives a much more nuanced discussion of the issues of genre in general, and these two in particular, than I can give today.

[14] *Ep.* 26.1-2 (CSEL 34/1, 83-4).

[15] *Ep.* 26.3 (CSEL 34/1, 85).

[16] *Ep.* 26.4-5 (CSEL 34/1, 86-7).

[17] *Aut si ego canto, tu autem ad aliam vocem saltas, nec sic quidem me paenitet. Habet enim suam hilaritatem ipsa cantatio, etiam cum ad eam membra non movet, cui plena caritatis modulatione cantatur. Ep.* 26.3 (CSEL 34/1, 85).

[18] *Incompositis moribus quod offendi aures dei, levius sit, quam si incompositis syllabis tuis grammatica suscenseret auctoritas. Ep.* 26.4 (CSEL 34/1, 86).

[19] *Ep.* 26.5 (CSEL 34/1, 88).

Digitized by Google

a wretched and pitying heart I have written this. Then, if you fall low in your own estimation, have pity on me.'[20] Augustine used emotions and his own personal connection to Licentius to appeal to the poet in this letter, but in his letter to Dioscorus, the would-be philosopher, the bishop of Hippo relied on reason.

The letter to Dioscorus is much longer than that addressed to Licentius, close to thirty-five pages in the *CSEL*. It appears more general in content than the one to Licentius, perhaps demonstrating that Augustine did not know Dioscorus well. It also contains many 'standard' features of protreptic. For example, it begins with a diatribe against Dioscorus' impudence in sending questions about rhetoric and Cicero's *Dialogues* to the harried bishop of Hippo. Yet Augustine says he was 'on fire' to respond once he read Dioscorus' complaint that he feared that he would be criticized on his upcoming trip to Greece for his lack of philosophical knowledge.[21] Augustine warns Dioscorus of the danger of desiring praise.[22] Still, the bulk of this letter is devoted to outlining the main teachings of a number of philosophical schools, such as the Epicureans, Stoics, and Platonists, and demonstrating the superior philosophy of Christianity.[23] Such refutations are also a standard part of protreptic. He also utilizes medical imagery, a frequent motif of protreptic. For example, Dioscorus' concern as to what others will think of him is a 'soul-sickness' (*languore animi*).[24] It causes a swelling 'under which corruption gathers' and leads to spiritual blindness.[25] Augustine proclaims his desire to 'heal' (*medere*) Dioscorus' illness as far as God will help him.[26] He also uses the common imagery of the 'way' (*via*). This is of course, the way of Christ, which is 'first humility, second humility, third humility....'[27]

Unlike the letter to Licentius, this letter closes calmly, with the remark that he is not sorry to have written at such length. Even if it was not what Dioscorus wanted to hear, it was what he needed to hear.[28] Augustine may not have known Dioscorus well, yet his long letter, and his separate answering of most of Dioscorus' specific questions (Augustine refused to answer the ones on rhetoric),

[20] *Quid aestuas? Quid fluctuas? Quid imaginationibus mortiferarum voluptatum aurem accomodas et avertis a nobis? Mentiuntur, moriuntur, in mortem trahunt. Mentiuntur, Licenti ... Ornari abs te diabolus quaerit ... satanae propinas te ipsum! Noli, obsecro; sic aliquando sentias, quam misero et miserando pectore haec scripserim, et miserearis iam mei, si tibi viluisti. Ep.* 26.6 (CSEL 34/1, 88).

[21] *Hoc loco vero exarsi ad rescribendum tibi ... Ep.* 118.3 (CSEL 34/2, 667).

[22] *Ep.* 118.3-11 (CSEL 34/2, 667-76).

[23] *Ep.* 118.12-33 (CSEL 34/2, 676-97).

[24] *Ep.* 118.3 (CSEL 34/2, 667).

[25] *Habet et tumorem, sub quo etiam tabes gignitur, et pupulae mentis ad non videndam opulentiam veritatis offunditur. Ep.* 118.5 (CSEL 34/2, 670).

[26] *Ep.* 118.3 (CSEL 34/2, 667).

[27] *prima humilitas, secunda humilitas, tertia humilitas ... Ep.* 118.22 (CSEL 34/2, 685).

[28] *Ep.* 118.34 (CSEL 34/2, 697-8).

Digitized by Google

show a concern for Dioscorus' conversion.[29] Possibly Augustine used so many of the standard aspects of protreptic to show his own familiarity with this philosophical genre to the would-be philosopher. He also must have expected the letter to circulate, and seen this as an opportunity to reach out to other philosophically-minded men.

Augustine reached out in his letters to these two young men, but even so, he remained a reluctant spiritual mentor. He made no invitation for a continued mentoring relationship with either man. He referred Licentius to Paulinus of Nola, and his letter to Dioscorus simply asked him to be sure to send word of how the letter reached him.[30] Augustine remained focused on pastoral care.

In closing, I offer a quick response to the question of why Augustine would exert himself in these two instances. Two main motives seem evident. First, Augustine's concern for the spiritual welfare of the Catholic Church meant that he would seek well-educated men like Licentius and Dioscorus to become priests. Augustine had experienced the lack of adequate priests in his own diocese. Possibly he saw the opportunity to recruit these two young men, and others like them, with these letters. The second possible motivation comes from a more personal point of view. Augustine may also have seen Licentius and Dioscorus as younger versions of himself, who had wrestled, and still wrestled, with the desire for fame and praise. How could he not reach out to them, when they asked for help, even if they did not know (as the young Augustine had not) for Whom they were truly seeking?

[29] *Ep.* 118.34 (CSEL 34/2, 697-8).
[30] *Ep.* 26.5 (CSEL 34/1, 88); *Ep.* 118.34 (CSEL 34/2, 698).

Digitized by Google

Digitized by Google

Sensory Perceptions as a Mandatory Requirement for the *via negativa* towards God. The Skilful Paradox of Augustine as Mystagogue

Paul VAN GEEST, Tilburg and Amsterdam

1. Introduction

It seems likely that Augustine, already as student of rhetoric and teacher at Madaura and Carthage (370-83) nursed revulsion against what he considered primitive anthropomorphisms in the Bible and against the anthropomorphically slanted belief in God of the culture of his time. Just as many intellectuals in his day, he was probably also attracted towards the Manicheans because they denounced the Catholics for spreading the idea that God was restricted to human form and had human attributes.

Aided by influential Manicheans around 384 in attaining his readership in rhetoric at Milan, his association with bishop Ambrose of Milan brought about an important change in his thoughts on God. Ambrose's allegorical method of reading the Bible was an indication for Augustine that the Catholic faith did not teach that God has a human body and that the creation of the human being to the likeness of God should not be taken in a literal-anthropomorphic sense (see *conf.* III 7.12; VII 1.1). He came to understand anthropomorphisms as metaphors and as such effective references to the spiritual powers and attributes of God. The reading of the Latin translation of the works of Plotinus and Porphyry by Marius Victorinus brought about another important change. The *libri platonicorum* provided him with the idea that 'spirit' should not be interpreted in terms of matter, however fine and invisible it may be, as the Stoics thought (see *beata u.* 1.4; *conf.* VII 9.13), nor in terms of time or space (*conf.* III 7.12; V 14.25).[1] During his Manichean period it was not yet clear to him that God, as the ground for all being and knowing, was a purely spiritual, immaterial substance (*conf.* VII 1.1.). Although Plotinus acknowledged that the One was to be known through emanations in different forms of being, man, according to Plotinus also realises that through the emanations the One is then more likeley not to be known. Just as Plato before him, Plotinus was wary of knowledge

[1] See Carl W. Griffin, David L. Paulsen, Augustine and the Corporeality of God: *Harvard Theological Review* 95 (2002) 97-118; Roland J. Teske, The Aim of Augustine's Proof that God Really Is: *International Philosophical Quarterly* 26 (1986) 253-68, esp. 259.

Studia Patristica XLIX, 51-58.
© Peeters Publishers, 2010.

Digitized by Google

gleaned through sensory perception. Matter after all belonged to one of the last gradations of being. Plato considered ideas, that is to say the realities which are hidden from all perception or experience, 'higher' in gradations of being than the experiential realities in time and place.[2] He therefore considered it of importance to see the qualities of physically perceptible objects disengaged from these objects in order to gain insight into a universal characteristic of being. In a certain sense, Plato articulated the concept of 'removal' (*aphairesis*): all sensory perceptions and definitions had to be dropped and ruled out in order to become aware of God as the simplest spiritual and absolute being. The more the *Enneads* progressed, the clearer it becomes that Plotinus considered not only the *aphairesis* but especially the *apophasis* of importance. Herein it is judged that man can say what God is not, and can not say who God truly is.[3]

Plotinus' thought, that nothing was left for man but to keep silent, because the spoken words would do more injustice than justice to the absolute divine reality, had a great impact on Augustine.[4] His appreciation of (Neo) Platonism as a companion to Christianity was also motivated by his conviction that the Platonists had rightly understood that it was impossible for something material and mutable to be God.[5] Also through his increasing familiarity with Holy Scripture, Augustine stated in his early work *ord.* that the best way to know Him is by not knowing Him (*ord.* II 16.44) and that the only thing the soul knows of its maker is that it does not know Him (*ord.* II 18.47). Just as the later 'negative theologians' after him, Augustine provides from *ord.* confirming statements with a side note in which the confirmation is negated. Of course, he did not fancy the idea to leave God's mystery such a mystery that no one understood any longer that there even was a mystery. Therefore, especially as bishop, he felt obliged to speak about God. However, when he later speaks of the Trinity, the Incarnation or the humility of Christ, he continuously treads paths which in Medieval times would not only develop into the *via affirmationis* ('*Deus caritas*') or the *via eminentiae* ('*Deus secretissime et praesentissime*') but certainly also into the *via negativa*. Throughout his life he will continue to emphasize that the reality of God is a transcendent reality, *i.e.* a form of being that is

[2] See Lambertus M. de Rijk, *De rol van de taal bij het empirisme bij Aristoteles (384-322 v. Chr.)*, KNAW, Mededelingen van de Afdeling Letterkunde, Nieuwe Reeks, dl. 67, no 1 (Amsterdam, 2004), 15-23, 33-41.

[3] Deirdre Carabine, *The Unknown God: Negative Theology in the Platonic Tradition: Plato to Euriugena* (Leuven, 1995), 1-10, 148-53.

[4] Pierre Hadot, Apophatisme et théologie negative, in: Pierre Hadot, *Exercises spirituels et philosophie antique* (Paris, 1981), 185-93.

[5] *ciu.* 8.6: *Viderunt ergo isti philosophi, ... nullum corpus esse Deum, et ideo cuncta corpora transcenderunt quaerentes Deum. Viderunt, quidquid mutabile est, non esse summum Deum, et ideo animam omnem mutabilesque omnes spiritus transcenderunt quaerentes summum Deum.* Goulven Madec, art. Deus: *AL* Vol. 2., fasc. 1/2 (Basel, 1996), 314-22; fasc. 3/4 (Basel, 1999), 323-66, esp. 315, 333, 342 rightly presumes rather the incorporation of the Platonic vision of God into the Biblical.

Digitized by Google

hors-catégorie. No material nor anthropomorphic personal categories apply to the being of this God, who is *totaliter aliter*: different from all forms of being, or even without or beyond being.[6]

In his *conf.*, which he started as a bishop ca. 397, he analysed with ferocious honesty and with historical accuracy his past feelings and experiences. He articulated them in the form of a continuous prayer with, obviously, paraenetic-protreptic purposes. Also in the *conf.*, he seems to suggest that every representation of the purely spiritual and ineffable God in philosophical reflections or in metaphorical language is an infringement of the divine reality.[7] Even when he addresses God as a personal God, Augustine realizes God being incomprehensible even though God interfered in his own history and even though God's light provided the young Augustine with a new self-understanding.

In this contribution, therefore, we will try based on an individual example to answer the question of how Augustine's negative propositions about God relate to his language about God in his *conf.* In the light of his tribute to Plato and Plotinus, Augustine's virtuosity will be even more obvious when he attempts evoking the experience of God.

2. A paradox in virtuosity

After Augustine had described in book VII the conversion of the intellect, in book VIII that of the will and in book IX the transformation of the feelings, he thematizes in book X of the *conf.* the representation of God in a famous passage. It is expressed in a gripping way that man needs material things (*corporalia*) in order to raise himself towards the immaterial (*incorporalia*). He asks himself whom or what he loves, when he loves God. In the passage he assesses that when loving God he does not love the beauty of the body, the splendour of time, the glittering of light in his earthly eyes, lovely melodies, the smell of flowers, perfumes and spices, manna or honey or bodily embraces. But loving God is rather *something* like a light, the sound of a voice, a certain smell and perfume, an embrace in his inner man: they have eternal value. After satisfaction, for example, the embrace is not released ...:

> But what am I loving when I love you? Not beauty of body nor transient grace, not this fair light which is now so friendly to my eyes, not melodious song in all its lovely harmonies, not the sweet fragrance of flowers or ointments or spices, not manna or honey, not limbs that draw me to carnal embrace: none of these do I love when I love

[6] See for the complete development of Augustine as a negative theologian, including historiography: Paul J.J. van Geest, *Stellig maar onzeker: Augustinus' benadering van God* (Amsterdam, 2008 second edition), 10-256.

[7] *Non te cogitabam, deus, in figura corporis humani, ex quo audire aliquid de sapientia coepi, conf.* VII 1.1; *Et quicquid tibi, cum ista cogitas, corporeae similitudinis occurerit, abnue, nega, respue, abice, fuge, ep.* 120, 13.

Digitized by Google

my God. And yet I do love a kind of light, a kind of voice, a certain fragrance, a food and an embrace, when I love my God: a light, voice, fragrance, food and embrace for my inmost self, where something limited to no place shines into my mind, where something not snatched away by passing time sings for me, where something no breath blows away yields to me its scent, where there is savor undiminished by famished eating, and where I am clasped in a union from which no satiety can tear me away. This is what I love, when I love my God.[8]

This articulation is daring, because God's being is not any more called to mind by way of philosophical *abstracta*, but by thrilling sensory perceptions. The thrill, which resounds in the quote, is however tricky. By focussing on this, the virtuosity is masked in which Augustine applies insights from philosophy in his approach towards God.

At first view Augustine appears to be influenced by Scripture (*Matth.* 6:22-3; *Lc.* 11:33-6) and by Origen's idea that man has an inner potential to 'see', 'hear', and 'taste' spiritual matters.[9] Furthermore, in this short quote reverberates Augustine's reliance on the analogy (*via analogiae*) already used by second century church fathers when referring to Plato's *Politeia*. Plato stated that when man wants to know something about the sun, he cannot look directly at it for he could blind himself. It is better to observe the objects illuminated by it, or to observe the sun's reflection in the water. Analogous to this, it is better for the spirit (*nous*) not to look at the shape of an object in the world of shapes, but to observe the reflection thereof in the transitory world. In this reflection after all, the imperishable form is contained.[10] Besides, the *aphairesis* resounds in the question what one loves when one loves God. Augustine after all thinks of the qualities of material things as not connected to the concrete things which are part of these qualities, without isolating them. He thus wishes to break through an intuitive insight into the universal quality of being, such as beauty. In the intuition of this characteristic Augustine wishes for awareness in order to discover how God can influence mankind. But at the same time, as in one fell swoop, he distances himself from the *aphaeresis*. According to the Platonic and patristic *via eminentiae* he first of all calls to mind the beauty in body. He then distinguishes the Beauty which is God from this experiential beauty, because the latter is incomparable and undoubtedly more perfect ('eminent'): absolutely transcendent and thus not to be known.[11]

Especially in the light of Plotinus is the manner in which Augustine wishes to lead his readers in book X of the *conf.* towards the experience of God to be

[8] *conf.* 10.8.6; translation in: Augustine, *The Confessions*. Introduction, translation and notes Maria Boulding, *The Works of Saint Augustine. A Translation for the 21st Century*. Pt. I: *Books*, vol. 1 (New, York 1997), 242.

[9] See Tarsicius J. van Bavel, Spreken of zwijgen over God bij Augustinus: *Tijdschrift voor Theologie* 37 (1997) 132-47, esp. 144f.

[10] See *Politeia* 514a-518d; Plotinus, *Enneads* I 6,9.

[11] See Plato, *Symposion* 210a vv.

Digitized by Google

called daring. On the one hand the church leader distinguishes between sensory perception of concrete reality and the more spiritual perception of God. On the other hand he also sees them as each others continuation as if to say that in the sensory perception and affects a certain understanding of God can be encompassed. In his *Enneads* Plotinus asks himself what it is in the soul which awakens a passion for Beauty. The statement shows a certain comparison to Augustine in his book X. Plotinus writes:

'What do you feel when you see your own inward beauty? How are you stirred to wild exultation, and long to be with yourselves, gathering your selves together away from your bodies?' For this is what true lovers feel. But what is it which makes them feel like this? Not shape or colour or any size, but soul, without colour itself and possessing all the other lights of the virtues; you feel like this when you see, in yourself or in someone else ...[12]

Immediately following this Plotinus concludes that this high passion awakens when the soul through a good way of life can extract itself more and more from its bodily restraints:

Impure [the soul], I think, and dragged in every direction towards the objects of sense, with a great deal of bodily stuff mixed into it, consorting much with matter and receiving a form other than its own it has changed by a mixture which makes it worse.[13]

It is known, as is mentioned before, that Plotinus taught Augustine how to think about a God who is essentially not a body. And just as Plato and Plotinus, Augustine will for the rest of his life remain of the opinion that the soul will only grow in purity and power the more it extracts itself from mortal and daily concerns. The soul, *quiddam medium* between the unicity of God (*simplicitas*) and the changing complicity of everything and all on earth (*multiplicitas*) must as much as possible focus on the *simplicitas*.[14] However, something different is happening in book X of the *conf.* In answering the question what he loves when he loves God, he shows more appreciation for sensory perception and affectivity than Plotinus. Neo-Platonism ultimately not only fails Augustine in his efforts to arrive at an enduring contemplation of the divine,[15] but also for the realisation of who God is and how God is in the here and now. Plotinus rather pleads for a way of life far removed from sensory perception.[16] Thus Augustine

[12] Plotinus, *Enneads* I 6,5; translation in: *Plotinus, in seven volumes.* With an English translation by A. Hilary Armstrong (Cambridge, Mass., 1989[3]), Vol. 1: *Porphyry on the life of Plotinus, Enneads I. 1-9* (Cambridge, Mass., 1989[3]), 245; see also *Enneads* I 6,1-2 and 4.

[13] Plotinus, *Enneads* I 6,5; translation A.H. Armstrong, 249; see *Enneads* I 6,8.

[14] See *Enneads* I 8,21-3; *Enneads* III 9,3,10-5. See also Ambrose, *De Jacob* 1.28: *Non in delectatione corporis vitae beatitudo est.*

[15] See for this John P. Kenney, *The Mysticism of Saint Augustine: Rereading the Confessions* (New York, 2005). According to Kenney, Augustine induces to abandon the analogy between sense-perception and religious experience and allow a much greater theological scope to the notion of an experiential report.

[16] See also Plotinus, *Enneads* I 4,1-4; *Enneads* I 5,55f.

Digitized by Google

appears to be much more refined than the tributary (neo-) platonic or patristic methods surmise, in reaching for knowledge of God.

Although Augustine does not equate experience of God and sensory perception, he, nevertheless presupposes in his dialogue with God that the human being has become completely aware of the beauty of colours, pleasantness of smells; in short: she must have tasted, sensed and smelled them and even – *to overstress the evidence* with Augustine himself – may have experienced an embrace in order to be able to imagine Him in some way God.

Possibly this appreciation of the sensory perceptions can be rediscovered in Ambrose's appreciation for the *delectatio* as a natural force, through which man can become aware of a trace of God. When Ambrose writes that God did not create the sea in order that one can sail upon it, '*sed propter elementi pulchritudinem*' (*De Helia* 70), in these words at least implicitly lies the appreciation for sensory perception as a way towards God.[17]

To the dualistic and apophatic theologians of his time, this way of relating sensory and affective experiences in order to evoke an inner experience and image of God must have been something like an encroachment of the divine and the Holy, even a blasphemy. But perhaps this was not the case. For it is through a recollection of sensory perception and affections that Augustine tries to articulate the experience of God as exactly contrary to the rather changeable sensory perception. He walks in principle the *via negativa*. Nevertheless, for Augustine the experience of God does become imaginable and concrete through the memory of consciously experienced sensory and emotional perceptions. And so he sees, much more than Plotinus with his emphasis on the detached way of living, that sensory and affective perceptions are necessary for an intuition of God to break through. Seen in the light of his indebtedness to Plato and the patristic tradition, Augustine proves his uniqueness and virtuosity when trying to evoke the experience of God. Showing himself to be aware of the inadequacy of his language, Augustine does not wish to pass by any experience or perception in order to evoke God as a concrete and near God.

In a certain way Augustine explains in *doctr. chr.* the manner in which he works in the *conf.* He begins by framing the Word as something that requires mediation, as it has to be taught through signs (*signa*; in: *doctr. chr.* I 2.2.4.). In his discussion on the *signa ambigua* he clearly accepts the use of *similitudines*, in which things and signs are put together to provide the human mind clearly with an enjoyment pointing ahead to the beatific vision itself (*ibidem* II 6.8.13). In *doctr. chr.* it appears that he implicitly includes and sanctions all *similitudines* other than verbal ways of mediation, like senses for instance. In the

[17] See also Ambrose's *Expositio psalmi CXVIII* 5. 29: *... erige ad caelum; vel nocte stellarum monilia, orbem lunae decorum, vel die solem aspice, specta mare, terram circumspice, ut opere facta divino omnis creatura te pascat. Quae formarum gratia in ipsis bestiis, quantus decor in hominibus, quanta in avibus pulchritude.* With thanks to professor J. den Boeft.

Digitized by Google

knowledge that in what one experiences the experience of God in the beatific vision is more not approached than that it is, and are all earthly means allowed in order to have a life depending premonition of this vision.

3. Conclusion

At the turn of the sixth century, Pseudo-Dionysius made the distinction between negative (apophatic) and positive (kataphatic) theology. The concrete manner in which Christians in his day spoke of God, in line with the canonical texts of the Old and the New Testament was characteristic of this positive theology. Dionysius considered such language as inaccurate, since God's being and activity cannot be defined in terms that mirror or reflect earthly conditions. He deemed it necessary to correct affirmations about God by negations.

Now A. Hilary Amstrong regrets that Augustine did not wholly appreciate Plotinus' apophatic speaking.[18] But we can now conclude that without a doubt Augustine – judging by a keynote in his writings – may be seen as one of the precursors of this apophatic theology. Freed from thinking that God was material and related to the sensual perception of the material world by reading Plotinus, he recognized that even a figurative reading of the divine attributes could not do full justice to God's essence, for they implied material and temporal dimensions. Therefore he thought that these attributes had to be denied, because they were inappropriate to describe the essence of God.

Compared with his precursors and contemporaries however, his uniqueness shows itself in search of human experiences with which to make God perceptible in his imperceptibility. In his *conf.* he draws near to the infinite God not only with abstract terms like such as 'being', 'substance', 'the Absolute', or 'Truth'. He does not hesitate to evoke awareness, an experience of God by appealing to man's sensory faculties. Especially by appealing to what man can see, experience, taste, Augustine negates the negation (*dénegation*). But then he goes on to oppose the words in which he presents the memory of a sensory and affective experience as parallel to the experience of God.

That Augustine appreciates the sensory is also in the light of the history of theology rather interesting. Categorizing the various forms of temptation, Evagrius Ponticus developed a comprehensive list of eight evil thoughts from which all sinful behavior springs. In this he stated that *apatheia* is seen as the highest goal in spiritual life because of a lack of attachment to sensory perception:

The mind could not see the place of God within itself, unless it has transcended all the mental representations associated with objects. Nor will it transcend them, if it

[18] A. Hilary Armstrong, The Escape of the One: An Investigation of some Possibilities of Apophatic Theology Imperfectly Realised in the West: *SP* 13 (1975) 77-89.

Digitized by Google

has not put off the *pathè* that bind it to sensible objects through mental representations.[19]

Augustine thus tries to evoke the experience of God by showing the opposite of Evagrius' *apatheia*. The monks of Hadrametum and the *Massilienses* in southern Gaul under the leadership of Cassian were after 418 of the opinion that in Augustine's view on mercy there was hardly any room for the free will. Tributary to the monastic sources from Egypt and Palestine, Evagrius Ponticus and especially Origen, the monks developed a *monastica vivendi forma*, in which flaws were banned and virtue practiced actively as if in a strife (*agon*). In their adaption of the works of Evagrius for Western audiences, they placed great emphasis (just as the young Augustine in *De libero arbitrio*) on the indispensible good will as developed by man himself in order to be receptive towards Gods grace where the later Augustine in his refutation of the Pelagian view presumes grace for the will to be good. Small surprise therefore that the monks were upset by Augustine's ideas. It is also not surprising that it has been stated that in this ascetic purification of the soul the monks had developed a kind of optimistic humanism. [20]

Where Augustine's monastic opponents neglect sensory perceptions in their 'humanistic' quest for *apatheia*, Augustine himself does appear paradoxically to encompass these in his idea of the human progress towards God which already since his *Ad Simplicianum* (395) is distinguished by the emphasis that there is nothing which mankind has not already received.

What the church father does share with the monks is the idea that it is impossible to put into words the divine essence and actions. Whether as a young priest or an old bishop, Augustine keeps on repeating his advice that man in his way of life should avoid being drawn towards the material, and that he should not adapt the image of God to the attachment to earthly representations. Before all, he prefers to speak of God as an ineffable secret, who nonetheless may be addressed as a person. This emphasis is a keynote of his work. This however does not alter the fact that the complete person – body, soul and spirit – on earth is involved in this quest for God as origin and purpose of his life.

[19] Evagrius, *On Thoughts* 40,1-4. Translation in: *Evagrius of Pontus: The Greek Ascetic Corpus*. Translated by Robert E. Sinkewicz (Oxford and New York, 2003).

[20] Donato Ogliari, Gratia et certamen: *The relationship between grace and free will in the discussion of Augustine with the so-called semipelagians*, Bibliotheca Ephemeridum Theologicarum Lovaniensium 169 (Leuven, 2003), 403-8.

Digitized by Google

Light and Illumination in Augustine: Revisiting an Old Theme

Marie-Anne VANNIER, Université de Metz

Though a Westerner, Augustine gave great importance to light and illumination: the theme of light recurs some one thousand nine hundred times in his work and illumination one thousand and five times. He deals with them in almost all his works, and especially in his great works: *Confessions*, *De Trinitate*, *De Genesi ad litteram*, *De Civitate Dei*, in his *Sermons* and his *Letters*, in *Enarrationes in Psalmos* and in his *Commentary of John's Gospel*, but Augustine does not invariably choose the Greek framework of vision, but balances it with the Hebraic view of hearing. What does he intend by this? As a Mediterranean, Augustine paid attention to the brightness of the light; as a manichaean, he was attentive to light. But he does not remain here and denies any kind of pantheism, which made the soul as a part of divine light. More radically, he had an experience of light during his conversion and met the root of light, who is Christ. Even if he did not immediately understand, he intuitively perceived the unique nature of this light and, to emphasize its difference, he uses a new word, that of *reverberatio* to point out how much he was grasped by this light, he was illuminated by the source of light. In fact, does he not convey his Christology, his soteriology and even his mysticism through the themes of light and illumination, thus inverting the manichaean point of view? It appears as early as his commentary of the second verse of Psalm twenty six, which is the maxim of Oxford University: *Deus illuminatio mea*. Augustine points out that God himself illuminates and saves[1] us, that our relationship to God is basic and that it has to do with the continual creation to salvation.

Light and intellectual illumination

However, Augustinian scholars had not always underbred things in this way: they have tended to treat light and illumination from a gnoseological point of view, as we can see in *Recherches augustiniennes* II and in the thesis by Dominique Doucet on *La problématique de la lumière*.[2] It is true that Augustine

[1] *Sermon 2 on Psalm 26*.

[2] Paris, 1982. See also: W. Beierwaltes, art. Erleuchtung: *Historisches Wörterbuch für Philosophie* 2 (1972) 712-7; B.S. Bubacz, Augustine's illumination theory and epistemic structuring:

Studia Patristica XLIX, 59-64.
© Peeters Publishers, 2010.

Digitized by Google

develops a theory of knowing, that he deals with intellectual illumination, that he is influenced by Plato, who in *Republic*, identifies the sun with the Good and sees in it the very principle of knowing, through the famous symbol of line, whose echo is the myth of the cave, where the way of knowledge is identified with the coming into the light, to the gradual ascent until the moment when the prisoner sees the truth through the sun that allows him to know the sensible world and introduces him to the intelligible world. So, Augustine unfolds his theory of knowledge.

But, Augustine is certainly also influenced[3] by the Neoplatonists who wrote the famous *Libri Platonicorum*. Among those Neoplatonists, Augustine seems to be strongly influenced by Plotinus who interprets Plato to work out a theory of knowledge from the light *(Ennead* V 3.8), and who, on the other hand, identifies light with the One, the sun with the Noûs and the moon with the soul *(Enn.* V 6.4). However, even though Augustine gives great importance to the illumination in his theory of knowledge, he does not introduce a hierarchy, as in Plotinus, and with regard to the question of creation he substitutes the Plotinian emanation by the *Fiat lux* of *Genesis*. Following the Church Fathers, he suggests a different interpretation of the sun, identifying it with Christ, as in *John's Gospel*. He intends to deal with creation and the new creation through the notions of light and illumination.

Augustine, too, unfolds a new theory of knowledge[4], in works such as *De magistro* and Book XI of *trin*. In fact, he is seeking for truth, and he is one of the first to give a theory of perception on this basis.[5] He distinguishes between the thing perceived, the sense of vision and the intention of the will *(Tr.* XI 2). Probably, he takes again the Platonic theory of knowledge, but does not go, like Descartes, as far as dioptric, but he doesn't stop at this knowledge, coming from the spirit's light. During his debate with Faustus, he explains that there is a higher light: the intellectual light, that is God himself: 'This light is not yet the very Light that is God, because the one is creature, and the other the Creator, the one is the work, the other the worker' (*c. Faust.* XX 7). God is really the 'sun of the minds'.[6]

When Augustine became a pastor, he had to give an account of that very light that is God, from the Scripture in contrast to the roman worship of *Sol*

Augustinian Studies 11 (1980) 35-48; R.H. Nash, *The light of the mind: S. Augustine's theory of knowledge* (Lexington, 1969); *id.* art. Illumination divine: *Encyclopédie S. Augustin* (Paris, 2005), 725-8.

[3] See R.H. Nash, Some philosophic sources of Augustine's illumination theory: *Augustinian Studies* 2 (1971) 47-66.

[4] F. Körner, Abstraktion oder Illumination? Das ontologische Problem der augustinischen Sinneserkenntnis: *Recherches Augustiniennes* 2 (1962) 81-109.

[5] See G. Madec, La lumière intérieure de la Vérité, BA 6 (1976), 543-5, 543.

[6] R. Jolivet, *Dieu soleil des esprits ou la doctrine augustinienne de l'illumination* (Paris, 1934).

Digitized by Google

invictus, and he does this in a magisterial manner in his *Sermons*, in the *Psalm Commentaries* and in his *Commentary on John's Gospel* to invite Christians into the new life in Christ.

The mystical illumination

Augustine did not share the Greek Fathers' view, identifying *phôs* and *Théos*. He did not have S. Benedict's vision of the world in a light's beam (Gregory the Great, *Dialogues* II 35), but his conversion is an experience of light, of creative light, as he says in *Conf.* VII 10,16. This experience has a Neoplatonic framework, but it goes beyond it in understanding of creative light and the relational nature of that light. Furthermore, Augustine develops his account by introducing a new idea, that of *reverberatio*,[7] that expresses the way in which the creative light comes to him and lifts him up to itself. But, before explaining in *Gn. litt.* and in his *Commentary on John's Gospel*, the nature of that light, which corresponds to that of vision *(Gn. litt.* XII 27,54), Augustine studies the spiritual light and, for him, as for the Neoplatonists, the light is spiritual before being sensible.[8] As he says in *Letter* 120, §10: 'This light, where we see all of that is not a sun's beam, it is like to no other light that strikes our eyes, but invisibly and unutterably, it shines in an intelligible way and is as real as all we can see with it.'

This light is unique, transcendent, it is God himself, who invites us to take part of his life. Augustine explains this in *civ.* X 1 (BA 34, pp. 423-5), where he says that he 'chose the Platonists, because they recognized that human soul, though immortal and intellectual, cannot be blessed, without taking part in God's light, by whom the soul and the world were made'. Did the Platonists agree with this assertion? They doubtless had a sense of transcendance, but even if they recognized the reality of participation, they never speak of creation in this context, whereas for Augustine, light is created and derives from the source of light, that is the Creator himself.

Moreover, in this passage of *civ.*, Augustine implicitely acknowledges that the soul is created at the image of God. Through Ambrose, he discovered the spiritual nature of God's image *(conf.* VI 3,4) and he expresses it as *modicum lumen:* a little light *(conf.* X 23,33), present in each being, which is another way of speaking of the Interior Master.[9]

Because of his manichaean past, Augustine does not take account of the Pauline opposition between light and darkness. Similarly, he does not comment

[7] J. Pépin, *Ex platonicorum persona. Études sur les lectures philosophiques de S. Augustin* (Amsterdam, 1977), 6f.

[8] F.J. Thonnard, La notion de lumière en philosophie augustinienne: *Revue des Etudes Augustiniennes* 2 (1962) 125-75, 126.

[9] D. Doucet, Le *modicum lumen* et l'étincelle: *Augustiniana* 46 (1996) 45-59.

Digitized by Google

at any length on the Transfiguration, which was dealt with by manichaeans, but he rather chooses a Johannine point of view.

More fundamentally, he explains that Christ makes known to us the Light, that he is Himself as one of the Trinity, and illuminates us. Augustine writes in *Sermon* 78,2 about the Transfiguration: 'Jesus himself appeared shining as the sun, showing that he is himself "the true light that enlightens all men" (*Jn.* 1:9). What the sun is for the body's eyes, Jesus is for the heart's eyes; the one is for the soul, the other for the body'. Doubtless Augustine is not offering a christological treatise here, but he is laying its foundations.

As for vocabulary, Augustine interchangeably uses: *Lux*, conveying light, and *Lumen*, the means of enlightment. When he distinguishes them, we understand that '*lux* refers to the source of light or its diffusion, whereas *lumen*, is rather a light, directed towards the one or another thing, that appears thus as mediatory or relational (...). Instead of indicating a clear difference, it rather hints at a distinction, a colouring given by the language itself'.[10] For example, he does not call Christ *lux*, but *lumen de lumine*. Moreover, he distinguishes between a sensible, a spiritual and an intellectual light. Some scholars[11] have paid attention to that mystical component of Augustine's thought about illumination, but they have not taken into account the central place of Christ, who is both light and the source of illumination.

Christ, the illuminating Light

It is mainly in his commentary on *John's Gospel* that Augustine develops his thought and explains that Christ is the true light, the light that enlightens every human being, who came into the world, so that he is known as the son of God: '*Illa vita lux est hominum*' (*Io. ev. tr.* 1,18). In a wider sense, he calls him *dies* ('*Quid est dies sine lumen?*' *S.* 189,1).

In his *Commentary on John's Gospel* XXXIV et XXXV, Augustine explains *John* 8:12, where Christ says: 'I am the light of the world'. He conveys the uniqueness of that light (XXXIV 4, BA 73A, p. 125). It is both the creative light, an expression of the Trinity, and the light which has come to us in Christ, who took a *forma servi* to give us the *forma Dei* (*Phil.* 2). It is from this passage that Augustine takes the way and the goal, as he explains in his *Commentary on John's Gospel* 34 (n. 9, p. 139): 'Remaining with the Father, the Son is Truth and Life; by his Incarnation, he becomes the Way'. This theme of native land

[10] D. Doucet, La problématique de la lumière chez S. Augustin: *Bulletin de littérature ecclésiastique* 100 (1999) 31-58, 37f.

[11] R. Jolivet, *Dieu, soleil des esprits: La doctrine augustinienne de l'illumination* (Paris, 1934); J. Ooroz Reta, De l'illumination à la déification de l'âme selon S. Augustin: *SP* 27 (1993) 364-82; A. Sage, Dialectique de l'illumination: *Recherches Augustiniennes* II (1963) 111-23.

Digitized by Google

and way, that we also find in *Sermon Dolbeau* 26, again takes the form of light and illumination. By illuminating us, Christ directs us to the blessed native land.

John the Baptist is one of the first to receive this illumination that is Christ's light: 'He also can be called light, and it 's right that he is called light, but an enlightened light, not the Light that enlightens. Other is, in fact, the Light that illuminates, other the light that is illuminated' (*Io. ev. tr.* 14,1, p. 717). Augustine paradoxically, uses here the word *lumen* and not *lux* to depict the source of light who is Christ, 'the greater of all the children born of women' (*Matth.* 11:11), John the Baptist, whom he depicts in *Sermon* 288 as the voice in relation to the Word, who is Christ, receives the illumination, but he is not himself the root of light. The Light comes from Christ, one does not give to oneself. Augustine says, furthermore, that John the Baptist was himself a lamp (*Io. Ev. Tr.* II 8-9), he also says that he was 'a mountain, himself elevated in order to receive, the first, the sun's beams and to reflect them' (*Io. Ev. Tr.* II 5, BA 71, p. 185). He was a witness to the light, because he himself received light, but he was not the root of light, as Augustine points out in the course of his sermon (n. 7, p. 187): 'By saying that he was illuminated and enlightened, and not the one who illuminates and enlightens, John made known the one who illuminates, he made known the one who is illuminated, he made known the one who fills'. Being the friend of God, he directs to God, to the one who is the source of his life (*Io. Ev. Tr.* III 5).

It is the same as with the Apostles whom Augustine depicts as lamps (*lucernae, Io. ev. tr.* 33,3[12]), who receive their light from Christ. In the *Commentary on Psalm* 35, §9, he says that 'Christ threw on the Apostles, as on mountains, the first beams of his light which went down the earthly valleys'. He illuminated them, and, they, in their turn, brought Christ's light.

In *De Genesi ad litteram* 1,4,9, in particular, Augustine considers the beings of light: the angels for whom *conversio and formatio* are one, and he makes them the prototype of mankind. By their conversion, they are illuminated and fixed in their form.

For the human being, it is in a pure heart and in time, that light is received and gives the interior vision of God, as Augustine explains in *Letter* 147. Paulina's question 'to know whether the invisible God can be seen with corporal eyes' (§1) refers to light, to theophany, and implies that leads Augustine to be specific. He explains, that 'we cannot see God either with corporeal eyes (...), or with the eyes of the mind' (§3), but in a pure heart. What is this vision without sight? Augustine does not define what is pure in the heart here, but he refers immediately to the Beatitudes, pointing to that purity of heart that is not so much the result of a personal endeavour than a gift of God, which already allows us to take part of his life; it is an illumination that is given. It is both

[12] M.F. Berrouard, La lumière et les lampes: *BA* 72 (1977) 762f.

Digitized by Google

the renewal of the image of God through conversion and the gift of this newness that renders man 'able to contemplate God's glory'.[13] It is an horizon beyond this life, but which becomes by and by real, through the love of God and neighbour. So Augustine looks to the new creation and particularly to the Holy Spirit. Doubtless, he needed time to understand the place of the Holy Spirit, but in his *Commentary on John's Gospel*, he gives Him his full stature. He also stresses that Christ alone is Mediator (I 19). Thus, he reinterprets the theme of the native land and way in *Letter* 147, so that the native land is vision of God and the way is purity of heart, or humility, as he explains in *Sermon Dolbeau 26* (§59). From this theme of native land and way, he studies the light which is God and towards whom Christ leads us, in so far as we accept his design. Thus, it is through the dialectic of *conversio ad Deum* or *aversio a Deo* and the theology of baptism, that Augustine takes account of the illumination, which is given to us *(S. Guelf.* 5,2; *conf.* 13).

* * *

Light and illumination have a central place in Augustine's work and he uses them as analogies to speak of God and of participation in his life. More radically, he develops here his christology and, from those ideas, illustrates the meaning of creation and *filiatio Dei*, which indicates the theological weight of 'light' and 'illumination' as core themes.

[13] *Letter* 147, 49.

Digitized by Google

Sul ruolo metodologico del vocabolario nella lettura della teologia agostiniana della grazia (397-428)

Vittorino GROSSI, Rome

Per affrontare il problema del vocabolario teologico della grazia negli scritti agostiniani degli anni 397-428,[1] è costume di partire da una indicazione di Agostino da lui data nelle *Retractationes* (2,1,1) a proposito delle *Quaestiones ad Simplicianum* del 397.[2] In quella data – lui confessò più tardi, nel 427 – aveva recepito dalla lettura di 1*Cor.* 4:7 ("Cosa hai tu che non hai ricevuto?") la coscienza della necessità della grazia come sorgente nell'uomo di ogni opera buona, che prima aveva posto nel libero arbitrio.

«Nella soluzione di questa questione – egli annota – mi sono dato molto da fare per sostenere il libero arbitrio della volontà umana, ma ha vinto la grazia di Dio» (*Retr.* 2,1,1).

Il nodo centrale della seconda questione a Simpliciano, che riporta la nuova lettura della comprensione della grazia da parte di Agostino, non era stato tanto la questione della predestinazione o meno alla grazia da parte di Dio ovvero l'elezione della grazia come vogliono alcuni,[3] e neanche primariamente la sua liberalità o gratuità nel donarla,[4] bensì la sua necessità per un bene che trae origine dalla stessa grazia benché prodotto nella volontà dell'uomo. Da ciò conseguiva per Agostino di non dover attribuire, da parte della creatura umana, all'iniziativa del suo volere il bene che la riannoda a Dio. Le nuances di riflessione e di sviluppo su tale rapporto si trovano nell'esame dei testi in questione

[1] Per altri aspetti integrativi, ad es. la retorica, vedi Barbara Kursawe, Docere-delectare-movere*: Die officia oratoris bei Augustinus in Rethorik und Gnadenlehre* (Paderborn, 2000) (rec. in *ZAC* 7, 2003, 168-9); e l'esegesi, vedi Marie-François Berrouard, L'exégèse augustinienne de Rom 7, 7-225 entre 396 et 418: *Recherches Augustiniennes* 16 (1981) 101-95 con le annotazioni di Pierre-Marie Hombert, *Augustin prédicateur de la grâce au début de son épiscopat*, in: Goulven Madec (a cura di), *Augustin prédicateur (395-411). Actes du Colloque international de Chantilly (5-7 septembre 1996)* (Paris, 1998), 217-45, 226-7.

[2] Ad es. Pierre-Marie Hombert, *Augustin prédicateur* (1998). Raccoglie elementi circa la grazia dalla predicazione di Agostino negli anni 395-411.

[3] Per tale motivo le considerazioni radicali su tale testo da parte di alcuni studiosi, non sono pertinenti, ad es. Gaietano Lettieri, La crisi del De doctrina christiana di Agostino: *Cristianesimo nella storia* 18 (1997) 1-60, tesi confluita nel volume del medesimo autore, *L'altro Agostino* (Brescia, 2001). Sulla lettura profetica dei testi sui due fratelli e dei buoni e cattivi nella Chiesa prima dell'anno 412 (vedi Pierre-Marie Hombert, *Augustin prédicateur de la grâce*, 1998, 221-4).

[4] Su questo tema, vedi Piere-Marie Hombert, Gloria gratiae. *Se glorifier en Dieu, principe et fin de la théologie augustinienne de la grâce* (Paris, 1996), 35-108.

Studia Patristica XLIX, 65-71.
© Peeters Publishers, 2010.

Digitized by Google

sino al 414, ma il dato pare acquisito con le *Questioni a Simpliciano*[5] in cui con la liberalità gratuita della grazia si sottolinea la radice divina di ogni bene nell'uomo che non gli consente di gloriarsene al posto di Dio. Lo sviluppo successivo della teologia agostiniana della grazia, articolatasi gradatamente con un proprio vocabolario s'innescherà sempre su questa base.

Nell'*Ad Simplicianum* pertanto Agostino non nega il libero arbitrio, solo ne evidenzia l'incapacità se rimane asservito al peccato: per la giustificazione, per liberarsi dal peccato, per credere, per amare. Egli scrive:

Liberum voluntatis arbitrium plurimum valet; immo vero est quidem, sed in venumdatis sub peccato quid valet? ... Praecipitur ut recte vivamus ... sed quis potest recte vivere et bene operari, nisi iustificatus ex fide? Praecipitur ut credamus ... sed quis potest credere, nisi aliqua vocatione, hoc est, aliqua rerum testificatione tangatur? Quis habet in potestate tali viso attingi mentem suam, quo eius voluntas moveatur ad fidem?... et petere et quaerere et pulsare ille concedit. (*Simpl.* 1,2,21)

La volontà, per aderire a Dio come a qualsiasi oggetto, ha tuttavia bisogno di essere attirata dall'amore ma tale amore che la riannoda a Dio l'ispira in essa lo stesso Dio:

Restat ergo ut voluntates eligantur. Sed voluntas ipsa, nisi aliquid occurrerit quod delectat atque invitet animum, moveri nullo modo potest: hoc autem ut occurrat, non est in hominis potestate. (e porta l'esempio dell'apostolo Paolo, *Simpl.* 1,2,22)

I testi che abbiamo riportato vengono interpretati tanto diversamente dagli studiosi, qui tentiamo d'indicarne qualche ragione.

Con l'*Ad Simplicianum* scriveva D. Marafioti Agostino ha concluso la sua maturazione teologica sulla grazia, dandocene quasi un sistema completo.[6] Che anzi l'angolazione dell'*Ad Simplicianum* è la grazia che raggiunge ogni soggetto tramite gli eterni giudizi di Dio, scriveva ancora A. Zeoli,[7] un irrigidimento per Kurt Flasch di cui Agostino avrebbe approfondito in futuro solo degli aspetti senza tuttavia apportarvi cambiamenti decisivi.[8] Altri autori vedono nei medesimi testi una maturazione teologica acquisita gradualmente dal vescovo d'Ippona.[9]

[5] *Simpl.* 1,2,10 e 12. Di tale idea è anche Pierre-Marie Hombert, *Augustin prédicateur de la grâce* (1998), 227-8 assieme ad altri che cita nella nota 34.

[6] E' la posizione di Domenico Marafioti, Il problema dell'initium fidei in sant'Agostino fino al 397: *Augustinianum* 21 (1981) 541-65; *id.*, *Alle origini del teorema della predestinazione*, SEA 25 (Roma, 1987), 257-77 (Agostino userebbe *propositum* invece del termine *praedestinatio*).

[7] Angelo Zeoli, *La teologia agostiniana della grazia fino alle* Quaestiones ad Simplicianum *(396)* (Napoli, 1963).

[8] Kurt Flasch, *Die Logik des Schreckens: Augustinus von Hippo*, De diversis quaestionibus ad Simplicianum 1,2 (Mainz 1990; 2 ed. 1995), 7-138 (1990).

[9] Giovanni Martinetto, Les premières réactions antiaugustiniennes de Pélage: *REAug* 17 (1971) 83-117. La ritiene un'illuminazione divina nel leggere le Scritture, in particolare l'apostolo Paolo, come la giudicò Agostino (*praed. sanct.* 4,8); José Oroz Reta, La gracia inicial ... segun

Digitized by Google

In questa ricerca/messa a punto, sull'approccio alla teologia della grazia nei testi agostiniani dal 397 al 428, pensiamo di poter portare un piccolo contributo, scegliendo di attenerci strettamente al formarsi del suo vocabolario.[10] Un vocabolario, oltre ad essere un insieme semiologico, esprime il legame di comprensione dell'insieme strutturale di una cultura, di un pensiero come di un testo, nel nostro caso di quanto abbiamo negli scritti di Agostino circa il rapporto dell'uomo con Dio mediato dal termine "grazia". Questa scelta metodologica, oltre a consentirci di limare e precisare il vocabolario sulla grazia utilizzato da Agostino, può anche aiutare ad individuare e a comprendere più adeguatamente gli stessi contesti di tale vocabolario, la cui ricerca diversifica praticamente la non poca letteratura sull'argomento che, per motivi di sintesi, potrebbe essere raggruppata in due filoni.

1. Il primo comprende la considerazione della grazia in Agostino come problema a sé stante, in qualche modo estrapolato dai suoi contesti. Quest'angolazione fu prevalente nella produzione teologica post-tridentina ancorata alle diverse scuole teologiche e rimasta pressocché predominante sino al Concilio Vaticano II (1962-65).[11]

2. Il secondo filone comprende lo studio della teologia della grazia negli scritti agostiniani dopo il Congresso di Parigi del 1954[12] e soprattutto dopo il concilio Vaticano II quando, cresciuta la sensibilità dell'attenzione alla storia, si studiarono di più i contesti di formazione e maturazione della teologia di Agostino. Secondo tale ottica di ricerca nacquero le edizioni bilingue dell'*opera omnia* di S. Agostino (in particolare l'edizione francese della "Bibliothèque Augustinienne" – iniziata già nel 1939 – e l'edizione italiana "La Nuova Biblioteca Agostiniana", iniziata il 1965), e si produssero e si producono molti pregevoli studi. Tuttavia non poche di tali ricerche spesso danno luogo a letture agostiniane che, più che arricchire le angolazioni del pensiero dell'Ipponate, si concentrano nel rilevare dei suoi scompensi teologici, in particolare sul terreno

san Agustín, in: *Augustine: Mystic and Mystagogue*, Collectanea Augustiniana (New York, 1994), 231-49. Nello Cipriani dal canto suo dà anche indicazioni cronologiche di tale cambiamento ma sul versante della volontà, per cui l'*Ad Simplicianum* sarebbe già un correttivo di Agostino ad una sua posizione sull'autonomia della volontà degli anni 394-5, Nello Cipriani, *L'autonomia della volontà nell'atto di fede: le ragioni per una teoria prima accolta e poi respinta da S. Agostino*, SEA 48 (Roma, 1995), 7-17.

[10] Un tentativo del genere ma relativo al termine *gloria* è quello di Piere-Marie Hombert, Gloria gratiae (1996); un tentativo più ampio lo facemmo qualche anno addietro, vedi Vittorino Grossi, Per una lettura del tema della grazia nell'*In Ioannem* di S. Agostino, in: Luigi Padovese (a cura di), *Atti del VII Simposio di Efeso su S. Giovanni Apostolo* (Roma, 1999), 245-58.

[11] Vittorino Grossi, Indicazioni sulla recezione-utilizzazione di Agostino d'Ippona nella teologia post-tridentina: *Lateranum* 62 (1996) 221-51.

[12] Il 1954, anniversario della nascita di Aurelio-Agostino, produsse i tre volumi del Congresso internazionale di Parigi (*Augustinus Magister*, voll. 1-3, Parigi, 1955) che, insieme alla nascita nel 1955 della *Revue des Études Augustiniennes*, sono da considerarsi uno spartiacque nello studio dell'Ipponate.

Digitized by Google

della comprensione della grazia. Richiamiamo in proposito due esempi dallo studio del contesto della polemica donatista, che avrebbe segnato la teologia di Agostino della grazia e quella sacramentale della Chiesa cattolica.

Bisogna dire che una lettura di fraintendimento del pensiero di Agostino soprattutto sul terreno de la grazia è molto antica, si ebbe già lui vivente. Infatti circa la sua ricezione della grazia, dopo la condanna del pelagianesimo del 418 essa ebbe un impatto molto negativo particolarmente negli ambienti del monachesimo delle Gallie con i quali il vescovo d'Ippona entrò apertamente in polemico dialogo dagli anni 426/27 in poi.[13]

Riferisce infatti Prospero di Aquitania nella lettera ad un certo Rufino che *maligni rumores* (*Ep. ad Rufinum* 1) infamavano nelle Gallie gli scritti antipelagiani di Agostino, perché accusati di contenere due errori, la negazione del libero arbitrio e di usare il termine grazia con il significato di fato.[14]

Nell'ambito della polemica donatista, stando ad alcuni studiosi Agostino, nella sua risposta a Simpliciano (nel 397), avrebbe sviluppato un concetto di grazia secondo la categoria del potere dello Stato romano, e cioè una teologia della giustificazione come potenza (*Gewalt*).[15] In altre parole la forza della *coercitio* statale, utilizzata nella polemica donatista, sarebbe diventata in Agostino un parametro della divina efficienza della grazia divina sulla volontà umana.

La costrizione (*terror*) dello Stato era invece per Agostino quella *utilis admonitio* (*Ep.* 93, 6,20) che può diventare mezzo salutare (*Ep.* 93, 1,1), il concetto del rapporto tra la *correptio* dell'autorità e la *correctio* del soggetto[16] che sviluppò poi articolatamente nel *De correptione et gratia* (a. 427) per i monaci, nel significato che la grazia di Dio raggiunge l'uomo in ogni situazione umana, anche in un intervento autoritativo. Per cui in tale ottica una pecorella smarrita

[13] Pensiamo che la stessa polemica con i monaci di Adrumeto avesse in realtà presenti i monaci provenzali i quali erano d'ispirazione origeniana, vedi Vittorino Grossi, L'origenismo latino negli scritti agostiniani: dagli origenisti agli origeniani: *Augustinianum* 46 (2006) 51-89.

[14] *Ep. ad Rufinum* 3,4: «*(Ipsi) scripta eius (Augustini), quibus error pelagianorum impugnatur, infamant; dicentes eum liberum arbitrium penitus submovere, et sub gratiae nomine necessitatem praedicare fatalem. Adijicientes etiam, duas illum generis humani generis massas, et duas credi velle naturas: ut scilicet tantae pietatis viro paganorum et manichaeorum ascribatur impietas*». Queste stesse accuse, se prescindiamo da quanto Agostino stesso riferisce nella lettera al presbitero romano Sisto (a. 419) di essere accusato di fatalismo (*Ep.* 194, 6, 22-3), si trovano standardizzate nella polemica di Giuliano di Eclano con Agostino da dopo l'anno 420.

[15] Vedi Kurt Flasch, *Die Logik des Schreckens* (1995), 318 e 116-20, seguito tra gli altri da Lenka Karfiková, *Die Einheit der Kirche: Gnade und Gewalt in Augustins Polemik gegen die Donatisten*, in: *Einheit und Katholizität der Kirche*, Pro Oriente 32 (Innsbruck, 2009), 283-96. Di una radicalizzazione della grazia a motivo della plemica donatista, scriveva anche James Patout Burns, *The Development of Augustine's Doctrine of Operative Grace*, Etudes Augustiniennes (Paris, 1980), 75-90.

[16] Vittorino Grossi, Correptio – correctio – emendatio in Agostino d'Ippona: Terminologia penitenziale e monastica: *Augustinianum* 38 (1998) 215-22.

Digitized by Google

può essere riportata al suo pastore anche con la *coercitio*, come si ha nelle sacre Scritture dell'Apostolo Paolo:

Come Paolo fu forzato da Cristo –scrive Agostino-, la Chiesa non fa che imitare il suo Signore nel forzare costoro, anche se nei primi tempi non costrinse alcuno, ma aspettò che si compissero le profezie relative alla fede dei prìncipi e dei popoli pagani. (*Ep.* 185, 6,23)

Agostino pertanto, nonostante questa sua presa di posizione in polemica con i donatisti, non elaborò tuttavia da tale polemica il concetto di predominanza della grazia per giustificare l'uso costrittivo delle leggi civili. Forse tale passaggio poteva anche farsi ma lui, coscientemente, non volle coinvolgere il tema della grazia e della libertà nella polemica donatista. Difatti nella richiesta del donatista Parmeniano (opera datata tra il 397-404) di utilizzare 1*Cor.* 4:7 "Cosa hai che non hai ricevuto" (il medesimo della risposta a A Simpliciano) per l'idea che nessuno dà quello che non ha (la posizione donatista sulla santità del ministro nell'amministrazione dei sacramenti),[17] Agostino non diede nessun commento in relazione alla grazia, che anzi lasciò espressamente da parte tale suggestione.[18]

Nella polemica donatista il vescovo d'Ippona solo fece presente che l'attrattiva della grazia non toglie il libero arbitrio.[19] Nella questione della sua accettazione dell'intervento imperiale nelle questioni religiose si trattava perciò del valore delle leggi per un cittadino romano anche se cristiano e non della grazia assimilata alla categoria della forza della legge. L'individuazione del vocabolario della grazia in tale periodo potrebbe dare qualche indicazione in merito a chi pensa di poter trasferire assimilando in Agostino il concetto giuridico della forza della legge civile in quello teologico della forza della grazia.[20]

Pensiamo che siffatte indicazioni, che possiamo leggere e utilizzare in qualche modo come ipotesi di lavoro, provengano tuttavia ad alcuni studiosi di

[17] Ottato aveva espreso il medesimo pensiero come segue: «*Qui non habet quod det, quomodo dat?*» (*De schismate donatistarum* 5,4). L'intero cap. 13 dello scritto *Contro la lettera di Parmeniano*, una piccola somma di sacramentaria agostiniana, è dedicato a questo argomento.

[18] *Ep. Parm.* 2,13,27 Agostino precisa: «A prescindere dai motivi e dagli scopi di questa affermazione dell'Apostolo (Che hai tu che non hai ricevuto?), che vengono chiamati nel contesto della lettera ...».

[19] Scrive infatti nel *Contra litteras Petiiani* 2,84,185-6: «(Chiedeva Petiliano) Ma perché non lasciate che ciascuno segua il suo libero arbitrio, visto che il Signore Dio ha dato agli uomini il libero arbitrio ... (risponde Agostino) Se io ti ponessi la questione: come può, Dio Padre, attrarre al Figlio gli uomini che ha lasciato liberi, forse la risolveresti con difficoltà. Come li può attirare infatti se ha lasciato a tutti la libertà di scegliere? Eppure sono vere tutte e due le cose, ma solo pochi sono in grado di comprenderlo con l'intelligenza». Egli solo faceva osservare che la grazia di Dio non asservisce la libertà ma sottomettendola a Dio la rende libera: «*Hanc accipiens a Domino gratiam, ut ei non necessitate, sed voluntate deserviat*» (*En. Ps.* 115,6).

[20] Le *Ep.* 93 (del 407-8) e *Ep.* 185 (del 417) vengono soprattutto utilizzate dagli autori in questione per assimilare la grazia alla costrizione. Esse tuttavia sono tra le più importanti per capire in Agostino il rapporto tra le leggi civili e l'agire ecclesiastico di un vescovo del tardoantico.

Digitized by Google

Agostino dalla loro formazione scolastica post-tridentina che, impegnata nella distinzione del naturale dal soprannaturale, coltivava in teologia l'istanza razionale senza prendere coscienza delle trasposizioni che si verificavano sul terreno teologico. Gli indebiti passaggi teologici si ammantarono di una loro razionalità, non facilmente visibile soprattutto per i meno esperti. Iniziando da Cartesio si passò dal primato della ragione a quella forza della ragione che, trasposta in teologia, divenne in Giansenio e giansenisti la teologia della grazia efficace. Se la logica dei giansenisti si destreggiava tra questioni di diritto e di fatto per accettare o meno interventi dell'autorità papale in questioni dottrinali, salvaguardando tuttavia in qualche modo gli ambiti della *fides* e della *ratio*;[21] la logica teologica dei controversisti postridentini, pur mirando a distinguere adeguatamente il naturale dal soprannaturale di fatto li unificava nella razionalità del tutto. Medesimi testi agostiniani facevano da supporto autoritario agli uni e agli altri, ma i contesti agostiniani dei testi invocati non erano più quelli.[22] La ricerca moderna è ritornata ai contesti agostiniani soprattutto dopo gli anni 1950, essi tuttavia spesso sono letti ancora nell'ambito di una formazione, controversista o neotomista che si voglia, operante nel subliminare di non pochi studiosi di Agostino.

Quanto poi alla questione della grazia negli scritti donatisti di Agostino, mediata dai sacramenti, si vuole che la tesi agostiniana del peccato originale che giustifica il battesimo dei bambini, abbia portato l'Ipponate a leggere la grazia, che opera negli adulti, nella categoria dell'*ex opere operato* come opera nei bambini.[23] Naturalmente siffatta conclusione, come si può intuire, dipende dalle precomprensioni moderne circa la coscienza, che può essere tale solo negli adulti, e non tanto dalla questione del battesimo dei bambini posto a tema di riflessione con l'esplodere della questione pelagiana nell'anno 411 dopo il sacco di Roma ad opera di Alarico.[24]

In una ricerca che apparirà sull'*Augustinianum*, pur tenendo nel dovuto conto i diversi contesti, esamiamo più da vicino il formarsi del vocabolario agostiniano della grazia nell'intento che serva anche da chiave di controllo di comprensione degli stessi contesti in cui maturò il pensiero dell'Ipponate. Rispettando poi la richiesta di Agostino di essere letto cronologicamente, metodo da

[21] Ciro Senofonte, *Ragione moderna e teologia: L'uomo di Arnauld* (Napoli, 1989); *id.*, Baio, Giansenio, Arnauld: *Augustinianum* 36 (1996) 255-70; Gaetano Lettieri, *Il metodo della grazia: Pascal e l'ermeneutica giansenista di Agostino* (Roma, 1999).

[22] Le *Controversie* del Bellarmino ne costituirono il primo tentativo riuscito della scuola controversista, vedi Vittorino Grossi, *Baio e Bellarmino interpreti di S.Agostino nelle questioni del soprannaturale*, SEA 7 (Roma, 1970).

[23] Vedi Piet Schoonenberg, Gedanken über die Kindertaufe: *Theologisch-praktischè Quartalschrift* 114 (1966) 230-9.

[24] Per indicazioni sul problema rimandiamo ai nostri contributi, Vittorino Grossi, Battesimo dei bambini e teologia: *Augustinianum* 7 (1967) 323-37, 330-1; *id.*, Battesimo dei bambini e peccato originale: *Rassegna di Teologia* 6 (1980) 430-43.

Digitized by Google

lui stesso preteso soprattutto negli anni della rovente polemica (426-30) con gli interlocutori provenzali, tentiamo di dare una sintesi cronologica del suo vocabolario della grazia dal 397 al 428. Egli infatti nel prologo delle *Ritrattazioni* suggerisce di essere letto cronologicamente, affinché il suo lettore possa capire «come scrivendo avessi fatto progressi»,[25] e nella coscienza che «sarebbe più presunzione che verità dire che, alla mia età (verso i 75 anni), sia giunto al punto da esprimermi senza sbagliarmi mai, nelle stesse espressioni che uso (*sine ullo errore scribendi*)».[26]

[25] *Retr. prol.* 1. Era questa la molla del suo continuo ricercare o voler capire. Agostino si collocava pertanto, in quanto persona intellettuale, già all'inizio della polemica con i pelagiani nel modo seguente: «il non mutare mai di parere è piuttosto il vanto di un fatuo che di un intelligente. Io per conto mio cerco di essere di coloro che scrivono progredendo e scrivendo progrediscono» (*Ep.* 143,2, dell'anno c. 412). Egli stesso ne fece un'applicazione nello stendere il *De trinitate*: «In quanto a me – scrive – non esiterò a cercare se mi trovo nel dubbio, non mi vergognerò d'imparare se mi trovo nell'errore. Perciò... prosegua con me chi insieme a me è certo; cerchi con me chi condivide i miei dubbi; torni a me chi riconosce il suo errore, mi richiami chi si accorge del mio» (*Trin.* 1,2,4-3,5).

[26] *De praedestinatione sanctorum* 2,55.

Digitized by Google

Digitized by Google

Acts 4:32 in Augustine's Ecclesiology

John Paul HOSKINS, Bakewell

Acts 4:32 reads: 'The multitude who believed were of one mind and of one heart'. As Marie-François Berrouard observes, in the extant corpus of his work Augustine directly cites this verse no less than forty eight times.[1] The text was extremely important to him, and in this paper we will see how the theme of unity in Augustine is closely connected with that of love, and indeed that the unity of the Church is intimately and analogically connected with the unity of the Trinity. After some general remarks about Augustine's use of *Acts* 4:32, I will show how the text underpins and gives structure to his monastic *Regula*, and indeed that in conjunction with *Ps.* 132 the text informs all his other writing about the monastic life. I will then conclude with some remarks about the intriguing move *Acts* 4:32 helps him to make from the life of the Church to the life of the Trinity and back again.

Before we can consider the way in which Augustine uses this verse theologically, there are two curious points to observe about the actual text itself. First of all, he generally refers to it in the form I have just quoted: 'one mind and one heart', and this is also how Hilary and Ambrose cite the text. But in fact the original Greek text reads 'one heart and one mind' – the order is reversed – and this is also how most other patristic writers refer to it. I mention this point merely because it highlights an interesting textual matter, although the reversal of the two terms is probably not of great theological significance. Secondly, and much more importantly, Augustine almost always adds a gloss to the end of the text: the believers were of one mind and one heart *in deum*, in God – or better still, 'towards God'. The idea seems to have come from Paulinus, who himself cites the passage with the addition *in domino*, in the Lord; and the fact that Augustine occasionally puts it this way himself underlines the fact that the idea seems to have come from Paulinus.[2] What 'in God' means for him, we will consider in a moment, but the fact that he will almost always gloss the text in this way gives us an insight into the way in which his mind is working, always drawing a connection between the ideas of the community of the faithful and the communion of the persons of the Trinity.

[1] Marie-François Berrouard, La première communauté de Jérusalem comme image de l'unité de la Trinité: une des exégèses augustiniennes d'*Act* 4,32a, in: Cornelius Mayer (ed.), *Homo spiritalis: Festgabe für Luc Verheijen OSA zu seinem 70. Geburtstag* (Würzburg, 1987), 207-224.

[2] Luc Verheijen, *Saint Augustine's monasticism in the light of Acts 4.32-35* (Villanova, 1979), 15.

Studia Patristica XLIX, 73-77.
© Peeters Publishers, 2010.

Digitized by Google

But first, let us look at a few examples of Augustine's use of *Acts* 4:32. Probably his first reference to the text comes in his *Enarrationes in Psalmos* 4, the final verse of which reads: 'Through hope, Lord, you have established me in unity'. Augustine contrasts the singularity and unity which are the gift of Christ with the multiplicity and proliferation which abound apart from him. The holy ones of God, he says, are the believers who have one mind and one heart. The multitude will die, but God is eternal – we must become one in God if we wish to become one with God.[3] Again, in one of his later commentaries, he observes that the believers become a temple for the Lord – and scripture is quite clear, he adds, that they become not many individual temples but one single temple, constituted from all of them together. Though they are many, they are one as the Lord's temple, because they have one mind and one heart in God.[4] I want to suggest that, for Augustine as for other writers, when the *templum dei* comes to mind, thoughts of the Holy Spirit are never far away either. It is of course the indwelling Spirit who binds the living stones of the faithful into one temple, built on Christ the chief cornerstone.

Augustine expands on this theme of Church unity more concretely in a sermon on the eucharist. In terms strikingly reminiscent of the *Didache*, he reminds his congregation, including on this occasion, it seems, a number of the *infantes*, the newly baptised, that just as many grains are mixed together to make one loaf of bread, and the juice of many grapes is mixed together in the one chalice, so the faithful followers of Christ who are many are joined in the sacrament of unity to become one body, the Body of Christ, which has one mind and one heart in God.[5] The sacramental theme is taken up elsewhere in his treatise *De bono coniugali*. For matrimony is also a sign and sacrament of unity, a type or symbol of our future unity in the one City of God – and of course the proof text Augustine uses yet again is *Acts* 4:32, for in this heavenly city its inhabitants will have one mind and heart directed towards God.[6]

I want to turn now to look at Augustine's *Regula*, and in passing we should note the general consensus among contemporary scholars that the *Regula* is, after all, an authentic work of his.[7] It is clear that both the structure and content of the *Regula* are governed by Augustine's reading of *Acts* 4:32-5. Indeed, the precise but unusual way in which he quotes this pericope, which is similar to references elsewhere in his work, may in itself be one of the pieces of evidence that confirms his authorship.[8] Again, we must also bear in mind that the basic principles Augustine is setting out for monks, he also wishes to apply to the

[3] *en. Ps.* 4.10.
[4] *en. Ps.* 131.5.
[5] *s.* 272.
[6] *b. coniug.* 18.21.
[7] George Lawless, *Augustine of Hippo and his monastic rule* (Oxford, 1987), 127-35.
[8] G. Lawless, *Augustine of Hippo* (1987), 129.

Digitized by Google

Christian fellowship more widely – there is, for him, no sharp distinction between lay and monastic spiritualities.[9]

The whole of the first chapter is explicitly constructed as a commentary on these verses. The monks are to live together in one place in order that they might have 'one mind and one heart in God'. Like the first believers described in *Acts* 4, they are to own everything in common and to provide for each other according to their needs.[10] The rest of the *Regula* details how these injunctions are to be worked out in practice, dealing in turn with matters to do with prayer, food and drink, relations with members of the opposite sex, clothing and personal hygiene, disputes, and the authority of superiors. The chapters on dealing with disagreements within the community, discipline, and obedience to those in authority are particularly interesting. It is after all love which motivates the desire to correct sin among the brothers – the failure to act out of a misconceived sense of kindness is in fact a failure of love.[11] Disputes must be ended as quickly as possible, the wronged parties forgiving one another so that anger does not turn into hatred.[12] Superiors must be obeyed out of compassion for the burdens of their office; but they in their turn must serve their brothers in love, offering an example to be followed by everybody else.[13] Indeed, the basic premise of the communal life, the whole *raison d'être* for living together, is that what is good for the community is more important than the good of the individual – the one transcends and supercedes the many, since the many are growing together into one. For this reason, the brothers must love one another.[14]

Thus the *Regula* is all about the twin themes of unity and love. The opening statement, to which we referred a moment ago, sets out the basic terms for the monastic life – and it contains no less than four references to unity (living as one, with one mind, having one mind and one heart in God). And the *Regula* closes with the prayer that the Lord might grant the monks the grace to follow the instructions contained within it *cum dilectione*, with love. If the *Regula* is all about the ordering of the Christian life in such a way that individuals should live together as one, then that ordering requires love. We might reasonably describe the *Regula* as being all about the right ordering and practical structuring of the commandment of love – which of course is (as with all true *caritas*, unlike those evil desires and distractions which we collectively refer to as *cupiditas*) oriented 'towards God', *in deum*.

Further reflection on the monastic life is to be found in Augustine's beautiful and remarkable exegesis of *Psalm* 132: 'Behold how good and pleasant it is

[9] G. Lawless, *Augustine of Hippo* (1987), 59; and compare with Augustine, *op. mon.* 25.33.
[10] *reg.* 1.2-1.8.
[11] *reg.* 4.8.
[12] *reg.* 6.1.
[13] *reg.* 7.4.
[14] *reg.* 5.2.

Digitized by Google

when brothers live together in unity' – an interpretation which also constantly refers back to *Acts* 4:32 and the following verses. From the beginning, he observes, Christian brothers and sisters have been inspired by these words to live together in monasteries, sharing everything in common with one another.[15] The earliest Christians sold their possessions and laid them at the apostles' feet – they had one mind and heart in God – and their example of love and unity is shared with those who have come after them.[16] Monks are so-called because they are one, they are *monos*; not a collection of unrelated individuals, but a unity with one mind and heart.[17] The psalm speaks of those who live in unity as being like fragrant oil on the head, flowing down upon Aaron's beard to the edges of his tunic. Augustine's charming figurative reading interprets Aaron the priest as Christ, who is our head; the beard, a sign of vigorous men, as the apostles; the oil, obviously, as the Holy Spirit which fell upon them; and the border of the tunic as the Church spread throughout all time and space (Christ's seamless robe, presumably, although oddly the connection is not here made explicit).[18] I dwell on this firstly because at each key turn Augustine refers to those who have one mind and heart intent on God; and also because pneumatology is here given its rightful place alongside christology. In the Acts account, the disciples' unity of course flows from the gift of the Holy Spirit at Pentecost, an event in which, as it were, the Spirit recapitulates pneumatologically the events of Babel just as the Son recapitulates christologically the fall of Adam.

And so a few words on the trinitarian dimension of unity. Interestingly, *Acts* 4:32 comes into play in the course of Augustine's anti-Arian polemics. To the question of how the Father and the Son can possibly be one God, on a number of occasions he observes that those of human nature can become one in mind and heart through the grace which comes from God. If we grant, he adds rhetorically, that human beings can become one, then neither should we be surprised that the Father and the Son are one through their shared divine nature.[19] Just as we are one through mutual *caritas*, the most excellent love which inflames and unites, so the very fountain of love itself, the love of the Father and the Son makes them also to be one God.[20] And crucial in this is the fact that the Church's unity is to be found *in deum*, that is, in the Trinity. For 'acknowledge the mystery of the Trinity', as Augustine commands. Christians as individuals have many minds and many hearts, but directed towards God (the image of God thus restored in us, as *De trinitate* 15 suggests) they have but one mind and one heart. The love of God, the Holy Spirit poured into

[15] *en. Ps.* 132.1.
[16] *en. Ps.* 132.2.
[17] *en. Ps.* 132.6.
[18] *en. Ps.* 132.7-132.12.
[19] *symb. cat.* 2.4; also *s.* 229G.5.
[20] *Io. eu. tr.* 14.9, 18.4; *s.* 398.4.

Digitized by Google

our hearts (*Rom.* 5:5) makes us to be one; so to, by analogy the Spirit, the font of love also makes the Father and the Son to be one God.[21]

And so Augustine is also willing to argue the analogy between Church and Trinity from the other side too. In a sermon on Mary and Martha, he reminds his congregation that God alone is the one thing which is necessary (*Luke* 10:42). They are the united people of God, not a disparate mob; they are united by grace and should have no disagreements among them. For the Father, the Son and the Spirit are three persons, but one God, the one who alone is necessary. We can only come to God if we are ourselves also one – one as the Father and Son are one (*Jn.* 17:22), one exalting the Lord's name together (*Ps.* 34:3), one in mind and one in heart (*Acts* 4:32).[22]

A final point: several of the sermons and tractates I have referred to contain explicit, barbed references to the sin of Donatism. Thus Augustine claims that the Donatists despise the term 'monk' precisely because they also despise the unity of the Church, preferring to follow Donatus rather than Christ.[23] Writing against Petilian, and again in his letter 185 *De correctione Donatistarum*, his antagonists are urged to enter into the unity of mind and heart which is good and pleasant, the unity under the one head which is the gift of the Spirit.[24] The point is that, separated from the one Church, not only can the Donatists not be in unity with the one body and the one Spirit, but that they cannot even be in unity with one another, doomed as they are to multiplicity and not unity. The Father, the Son and the Spirit are one, just as Catholic Christians are one in mind and heart: disunity is evidence of sin and separation from God, but unity is the outward sign of the indwelling love which is transforming those who believe into the true image of God the Trinity.

[21] *Io. eu. tr.* 39.5.
[22] *s.* 103.4.
[23] *en. Ps.* 132.6.
[24] *c. litt. Pet.* 2.105.239; *ep.* 185.9.36.

Digitized by Google

Digitized by Google

Augustine on Donatism: Converting a Schism into an Heresy*

Carles BUENACASA PÉREZ, Barcelona

The end of persecutions and the every time closer alliance between the imperial power and the Church since Constantine I announced better times for Christian communities within the Roman Empire. Nevertheless, the period elapsed from the Edict of Milan (313) until the Conference of Carthage (411) was not peaceful for the Church of North Africa but an age of an unprecedented gravity characterized by constant religious struggles between Catholics and Donatists.

1. The schismatic condition of Donatism

In the early fourth century, the Donatist cause divided in two the Church of North Africa using as excuse a disciplinary discrepancy without theological basis. It is well known that the Donatists accused Cecilianus and the rest of the Catholics of maintaining the communion with some bishops *traditores*, notably Mensurius of Carthage and Felix of *Abthugni*. Despite the failed attempts made by the African episcopacy and Constantine I to restore religious unity, the conflict spread because of personal oppositions and especially of a concealed fight for control over the north-African *plebs* to such an extent that, under the Theodosian emperors, opposition between the two factions had become a true civil war which the sovereigns could not obviate. Certainly, we must add the close relation of interests of the Church and of the Roman State which resulted in the Edict of Thessalonica promulgated by Theodosius I (380).

It was this same emperor who, aiming to enforce the repression of heresy, who published a very strict law (June 15th 392) punishing heretical clergymen with a fine of ten pounds of gold. Likewise, Donatist bishops elude payment adducing that Donatism was not legally a heresy. Although all the previous attempts of conciliation with Donatists had turned out to be fruitless, at Theodosian times, legislation only punished the Donatists if they rebaptize – as evidenced in the case of Crispinus of *Calama* –, but do not castigate the simple

* This study is based on research developed within the "*Grup de Recerques en Antiguitat Tardana (GRAT)*, Grup de Recerca de Qualitat de la Generalitat de Catalunya, nº 2005SGR-379", and has been carried out with the help of Research Project HUM2004-00472, financed by the Ministerio de Ciencia y Tecnología. Web: http://www.ub.es/grat/grat01.htm.

Studia Patristica XLIX, 79-84.
© Peeters Publishers, 2010.

Digitized by Google

adhesion to this schism. From the point of view of the followers of Donatus, their faith did not differ too much from that of their rivals for both had a common belief founded on the same Gospels, expressed through the same symbol and shared authentic Christian elements such as the Scriptures, the faith in Christ, the celebration of Easter, the sacraments, the recitation of psalms, the cult of saints, the episcopal ordination and the ecclesiastical ranks, *etc.* The question of these *uestigia ecclesiae* in Donatists' hands also interested the Roman State, for it could be regarded as being scrupulous condemning a sect with so many features in common with Catholicism. Besides, the Roman emperors could have considered very dangerous to condemn as heretical the whole Donatist practices, because this condemnation could also confuse the Christian Catholic *plebs*.

2. The pass from schism to heresy: the religious justification

In earlier Christian literature, the terms 'schism' and 'heresy' were used synonymously, although they did not have the same meaning: the former (schism) had connotations of 'rupture' of the ecclesiastic communion; the latter (heresy) of 'doctrinal error', that is, 'divergence of thought'. From a theological point of view, the distinction between schism and heresy was only slightly interesting since schismatics and heretics were both excluded from the true Church. It was not the same, however, on juridical grounds, which only criminalized heresy. So, from a legal point of view, only heresy was considered punishable.

If the Donatist schism had remained just a simple rupture of communion without more consequences, the Roman State would have shown some mercy, but the enlargement of the conflict and especially the violence exerted by *circumcelliones* and the alliance with the usurpers Firmus and Gildo finally convinced the Court of Ravenna of the necessity to promote the Donatist schism to the category of heresy: this was the only way to repress it with the toughness that the anti-heretical Theodosian legislation had established – or, at least, intimidated the recalcitrant heretics with the threat of the implementation of the punishments prescribed by laws.

Thus, through the last decade of fourth century, the main interest of the north-African Catholic Church has been to show to the emperors – certainly worried about the problems of coexistence among Catholics and Donatists in North Africa – the disciplinary and dogmatic rupture that Donatism entailed and to justified its change from being a schism to something worse, namely heresy. Aurelius, primate of Carthage, and Augustine, bishop of Hippo, were the theologians to assume this work. Some friends and collaborators of the Augustinian circle joined them: Alipius of *Thagaste*, Possidius of *Calama*, Evodius of *Uzali*, and so on. The whole group played a significant role in this process, whose first period ended with the Edict of Union (405), which

Digitized by Google

sanctioned the definition of heresy of Donatism and decreed the persecution of its faithful.

In order to demonstrate the fact of heresy, Augustine exposed theological and ecclesiological arguments at first: the non-canonical nature of rebaptism, the lack of universal communion, the sin of pride that has originated the elevation of altar against altar, the unusefulness of the sacraments offered out of the Church even if they were the same than the Catholic ones, *etc.* In parallel with the theological discussion, Augustine designed a strategy to fight Donatism based on historical grounds for, according to his opinion, the contemporary north-African *plebs* did not perceive the objective causes of the schism. Augustine attempted to save from oblivion and to make public the historical events which gave origin to the schism and how it has been condemned since its beginning. Neither did Augustine forget to denounce other more recent events which showed Donatists' vileness and cruelty: its treason crime towards the Roman State, the orgies in which the assemblies of Donatist faithfuls degenerated, the attacks of the *circumcelliones* on schismatic bishops passed to the Catholic Church, the reinstatement of the Maximianist without rebaptism, the denial of the Donatist hierarchy to discuss in public, *etc.* On the other hand, Aurelius of Carthage – as primate of the north-African Church – spared no effort to fight Donatism by means of summoning councils in which rebaptism and other Donatist practices – such as the cult of the Donatist martyrs at the false *memoria martyrum* – were condemned again and again.

Between 397 and 411, the involvement of Augustine in this controversy redounded, firstly, in many epistles *ad populum* and, then, in some historical treatises.[1] In *c. ep. Parm.* (400), he uses twenty-nine times the terms 'schism' and 'schismatic' regarding Donatists, while 'heresy' and 'heretic' appear only seven. On the contrary, ten years later, 'heresy' and 'heretic' are very much used to refer to Donatism and Donatists.[2] We find the justification of this thought in *Cresc.* (2, 3, 4; 2, 7, 9), where Augustine wrote that the Donatist heresy was 'a lasting schism, an increasing dissension'. It must be noted the similitude between the expression used by Augustine in this work (*schisma inueteratum*) and the sentence of the Edict of Union of 405 (*inueteratum*

[1] The anti-Donatist treatises written since 400 until 405 are the following: *c. ep. Parm.*; *bapt.*; *c. litt. Pet.*; *cath. fr.*; and *Cresc.* After the Conference of Cartaghe (411), Augustine will deal again with the anti-Donatist controversy, but he will only devote a letter to this affair (epistle 185). As regards the role of Aurelius and Augustin in the anti-Donatist polemic, see: P. Vanderlinden, *L'affaire Cécilien: Étude sur la méthode de Saint Augustin dans son argumentation anti-Donatiste* (Louvain, 1959), especially 106-71; Serge Lancel, *Saint Augustin* (Paris, 1999), 243-8 and 404-29; Peter Brown, *Augustine of Hippo. A Biography* (London, 2000), 183-239; Carlos García Mac Gaw, *Le problème du baptême dans le schisme donatiste* (Bordeaux, 2008).

[2] Alberto Pincherle, L'ecclesiologia nella controversia Donatista: *Ricerche Religiose* 1 (1925), 35-55, specially 53, n. 3. Equally, Optatus of *Milevi* use schism (sixty times) rather than heresy (thirty-three times) to refer to the Donatists.

Digitized by Google

malum).[3] Although the publication of *Cresc.* has been dated few months later to the promulgation of the law, in my opinion, there is little doubt that these books should be written before February 405 and it would not be strange if Augustine himself had coined and offered this phrase to an imperial Court accustomed to entrust its bishops the task of defining dogma. Besides, it would be logical that the imperial constitution avoided using *schisma* – not legally punishable – and preferred *malum*, for the aim of every legislator is to eradicate evil.

Once bishops had proved beyond any doubt the heretical nature of Donatism, imperial power could then promulgate severals edicts for its repression: prohibition of rituals, deprivation of fiscal privileges, confiscation of patrimonies and places of cult, and penalties for clergymen who assumed heresy. The first law to condemn Donatists as heretics dates from 405 and allowed Honorius to impose an Edict of Union.[4] Although certain historical circumstances urged the Court of Ravenna to temporarily suspend the Edict in the following years, this law was never formally abrogated and so lead the way to the Conference of Carthage of 411, which meant the final defeat of Donatism from a legal point of view. However, in 411, the way developed was that of a contradictory assembly in which the imperial judge listened to Catholic and Donatist arguments and passed sentence.

3. The Donatism as a political and social problem

Undoubtedly, when the Roman State agreed to accept the heretical nature of Donatism, it was for political convenience. Since the times of Constantine I, the imperial policy regarding Donatism had varied according to several parameters: interventionism with an excess of violence, disgust towards the schismatics' obstination, momentary indifference when political conjunctures forced other priorities, *etc.* During this period, Donatists were very pleased to denounce the close alliance between the Catholic bishops and the Empire, which they considered a repressive state. Because of this, the schismatics declared eagerly their opposition to Roman emperors and, under Valentinian I, some Donatist bishops – called *Firmiani* – even sided with the usurper Firmus (*c.* 372-5). Although one must admit that the schismatic Church did not support the rebellion unanimously, the imperial Court realized for the first time how Donatism could surpass the religious range and commit a crime of treason to the State. Actually, accusations of disloyalty towards the Empire – the Catholic Empire, obviously – that Catholic bishops made against Donatists go back to the times of Optatus of Milevi, an author who reported the famous phrase of Donatus of Carthage

[3] *CTh.* XVI 6.4 (405).
[4] *CTh.* XVI 6.3 (405); XVI 6.4 (405) [= Edict of Union]; XVI 6.5 (405); XVI 5.38 (405).

Digitized by Google

(*Quid est imperatori cum ecclesia?*). And this disloyalty was also confirmed – in the Catholic eyes – when Donatists had appealed to Julian the Apostate and had obtained the return of the churches confiscated previously.

It is not strange then that the two first laws of *titulus* VI of book XVI against rebaptism[5] were published during this usurpation and the following years.[6] These laws are adressed to African officials, but the names of the Donatists are never indicated in the laws before 405. Besides, it is relevant that the major part of the *constitutiones* which condemn rebaptism do not place in *titulus* 5 of book XVI (*De haereticis*), but in an exceptional *titulus* 6 (*Ne sanctum baptisma iteretur*), in which the Edict of Union of 405 is published. Since the condemnation of Donatists as heretics, legislation which expressly mentions the Donatists move to *titulus* 5, and only two laws more will be published in *titulus* 6: one against Novatians's rebaptism and another against Eunomians'.

Later on, under Theodosius I, when imperial legislation began to allow persecution of heretics rigorously, the law of June 392 which punished heretical clergymen with a fine of ten pounds of gold tried to be applied against heretical bishops. However, as exposed, Donatists have not yet been legally qualified as heretics. This situation may explain the law of 395 which clarifies that anyone who has manifestly deviated from Catholic religion should be considered a heretic. This law, although vaguely, could refer to Donatists.

Under Honorius, dissidence among Donatist bishops presents again its more dangerous aspect when Optatus of *Thamugadi* and other schismatic bishops – *Gildonis satellites* – allied themselves with the usurper Gildo (397-8) and lead several attacks and violent actions. The lack of legal means appeared then clear, and the State did support and accept the assimilation of schismatics to heretics. This assimilation permitted the emperors to use religious legislation to persecute Donatists as political enemies and impose on to them the same treatment that the heretic had received since Theodosius I and the Edict of Thessalonica.

Moreover, violence of Donatists and *circumcelliones* against Catholic Church individuals and possessions multiplied, and Donatist bishops passed to the Catholic party also were a target of violent beatings. In 404, one of these bishops travelled to the Court of Ravenna to show the emperor his numerous injuries. There he met with the legates of the council assembled at Carthage on June 404 to obtain a more rigorous application of the laws promulgated against the heretics on the African schismatics.

[5] *CTh.* XVI 6.1 (373); XVI 6.2 (377); XVI 5.5 (379).

[6] Nevertheless, taking into account that the beginning of Firmus' usurpation is not well dated – *PLRE* proposes 372/3 –, the Theodosian law – well dated on February 20th 373 – may be earlier and also the reason for which a little group of discontented Donatist bishop join the usurpation. In this sense, the purpose of this *constitutio* of Valentinian will not be to punish the supporters of Firmus' usurpation – which could not have started yet – but to clearly demonstrate that the period of protection of which the north-African Donatism enjoyed under Julian was now cancelled.

Digitized by Google

The imperial answer to this state of affairs was the Edict of Union of February 12th 405, by which Honorius ordered the restorement of religious unity in favour of the Catholics and declared by law the criminal condition of being Donatist. Then, Donatists were officially assimilated to heretics as guilty of the theological error of rebaptism.

Those were then the political causes which lead the Roman State to persecute the Donatists and to try to eliminate their presence within the frontiers of the Empire. What was no more than a disciplinary problem in the beginnings became a problem of state because of the violence of the *circumcelliones* and the alliance of some of the Donatist hierarchs with the north-African usurpers Firmus and Gildo. Well now, legislation before 405 did not deliberately allow to act against them and, on the other side, the Donatists did not recognize the Roman State the authority to legislate concerning questions of faith. Therefore, Catholic bishops had to elaborate a line of arguments which justified the legal punishment of Donatism as a heresy and for this to happen they put together theological reasonings, historical events and finally political and social aspects. Besides, for the Catholic African episcopacy, the goal of this struggle was not simply ecclesiastical peace, but also primacy on African Christian *plebs*.

Meanwhile, after 405 and although it will be definitively banned in the Conference of 411, Donatist bishops and faithful will resist in Africa until the coming of the Arabs in the seventh century. It is interesting to verify how, during the Vandalic domination, when the established power was not as eager as the Roman State in repressing Donatism, Quoduultdeus uses the terms 'schism' and 'heresy' again indistinctly to refer to the followers of Donatus.[7]

[7] *De promiss.* I 12.19.

Digitized by Google

The Holiness of the Church in North African Theology

J. Patout BURNS, Nashville

Much of Augustine's writing can be read from the perspective of his famous phrase in the *Soliloquies*: 'I desire to know God and the soul, nothing more'.[1] This was the perspective from which he presented his own religious journey in the *Confessions*. The discussion of the church in his debates with the Manichees was focused on its authoritative teaching function and demand for faith as preparation for a promised understanding of God. Even upon his return to Africa, his initial readings of the scriptures were also concerned with conflicts within the individual and the means of overcoming them.

When he took up his responsibilities as a presbyter in the church of Hippo, however, Augustine was immediately faced with the question of the church as a dispenser of holiness and medium of salvation. The Donatist controversy was already in its eighth decade. He realized that the church had to fulfill more than the functions of teaching and exhortation; it had to mediate the forgiveness of sins and the granting of sanctification. To do this, the Donatists claimed, the church and its officers had to be faithful, pure and holy. Augustine's perspective and work changed as he entered into sustained debate with the Donatist authors of Africa – Parminian, Petilian, Cresconius, and Gaudentius. He mastered the writings of Cyprian, Tyconius and Optatus of Milevis. He collected and reviewed the legal history of the controversy: the actions of the imperial officials and the bishops. When Augustine returned to the questions of individual power and achievement in his conflict with Pelagius and Julian of Eclanum, therefore, he brought a different perspective and reached radically different conclusions than those of his opponents and even used somewhat different arguments than he had before engaging the Donatists.

In his role as a bishop, Augustine had to engage what had become the traditional theology of African Christians rather than the questions which occupied him during his own religious quest. In order to understand his great contribution to that theology, we must quickly review the understanding of the Christian life which had been developing in Roman Africa, at least since the time of Tertullian. The life of the individual Christian was firmly set within the matrix of the community; the holiness of individuals was inseparable from that of the church to which they gave allegiance. A series of reference points along the

[1] *A. ecce oraui deum. R. quid ergo scire uis? A. haec ipsa omnia quae oraui. R. breuiter ea conlige. A. deum et animam scire cupio. R. nihilne plus? A. nihil omnino. sol.* 1.7 (CSEL 89, 11.11-7).

Studia Patristica XLIX, 85-100.
© Peeters Publishers, 2010.

Digitized by Google

trajectory of African theology will be examined: Tertullian, Cyprian, the Donatists Tyconius and Parminian, and Optatus of Milevis.

The objective is to understand the nature and holiness of the church which enabled it to function as the necessary agent of salvation. How could this institution mediate between God and humans?

At the turn of the third century, Tertullian defined Christianity by its dual baptismal oaths: first, as the rejection of the traditional practices of Punic and Roman idolatry; second, as a commitment to Christ which was to be lived by adherence to the church's ritual, moral and ascetic practices. Although he recognized necessary concessions to human weakness, Tertullian refused to assign responsibility for the holiness of the church to one or another class of its membership. All Christians were priests,[2] all were called to the ideals which were actually realized in the lives of some: active confrontation of idolatry was achieved by the martyrs,[3] sexual continence was practiced by the widows and virgins,[4] single marriage was required of the clergy,[5] rigorous fasts were embraced by the devotees of the New Prophecy.[6] Imperfection and weakness could be tolerated but all should aspire to the perfection attained by at least some. Anyone who violated the baptismal oaths, however, by idolatry or any other sin of the Decalogue, must be excluded from the eucharistic fellowship.[7] The church as a whole had to be holy because it was identified with Christ and shared his intercessory role.[8] Its prayer could win the salvation not only of its weaker members but of its penitents excluded from communion and of those infants and adolescents who were not yet capable of the baptismal commitment.[9]

The church community constituted by these commitments, rituals and practices was itself the sacrament of the divine presence on earth and the instrument of the salvation accomplished in Christ. As the individual Christian was the temple of God, the community was the body of the Trinity.[10] As such, the church was the fourth major and necessary element in the baptismal confession of faith.

Not everyone in Tertullian's community accepted his stark understanding of the church's nature and role. Its bishop claimed special authority to forgive sins

[2] Tertullian, *bapt.* 17.1-3; the text of *bapt.* 17.3 is somewhat obscure. This interpretation follows Ernest Evans' construal in *Tertullian's Homily on Baptism* (London, 1964). *cast.* 7.3-6 is much clearer: the laity must follow priestly discipline because they must perform priestly functions when necessary.

[3] *idol.* 22.

[4] *ux.* 1.6.2, *cast.* 1.4.

[5] *mon.* 11.1, *pud.* 1.20.

[6] *ieiun.* 1.4, Tertullian cited scriptural precedents for this form of fasting, *ieiun.* 9.

[7] *pud.* 5.13-4; 9.9,20; 12.5; 13.2; 19.25,26,28; 21.2.

[8] *paen.* 10.6. The parallel persisted in *pud.* 19.25-6 but without the guarantee of Christ's acting with the church.

[9] *pud.* 3.5; 13.12, *bapt.* 18.

[10] *bapt.* 6.2, *pud.* 21.2.

Digitized by Google

in virtue of the Petrine commission;[11] the clergy were charged with ritual purity,[12] the married claimed the consession of sexual relations and even a second marriage after the death of a spouse;[13] many defended taking flight or bribing imperial officials to avoid confessing Christ with their fortunes and lives.[14] Still, Tertullian articulated an ideal of life and community which would indelibly mark African Christianity; it would be espoused by a community of devotees in Carthage until the last decades of the fourth century.[15]

The shock of the Decian persecution showed the fault lines and fragility of Tertullian's pure community. Many Christians failed outright; others compromised; most hid; a few publicly confessed and were punished; some died as martyrs.[16] The fallen looked to the few martyrs and confessors to exercise the church's intercessory and mediating function. Once assured of their patronage, they demanded that the clergy readmit them to communion.[17] The purists – some of them confessors – responded by insisting that the church must protect its baptismal commitment to Christ; only by preserving its holiness could it exercise its salvific role; it could help the lapsed only by permanently excluding them.[18] As the internal conflict mounted and the church divided, the bishops claimed for themselves that sanctifying power which Tertullian had distributed over the whole church.

Cyprian shared Tertullian's understanding of the church as the faithful community joined together in and to Christ, the body in which the Trinity dwelt. In the face of revolt by both the laxists and rigorists, however, Cyprian focused on the unity of the church which could not fail because it derived from Christ and the Trinity. Dissenters could desert but not divide the church.[19] Like the church of Tertullian's day, Cyprian's community had been characterized by its purity; in the face of schism, however, unity became the test of fidelity to Christ. Cyprian insisted that the true church could not be divided: those who split off – even to protect purity – thereby abandoned Christ and lost all access to holiness and salvation.[20] Though the schismatics claimed to share Christian faith and sacraments, Cyprian insisted that they were no better than the idolaters whose rituals polluted rather than sanctifying.[21] He explained that the confession of the church in the baptismal creed acknowledged the united community

[11] *pud.* 21.9.
[12] *mon.* 12.1-2.
[13] *mon.* 11.9-13.
[14] *fug.* 4.1; 6.1-7; 12.1-2; 13.1,5.
[15] Augustine, *haer.* 86 reports that the Tertullianists had recently given up their basilica and joined the Catholics.
[16] Cyprian, *laps.* 2-4.
[17] *ep.* 27.2.2-3.1.
[18] *ep.* 46; 55.6.1; 24.1; 68.
[19] *unit. eccl.* 6-9.
[20] *unit. eccl.* 18-23.
[21] *ep.* 70; 72.1.12.1-3; 73.21.2.

Digitized by Google

alone as the mediator of holiness, forgiveness and everlasting life.[22] In Cyprian's theology, the unity of the church became integral to its holiness.

In asserting that the unity of the church's communion was essential to its holiness, Cyprian built on a movement which had been evident even in Tertullian's day. Many Christians believed that salvation was available only to those actually participating in the eucharistic fellowship of the church.[23] Parents had their infants baptized. Adult converts were quickly baptized if they became ill. Penitents demanded to be reconciled before death so that they would face the judgment of Christ as members of the church.[24] Contrary to rigorist view, they believed that the church could help them only by readmitting them. To maintain – against both rigorists and laxists – that the church was the necessary mediator of salvation, Cyprian had to accept into its communion some whose commitment to Christ had once failed and whose purification from the contamination of idolatry was far from certain.[25]

To maintain the full holiness of the church – in its rejection of idolatry, its adherence to Christ, its moral and ascetic rigor – Cyprian provided for a differentiation of classes of purity and power within the church. The bishops and clergy alone were entrusted with the church's sanctifying power and charged with maintaining the necessary fidelity and purity – both moral and ritual.[26] The laity could then include not only the weak but the reconciled penitent, who would be presented to Christ at the judgment with the prayers of the church.[27]

Cyprian explained that Christ had conferred upon the church a real, though limited, power of sanctification, through which repentant apostates, schismatics and other sinners could be readmitted to its communion. A single, indivisible gift of the Holy Spirit – the authority to bind and loose – had been conferred on the episcopal college formed by the apostles and had been transmitted to their successor bishops as a body.[28] This sacralization of the internal structure of the church was applied to each of the sacraments. Only the bishop could sanctify the water of baptism, could offer the sacrifice established by Christ, could consecrate the oil of anointing, could confer the Holy Spirit through the imposition of hands.[29] Acting as Christ's delegate, the bishop could loose the bonds of sin on earth so that the penitent might be presented with the prayers of the church to the judgment of Christ.[30] To maintain this gift and power of the Holy Spirit within the church, the bishops had to be individually

[22] *ep.* 69.7.2.
[23] *ep.* 55.17.2; 57.4.1-4.
[24] *ep.* 63; 18.1.2; 20.3.1-2; 55.28.1-29.2.
[25] This is most evident in the case of those anticipating martyrdom, *ep.* 57.
[26] *ep.* 33.1.1; *unit. eccl.* 4-5.
[27] *ep.* 55.18.1; 55.20.3; 57.3.3.
[28] *Unit. eccl.* 4-5; *ep.* 66.8.3.
[29] *ep.* 70.
[30] *ep.* 57.1.1.

Digitized by Google

and collectively free of any violations of both the baptismal oath of allegiance and its moral commitment. Any who were discovered to have failed must be excluded from the episcopal college and replaced as leaders of local communities. Tolerating them would imply approval of their failure; it would contaminate the episcopal college and deprive not only their own local congregations but the universal church of access to sanctifying power.[31]

This church was thus formed by interlocked communions. A single universal communion of bishops maintained holiness by meeting the full standards of faith and morals; it shared the Spirit's power to sanctify and Christ's authority to govern. The many local communions were each constituted by the faithful united to their bishop and, through his participation in the episcopal college, to the other local communions throughout the world. Cyprian maintained the holiness necessary for the church to function as the mediator of salvation by explaining that sanctifying power had been communicated to and was preserved by the bishops for the good of the whole church.[32]

The Diocletian persecution at the beginning of the fourth century showed the weakness of Cyprian's theology, as the Decian had Tertullian's. When required to turn over the scriptures and sacred vessels for destruction, many of the bishops complied or compromised. In the aftermath, the episcopal governance structures proved incapable of purging and purifying the college, upon which the holiness of the church depended. Two parties formed within the African church, led by Caecilian who was charged with abetting apostasy and Donatus who was accused of fomenting schism. Either sin would have disqualified a bishop in Cyprian's judgment; if tolerated, the sinner would contaminate not only his own congregation and but any bishop who accepted him into communion. During the next fifty years, the overseas bishops, and the now Christian emperors were unable to adjudicate the factual foundations and ecclesial implications of the conflict to the satisfaction of the two parties. The next theoretical development occurred within the Donatist communion.

In the last third of the fourth century, a Donatist layman, Tyconius, developed a set of seven rules to guide the interpretation of the bible. He noted that the scripture regularly speaks of Christ himself and the church as his body as though referring to a single person. The interpreter must discern which statements can be understood as referring to Christ and which must be assigned to the church.[33] The second rule notes that scripture refers to the body of Christ, the church, as both good and evil, one part is being saved and the other will

[31] *ep.* 67; 68.

[32] For a fuller discussion, please see my *Cyprian the Bishop* (London, 2002).

[33] The same individual, for example, is called both bridegroom and bride (*Is.* 61:10; *Rev.* 22: 16-7). Tyconius, *regula prima, de Domino et corpore eius.* William S. Babcock, *Tyconius: The Book of Rules* (Atlanta, 1989). Babcock reprints Francis. C. Burkitt's text, TS 3.1 (Cambridge, 1894).

Digitized by Google

be condemned.[34] The seventh rule elaborates this point by asserting that the good and evil persons who formed the bodies of Christ and the Devil were mixed together and would be separated only at the judgment.[35] This affirmation that the church contained both the good and the evil was not acceptable to some Donatists because it implied that the church fell short of the holiness necessary to be the instrument of salvation.

The Donatist bishops, led by Parminian of Carthage, rejected Tyconius' interpretative principles and condemned his conclusions. As in Cyprian's system, these bishops considered themselves pure and thereby mediating agents of salvation. Parminian argued that Christ had first excluded the traitor, Judas; only then had he declared the apostles pure and finally given them the Holy Spirit and the power to baptize.[36] The Donatists had followed this example in rejecting the traitor bishops allied with Caecilian. These faithful bishops could then pass to their people true faith and with it the holiness of Christ himself.[37] They could function as ministers of Christ and his holiness, however, only because they were themselves faithful and were ministering within the faithful church.[38]

In practice, however, the Donatists narrowed their operative definition of the purity of the church to the avoidance of apostasy or idolatry; they did not take account of the moral failures to which Tyconius had found reference in scripture and of which their Caecilianist opponents tirelessly accused them. This restriction of the test for episcopal purity was not only necessary to maintain the plausability of their case but brought a significant advantage to the Donatist cause. Constantine had put an end to imperial requirements that Christians participate in traditional idolatry. His son Constans made a single attempt to enforce unity with the Caecilianist apostates. Those who submitted were easily stigmatized, forcibly subjected to penance, and permanently excluded from the clergy.[39] The toleration of schism and moral failures, which Cyprian had considered disabling crimes, was necessary for the Donatists. That church suffered a series of divisions after the return from exile: Rogatists in Mauretania, Claudianists in Carthage, and Maximianists in Proconsular Africa and Byzacena. Many of these bishops were welcomed and even forced back into communion and their offices. The church was also embarrassed by Optatus of Timgad's violent suppression of dissent and support for the rebellion of Gildo. At the beginning of the fifth century, many Donatist bishops sponsored or tolerated violence against their Caecilianist opponents. Between the reprieve granted by

[34] Like Israel in Paul's analysis (*Rom.* 10:21-11:2; 11:28). *Regula secunda, de Domini corpore bipertito.*

[35] *Regula septima, de diabolo et corpore eius.*

[36] Augustine, *c. ep. Parm.i* 2.4.8; *c. litt. Pet.* 2.22.49; 2.32.72.

[37] *c. ep. Parm.* 2.8.15; *c. litt. Pet.* 1.4.5.

[38] *c. litt. Pet.* 3.52.64-54.66, *Cresc.* 3.7.7, *cath. fr.* 24.68.

[39] The clergy, congregations and even basilicas were ostentatiously purified when the Donatist exiles returned. Optatus, *c. Parm.* 2.21-6; 6.1-8.

Digitized by Google

Julian in 362 and the legislation of Honorius in 405, Donatists could commit apostasy only by voluntarily leaving the church for the communion of the Caecilianists, which was contaminated by both old apostasy and more recent persecution of the true – Donatist – church in supporting the imperial attempt to enforce unity. The defection of such persons took them outside the Donatist communion and thus purified rather than polluted their church.

The Donatist church claimed to be holy, faithful to Christ and as pure as it would be in the resurrection, all because it had rejected demonic idolatry and continued to withstand persecution. Thus it provided true faith and effective sacraments to its members. It did not, however, claim to be – or by its theology need to be – morally perfect and free of all ethical failings. Catholic detailing of its bishops' thefts, rapes and murders were simply irrelevant to the holiness of this church. Apostasy alone counted.[40]

Optatus, the Catholic bishop of Milevis, argued against Parminian that the efficacy of the sacraments in the church derived not from the fidelity or holiness of the minister himself, but from the invocation of the Trinity and the faith of the recipient, which were the constant and unchanging elements in baptism.[41] From Cyprian, he recalled that the unity of the church was more important than punishing sin and maintaining purity. The church did not have to protect itself from the sins of apostates and schismatics; it would rather enfold and sustain them in a motherly embrace.[42] The love of unity would forgive many sins.[43] This he illustrated by pointing out that Peter had been guilty of betraying not the words of Christ written in the scriptures but the speaker himself. Christ had then entrusted the keys to this sinner so that he would open the kingdom to the innocent, rather than giving them to some innocent person who might then lock out sinners and destroy the unity essential to his kingdom.[44] In this emphasis on the primacy of unity and the power of love to forgive sin, Optatus laid a foundation on which Augustine would build. He did not, however, clearly address the issue of that fidelity and purity which were necessary to establish the holiness of the church

[40] Despite its regular transgression of the limits of the available evidence, William Frend's *The Donatist Church* (Oxford, 1952) remains a standard treatment. Jean-Louis Maier's *Le Dossier du donatisme*, TU 134, 135 (Berlin, 1987, 1989) collects the documentary evidence with an excellent introduction and commentary.

[41] The person of the minister was not always the same and was therefore irrelevant to the nature and efficacy of the sacrament. *c. Parm.* 2.10; 5.1,4. In 5.7, he compared the church's minister to a waiter at a banquet who dispensed food belonging to the host.

[42] *Nam peccator talis, quales fuerunt uestri maiores, si ad ecclesiam ueniat et necessitatis suae rationem ostendat, primo recipiendus est, deinde sustinendus pio sinu matris ecclesiae. c. Parm.* 7.2 (CSEL 26, 168.8-13).

[43] *Bono unitatis sepelienda esse peccata hinc intellegi datur, quod beatissimus Paulus apostolus dicat caritatem posse obstruere multitudinem peccatorum.* He then cited *Gal.* 6:2 and 1*Cor.* 13:4,5; *c. Parm.* 7.3 (CSEL 26, 10-5).

[44] *Provisum est, ut peccator aperiret innocentibus, ne innocentes clauderent contra peccatores et, quae necessaria est unitas, esse non posset. c. Parm.* 7.3 (CSEL 26, 173.18-20).

Digitized by Google

and thus enable it to sanctify its members. Instead, he appealed to the divine holiness authorizing and working in the church's sacraments.

When Augustine began dealing with the conflict between the Donatists and Caecilianists, the issues were already well defined. The Donatists followed Cyprian in insisting on the holiness of the church, or at least the episcopal college within it. They defined this holiness narrowly. They did not judge that either schism and moral failure were signs of diabolical presence in the church and its bishops, sins which would destroy its holiness and disable its sacramental ministry. Optatus had appealed to the divine holiness working through the ministry but had not found a way to locate its power within the church itself.

Augustine's challenge was to develop a theory which would locate the Holy Spirit within the church in such a way that the gifts of holiness and sanctifying power were not compromised by the failings – in faith or morals – of either the clergy or the laity. He recognized that the cause of the church was not adequately served by proving, through citation of imperial court records, that Caecilian was innocent and Donatus guilty: he had to show that this issue was irrelevant.[45] The bishops at the Council of Arles in 314 had grasped this point and insisted that even apostate bishops could perform sanctifying rituals.[46] Augustine had to find a way to demonstrate what they presumed: that the holiness of the church could not fail.

The Augustinian understanding of the church was developed in two different moments. His controversial writings focused on the adaptation of the theories of Cyprian to the radically different social context of the fourth and fifth centuries, when Christianity enjoyed (or suffered from) the support of the Roman Empire. In these works, Augustine argued that the purity of the church derived from the Spirit's gift of charity which was operative in the church's unity and universality. This appeal to charity also allowed him to expand the scope of purity to include moral action as well as avoidance of idolatry. This theory reversed the Donatist reading of Cyprian which privileged purity over unity and neglected morality. Augustine's preaching elaborated this theological perspective into a fuller understanding of Christian life. He explained the church as a social body animated by the gift of the Holy Spirit with Christ identified as its head and faithful Christians as its members. Using this foundational idea, he explored the nature and efficacy of the rituals of baptism and eucharist, the role of the clergy, and the sharing of spiritual and material goods which characterized the life of the community. In this second, pastoral context Augustine considered the practices of mutual care which characterized the Christian life.

[45] Imperial records demonstrated that the consecrator of Caecilian, Felix of Abtungi, had been falsely accused and that one of the consecrators of Majorinus was an apostate. *c. Parm.* appendices 1,2.

[46] They could both baptize and ordain others, though they had to be removed from office as soon as discovered. *Concilium Arelatense, Canones ad Silvestrum* 9,14 (CChr.SL 148, 10-2).

Digitized by Google

Augustine's analysis of the purity necessary to maintain the holiness of the church and the efficacy of its sacraments is well known. It may be briefly summarized. The holiness and purity of the church was based in charity, the gift of the Holy Spirit, which established an intentional unity among the members of the church. Charity had three roles in the Christian: it moved to right intention in love of God and neighbor; it moved to the performance of the good works commanded by Christ; it moved to forgiving offenses suffered and thus gained God's forgiveness for offenses committed against others. During earthly life, charity remained imperfect and was resisted by the various forms of inherited and acquired lust; Christians remained sinners. They were constantly being purified by repenting their own sins and pardoning others. By persisting in the unity of the church and tolerating the failures of fellow communicants in hope of their salvation, the faithful won the forgiveness of the inadequacies of their own charity. True Christians tolerated in unity many who rejected charity and sought only their own advantage. The visible communion, as Tyconius had observed, was a mixture of good and evil, of the divine and demonic.

Because he considered the holiness of any human being imperfect throughout earthly life, Augustine followed Optatus in attributing the efficacy of the sacraments to the divine power. Christ used the clergy as ministers or agents of his sanctifying action – in baptism, eucharist and penance – but entrusted them with no distinctive power. Augustine insisted, however, that this power to sanctify had actually been communicated to and was exercised by the church. He identified that power to forgive sins as the gift of charity which joined the faithful and maintained the unity of the church. His model for the efficacy of the church's sacramental ministry was the informal mutual asking and granting of pardon practiced daily within the community. Those who were loving and forgiving – a group which Augustine named the dove – acted with Christ in the work of sanctifying.[47] By being joined to these saints in love, the sinner received the gift of charity and thus the forgiveness of sins.[48] The sacramental rituals formalized and symbolized this quiet and constant process of sanctification carried on by and among the members of the church.

Thus Augustine's understanding of the holiness of the church was built on the unity of mutual charity; this was the source of such purity as the church on earth enjoyed. This gift of the Holy Spirit also empowered the church's sacramental ministry carried out by the clergy. That divine principle of unity and sanctity was located in the communion of the saints who formed the inner core of the church. These true disciples were represented by those upon whom Christ conferred the Holy Spirit as the power of binding and loosing in *John* 20:22-3.[49]

[47] *bapt.* 5.21.29; 6.3.5.
[48] *bapt.* 6.4.6; 6.14.23.
[49] *bapt.* 3.18.23; 5.21.29; 6.1.1; 6.3.5; 6.14.23.

Digitized by Google

This understanding of the church's role as the mediator of salvation exploited Tertullian to completely overturn Cyprian and thus challenge the Donatists. The standard of holiness was set as both fidelity to Christ and the active love of God and neighbor. It was maintained not by the episcopal college but by a group within the visible church which could not be identified before the separation of wheat from chaff but whose presence was discerned in the unity, cohesion, and tolerance of the visible communion. Although this holiness was realized only partially, its very persistence won the forgiveness of its failure and Christ supplied for its inadequacy.

This was Augustine's response to the Donatists. His teaching for Catholics, primarily in his sermons, was a much more elaborate version of the same theory.

In his preaching, Augustine adapted Tyconius' exegetical methods to develop a new and different relationship between Christ and the church, a relationship which clarified its holiness and its mediating role in the process of salvation. These methods and the results he achieved through them could not be used in his writings against the Donatists, since these opponents rejected the principles upon which he based his theory. To bring Tyconius' rules for interpreting scripture into practice, Augustine had to distinguish not only different modes of reference used in the Old Testament, particularly the historical, prophetic and figurative, but also three different meanings or senses of the referee, Christ, which were used in the New Testament as well. First, Christ could speak and be spoken of as the Word of God, eternally begotten and equal to the Father. Second, the scripture referred to Christ as the Word of God incarnate and the head of the church.[50] Third, the scriptures described 'the whole Christ in the fullness of the church,' comprising both head and members.[51] These roles are strikingly evident in Christ's challenge to Saul in *Acts* 9:4: why are you persecuting me. As Word he could not be attacked; as an individual human he was safely in heaven; clearly he spoke as identified with his body on earth.[52] Further distinctions were necessary in this third form of interpretation. Christ spoke for his members at rest differently than for those still in labor.[53] Christ sometimes spoke only for his bodily members and not for himself as head: he prayed the penitential psalms as the voice of his body.[54] Augustine used this particular language for the church as the body of Christ and the faithful as his members almost exclusively in the sermons.[55]

[50] *s. Dolbeau* 22(341).2-3,11.

[51] *totus Christus in plenitudine ecclesiae*, *s. Dolbeau* 22(341).2.

[52] *s.* 345.4.

[53] *en.Ps.* 30.3.1.

[54] *en.Ps.* 40.6; 140.6; 101.1.2; 118.22.5.

[55] The phrase, the Whole Christ, *Christus totus* – with or without the qualifiers, head and body, or head and members – appears only four times outside the preached works of Augustine. Moreover, in those collections which include both written and preached expositions, such as *en.Ps.* and *Io.eu.tr.*, it appears only in the sections which were preached. The search in CAG 2

Digitized by Google

Augustine explained the constitution of the Body of Christ in his preaching as he had the church in his controversial works: a unity of all Christians in Christ through their sharing the gift of charity and the intention to adhere to the visible church.[56] In preaching, however, he used a different set of terms and figures: the Word became the head of the church by taking flesh in the womb of the virgin; that flesh was the first-fruits of the church; the believers were joined in and became limbs of that body.[57] The Holy Spirit was the soul which gave life to the body of Christ[58] and worked in all its members.[59] Anyone cut off from the union of love within the church – by schism or some other sin against charity – retained the shape but not the life of a member.[60]

Augustine characterized the Whole Christ as a community of goods which were both heavenly and earthly, spiritual and material. The chief of the spiritual goods was, of course, the Spirit's gift of charity through which the members were both bound together in love and empowered to obey the commands, to realize the teachings of Christ in their lives. This foundational gift was the common possession of the whole body of the church rather than being held and maintained by a particular group, such as the clergy or the ascetics. The first effect of this gift was the unity of the church itself; it was further operative in the sanctifying rituals of baptism, eucharist, and reconciliation of sinners.

As has been noted already, Augustine interpreted *Matthew* 18:18 as the paradigmatic instance of the forgiveness of sins: God forgave when Christians forgave one another. Other texts were understood in the light of this one. Peter had received the power to forgive sins as representative of the whole community of the faithful, [61] just as he had made the confession of faith which was the basis for its conferral.[62] Similarly, in interpreting the gift of the Holy Spirit as the power to forgive sins to the disciples on the evening of the resurrection (*Jn.* 20:22-3), Augustine extended the power to all who form the living temple in which the Spirit dwelt.[63] By repenting, a catechumen or penitent rejected sin

was conducted using combinations the roots for *Christus, totus, caput, corpus et membrum*, within six words. The uses outside the sermons are in *cath. fr.* 4.7, *trin.* 3.10.20, and *perseu.* 7.14. An appearance of the words in *c. Faust.* 12.32 is not relevant.

[56] *s.* 354.1; *en.Ps.* 30.2.3; 122.1.

[57] *en.Ps.* 44.3; 148.8, *s.* 161.1; *s. Dolbeau* 26.43, *ep.Io.tr.* 1.2; 2.2. Had Christ taken only a human soul and not flesh, Christians would not be his members.

[58] *Io.eu.tr.* 26.13.

[59] *s.* 267.4; 268.2.

[60] *s.* 267.4; 268.2.

[61] Not as an individual for the work of founding the church or as representative of the episcopal college, as Tertullian and Cyprian had insisted Tertullian: *pud.* 21; Cyprian, *unit. eccl.* 4-5. Tertullian's opponent made the same argument, *pud.* 22.

[62] *s. Mai* 16(23A).2; *s.* 67.3; 76.1; 149.7-8; 232.3; 295.2; *s. Guelf.* 16(229N).2; *s. Lambot* 3(229P).1; *en.Ps.* 54.5; 101.2.3; 108.1; *Io.eu.tr.* 50.12; *ep.Io.tr.* 10.1,10.

[63] *s.* 99.9; 295.2. The parallel explanation can be found in *bapt.* 1.11.15; 3.18.23; 5.21.29; 6.3.5; 6.14.23, but not elsewhere in the writings against the Donatists.

Digitized by Google

and was joined into the body of the faithful. The intentional unity thus realized communicated the gift of charity from the faithful to the petitioner. The church sanctifies, in Augustine's graphic description, by chewing, swallowing and digesting sinners, by assimilating them into itself and making them share its life as Christ's Body.[64]

The close relation between the physical and social bodies of Christ was also evident in Augustine's expositions of the symbolism and efficacy of the eucharistic celebration. He regularly referred to the individual body of Christ: Christians drank the blood which had once been shed on the cross.[65] More regularly, however, he described the eucharistic bread and wine as symbolizing the church as the Body of Christ, the fellowship of head and members.[66] He exhorted the faithful in Hippo to become the reality they received in the celebration, the church spread throughout the world.[67] The ecclesial body of Christ was thus symbolically interchangeable with the flesh which the Word assumed in the womb of Mary, raised from the dead, and carried into heaven. This true Body of Christ remained hidden among the sinners in the visible communion of the earthly church; only in the eucharistic bread and wine was it symbolically perceived and received.

In an extension of this understanding of the identity of Christ with the church, Augustine insisted that Christ was the only priest and mediator. No other human being could exercise that function or claim that title: bishops were overseers and pastors. Christ's priesthood, however, was proper to his incarnate state and was thus shared with his Body, the church.[68] Bishops, then, were priests but only as members and leaders of this priestly body.[69] Exploiting the typological interpretation of the sacrifice in the *Letter to the Hebrews*, Augustine illustrated this relationship. The Israelite high priest had entered alone into the earthly tabernacle to make the offering, with the people assembled outside. The Christian people, in contrast, stand – together with their clergy – at the altar inside the earthly sanctuary, anticipating the time when they will join their head inside the heavenly one.[70]

The community of spiritual gifts was also evident in Augustine's preference of the virtues which belong to the whole body of the faithful over those which differentiate individuals from one another. This was most evident in his consideration of the privileged states of virginity and widowhood. The bodily integrity which the dedicated virgins preserved was symbolic of the integrity

[64] *s. Denis* 15(313B).3; *en.Ps.* 34.2.15; 88.1.24; 94.11; 103.3.2; 123.5.

[65] *s.* 229.1,3; *s. Denis* 3(228B).2-3.

[66] *Io.eu.tr.* 26.15.

[67] *s. Guelf.* 7(229A).1.

[68] The fullest development is in *s. Dolbeau* 26.49-53; it is echoed in *ep.Io.tr.* 1.8. The anointing is affirmed in *en.Ps.* 26.2.2.

[69] *s. Dolbeau* 26.49-50.

[70] *s. Dolbeau* 26.53. See also *en.Ps.* 25.2.10; 64.6.

Digitized by Google

of faith, without which their bodily virginity was of no religious value. That integrity of faith defined the virginity of the church and was to be maintained by all Christians.[71] Thus the virgin was symbolically Christ's bride by participating in his marriage to the whole church.[72] Similarly, the widow who vowed not to marry again symbolized the church's faith and hope as she lived in expectation of the return of her bridegroom.[73] The married were joined to these celibates in charity and accomplished in them what they were unable do in their own bodies.[74]

Augustine also explained that the gift of the Holy Spirit at Pentecost, by which each of the disciples spoke all the languages of humanity, was subsequently extended to the church as a whole: the entire body spoke in all lands and each Christian could still claim the languages of all.[75] Indeed, all the various powers and gifts distributed by the Spirit among the members belonged to the whole church; each member did whatever good was performed within the body of Christ. The whole church gloried in the fidelity of the martyrs, symbolized by the bloody sweat of the Body of Christ.[76] The whole Body of Christ was like one person spread throughout the world, praying for deliverance; Christ himself was the petitioner when the church prayed in unity.[77] Augustine found an illustration of this sharing of gifts in the way the hand moves to protect the eye, guarding the power of one member for the use of whole body.[78]

The participation of the church as his body in the endowments of Christ as its head provided a means for understanding the community of religious powers and spiritual gifts among the members. The holiness of the church was defined as the Holy Spirit's gift of charity; this was indefectible in Christ its head and never failing among his members, mixed though they were with sinners until the resurrection and judgment.[79] The value of this theory was not simply explanatory: it appealed to the Christian imagination and moved to action.

The sharing of material goods was even more effective in illustrating the nature of the church. Augustine defined the true church as that intentional union of the faithful which was found within but could not be fully identified with the visible communion. This theory, however, ran a risk of failing to connect this invisible group to the functioning social body of actual congregations. Augustine avoided this problem by identifying and pointing to the Body of

[71] *s.* 188.4; *s. Dolbeau* 22.12; *en.Ps.* 90.2.9; 147.10; *Io.eu.tr.* 13.12. One will recognize here the fidelity which the Donatist required of their clergy.

[72] *Io.eu.tr.* 9.2.

[73] *en.Ps.* 145.18.

[74] *en.Ps.* 121.10.

[75] *en.Ps.* 18.2.10; 147.19; *Io.eu.tr.* 32.7.

[76] *en.Ps.* 140.4; 118.30.5.

[77] *en.Ps.* 39.28; 60.1-2; 122.1; 130.1.

[78] *en.Ps.* 130.6; *Io. eu. tr.* 32.8.

[79] *s.* 264.5; 354.2; *en.Ps.* 25.2.5-6; 85.4; 119.9; 126.8; 127.11; 146.9.

Digitized by Google

Christ in its actions, particularly its sharing of material goods. Some goods were common and meant to be shared by all. By mutual consideration in maintaining silence and order, a congregation could listen together to the reading of scripture and the sermon explaining it.[80] Similarly, each member would receive the whole benefit of the eucharist rather than only a portion. The use of other goods was necessarily private: food and clothing, even if drawn from a common fund, had to be partitioned and consumed by distinct individuals. Although Augustine recognized this limit, he attempted to promote a certain type of common possession and use even of these consumable goods. Christ became head of the church by taking human flesh; his body had to be recognizable in its sharing of the goods which sustained bodily life.

The life of the Jerusalem community, as described in the *Acts of the Apostles*, provided an earthly intimation of the heavenly life of the angels and the blessed.[81] This ideal of shared possession and use continued to be realized in monastic and clerical communities, such as the ones Augustine established in Hippo.[82] Within families, Augustine urged that inheritances should be held in common by siblings rather than parceled out among them.[83] In the local church, he promoted not a community of property but of income and of the goods necessary to sustain human life.[84] By sharing their goods with one another, Christians recognized one another as members of the same Body of Christ; they served Christ himself in one another.[85] In entrusting his people to Peter, Christ had entrusted them to the whole church.[86] Thus alms were to be given to fellow Christians not because these poor were particularly righteous or deserving but simply because they were needy;[87] providing support to the undeserving was even a form of forgiving one's enemy.[88] Augustine insisted that this service must be mutual, so that the poor must also act as benefactors: they could provide the cup of water, even if they could not afford to heat it; they could offer bodily service to the blind, the lame and the weak.[89] In like manner, the rich should not only provide funds to feed the poor but actually serve them.[90] Rich

[80] *s. Dolbeau* 27(360C).1.

[81] *s.* 355.2; *s. Dolbeau* 26.48.

[82] *s.* 355; 356 report on these arrangements.

[83] In commenting on *Luke* 12:13-5, he explained Christ's refusal to act as arbitrator in the division of an estate as approval of the brother's plan that the whole estate should continue to be held in common. *s.* 107.2; 265.11; *s. Lambot* 5(107A).1.

[84] He noted that the Pauline letters did not require giving up all one's property. *s.* 14.5; *s. Mai* 13(113B).2,6; *s. Dolbeau* 5.12-13.

[85] *s.* 9.21; 25.8; 38.8; 86.3; 239.6-7; 345.4.

[86] *s. Lambot* 3(229P).4; *ep.Io.tr.* 5.5.

[87] Even the wealthy approach God as beggars, since all humans are needy. *s.* 61.8; 259.3.

[88] *s. Lambot* 4(359A).11. Christ on the cross accepted a drink from one of his mockers, *s.* 41.7. This did not mean, however, that the sinner should go unrebuked, *s. Lambot* 28(164A).1-4.

[89] *s.* 39.6; *s. Lambot* 1(105A).1; 4(359A).12; 5(107A).8; *en.Ps.* 125.11-13.

[90] *s.* 259.3-5.

Digitized by Google

and poor Christians were to be bound together in mutual sympathy in facing the uncertainties of earthly life.[91]

Augustine did not limit almsgiving to the Christian community. He exhorted the congregation to be generous to pagans, Jews and heretics.[92] He noted in satisfaction that these beggars gathered outside the church building because they found Christians open-handed.[93] Giving to persons who refused to join the Body of Christ, however, did not carry the same religious value as sharing with fellow Christians.[94] Almsgiving was never to be confused, however, with wasting money on gladiators, charioteers and other such performers,[95] nor even with building a new basilica for the congregation's worship.[96]

In his sermons, Augustine repeatedly reminded his congregation that the Christian life consisted in two practices: giving and forgiving.[97] He explained each of these as means of salvation for the individual but the efficacy of both depended on his understanding of the church as the Body of Christ. Forgiving others was essential to winning forgiveness for one's own sins, according to the petition of the Lord's Prayer.[98] Almsgiving was a mechanism for turning earthly into heavenly treasure; the bellies of the poor were the storehouses of God.[99] In giving and forgiving, Christians were building the Body of Christ, establishing and strengthening the union of charity which bound them to one another and to Christ. No less important, they were making that Body visible in their good works.

Conclusion

As has been seen, the challenge for African Christianity was to find a way of defining the holiness of the church which was adequate to its role of serving as the mediator for salvation. The theologians assumed that the church had to manifest the saving power of Christ in its communal life and exercise it in its ritual actions. Tertullian judged that this required each member of the community to accept responsibility for that holiness by actively combatting idolatry and rigorously observing the moral teaching of Christ. Those who fell short could be tolerated but those who failed or refused had to be excluded. Every

[91] *s.* 259.5. The poor must never be despised because of their need, *en.Ps.* 103.1.19.
[92] *s.* 359.9; *en.Ps.* 32.3.29.
[93] *en.Ps.* 46.5.
[94] *en.Ps.* 44.28.
[95] *en.Ps.* 102.13.
[96] *s. Lambot* 5(107A).9.
[97] *s.* 9.17-18,21; 83.2; 259.4; *s. Wilm.* 2(179A).6; *en.Ps.* 111.4.
[98] *s.* 114.1-5; 211.5; 278.6,10-11; 315.10; *en.Ps.* 54.14.
[99] *s.* 18.4; 36.9; 60.6; 114.5; 311.15; 345.2-3; 389.3-4; 390.1; *s. Morin* 11(53A).6; *s. Frangip.* 9(114A).4; *s. Lambot* 2(335C).8-9; *s. Mai* 14(350A).4.

Digitized by Google

Christian could then exercise the sanctifying power of the church by performing the ritual actions. Cyprian followed the same standards but narrowed the group responsible for maintaining holiness and exercising power to the clergy. Thus he could allow even those who had failed to regain a place in the community and could condemn all who were outside. The Donatists followed Cyprian's lead but restricted the standards of fidelity to the avoidance of idolatry and rejection of apostasy. Optatus relied on the divine power and tolerated the sinfulness of the clergy. Augustine in many ways returned to Tertullian's schema, with three significant changes. He laid the theoretical foundations for church identity in the sharing of charity; he specified that charity must be operative in mutual forgiving and care; he restricted the performance of the rituals to the ordained clergy.

North African Christianity faced a great challenge in identifying a social group which held and exercised the sanctifying power of Christ in the church. Tertullian's community could not maintain its purity; Cyprian's bishops proved as fallible and self-serving as the laity; Donatist clerics were not required to be visibly moral; Optatus' ministers were only agents exercising an absentee leader's power. By focusing on the Body of Christ living by the Spirit's gift of charity, Augustine was able to establish a link between fidelity, moral living, and sanctifying power. He was also able to demonstrate that charity was self-correcting and inseparable from Christ's power operative in the church. His problem was to make the true church visible without making it fallible and defectible. This he accomplished by characterizing it as a community of giving and forgiving: sharing both spiritual and material endowments.

When Augustine addressed a Christian congregation, he often referred to its members as 'your holiness' but his preferred term, used five times more often, nearly five hundred times, was, 'your charity'.[100] It was the proper name for the church, the Body of Christ.

[100] 479 vs 107 according to the indices of CAG 2.

Digitized by Google

Christ as *disciplina dei* in Augustine's Early Educational Thought

Ryan TOPPING, Oxford

In the classical and patristic periods '*disciplina*' had a range of applications, moral and intellectual. Tacitus refers to the Roman military as *militia disciplinaque nostra* (Tac. *Ann.* 3.42.1),[1] Caesar attributes Rome's greatness to the *disciplina populi Romani* (Caes. *Gall.* 6.1.4),[2] and Cicero, a well-ordered household to *domestica disciplina* (Cic. *Tusc.* 2.27):[3] *disciplina* as military order, as political virtue, as household pattern. These examples point to the range of the term's signification in its secondary sense, as moral obedience or practical virtue. Its primary sense, however, refers to a theoretical science or method of study. And it is in this sense that Augustine usually uses the term in his early writings, particularly in the context of his theory of the liberal arts, which is where we shall focus our attention.

Before we turn to these texts directly, some word about the scope and relative neglect of Augustine's theory of the liberal arts is in order. It is typical for professional and amateur readers alike to associate Augustine's educational ideas with the *De doctrina christiana*, and for good reasons. That book, after all, contains Augustine's single comprehensive account of educational topics, such as, the relation between signs and things, the role of the teacher, and the rules for sound exegesis. If the number of medieval manuscripts counts for anything, and it does, then the Middle Ages too were far more interested in *De doctrina christiana* than in any one of his other early educational writings.[4]

[1] See Y. Le Bohec's 'disciplina militaris' in: Hubert Cancik, Helmuth Schneider, and Christine F. Salazar (eds.), *New Pauly: Encyclopaedia of the Ancient World* (Leiden, 2004), 537-9.

[2] See art. disciplina: *Thesaurus Linguae Latinae* 5.1 col. 1316-26 (Leipzig, 1934).

[3] In this text he refers to the negative consequences that follow from 'malam domesticum disciplinam'; see art. domesticus: *TLL* 5.1 (1934) col. 1865-77. See J. Leclercq's entry 'disciplina' in: *Dictionnaire de Spiritualité* (Paris, 1954) and Henri Marrou's '"*Doctrina*" et "*Disciplina*" dans la langue des Pères de l'Église' in *Bulletin Du Cange* 9 (1934) 5-9 for introductions to the term's classical background and Christian adaptation; W. Hübner's entry, art. disciplina: *AL* 2,3 (Basel, 1999), 457-63, focuses on Augustine's use of the term.

[4] There are over one hundred known manuscripts of *De doctrina christiana* compared with 79 of *De musica* and the 39 of the *De dialectica* listed by Jackson: see R.P.H. Green, *Augustine*: De Doctrina Christiana (Oxford, 1995), xxiii; Nancy Van Deusen's art. De Musica: *AugEncy* (Grand Rapids, 1999); *Augustine*: De Dialectica, ed. Jan Pinborg, introd. B.D. Jackson (Boston, 1975), 8-11.

Studia Patristica XLIX, 101-105.
© Peeters Publishers, 2010.

Digitized by Google

It is unfortunate, however, if this deserved enthusiasm should keep us away from offering Augustine's early books on the liberal arts, ambitious in scope and complex in detail as they are, the attention they deserve. For, at least on the surface of things, Augustine had not one theory of education, but two. At Cassiciacum Augustine set out to produce a course of study whereby the believer could 'advance by mediation of corporeal realities to incorporeal ones' (*retr.* 1.3).[5] By an ordered sequence of contemplation, moving from linguistic to mathematical disciplines, Augustine argued the liberal arts could train the mind to recognize elementary principles of philosophy and so dispose a student to receive the mysteries of faith. This, in rough outline, is the theological vision behind Augustine's transformation of the classical curriculum of advanced study, known as the *artes liberales*. As a converted layman Augustine's first intellectual preoccupation was to show how this was possible. Beginning but not ending at Cassiciacum Augustine reworked the classical ideal of an ordered series of disciplines whose proximate origins lay in Varro, and whose original outline goes back probably to Pythagoras, certainly to Plato and Isocrates:[6] drafts were made, a few treatises written, but the project never came to fruition. While we do have substantial volumes on grammar, dialectic and music, it appears that by 395 Augustine had discarded much of this plan for a decidedly Biblical course of study.

Whatever may have been Augustine's reasons for later neglecting his theory of the liberal arts (and that is not our concern here), there is no reason why we should. Happily, recent years have witnessed a renewed interest in Augustine's relationship to the disciplines of the liberal arts.[7] The cause of this renewal can be understood at two levels. First, at the scholarly level, certain mid-century accounts of Augustine's understanding of higher education as well as his own position within the transmission of classical culture to the Medieval Latin West, have proved insufficient; Augustine's own view of the relationship between sacred and secular knowledge and the degree to which the *De doctrina christiana* shaped (and was ignored by) early medieval formulations of the seven

[5] ... *a quo corporalibus ad incorporalia potest profici* (CChr.SL 57, 12).

[6] For a summary of scholarship since Ritschl on the origins of the seven liberal arts, as well as a critical discussion of Augustine's relation to Varro and Porphyry on the disciplines, see Danuta Shanzer, Augustine and the Disciplines: *Silent diutius Musae Varronis*?, in: Karla Pollman and Mark Vessey (eds.), *Augustine and the Disciplines: From Cassiciacum to* Confessions (Oxford, 2005), 69-112; see also Ilsetraut Hadot's appraisal of scholarship published since her 1984 study on this topic in, *Arts libéraux et philosophie dans la pensée antique: contribution à l'histoire de l'éducation et la culture dans l'Antiquité, 2nd ed.* (Paris, 2005), 333-73; M. Vinzent, art. Liberal Arts: *Oxford Guide to the Historical Reception of Augustine*, Karla Pollmann and Willemien Otten (eds.) (Oxford, forthcoming).

[7] For example: De Doctrina Christiana: *A Classic of Western Culture*, D.W.H. Arnold and Pamela Bright (eds.) (Notre Dame, 1995); *Augustine and Liberal Education*, K. Hughes and K. Paffenroth (eds.) (London, 2000); Ilsetraut Hadot, *Arts libéraux et philosophie* (2005); and *Augustine and the Disciplines*, K. Pollman and M. Vessey (eds.) (Oxford, 2005).

Digitized by Google

liberal arts have, once again, become topics for specialized debate.[8] Second, and more profoundly, renewed interest in Augustine's theory of the liberal arts is a response to the wider civilizational crisis of confidence that presently threatens the West. In every way Western institutions have begun to reap the fruits that philosophical scepticism and cultural relativism, too long unchallenged, have produced. Those with an interest in saving our civilization from the consequences of nihilism have begun to turn back to the pre-modern philosophical and religious sources of the West as a means of recovering what threatens now to be lost. Renewed interest in Augustine's early texts on the liberal arts is, therefore, part of the larger desire to revitalize education in its classical and Christian forms.[9]

And so to our topic. Where many scholars are dismissive of Augustine's early attempt to structure a unified Christian liberal arts curriculum,[10] I hope to point to how we might plausibly complete Augustine's unfinished theoretical work by articulating how an Augustinian today might understand the ways which the liberal arts can lead us closer to God. To do this I draw attention to Augustine's use of '*disciplina*' as an early Christological category.[11] My claim is that, understood correctly, Augustine's identification of the Son as the '*disciplina dei*' clarifies, in two senses, how the incarnation might bear upon a Christian and Augustinian reinterpretation of the classical theory of the liberal arts. In the first sense the incarnation necessitates a Christological reordering of the end to which the disciplines themselves lead; in the second sense, it clarifies the subjective conditions under which the liberal arts are to be studied. To argue for and explain these propositions we first look at what Augustine takes a *disciplina* to be and then how the identification of the Son as the *disciplina* of God suggests how studying the arts, in an Augustinian way, could help a student advance 'by mediation of corporeal realities to incorporeal ones'.

As already noted, in his early educational writings Augustine understands *disciplina* primarily in its intellectual signification. Once in 386 and again in

[8] See M. Vessey's introduction to *Augustine and the Disciplines* (2005), 3-12.

[9] One sign of this can be seen in the rise of Great Books programs in the United States and Canada in the last quarter of the 20th century.

[10] For example, Peter Brown assumes the *De doctrina christiana* wholly supplants Augustine's earlier writings on the liberal arts; George Howie almost entirely fails to take into account Augustine's development; while Neil McLynn is content to see these early educational texts as 'an exhibition' – an act of self-definition more important for their effect than their substance. See P. Brown, *Augustine of Hippo: A Biography* (London, 1967), 256-66; G. Howie, *Educational Theory and Practice in Augustine* (London, 1969), 241-76, and N. McLynn, Disciplines of Discipleship in Late Antique Education: Augustine and Gregory Nazianzen, in: *Augustine and the Disciplines* (2005), 25-48.

[11] Augustine, of course, only extends what had begun already with Tertullian: 'Die christliche Neuorientierung des Begriffs beginnt mit Tertullian, der als moralischer Rigorist das Wort nicht weniger als 319 mal verwendet', W. Hübner, art. disciplina: *AL* 2.3 (Basel, 1999), 458.

Digitized by Google

a homily about 14 years later, Augustine explained the etymological origin of *disciplina* in exactly the same terms: *'disciplina enim a discendo dicta est'*, *disciplina* derives its sense from *discendo* (learning).[12] Beginning with etymology, however, Augustine invests the term with ontological significance as, for example, in the *De ordine*, where, defending our belief in providence, he links *disciplina* to that other highly charged concept, *ordo*. At one point he defines *ordo* as 'that whose observance in life leads to God' (*ord.* 1.27):[13] where *ordo* signifies the pattern of God's government for the world, *disciplina* is the means by which we come to recognise (intellectually) and conform our lives (volitionally and emotionally) to that *ordo*. It is by *discplina* that we participate in *ordo*. Ontologically, *disciplina* is the very law of God 'written into the souls of the wise'; within a theory of education what it *does* is prescribe 'a two-fold pattern, one for the conduct of life, the other for the sequence of study.'[14]

Pattern of life and pattern for study: let us take up these two aspects of *disciplina* in turn. First, when Augustine speaks of *disciplina* as a pattern for life he has specific behaviours and dispositions in mind: the student of the liberal arts must avoid gluttony, vanity, silly games, and sleeping in (*ord.* 2.25). The point for us is that the intellectual apprehension of reality (especially immaterial reality) requires more than cognitive virtue. However we divide the activities of intellect and will, they are productions of one and the same mind.[15] In order to perceive intelligible and spiritual objects, which are wholly responsive to the ordering of the good, we too must cultivate a likeness to them. In other words, we too must become responsive to the good: being trapped by inordinate desires renders the seeker incapable of apprehending the true order of being because it exacerbates the dissimilarity between object and perceiving subject.

Secondly, in its explicitly speculative aspect, as a pattern of study, Augustine refers to *disciplina* both (a) as a body of knowledge and (b) as what we possess when we have grasped that knowledge. To the one side, *disciplina* is a coherent organization of knowledge pertaining to a circumscribed subject. Thus, in the *Soliloquies* (2.11.20) Augustine enumerates a series of subjects, which he claims all belong to the one set of *disciplinarum*. Revealingly, particular truths (both hypothetical and necessary) that may be discoverable in the subject of, let us say, grammar, are true by virtue of grammar's being a genuine *disciplina* – in

[12] See *sol.* 2.20 (CSEL 89, 71); *disc. chr.* 1.1 (CChr.SL 46, 207).

[13] *Ordo est, quem si tenuerimus in uita, perducet ad deum, et quem nisi tenuerimus in uita, non perueniemus ad deum* (*ord.* 1.27; CChr.SL 29, 102). See Serge Lancel, *St. Augustine*, transl. Antonia Nevill (London, 2002), 405, and Shinji Kayama, *From* ordo *to* pax*: the formation of a central political concept in Augustine* (Oxford, D.Phil.dissertation, 1997).

[14] *Haec autem disciplina ipsa dei lex est ... Haec igitur disciplina eis, qui illam nosse desiderant, simul geminum ordinem sequi iubet, cuius una pars uitae, altera eruditionis est* (*ord.* 2.25; CChr.SL 29, 121).

[15] See Peter Burnell, *The Augustinian Person* (Washington, 2005), 61f.

Digitized by Google

other words, a *bona fide* science.[16] His claim: *omnis ergo vera est disciplina* ('every *disciplina* is true') means a discipline is true *because* it comprises existent, and therefore intelligible, objects.[17] To the other side, *disciplina* can also refer more directly to the epistemological status of our apprehension of knowledge.[18]

The primary text in which Augustine names Christ as '*disciplina dei*' comes in his epistle 12 to Nebridius, written 389. Evidently, Nebridius was displeased at Augustine's inability to keep pace with his flood of questions (Augustine had given only two replies to Nebridius' three letters) – which were all focused on the incarnation (see *ep.* 11.2) and, most immediately, upon why the Son and not the Father became man (*ep.* 12). Augustine's answer is telling. He refers Nebridius to their past discussions about Christ: 'recall my [past] discussions', for then, as he promises, 'you will easily understand' (*ep.*12). And then this: 'In sum' the son is the '*disciplina et forma dei*' by which all has been created (cf. *Phil.* 2:6). Thus: to Nebridius' Christological questions *disciplina dei* is Augustine's first summary of Christology, Augustine's attempt to capture within a single definite description all that Christians believe about the Son of God.

Augustine's identification of the Son as '*disciplina dei*' can and should lead us to consider to what degree and in what ways others of his early connotations of *disciplina* (*e.g.* as the law of God, as a body of knowledge, as our apprehension of knowledge) should be reinterpreted. In relation to the liberal arts in particular, as I have suggested, Augustine's adoption of '*disciplina*' as a key Christological concept sheds light on his theory of the liberal arts in two ways, and for the following reasons. First: naming Christ the 'disciplina dei' necessitates a teleological reordering of the goal to which the subjects of the disciplines rationally lead for the reason that Christ, as creator, is himself the final cause and thus primary condition of all intelligibility. Plant your feet anywhere on the web of learning – beginning with grammar, physics, or geometry, as you please – and you will end at Christ. Christ as the '*disciplina dei*', as the source of all being and knowledge, is the terminus to which every intellectual discipline leads, if only you would follow it far enough. Second: naming Christ the '*disciplina dei*' clarifies also the subjective conditions under which those arts are to be studied. It is only by becoming like Christ, by becoming *connatural with* that highest principle which is also a person that the student can attain to the goal of study, which is happiness in God.

[16] See *ord.* 2.38-41 and *imm. an.* 1.1.

[17] See *sol.* 2.20 (CSEL 89, 71); this is also the way that Augustine refers to the system of Catholic doctrine as a whole, see *mor.*1.27 (CSEL 90, 31).

[18] Arguing against the Manichees, in *De immortalitate animae* Augustine asserts that *disciplina* exists wherever there is knowledge of things (*imm. an* 1.1; CSEL 89, 101).

Digitized by Google

Digitized by Google

Justice in War in and before Augustine

Peter BURNELL, Saskatoon

As Robert Markus has said, St. Augustine is the father of the Christian theory of just war.[1] If Augustine was its father, Cicero was its grandfather, in book one of *De Officiis*, and therefore the Greek Stoic Panaetius its great-grandfather. It is reasonable to expect Christianity, when it derives notions from Graeco-Roman thought, to assimilate them by proper integration; its theologians must not simply nail them to it, but engraft them in some natural way. This large requirement will entail a number of detailed ones, one of which is that, since Christianity is a tradition, what one says must stand in that tradition.

In this paper we shall look at one issue in reference to that assumed requirement, in the area of what was later called *ius in bello* – legal principle as it applies to the conduct of war. The issue concerned is whether a soldier, when under orders, must still consult his own conscience. The view has been imputed to Augustine that soldiers, because they are soldiers, are to regard themselves as having handed their consciences over to their commanding officers, with the result that they are immune from moral guilt for whatever they do according to orders. Frederick Russell in 1975 said: 'Augustine absolved the individual soldier from moral responsibility for his official actions.'[2] Here is David Lenihan, writing in 1988: 'It does not matter to the individual soldier whether the action is just or not.'[3] Robert Holmes, writing in 1999, says: 'Moral license extends to soldiers on all sides in war', and adds that the only proviso is 'that they are acting as agents of a legitimate authority.[4]

People interpreting Augustine in this way can of course point to numerous texts, from different periods of Augustine's life. Here is Augustine in *Contra Faustum* (75): 'A sovereign ruler may give an unjust command, but the soldier commanded is innocent, because his position makes obedience a duty'; and in the *City of God* (1.21): 'One does not oneself kill if one has a duty of obedience, *minsterium debet*, to another who is one's commander, just as a sword is an implement for its user.'

[1] Robert Markus, Saint Augustine's Views on the 'Just War', in: W.J. Shiels (ed.), *The Church and War* (London, 1983), 1-13, 1.

[2] Frederick H. Russell, *The Just War in the Middle Ages* (Cambridge, 1975), 22.

[3] David Lenihan, The Just War Theory in the Work of Saint Augustine: *Augustinian Studies* 19 (1988) 37-70, 45.

[4] Robert L. Holmes, St. Augustine and the Just War Theory, in: Gareth B. Matthews (ed.), *The Augustinian Tradition* (Berkeley, 1999), 323-44, 334.

Studia Patristica XLIX, 107-110.
© Peeters Publishers, 2010.

Digitized by Google

Where such statements are concerned, however, we should ask whether they are made absolutely, or on the understanding that on occasion some other principle can supervene *secundum quid*. Only three chapters after the second of these quotations Augustine, in a discussion of the question of suicide, compares Christians with those great pagans of the past:

'These men, who were in a position, according to the custom and propriety of war, to strike their conquered enemies down, refused to strike their very selves down when their enemies had conquered them.... How much more will Christians, worshippers of the true God, yearners for the heavenly homeland, abstain from this crime (of self-slaughter)... for in particular they are not constrained by the laws attaching to any military power or to any such military obligations, to strike-down an individual member of the enemy after he has been overcome. How, then, is anyone deceived by an error so bad that it causes him to kill himself either because an adversary has sinned against him or to prevent an adversary from sinning against him, given that he would not dare to kill even his own adversary who has sinned against him or is going to?'[5]

If one of the main notions included here is that Christian soldiers ordered to kill conquered enemies must disobey their commanding officer, this passage is a striking example of the Christian modification of Graeco-Roman just-war theory: a soldier then remains responsible for the morality even of his soldierly actions, after all. We must therefore consider whether that is indeed the meaning of this passage.

A couple of logical possibilities can be rejected immediately. Augustine should not be imagined to be discounting the possibility that such dastardly orders would ever be issued by Christian imperial authorities. On occasion such orders, or worse, were given, as Theodosius' massacre at Thessalonica indicates. Nor should one think that Christians were in some formal way immune to such orders. By Augustine's time the Roman army was full of Christians, the military oath (*sacramentum militare*) was in the name of the Trinity, and it bound the soldier to obey the emperor and by extension his delegate. If, therefore, Augustine does indeed mean that a Christian in the army not only has no obligation, but also would not dare, to obey an order to kill an enemy who has surrendered, the principle so absolving and negatively obliging him must be a moral and religious one, not a formally legal one. Moreover, Augustine certainly thought abiding by the terms of an oath taken before God to be itself a moral and religious duty, not a merely legal one. If, therefore, one is nevertheless freed from that obligation when it clashes with the principle of the wrongness of killing conquered enemies, this principle must be of great importance.

There is the crucial question, however, what group of Christians Augustine refers to as free from the obligation of so killing. Must he mean: those in the army? Augustine's Latin at the crucial point reads: *praesertim quos nullius militaris potestatis... iura constringunt ipsum hostem ferire superatum*. This,

[5] *City of God* 1.24.

Digitized by Google

taken by itself, will readily bear the meaning: 'especially those who are not constrained by the laws attaching to any military power... to strike an individual member of the enemy down after he has been overcome'. The Latin, will, however, also bear the meaning 'especially given that they are not constrained', *etc.* The former translation would imply that Augustine was prescinding from the difficult case of Christians who, being in the army, might find themselves in a horrifying moral position, and was simply concentrating on Christians who, not being in the army, would not; the latter translation would mean that he was referring precisely to Christians in the army, and saying that they do not have the obligation – indeed that they would not dare – to obey such terrible orders.

Of course Augustine is making several comparisons at once; but one of them is between pagans of the past, for whom it was in some degree a norm of martial conduct to kill already-conquered enemies, and Christians of the present, for whom there is no such norm, and therefore no such duty. Given this, it is unlikely that a man of Augustine's intelligence would have intended the former of our two meanings: it would have yielded the same sort of sense as if one said: 'In the past even married people did not always regard themselves as duty-bound to become pregnant, though in the past it was normal and usual to do so; how much more do people in this age not always feel themselves duty-bound to become pregnant – especially if they are not women, in which case the matter does not arise.' The point made in the last two clauses is perfectly true, but one that it would be stupid to make.

We may conclude that Augustine's meaning is that if ordered to kill a conquered enemy soldier, a Christian in the Roman army would have had both the right and the duty to disobey the order. And Augustine asserts this position to be a considerable change from the classical, pagan one.

Something should now be said about whether what has been described here as Augustine's position is precedented in Christian thought before him. The early tradition on the subject of war was especially varied. It included some sheer pacifism (in Lactantius' *Divine Institutions* 6.9 and 6.20, for example). Of particular interest concerning our question, however, is a passage from the Apostolic Constitution, a third-century text now almost universally accepted as being the work of Hippolytus of Rome. Our fairly full Latin translation of this piece of early Church law – one of several translations into different ancient languages – includes (ch. 16) a list of conditions that must be satisfied by candidates for Baptism, including allowed and forbidden professions and permissible and impermissible modes of conduct within the allowed professions. Procurers, for example, simply had to desist from their occupation, or be refused Baptism. So did actors, charioteers, and gladiators. Schoolteachers (that is, teachers of classical literature), on the other hand, though they should desist, might continue in their profession if it was necessary for their living. Soldiers in the service of the state authority must not kill people and must refuse to

Digitized by Google

carry-out an order to do so. What does this dual injunction to soldiers mean? Obviously they could stay in the army (though as another rule shows, they could not join the army once they had applied for Baptism, the point at issue presumably being the necessity of taking a pagan oath in those circumstances). R.H. Bainton once suggested that the dual injunction to soldiers already in the army is a prohibition on engaging in battle – so one could remain a soldier in peacetime but not in wartime.[6] But soldiers had to fight even in peacetime – battles with gangs of robbers, for example. The suggestion that the Hippolytean condition forbids soldiers ever to kill anyone in the course of their duty (Bainton's implicit position) would mean that Christians could remain soldiers, but were forbidden to do what a soldier's duty commonly, even normally, entailed. That suggestion is unlikely to be correct. These canons, though on numerous points they are strict and uncompromising, were not written by somebody interested in putting people in ridiculously anomalous positions. Teachers of classical literature, for example, are not told that they could continue in their profession provided that they avoided teaching pagan classical literature. If they had tried that, they would not have had any pupils.

The remaining practical possibility is that the canon means that soldiers are of course allowed to do what soldiers normally have to do, but if a superior officer were to say 'kill that particular person', or 'kill those particular people' (typically conquered enemy soldiers, or civilians), the soldier so ordered would have to refuse. This is essentially the same position as, it has been suggested here, Augustine takes in *City of God* (1.24).

[6] Roland H. Bainton, *Christian Attitudes toward War and Peace: A Historical Survey and Critical Re-evaluation* (New York, 1960), 79f.

Digitized by Google

Medical Art: Some Remarks on Its Limitation and Verification in Augustine

Siver DAGEMARK, Mölnlycke, Sweden

1. Introduction: Augustine's own experience and knowledge of medical art

Possidius tells us about Augustine's last sickness that very few people were with him. No person was allowed to visit the dying bishop except the doctors who came to examine him. *Et ne intentio eius a quoquam inpediretur, ante dies ferme decem quam exiret de corpore, a nobis postulavit praesentibus, ne quis ad eum ingrederetur, nisi his tantum horis, quibus medici ad inspiciendum intrabant, vel cum ei refectio inferretur.*[1] ('In order that his recollection might not be broken, about ten days before departing from the body, he asked us who were present to let no-one in to see him except when the doctors came to examine him or his meals were brought to him'.)

Augustine had personal experience of illness. In a sermon he refers to his affliction. His personal words moved his audience. They were many who were sick and asked for good health. At last Augustine excuses himself for his short sermon. He knows the eagerness of the listeners, but it was necessary for them to spare his fragile state of health.[2]

For Augustine medical art is a sign of the greatness of the soul. It belongs to such disciplines and achievements that are useful to human life. They cooperate with God, who is working in the world. The Scripture brings in figurative expressions from these arts and crafts, which is important for the interpretation.[3] Their particular area of expertise often required an instruction not offered in Roman education of the liberal arts.

[1] Possidius, *Vita Augustini* 31.3, A.A.R. Bastiaensen, *Vite dei Santi 3* (Milano, 1989), 236. See further Siver Dagemark, Possidius' idealised description of St Augustine's death, in: *Vescovi e pastori in epoca teodosiana. In occasione del XVI centenario della consacrazione episcopale di S. Agostino, 396-1996,* Studia Ephemeridis Augustinianum 58 (Rome, 1997), 719-741, 732. As regards the doctors who came to the dying bishop they were surely able to predict the close death of him by observing the change of his face, the so-called Hippocratic facies. See Jacques Jouanna, *Hippocrates,* transl. M.B. DeBevoise (Baltimore and London, 1999), 293. Augustine died on the 28th of August in 430.

[2] Augustine, *s.* 20B.1; 11.

[3] Augustine, *doctr. Chr.* II 30.47. Medicine and agriculture are mentioned in Varro's addition of arts (see 3.1, note 8).

Studia Patristica XLIX, 111-118.
© Peeters Publishers, 2010.

Digitized by Google

Augustine mentions the very ancient and experienced physician Hippocrates (circa 460-circa 370 B.C.).[4] He was able to identify Hippocrates' writings.[5] In this paper the name of Hippocrates stands for the authentic person but also for the genuine Hippocratic Corpus (the Hippocratic heritage).

Augustine seems to be unaware of the most well-known doctor to later ages Galen (129-circa 204 A.D.). Galen, the great systematic and innovator, admired Hippocrates and commented his works.[6] In reality Hippocratic medicine at this time was identical with Galen's, the kind of medical art that Augustine experienced.[7]

Augustine has much medical information in his works. My intention has been to analyze medical art from a particular aspect, namely its limitation and verification in Augustine, which is explained by its relation to the liberal arts, philosophy, and religion, as well as to various medical branches.[8]

[4] Augustine, *qu.* 1.93, I. Fraipont, CChr.SL 33 (1958), 35: *scriptum reperitur in libris antiquissimi et peritissimi medici Hippocratis.* See Owsei Temkin, *Hippocrates in a World of Pagans and Christians* (Baltimore and London, 1991), 43, note 22.

[5] Augustine tells us about some books that had been published under the name of the eminent physician Hippocrates. Even if there was some similarity in style and matter in comparison with genuine books they had been rejected, as they had not been recognized as authentic, when the authorship of his productions was ascertained. By comparing those books with the questionable ones they are without doubt attributed to Hippocrates. There are many testimonies to the books from the time of Hippocrates to the present time, see Augustine, *c. Faust.* 33.6.

[6] Galen's relationship to various medical schools and medical beliefs is evidenced in his writings dealing with such fields as physical theory, anatomy, physiology, disease classification, clinical practice, and scientific methodology. They also include a theory of the soul as well as religious belief and practice according to P.N. Singer, Introduction, in: Galen, *Selected works*, transl. and comments P.N. Singer (Oxford, 1997), viii-xviii.

[7] Augustine met various physicians. In larger cities as Rome, where Augustine had lived, there were public privileged doctors, officially appointed, paid by civic revenues. Below them were the public doctors of many cities. The court physicians (performing their duties in Milan during Augustine's stay there) held the highest rank. A centre of scientific medicine was Alexandria, where the medical disciplines were taught. See further A.H.M. Jones, *The later Roman Empire* 2 (Oxford, 1964), 736, 1012f.

[8] A greater text more elaborated is under preparation for publication. Some material has been used here from this text with some selected notes inserted. The text and the notes have been reduced very much. The various parts of my complete work referred to are the following:

1. *Introduction: Augustine's own experience and knowledge of medical art*
2. *The limitation of medical art*
   - 2.1. *Limitations of human science (medical art) are obvious when it is not able to absorb divine truths*
   - 2.2. *Examples of the weaknesses of medical art are found in sensuous observation*
   - 2.3. *Miracles evidence the limitation of medical art*
   - 2.4 *Examples of limitations are found in various medical branches*
3. *The verification of medical art*
   - 3.1. *Medical art is verified by its relation to the liberal arts*
     - 3.1.1. *Medical art depends upon sciences of language*
     - 3.1.2. *Medical art depends upon the mathematical disciplines*

Digitized by Google

There are some question that have arisen from my work on medical art in Augustine. How is health and sickness valued by Augustine? What special failures of medical art is pointed out by him? Is it possible to verify medical art as a true science by the liberal arts? How can philosophy, the last of the liberal arts, support medicine? How can pagan medicine connected with pagan gods be useful to Christians? Are there any connections between Christian belief in God and medicine? Which medical branches can verify medical art in agreement with Christian faith? By answering these questions I will give a presentation of my work. The questions refer to the division of my elaborated study that has not yet been published (see note 8).

2. Some questions related to Augustine's view of medical limitation and verification

1) The first question deals with how *health and sickness* are valued by Augustine (see 1., note 8). As Augustine had experience of illness, which he tells us about in a personal way, he is able to estimate both health and sickness and their usefulness to man from a spiritual point of view. He also met many people suffering from physical and spiritual sickness. According to him healing did not only belong to medical art. A Christian has spiritual resources able to cure both body and soul. However, Augustine relied upon medical art and stressed its cooperation with God. Physicians, some of them also mentioned by name, were useful to human life.

3.2. *Medical art is verified by its relation to philosophy (the last of the liberal arts)*
  3.2.1. *Philosophical divisions and their contents have influenced antique medical art*
  3.2.2. *Logic connected with the faculty of perceiving is necessary for medical art*
  3.2.3. *Natural or physical philosophy is important to medical art*
  3.2.4. *Moral questions have to be pondered upon by medical art*
3.3. *Medical art may be verified by its relation to religion*
  3.3.1 *Pagan gods are not able to cure and do not support medical art*
  3.3.2 *The Christian God has the power to cure and support medical art*
  3.3.3 *The Bible confirms the medical art by a metaphoric exegesis*
3.4. *Medical art is verified by its relation to various medical branches*
  3.4.1. *Medical botany dealing with plants and plant life is focused on medical herbs*
  3.4.2. *Pharmacology treating drugs and medicines includes inter alia salves and healing ointments*
  3.4.3. *Medical biology contains such fields as physical life and living matter in all its phases*
  3.4.4. *Biochemistry examines the chemistry of physiological processes in living organisms*
  3.4.5. *Pathology is connected with causes of diseases*
  3.4.6. *Physiology considers the organic functions of living beings*
  3.4.7. *Anatomy examines by dissection the structure and part of bodies*
  3.4.8. *Surgery deals with diseases and injuries that require manual and instrumental operative treatment*
  3.4.9. *Therapeutics is the medical branch that deals with the treatment of disease.*

Digitized by Google

2) The second question asking for *failures of medical art* engaged Augustine, when he reflected upon the limitation of medical art (see 2.1-2.4, note 8). A science may be a hindrance to wisdom (divine truth) as it is depending on temporal things. Sensuous observation cannot produce knowledge of God.[9] Furthermore, Augustine is aware of the philosophical discussion about sense perception and the aversion of some philosophers to rely on the senses. Among the medical sects, sometimes referred to by Augustine, there were also various meanings about the possibility to discover true knowledge by the reliance on experience and exact observation.[10] When Augustine points out the miraculous healing he stresses that this is completely God's work. He also gives examples of many shortcomings in various medical branches.[11] Consequently, the limitation of the science of medicine is evident. For Augustine the boundaries of science are manifest.

3) The third question searches for an answer whether it is possible to verify *medical art as a true science* by the liberal arts (see 3.1.1-3.1.2, note 8). Augustine often referred to the liberal arts. However, medical science is not included in his list.[12] As regards the sciences of language the doctors practiced rhetoric, useful in order to persuade patients, relatives, and colleagues about diagnosis and treatment.[13] Dialectic was especially important for the definitions, divisions, and classifications of the medical art (and all sciences), which brought a true science into existence.[14] Consequently, Augustine accepted the significance of rhetoric and dialectic for a doctor. That logical thinking was very important to medical art is evident even in Galen's classification of diseases, his techniques of diagnosis, his prescription of medical remedies, as well as his systemization and development of the earlier medical tradition.[15]

As regards the mathematical disciplines Augustine stressed that objects studied by arithmetics could not be falsified by sense perception. They could be understood only by the intellect.[16] For Augustine it was clear that mathematical

[9] Augustine, *sol.* 1.10-1.

[10] Augustine, *anim. et or.* 4.7.

[11] Augustine, *ciu.* VI. See for instance Heinrich von Staden, Inefficacy, error and failure, in: *Galen on pharmacology, philosophy, history and medicine. Proceedings of the Vth International Galen Colloquium, Lille, 16-18 March 1995*, ed. Armelle Debru, Studies in ancient medicine 16 (Leiden, 1997), 59-83, 61-71 and Paul T. Keyser, Science and magic in Galen's recipes (sympathy and efficacy), in: *Galen on pharmacology*, 175-198, 188f.

[12] This is opposite to Varro whose nine books of disciplines are lost, but an attempt to reconstruct them is found in works of Pliny, Gellius, and Augustine. See further William Harris Stahl, Richard Johnson, and E.L. Burge, *Martianus Capella and the Seven Liberal Arts* 1 (New York and London, 1971), 43.

[13] J. Jouanna, *Hippocrates* (1999), 99f., 80-5.

[14] Augustine, *sol.* 2.20-1.

[15] Even if Galen wanted to create a science of demonstration he was conscious of the limitation of logical proof. See Vivian Nutton, Roman medicine, 250 BC to AD 200, in: Lawrence I. Conrad, *et al.* (eds.), *The Western medical tradition* (Cambridge, 1995), 71-91, 64.

[16] Augustine, *conf.* X 9.16-10, 15, 23.

Digitized by Google

disciplines supported medical science, obvious in the use of methods of calculating and measuring that could not be falsified.[17] Medical art was depending on mathematics. Galen confirms also that he had studied carefully the disciplines of mathematics and geometry.[18]

4) The fourth question has to do with how *philosophy can support medicine* (see 3.2.1-3.2.4, note 8). Augustine follows the old division of philosophy. This included rational, natural, and moral parts, which all have relations to medicine.[19] For Galen a good doctor also is a philosopher.[20] Opposite to him Augustine underlines that medical art needed that wisdom which points out the authority of God.

Examples from rational or logical philosophy stress Augustine's ideas of the soul. Contrary to for instance Galen's opinion he underlines that the soul does not consist of any materialistic substance. Augustine's philosophical background makes him able to compare diverse views of the soul.[21] His information about man's faculty of perceiving is influenced by philosophical thought. He even refers to the science of medicine in this connection. The observation of various phenomena needed a scientific technique, which Augustine does not deny.

Natural or physical philosophy deals with medical physiology and speculation on the elements of the body, mentioned also by Augustine.[22] Various humours of a man's constitution (blood, bile, black bile, phlegm) and their mixtures were considered to be causes of diseases, which Hippocratic medical art had examined.[23] Augustine knew well many theories of natural or physical philosophy.

Moral questions deal with Augustine's negative view of dissection in general, contrary to the opinion of Hippocrates and Galen, who accepted animal dissection but not practiced a human one (excepting some cases as regards Galen).[24] However, Augustine is not unwilling to report medical investigations in detail, possible only by the development of medical anatomy.

[17] Augustine, *Gen. litt.* V 22, 43-4.

[18] Galen, *De libris propriis* 11.39. A work ascribed to Galen is *Prognostica de decubitu ex mathematica scientia.*

[19] Augustine, *ciu.* VIII 4. Philosophical schools were managed by the Stoics, the Epicureans, and the Neoplatonists. The Stoic and Epicurean division of philosophy pointed out (in agreement with Plato) logic, physics, and ethics. Physics included natural science. This topic is dealt with in Siver Dagemark, Natural science: its limitation and relation to the liberal arts in Augustine: *Augustinianum II* (2009) 439-502, 461f.

[20] P.N. Singer, Introduction, in: Galen, *Selected works* (1997), viii. See further Galen, *De ordine librorum suorum ad Eugenianum* 4.59. See also Galen, *Quod optimus medicus sit quoque philosophus.*

[21] Augustine, *trin.* X 7.9. For Galen's materialistic view of the soul see for instance Vincent Barras, Introduction, in: Galenos, *L'âme et ses passions = les passions et les erreurs de l'âme and les facultés de l'âme suivent les tempéraments du corps*, Terpsichore Birchler, Anne-France Morand (ed.) (Paris, 1995), xxix, xxxvii, xlv.

[22] Augustine, *ep.* 158.6. The epistle deals with the resurrection of the body.

[23] G.E.R. Lloyd, *Methods and problems in Greek science* (Cambridge, 1991), 95.

[24] Augustine, *ciu.* XXII 24.

Digitized by Google

5) The fifth question considers how *pagan medicine* can be useful to Christians, even if it is connected with pagan gods (see 3.3.1-3.3.3, note 8). Augustine's resistance to the pagan gods denied their medical power.[25] Only God has power to cure and support medical art. This does not mean a total denial of secular medicine.[26] Religion associated with divine wisdom is able to verify secular medical art, which is clearly seen in Augustine's figurative use of medical terms. Jesus the Physician heals man from sickness.[27] Many doctors were at this time willing to cooperate with God, which Augustine confirms.[28] He also demonstrates by an allegorical exegesis that the Bible can verify medical art as a true science. In such a way Bible and science are harmonized.

6) The sixth question reflects upon *connections between God and medicine,* exemplified by references to some medical branches practiced in antiquity, namely medical botany, pharmacology, biology, biochemistry, pathology, physiology, anatomy, surgery, and therapeutics.

Medical botany and pharmacology are often hinted at by Augustine in a metaphoric way (see 3.4.1-3.4.2, note 8). His use of medical terms in such a way gives also an insight into various treatments.[29] Theophrastos, Pliny, Dioscorides, and Galen describe many medicinal recipes and the use of herbs. A doctor was able to compose useful medicaments.[30]

What is called *medical biology* actualizes the significance of living conditions, birth, growth, death and similar fields (see 3.4.3, note 8). Augustine evidences doctors' observations in such matters.[31] For Galen medicine was a part of biology. Humans were considered to be a type of animal (which was not in agreement with Christian belief). Therefore dissections of animals were suitable for medical art.[32]

[25] The Hippocratic oaths was sworn by Apollo, by Asclepius, by Health, by Panacea, and by all the gods and goddesses, see J. Jouanna, *Hippocrates* (1999), 369.

[26] See Arnobius, *Contra gentes* 1.48.

[27] Augustine, *en. Ps.* 118.15. Christ as a spiritual healer was also thought to be the physician of the soul. See O. Temkin, *Hippocrates* (1991), 87, 177. Christ the physician is examined *inter alia* by R. Arbesmann, J. Courtès and M.-F. Berrouard. See further Isabelle Bochet, Maladie de l'âme et thérapeutique scripturaire selon Augustin, in: *Médicine et théologie chez les Pères de l'Église.* Sous la direction de Véronique Boudon-Millot et Bernard Pouderon, Théologie historique 117 (Paris, 2005), 379-400, 379, note 2.

[28] Augustine, *ep.* 159.3-4.

[29] Augustine, *Io. eu. tr.* 2.16.

[30] As regards Dioscorides a valuable edition is found in Pedanius Dioscorides of Anazarbus, *De materia medica*, transl. Lilly Y. Beck (Hildesheim, Zürich, and New York, 2005). Beck has included a useful introduction and many elaborated indexes, which give information about *inter alia* medical plants suitable for various treatments. A medical index refers to various diseases. Galen's *De simplicium medicamentorum, De compositione medicamentorum secundum locos*, and *De compositione medicamentorum per genera* evidence his great interest in pharmacology.

[31] Augustine, *ciu.* V 2.

[32] Galen, *De libris propriis* 3.24.

Digitized by Google

The *ancient biochemistry* includes descriptions of the four elements, which Augustine has reflected upon (see 3.4.4, note 8). In the beginning all elements were created by God in a disordered and cloudy mass.[33] After death the body of a human being is assimilated to the elements of the world.[34] Galen identifies the four humours inside the body with the classical four elements. Their qualities of hot, cold, wet, dry and their different states and mixtures are important to medical art and man's health.

When Augustine thinks over *pathological questions* and causes of illness he even refers to the humours of the body and their mixtures, but he does not only consider physical explanations (see 3.4.5, note 8).[35] Physical disorder (evil humours) is also caused by a man who is not in control of his life. Sin damages bodily health.[36] Therefore for instance fever is a symptom of both body and soul.[37] There is an analogy between the diseases of the soul and those of the body.[38] Augustine uses many figurative descriptions in this connection. Contrary to Augustine Galen prefers physical explanations of sickness.[39]

As regards *physiology* Augustine points out various bodily functions produced by God's power (see 3.4.6, note 8). The heart, for instance, is not only a physical organ. A metaphorical interpretation of the heart tells us about the heart as a place of inner feelings, thought, and adoration.[40] Augustine's descriptions of the functions of the eyes and the lungs are based on philosophical and physiological theories, evidenced by the medical scientists.[41] Galen refers in a similar way to Aristotle's physiology, when he reflects upon the special purpose of various organs.

Concerning *anatomy* Augustine mentions the so-called anatomists, who were trained in dissecting the human body, which was disgusting to many healers (see 3.4.7, note 8). He admits that the bodily organs can be inspected in such a way by surgical specialists.[42] He also tells us that this art was included in the medical education.[43] However, the nature of the soul cannot be observed by dissection. For Hippocrates and Galen medical anatomy by practising dissection of animals was important, not only as a spectacular event but as a way to get information on the inner parts of the human body.

[33] Augustine, *Gn. litt.* I 12.27 (PL 34, 256): *Non est autem informis omni modo materies, ubi etiam nebulosa species apparuerit.*

[34] Augustine, *ciu.* XIX 12.

[35] Augustine, *Io. eu. tr.* 25.16.

[36] Augustine, *Io. eu. tr.* 15.16, gives an example of the cause of disease.

[37] Augustine, *conf.* V 9.16.

[38] See Augustine, *en. Ps.* 36.1. See further I. Bochet, Maladie de l'âme (2005), 380-5.

[39] Galen, *De optima corporis nostri constitutione* 2, illustrates Galen's ideas of causes and effects. Medical diagnosis and prognosis are elucidated *inter alia* in Galenos, *On antecedent causes*, ed. R.J. Hankinson with an introduction, transl. and commentary (Cambridge, 1998).

[40] Augustine, *b. coniug.* 7; 10.

[41] See for instance Augustine, *Gn. litt.* XXII 16.32; *an. et or.* 3.4.

[42] Augustine, *Gn. litt.* V 22.43-44.

[43] Augustine, *an. et or.* 4.7.

Digitized by Google

With respect to *surgery*, that needed specialists, the examples of a surgeon's work give some information in detail in Augustine, for instance how a surgeon binds up wounds (see 3.4.8, note 8).[44] The use of fire and knife struck a patient with terror. He had to be capable of bearing pain.[45] Deformities were common in society. Metaphoric descriptions are evident also here. The Lord heals as a surgeon. Putrefaction and foulness have to be cut off.[46] The sacraments heal a Christian's bruises and wounds.

Therapeutics, dealing with the treatment of disease, is emphasized by Augustine (see 3.4.9, note 8). His accounts of curing and healing describe instructions and prescriptions of doctors and the treatment of wounds.[47] They give also many examples of the importance of a healthy lifestyle.[48] This includes even spiritual life. The Lord has prescribed medicine, a bitter and sharp one, in order to heal man from sin.[49] God's assistance is necessary also for medical art. When Augustine uses medical metaphors here he even gives insight into the ordinary use of medicine and what remedies are to be selected.

It is possible to establish some facts as regards symptoms and treatments from information about Augustine's own diseases, often related to crises in his life.[50] Fever is a common symptom. Medical codes, the examination of a patient, suitable treatment related to diagnosis and prognosis are discussed in this connection. Augustine trusted in God's help before traditional medical curing.

Galen gives a survey of antique therapeutics, of interest to an elucidation of Augustine's view of medical art. He recommends special methods for various diseases. Chronic diseases, for instance, required the thinning diet.[51] He also mentions many factors that affect the pulse.[52]

We may finally conclude that medical art had been developed by the Greeks, manifest in Hippocrates' works. All scientific observations were dependent on the Greek heritage. Galen's knowledge of Hippocratic medicine influenced the development of the art in the West. Augustine's insight into medical scientific disciplines referred to preserved handbooks. From a philosophical point of view he was able to comment medical theories and hypotheses. Furthermore, he related medical art to God and interpreted its practice as a gift from God, who cared for man. A doctor must cooperate with God. Figuratively, the art of medicine could give many references to spiritual life, including both illness and health. Christ the Physician is the Salvation.

[44] Augustine, *doctr. chr.* I 14.13.
[45] Augustine, *en. Ps.* 86.8.
[46] Augustine, *conf.* IX 8.18.
[47] See for instance Augustine, *ep.* 211.13; *Gn. litt.* IX 15.27.
[48] See for instance Augustine, *util. cred.* 1.3; *mor.* 33.72.
[49] Augustine, *Io. eu. tr.* 3.14.
[50] Augustine, *conf.* V 9.16; IX 2.4.
[51] Galen, *De victu attenuante* 1.
[52] Galen, *De pulsibus libellus ad tirones* 12.473.

Digitized by Google

Augustine's Longing for Holiness and the Problem of Monastic Illiteracy

Pier Franco BEATRICE, Padua

1. The prologue to *'De doctrina christiana'*

The analysis of the prologue to *De doctrina christiana* (= *doctr. chr.*) is an obligatory step to get into the logic of the treatise and thus understand its exact collocation in the wider context of Augustine's literary activity. It is a programmatic text, in which Augustine not only announces his treatment of the precepts that are useful for the interpretation of the Scriptures and illustrates the intentions of his work, but more important, he also replies in advance to criticisms that could be raised against his didactic undertaking by potential objectors. His aim is to rid himself beforehand of any negative reactions which could seriously damage the diffusion of the work and the efficacy of its message.[1] Augustine distinguishes three categories of possible objectors.

There are those people who will criticise the work simply because they have not understood the precepts given by Augustine.[2] To this first category of critics, Augustine replies that their eyesight is too weak to see even his finger pointing out to them the new moon, or the old one, or a very faint star.[3] The second group of critics includes those people who, instead, have understood Augustine's precepts, but are not able to put them into practice, consequently ending up by considering his efforts futile and his work totally useless.[4] To take up the same example as before, they are in other words indeed capable of seeing Augustine's finger, but not the stars that it points to. In both cases, Augustine concludes ironically, insight may be given to them only by God.[5]

More interesting and complex is the case offered by the third class (*tertium genus*) of objectors. Augustine describes them as follows:

'A third class of critics consists of those who either interpret the divine Scriptures quite correctly or think they do. Because they see, or at least believe, that they have gained their ability to expound the holy books without reading any

[1] *doctr. chr.*, Prol. 1-2. Quotations are taken from R.P.H. Green, *Augustine. De Doctrina Christiana* (Oxford, 1995).
[2] Prol. 3.
[3] Prol. 5.
[4] Prol. 3.
[5] Prol. 6.

Studia Patristica XLIX, 119-134.
© Peeters Publishers, 2010.

Digitized by Google

precepts of the kind that I have now undertaken to give, they will protest that these precepts are not needed by anybody, and that all worthwhile illumination of the obscurities of those texts can come by a special gift of God (*divino munere*).'[6]

From the length of the reply and the particular effort made by Augustine in his rebuttal, it is clear that the position of these critics is a challenge that worries him much more than those of the two previous categories, even if only because it presents spiritual and theological aspects of great attraction to a Christian audience. Augustine himself seems well disposed to acknowledge these people, albeit with the necessary subtle distinctions. He in fact recognises that, apart from their presumptuousness, which would lead them to consider superfluous his precepts, they sometimes manage to interpret the holy books correctly, and that therefore, despite everything, they have a perfect right to rejoice in their great gift, or grace, received from God (*divino munere*).[7] The same concept is repeated where Augustine says that these people rightly believe that their ability in understanding the obscure passages in the Scriptures is a gift of God (*divino munere; facultatem divinitus traditam*).[8]

So it is easy to understand why this third class of objectors has attracted particular attention from scholars. As could be expected for such an allusive and elusive text, the attempts at identification have been varied and, up to the present, substantially fruitless. There is, however, general agreement at least on one point. In this text Augustine describes two conflicting, and mutually exclusive, ways of conceiving the practice of biblical exegesis, which are based on two completely different epistemological and theological premises. To use an apt distinction introduced by Peter Brunner:[9] on the one hand is the exegesis which has no need of human precepts, but springs from direct inspiration of divine grace, and can therefore be legitimately labelled 'charismatic'; on the other hand the 'methodical' or scientific exegesis, which is transmitted from teacher to disciple according to the rules and with the support of the techniques that are characteristic of human teaching. In defence of this second type of exegesis, Augustine decides to spend all his vast store of 'secular' knowledge (the liberal arts, the sciences of the classical world, philosophy) acquired in long years of study.

2. The western legacy of Egyptian monasticism

But who are the supporters of this 'charismatic' exegesis? Trying to identify them is clearly not a superfluous matter, if we consider that Augustine felt

[6] Prol. 4.
[7] Prol. 7.
[8] Prol. 16.
[9] Peter Brunner, Charismatische und methodische Schriftauslegung nach Augustins Prolog zu 'De doctrina christiana': *KuD* 1 (1955) 59-69, 85-103.

Digitized by Google

obliged to take a stand against them, offering a series of explanations and methodological clarifications of great importance. An interesting attempt to probe the question, in a certain sense the first attempt of its kind, is that of Ulrich Duchrow.[10] According to this scholar, the adversaries belonging to the third group mentioned in the prologue to *doctr. chr.* were monks of whom Augustine had learned through the writings of John Cassian which date back to the years 419-26.

We know for certain that these Egyptian monks, so vividly described by Cassian, were longing to acquire knowledge and understanding of the Scriptures (*legis scientiam*), not through erudite instruction, but exclusively through the teaching and illumination of God for which they implored Him in their prayers.[11] Cassian was perfectly aware that in the experience of Egyptian monasticism, which was rooted in a basically anti-hellenistic cultural context, an irremediable contrast existed between profane science, secular erudition, the study of literature on the one hand, and the spiritual, charismatic science of the Scriptures on the other: human doctrine is an obstacle to the full illumination which derives only from intense and continuous prayer, humility and the purity of the heart. The true science of the Scriptures (*veram scripturarum scientiam*), says the abbot Nesteros in *Conference* XIV, is the result of humility that leads to the science which does not puff up with pride and arrogance but sheds light by the consummation of love (*humilitatem cordis ..., quae te non ad illam quae inflat, sed ad eam quae inluminat scientiam caritatis consummatione perducat*).[12] No less telltale is the story of Theodore, a disciple of Pachomius, which is again told by Cassian. Only a seven-day long prayer allowed him to obtain the divine revelation which gave him the right solution to a very obscure biblical question. To brothers who, astonished by his science, asked him for further explanations, he replied that a monk need not rely for a correct understanding of the Scriptures on the books of the commentators, that is, of the professional exegetes who resort to the techniques of profane science, but must instead purify himself of the vices of the flesh which dull the natural contemplation of the mysteries of the Bible.[13]

This attitude of abandon to prayer to obtain directly from God exegetic illumination, makes any mediation of a human teacher superfluous. Cassiodorus refers to this story, told by Cassian, in the preface to the *Institutes*.[14] In this

[10] Ulrich Duchrow, Zum Prolog von Augustins 'De doctrina christiana': *VigChr* 17 (1963) 165-72.

[11] Cassian, *Conl.* 3.14.

[12] Cassian, *Conl.* 14.

[13] Cassian, *De inst. coen.* 5.33-4.

[14] Cassiodorus, *Inst.* I, *praef.* 7, ed. Roger A.B. Mynors, *Cassiodori Senatoris Institutiones* (Oxford, 1937), 6-7: *Nec me praeterit eloquentissimum Cassianum in quinto 'Collationum' dixisse volumine quendam senem et simplicem de obscurissimo loco scripturae divinae fuisse requisitum ...*

Digitized by Google

same context, Cassiodorus quotes another episode, which had already been mentioned by Augustine in the preface of *doctr. chr.*[15] Augustine in fact says here that he had recently been told by serious and trustworthy people that a barbarian Christian slave, without any human instruction, through prayer had received the revelation of the alphabet (*litteras quoque ipsas nullo docente homine in plenam notitiam orando ut sibi revelarentur accepit*), and had succeeded, after three days' prayer, in reading through a book to the utter amazement of those present (*triduanis precibus impetrans ut etiam codicem oblatum, stupentibus qui aderant, legendo percurreret*).[16]

One could also add the similar story of the Egyptian monk Or, which was known in the West thanks to the Latin translation of the *Historia monachorum* attributed to Rufinus. Or was illiterate (ἀγράμματος), but received from God a grace and recited by heart the Scriptures (χάρις αὐτῷ θεόθεν δίδοται καὶ τὰς γραφὰς ἔξωθεν ἀπεστήθιζεν), so that, when his brothers handed him a codex, he began to read as if he were an expert of the Scriptures (ἐπιδοθέντος γὰρ αὐτῷ βιβλίου παρὰ τῶν ἀδελφῶν, ὡς ἔμπειρος τῶν γραφῶν, οὕτω λοιπὸν ἀνεγίνωσκεν).[17]

3. Rebel monks and charismatic exegesis at Carthage

We have to admit that Duchrow's investigation, therefore, has shown some undeniable similarities between the third group of opponents criticised by Augustine in the prologue to *doctr. chr.* and certain monastic circles whose members nourished strong feelings of opposition to profane culture. Not for this reason, however, should one share his opinion that there is a direct dependence of Augustine's prologue to *doctr. chr.* on Cassian's writings and that, consequently, this text could not have been published in 397, but only in 426-8 with the final, complete edition of the treatise.[18] This statement is unfounded for at least two reasons.

[15] *Ibid.*: *Simile est et illud sancti Augustini dictum, quod in libris 'de Doctrina Christiana' commemorat ...*

[16] *doctr. chr.*, Prol. 8.

[17] André-Jean Festugière (ed.), *Historia monachorum in Aegypto* 2.5, SHG 53 (Bruxelles, 1971), 36f. The Latin translation (in PTS 34, 277) does not have the words concerning the recitation of the Scriptures and has confused in the same word *litterae* the 'letters of the alphabet' and the 'Scriptures': *Litteras primo ignoravit, cum autem de eremo ad haec, quae supra diximus, vicinora habitaculis loca accessisset, data ei divinitus gratia est. Et cum a fratribus oblatus ei fuisset codex, quasi olim iam sciens litteras legere coepit.* See also *Hist. monach.* 2.7, again on Or (ἔμπειρος γὰρ ἦν λίαν τῶν γραφῶν θεόθεν ταύτην τὴν χάριν κτησάμενος), and 10.7 on Patermuthius (χάριν γὰρ αὐτῷ δεδόσθαι θεόθεν ἔλεγεν ἀποστηθίζειν ἔξωθεν τὰς γραφάς).

[18] As far as I know, U. Duchrow's proposal (1963) has been welcomed only by Ilona Opelt, Doctrina und doctrina cristiana: *Altsprachlicher Unterricht* 9/4 (1966) 5-22, and *ead.*, Materialien zur Nachwirkung von Augustins Schrift 'De doctrina christiana': *JAC* 17 (1974) 64-73; the same dating also in Gerard J.M. Bartelink, *Athanase d'Alexandrie. Vie d'Antoine*, SC 400 (Paris, 1994), 41.

Digitized by Google

First of all, Augustine himself writes that the prologue to *doctr. chr.* was an integral part of the initial arrangement of the work (*prima distributione*).[19] It is not by chance that the prologue, along with the first two books, is already found in the codex Petropolitanus Q.v.1.3, written around 400 C.E.[20] Secondly, Augustine had certainly no need to wait so many years and to read Cassian's works to obtain information about these 'charismatic' trends and their methods of interpretation of the Bible. Their presence in Africa is recorded already in his treatise *op. mon.*, a pamphlet composed by Augustine on the personal request of bishop Aurelius of Carthage at the end of the fourth century. This chronological proximity allows us to guess that between the two texts there is probably some intrinsic relationship.[21] Without for this reason establishing a clear identification of the third class of adversaries attacked in the prologue to *doctr. chr.* with the monks criticised in *op. mon.*, nevertheless we cannot avoid noting what follows.

These Chartaginian monks refused to do manual work in the name of their absolute loyalty to the evangelical precept of *Matth.* 6:25-34, a text in which Jesus invites his disciples to stop worrying about food and clothing, and accordingly interpreted allegorically Paul's precept 'If any man will not work, neither let him eat' (*2Thess.* 3:10) as if it referred to spiritual, not physical, work. That is why their only occupations were biblical reading (*lectio*) and prayers (*orationes*) with psalms, hymns, and spiritual canticles.[22] This enables us to understand that their interpretation of the Bible was not based on a scientific analysis of the texts, but on an alleged inspiration or revelation obtained by divine grace exclusively through prayer. This form of monastic spirituality has undoubtedly striking similarities in particular with the Syro-Mesopotamian movement of the Messalians, also known as Euchites, that is, 'men of prayer'.[23] Augustine

[19] *doctr. chr.* IV 1.

[20] See Kenneth B. Steinhauser, Codex Leningradensis Q.v.I.3: Some Unresolved Problems, in: Duane W.H. Arnold and Pamela Bright (eds.), *De doctrina christiana. A Classic of Western Culture*, Christianity and Judaism in Antiquity 9 (Notre Dame and London, 1995), 33-43.

[21] See *op. mon.* 1.1: *Iussioni tuae, sancte frater Aureli, tanto devotius obtemperare me oportuit, quanto magis mihi quis ex te iusserit, claruit.* Aurelius' command, mentioned by Augustine in *ep.* 41.2 (*Nam et ego quod iussisti non negligo*), is to be connected with this work and not with *doctr. chr.*, as is claimed by Edmund Hill, 'De Doctrina Christiana': A Suggestion: *SP* 6 (1962) 443-6, and by several other scholars. Augustine would certainly not have failed to remember Aurelius' injunction in the preface of *doctr. chr.*

[22] *op. mon.* 1.2 and 17.20.

[23] Georges Folliet, Des moines euchites à Carthage en 400-401: *SP* 2 (1957) 386-99. See also Rudolph Arbesmann, The Attitude of Saint Augustine toward Labor, in: David Neiman and Margaret Schatkin (eds.), *The Heritage of the Early Church: Essays in Honor of the Very Reverend Georges Vasilievich Florovsky*, OCA 195 (Roma, 1973), 245-59. I see no need to think of a christianized version of Cynicism or a 'cynicized' version of Christianity, as proposed by K.B. Steinhauser, The Cynic Monks of Carthage: Some Observations on 'De opere monachorum', in: Joseph T. Lienhard, Earl C. Muller, and Roland J. Teske (eds.), *Augustine: Presbyter Factus Sum*, Collectanea Augustiniana (New York, 1993), 455-62.

Digitized by Google

points out that their attitude derives from a misinterpretation, a false comprehension of Jesus' words (*perverso intellectu*) which leads them to pervert Paul's precepts (*pervertere*).[24] In this way Augustine explains how mistaken exegetical assumptions can be the cause of reprehensible and harmful behaviour.

The conception of the relationship between prayer and biblical exegesis, that was peculiar to these enthusiasts, presents obvious affinities to that rejected by Augustine in the prologue to *doctr. chr.* But we find another, more important element in Augustine's reply to his future critics, which inevitably points us towards the monastic world, namely the mention of the Egyptian hermit Antony, who had died about forty years earlier (356 C.E.). The reference to this exemplary character plays a particularly important role in Augustine's thesis. Antony's relevance is revealed by the fact that he appears first and precedes the figure of the barbarian Christian slave and all the other subsequent examples drawn from the Bible. The mention of Antony deserves to be considered in depth here, all the more so if we remember that Paul Monceaux, for example, does not refer to this passage of the prologue to *doctr. chr.* in his pioneering essay on Augustine and Antony,[25] and Samuel Rubenson totally overlooks the testimony of Augustine in his book on Antony's letters.[26] Augustine claims that all those who boast of the divine gift which enables them to understand the Scriptures without resorting to precepts such as those that are about to be presented in *doctr. chr.*, should not forget that they at least learned the alphabet with human help. However, this is not a valid reason to feel humiliated by the holy and perfect Egyptian monk Antony 'who, though lacking any knowledge of the alphabet (*sine ulla scientia litterarum*) [that is, being totally illiterate], is reported to have memorized the divine Scriptures by listening to them being read (*scripturas divinas et memoriter audiendo tenuisse*), and to have understood them by thoughtful meditation'.[27] We may wonder from what source Augustine drew this portrait of the wise monk, who was not only uneducated, but even illiterate, and why he introduced the figure of Antony at this point of his anti-charismatic argument.

4. Antony of Egypt, the illiterate monk

All the information about the monk Antony circulating in the Latin West in the second half of the fourth century came from two Latin translations of the *Life*

[24] *op. mon.* 19.22; 21.25, and 23.30.

[25] Paul Monceaux, Saint Augustin et Saint Antoine. Contribution à l'histoire du monachisme, in: *Studi agostiniani* (Roma, 1931), 61-89.

[26] Samuel Rubenson, *The Letters of St. Antony: Monasticism and the Making of a Saint*, Studies in Antiquity and Christianity (Minneapolis, 1995), 163-84: 'References to Antony in other sources'.

[27] Prol. 8.

Digitized by Google

of Antony written in Greek by Athanasius of Alexandria in 357. The first of these versions is anonymous, but very important because it is close to the original, while the other, more elaborate and often loose translation is the work of Evagrius of Antioch, a friend of Jerome's. Now, the *Life of Antony* repeatedly emphasizes, with particular and deliberate insistence, the profound extraneousness, I would even dare say the intentional hostility, of the monk Antony with respect to secular learning. He came of a well-to-do family of land-owners and his parents were certainly in a position to send him to school. Notwithstanding this, right from the start of the story of his life, Antony is said to have shunned schooling: 'He did not want to learn letters' (γράμματα μὲν μαθεῖν οὐκ ἠνέσχετο);[28] 'he had not learned letters' (γράμματα μὴ μαθών;[29] ὅτι μὴ μεμάθηκε γράμματα[30]); he was seen as a simple man without culture (ἰδιώτης)[31] who found letters completely useless and superfluous (οὐκ ἀναγκαῖα τὰ γράμματα).[32] He himself proudly admits that he had never learned letters (ἡμεῖς μὴ μαθόντες γράμματα).[33]

But, we may ask, what is the exact meaning of the crucial term γράμματα (in Latin *litterae*) in a narration continually referring to Antony's lack of schooling? Did Athanasius perhaps mean that Antony had not studied the letters of the alphabet, that is, the rudiments of writing, and that he was thus not able to read and write? In this case we would have to admit that Antony was illiterate, and that he therefore shared a condition which many sources say was quite widespread in the monastic environments.[34] However, other passages of the *Life of Antony* clearly lead us to understand that Antony was quite able to read the Bible[35] and to write[36].

It would be incorrect to solve this contradiction simply claiming that Athanasius' words concerning Antony's illiteracy cannot be understood literally.[37] It is possible that the biographer alludes to *John* 7:15 in order to describe Antony as the true disciple and imitator of Jesus who 'knew letters not having

[28] *VA* 1.2.
[29] *VA* 72.1.
[30] *VA* 73.1.
[31] *VA* 73.3 and 85.5.
[32] *VA* 73.3.
[33] *VA* 78.1.
[34] See for example *Hist. monach.* 2.5; Palladius, *Hist. Laus.* 47; Socrates, *Hist. eccl.* IV 7 and 23.
[35] *VA* 1.3; 3.7; 4.1-2; 25.2; 44.2; 46.6.
[36] *VA* 55.9-12; 81; 86. Philip Rousseau, Antony as Teacher in the Greek 'Life', in: Tomas Hägg and Philip Rousseau (eds.), *Greek Biography and Panegyric in Late Antiquity*, The transformation of the classical heritage 31 (Berkeley, Los Angeles and London, 2001), 89-109, 91f., admits that Antony seems to have written, and must therefore have been able to read, but concludes that uncertainty remains.
[37] *Pace* Gérard Garitte, À propos des lettres de S. Antoine l'ermite: *Le Muséon* 52 (1939) 11-31, and S. Rubenson, *Letters* (1995), 40, n. 1. This interpretation has been welcomed, among others, by Ewa Wipszycka, *Études sur le Christianisme dans l'Égypte de l'Antiquité Tardive*, Studia Ephemeridis Augustinianum 52 (Rome, 1996), 132.

Digitized by Google

been discipled' (Πῶς οὗτος γράμματα οἶδεν μὴ μεμαθηκώς;),[38] but to my mind the picture becomes coherent and historically reliable only if we are willing to admit that Antony belonged to the vast category of the so-called ἀγράμματοι. This technical term does not appear in the *Life of Antony*, it is true, but the notion is clearly there. The ἀγράμματοι were those Egyptian people who read and wrote Coptic, but had not studied, and therefore did not know the letters of the Greek alphabet (γράμματα μὴ εἰδότες). Consequently, they were not in a condition to hold a conversation in Greek or to read and sign documents written in that language. For this they needed the help of 'subscribers' who knew Greek letters and were able to read and write Greek.[39] So Antony's illiteracy is simply ignorance of Greek.[40] This explains why, in the story told by Athanasius, Antony addresses the monks in Coptic,[41] whereas he is forced to resort regularly to an interpreter to debate with the Greek philosophers.[42] That this piece of information is reliable is demonstrated by other sources which reveal the names of at least two of the interpreters that Antony used on account of his ignorance of Greek, the monks Isaac[43] and Cronius[44]. On the other hand, this interpretation of Antony's illiteracy is also fully confirmed by Jerome, according to whom Antony composed seven letters in Coptic, which were then translated into Greek.[45]

5. Antony, Greek philosophy and the Liberal Disciplines

This conclusion is not contradicted by the fact that the letters which have come down to us in Antony's name clearly show a considerable acquaintance of their

[38] See Adalbert De Vogüé, *Histoire littéraire du mouvement monastique dans l'antiquité*, Ière partie: *Le monachisme latin de la mort d'Antoine à la fin du séjour de Jérôme à Rome (356-385)* (Paris, 1991), 39-40, and Ugo Zanetti, Antoine n'avait pas appris les lettres...: Une allusion biblique (Jn 7,15)?: *Irénikon* 77 (2004) 537-47.

[39] See the rich papyrological documentation gathered and discussed by Rita Calderini, Gli ἀγράμματοι nell' Egitto greco-romano: *Aegyptus* 30 (1950) 14-41; Herbert C. Youtie, ΑΓΡΑΜΜΑΤΟΣ: an Aspect of Greek Society in Egypt: *HSCP* 75 (1971) 161-76, repr. in *id.*, *Scriptiunculae* II (Amsterdam, 1973), 611-27; *id.*, ΥΠΟΓΡΑΦΕΥΣ: the Social Impact of Illiteracy in Graeco-Roman Egypt: *ZPE* 17 (1975) 201-21, repr. in *id.*, *Scriptiunculae Posteriores* I (Bonn, 1981), 179-99; *id.*, Because They do not Know Letters: *ZPE* 19 (1975) 101-8, repr. in *ibid.* 255-62.

[40] So, rightly, also Fritz Graf, Saint Antony: Deconstructing a Visionary, in: Thomas K. Kuhn and Ekkehard W. Stegemann (eds.), *'Was von Anfang an war'. Neutestamentliche und kirchengeschichtliche Aufsätze Rudolf Brändle gewidmet anlässlich seiner Emeritierung am 30. September 2006*, TZ 62 (Basel, 2006), 293-300, 295.

[41] *VA* 16.1.

[42] *VA* 72.3; 74.2; 77.1.

[43] Jerome, *Vita Hilarionis* 20.13. It is worth remembering that Isaac is also the name of a monk living, like Antony, in the Arsinoite *nome*, mentioned in a papyrus of the year 324 C.E.: see Edwin A. Judge, The Earliest Use of Monachos for 'Monk' (P. Coll. Youtie 77) and the Origins of Monasticism: *JAC* 20 (1977) 72-89. Could they be one and the same person?

[44] Palladius, *Hist. Laus.* 21.15. See also *Hist. monach.* 20.13.

[45] Jerome, *De vir. ill.* 88.

Digitized by Google

author with the Greek philosophical language and with Origen's thought. Actually, nothing compels us to believe that he had direct access to the original Greek texts of the pagan philosophers and of Origen.[46] This intellectual attitude could instead be more easily explained as the result of his relations with the bishop Athanasius and the ecclesiastical school of Alexandria in the last two decades of his long life. From this point of view, the influence exerted on Antony by his friend and admirer Didymus the Blind should be considered extremely significant. Unlike the other monks, who according to Sozomenos were not interested in the liberal disciplines and dialectics,[47] Didymus possessed an extraordinary knowledge, of course entirely of a mnemonic nature, not only of the Scriptures, but also of the works of Origen and of profane culture, that is, of the liberal disciplines such as dialectics, geometry, astronomy and arithmetic.[48]

Antony's ignorance of the Greek alphabet, which prevented him from reading the works written in that language, had the unavoidable consequence that he had no direct access to the great literary and philosophical tradition that they conveyed. He does not regret this as a particularly painful loss: quite the opposite, he even seems to be happy of his lack of culture when, challenging the foolish pride of the pagan philosophers who had come to mock and provoke him for his ignorance, he claims that, as the mind comes before letters, to him whose healthy mind is assured, letters are unnecessary.[49] The letters that Antony refused to learn are certainly to be interpreted as the Greek alphabet and the discipline of grammar, which were the indispensable requirement for the acquisition of that profane culture which the pagans made every effort to learn, even at the cost of leaving their own land and crossing the sea (Ἕλληνες μὲν οὖν ἀποδημοῦσι καὶ θάλασσαν περῶσιν, ἵνα γράμματα μάθωσιν).[50] Nevertheless, thanks to his connections with the Alexandrian milieu, Antony had some knowledge of the Greek παιδεία of his time. This is confirmed in the passage in which he asks the pagan philosophers what comes first and which is the cause (αἴτιον) of the other, the mind of letters or letters of the

[46] *Pace* S. Rubenson, *Letters* (1995), 41 and 141-4. For further criticism see especially Graham Gould, Recent Work on Monastic Origins: a Consideration of the Questions Raised by Samuel Rubenson's 'The Letters of St. Antony': *SP* 25 (1993) 405-16, and *id.*, The Influence of Origen on Fourth-Century Monasticism: Some Further Remarks, in: Gilles Dorival and Alain Le Boulluec (eds.), *Origeniana Sexta: Origène et la Bible/Origen and the Bible*, BETL 118 (Leuven, 1995), 591-8.

[47] See Sozomenos, *Hist. eccl.* I 12.

[48] On the relations between Antony and Didymus see Jerome, *Epist.* 68.2 *ad Castrutium* (of the year 397 C.E.); Rufinus, *Hist. eccl.* II 7; Socrates, *Hist. eccl.* IV 25; Sozomenos, *Hist. eccl.* III 15; Palladius, *Hist. Laus.* 4.3, and Richard A. Layton, *Didymus the Blind and His Circle in Late-Antique Alexandria* (Urbana and Chicago, 2004), 19-26.

[49] *VA* 73.3 (above n. 32).

[50] *VA* 20.4.

Digitized by Google

mind, and they answer that the mind comes first and is the inventor of letters (πρῶτον εἶναι τὸν νοῦν καὶ τῶν γραμμάτων εὑρετήν).[51]

No one seems yet to have remarked that this statement implies the complex theory according to which the mind generated, or invented, not only grammar, but also all the other disciplines such as dialectics, rhetoric, music, arithmetic, geometry, and astronomy. This theory is found fully explained for the first time in the second book of Augustine's dialogue *ord.* Here we find the exact same expression used by the philosophers in the *Life of Antony*, that is, that 'reason generated letters' (*illa ratio peperit litteras*), and also 'invented' letters and numbers (*quibus duobus repertis*) to construct and organise the art of grammar, but then continued its work by developing the whole system of the liberal disciplines.[52] In the light of this striking coincidence, it is hard to deny that the philosophers' statement in the *Life of Antony* involves a general conception of the liberal disciplines, which is identical to the one expounded in Augustine's early dialogue.[53] So it seems anything but whimsical to think of a common source from which both the pagan philosophers of the *Life of Antony* and the young Augustine might have drawn inspiration, of course independently of one another. At this point it should be emphasised that any attempt at identifying this source has to reckon with the Neoplatonist Porphyry, whose work *On the Lives of the Philosophers* (or *The History of Philosophy*) dealt systematically with the liberal disciplines.[54]

6. The image of Antony in Augustine's writings

However, for the following generations Antony became essentially the prototype of the charismatic exegete of the Scriptures, the uneducated man who nevertheless is able to learn and understand the true spiritual meaning of obscure passages

[51] *VA* 73.2-3.

[52] Augustine, *ord.* II 12.35-15.43. According to Cassiodorus, *Inst.* II, *praef.* 4 (ed. R.A.B. Mynors [1937], 91), the art of grammar is *origo et fundamentum liberalium litterarum.*

[53] This passage of Athanasius' *Life of Antony* should therefore be added to the large documentation gathered by Ilsetraut Hadot, *Arts libéraux et philosophie dans la pensée antique* (Paris, ²2005).

[54] See Tzetzes, *Chil.* XI 520-33, rec. Petrus Aloisius M. Leone, *Ioannis Tzetzae Historiae* (Naples, 1968), 448f. This confirms that Athanasius, and indirectly, at least to some extent, also Antony, knew Porphyry's work, as I have already remarked in 'La Croix et les idoles dans l'apologie d'Athanase "Contre les païens"', in: Antonino González Blanco and José M.ª Blázquez Martínez (eds.), *Cristianismo y aculturación en tiempos del Imperio romano*, Antigüedad y Cristianismo 7 (Murcia, 1990), 159-77. On the other hand, Augustine may have known this work only in a Latin translation. Hence the question: what's the relationship between Porphyry's *History of Philosophy* and the *libri platonicorum* mentioned in *conf.* VII 9 and VIII 2, that I have elsewhere identified as the anti-Christian treatise entitled *The Philosophy according to the Oracles*? Could the *History of Philosophy* be considered as a long section in four books of the encyclopedic *Philosophy according to the Oracles*?

Digitized by Google

of Scripture through prayer and the revelation of God alone: in this sense he needs no human teachers and scientific knowledge, since he is, as one initiated into sacred mysteries, possessed by God (θεοφορούμενος),[55] directly taught by God (θεοδίδακτος),[56] and full of Spirit (πνευματοφόρος).[57] In the prologue to *doctr. chr.* Augustine refers in particular to the *Life of Antony* 3.7. He was certainly impressed by the description of the formidable memory which allowed the hermit to remember the Scriptures even though he had no knowledge of the letters of the alphabet. There is however one fairly big problem.

Augustine states that Antony is reported to have memorized the divine Scriptures, as might be expected of an illiterate man, by 'listening' to them being read, obviously by others, and to have understood them through thoughtful meditation (*qui sine ulla scientia litterarum scripturas divinas et memoriter audiendo tenuisse et prudenter cogitando intellexisse praedicatur).* On the contrary, Athanasius says that the hermit Antony applied himself to 'reading' the Scriptures, so that he let nothing of the things written fall to the ground, he took fast hold of all of them, and memory took for him the place of books (καὶ γὰρ προσεῖχεν οὕτω τῇ ἀναγνώσει, ὡς μηδὲν τῶν γεγραμμένων ἀπ' αὐτοῦ πίπτειν χαμαί, πάντα δὲ κατέχειν καὶ λοιπὸν αὐτῷ τὴν μνήμην ἀντὶ βιβλίων γίνεσθαι). This means that Antony was able to read the Coptic translation of the Bible current in his monastic milieu.[58] The Greek *Life* is confirmed by the anonymous Latin translation: *Etenim sic adtendebat lectioni, ut nihil de his quae scripta sunt caderet ab ipso in terra, omnia autem teneret, ita ut de cetero memoriam pro codicibus habebat.*[59]

Clearly, these are two very different interpretations which have led to a certain bewilderment among the commentators of *doctr. chr.* Green, for example, surprisingly states: 'The *Life of Anthony*, by Athanasius, emphasizes Anthony's lifelong lack of letters (1.72-3), but has nothing to say about his learning of the scriptures'; [60] the French edition of the *Bibliothèque Augustinienne* refers only to the *Life of Antony*, chapter 1, completely ignoring the evident allusion to chapter 3.7;[61] according to Karla Pollmann, in Athanasius' *Life of Antony* there is no trace at all of the story told by Augustine.[62] This enigma can most likely be explained considering that Augustine was simply repeating – and it would

[55] *VA* 14.2.

[56] *VA* 66.1-2; see *Apophth. Alphab.* 26 (PG 65, 84C).

[57] *Apophth. Alphab.* 30 (PG 65, 85B).

[58] See *VA* 4.1 and *VA* 44.2. In both places the verb φιλολογεῖν means 'to read the Bible': see Klaus Girardet, ΦΙΛΟΛΟΓΟΣ und ΦΙΛΟΛΟΓΕΙΝ: *Kleronomia* 2 (1970) 323-33.

[59] See Henricus Hoppenbrouwers, *La plus ancienne version latine de la vie de S. Antoine par S. Athanase. Étude de critique textuelle* (Utrecht and Nijmegen, 1960), 76.

[60] R.P.H. Green, *Augustine* (1995), 4, n. 3.

[61] See Madeleine Moreau, Isabelle Bochet, and Goulven Madec, *La doctrine chrétienne*, BA 11/2 (Paris, 1997), 68, n. 6.

[62] Karla Pollmann, *Aurelius Augustinus. Die christliche Bildung (De doctrina Christiana)* (Stuttgart, 2002), 214, n. 7.

Digitized by Google

have been difficult for him to do otherwise, as he had no direct access to the original Greek text – the report found in the Latin translation by Evagrius, who had interpreted chapter 3.7 in the sense that the illiterate Antony applied himself intensely to listening to the Scriptures being read by others: *Auditioni etiam Scripturarum ita studium commodabat, ut nihil ex eius animo laberetur, sed universa Domini praecepta custodiens, memoriam pro libris haberet.* [63]

It is in this form that Augustine came to know Athanasius' *Life of Antony.* Anyone who has the slightest familiarity with the *conf.* knows how much Augustine was indebted to the *Life of Antony*, and what a decisive influence this hagiographic text exerted on his final choice of the monastic life. It was in Milan, in the hot summer of 386, on the eve of his conversion, that Augustine first learned from Ponticianus of the existence of monks in Trier who had a manuscript of the *Life of Antony* (*codicem in quo scripta erat vita Antonii*).[64] After the departure of Ponticianus, Augustine, who was tormented by interior conflict, turned on Alypius crying out: 'What is wrong with us? What is this that you have heard? Untaught people are rising up (*surgunt indocti*) and capturing heaven (*et caelum rapiunt, Matth.* 11:12), and we with our disciplines (*cum doctrinis nostris)* without any heart, see where we roll in the mud of flesh and blood'.[65] Augustine had heard that Antony was an uneducated man[66] whose monastic calling had been triggered by the chance hearing of the gospel's pericope in which Jesus invites the rich young man with the following words: 'Go, sell what you possess, and give to the poor, and you will have treasure in heaven; and come, follow me' (*Matth.* 19:21).[67] Remembering this very episode, Augustine decided to imitate Antony, opening at random the book of Paul's epistles, and his eyes fell on the passage: 'Not in riots and drunken parties, not in eroticism and indecencies, nor in strife and rivalry, but put on the Lord Jesus Christ and do not make plans to satisfy your fleshly desires' (*Rom.* 13:13-4).[68]

7. In praise of holy ignorance

The conflict between the 'holy ignorance' of the monk Antony, which led him and his followers to celestial life, and the *doctrinae*, that is, the liberal disciplines,

[63] See PG 26, 845-6 (Montfaucon) and PL 73, 128C (Rosweyde).

[64] *conf.* VIII 6.15: most probably Evagrius' Latin translation.

[65] *conf.* VIII 8.19.

[66] James J. O'Donnell, *Augustine. Confessions*, vol. 3 (Oxford, 1992), 47, thinks that *surgunt indocti* is probably an allusion to the Trier converts of *conf.* VIII 6.15. Of these people, in reality, Augustine says that they were *spiritu pauperes*. The text seems to refer first and foremost to Antony. The citation of *Matth.* 11:12 ('the violent take the kingdom of God by force') is found not by chance in Antony, *Letter* 3.19 (Engl. transl. by S. Rubenson, *Letters* [1995], 207).

[67] *VA* 2.3-4.

[68] *conf.* VIII 12.29.

Digitized by Google

which are constitutive of Greco-roman culture and leave Augustine a prisoner of his sinful life, could not be formulated more clearly. The anxious question that Augustine asks Alypius in the central scene of his conversion is echoed in those same years, in almost identical terms, on the lips of an old learned monk, probably to be identified as Evagrius of Pontus, who asks the great Arsenius the following question: 'How is it that we, with all our erudition and our wisdom (ἀπὸ τῆς τοσαύτης παιδεύσεως καὶ σοφίας) get nothing, whereas these Egyptian peasants acquire such virtues?'[69] Before devoting himself to the ascetic life, Arsenius had in fact been the tutor to the children of the emperor Theodosius I, but despite his profound knoweldge of Greek and Latin culture (τοσαύτην παίδευσιν ῥωμαϊκὴν καὶ ἑλληνικὴν ἐπιστάμενος), he felt the need to ask an old Egyptian peasant about his own thoughts (*logismoi*) in order to learn the peasant's alphabet.[70]

But, we may ask, how is it possible that ignorance of the profane disciplines produces salvation? It would be misleading to think that for Augustine holiness is the natural, even in some way automatic, result of a lack of culture. Augustine certainly does not want to encourage people to neglect their intellectual training in the name of a misunderstood sense of Christian holiness. In order to better understand the exact meaning of the only two texts in which Augustine mentions the monk Antony, that is, the prologue to *doctr. chr.* (396-97) and book 8 of the *conf.* (400-02), we ought to consider another, slightly earlier text, that is, book 6 of the dialogue *mus.*

The prologue to this book is particularly relevant to the present investigation because it was written with all probability after the completion of the work, in those very years in which Augustine was taking his distance from his youthful enthusiasm for the liberal disciplines to adhere with increasing conviction to the biblical idea of Christian holiness (about 391-4).[71] It is therefore a later addition containing a revision or correction (*emendatio*) of the views expressed in the original text begun in Milan in 387 and composed in Africa between 388 and 390.[72] In the new prologue Augustine states that he has written this work for those 'weaker' persons (*inbecillioribus*), who are devoted to secular learning and entangled in great errors (*his enim haec scripta sunt, qui litteris saecularibus dediti magnis inplicantur erroribus*), and has preferred to walk with

[69] *Apophth. System.* 10.7 (SC 474, 18).

[70] *Apophth. System.* 15.7 (SC 474, 286).

[71] On the meaning of this evolution see Pier Franco Beatrice, Doctrina sana id est Christiana. Augustine from the Liberal Arts to the Science of the Scriptures, in: Th.K. Kuhn and E.W. Stegemann (eds.), *'Was von Anfang an war'* (2006), 269-82.

[72] It is to this *emendatio* that Augustine seems to allude in his *ep.* 101.4 to Memorius, of the year 408-9 C.E.: *Sextum sane librum quem emendatum reperi, ubi est omnis fructus ceterorum.* A good discussion of these problems in Martin Jacobsson, *Aurelius Augustinus. De musica liber VI. A Critical Edition with a Translation and an Introduction*, Acta Universitatis Stockholmiensis. Studia Latina Stockholmiensia 47 (Stockholm, 2002), esp. x-xxviii.

Digitized by Google

them on a worthless way, rather than to precipitate those lacking wings (*minus pennatos*) into the open air. That is why Augustine admonishes those brothers who have not been taught to understand these things, but are imbued with the mysteries of Christian purity, and fly with the highest love towards the one and true God, if they have flown past everything childish (*si sacramentis christianae puritatis inbuti, in unum et verum Deum summa caritate nitentes, cuncta puerilia transvolaverunt*), to escape the labour and dust of these roads that are so difficult and hard for their feet: they are already able to fly above these roads with the wings of piety, with which they can fly past these things without paying attention to them (*pietatis alas ... quibus ista neglecta praetervolent*).[73]

Unfortunately, Augustine does not reveal here who these people are who can fly with the wings of love and piety. Some enlightening details may however be found in the last chapter, the epilogue of the same book,[74] where Augustine, resuming the subject of the prologue and bringing it to its natural conclusion, says that he has written these things 'for much weaker persons' (*multo infirmioribus haec esse scripta*)[75] than those who venerate the Trinity, following the authority of the two testaments, that is, the Bible, and worship the Trinity by believing, hoping and loving (*et colunt eam credendo, sperando, diligendo*).[76] In fact these 'holy men' are purified not by the brilliance of human reasoning, that is, by philosophy and the disciplines, but by the most powerful and burning fire of love (*hi enim non scintillantibus humanis ratiocinationibus sed validissimo et flagrantissimo caritatis igne purgantur*); for this reason, since they fly over the roads of secular erudition with the wings of love and piety, they do not deign to pay attention to them (*sancti viri qui eas* [*vias*] *volando non dignantur adtendere*). Augustine has made the decision not to neglect those weaker persons whom the heretics, as he well knew from his personal experience with the Manichees, deceive with false promises of reason and science.

It is hard to deny that these holy men, who simply disdain and ignore the secular erudition, are first and foremost monks of the desert, anchorites such

[73] *mus.* VI 1.1. It may be interesting to note that already Seneca, *Epist. ad Lucilium* 88.2, had called the liberal studies 'puny and childish' (*pusilla et puerilia*), since for him there is only one really liberal study, that which gives a man his liberty, the lofty, brave and great-souled study of wisdom. See also *Epist.* 88.21 and 23, where the *artes liberales*, which the Greeks call the 'cycle of studies' (ἐγκυκλίους), are labelled as *artes pueriles*, and *Epist.* 88.32, where Seneca conclusively states that it is possible to attain wisdom without the liberal studies, for although virtue is a thing that must be learned, yet it is not learned by means of these studies.

[74] *mus.* VI 17.59.

[75] Sometimes the dative *infirmioribus* is wrongly taken with the ablative 'by': see David C. Alexander, The Biographical Significance of Augustine's 'De musica': *SP* 33 (1997) 3-10, 8f. The dative 'for' is unambiguously supported by the comparison with the *inbecillioribus* of the prologue.

[76] M. Jacobsson, *Aurelius Augustinus. De musica liber VI* (2002), 117, translates: 'those who venerate and worship the ... Trinity, by believing, hoping and loving it', and D.C. Alexander, The Biographical Significance (1997), 8: 'those who ... venerate the ... Trinity ... *i.e.* those who adore and worship (the Trinity) by believing, hoping, and loving'.

Digitized by Google

as Antony. These are the numerous people who, strengthened by faith, hope and love (*fide et spe et caritate*), live in solitude, relying on these three things, without any manuscripts (*multi per haec tria etiam in solitudine sine codicibus vivunt*), and hold spiritual perfection, at least insofar as it can be achieved in this world, thanks to the teachings of the Bible.[77] Concerning his early Cassiciacum dialogue *ord.*, Augustine declares in the *retr.* that he regrets having given too much importance to the liberal disciplines, but now, close to the end of his earthly life, he knows well that many 'saints' ignore them completely, whereas others who know them are certainly not saints (*multum tribui liberalibus disciplinis quas multi sancti multum nesciunt, quidam etiam qui sciunt eas sancti non sunt*).[78] With different words, but in the same spirit, reconsidering book 6 of *mus.*, he repeats that those whose intelligence is unable to see through the creatures the invisible perfections of God, yet who live by the faith of Christ, after this life will see those good things in a surer and happier way, whereas those who are able to see them, but lack the faith of Christ who is the only mediator between God and men, will perish with all their useless wisdom.[79]

8. Conclusion

We have, in conclusion, at least four texts in which Augustine praises the spiritual and theological value of the 'monastic' lack of secular learning. In chronological order they are the prologue (with the epilogue) of book 6 of *mus.* (*ca.* 391-4), in which Augustine clearly contrasts the weak, who waste their time in the childish study of secular erudition, with the saints who are able to fly with the wings of love towards the fatherland; the prologue to *doctr. chr.*, par. 8, where for the first time Antony appears as a particularly impressive example of holy illiteracy (*ca.* 396-7); the allusion to the saints living in solitude without manuscripts in *doctr. chr.* I 93-94 (same year); finally, book 8 of the *conf.* (*ca.* 400-2), where Augustine's interior conflict between the liberal disciplines and the holy illiteracy of the monks finds a most attractive and moving description. All these texts only repeat the same theme, which was clearly central to Augustine's thought in the years between 390 and 402: the liberal arts lead to pride, since profane culture has no importance in the quest for holiness, whilst only the Bible contains the double commandment of love for God and one's neighbour for those who long for holiness. Antony and the monks who have no need of manuscripts, are an exception, the exception that proves the rule that men need instruction and human teachers, at least in order to know and use the alphabet and languages, and thus to avoid the risk of falling prey to the arrogant

[77] *doctr. chr.* I 93-4.
[78] *retr.* I 3.2.
[79] *retr.* I 11.1.

Digitized by Google

and dangerous temptation of trying to overcome the limits which are intrinsic to the present human condition.[80] Learning from other human beings is also, and above all, the way for love, which ties people together in the bonds of unity, to make souls overflow and as it were intermingle with each other.[81]

Now, if Augustine's opponents adopted Antony as a model, an example to be followed, because of their contempt of profane culture, this cannot but confirm that they had some connections with the monks attracted by the same ideal of 'holy ignorance' that was so vigorously practised by the patriarch of the Egyptian hermits. At the same time one cannot completely exclude that Augustine himself, in his untiring search for a balanced relationship between profane education and holiness, may in a certain sense have wanted to take his distance in this text from Antony's example, which had played such an important role in his 'monastic' conversion ten years earlier. However, the real issue lies elsewhere. What most matters is that those Christians whom Augustine is trying to convince, should realise that human mediation is necessary, whether it is to learn languages[82] or for religious instruction in general, as is demonstrated by the four examples, which are all the more authoritative because recorded in the Bible, of Paul, Cornelius the centurion, the Ethiopian eunuch and Moses.[83] The Christians with whom Augustine debated this problem may have been supporters of a form of anti-paideia,[84] pneumatics of every kind who have never been lacking in the church of Africa.[85] Yet these definitions are still too general, and therefore inadequate. We might wonder whether, besides anonymous charismatic monks, there are any other identifiable references in Augustine's polemics. Especially the final paragraphs of the prologue (16-18: *postremo*, finally) seem to give some supplementary elements of evaluation which prompt us to explore this text in greater depth, in search of further details.

[80] *doctr. chr.*, Prol. 12.

[81] Prol. 13.

[82] Prol. 9-11.

[83] Prol. 12-15.

[84] Eugene Kevane, Paideia and Anti-Paideia: the Prooemium of St. Augustine's 'De Doctrina Christiana': *AugSt* 1 (1970) 153-80.

[85] As rightly observed by Cornelius Mayer, Res per signa: Der Grundgedanke des Prologs in Augustins Schrift 'De doctrina christiana' und das Problem seiner Datierung: *REAug* 20 (1974) 100-12, 108.

Digitized by Google

Frozen Time: The Problem of Perseverance

M. Burcht PRANGER, Amsterdam

In this paper, rather than discussing perseverance proper, I want to examine its temporal preconditions. For that reason I turn to book XI of the *Confessions* and will try to weigh the implications of Augustine's concept of temporality: is it possible – a question of some urgency both before and after the conversion – to hold on to the moment? In proceeding in this way I leave aside the question whether Augustine has changed his concept of time, in particular in *De civitate dei*. Maybe, maybe not. I do not think it is of much relevance to my argument.

I start out with the question whether it is possible to distil from Augustine's text a neat distinction between time and eternity based on an equally neat definition of the one and the other. Here I side squarely with those scholars such as Gerard O'Daly and others who refuse to take Augustine's musings about time in book XI of the *Confessions* for a philosophical reply to his self-imposed question: 'what is time?' 'Augustine suggests', in the words of O'Daly, 'at the beginning of his discussion that he is inquiring into the nature of time itself, but he does not give an answer to this question, or a *definition* of time, in the course of his investigations.'[1] Conversely, there is reason to disagree with those who cannot live with this particular irresolution and uphold the view that Augustine does indeed provide us with a definition of time '*simpliciter*'. Kurt Flasch and Roland Teske can be counted among the staunchest defenders of this view. Teske, for one, puts it as follows: 'My point is that Augustine's contrasting the non-distendedness of God's being, knowing, and activity with the distendedness of creature's being, knowing, and activity presupposes that he is contrasting eternity with time, not eternity with a kind of time',[2] while Flasch even more emphatically appreciates Augustine's activities in book XI as raising the question as to the essence of time.[3] Were these things so clear, or, for that matter, so *simpliciter* muddled one could not hold the view as I do that

[1] Gerard J.P. O'Daly, Augustine and the Measurement of Time: Some Comparisons with Aristotelian and Stoic Texts, in: H.J. Blumenthal and R.A. Markus (eds.), *Neoplatonism and Early Christian Texts* (London, 1981), 171-80, 171.

[2] Roland J. Teske, *Paradoxes of Time in Saint Augustine* (Milwaukee, 1996), 45.

[3] Kurt Flasch, *Was ist Zeit?Augustinus von Hippo. Das XI Buch der Confessiones* (Frankfurt am Main, 1993), 339: 'Er stellt die *Was*-Frage in der Art der philosophischen Tradition seit Sokrates.'

Studia Patristica XLIX, 135-145.
© Peeters Publishers, 2010.

Digitized by Google

Augustinian time and eternity are both too different and share too much to qualify for a clear-cut confrontation of one with the other. Evidently, both Flasch and Teske have a stake in the separateness of time and eternity, wanting to do justice to the extensive nature of temporality while granting eternity its unique non-distendedness. Only with this framework being in place can Flasch and Teske make sense of the 'definition' of time as *distentio animi*, the spreading out of the soul, and assign it its proper role as representing the human soul on its way to the oneness of the heavenly fatherland. Teske, following Flasch, further reinforces his argument by extending the *distentio animi* to the – Plotinian – world-soul supposedly rescuing Augustine's concept of time from individual subjectivity. It is this Plotinian form of extension (the *diastasis zôês*) baptised into the Christian connotation of sin that offers a comprehensive picture of the human condition as muddled because of sin while at the same time being the expression of, and guaranteeing, the return home without that selfsame human existence running the risk of either breaking down altogether, any moment and anywhere, into the unfathomable depths of non-extendedness or prematurely being lifted up into a state of a-temporal, eternal bliss.

Now in my view to disagree with Flasch and Teske should not imply that the refusal to see *distentio animi* as a definition of time necessarily produces a less accurate interpretation of Augustinian temporality as if we were moving in the realm of loose and metaphorical language.[4] 'Who can lay hold on the heart and give it fixity, so that for some little moment it may be stable, and for a fraction of time may grasp this splendour of a constant eternity?'[5] Of course, there is no reason whatsoever to take this exclamation to be philosophical discourse pure and simple. There is even much less reason, however, to banish the all pervading power of this desire from language that has a 'definitional' ring to it. To do justice to the discourse in its entirety is a matter of precision, no more no less. If, then, Augustine, in the middle of his aporias about the measurement of time, hints at having found a preliminary, workable description by exclaiming: 'That is why I have come to think that time is simply a distension',[6] what exactly does he mean by that from the perspective of his entire meditation on time in book XI or, indeed his entire meditation in the *Confessions* about God, himself and creation converging in the desire 'to lay hold on the heart and give it fixity'?

[4] G.J.P. O'Daly, Augustine and the Measurement of Time (1981), 151: 'His famous description of time as a *distentio animi* cannot be a definition, but is, rather, a metaphor that evokes whatever accompanies or follows upon the cognitive act of measuring time. It is a colourful and highly novel metaphor, to be translated not so much by the term "extension" as by "tension" or "distraction causing anxiety".'

[5] *conf.* XI 11: *Quis tenebit illud et figet illud, ut paululum stet et paululum rapiat splendorem semper stantis aeternitatis ...*, P. Knoll (ed.), *Sancti Aurelii Augustini Confessionum Libri Tredecim* (CSEL 23); English translation: Henry Chadwick, *Saint Augustine, Confessions* (Oxford, 1991), 228.

[6] *inde mihi visum est nihil esse aliud tempus quam distentionem, conf.* XI 26; Chadwick, 240.

Digitized by Google

So much is clear that throughout Augustine's quest for insight the issue of fixity is paramount, not only as the supra-temporal goal of the human pilgrimage but, rather, as that which, in guise of the simultaneous appearance of eternity and time, is always present and absent. That is why it appears beside the point to protect, Teske-wise, the purity of eternity from the vicissitudes of time since, if somehow inside time no inkling of that fixity can be felt, *distentio* does not make sense and Augustine would appear to send up his prayers for insight in vain. It is a matter of some urgency, then, to trace that subtle intertwinement between fixity and scattered-ness, movement and rest, time and eternity so as, ultimately, to feel the full power of *quod fixum manet*[7] while living within the constraints of the *distentio animi*. No doubt proceeding this way we will come across what looks like a number of paradoxes, to begin with the 'constraints' of the *distentio animi*: a contradiction in terms since it would seem hard to square *distentio* (being about extension) with constraints. At the same time there is reason to be a bit cautious with the use of paradoxes. In his *Paradoxes of Time in Saint Augustine*, it is Teske's stated ambition not only to reveal the existence of three major paradoxes in Augustine's concept of time but also to solve them. Without denying the possible occurrence of such paradoxes which, if they *do* exist, are not by *definition* in need of being solved, I would rather characterize Augustine's procedure as establishing different points of view which find their unity, not so much along the lines of linear argumentation as, rather, within the performative process of the confessional prayer itself. Thus, as we shall see, semantically speaking, *distentio animi*, means different things within the one and the same sequence of reflections on time (which could provisionally and inaccurately be characterized, in terms of Teske/Flasch, as Plotininan-philosophical on the one hand and biblical on the other). Yet, rather than producing a diffuse picture of temporality, this variety of meanings will prove to be governed by sheer simplicity, the undivided present of the mind in its *attentio* rooted in the *id ipsum* residing beyond yet not outside the restlessness of search and prayer itself.

With this caveat against prematurely disentangling different points of view in mind, we can now turn to the question what Augustine means with his description of time as being 'simply a distension'. 'But of what is it a distension?' Having gone through the analysis of the length of syllables as in Ambrose's *Deus creator omnium* just to see them flow away into thin air, his last resort for finding a measure rod at all is the human mind itself in the shape of the lasting impression 'passing events' make on the 'present consciousness':

'But when one syllable sounds after another, the short first, the long after it, how shall I keep my hold on the short ... the long does not begin to sound unless the short has ceased to sound. But how to grasp sound? Having sounded the syllables "have flown

[7] *conf.* XI 27.

Digitized by Google

away; they belong to the past? They do not now exist". I can do this [measuring] only because they are past and gone. Therefore it is not the syllables which I am measuring, but something in my memory which stays fixed there (*quod infixum manet*). So it is in you, my mind, that I measure periods of time (*tempora*). Do not distract me; that is, do not allow yourself to be distracted by the hubbub of impressions being made upon you. In you, I affirm, I measure periods of time. The impressions (*affectiones*) which passing events make abides when they are gone. That present consciousness (*affectio*) is what I am measuring, not the stream of past events which have caused it. When I measure periods of time, that is what I am actually measuring. Therefore, either this is what time is, or time is not what I am measuring.'[8]

It goes without saying that the grounding of time in the human mind which in its turn is the agent that measures the impressions entering it from the outside, is only part of the story. The next question inevitably presents itself as a shift of perspective: what does the human mind itself make of all this? How does *quod infixum manet* affect it, or, to put it in more activist terms, how does the mind handle a fixity that originates in the 'hubbub of impressions (*turbis affectionum*)'? How stable is the mind itself? Can it do the job of containing 'present consciousness' produced by distension without dis- and extending itself? Upon having been invaded by the hubbub of impressions, it has in one way or another become their owner. 'Do not distract me ...' Can that prayer, for once directed to the mind instead of God, be answered?[9]

[8] *Sed cum altera post alteram sonat, si prior brevis, longa posterior, quomodo tenebo brevem et quomodo eam longae metiens applicabo, ut inveniam, quod bis tantum habeat, quandoquidem longa sonare non incipit, nisi brevis sonare destiterit? Ipsamque longam num praesentem metior, quando nisi finitam non metior? Eius enim finito praeteritio est. Quid ergo est, quod metior? Ubi est qua metior brevis? Ubi est longa quam metior? Ambae sonuerunt, avolaverunt, praeterierunt, iam non sunt: et ego metior fidenterque respondeo, quantum exercitato sensu fiditur, illam simplam esse, illam duplam, in spatio scilicet temporis. Neque hoc possum, nisi quia praeterierunt et finitae sunt. Non ergo ipsas, quae iam non sunt, sed aliquid in memoria mea metior, quod infixum manet. In te, anime meus, tempora metior. Noli mihi obstrepere, quod est: noli tibi obstrepere turbis affectionum tuarum. In te, inquam, tempora metior. Affectionem, quam res praetereuntes in te faciunt et, cum illae praeterierint, manet, ipsam metior praesentem, non ea quae praeterierunt, ut fieret; ipsam metior, cum tempora metior. Ergo aut ipsa sunt tempora, aut non tempora metior.' conf.* XI 27; Chadwick, 241f.

[9] I do not intend to discuss the technical details of the transition from sense knowledge to the knowledge of the soul and mind including the question to what degree the mind is receptive for sense impression and to what degree the mind operates on an exclusive basis of its own activity. Roughly speaking, the situation can be outlined as follows. In a number of works Augustine has confronted a philosophical problem with a long prehistory and an even longer afterlife. How is sense perception processed into intellectual knowledge? The presence of a mixture of Stoic and Platonic influences complicates this question considerably and makes it hard to square notions of sense impression, of forms and images by which this impression is contained with that which is beyond the bodily experience, the intellect and the soul, the problem being that the latter cannot be influenced, affected or informed by the body. The way Augustine assesses this problem in his *De trinitate* has been lucidly described by Leen Spruit in his *Species Intelligibilis*: '... there is a chain of species originating in corporeal reality and reaching up, through senses and memory, to the "*acies cogitantis*" ... The Augustinian notion of a chain of

Digitized by Google

Now the question whether or not the mind is to such a degree part of the *distentio animi* that it in fact extends itself, is of key importance. In a paper published some years ago[10] I have dealt with the Beckett-like, narrative implications resulting from a permanent focus (the *attentio perdurat*)[11] based on the fact that for Augustine time as the *praesens praesentis* is without extension.[12] Now it is interesting to see how for scholars such as Flasch and Teske precisely this focus on the present and its non-extendedness is not acceptable and, I suppose, much too radical. For them this would come down to a mixing up of time and eternity. However, as I see it, their view results in making things manageable through a compartmentalization of sorts: creation and time characterized by distension, eternity by non-distendedness. For them, in order to keep heaven and eternity apart from earthly matters, it is imperative that *distentio* become comprehensive and extend itself into the focus (the *attentio*) of the *praesens praesentis* or, the other way around, that *attentio* itself distend itself and become part of the extendedness of time. Otherwise we would be faced with a situation in which the intermittences of temporality, are not covered or smoothed over by providence or the *durée* of personal identity, a situation, in other words, in which the *attentio* of the *praesens praesentis* could simultaneously represent the reflection of eternity and the most radical form of scepticism possible without there being a criterion at hand by which the one could be distinguished from the other.

Considering how much is at stake here it may make sense to reread the passage about the possible length of attention (the *attentio perdurat*) in the light of the Flasch-Teske reading of it:

'But how does this future, which does not yet exist, diminish or become consumed? Or how does the past, which now has no being, grow, unless there are three processes

species between sensible reality and the human mind does not entail that the species is impressed in a purely passive way upon the cognitive faculties. Indeed, Augustine's views on (impressed) species and the related type of cognition are intrinsically ambivalent. Augustine holds that the soul receives species from the body. But we have seen that this assumption does not exclude an active role of the human soul in perception and cognition. This ambivalence raises subtle problems of interpretation and one should not be surprised at the inadequate readings of many medieval authors. On the one hand, Augustine follows the Stoic doctrine of the origin of sensible knowledge in impressed forms, images, similitudes or species. On the other hand, he claims that the body cannot exert any influence on the soul. Thus, he is bound to reject the existence of forms or species originating in bodily reality and impressed upon the immaterial soul. The impression is strictly confined to the senses, which mediate between sensible reality and the mental realm.' Leen Spruit, *Species Intelligibilis: From Sense Perception to Knowledge*, volume 1 (Leiden, 1994), 180.

[10] M.B. Pranger, Time and Narrative in Augustine's *Confessions*: *The Journal of Religion* 81 (2001) 377-94.

[11] *conf.* XI 28.

[12] This view is not without its defenders: 'The present, to be sure, is without extension ... There is still the difficulty that the only time that exists is an indivisible present.' See, for instance, John F. Callahan, *Four Views of Time in Ancient Philosophy* (Cambridge, MA, 1948), 165.

Digitized by Google

in the mind which in this is the active agent? For the mind expects and attends and remembers, so that what it expects passes through what has its attention to what it remembers. Who therefore can deny that the future does not yet exist? Yet already in the mind there is an expectation of the future. Who can deny that the past does not now exist? Yet there is still in the mind a memory of the past.
And who would deny that the present time lacks extension because it passes in a point? But yet the attention lasts (*sed tamen attentio perdurat*) through which what will be present moves towards absence. That is why future time, which does not exist, is not long. A long future rather is a long expectation of the future; nor is past time, which does not exist, long. Rather a long past is a long remembrance of the past.'[13]

As for Flasch and Teske, they do indeed solve the Augustinian paradox of the incompatibility between the fact that we measure time and there being no extendedness of time to measure, by lending extension to the only faculty that seems capable of *durée* and, hence, of containing the impressions that passing things make on the mind: *attentio*. 'The reason [why time should be an extension of the mind], I maintain, is that by its memory of the past, attention to the present, and expectation of the future the human mind is itself extended or distended in a way that beings that are not minds are not.'[14] Or as Kurt Flasch puts it:

'[Attention] holds fast the image of the passing objects over a stretch of time; it brings the remembered together with the expected in the present; it joins what was previously present with the now present. This makes up the extendedness of the time-producing soul, which does not live its life in a uniform instant, but successively. See Plotin, *Enn.* III 7,11.'[15]

Subsequently, Teske elaborates on Flasch's interpretation which splits up the present into previous and present presents and inserts a successiveness into the present that does not fail to affect its 'substratum,' attention itself:

'When we hear a verse, such as, "*Deus creator omnium*," from Ambrose's hymn, if our attention were not extended so that we held present before our mind the syllables that had already past and anticipated those that would follow, we would be aware of only the presently sounding syllable. Augustine, it seems to me, implies that our present awareness must be extended or distended beyond the instantaneous present as

[13] *Sed quomodo minuitur aut consumitur futurum, quod nondum est, aut quomodo crescit praeteritum, quod iam non est, nisi quia in animo, qui illud agit, tria sunt? Nam et expectat, et adtendit et meminit, ut id quod expecta per id quod adtendit transeat in id quod meminerit. Quis igitur negat futura nondum esse? Sed tamen iam est in animo expectatio futurorum. Et quis negat praeterita iam non esse? Sed tamen est adhuc in animo memoria praeteritorum. Et quis negat praesens tempus carere spatio, quia in puncto praeterit? sed tamen perdurat attentio, per quam pergat abesse quod aderit. Non igitur longum tempus futurum, quod non est, sed longum futurum longa expectatio futuri est, neque longum praeteritum tempus, quod non est, sed longum praeteritum longa memoria praeteriti est. conf.* XI 28; Chadwick, 243, second paragraph my translation.

[14] R. Teske, *Paradoxes of Time* (1996), 35.

[15] K. Flasch, *Was ist Zeit?* (1993), 389.

Digitized by Google

a condition of our perceiving a temporal whole. That is, the temporal distention of the soul or mind is a necessary condition of our perceiving temporal wholes. Hence, the second paradox about time is resolved through coming to see that the distention of mind or soul is a necessary condition of our perceiving temporal sequences. The mind or soul is itself distended in the action of reciting a song, and the distended bits make up the whole of one's life.'[16]

Flasch and Teske appear strikingly persistent in sticking to their *definition* of time as *distentio animi* thereby drawing what might look like undivided and whole (the moment, the remembering of Ambrose's hymn all in one piece) into the realm of successiveness and 'temporal' sequences. Apparently, it is hard for them to believe Augustine's dictum 'the present time lacks extension and passes in a point (*punctum*)' to be his final word about the issue. The crux of the matter lies in the transition from this statement to the next sentence: 'And yet the attention lasts/*attentio perdurat*.' For Flasch and Teske, the gap they suppose to exist between those two lines is filled up, so to speak, and the extension-less present is supplemented with an 'extra' in the guise of an extension of sorts beyond its *punctum*-like status, 'beyond the instantaneous present'. In my view this looks like solving a paradox by taking the paradoxical heart out of the problem. Nowhere does Augustine indicate that, in order to last, attention has to be extended. On the contrary. Such a solution would only result into a *regressus ad infinitum*. For introducing extension into attention which a moment ago still looked like a *punctum*, rather than solving anything would be doomed to raise the same question over and over again: the freshly *extended* attention would still be accountable to an attention that would represent 'the present time [that] lacks extension because it passes in a point.' Of course, one might speculate that Flasch and Teske cannot believe their eyes when they look at this text from a more or less Plotinian perspective since soul and one, standing for the dynamics of the entire Plotinian universe in the stretching out of the soul to the One, live from the dynamics of distance between the One and the many. Yet, even if the Augustinian *praesens praesentis* means the breaking down of this Plotinian-Christian universe, there would be no reason for worry about the subsistence of a present time that lacks extension. Nor would there be anything threatening in the possible existence of a soul that corresponds to the *punctum*-like nature of that present time: an 'automatic sweetheart'[17] that could not be articulated in terms of *distentio* sec and its concomitant anthropological

[16] R. Teske, *Paradoxes of Time* (1996), 35f.

[17] 'I thought of what I called an "automatic sweetheart," meaning a soulless body which should be absolutely indistinguishable from a spiritually animated maiden, laughing, talking, blushing, nursing us, and performing all feminine offices as tactfully and sweetly as if a soul were in her. Would one regard her as full equivalent? Certainly not.' William James, *The Works of William James*, F. Burkhardt, F. Bowers, and I. Skrupskelis (eds.), vol. 2, *The Meaning of Truth* (Cambridge, 1975), 103, n. 2. See Hilary Putnam, I thought of what I called "an automatic sweetheart", in: *The Threefold Cord Mind, Body, and World* (New York, 1999), 73-91.

Digitized by Google

qualities, a human soul of being, in other words, that would not be measured by the standards of temporal successiveness and yet would be wholly human and intrinsically time-bound.

This sustained presence of the *praesens praesentis* implies, among other things, that, when Augustine says 'it is in you, my mind, that I measure time', he cannot mean either to leave out the present from that which the mind measures, or, to extend that instantaneous present inside the mind itself contrary to its essence of being without extension and 'passing in a point'. The precise procedure is described by Augustine in the famous passage about the reciting of a psalm:

'Suppose I am about to recite a psalm which I know. Before I begin, my expectation is directed towards the whole. But when I have begun, the verses from it which I take into the past become the object of my memory. The life of this act of mine is stretched two ways, into my memory because of the words I have already said and into my expectation because of those which I am about to say. But my attention is on what is present: by that the future is transferred to become the past. As the action advances further and further, the shorter the expectation and the longer the memory, until all expectation is consumed, the entire action is finished, and it has passed into memory. What occurs in the psalm as a whole occurs in its particular pieces and its individual syllables. The same is true of a longer action in which perhaps that psalm is a part. It is also valid of the entire life of an individual person, where all actions are parts of a whole, and of the total history of 'the sons of men' where all human lives are but parts.'[18]

Nowhere in this passage does Augustine suggest that the present should be extended in order to grasp a temporal whole. On the contrary. Such a move would spoil the entire process of measuring through the *distentio animi* regardless of whether the object of measuring is small or large, a syllable, a psalm, or an entire life. True, throughout this process there is a shifting from expectation to memory. But it is precisely the non-extendedness of the present as activated in *attentio* that does not cease to be what is: concentration containing the whole (of the psalm, life). Were the present consciousness to be made divisible and be extended, what else could it turn out to be but expectation or memory pure and simple, disconnected from the present? That would not seem a real solution of the problem and would leave the question unanswered as to the status – and

[18] *Dicturus sum canticum, quod novi: antequam incipiam, in totum expectatio mea tenditur, cum autem coepero, quantum ex illa in praeteritum decerpsero, tenditur et memoria mea, atque distenditur vita huius actionis meae, in memoriam propter quod dixi, et in expectationem propter quod dicturus sum: praesens tamen adest attentio mea, per quam traicitur quod erat futurum, ut fiat praeteritum. Quod quanto magis agitur et agitur, tanto breviata expectatione prolongatur memoria, donec tota expectatio consumatur, cum tota illa actio finita transierit in memoriam. Et quod in toto cantico, hoc in singulis particulis eius fit atque in singulis syllabis eius, hoc in actione longiore, cuius forte particula est illud canticum, hoc in tota vita hominis, cuius partes sunt omnes actiones hominis, hoc in toto saeculo filiorum hominum, cuius partes sunt omnes vitae hominum. conf.* XI 28; Chadwick, 243.

Digitized by Google

the hold – of the present. 'By that very present the future is transferred to become the past'. That all those parts (syllables, lives *etc.*) are being stored in memory and stay 'fixed' there is a different matter altogether. If anything, on Augustine's account, it is in memory that a syllable is measured rather than in a supposedly extended present. Unless, once again, one sees the present as an extended memory, of course. However, as I have pointed out above, it does not make sense to extend the present even though we cannot grasp how exactly attention holds on to the present while meanwhile staying in the middle of the shifting moves from future to past. Is it fear of losing grip of such an enigmatic present that Flasch feels the necessity to protect attention as 'holding fast the image of the passing objects over a stretch of time' and argue that 'it brings the remembered together with the expected in the present'? Such a view supposes the remembered and the expected to have connecting points at the end of the line, whereas, drawn and pushed through and by the present, it is the other way around: the present triggers expectation and memory and in the process it never loses sight of them (*praesens futuri, praesens praeteriti*).

In my view the sustained non-extendedness of the present is, paradoxically, the reason why Augustine 'has come to think that time is simply a distention of the mind'. Like the expectation of the future 'directed toward the whole', so memory containing past temporal wholes and as such being fit to measure time, cannot detach itself from attention on what is integrally present, or to put it in stronger terms, from attention's sovereign sustainability. That such a present as the permanent focus of attention, cannot be grasped or pinpointed, does not mean that is should be either overstretched or reduced to oblivion. The latter option would mean to replace attention with memory or the loss of it (and it is indeed hard to see how Teske can avoid such a move).

After the razor of *attentio* has been applied to attempts at lending it unauthentic extension,[19] time has come to revalue the entire notion of *distentio animi* and honour its dimensionality, its symbiosis of vertical and horizontal presence. Shifting from future expectation to past memories is not a linear process in which attention is part of a regular sequence. Governing both future and past, expectation and memory, present attention provides notions of temporality with new dimensions. As such it lasts (*perdurat*) holding on to the moment – like the source of Augustine's conversion as the moment of continence – embracing future and past. Consequently, a long memory and a long expectation no longer mean 'long' as in the Plotininan *diastasis zôês* or in a flat interpretation of the

[19] In looking for extension where it is not, Flasch and Teske are reminiscent of the efforts with regard to the Pelagian problem of providing 'some special reserve' for grace. See James Wetzel, *Augustine and the Limits of Virtue* (Cambridge, 1992), 201f.: 'Augustine does not say against this [Pelagius' thesis that we may resist grace outside God's initiative] that we have no capacity to resist, but for him the source of that capacity is not some special reserve we maintain to protect out autonomy, but our will held back in mortgage to its past ... Our reserve against grace must be eliminated altogether before we can be said to be liberated.'

Digitized by Google

distentio animi. Henceforth expectation and memory do not cease to be part of the process of shortening and lengthening among whom, thanks to the abiding presence of the present, no visible dividing lines can be drawn. That leaves the measuring of the single syllable in Ambrose's *Deus creator omnium* untouched, memory taking care of that as indeed memory and expectation do not cease to be the carriers of a discernable future and past. But neither memory nor expectation can live out their *distentio* on their own. There is one lasting point where they always meet and that keeps underlying their moving from future to past. Subsumed under the *attentio perdurat*, both expectation and memory uninterruptedly remind the restless mind – themselves, that is – in search of measure and fixity of 'something that is going to stay', of the presence inside the mind itself of the entire poem or an entire life thereby echoing the unfathomable presence of time's eternal creator.

With this structural presence of the present in place, the Plotinian and Pauline language of alienation with which Augustine concludes his reflections on time demands a reassessment as well.

> '"Because your mercy is more than lives", (*Ps.* 62:4) see how my life is a distension in several directions. "Your right hand upheld me" (*Ps.* 17:36; 62:9) in my Lord, the Son of man who is mediator between you the One and us the many, who live in a multiplicity of distractions by many things; so "I might apprehend him in whom also I am apprehended" (*Phil.* 3:12-4) and leaving behind the old days I might be gathered to follow the One, "forgetting the past" and moving not towards those future things which are transitory, but extended in reach, not by being pulled apart but by concentration.'[20]

No longer are we confronted here with a mere suffering from the successiveness of time and the subsequent ardent desire for reunion with the One. First and foremost it is Augustine's own self that is in the way of such sorrow, such pilgrimage and such delivery from multiplicity into Oneness. By self I mean neither Augustine's psychological or devotional 'ego' that, in its own way, had been torn apart into different ego's and different wills before heeding the call of the *tolle lege* nor a mystical sparkle as a habitat of the divine, but, rather, the integrity of grace as it manifests itself in terms of temporality in the 'putting on of the Lord Jesus Christ' 'so that I might apprehend him in whom also I am apprehended.' Being possessed as a way of life or not being possessed, that is the question. Of course, the Pauline wording suggests eschatological motives and expectations here, 'forgetting the past, extended in reach by concentration'. And there is no reason to deny the strong connotation of the stretching forward.

[20] *Sed quoniam melior est misericordia tua super vitas, ecce distentio est vita mea, et me suscepit dextera tua in domino meo, mediatore filio hominis inter te unum et non multos, in multis per multa, et per eum adprehendam, in quo et adprehensus sum, et a veteribus diebus colligar, sequens unum, praeterita oblitus, non in ea quae futura et transitura sunt, sed in ea quae ante sunt non distentus, sed extensus, non secundum distentionem, sed secundum intentionem sequor ... conf.* XI 29; Chadwick, 243f.

Digitized by Google

However, after our efforts to prevent the *distentio animi* from being deprived of its centre, the language of distraction is no longer what it used to be. In any case, if it is no longer the language of *distentio animi* pure and simple, it is much less a language in which the call for continence as the call to hold on to the moment would have been effaced in favour of a traceable form of alienation. Appearances notwithstanding that call as the full voice of temporality still sounds:

'You are my eternal Father, but I am scattered in times whose order I do not understand. The storms of incoherent events tear to pieces my thoughts, the inmost entrails of my soul, until that day when purified and molten by the fire of your love, I flow together to merge into you.'[21]

'Times whose order I do not understand', a line straight out of Beckett. Of course, that does in no way diminish the longing to 'flow together to merge into God'. All one can say about it is that there is nothing smooth about that longing, nothing covering it and turning it into a manageable affair. What we are left with is a universe of intermittently strong and weak voices governed by an 'object' that is there to stay and a human mind that is going to persevere. The attention that lasts represents such an object, or, in any case, the – temporal – room in which it may reside. The fact that such a residence, however intermittently as far as visibility is concerned, should be considered not so much distinctly possible as, rather, distinctly real, can only intensify one's being scattered in times. Yet it is in this light, and this light only, that falling short, longing, dissatisfaction, deferral and unrest can and should be assessed.

[21] *Et tu solacium meum, domine, pater meus aeternus es; at ego in tempora dissilui, quorum ordinem nescio, et tumultuosis varietatibus dilaniantur, cogitationes meae, intima viscera animae meae, donec in te confluam purgatus et liquidus igne amoris tui. conf.* XI 29; Chadwick, 243f.

Digitized by Google

Digitized by Google

Pagan Monotheism and Augustine's Early Works

John Peter KENNEY, Colchester, Vermont

How does Augustine begin to develop his understanding of divine transcendence in his earliest works, the Cassiciacum dialogues? And how are we to characterize the theological shape of this early monotheism, in the wake of his abandonment of Manichaean dualism and his reading of the *libri Platonicorum*? Those are the questions that I will address this afternoon. This is – to be sure – a much discussed subject in Augustinian scholarship; my excuse for returning to it is two-fold. There have been developments in the study of Platonism over the last few decades that may offer us the chance to refresh our scholarly browsers and gain a new outlook on these enigmatic early works. Moreover some recent studies have reminded us that these are indeed fascinating theological treatises in their own right, and not just failed excursions in Platonism.[1]

My thesis is fairly straightforward: Augustine can be seen – even in these catechumenal texts – to be sketching the outlines of what would become his mature concept of deity, the God of the *Confessions* and of the later episcopal works. I am thus concerned here today to underscore the initial salience of Augustine's Christian representation of the divine. But in doing so I am principally interested in the structure of Augustine's thought, in seeing how he is developing his ideas in order that we can think through them again with him. So this is not a project intended to recover a chronology of his development or to weigh the influences upon him. As a philosopher of religion, what I am really after is the larger theological significance of Augustine's thought in these first works. Nonetheless, this structural and comparative analysis will also touch on the current discussion of Augustine's early theological gestation.

To advance this agenda, I propose to start – in section one – with an abbreviated discussion of the Platonism of the school of Plotinus. I want to use the *libri Platonicorum* to throw the ideas and issues with which Augustine was grappling at Cassiciacum into relief. As is perhaps evident already, I regard these early treatises as basically Christian works, something that will emerge more clearly as we proceed. But the Platonists are invaluable, especially when we approach them not just as sources for various concepts that Augustine adopted, but as fellow architects of classical monotheism. Now it is, I think,

[1] Esp. Carol Harrison, *Rethinking Augustine's Early Theology* (Oxford, 2006).

Studia Patristica XLIX, 147-159.
© Peeters Publishers, 2010.

Digitized by Google

fair to say that scholarship has made enormous strides over the last half-century in coming to terms with the Platonism of late antiquity. Thanks to the pioneering studies of Hilary Armstrong, Jean Trouillard, Pierre Hadot, John Dillon, among so many others, we can now see this late Platonism in the round, as it were.[2] It now appears as a movement that exhibited elements that we are accustomed to regard as properly philosophical along with other aspects that we do not, in particular its role as a source for sophisticated pagan theology, its increasing identification with Greco-Roman cult, and its support for soteriological practices, especially *theōria* and *theourgia*. And, most important for my purposes today, its conception of the ultimate deity has come increasingly to be recognized as a form of monotheism, albeit a conception of divine unity different in its logic from Biblical monotheism. Indeed this approach to late Platonic theology and its doctrine of the divine One now nests in a wider re-assessment of theistic tendencies and cults within Greco-Roman religion. I am sure many of you are familiar with the Frede and Athanassiadi volume that Oxford University Press published in 1999, *Pagan Monotheism in Late Antiquity*, and with the 2006 University of Exeter's conference on that same subject.[3] I want today to use some of these insights to reconsider the theology of Augustine at Cassiciacum. Before proceeding I do need to issue one caveat. Some interpreters of pagan monotheism, especially Michael Frede, seem to regard all forms of philosophically developed monotheism in late antiquity as fundamentally similar. I want to dissociate my own thesis from that approach. While I regard the Platonists of the school of Plotinus as monotheists, their conception of the divine One is very different from the God of Nicene orthodoxy, and as we shall see, from the catechumenal theology of Augustine.

1. Pagan monotheism and the school of Plotinus

C.S. Lewis once observed: 'Monotheism should not be regarded as the rival of polytheism, but rather as its maturity.'[4] This seems to capture one important tendency within ancient Platonism. Without rejecting the multiple gods, a deeper unity came gradually to be recognized and revered within these schools. It is in this recognition of divine transcendence behind the surface of multiplicity that paganism developed its own sort of monotheistic theology. Through the

[2] Arthur Hilary Armstrong, *Plotinian and Christian Studies* (London, 1979); *id.*, *Hellenic and Christian Studies* (London, 1990); Jean Trouillard, *La procession Plotinienne* (Paris, 1955); *id.*, *La purification Plotinienne* (Paris, 1955); Pierre Hadot, *Plotin ou la simplicité du regard* (Paris, 1963); John Dillon, *The Middle Platonists* (Ithaca, NY, 1982).

[3] Polymnia Athanassiadi and Michael Frede, *Pagan Monotheism in Late Antiquity* (Oxford, 1999).

[4] Clive Staples Lewis, *The Allegory of Love* (Oxford, 1936), 57.

Digitized by Google

efforts of the Platonists, paganism took – as it were – a soft approach to belief in the 'oneness' of God. That development was centered upon the logic of divine ultimacy rather than upon the harder logic of divine singularity, as in the Biblical trajectory. It might thus be said that the 'oneness' of monotheism, in the sense of numerical uniqueness, was less to the fore in paganism, with its continued embrace of plural theophanies and levels of divinity. Yet if we define monotheism as the belief in an ultimate divine source of all reality, then Plotinus and the later Platonists were certainly monotheists.

To get at this Platonic approach to monotheism, we need to concentrate first on its core conception of divine transcendence. Then we can consider the means by which the ultimacy of the divine first principle was secured and its production of the cosmos explained. The Platonists of late antiquity re-conceptualized the divine world, offering an alternative way to articulate – as it were – the 'place' of the divine. Transcendence among these later Platonists was perceived in reference to the perfection that defined the nature and status of being. This notion of perfect being constituted what might be called 'first-level transcendence.' And yet, while this move was a critical advance and the foundation of Platonic monotheism, it was not the whole story.

The innovative Plotinian doctrine of the One as the ineffable source of being was then postulated as an extension of this transcendentalism. Monotheism in the later Platonic schools thus rested on the level of the intelligibles, which were then understood to be surpassed by the ultimate first principle. It was negative theology that served to mark off the One's unique status in reference to being. Apophatic theology might thus be said to have been the fulcrum of a 'double' transcendence theory. The first level of transcendence was the postulation of the intelligibles. A second, higher notion of transcendence was then employed in reference to the One, which was understood to exceed even the transcendent perfection of the intelligibles.[5]

It was in Plotinus that pagan monotheism achieved its clearest philosophical articulation, largely through his relentless use of negative theology. Negative theology was systematically deployed to prevent the One's assimilation to all other sorts of reality. This 'double transcendence' thesis was the hallmark of late Platonic theology. Negative theology thus became central to the theological grammar of pagan monotheism and it remained so in the Platonic schools of late antiquity, becoming even more extreme and attenuated in figures like Iamblichus and Proclus. What Plotinus achieved, therefore, was the codification of pagan monotheism.

With an eye towards Augustine, I want to look quickly at a few aspects of divine production in the *Enneads*. While Plotinus' portrayal of the One resisted

[5] Ancient Apophatic Theology, in: *Gnosticism and Later Platonism: Themes, Figures, Texts*, ed. Ruth Majercik and John D. Turner (Atlanta, 2000).

Digitized by Google

conceptual specification, nonetheless, the One had what might be called a cosmological character. Based upon its location in Plotinian metaphysics, it retained certain identifiable, systematic features such as 'source' or 'goal' and so on. We are accustomed to thinking of Plotinus as holding a theory of emanation, understood as a process of necessary generation, by which the One generates lower levels of reality by virtue of the unfolding of its inner nature. And this is indeed one fundamental way that Plotinus articulates the process of divine self-diffusion. It has two great merits as a theological image: First, emanation sharply accentuates the singularity and sufficiency of the One as the source for all other sorts of reality. No primordial stuff is needed for the One to fiddle with in order to get the job of cosmological production done. It is all just one great ontological surge out of the One alone. Second, this ontological cascade is in no way arbitrary or based upon a divine choice among finite alternatives. It is grounded exclusively in the inner life of the One, in its mysterious and infinite existence, and is the One's best and only finite expression.

At this point we need to be alert to one aspect of emanation that we'll need later to get the early Augustine right. Plotinus did not believe divine production was, in fact, constrained in any way or that it was somehow automatic. *Ennead* VI 8 is at pains to explain how the One might indeed be said to have – as it were – an inner will that exercises volition.[6] But this inner decision is really just consenting to its own perfection and goodness. But there is a sense of will involved within the infinite life of the One, even if it is not to be understood as a choice among alternative models for finite reality, or even an absolute choice of production itself. For how could the infinite perfection of the Good not overflow according to its inner disposition? And how could it not generate the best finite representation of its own excellence? For the One is certainly not constrained by anything external in its production of the cosmos, nor is it required to produce by anything other than its own beneficence.[7] This line of thought in VI 8 may have been developed, as A.H. Armstrong once suggested, as a response by Plotinus to criticisms of his doctrine of emanation by Christians who attended his school in Rome.[8] I raise this now because there has been a long-standing tendency to contrast emanation with creation, with the later understood as based on divine volition. This is fine for a rough cut, but the matter is more complicated because of Plotinus's own resistance to such a sharp dichotomy. There is, as it were, more volition around than one might suspect in Plotinian monotheism.[9]

[6] VI 8.7-16.

[7] V 1.6; V 2.1; V 4.1.

[8] Two Views of Freedom: A Christian Objection in Plotinus, *Enneads* VI 8.7, 11-5: *SP* 17 (1979) 397-406.

[9] See esp. Lloyd Gerson, *God and Greek Philosophy* (London, 1990), 216-9.

Digitized by Google

But one thing that is not in evidence in the *Enneads* is prayer to the One. Plotinus countenances prayer to lower powers, for the purpose of effecting results at the level where the soul currently resides.[10] Moreover his own lack of enthusiasm for pagan cult was reluctantly admitted by Porphyry in his *Vita Plotini*.[11] Yet it is easy to see why the soul cannot really pray to the One. It is not so much the apparent impersonality of the One; after all, what we think of as personality had its source there in the One. Rather it is that the One is too close to us for prayer, to use a finite, spatial image. For the infinite One is omnipresent; it is absolutely present in every fiber and aspect of our being. In a sense, its omnipresence is, for Plotinus, the flip side of its absolute transcendence. So prayer to the One would only introduce a false duality, a relationality that is misguided and even dysfunctional, leading the soul to look in the wrong way for material aid or salvation. There were indeed external powers to which the Plotinian soul could pray for temporal assistance, gods and daimōnes in the hierarchy of being. But for salvation, the soul had only to turn within itself, to the One present there, and secure access to a higher level of transcendence through *theōria*. That claim was supported by another innovation of the school of Plotinus: the doctrine that the soul did not descend entirely into the lower world. It is clear from the *Enneads* that this was the lynchpin of the Roman school's soteriology: that the soul had a higher self, an intelligible aspect that remained in intensified contact with the One and was unencumbered by the distractions of materiality.[12]

But why did the soul need salvation? If everything cascades gloriously out of the infinity of the One, then why is there any need for rescue? Here we come to a side of Plotinus that is opaque and perhaps not entirely consistent with his theory of emanation – although it is an aspect to which Augustine seems to have been especially alert. Plotinus maintained that the soul is here in the world at least in part because it chose to decline into materiality. And that act of audacity, of *tolma*, is an irrational one.[13] Moreover, it is not just an act committed by human souls, for *Nous* itself, the first product of the One, is said to have exercised an irrational choice in the very act of its emergence from the One.[14] Thus all of finite reality has an aspect of misadventure to it, a fallen character that goes to the nature of existence itself. Even so, Plotinus remained committed to his autosoteriology, for the soul's fall, however misguided, was never complete. It always remained connected through a thread of being to the One. And the One was, in any case, omnipresent even among those finite beings that had the audacity to emerge from it.

[10] Prayer is regarded by Plotinus as a magical activity, and not something to be directed to the One, see *Enn.* IV 4.26 and 40-2; V 1.6.

[11] *Vita Plotini* 10.

[12] I 1; VI 4.14.

[13] V 1.1; III 7.11.

[14] III 8.8; VI 9.5.

Digitized by Google

2. Augustine and pagan monotheism

David Burrell, the eminent philosophical theologian, has discussed various ways by which Western monotheists, including Plotinus, have articulated their understanding of God's transcendence in his outstanding recent study in comparative theology, *Faith and Freedom*.[15] Burrell emphasizes what he calls, following the theologian Robert Sokolowski, 'the distinction'.[16] The core credendum of all monotheism is that the first principle is distinct from the world which it is invoked to explain. As such, it must be seen as the One from which all things come forth, but it cannot be part of that universe. Thus God must be understood to be fundamental, indeed so fundamental that God cannot even be seen primarily in terms of his distinction from the world. To do so would be to draw God into a relation with the world, making God, as it were, part of a larger system. That too would call for explanation. Therefore God must be responsible both for the world and for God's distinction from the world. As I have suggested, Plotinus and pagan monotheism has its own unique way of approaching the articulation of this monotheistic distinction. What I find so intriguing about the Cassiciacum treatises is that Augustine does not follow the logic of Plotinus in developing his early theology, as we might expect, but strikes out in a different direction from the very beginning. So I want to concentrate on how 'the theistic distinction' is articulated by Augustine.

Beata v. tells us that Augustine had read a very few treatises of Plotinus: *lectis autem Plotini paucissimus libris* ... I don't think we'll ever know which books those were, what the Latin translations by Marius Victorinus were like, and how deeply Augustine, self-taught in philosophy, was able to comprehend them. It is worth recalling that the *Enneads* were so difficult to interpret that Longinus, the scholarch of the Athenian school, sent back the copy he received from Porphyry, thinking that it needed editing. So our Plotinus is certainly not Augustine's Plotinus. But even so there are some things that Augustine clearly did get, ideas that seemed to have stunned him, sweeping away the remnants of his earlier materialism and dualism and setting him onto a permanently fixed course towards divine transcendence and monotheism. That is the core of his initial Platonic discovery: what I have called first-level transcendence, and the basic notion of monotheism, grounded upon the sufficiency of the One. I'd like to look first at Augustine's iteration of these notions, paying special attention to the way in which he explains them. Then we can go on to look at their deeper logic. For even at Cassiciacum there is much that signals Augustine's departure from whatever conception of deity he could have found in those Platonist treatises.

As I have already suggested, there is one arresting aspect of the early dialogues: they do not rely on Plotinus' apophatic theology of the One, nor on his

[15] David Burrell, *Faith and Freedom* (Oxford, 2004).
[16] D. Burrell, *Faith and Freedom* (2004), ch. 14.

Digitized by Google

ramified theory of divine transcendence. What we find mainly is Augustine's rather excited discovery of the basic Platonic notion of transcendence. *Acad.* 3.17.37 reads:[17]

Plato thought that there were two worlds, an intelligible one in which truth itself resides, and this sensible one which is clearly the one we perceive by sight and touch; and thus the former was the true one while the latter was a likeness of the truth and was made in its image.

Yet what Augustine does not do in these early works is to use this initial theory of intelligible transcendence to develop a two-level account of divine distinctiveness along the lines of Plotinus. We get several passages in which he sketches some notions that reflect an acquaintance with the Plotinian conception of a principle beyond intellect, but he never systematically pursues the matter. *Ord.* 2.9.26 is a case in point. Here we are told that those who seek to learn deep and arcane truths should open the door to this knowledge by following first authority and then reason. This leads to an understanding of the precepts set out by authority, then to a grasp of reason itself, then to the knowledge of what intellect is, which comprehends within itself all things, and finally to the first principle of all things, which is itself beyond them (*quid praeter uniuersa uniuersorum principium*). That highest level is available to few in this life and will not be exceeded in the next. This cognitive ascension scheme suggests a level beyond intellect, although Augustine leaves the matter without pressing the logic further. Later, at *ord.* 2.16.44 we find a reference to the 'highest God, who is known better by not knowing' (*de summo illo deo, qui scitur melius nesciendo*). But this is just a passing reference.

So how does Augustine articulate 'the theistic distinction' and secure his understanding of monotheism? He does so first by pressing out the implications of first-level transcendence in reference to God and thus developing a set of ontological markers to separate God from the contingent world. And second, he articulates a cluster of cosmological theses that will also serve that end, centered around the idea of creation. Let's look at both of these strategies, which are usually conjoined, by considering several passages. We might begin by picking up on the discussion of Platonism just mentioned from *Acad.* 3.19. At section 42, we learn that Platonism is the 'one discipline of truest philosophy' which is not the philosophy of this world, but that other, intelligible world.[18] This two world thesis is then developed by a Christian exposition of the divine intellect:

It is not the philosophy of this world, which our sacred mysteries deservedly detest, but of another intelligible world to which the most subtle reasoning would never call souls back blinded by the multiform darkness of error and covered with deep slime from the body, unless the highest God – because of a certain clemency toward humans beings –

[17] All translations are my own. Special thanks to Professor Ronald Begley of the Classics Department at Saint Michael's College who offered his valuable advice regarding the texts.

[18] *una uerissimae philosophiae disciplina.*

Digitized by Google

turned and submitted the authority of the divine intellect even so far as the human body itself. Not only by his precepts but also by his deeds, souls have been awakened and have been able to return to their very selves and to look once more upon their fatherland without the controversy of disputation.

Several things are immediately evident. Augustine understands God to be a transcendent intellect. Moreover, the practice of philosophy, even if properly directed towards the intelligible world, is insufficient to permit souls to return to themselves and to rediscover that higher realm. Souls are too fallen, blinded by error and stained by the body. And so, divine transcendence notwithstanding, the most high God exercises compassion and submits the divine intellect to the human body in order to effect human restoration. This text thus demonstrates how Augustine, even at this very early stage in his theological development, departs from Platonism in thinking out his nascent Christian orthodoxy. Notice that the fundamental understanding of God in this text is not Plotinian. God's location is all wrong: not beyond being and intellect, but rooted there. Moreover, there is a major departure here from the Platonic tradition with respect to God's active agency. God's compassion and incarnational movement together break the plane of God's remoteness, suggesting a fundamental departure from Platonic theology. In the *Enneads*, there is nothing to indicate that the One engages in any active agency on behalf of human souls. Augustine's representation of the intelligible transcendence of God is thus, from the start, based on an orthodox Christian notion of God's salvific compassion. Transcendence and incarnation are thus compatible and interwoven insights.

That God is immaterial is also something Augustine regards as axiomatic in his post-Manichaean phase.[19] He develops that insight along lines that are Platonic, but once again filtered in a fashion that is clearly Christian. He tells us that this was his procedure: to compare what he found in his reading of the Platonists with the tradition of the Christian mysteries.[20] What we find in the texts bears this out. The first passage we shall consider is a remarkably perceptive one in which Augustine makes clear how God must be seen as sharply distinct from the universe he produced and maintains. At *beata v.* 4. 34, Augustine presents a concluding speech that, among other things, gives an account of how he understands God's unique ontological status. It too is a largely Christian text, exploring the relation of the Father and the Son:

But what should wisdom be called if not the wisdom of God? Yet we have accepted through divine authority that the son of God is nothing else but the wisdom of God, and the son of God is really God...
But what do you think that wisdom is except truth? For it has been said: I am the truth. However, in order to exist the truth comes into being through a supreme measure, from which it proceeds and into which it returns when it has been perfected. Yet no other

[19] See *beata v.* 1.4.
[20] See *conf.* VII 20.26.

Digitized by Google

measure is imposed on the supreme measure itself. For if the supreme measure exists through the supreme measure itself, it is a measure through itself.

God is the *summus modus* from which the truth proceeds. But the supreme measure itself is beyond any measure other than its own. It is self-sustaining and self-referential. Because it is the foundation of truth, it is a true measure, and so it can never be seen to lack truth. This supreme measure is thus distinct not just from the truth that emerges from it, but from all else. And, because it is the source of its own measure, it resists assimilation to anything else because of its inherent incommensurability. This is an especially clear and forceful iteration of 'the theistic distinction.' In section 35, Augustine goes on to describe God as the *sol secretus*, the hidden sun, which pours the light of truth into the innermost eye of our soul. That light is God: perfect, without fault, and most omnipotent (*omnipotentissimus*). Thus we can see the outlines of classical Christian theism beginning to take shape.

Ord. 2.5.16 offers another good insight into Augustine's early account of divine transcendence. It is similar to *Acad.* 3.19.42 in its interweaving of orthodox Christian and Platonic elements, but it is also marked by more explicit polemical tension with Platonism. The passage begins with a consideration of reason and authority, suggesting that philosophy can lead to a better understanding of the Christian mysteries.

When the obscurity of things disturbs us, the way that we follow is twofold: either reason or else authority. Philosophy promises reason and it frees only a few, whom it coaxes not only not to disdain those mysteries, but also to understand them as they should be understood. The philosophy that is true and, I might also say, genuine has no other business except to teach how the first principle of all things is itself without origin, and how great an intellect endures within it, and what then has poured forth for our salvation without any degeneration. The venerable mysteries, which set free persons of sincere and unshaken faith – not confusedly as some say, nor dishonorably as many claim, teach that this principle is the one God who is omnipotent and tripotent: Father and Son and Holy Spirit. However great it might be that God thought it worthy to take up and to have a body of our human kind, the more that this appears lowly, then the more it is full of clemency and remote from the pride of clever men.

Here we discover that the first principle is without beginning. And once again, it is also an intellect, cognizant of its products, and omnipotent. Indeed, it does not remain a divine mind closed within itself, but instead has come forth to aid us. This very act not only exhibits the inherent goodness and clemency of God, but also it demonstrates that God is not removed in his pride from humans. We find here the beginnings of the great contrast that would later preoccupy Augustine at the close of *conf.* VII: between the pride of the Platonists in their enlightened connection to the remote One and the humble confession of an incarnate God by fallen Christians. One can see in this passage a consistent representation of God's nature and – as it was – of God's metaphysical location. Indeed, we have the signature elements of Augustine's God: on the one hand,

Digitized by Google

transcendent of the sensible world, a pure, perfect and omnipotent intellect; on the other hand, attentive to its products, actively concerned with their state, so beneficent even to break the veil of divine transcendence in order to take on their human condition. While we have here a clear enough account of 'the theistic distinction', it is one that admits of direct and immediate presence of God in the world through incarnation, a special theory of permeable transcendence. It is early passages like this that make it impossible to regard Augustine as being a Platonist with a Christian soteriology. From the very beginning, his concept of deity was distinctively his own and the deep logic of his theology was Catholic.

Perhaps the best text in the Cassiciacum treatises for understanding Augustine's conception of God is the opening prayer of the *Soliloquies*. I would like now to conclude my textual analysis by unpacking this wonderful passage. The central point that I wish to emphasize is the novelty of Augustine's thinking in reference to the Platonism of the Plotinian school. What Augustine does is to offer a detailed iteration of his new theology, using the idea of creation to establish the theistic distinction. In section 1.2 Augustine announces his core understanding of God by beginning with a prayer: 'God, founder of the universe ...' (*Deus universitatis conditor*). We are already into novel territory, into a zone where direct address to the One is theologically possible. Then Augustine sets out his core notion of ontological production and dependence:

> You are God, through whom all things, which would not exist by themselves, strive to exist; you are God, who does not permit to perish even that which by itself is prone to destruction; God who created out of nothing this world, which the eyes of everyone judge to be most beautiful; ...

Notice the degree of radical ontological contingency here. The things invested with *esse* have existence only because God has conferred it. This sense of radical contingency is the result of the divine volition involved in creation. That conception is already a departure from Platonism, for in Platonic ontology there is always a residual image that entities in the world of becoming might have more or less 'being,' and thus that they are somehow on the grid of existence no matter their exact location.[21] But a different mode of ontological appraisal of this world is required if the fact and character of the existence of entities is intentionally given to them from a distinct source. It would be difficult to imagine a sharper theistic distinction than this: complete ontological bestowal by a separate omnipotent power. This departure comes even more sharply into focus if we remember that Plotinus described reality as 'a long life stretched out', that is, as the attenuation of the infinite One into finite reality.[22] Augustine's robust portrait of intentional divine production thus clearly defines his new Christian representation of God's distinctiveness.

[21] See C. Harrison, *Rethinking Augustine's Early Theology* (2006), 88f.
[22] V 2.2.

Digitized by Google

Augustine goes on to introduce the concept that conceptually follows from this notion of divine production: creation from nothing (*Deus qui de nihilo mundum istum creasti*). The key to this claim is the ontological sufficiency of God. God requires no necessary elements in the production of the world. As is characteristic of his thinking in this post-Manichaean period, Augustine then links this theme with the issue of evil. Evil is really nothing: *malum nihil esse*. This sets up an additional thesis of what might be called aesthetic transcendence: God is perfect and the active source for all that is good and beautiful, and in this regard is distinct from everything else that is deficiently so. We find a litany of glowing epithets: God is the father of truth, of wisdom, of true and total light, of blessedness, of goodness and beauty, of intelligible light, of our enlightenment, of our return to him (*sol.* 4). Again, this is a matter of active conferral by God, not just the emergence of derivative properties. And the voice of prayer supplies a further element, for God is not just consenting to this conferral of existence as a result of his unconstrained inner nature, as in Plotinus. God is making this gift, in Augustine, in a fashion that assumes direct knowledge of these individual creatures. This is another major, indeed shocking, departure from Platonic theology, treating the One as intentionally concerned with its products. This conception is *mē theoprepēs* for Platonism; violating the central and ancient dogma that the first principle may have no specific concern for the conditions of its consequents, lest its perfection be compromised.

The sharpness of Augustine's theistic distinction, articulated in terms of intentional production or creation, also allows him to treat God's immanence in a new way. Here in the opening prayer of *sol.* we discover that God attends to created humans beings, converting them, stripping off what lacks reality in their lives and clothing them with what is real. The prayer is, as a result, carefully balanced between epithets that underscore God's unique ontological status, and those that indicate the intense attention that God pays to fallen souls. An especially good example is section 4, a plea to God which begins with ontology and ends in petition. Here is the first section:

> Whatever has been said by me, you are the one God; come to my aid; you, the one, eternal, true substance, where there is no strife, no confusion, no change, no need, no death. Where there is perfect harmony, total clarity, complete stability, supreme plenitude, perfect life. Where nothing is lacking and no excess. Where the one who begets and the one who is begotten is one.

We have in this prayer the core of Christian theism, with its characteristic and paradoxical combination of classical ontological epithets together with its emphasis upon immediate divine regard for creatures. Reconciling these aspects will be, in many respects, the principle desideratum of Augustine's subsequent theology. The prayer concludes with a restatement of Augustine's account of the theistic distinction and an intense petition offered directly to the first principle.

Digitized by Google

God, above whom, and outside whom, and without whom, nothing exists; God, under whom everything exists, in whom everything exists, with whom everything exists. Who has made humanity in your image and likeness, which he who knows himself recognizes.
Listen, listen, listen to me, my God, my lord, my king, my father, my cause, my hope, my wealth, my honor, my home, my homeland, my salvation, my life, listen, listen, listen to me in that way of yours known only to a few.

In the intimacy of this prayer we are very far removed from the logic of pagan monotheism. From a Platonic standpoint, it is astonishing that Augustine can characterize God with all the austerity and remoteness of an intelligible principle and yet also presume to address that ultimate power in this direct fashion. How such texts could be seen as fundamentally Platonic remains to me a mystery.

3. Concluding analysis

In *beata v.* 1.4 Augustine tells that, after reading those few Platonic texts, he then compared them with the authority of the divine mysteries.[23] In *conf.* he looks back and offers a more elaborate account of this same procedure.[24] I think that the fundamental structure of his early theology actually confirms these claims. If we take care to recover the Platonic theology of the Plotinian school, then we can see clearly enough that it elaborated a distinctive type of pagan monotheism. In contrast, from his very earliest works, Augustine was engaged in working out the logic of a different, Christian theism, catalyzed and informed by his reading of those pagan monotheistic texts. They offered him some critical insights and solved several nagging puzzles, but the core of his thinking was based on a theological template derived from the Christian tradition, to the extent that he grasped its main outlines. Having said this, I do not mean to suggest that the ideas Augustine's adopted from Platonism were merely adjectival to his thought. His commitments to an ontology of degrees of reality, to first-level transcendence, and to the non-being of evil, will all remain essential to his theology. But these offered the basis for the subsequent iteration of an orthodox Christian conception of deity.

The principal result of my analysis today is that Augustine's concept of God at Cassiciacum is orthodox Christian in its logic and sharply different from the pagan monotheism of the school of Plotinus. This thesis is a comparative one, based, not on source criticism, but rather on analysis of the structure of Plotinian and Augustinian theology. In these early texts Augustine did indeed adopt Platonic, first-level transcendence in order to develop his own account of the metaphysical location of God, but in doing so he did not follow

[23] The term he uses is *conlata*.
[24] *conf.* VII 9.13-5.

Digitized by Google

Plotinus's ramified theory of transcendence to insure the first principle's ultimacy. Instead he accepted God's simple transcendence of space and time but then augmented this thesis by emphasizing active and intentional divine agency in cosmic production. Creation from nothing was indeed the key thesis by which Augustine distinguished God from all his products, although the most salient aspects of that claim were its assertion of God's ontological sufficiency and God's intentional concern for his creatures. As noted, the real break with Plotinian theology came not primarily in the divine volition involved, since the One could be seen to consent to its own self-diffusion based on its inner goodness. Rather, it was God's attention to creation, in particular to human souls, which set Augustine's Christian theory apart. In these early texts Augustine clearly perceived God to be a divine mind who was psychologically omnipresent to souls – another departure from Plotinus. Hence the dialogue of the soul with God – so striking in *sol.* – becomes characteristic of Augustinianism. It serves radically to remove what might be called the latent hierarchism or subordinationism of the Plotinian Platonism, with its multiple hypostatic levels. For Augustine, even in these first treatises, God was present immediately to the soul, in a direct and personal fashion that was a profound departure from Platonic monotheism. Moreover, the early texts link that sense of intentional omnipresence with soteriology. God not only breaks the plane of his transcendence through an interior dialogue with the soul, he also entered time and history through the incarnation. This was not an adventious detail for Augustine. He conceived of God from the beginning in incarnational terms, and it would be very difficult to construe his theology, even at this earliest stage, absent incarnation. When set off against the pagan monotheism of the Plotinian school, the structure of Augustine's early Christian monotheism is, therefore, substantially different, especially in its representation of divine transcendence.

Having offered that thesis in comparative theology, I want to close with a secondary observation that is, I suppose, obvious. I find it difficult to see how this early theology could be characterized as anything but Christian. To be sure, this is just the start of Augustine's development. But his theology – even at this stage – is not fundamentally Platonic in its inspiration. It doesn't sound Platonic; it doesn't refer to the theological texts of that tradition; it doesn't have the same preoccupations or concerns. So, while this is not my main focus, I find myself in agreement with Goulven Madec and Carol Harrison in this respect.[25] If one wants to find in these early treatises an Augustine who is a Christian Platonist, that is, a Platonist with a theology augmented with Christian themes, then I, at least, am at a loss to discover him.

[25] Goulven Madec, *S. Augustin et la philosophie* (Paris, 1996); *id.*, *Le Dieu d'Augustin* (Paris, 1998); C. Harrison, *Rethinking Augustine's Early Theology* (2006).

Digitized by Google

Digitized by Google

The Figure of Adam in the Sermons of Augustine

Susan Blackburn GRIFFITH, Oxford

An ill giant sprawled out over the entire earth as on a sickbed appears in several of Augustine's sermons. This communication seeks to examine Augustine's enormous patient, posit some possible sources for this image, and analyse its function in his preaching.

The title of this paper perhaps gives away the ending: the patient is an image of Adam, or perhaps one should say that for Augustine, Adam is the image of the universal patient. The name of Adam appears well over a thousand times in Augustine's works and over 150 times in his sermons. While Augustine spends a great deal of space in commentaries and *De civitate dei* exegeting Genesis, particularly the first three chapters, few sermons focused on Genesis survive in the *Sermones ad populum* and only one specifically on any text within *Genesis* 1-3.[1] Nevertheless, he does discuss Adam frequently – and generally negatively – in his preaching. '*Melior Iob in stercore, quam Adam in paradiso*', Augustine famously proclaims from the pulpit.[2]

Adam also appears semi-anonymously in some sermons. Seven times Augustine vividly describes a gigantic patient lying on a huge bed, filling up the whole earth from east to west.[3] For example: *O aeger, noli consilium medico dare, quomodo cureris. Unus homo Adam propagine impleuit orbem terrarum. Genus humanum, quasi homo unus, magnus aegrotus iacens ab oriente usque in occidentem, curandus est: magnus aegrotus, sed maior medicus.*[4] The descriptions of the enormous sick person include several consistent parallel elements in the various texts, as illustrated by the synopsis on the chart provided. In one situation, the similarities are so complete as to suggest that one passage has been copied from the other as part of a composite text, or that both sermons are compilations.[5] In others, the construction remains almost rigidly

[1] *S.* 1 (*Gen.* 1:1). Other sermons on *Genesis* lections: *s.* 2, 4, 4A, 5. Numerous allusions to the Creation and Fall, however, as well as citations of verses from *Genesis*, do occur in the sermons in passing.

[2] *S.* 15A.7 (*s. Denis* 21.7, CCL 41, 209).

[3] *S.* 87.13 (PL 38, 537-8), 114B.15 (*s. Dolbeau* 5.15), 175.1 (PL 38, 945), 340A.5 (*s. Guelf.* 32.5, MA 1, 567-8), 345.7 (*s. Frangip.* 3, PL 46, 980, MA 1, 208), 346A.8 (*s. Caillau* 2.19.8, MA 1, 270), 374.16 (*s. Dolbeau* 23.16).

[4] *S.* 374.16.

[5] François Dolbeau (ed.), *Vingt-six sermons au peuple d'Afrique* (Paris, 1996), 422-4; Edmund Hill, transl., *Sermons (III/11): Newly Discovered Sermons* (Hyde Park, NY, 1997), 115, n. 1.

Studia Patristica XLIX, 161-168.
© Peeters Publishers, 2010.

Digitized by Google

in place, with rarely a piece missing, varying only in the amount of elaboration the preacher allows for his subject.

The structure of the image follows a clear pattern. Augustine introduces his audience to the picture of an enormous patient, *magnus* (or *grandis*) *aegrotus*.[6] Sometimes an allusion is made to Adam, to his offspring or to the time that has passed since Adam, rather than specifically naming the patient as Adam; in all but one occasion, however, the patient is directly or indirectly connected with *genus humanum*.

Augustine's huge homiletical patient is always lying down. The bishop uses some form of *iaceo*, with the exception of one sermon, where by implication of the patient tossing, turning, and/or shivering – *iactatur* – in bed, one can assume that he is lying down.[7] The verb *iacto* could also be a verbal pun – not just in its similarity to Augustine's more typical *iaceo*, but also in its alternate meaning in the passive or reflexive of 'boast'. Augustine here repeats forms of *iacto* several times, while making the point that this patient is really desperately ill and getting worse. In other texts, pride is the diagnosis of the root cause of the patient's illness, so the picture of a patient boasting while shivering with fever has humorous possibilities.

The size of the patient is further emphasized in some texts by a description of his enormous bed, which stretches from East to West and encompasses the entire earth. The expression *ab oriente in occidentem* occurs elsewhere in Augustine to describe the universality of the Catholic church, as when a bishop prays for the whole church and in that way prays for the individuals in it: *quis enim orat pro singulis? sed neminem singulorum praeterit, qui orat pro universis. ab eo nullum membrum praetermittitur, cuius oratio pro toto corpore funditur.*[8] In the *Enarrationes in Psalmos*, Augustine's largely homiletic expositions on the Psalms, the phrase 'from the east to the west' is likewise used to indicate the church, the people of God, and Christ's choir, emphasizing the unity and corporality of the Body of Christ.

nostram autem [*sc. vocem*] *non sic dixi, quasi eorum tantum qui in praesentia sumus modo; sed nostram qui sumus per totum mundum, qui sumus ab oriente usque in occidentem. et ut noueritis sic esse uocem nostram, loquitur hic quasi unus homo; non est autem unus homo, sed tamquam unus unitas loquitur. in Christo autem nos omnes unus homo; quia huius unius hominis caput est in caelo, et membra adhuc laborant in terra.*[9]

'From the east to the west' is also used in one *enarratio* to refer to the universality of Babylon as *societas... omnium perditorum ab oriente usque in occidentem.*[10]

[6] Augustine never refers to the patient as *gigas*, a term reserved for his exegesis of *Ps.* 19:5.
[7] *S.* 346A.8 (*s. Caillau* 2.19.8, MA 1, 270).
[8] *S.* 273.2 (PL 38, 1249).
[9] *En. Ps.* 60.1 (CCL 39, 765-6). Cf. *en. Ps.* 85.14 and 149.7. This passage vividly illustrates the recapitulation of Adam in *Totus Christus*.
[10] *En. Ps* 26.2.18 (CCL 38, 164).

Digitized by Google

This has particular application to the texts of the enormous sin-sick patient. But so, in faith and hope, do the previously mentioned passages referring to the redeemed.

A big doctor finally treats this big patient. *Magnus aegrotus – magnus* (or *maior*) *medicus*. Before coming himself, he sends his 'servants' (or in one text '*pueros suos*'), the prophets, to try to get the patient's attention and offer him advice on how to get better. Unfortunately, the assistants are ignored, so the doctor himself has to come. Here Augustine emphasizes the necessity – '*ego sum necessarius*'[11] – of the Incarnation. He does so either explicitly with *factus est homo, verbum Dei factum est* – or implicitly with *humiliavit* or simply *venit*.

Two sermons are included in the synopsis by way of comparison and contrast. In Sermon 341A, Augustine describes a 'sick' person in need of the Doctor. Augustine's more 'generic' illustration of a sin-sick person shares many common threads with the narrative of the giant patient. This is just one among many sermons describing *Christus medicus* treating a sinner. As can be seen in the synopsis, however, several elements of the story of the *magnus aegrotus* are missing. Crucially, there is no mention of immensity. On the other hand, perhaps the implications of the larger patient can be read backwards onto the smaller. It is not an overly large step in logic to consider that Augustine has in the back of his mind the story of Adam when he speaks metaphorically of any sin-sick patient.

The final sermon considered here, 366, is but one example of Augustine's exegesis of the parable of the Good Samaritan. In his interpretation, not an unusual one for the time period, the man who fell among thieves is Adam, Christ is the Samaritan, the inn is the Church. Again, many of the same elements occur as in the story of the enormous patient, particularly the description of the man lying sprawled out on the ground. The link via Adam makes the connection quite explicit. All humanity, in Adam, has been mugged by thieves, and needs to be rescued by Christ and tended to by the Church.

Where does this image of the enormous sick Adam come from? Its appearance in the midst of a sermon is at once startling and yet familiar. Seven or more times Augustine repeats this story, and yet we have extant only perhaps 5-10% of the entire corpus of sermons that he preached. The sense one gets is that the figure of this patient was well known to his congregation. Although it might seem unique to a modern reader, there is something about the regularity with which Augustine treats this *topos* that suggests it was a permanent fixture in the landscape of his imagination. It could have originated in his own fertile creativity. But a few other possibilities need to be explored.

First, scripture: the two key verses for Augustine's understanding of humanity's relationship to Adam are 1*Cor.* 15:22 and *Rom.* 5:12. The former is straightforward enough – 'In Adam all die ...' In the latter, however, Augustine

[11] *S.* 345.7.

Digitized by Google

appears to have misconstrued the antecedent of the relative pronoun '*quo*'. He interprets on a few occasions *in quo omnes peccaverunt* as 'in whom [*i.e.* Adam] all have sinned'.[12] As a result, Augustine can say not only that proleptically in Adam all of humanity dies, but also analeptically, all future sin is retrojected back to Adam.[13] These two verses are foundational for understanding the identification of Adam with the enormous patient.

Secondly, theology: just as Augustine emphasizes the corporate nature of the Body of Christ – with Christ the second Adam representing his entire Body – by extension Adam stands in (or sprawls out) for all of humanity. In both cases, the one represents the many, be it in sin or salvation. In this way his ecclesiology mirrors his anthropology. The enormous patient spread out across the earth could be a pictorial expression of the concept of *massa perditionis* or *massa damnata*: the huge lump of condemned humanity.

Thirdly, Christ the Physician of sin-sick humanity appears in numerous patristic texts. These patients tended by *Christus medicus*, however, seem to be unremarkable as to size. Research into patristic authors did not uncover any other examples of a gargantuan patient, or of descriptions of an enormous Adam, with the exception of two hymns of Ephraem the Syrian.[14] The only other references to a huge Adam appear connected to the beliefs of Gnostic groups, where the first man is often gigantic, and sometimes prostrate or crawling upon the earth.[15] It is unlikely, however, that Augustine would draw upon Gnostic resources for sermon illustrations.

Finally, could Augustine's description of the huge patient by influenced by contact with Jewish sources?[16] His mentor Ambrose appears to have been familiar with Jewish writings and interacts with some rabbinic interpretations. Augustine apparently sought out help with Hebrew vocabulary and exegesis. In various texts he alludes to Jewish oral traditions, including some haggadot.[17]

In the last column of the chart can be located material from two sources about which the bishop might have been aware. While the dating of some Jewish material is complex, the Mishnah can be comfortably placed a couple of centuries before Augustine. Numerous rabbinic, and indeed also Gnostic, traditions

[12] Hill, *Sermons (III/4): Sermons 94A-147A on the New Testament* (Hyde Park, NY, 1992), 202, n. 10.

[13] Analepsis as 'flashback', not 'restoration of health'.

[14] *Carmina Nisibena* 21.18 and 34.9. See Rudolph Arbesmann, The Concept of "Christus Medicus" in St. Augustine: *Traditio* 10 (1954) 25. The references in Ephraem were not included in the original communication. While it is a bit unlikely that Augustine had access to the *Carmina*, the parallels are nonetheless intriguing. My doctoral thesis, 'Medical Imagery in the Sermons of Augustine of Hippo' (Oxford, 2009), offers an extended and somewhat emended discussion of the topic of this communication, including analysis of Ephraem's texts.

[15] *E.g.* the Ophites/Naassenes:... *formauerunt hominem immensum latitudine et longitudine. Scarizante autem eo tantum*... (Irenaeus, *Adv. haer.* I.30.6).

[16] Indeed, some of the same Jewish sources likely influenced the various Gnostic groups.

[17] *E.g.*, *c. adu. leg.* 2.2.

Digitized by Google

abound concerning an enormous Adam. The Mishnah offers merely perhaps the earliest written Jewish source for such a description, but the remarkable height of the first man can also be located in the *Abot de-Rabbi Nathan*, which some scholars now date around the third century, with the oral and partially written tradition even earlier.[18] Various rabbis in the Talmud and midrashim describe Adam as reaching from the earth to the heaven and/or from the East to the West.[19] After his disobedience, however, in some texts Adam shrinks: God puts his hand upon him and presses him down. Afterwards, Adam's typical post-lapsarian height is given as 100 cubits – still not exactly short.[20] In some sources, Adam has a two-part creation – the first as a formless *golem* spread over the whole earth, the second imparting form.[21] In the Talmud and elsewhere, dust to form him was taken from the four corners of the earth, a further reference to his universality.[22]

Thus can be demonstrated a possible Jewish source for the idea of a huge Adam, a universal Adam. But what about a sick Adam? The only possibly Jewish reference located occurs in the *Vita Adae*. The Latin text of the pseudepigraphic *Life of Adam and Eve*, also known in some versions as the *Apocalypse of Moses*, is generally dated mid-fifth century.[23] However, the oral tradition and Greek version probably predate that. There are also Coptic, Armenian, and Slavonic manuscripts, indicating a wide-ranging interest in the story. Whether it should be more accurately described as a Jewish or Christian text, or a mixed tradition, is a matter of some debate.[24] In one of the pericopes, Adam's time has nearly run out. He falls ill and lies on his bed while his family comes to visit him and tries to figure out what is going on, as they have never before seen illness. Could Augustine have run across a version of this legend with its apt image? There is no way to be sure, but it would seem that various elements reminiscent of his imagery were in circulation.

What function does this figure of the huge patient serve? The image of the patient being visited by the doctor and cured – or resisting the doctor and becoming yet more ill – is a well-worn trope in the preaching of Augustine to urge people to recognize their condition. It also serves as a convenient polemic against various heresies with an overly optimistic theological anthropology, *e.g.* Pelagianism. Augustine also deployed it as a metaphor for the process of redemptive suffering, since, as he put it, *omnis enim uita ista nostra, infirmitas;*

[18] *Abot de-Rabbi Nathan* (B) 8, 22-23.

[19] *Babylonian Talmud, Sanhedrin* 38a-b; *Bereshit Rabbah* VIII 1.

[20] *BR* XII 6.

[21] *BR* VIII 1.

[22] *BSanh.* 38a-b.

[23] Latin text in chart from Gary A. Anderson and Michael E. Stone (eds.), *A Synopsis of the Books of Adam and Eve: Second Revised Edition* (Athens, Georgia, 1999), 30.1-5, 31.1-4.

[24] James R. Davila, *The Provenance of the Pseudepigrapha: Jewish, Christian, or Other?* (Leiden, 2005), 232f.

Digitized by Google

Synopsis of the texts for the figure of Adam as patient in the *Sermones ad populum* of Augustine

Element \ Text	87.13	114B.15 (Dolbeau 5.15)	346A.8 (Caillau 2.19.8)	175.1	340A.5 (Guelf. 32.5)	345.7 (Frang. 3.7)	374.16 (Dolbeau 23.16)	341A.1 (Mai 22.1) ('generic' example)	366.2 (Good Samaritan)	*Vita Adae* + **Talmud Bavli** (Sanhedrin 38)*
Patient	grandis aegrotus	unum grandem aegrotum, aeger, saucium, febris, etc.	aegrotum graviter, aeger, febris, etc.	magnus aegrotus	magnus aegrotus	aegrotum istum grandem	magnus aegrotus quasi homo unus	aegrotum, magnus morbus		*male mihi est doloribus, male habere, infirmitatem, dolorem magnum, infirmum*
Adam		ab Adam usque in finem, ex quo de paradiso emissi (sumus), poma noxia	ab Adam usque in finem, ex quo de paradiso emissi sumus	ex quo peccavit unus		[quasi unum hominem]	unus homo Adam propagine		primae originis dignitate	Adam
Human Race	humanum genus	genus humanum / humanum genus	genus humanum	genus humanum		genus humanum	genus humanum			
Bed	lectum aegrotantis	in magno quodam lecto	in magno quodam lecto			[hominem languidum]			[prostratus]	*in lecto tuo*
Lies	iacet	iacentem	[by implication from 'lecto' and 'iactatur']	iacebat	iacebat	distentum et iacentem	implevit, iacens	iacentem	iacebat, iacens, iacentem	*iaces*
East to West	ab oriente usque in occidentem	[echo: 'ab Adam usque in finem']	[echo: 'ab Adam usque in finem']		ab oriente usque in occidentem	ab oriente usque ad occidentem	ab oriente usque in occidentem			from one end of the world to the other, from earth to heaven
Earth	toto orbe terrarum	toto mundo	toto in mundo	per totum orbem terrae		mundus	orbem terrarum		humo	dust from all parts of earth

Digitized by Google

Element \ Text	87.13	114B.15 (Dolbeau 5.15)	346A.8 (Caillau 2.19.8)	175.1	340A.5 (Guelf. 32.5)	345.7 (Frang. 3.7)	374.16 (Dolbeau 23.16)	341A.1 (Mai 22.1) ('generic' example)	366.2 (Good Samaritan)	*Vita Adae* + Talmud Bavli (Sanhedrin 38)*
Doctor	omnipotens medicus	medicus ille magnus, peritissimus medicus, ipse medicus, asper est medicus	medicus ille magnus, peritissimus medicus, noster medicus, ipse medicus, medicus iste, medicus bonus, pius, iustus, misericors	magnus medicus	magnus medicus	medicus potens	maior medicus	ille medicus humilis	[Samaritanus]	
Assistants	prophetas ante se	servos suos, prophetas	servos suos, prophetas		pueros suos	prophetae, servi, servos suos			tuba Legis et Prophetarum	
Incarnation	humiliavit	venit, factus est homo	venit, factus est homo, particeps mortalitatis nostrae	venit de caelo	humiliatus, ipse venit	veni, ego sum necessarius		verbum Dei factum est faenum	in carne venisset	[Creation]

* In this column, citations from the Latin edition of *Vita Adae* are given in italics, and from the English translation of Sanhedrin 38 of the Babylonian Talmud in plain text.

Digitized by Google

et longa uita nihil aliud quam longa infirmitas.[25] The particular variation, however, being discussed here stands out from the rest of Augustine's references to sin-sick patients. For one, it only occurs in his homiletical works. By emphasizing the size of the patient, with the whole earth serving as a mattress, Augustine draws attention to the corporate nature of sin and the human condition, as well as the corporate solution in redemption and ongoing growth in the Body of Christ.

In conclusion, the figure of the gigantic patient occurs frequently in the preaching of Augustine – and nowhere else in Augustine or, as far as could be determined, other patristic authors, apart from perhaps Ephraem. It also follows a distinct narrative pattern, utilizing the same vocabulary and structure. The repetition may have had a rhetorical and didactic purpose, providing the bishop's audience with a vivid image for the gallery of their imagination, a picture of the first man, and in him, all humanity in the throes of a terrible illness. The paradigm is so clear that any allusions to a patient in his preaching may well have evoked this grotesque image, painting any more basic reference to a person sick with sin and in need of the Doctor with, if you will, a slightly fatter brush, identifying individuals thereby with Adam's sin and its consequences. While it cannot be definitely determined just how Augustine came up with this figure, rabbinic exegesis, pseudepigraphal stories, possibly Ephraem's poetry, alongside widespread myths and even Gnostic legends about the first man, may have been conflated into the homiletic snapshot of the ill colossus. Ultimately, however, Augustine transforms the figure and makes it his own, shaping it towards his own theological and pastoral ends.

[25] *S.* 80.2 (PL 38, 494-5).

Digitized by Google

Orality, Textuality, and the Memory of the Congregation in Augustine's Sermons

Stanley P. Rosenberg, Oxford

Candidly, Augustine confides: 'These things are in the holy, canonical books though we who preach and write do so differently than the way in which these were written. By writing we make progress. Daily we learn. We dictate while we search.'[1] Speaking, writing, dictating – these modes of episcopal communication are mediums for accessing the world of the preacher and the congregation. Yet our ability to use the first of these is constrained by materials extant, scholarly traditions, and methodological assumptions. Oral communication raises two challenges: first, discovering the ways in which dictation – as distinct from writing – shaped the formation of doctrine, education, and culture; second, uncovering the ways in which preaching can supplement or revise scholarly interpretation of the speakers and their listeners. This study briefly examines the second challenge.

It is not uncommon to focus primarily on Augustine's dogmatic works without making significant recourse to the sermons, despite their occupying the largest portion of his corpus. Recently there has been greater interest in sermons. We lack, though, an agreed methodology for handling them. Some integrate them with books but without due regard for genre.[2] While books and sermons may be used together, sermons ought to be as distinct genre and not as interesting supplements. This study follows a line of approach that uses sermons as gateways into the oral and textual cultures of both the elite and the populace of Late Antiquity.

Augustine was attentive to this issue. In a tractate on John's Gospel he expresses interest in the mode and complexity of transmission and comments that the scriptures are not the same as the Word's original teaching, having first been vocalized and retained in the memories of the disciples.[3] They transmuted

[1] *Sermones ad populum* (= s.) 162c, Dolbeau 10.15.347: *Omnia quae scripta sunt in sanctis canonicis libris nos qui disputamus et libros scribimus, longe aliter scribimus, proficiendo scribimus, cottidie discimus, scrutando dictamus, pulsando loquimur.*

[2] For example see the 1986 continuation of Quasten's *Patrology* (vol IV). The section on Augustine lists the sermons as 'Treatises'.

[3] *In Evangelium Ioannis tractatus* (= *Io. eu. tr.*) 54.8: *ut autem crederent homines quod intellegere nondum ualent, ex ore carnis uerba sonuerunt, et abierunt; transuolantes soni strepuerunt, peractis morulis temporum suorum; sed res ipsae quarum signa sunt soni, traiectae quodammodo in eorum memoriam qui audierunt, etiam ad nos per litteras quae uisibilia signa*

Studia Patristica XLIX, 169-174.
© Peeters Publishers, 2010.

Digitized by Google

the oral communication into written signs which are acquired by sight rather than the original medium of reception, hearing. Readers do not receive the words as delivered. Yet the text does not constrain or define the Truth since the interior Word teaches regardless of the medium. While Augustine's view here is not surprising, its expression in a sermon is notable and suggests that Augustine found the medium and mode of transmission significant, though ultimately deferring to the interior Word.[4] Examining this can assist us in sorting out his views on the distance separating the elite from the populace. Focusing initially on elucidating several methodological concerns, this study then briefly investigates a link between Augustine's anthropology and oral culture: memory. It purposes to discover if Augustine thought the congregation retained the teaching in a manner different from and, perhaps less able than, the learned who read books.

Late Antique society was a textually-based, oral-aural culture. The language of scripture and the Christian tradition increasingly became a fundamental carrier of culture and basis for self-identity. However, the resources within Patristic and Late Antique studies to analyze and integrate oral-aural, textual, and literate paradigms in Late Antiquity have been relatively thin. General discussion and off-hand comments about orality do appear. However, we have not adequately addressed key methodological issues.[5]

Classicists, orientalists, New Testament scholars, medievalists, and cultural anthropologists have adopted and fruitfully applied the study of orality. In Classics it began with the oral-formulaic theory of Parry (and later, Lord) who argued for a substantial difference between oral and literate experience amounting to a profound epistemological break.[6] Havelock advanced this thesis and argued that the birth of philosophy was a product of its particular written language.[7] Medievalists used this approach fruitfully; Mary Carruthers' work on memory[8] and Michael Clanchy's [9]connection between memory and text are notable. Brian Stock's[10] distinction between literacy and textuality offers a useful analogue for

sunt, peruenerunt. Non sic loquitur veritas: intellegentibus mentibus intus loquitur, sine sono instruit, intellegibili luce perfundit.

[4] Note that *notarii* recorded Augustine's extant sermons at the time of delivery and, as Augustine never edited them as he intended, these apparently preserve both the sermons as delivered as well as some of the broader interactions from his congregations; see *en. Ps.* 51.1.

[5] Studies correcting this lacuna include Michel Banniard, *Viva voce: communication écrite et communication orale du IVe au IXe siècle en occident latin* (Paris, 1992).

[6] Milman Parry, in: A. Parry (ed.), *The Making of Homeric Verse: The Collected papers of Milman Parry* (Oxford, 1971).

[7] Eric A Havelock, *The Literate Revolution in Greece and Its Cultural Consequences* (Princeton, 1982).

[8] Mary Carruthers, *The Book of Memory: a Study of Memory in Medieval Culture* (Cambridge, 1990).

[9] M.T. Clanchy, *From Memory to Written Record: 1066-1307* (Oxford, 1993).

[10] Brian Stock, *The Implications of Literacy: Written Language and Models of Interpretation in the Eleventh and Twelfth Centuries* (Princeton, 1982).

Digitized by Google

differentiating Late Antiquity and his description of textual communities[11] is particularly apt. The textual community operates when the broader community revolves around the written stories handed down and conveyed either orally or via reading. The whole community reflects something of the mind of literate culture even if many are illiterate and depend on oral means for acquiring their learning. This is exemplified in an enarration on *Psalm* 121 when Augustine urges his congregation to read the sacred text: 'By reciting it, let us make it so that it may not escape from those who have been unable or unwilling to read. Let us be their book.'[12]

A.R. Luria separately documented demonstrations of the oral-formulaic memory in Russian peasants providing some empirical basis for these theories.[13] Likewise, Walter Ong[14] famously offered an orality-literacy hypothesis which ingenuously moved the discussion forward but did not provide the fundamental empirical basis which might adequately verify his far-ranging inferences. Jack Goody's work merits review for it is influential and appears illustrative. His studies of the oral register and its evolution in the face of the new technology of literacy in Ghana appear to provide an interesting analogue for Late Antiquity.[15] He demonstrates the power of oral tradition to create a relatively homogenous culture and attributes the growth of ideology and orthodoxy to literacy; hence, doctrine is a product of written texts. Arguably, the variety of causes cannot be completely defined in a way that allows application to different societies and periods.[16] The presence of the textual background and extensive functional literacy is critical to understanding fifth-century North Africa and distinguishes this time and place from Goody's subjects.

Late Antique North Africa had a profound textual basis. Its elite either read or spent their leisure enjoying the benefits of a slave reading aloud. Rome's administrative and military apparatus operated in a literary environment. The bureaucracy, famous for record keeping, developed many enduring archival procedures to store the tax and civil records.[17] The textual basis is evident in the mentality underpinning the distribution of the published rescripts, public notices, *libelli*, and imperial letters. Commonly such imperial communications,

[11] B. Stock, *Implications* (1982), 7.

[12] *Enarrationes ad Psalmus* (= *en. Ps.*) 121.8 *forte enim etsi recens dicta est, excidit. Dicendo nos faciamus ut non escidat etiam eis qui legere non nouerunt aut noluerunt; nos simus codex ipsorum.*

[13] A.R. Luria, *Cognitive Development: its cultural and social foundations* (London, 1976).

[14] Walter Ong, *Orality and Literacy: the Technologizing of the Word* (London, 1982).

[15] See Jack Goody and I. Watt, *The Consequences of Literacy* (Cambridge, 1968); Jack Goody, *The Interface between the Written and the Oral* (Cambridge, 1987).

[16] See criticisms in David Barton and Mary Hamilton, Social and Cognitive Factors in the Historical Elaboration of Writing, in: Andrew Lock and Charles R. Peters (eds.), *Handbook of Human Symbolic Evolution* (Oxford, 1996), 793-858.

[17] See Keith Hopkins, Conquest by Book, in: J.H. Humphrey (ed.), *Literacy in the Roman World* (Ann Arbor, 1991), 133-58. Note particularly 136-42.

Digitized by Google

though proclaimed orally, were posted for reading and the administrative apparatus assumed that the recipients – whether for themselves, via the initial oral proclamation, or another person reading it on their behalf – could obtain access to the texts that governed their lives.[18]

Studies of learning have sometimes focused on narrowly construed questions of literacy and have applied labels that misinform. Ramsay MacMullen's work emphasizes the term 'audience'.[19] Arguably this term is inappropriate as it implies a grouping that is more random and disconnected such as those attending the theatre or circus. Surely this misrepresents the situation. Those who listened to preachers such as Augustine were bound together in multiple ways, on multiple levels, and by various artefacts of the culture. Shared history, rhetoric and discourse, basilicas, monasteries, martyrs, holy men and women, liturgy, sacraments, catechesis, readings of council minutes, regular teaching via sermons, and ethical practices, all served to bind the audience together into something far more formal and structured than an 'audience'.[20] These non-literary means together with the literary tools created a powerful instrument for shaping identity. In conjunction with preaching, these helped to create a more homogenous Christian culture and Roman society. The scriptures – whether read or heard – undergirded a whole system and hence were not an inconsiderable tool in creating a congregation.[21] So, then, it wasn't just the presence of a new class of rhetor-bishops who shaped a more homogenous community and culture.

Thus one should be wary of fixating on literacy as a basis to interpret the intellectual abilities of the congregations. It would be more appropriate to emphasize Late Antiquity as a literary-shaped culture. Such a culture possessed 'residual orality' as it had literary texts but operated within context of orality and was marked by oral modes of discourse, even in the formation and shaping of texts.[22] Among other forms of acquiring texts, the populace had the theatre and the pedagogy offered by the churches in its many forms. Lack of literacy, or possessing merely functional literacy, does not suggest that the congregation could not understand their preachers or substantial portions of their teaching. I am not arguing that all the members in each of Augustine's congregations were necessarily sophisticated, but do find the notion that the assembled could not understand him both curious and built on a set of ill-defined assumptions.

[18] J.F. Matthews, Eternity in Perishable Materials: Law-Making and Literate Communication in the Roman Empire, in: T.W. Hillard *et al.* (eds.), *Ancient History in a Modern University* II (Grand Rapids, 1998), 253-65, 264f.

[19] Ramsay MacMullen, The Preacher's Audience (AD 350-400): *JTS* 40 (1989) 503-11.

[20] M. Banniard, *Viva voce* (1992), 38-40; Robin Lane Fox, Literacy and Power in Early Christianity, in: A. Bowman and G. Woolf (eds.), *Literacy and Power in the Ancient World* (Cambridge, 1994), 145.

[21] See K. Hopkins, Conquest by Book (1991), 157f.

[22] W. Ong, *Orality and Literacy* (1982), 41-2.

Digitized by Google

Some have offered highly critical assessments of Augustine's ability to decipher and speak commensurately to his congregations.[23] The point here is not to offer an apologetic on Augustine's behalf but MacMullen's approach lacks clarity and an evidential base. While Augustine may not have fully judged his congregations correctly, his proximity and pastoral role betoken consideration. On the matter of memory, Augustine sermon's include suggestive comments about his congregations.

Certainly memory is vital to Augustine's anthropology, epistemology, and views on pedagogy. Examining what he thought of his congregants' memory teases out crucial notions he held about their own ability and is fruitful for elaborating the textually-based oral culture. Examining sermons from all three sermon sets and limiting them by search via combinations of terms related to memory and anthropology[24] reveals four issues.[25]

First, Augustine argues for the power and necessity of memory, a faculty the listeners possess and can use. It is not treated as the special preserve or attainment of the educated. In *s.* 212, he urges the congregation to memorize the symbol. They ought not write down the words in order to retain them but learn the symbol thoroughly by hearing and keep it in memory.[26]

Elsewhere he argues that the congregation has the ability to remember, possesses an adequate storehouse, and has the power of thought to sift through those memories (similar to his argument in book 10 of the *Confessions*): 'Look, in your mind I see two things, your memory and your thought, that is, so to speak, a kind of perception and vision of your soul. You see something; you perceive it through your eyes and you commit it to memory.'[27] He describes this faculty as a 'vision of the soul'.

Second, as in the extract from *Io. eu. tr.* 54 above, Augustine consistently argues that memory is part of their possession as image bearers. Memory is a faculty inherent to the *imago dei* and as such the interior Truth uses memory to reveal itself. *s.* 52 substantially mirrors his argument in *de Trinitate* presenting an anthropology based on the triad of memory, intellect, and will.[28]

Third, Augustine holds his listeners to account for what they have heard, as they are capable and culpable for what they have learned. *Io. eu. tr.* 75 argues for the relationship between memory and practice. Morals come from remembering and acting on what was learned orally.[29]

[23] R. MacMullen, The Preacher's Audience (1989).

[24] *Memoria, scriptura, cor, intentus, intellectum, virtus, anima,* and variants.

[25] One must of course acknowledge the very thorny problem that one cannot readily identifying the date, provence and particular audience for most of his sermons.

[26] *S.* 212.2.

[27] *Io. eu. tr.* 23.11: *Ecce in mente tua video aliqua duo, memoriam tuam et cogitationem tuam, id est, quasi aciem quamdam et obtutum animae tuae. Vides aliquid, et per oculos percipis, et commendas memoriae.*

[28] *s.* 52.19-21; see *s.* 41; *Io. eu. tr.* 96.1; *en. Ps.* 8.2; *en. Ps.* 118, *s.* 11.

[29] *Io. eu. tr.* 75.5.

Digitized by Google

Finally, there are indications of the formulaic nature of their memory. In *s.* 232.1 Augustine comments on readings of the passion from different gospels each day. While customarily the passion from *Matthew* was read, he rotated the readings. The congregation reacted negatively because the 'people did not hear what they were used to hear'. This seems reminiscent of the negative reaction in Oëa to the changes to *Jonah* 4:6 in the Vulgate.[30]

Augustine's emphasis on memory, thus, is evident in the sermons. His comments indicate that he offered no qualitative differentiation between the capability of the congregation and the readers of his dogmatic writings. This does not suggest that he thought that one lacking training in Quintilian's mnemonic methods could retain the same amount of information.[31] He does not, though, treat the congregations' memory as defective by definition and differing from the educated. All Christians possess the interior Word. In this instance, there is no gap between the populace and the elite.

Representations of Augustine in Western art typically emphasize the author. Few, like Bernini, emphasize the preacher. Given that the extant sermons make up a very substantial portion of his works, Bernini had it right. This is the image that best expresses the work of Augustine and provides a sound basis for understanding both him and his congregations in the oral, textually-shaped culture of Late Antique North Africa.

[30] *ep.* 71.3,5.
[31] See *s.* 1.5.

Digitized by Google

Poverty as a Social Issue in Augustine's Homilies

Geoffrey D. Dunn, Brisbane

A reading of the more than five hundred surviving *Sermones ad populum* of Augustine of Hippo Regius reveals frequent references to poverty and wealth. Many are simply exegetical comments. Others are hortatory appeals either to engage more in almsgiving, or to be content and not envious or proud if they were poor, in which Augustine constructed caricatures with which he hoped the relevant parts of his congregation would identify. It seems that he provides us with very little concrete information about the social realities of wealth and poverty. This paper aims at examining that information in order to comment on how important the social issue of poverty was to Augustine.[1]

Augustine's hortatory success depended on the extent to which the images he constructed matched what his congregation knew or believed to be true.[2] It would have been unlikely for there to be a positive impact from words: 'Don't disdain and ignore the poor, who have nowhere to go home to, have nowhere to take shelter ...'[3] if a significant number of those listening knew or even believed that the poor did have homes, however rudimentary. When he said that people sometimes give alms to beggars not from pure motives but from the selfish desire to appear good,[4] we can conclude that some degree of almsgiving took place or else his congregation could not have been convinced by what Augustine said. Aristotle had observed: '... true and better ones [facts] are by nature always more productive of good syllogisms and, in a word, more persuasive.'[5]

[1] Richard Finn, Portraying the Poor: Descriptions of Poverty in Christian Texts from the Late Roman Empire, in: Margaret Atkins and Robin Osborne (eds.), *Poverty in the Roman World* (Cambridge, 2006), 130-44, 132, offers some examples from *en. Ps.*

[2] Quintilian, *Inst.* 2.17.29 and, more bluntly, 2.17.36.

[3] Augustine, *s.* 41.6 (NBA 29, 738): *Nolite contemnere pauperes, non habentes quo redeant, non habentes quo intrent.* Engl. transl. from Edmund Hill (transl.), *The Works of Saint Augustine: A Translation for the 21st Century*, part 3: *Sermons*, vol. 2: *Sermons 20-50* (New York, 1990).

[4] Augustine, *s.* 37.6 (NBA 29, 664).

[5] Aristotle, *Rh.* 1.1.12 (1355a37-8): '... ἀλλ' ἀεὶ τἀληθῆ καὶ τὰ βελτίω τῇ φύσει εὐσυλλογιστότερα καὶ πιθανώτερα ὡς ἁπλῶς εἰπεῖν.' Engl. transl. from George A. Kennedy (transl.), *Aristotle, On Rhetoric: A Theory of Civic Discourse* (Oxford, 1991). For discussion see: Christopher Carey, Rhetorical Means of Persuasion, in: Ian Worthington (ed.), *Persuasion: Greek Rhetoric in Action* (London and New York, 1994), 34-43; Eckart Schütrumpf, Some Observations on the Introduction to Aristotle's *Rhetoric*, in: David J. Furley and Alexander Nehamas (eds.), *Aristotle's* Rhetoric: *Philosophical Essays* (Princeton, 1994), 100-3; Jürgen Sprute, Aristotle and

Studia Patristica XLIX, 175-179.
© Peeters Publishers, 2010.

Digitized by Google

Yet, part of the art of oratory was to exaggerate, generalise or endorse commonly held opinions and stereotypes in order to persuade.[6] Thus, Augustine could characterise both rich and poor alike as always wanting more material wealth. One assumes that Augustine returned to this topic frequently because he suspected that most in his congregation would have considered his words about the dangers of avarice as not being directed towards themselves but to those who were richer than they. Whether or not people actually were greedy was not the issue; Augustine wanted his congregation to believe that they were. He targeted most of his congregation, for everyone had a contribution to make in helping the poor.[7] Michael de Vinne points out that preachers had to concoct scenes verbally about the plight of the poor because congregations would not see such scenes visually for themselves.[8] One of the problems for contemporary scholarship is in determining the extent to which these constructed scenes are a rhetorical *topos* or contain specific factual evidence.

While many of Augustine's comments must be grounded in reality, they may not be all that helpful in determining the precise details concerning the rich and poor. When Augustine observed that buying corn was cheaper than buying a farm, which was cheaper than buying a pearl – all said in the context of acquiring charity as a virtue at the highest cost, which is one's self – we cannot tell whether the bishop had accurate knowledge about the relative market value of farms and pearls or was just repeating a commonly-held opinion regardless of its veracity.[9] What Augustine or his community believed to be true (or what he wanted them to believe to be true) might not have been so in reality. The only way to resolve that dilemma is by finding comments where it is evident that Augustine's rhetorical agenda is not to the fore.

The reality is that we find very little such evidence. An exception is at the end of *Sermo* 61, considered by most scholars to have been preached between 412 and 416 in Hippo after he had been away.[10] At the end of it the bishop

the Legitimacy of Rhetoric, in: *ibid.* 118-27; Eugene Garver, *Aristotle's* Rhetoric: *An Art of Character* (Chicago and London, 1994), 109-12; Jacques Brunschwig, Aristotle's Rhetoric as a 'Counterpart' to Dialectic, in: Amélie Oksenberg Rorty (ed.), *Essays on Aristotle's* Rhetoric, Philosophical Traditions 6 (Berkeley, 1996), 45-51; and Robert Wardy, Mighty Is the Truth and It Shall Prevail?, in: *ibid.* 56-87. Quintilian, *Inst.* 2.10.4, would go on to urge: *Sint ergo et ipsae materiae, quae fingentur, quam simillimae veritatis* ...

[6] Cicero, *De or.* 2.7.30.

[7] *E.g.*, Augustine, *s.* 85 (NBA 30/1, 648-56); 91.7.9 (NBA 30/2, 128-30); 102.4.5 (NBA 30/2, 258); 107A.8 (NBA 30/2, 348-50).

[8] Michael de Vinne, *The Advocacy of Empty Bellies: Episcopal Representation of the Poor in the Late Roman Empire*, PhD diss. (Stanford, 1995), 6.

[9] Augustine, *s.* 34.7 (NBA 29, 628).

[10] A. Kunzelmann, Die Chronologie der Sermones des hl. Augustinus, in: *Miscellanea Agostiniana*, vol. 2: *Studi Agostiniani* (Rome, 1931), 465; Othmar Perler, L'église principale et les autres sanctuaires chrétiens d'Hippone-la-Royale d'après les textes de saint Augustin: *Revue des Études Augustiniennes* 1 (1955) 299-343, at 340; Hermann Josef Frede, *Kirchenschriftsteller.*

Digitized by Google

informed his congregation why he had preached about almsgiving in the light of *Matth.* 7:7-11 about asking and receiving. Augustine was more passionate than usual[11] because, since his return, poor people had been approaching him as he made his way to and from his church, begging him to get his congregation to do something.[12] After having addressed his congregation already to little effect, Augustine intensified the exhortation to Christian almsgiving not only because the congregation was not responding, but because this failure made him appear ineffectual. He said: 'They have urged me to speak to you; and when they see they are not getting anything from you, they come to the conclusion that I am laboring among you to no purpose.'[13]

This is not some generalised *topos*; this is a concrete reference to a specific incident involving the poor. These *pauperes* appear to have been the destitute who depended for their very survival upon begging.[14] We are not told whether these poor were Christians or not. Augustine's words, 'give to the poor whatever you like ...'[15] suggests that the bishop presumed a direct channelling of welfare and that those within the church walls were of varying capacities to help the poor. This homily is an example of the distorted and polarized image of late antique society about which Peter Brown wrote.[16] We cannot tell from this homily whether the rich, whom Augustine urged to give from their superfluities to provide the poor with their necessities,[17] were the truly rich or whether Augustine believed that everyone before him was rich in comparison with the *pauperes* and could make some charitable contribution, no matter how small. Augustine was not interested in precise definitions of the *pauperes*; for him,

Verzeichnis und Sigel, Vetus Latina. Die Reste der altlateinischen Bibel 1/1 (Freiburg, 1995[4]), 224; Anne-Marie la Bonnardière, *Le livre de Jérémie*, Biblia Augustiniana, A.T. (Paris, 1972); Edmund Hill (transl.), *The Works of Saint Augustine: A Translation for the 21st Century*, part 3: *Sermons*, vol. 3: *Sermons (51-94) on the New Testament* (New York, 1991), 149, n. 1. See Pierre-Patrick Verbraken, *Études critiques sur les sermons authentiques de saint Augustin*, Instrumenta Patristica 12 (Steenbrugge, 1976), 68. This is an occasion where the caution of Hubertus Drobner, The Chronology of Augustine's *Sermones ad populum* III: On Christmas Day: *Augustinian Studies* 35 (2004) 43-53, at 48, about the possibility of dating a homily because of a similarity between its content and the treatment of a topic in dated treatise is well made.

[11] Augustine, *s.* 61.12.13 (NBA 30/1, 242): *Date ergo pauperibus: rogo, moneo, praecipio, iubeo.*

[12] Augustine, *s.* 61.12.13 (NBA 30/1, 242). Peter Brown, *Poverty and Leadership in the Later Roman Empire*, The Menahem Stern Jerusalem Lectures (Hanover and London, 2002), 134, n. 84, identifies this as *s.* 41.7.

[13] Augustine, *s.* 61.12.13 (NBA 30/1, 242): *Nos monuerunt loqui vobis: et cum se vident non accipere a vobis, inaniter nos arbitrantur laborare in vobis.* Engl. transl. from Hill, *Sermons* 3 (1991).

[14] If we accept R. Finn, Portraying the Poor (2006), 136, Augustine's reluctance to call the poor who begged *mendici* was because of the negative reaction one would have expected in the congregation.

[15] Augustine, *s.* 61.12.13 (NBA 30/1, 242): *Quidquid vultis date pauperibus.*

[16] P. Brown, *Poverty and Leadership* (2002), 46-9.

[17] Augustine, *s.* 61.11.12 (NBA 30/1, 242).

Digitized by Google

they were anyone worse off than oneself. He wanted none of his congregation to consider themself as *pauper* no matter how materially deprived. Equally for him, a rich person was anyone who could help someone else, and that included just about everybody. In vain do we look through Augustine's homilies for the kind of evidence that would distinguish categories of poor.[18]

The other additional concrete information Augustine provides us here is that he himself gave what he could to those poor. 'They also expect to get something from me. I give as much as I have, I give what I can, but I'm hardly in a position, am I, to meet all their needs.'[19] This homily gives no evidence of any ecclesially organised charity. Augustine refers only to individual acts of charity – his own and that which he urged his congregation to perform.[20]

We may turn our attention briefly to *Sermo* 107A.[21] Hill believes that it was probably addressed to a rural congregation within Augustine's diocese in the years after the Donatist controversy had been resolved, between 413 and 420.[22] Augustine was preaching on the passage in *Luke* where one brother asks Jesus to tell his brother to divide their inheritance with him and Jesus responds with a warning about greed. Augustine told the congregation that they should be grateful that they were poor.[23] It is on this basis that Hill concludes that this could have been a rural community to whom Augustine was preaching. Yet how poor were they? Augustine went on to talk about the poor on the road travelling hungry. Were many in this community to identify with this because they did not get enough to eat or believed that they did not get enough?

Then Augustine told a story about an incident that had occurred.[24] A man of modest means sold a property to support his household. From the proceeds he gave one hundred *folles* to the poor, but the rest, intended for his own use was then stolen. The man's conclusion was that if he had given all the proceeds to the poor he would have lost nothing. Yet we cannot tell whether this story is

[18] Anneliese Ruth Parkin, *Poverty in the early Roman Empire: Ancient and modern conceptions and constructs*, PhD diss. (Cambridge, 2001), 7f., 11f.

[19] Augustine, *s.* 61.12.13 (NBA 30/1, 242): *Exspectant aliquid et a nobis. Damus quantum habemus, damus sicut possumus: numquid tamen ad eorum necessitatem implendam idonei sumus?*

[20] Richard Finn, *Almsgiving in the Later Roman Empire: Christian Promotion and Practice 313-450*, Oxford Classical Monographs (Oxford, 2006), 40, 46f. For Augustine to refer to organised charity would encourage people not to give directly to the poor as well as whatever they gave to the church for that purpose.

[21] Augustine, *s.* 107A (NBA 30/2, 336-50 = Lambot 5).

[22] Edmund Hill (transl.), *The Works of Saint Augustine: A Translation for the 21st Century*, part 3: *Sermons*, vol. 4: *Sermons (94A-147A) on the New Testament* (New York, 1992), 125, n. 1. Cyrille Lambot, Nouveaux sermons de saint Augustin. I-III, *De lectione evangelii*: *Revue Bénédictine* 49 (1937) 233-78, offered no opinion about its date. See P. Verbraken, *Études critiques* (1976), 168.

[23] Augustine, *s.* 107A.5 (NBA 30/2, 344).

[24] Augustine, *s.* 107A.6 (NBA 30/2, 346).

Digitized by Google

fiction or fact. To whatever extent the audience were poor he urged them to give to the poor: 'It doesn't mean, after all, that if you only give a little from the little that you have, what you give is only treated as being little.'[25] This community was urged to identify itself with the widow in *Lk.* 21:1-4. It is not the quantity given that is important but the spirit in which it is given. There are many unanswered questions: was one hundred bronze coins a standard or generous amount to give to the poor and how many poor people would it have supported?

One suspects that Augustine was playing up the community's poverty to make the point that, since even the poor can help the poor, this community too has no excuse not to help. Even a cup of cold water – and the temperature was taken as an indication that the person giving it did not have the resources to heat it first – was a worthwhile donation. Indeed, even feelings of peace and love towards others, which cost nothing, could be considered almsgiving.[26] Poor though this community was held to be, they were in the process of building themselves a church, which must mean that they were not entirely destitute.[27]

Augustine touched on the issue of whether diverting funds from almsgiving for the construction of a place of worship could be justified. He said that the church would be for themselves while the poor would come and go. Then he ended by saying that they could turn their bodies into houses of prayer, suggesting that it was unnecessary to spend their money on this construction project. What Augustine's position was on this question is hard to determine from these fleeting comments.

The point to be made with *Sermones* 61 and 107A is that it is hard to tell the extent to which Augustine provides us with any concrete facts about the rich and the poor in late antique North African society. Although only about a third of Augustine's homilies have been taken into account in the preparation of this paper, the results for such specific evidence are indeed slim. Augustine believed that his theological agenda was more important than any socio-economic reality. He did not provide much by way of details about the poor for, if he had, that would define them too narrowly for his purpose, which was to promote the spiritual virtue of humility in part through the practice of almsgiving, an activity in which no one was too poor to participate.

[25] Augustine, *s.* 107A.7 (NBA 30/2, 346): *Non enim, si parum dederis ex parvo quod habes, parum acceptatur quod dederis.*

[26] Augustine, *s.* 107A.8 (NBA 30/2, 348). This occurs frequently in Augustine's homilies.

[27] Augustine, *s.* 107A.9 (NBA 30/2, 350).

Digitized by Google

Digitized by Google

The Position of Gentiles and Pagans and Their Relation to Grace in Augustine's *sermones ad populum*

Anthony DUPONT, Leuven

Augustine referred in two ways, and on two levels, to gentiles (*gens*, *gentes*, *gentiles*) and pagans (*pagani*) in his *sermones ad populum*.[1] Firstly, there were the pagans of his time, distinct from Christians, with whom he was entangled in discussion and controversy. Secondly, Augustine spoke about the 'eschatological gentiles': those before the coming of Christ, and the converted pagans of the *ecclesia gentium* after the coming of Christ.

1. Contemporary paganism

1.1. *Negative perception of contemporary paganism*

Augustine entered into debate with paganism of his time, also in his *sermones*, including topics such as Christ's incarnation,[2] the forgiveness of sins,[3] and the causes of the fall of Rome.[4] He urged his congregation to withdraw from pagan feasts, customs and practices.[5]

[1] Henry Chadwick, Augustin et les païens, in: Goulven Madec (ed.), *Augustin Prédicateur (395-411). Actes du Colloque International de Chantilly (5-7 septembre 1996)* (Paris, 1996), 323-6; Wolfgang Hübner, art. Gentes: *AL* III/1-2 (2004), 140-7; André Mandouze, Saint Augustin et la religion romaine: *Recherches Augustiniennes* 1 (1958) 187-223; Aimé Solignac, Le salut des païens d'après la prédication d'Augustin, in: G. Madec, *Augustin Prédicateur* (1996), 419-28.

See also: François Bovon, *De Vocatione Gentium: Histoire de l'interprétation d'Act. 10, 1-11, 18 dans les six premiers siècles* (Tübingen, 1967); Paul Hacker, The Religions of the Gentiles as viewed by Fathers of the Church: *Zeitschrift für Missionswissenschaft und Religionswissenschaft* 54 (1970) 253-78; Johann Riedl, Röm 2, 14ff. und das Heil der Heiden bei Augustinus und Thomas: *Scholastik* 40 (1965) 189-213.

[2] Augustine, *s.* 159B.12. See Josef Lössl, *Intellectus gratiae: Die erkentnistheoretische und hermeneutische Dimension der Gnadenlehre Augustins von Hippo* (Leiden, 1997), 154-67; G. Madec, Le Christ des païens d'après le «de consensu euangelistarum» de saint Augustin: *Recherches Augustiniennes* 26 (1992) 3-67.

[3] *s.* 352.9.

[4] *s.* 23B; 105.12; 296.9.

See: Claude Lepelley, L'aristocratie lettrée païenne: une menace aux jeux d'Augustin, in: G. Madec, *Augustin Prédicateur* (1996), 327-42; Stefanie A.H. Kennell, Ut adhuc habeat fides nostra reprobatores: Augustine's Hostile Hearers, in: *ibid.* 343-52.

[5] *s.* 62.11. See *s.* 77A.4; 196.4; 198.1; 279.13; 293B.5; 311.5; 360B.22; 391.1.

Studia Patristica XLIX, 181-196.
© Peeters Publishers, 2010.

Digitized by Google

Augustine's negative perception of paganism was founded upon the fundamental opposition he perceived between pagans and Christians, namely between an earthly and a heavenly orientation. Christians followed God, the heavenly, the spiritual, while pagans followed the earthly, the material, themselves.[6] This earthly attitude of pagans culminated in their idolatry, venerating creatures instead of the Creator.[7]

1.1.1. *Sermo* 198[8]

We find all of these elements returning in a more condensed form in two *sermones contra paganos.*

In the long *s.* 198 Augustine reacted against the pagan accusation that Christians venerated idols.[9] As a reply, he argued vehemently against pagan idolatry, against worshipping creatures instead of the Creator.[10] Pagan idolatry is an expression of their earthly orientation and an attestation of their pride. Accepting the notion of creation, pagans were aware of the Creator, but due to their *superbia* they attributed everything to their own capacities.[11] Pagan pride comes in two forms: (1) Philosophers trusting their own capacities, as if they do not need a *mediator.* Augustine however explained that nobody can be liberated without *confiteri* their own sins and without Christ the *mediator.* (2) The use of magic to attain God.[12] Although these pagans realize that there is a God with whom they have to be reconciled, in their *superbia* they still trust self-confidently in their own powers to achieve this. Others look for a *mediator,* but are looking amongst the demons, searching for a false *mediator,* since Christ is the only true – royal and divine – *mediator.*[13] Reacting against pagan *superbia,* Augustine emphasized the *humilitas* of the incarnation.[14] For this reason Christians, in following Christ, have to be humble. Pagans love the world and not Christ.[15] In this respect, bad Christians resemble pagans. They do not put Christ but their own lusts at the centre of their lives.[16] Pagans as such were not

[6] *s.* 23B.14; 72.16; 177.2; 198.2; 296.9; 335K.5; 360B.22; 361.4.

[7] *s.* 23B.3-4; 223A.4; 273.3; 273.6-7.

[8] *s.* 198 = *s.* Dolbeau 26, Mainz 62. See Jakob Schneid, Les réjouissances des calendes de janvier d'après le sermon Dolbeau 26. Nouvelles lumières sur une fête mal connue, in: G. Madec, *Augustin Prédicateur* (1996), 353-65; Robert Dodaro, Christus sacerdos: Augustine's preaching against pagan priests in the light of S. Dolbeau 26 and 23, in: *ibid.* 377-93.

[9] Peter Brown, Augustine and the practice of the imperiti. Qui adorant columnas in ecclesia (S. Dolbeau 26.10.232), in: G. Madec, *Augustin Prédicateur* (1996), 367-75.

[10] *s.* 198.17.

[11] *s.* 198.29-32.

[12] *s.* 198.36. See *s.* 198.58-59.

[13] *s.* 198.37. See *s.* 198.39.41.49.50.51.53; Jean Pépin, Falsi mediatores duo. Aspects de la médiation dans le sermon d'Augustin Contra paganos (S. Dolbeau 26), in: G. Madec, *Augustin Prédicateur* (1996), 395-417; A. Solignac, Le salut des païens (1996), 420-5.

[14] *s.* 198.60.62.

[15] *s.* 198.1-3.8.

[16] *s.* 198.9.

Digitized by Google

rebuked by Augustine, only their earthly orientation. Christians are allowed to have contact with pagans, but they have to make sure to maintain a separation *mentis*.[17] Augustine asked his faithful to grieve, out of *compassio*, over the bad deeds of the pagans and to pray for them.[18] Christians have to arm themselves against the pagans, by praying in the right way, fastening and almsgiving, so that the pagans might get to know God and worship Him as He deserves to be worshipped.[19]

Besides the grace theme in treating the pagan *superbia* this *sermo* contains several explicit references to grace. The conversion of *gentes* to Christianity was an example of God's grace. *Saluantur autem qui congregantur de gentibus, saluantur salute fidei, salute spiritali, salute promissorum Dei, salute spei bonae, salute sincerissimae caritatis.*[20] Christ had to suffer in order for gentiles to be converted, to buy them back, and to enable them to become Christian.[21]

This *sermo* highlights the redemptive nature of Christ's death on the cross. Christ took our flesh, and, being himself sinless, He carried our sin. He had no debt to death, but paid what He did not owe, in order to pay our debt.[22] Reacting against pagan *superbia*, Augustine emphasized the *humilitas* of the incarnation and the salvation that came precisely from that incarnation.[23] Pagans have a certain spirituality, but because of their pride, it is one without grace. From the mountain of their pride, they see the *patria* on another mountain, but they do not descend to the valley of humility.[24] God is faithful (1*Cor.* 10:13). *[...] consolans nos in omnibus et implens gaudio spei bonae, donec perducat quo ducit uia quam nostrae infirmitati praebere dignatus est.*[25]

[17] *s.* 198.2.

[18] *s.* 198.8.

[19] *s.* 198.58.

[20] *s.* 198.2; François Dolbeau, *Augustin d'Hippone. Vingt-six sermons au peuple d'Afrique* (Paris, 1996), 366-67 (12-4); *s.* 198.2: '... those who are gathered from among the Gentiles are made safe with the soundness of faith, the soundness of hope, the soundness of the most genuine charity, a spiritual soundness, the utterly reliable soundness of the promises of God.' Edmund Hill (transl., notes), John E. Rotelle (ed.), *Sermons III/6. On the Liturgical Seasons (184-229z)* (New York, 1993), 73. E. Hill (transl., notes), J. E. Rotelle (ed.), *Sermons III/11. Newly Discovered Sermons* (New York, 1997), 180.

[21] *s.* 198.5.

[22] *s.* 198.5. See 1*Pt.* 2:24; *Is.* 53:4.12.

[23] *s.* 198.60.62. See *s.* 198.43; 'notons [...] dans ce grand *Tractatus contra paganos* la genèse de [...] la réaction d'Augustin devant la *superbia* des nobles lettrés païens annonce sa future attitude devant les pélagiens, qui devaient également se vouloir une élite morale et religieuse, [...].' C. Lepelley, L'aristocratie lettrée païenne (1996), 341f.

[24] *s.* 198.59.

[25] *s.* 198.63. F. Dolbeau (1996), 417 (1542-3). *s.* 198.63: 'Thus he comforts us in all circumstances, and fills us with the joy of good hope (*Wis.* 12:19), until he brings us through to the place we are being led to, by the way which he has in his gracious goodness provided for our weakness.' E. Hill, *Sermons III/11* (1997), 228.

Digitized by Google

Augustine's preaching on divine grace was combined with an appeal to a moral life. Christians should avoid sin. Against the waves of the sea of this world, they have to use good works to pump out the bilge. They should let the wounds of daily sins be cured with the remedies of alms, fastening and prayer.[26] In doing so, they give the pagans the opportunity to come to know God, to honour Him as He should be honoured.[27] Augustine asked to love what was promised (eternal life) and to fear what was threatened with (eternal fire). Who lives morally out of fear, is a slave. Who does this with love, is a free person. Fear comes first, *caritas* only afterwards, *caritas* that reduces fear and makes fear disappear. Good deeds are rewarded with a prize, bad behaviour is punished.[28]

1.1.2. *Sermo* 360A

Sermo 360A was a call to pagans to convert themselves, but it was also directed to Donatists. Pagans should not be angry that things happened which they disliked, such as the disappearing of the pagan cult, since this meant that God was fulfilling his promises. The fault, the offence of the pagans is actually not as grave as that of the Donatists. Pagans unknowingly do not believe, while Donatists have all the material sources at their disposal to embrace the orthodox faith.[29]

The theme of grace featured particularly at the beginning of this sermon. 'God's promises were the foundation of faith for our ancestors, and God's gifts are the fulfillment of faith for us.'[30] The Church was given the means to please God. The sins of Christians were forgiven, not by their own merit, but by the gift of God.[31] Augustine elaborated further on the distinction he made: in the past, Jews had grace while other nations did not; nowadays this is the other way around:

> The whole world was bare of Christians, and dry for lack of grace. There was one people worshipping God, sprung from the fleshly stock of Abraham by descent through the generations. This people comprised many saints, prophets, just men, patriarchs, our ancestors; in it grace was to be found in the worship of God, and the merit that deserved and hope that looked forward to receiving a reward.[32] And this was one nation among

[26] *s.* 198.56.

[27] *s.* 198.58.

[28] *s.* 198.4.

[29] *s.* 360A.5 = *s.* Dolbeau 24. Mainz 60.

[30] *s.* 360A.1. E. Hill, *Sermons III/11* (1997), 354. *s.* 360A.1: *Fidem parentibus nostris Dei promissa fecerunt, fidem nobis Dei dona impleuerunt.* F. Dolbeau (1996), 232 (3-4).

[31] *s.* 360A.2.

[32] This is a significant sentence. Augustine sees *patres nostri* as belonging to Abraham's stock according to the flesh (instead of a spiritual belonging) and talks in a rather 'Pelagian' way about *sancti* and *iusti* of the Jewish people (in the Old Testament, before Christ). Augustine however does not give further explanations about his assertions. There is a *consensus* to date this sermon between 399 and 405 (probably 30/6/404).

Digitized by Google

all nations, with the whole world otherwise being devoid of this grace. Come now to our times; that nation alone has remained in drought for lack of this grace, and the rest of the world has been well watered.[33]

According to Augustine this change between Jews and gentiles in their relation towards grace could be allegorically read in the *Book of Judges*, namely in the sign asked by Gideon. Augustine explained that the sign given did not really suit the particular situation of Gideon, but that it foretold the future. The first sign: the woolen fleece (metaphor for the Jewish people) was wet of rain, the threshing floor (metaphor for the world) dry. This sign metaphorically indicated that the Jews possessed grace, while all (other) nations were without it. Grace was to be found 'IN the fleece': faith was not manifest but hidden. Wringing out the fleece symbolized the suffering and the humility of Christ. Afterwards the water was tossed away outside: they threw away Christ, grace, making it possible that his humility would spread further, to all nations. This was the second sign given to Gideon, the symbols were now reversed: dry fleece, wet threshing floor. Jews no longer did have grace, but the rest of the world did. This faith was not hidden but openly manifest, proclaimed to and known by all.[34]

1.2. *A positive perception of contemporary paganism*

Augustine's approach towards contemporary paganism was not always negative. Despite his rejection of their '(a-)religious attitude', the basis of his positive approach towards pagans consisted in his constant hope that pagans eventually would convert. For this reason Augustine asked to pray and fast, for pagans as well as for Christians gone astray,[35] to encourage others to convert by way of exemplary lifestyles, and not to prevent possible conversions by treating pagans negatively,[36] but to speak actively to pagans about Christ.[37]

Here we touch upon the connection between 'contemporary pagans' and 'eschatological gentiles'. Pagans have the ability to convert, precisely because God has created them. Also pagans, 'godless people' and 'enemies of the Church'

[33] *s.* 360A.3. E. Hill, *Sermons III/11* (1997), 355.

s. 360A, 3: *Orbis terrarum christianis nudus erat et inopia gratiae siccus erat. Vnus populus Deum colens, natus ex Abraham stirpe carnis et serie generationis; in quo populo erant multi sancti, prophetae, iusti, patriarchae, patres nostri; ibi gratia in colendo Deo, et meritum promerendi et spes accipiendi mercedem. Et haec una gens erat inter omnes gentes, ab hac gratia uacuo toto orbe terrarum. Ventum est ad nostra tempora: gens illa una ab hac gratia sicca remansit, et irrigatus est orbis terrarum*, REAug 37 (1991) 44 (44-50); F. Dolbeau (1996), 234 (44-50).

[34] *Judg.* 6:38. *s.* 360A.3.

[35] *s.* 341.26.

[36] *s.* 178.5; 400.9.

[37] *s.* 306B.7. See *s.* 3.2.

Digitized by Google

are created by God, even though they do not belong to his flock. Augustine said in the anti-Pelagian *s.* 26: *Communis est omnibus natura, non gratia.*[38] All men have the same nature in common, but not the same *gratia*. The grace which established human nature, by which human beings are created, is common to Christians and pagans. The greater grace, however, is the one which makes Christians believers, and this, pagans do not have in common with Christians.[39] Augustine repeated this assertion explicitly in *s.* 348A.9 against the Pelagians. When Pelagians talked about *gratia*, they only referred to creational grace: the grace all people received by being created. This Pelagian concept of grace Christians have in common with pagans. Pelagians refused, according to Augustine, to consider another kind of grace: the grace that makes it possible for Christians to be Christian.[40] Pagans, just as Christians, just as every man, are created good. They can convert. Moreover, they should not despair; their blasphemy will be forgiven in baptism.[41] This conversion however, as will be shown later on, requires grace.

2. Eschatological

2.1. *Negative eschatological perception – Before the coming of Christ*

Pagan philosophers did not have the prophets or the Law. God however spoke silently to them *through* his works and the beauty of the world, inviting them to find the *auctor* of all of this. By studying the work of creation, the *sapientes gentium* could have discovered the Creator. However, they did not.[42] *Gentes* did not deduce the Creator and his Laws from creation. They proudly attributed everything to their own merits. If they would have recognized Him humbly, they would have been saved. For this reason, God made them into worshippers of demons. They venerated idols, creatures. These sins were the result of their pride; these sins were sin and punishment at the same time.[43] Consequently, when Christ came to earth, He found only sinful people, people to condemn, Jews as well as gentiles.[44]

[38] *s.* 26.4. CCL 41, 350 (78-79).

[39] *s.* 26.7. See *s.* 26.5.

[40] *s.* 348A.9. Regarding *s.* 26.4; 26.6: 'In Abgrenzung gegen den pelagianischen 'gratia'-Begriff heißt es: Obwohl auch die Heiden durch Christus geschaffen sind, gibt es keine gemeinsame Gnade für Christen und Nichtchristen; deshalb unterscheidet A. bei der Auslegung von Rm 2, 14 gegen den eigentlichen Sinn zwischen 'Heidenchristen' und unbegnadeten gentes.' W. Hübner, art. Gentes (2004), 145.

[41] *s.* 71 *passim.*

[42] *s.* 241.1. See *s.* 198.

[43] *s.* 197.1.

[44] *s.* 32.12.

Digitized by Google

2.2. *Positive eschatological perception – After the coming of Christ*

2.2.1. Conversion of *gentes*

Gentiles however did not remain in their non-recognition of God. They converted, were cleansed of their previous sins and became part of the Church.[45] Even more, at present mainly (converted) gentiles constitute the Church. The Church, just as Noah constructed his Ark with wood, was built by Christ from the forests of the gentiles.[46] The theme of pagan conversion was indicated by four allegorical images: the healing of the woman who kept bleeding,[47] the Canaanite woman,[48] the pagan centurion Cornelius,[49] and the donkey on which Christ entered Jerusalem.[50] The prayers of the Israelites in Babylon portended the conversion of the gentiles.[51] Prophets, by the way, foretold that gentiles would come to faith, and Christ also spoke about His 'other sheep' (*John* 10:16).[52]

Ergo audite ipsam unitatem uehementius commendatam: «habeo», inquit, «alias oues, quae non sunt de hoc ouili». Loquebatur enim primo ouili de genere carnis Israel. Erant autem alii de genere fidei ipsius Israel, et extra erant adhuc, in gentibus erant, praedestinati, nondum congregati. Hos nouerat qui praedestinauerat: nouerat qui redimere sanguine suo fuso uenerat. Videbat eos, nondum uidentes eum: nouerat eos, nondum credentes in eum. «Habeo», inquit, «alias oues, quae non sunt de hoc ouili»: quia non sunt de genere carnis Israel. Sed tamen non erunt extra hoc ouile, quia «oportet me eas adducere, ut sit unus grex et unus pastor».[53]

That the conversion of *gentes* was and is the work of God's grace was explicitly stated three times in the *sermones*.[54]

[45] *s.* 149.7.

[46] *s.* 114B.2.

[47] *Lk.* 8:43-6. *s.* 63A.2-3; 63B.3; 78.2; 299B.5; 299C.5; 375C.6.

[48] *Mt.* 15:21-8. *s.* 60A.2; 77.1; 77.12; 121.3; 154A.5; 203.2; 218A.2. The Canaanite woman as *figura* of the Church: *s.* 26.2; 77.7; 88.11. See Anne-Marie La Bonnardière, La Chananéenne: Préfiguration de l'Église des Gentils d'après saint Augustin: *Augustinus* 12 (1967) 209-38, 213f.

[49] *Acts* 10:24. *s.* 99.12; 266.6-7; 269.2. See *Matth.* 8:8-10 in *s.* 77.12; 88.10.

[50] *Matth.* 21:2-3. *s.* 359B.11.

[51] *s.* 51.14.

[52] *s.* 60A.2.

[53] *s.* 138.5. PL 38, 765-6 (50-7); *s.* 138.5: 'So listen to this unity being even more urgently drawn to your attention: "I have other sheep", he says, "who are not of this fold". He was talking, you see, to the first sheepfold of the race of Israel according to the flesh. But there were others, of the race of the same Israel according to faith, and they were still outside, they were of the Gentiles, predestined but not yet gathered in. He knew those whom he had predestined; he knew those whom he had come to redeem by shedding his blood. He was able to see them, while they couldn't yet see him; he knew them, though they didn't yet believe in him.' E. Hill (transl., notes), J.E. Rotelle (ed.), *Sermons III/4. On the New Testament (94A-147A)* (New York, 1992), 387f.

[54] Coming to faith is always grace according to Augustine. *s.* 360B, a sermon preached with pagans present in the church, applies this general grace topic on the specific condition of pagans. A believer is sick, but already allowed the therapy by Christus *Medicus*. Gentiles however are still refusing the physician (*s.* 360B.16.19).

Digitized by Google

Augustine preached in *s.* 113A.7 on God's calling of the *gentes*. The coming, passion and resurrection of Christ took place as the fulfillment of a promise (and as such the payment of a debt) towards the Jews. Towards the gentiles, God, however, was not in debt because of a promise made earlier. That *gentes* came to God, *i.e.* converted themselves, was because they were called by God, and therefore the result of divine grace.[55]

Abraham's real children are all who imitate his actions, not only Jews but also converted pagans. Gentiles receive grace, a grace that transforms them into children of God.[56]

Gentile conversion is the result of the *misericordia* God showed to *gentes*. He changes 'dogs' (because of their humility) – using the metaphor of the gospel of the Canaanite woman – in human beings and as such they deserve to eat the bread from the table.[57]

2.2.2. 'Pre-Christian Christians'

In the context of *gentes* and *pagani* we find some theological case studies in Augustine's sermons of what can be labelled as pre-Christian Christians. Augustine gave the example of the Maccabee brothers, who were Christian martyrs before the coming of Christ.[58] Similarly the children murdered by Herod in Bethlehem were Christians without baptism.[59] Centurion Cornelius could be considered to be a Christian, before being baptized, since he already had the Lord in his heart: Cornelius thus received the Spirit before his baptism.[60] This distinction between baptism and receiving the Spirit underlines the fact that it was grace and not human actions which brought about conversion.[61]

[55] *s.* 113A.7.

[56] See *Jn.* 8:33.39-40. *s.* 121.3.

[57] *s.* 218A.2. Pagans are called dogs because of their idolatry: *s.* 2.8; 121.3; 154A.5; 203.2. The name of the Canaanite woman is changed from dog to 'O Mulier', because of her humble faith: *s.* 77.6; 77B.1; 154A.5.

[58] 2*Macc.* 7. Augustine regards the Maccabees as martyrs, crowned because of their suffering with the martyr's crown: *s.* 286.6; 300.1-7; 301.1-2; 301A.7; 343.2. They are Christian martyrs before the coming of Christ. This he asserts only once explicitly in *s.* 300.1-2.5-6.

[59] *Matth.* 2:16. *s.* 202.2; 373.3; see *s.* 375, of which the authenticity is doubtful.

[60] *s.* 99.12; 260A.3; 266.6-7; 269.2.

[61] *s.* 269.2. This topic of pre-Christian Christians is connected with the question of salvation of people living before Christ. Other sermons also contain indications of Christ's grace working before his incarnation: *s.* 142.11; 198.38; 260C.8; 360B.19. '[...] Augustin enseigne bien que des païens seront sauvés. Il intègre dans la Cité céleste nombre de justes ayant vécu avant le Christ, et en dehors d'Israël. Il est vrai qu'il enseigne dans le même temps, et inlassablement, que la réception du baptême est la condition indispensable pour parvenir au Royaume éternel. Mais les textes qui le disent, si nombreux soient-ils, ne peuvent faire oublier les autres. On peut regretter qu'Augustin n'ait pas cherché à résoudre cette contradiction, d'autant plus qu'il affirme bien que le salut des païens ou des justes de l'Ancien Testament dépend de l'unique Médiateur, et que la grâce qui les sauve est la volonté salvifique universelle de Dieu', Pierre-Marie Hombert, *Gloria Gratiae: Se glorifier en Dieu, principe et fin de la théologie augustinienne de la grâce* (Paris, 1996), 315.

Digitized by Google

2.2.3. The conversion of *gentes* contrasted with the non-conversion of the Jews
Augustine used several images to express the contrast of the gentile conversion with the observation that Jews did not convert. In *s.* 10 he compared this with the two women judged by Solomon. The woman with the dead child represented the Jews, with their 'dead works of the Law'. The mother with the living child was a symbol of the gentiles, of the Church with spiritual grace.[62]

Christ was on his way to the daughter of the head of the synagogue, symbolizing the Jews – He came to save the Jews (*Matth.* 15:24) – when the woman which kept bleeding, representing the Church of the gentiles, touched Him.[63] The humility of that woman was her medicine, in contrast with the *superbia* of the Jews.[64]

Particularly in the Epiphany *sermones*[65] Augustine illustrates this difference between Jews and pagans with another biblical image. Pagans, as a wild olive, are grafted onto the olive tree of the Jews, of which Christ was the root. This image expressed a difference – grafting of something new – and at the same time a continuity – grafting onto an already existing tree, that as such was not (completely) rejected. Jews, the natural branches, were broken off because of their unbelief. All those who are too *superbi*, who do not remain in faith, will be broken off. Those however who do not persevere in unbelief, will be grafted on.[66] *Gentes* – because of their humble belief – were the new branches grafted on, while the root Christ remained and carried the new branches.[67] Augustine used in *s.* 89 another biblical tree image, this time to highlight a complete contrast between Jews and pagans. The shriveled tree represented the rejected Jews. The mountain throwing itself into the sea symbolized Christ giving himself to the gentiles.[68]

The basic difference between Jews and pagans was that Christ was physically present amongst Jews, but not amongst gentiles.[69] Jews saw Christ, gentiles heard his witnesses.[70] Augustine perceived this difference as somewhat more sophisticated. Christ's presence amongst Jews was *only* a physical presence; he was not in their hearts. They did not believe in Him and even crucified Him.[71] The pagans however had Him already in their heart.[72] This is symbolized by the centurion,[73] the woman who kept bleeding and the Canaanite

[62] 1*Kgs.* 3:16-7. *s.* 10.2.
[63] *s.* 63B.2; 77.8.
[64] *s.* 77.8-12.
[65] *s.* 200.4; 201.2; 203.3; 342.4.
[66] *Rom.* 11:17. *s.* 77.12.15; 162A.9.
[67] *s.* 218.7.
[68] *Matth.* 21:18-22. *s.* 89.2.
[69] *s.* 77.8. See *s.* 63B.2; 260E.1. See A.-M. La Bonnardière, La Chananeénne (1967), 215f.
[70] *s.* 154A.5.
[71] *s.* 62.4.
[72] *s.* 62.4-5; 62A.1-3.
[73] *s.* 62A.1-2.

Digitized by Google

woman.[74] For pagans Christ was physically absent, but He was present to them in the form of a *praesentia uirtutis*.[75] Exactly because one has to have Christ in one's heart, Augustine exhorted his fellow Christians not so much to destroy the idols in pagan temples (as was unlawfully done by *circumcelliones*), but to destroy the idols inside the hearts of the pagans.[76] Jews are of the race of Israel according to the flesh, gentiles are of the race of the same Israel according to faith.[77] Opposition between Jews and gentiles was also expressed by the metaphor of being blind and seeing. The Jews were able to see, since they had the Law, but by not recognizing Christ they were at the same time blind. The teachers of the Law crucified the author of the Law. Blindness fell upon Israel in order for pagans to be able to see. Jews, claiming they could see the light, killed the Light. For this reason, the Light enlightened the blind. With his blood Christ had made a medicine to cure the blind.[78]

This difference between Jews and *gentes* is related to grace. *Sermo* 10 points this out, using the two women of Solomon's judgment: the child of the Jews – the works of the Law – was dead while the gentiles received life through grace – Christ. This difference in grace was also dealt with in *s.* 136: Jews had the Law, but did not recognize the Lawgiver – Christ – this opposed to gentiles who did not have the Law but still recognized Christ.

Augustine applied the tension between faith and works to the opposition between Jews and *gentes*. There were people in the Law (Jews) who boasted about the works of the Law, but perhaps did not perform them out of love but out of fear, and they wanted to consider themselves as just and standing above the *gentes* who did not perform the works of the Law. The apostle Paul, preaching faith to such people, observed that they were justified by faith in such a way that they were performing good works only after they had come to faith. This meant that they did not deserve the gift of faith because they were doing good works. For this reason, Paul was confident in declaring that a person could be justified by faith without works of the Law, implying that Jews who acted out of fear were not justified, because faith works through love in the heart, even when that faith does not perform outward actions (*Rom.* 3:28; *Gal.* 5:6).[79] Paul made it clear to the gentiles that faith would give the help necessary to fulfill the Law.[80]

Everything foretold about Christ in the Old Testament had been fulfilled. Jews continued to read the texts, but they did not understand it. The grace of the Lord enabled the apostles to understand it. The hearts of the Jews however

[74] *s.* 154A.5.

[75] *s.* 62.4-5. In the discussion with Julian of Aeclanum, Augustine is sceptical about pagan virtues, and in the end he considers them to be vain.

[76] *s.* 62.17.

[77] *s.* 138.5

[78] See *Jn.* 9:39; *Rom.* 11:25. *s.* 136.4. See *s.* 165.5.

[79] *s.* 2.9.

[80] *s.* 156.4.

Digitized by Google

remained closed, so they could not comprehend Scripture. The faith and understanding given by God to the apostles, was *gratia*.[81]

As before, some Jews believed, and others did not, in Augustine's time some gentiles believed and others did not. Who believes, believes by God's grace and should not boast about this: it is a divine gift.[82] God's judgment, through which some received grace and others not – the gentiles were enlightened, the Jews had been blinded; some babies were cleansed by baptism, others remained in the death of the first man – is *profundum*.[83]

The discussion between Peter and Paul about the necessity to judaize *gentes* was dealt with in Augustine's *s.* 162C.[84] Jews, after being converted to the Christian faith, were not asked to cease the practice of their rites (such as circumcision). Pagans however were asked to give up their rites (sacrifices) after conversion. Such sacrifices were never required, and always evil. The Jewish sacraments were once necessary because they foretold the coming of Christ. After the coming of Christ the function and salvational capacity of these sacraments disappeared.[85] Peter forced converted gentiles to follow the Jewish sacraments. Augustine explained that these converted pagans, according to Paul, accepted from Peter the Jewish sacraments only because of their salvation and not because they loved them. Observance of the Law is not a condition to be saved.[86]

Augustine introduced the relation Jews-*gentes* into his anti-Pelagian position regarding grace. This is very clear in *s.* 131, in which Augustine explained that grace superseded human merits, that a good life should be attributed to God and not to a person's own strength. Jews not following Christ, only had to blame themselves. Gentiles following Christ, should not ascribe this to their own merits: *nemo uenit ad me, nisi datum fuerit ei a patre meo* (*John* 6:66). Everyone who walks on the path of justice, and attributes this to themselves, will disappear from this path. God works in us: we should accept and receive the rain. Grace is the rain. Grace is not given to *superbi*, but to *humiles*.[87] And this feature of humility was according to Augustine characteristic of the *gentes*, *pagani*. *Sermo* 131 contains also other aspects of *gratia*. The two signs given to Gideon were a symbol of grace.[88] The *iustitia* God justifies with is *gratia*. Jews, not knowing God's justice, wanted to establish their own justice, even in the current period of open grace (*aperta gratia*), a time in which the previously

[81] *s.* 229J.4. Christ's death on the cross was necessary to bring pagans to faith.
[82] *s.* 229F.1.
[83] *s.* 165.5.
[84] *Gal.* 2:3-5.11-4. See *s.* 56.1.
[85] *s.* 162C.6-7.
[86] *s.* 162C.9.
[87] *s.* 131.3.
[88] *s.* 131.9. See *s.* 360A.3.

Digitized by Google

hidden (*occulta*) grace had been revealed: Christ.[89] The Jews could be forgiven, since they did not have grace. Christians however, who have grace openly at their disposal, but are hostile to the grace of God, who trust in themselves, who are ungrateful, and who overestimate nature and Law, cannot be forgiven. When there would be justice by Law and nature alone, Augustine replied, Christ would have died in vain. Augustine preached here very clearly against the Pelagians, against *inimici gratiae Christi*.[90]

2.2.4. *Gentes* and Jews: one people within the cornerstone Christ

The relationship between (eschatological) pagans / gentiles and Jews after the coming of Christ was not solely a matter of opposition. There were also Jews who converted to Christianity. One only needs to look to the example of the apostles. Other Jews came to believe through the apostles' preaching of the resurrection.[91] Christ will gather the gentiles, his other sheep, into his sheepfold 'so that there will be one flock and one shepherd' (*John* 10:19).[92] Augustine said in *s.* 137:

Nonne ideo Dominus uenit, ut institueret ecclesiam, ipsos que iudaeos bene credentes et bene sperantes et bene diligentes segregaret tanquam frumenta a paleis, et faceret unum parietem circumcisionis, cui coniungeretur alius paries ex praeputio gentium, quibus duobus parietibus de diuerso uenientibus esset ipse lapis angularis?[93]

The Church is the one mother of these two peoples.[94] Converted gentiles and converted Jews form the one Church, united in Christ. The image Augustine used most to portray this union was that of two walls coming together at one cornerstone, Christ (*Ps.* 118:22).[95] Such a cornerstone image was often combined with the theme of the two catches of fish in the Gospel (*Lk.* 5 and *John* 21), the first before the resurrection (with the good and bad intermingled) and the second after the resurrection (with only the good). The two boats, the two fishing nets with the first catch symbolized the two peoples, Jews and gentiles, synagogue and Church, circumcision and non-circumcision, two walls peacefully coming together with Christ as the cornerstone.[96]

[89] *s.* 131.9.

[90] *s.* 131.9.

[91] *s.* 229F.1.

[92] *s.* 138.5.

[93] *s.* 137.6. PL 38, 757 (30-6); *s.* 137.6: 'The reason the Lord came, surely, was to establish the Church, and to separate those Jews who had the right kind of faith, and the right kind of hope and the right kind of love, like wheat, from the chaff; and to make one wall from the circumcision, to which was to be joined another wall from the uncircumcised Gentiles, and for these two walls coming from different directions he would himself be the cornerstone." E. Hill, *Sermons III/4* (1992), 375.

[94] *s.* 192.2.

[95] *s.* 4.18; 51.15; 60A.2; 88.10; 89.4; 137.6; 200.4; 201.1; 202.1; 203.1; 204.2-3; 229M.1; 249.2; 252.3; 258.1.

[96] *s.* 4.18; 137.6; 229M.1; 248.2; 249.2; 252.3-4; 252A.2. Christ uniting Jews and gentiles within one Church, is also symbolised by other images: the two blind men (*s.* 88.10; 137.6), the

Digitized by Google

The image of the cornerstone was explicitly connected to the grace theme. As cornerstone, Christ unites two peoples *suae pacis gratia*,[97] *Christus, pacificam iuncturam et gratia copulante*.[98] The cornerstone establishes peace between two walls, Jews and gentiles, coming together from different directions.[99]

2.2.5. *Sermones* at the liturgical feast of Epiphany

A distinct category of *sermones* concerning pagans in general, and about the relationship *gentes*-Jews in particular, were preached at the feast of Epiphany. The opposition between non-converted Jews and converted gentiles (blind *versus* seeing, broken *versus* grafted branch, pride *versus* humility) as well as the equation of converted Jews and converted gentiles in the one Church (two walls in one cornerstone) were dealt with in these sermons.[100]

Explicitly present in the Epiphany *sermones* was the theme of the wild olive. The magi prefigured the wild olive grafted onto the olive tree.[101] His own people, the Jews, did not accept Him. For this reason, they became strangers, broken away from the olive tree because of their pride. The rest of the world deserved, because of its humility, to be grafted as wild olive onto the olive tree.[102] The wild olive deserved to be changed of nature through grace (*gratia*).[103]

The Epiphany *sermones* dealt with grace. In *s.* 200 Augustine urged his community, addressed as *carissimi, gratiae filii et haeredes*,[104] to remain (as converted pagans) *via* Christ (the cornerstone) connected with the remains of Israel (prefigured by the shepherds) saved *per electionem gratiae*.[105]

The shepherds saw Christ first: *gratia* came first for them, they were more humble and as such quicker to rejoice over their salvation. The magi carried the heavy burden of many sins and sought forgiveness. That humility was more present within pagans than Jews, as the examples of the magi, the centurion and the Canaanite woman illustrated.[106] Because of that humility, the wild olive deserved a change of nature through grace.[107]

two goats killed by Jacob and the two different kinds of sheep (*s.* 4.18), the two flocks united by Christ (*s.* 137.6; 138.5), the two fish from the story of the multiplication of bread (*s.* 130.1), Lea and Rachel (*s.* 137.6).

[97] *s.* 89.4.

[98] *s.* 204.3.

[99] *s.* 258.1.

[100] *s.* 199; 200; 201; 202; 204; 204A; 342; 372; 373; 374; 375.

[101] *s.* 201.2.

[102] *s.* 342.4. See *s.* 200.4 on breaking off the *haeretici*-branches.

[103] *s.* 203.3.

[104] *s.* 200.4.

[105] *s.* 200.4. *s.* 204.3: Converted Jews are part of the Jewish wall.

[106] *s.* 203.2.

[107] *s.* 203.3.

Digitized by Google

As previously mentioned, Christ's grace unites the two walls.[108] The magi, the first fruits of gentiles, were warned not to return to Herod, and they changed their way of living.[109] Because of their many sins, grace could be even more abundant (*Rom.* 5:20). As God changed their path, He changes now the lives of the bad.[110] Ultimately, Christmas and Epiphany are feasts of grace. The heavens, by a star or by angels, proclaimed the glory of God in order that by Christ's grace the apostles might proclaim to the whole world.[111]

3. Some chronological notes[112]

Sermones against the earthly orientation of pagans are found in all periods of Augustine's preaching. His reactions against pagan idolatry are mainly part of his early sermons (before and around 400), but the elaborate *s.* 198 *contra paganos* dates from 420-5. The positive perception that pagans were created through grace with the same good nature as Christians, but however do not share Christian grace, was a late topic (417-30), clearly situated in the Pelagian controversy. The negative eschatological appreciation – fitting into the Pauline scheme of before the Law, the Law, Christ – seems to be situated around 403, but this date lacks a sufficient amount of confirmation. The topic of pre-Christian Christians apparently belongs to the first Pelagian controversy: Maccabees mainly after 417, Cornelius around 410. *Sermo* 138, about the 'predestined other sheep' is situated around 411-2. The image of converted *gentes* of the woman who kept bleeding, and of the centurion Cornelius, have a place in the whole period that Augustine was active as a preacher, while the metaphor of the Canaanite woman appears after 410. The assertion that the conversion of pagans is due to God's grace is to be found after 400, particularly around 410. In approximately the same period, the opposition between Jews and Christians is clearly made in Augustine's sermons: 404 or 411.[113] This difference is applied to grace especially around the year 417, in particular in the anti-Pelagian *s.* 131 (417). Christ uniting gentiles and Jews is a topic Augustine comes back to during his whole

[108] *s.* 204.3.
[109] *s.* 202.4.
[110] *s.* 374.23.
[111] *s.* 373.1.
[112] E. Hill (transl., notes), J.E. Rotelle (ed.), *Sermons*, The Works of Saint Augustine. A Translation for the 21st Century. I-XI (New York, 1990-7). Éric Rebillard, Sermones, in: Allan D. Fitzgerald (ed.), *Augustine through the Ages. An Encyclopedia* (Grand Rapids and Cambridge, 1999), 773-92; P.-M. Hombert, *Nouvelles recherches de chronologie augustinienne* (Paris, 2000); Roger Gryson (red.), *Répertoire général des auteurs ecclésiastiques Latins de l'Antiquité et du Haut moyen âge* (Freiburg, 2007).
[113] Exceptions: *s.* 2.9 (391): not works out of fear, but out of love. *s.* 162C (397 of 405) on the discussion between Peter and Paul.

Digitized by Google

preaching office. The majority of the Epiphany *sermones* is situated around 405-13, also these regarding grace.

4. Conclusion

Concerning the use of the terminology *pagani* and *gentes* one can conclude that Augustine did not always see a strict difference between the two words, and often used them closely linked. In general, a rather negative approach towards pagans – esp. their earthly orientation, their idolatry, their sacrifices – was indicated with the term *pagani*. The two anti-pagan *sermones* 198 and 360A used however also, to a lesser degree, the *gentes* terminology. It is noteworthy that the double use of *gentes* and *pagani* within one sermon occurs frequently in these two *sermones* Dolbeau: *s.* 198 (D. 26) and 360A (D. 24), but also in other Dolbeau sermons studied here: *s.* 341 (D. 22), 162C (D. 10), 374 (D. 23).[114] *Christiani* and *pagani* had a *communis natura*. The eschatological gentiles – the more positive approach to pagans, namely due to their conversion to Christianity, and the opposition between converted gentiles and non-converted Jews – were most often called *gentes*. The difference in *gratia* compared to the Jews was expressed by the term *gentes*.[115] The theme of the unity of Jews and gentiles in the cornerstone Christ and the Epiphany sermons, was formulated in the *gentes* vocabulary, although there are some examples of the use of *pagani* in this context. In this sense the terminology of *gentes* and *pagani* had distinguishable features, but were still intertwined, because ultimately they would meet the same salvation in their conversion through God's grace.

Chronology seemed to influence content. The shift of Augustine's debate with paganism to Donatism in a lesser degree, but especially to Pelagianism was not without importance. Paganism – gentiles – changed from a discussion partner into a case study that proved that not one's own merits but grace prevailed, that faith was God's gift. The *superbia* he accused the pagans of, became a frequent refrain against the Pelagians.

Thematically, it can first be concluded that Augustine's treatment of the position of *gentes* and *pagani* was not a black-and-white picture (Jews had grace in the past, now gentiles had it). Also converted Jews did have grace. Anyway, the question was whether the Jews really had grace: *superbia* and fear instead of *humilitas* and love. Gentiles had grace now, but there were also non-converted pagans. Moreover, also in the past gentiles had not been completely void of grace: *praesentia virtutis* of Christ, his presence in their hearts, the 'pre-Christian' martyrs, the predestined other sheep already known by Christ.

[114] This double use is also found outside the *sermones* Dolbeau, *e.g. s.* 88; 200.

[115] The theme of the presence of Christ for gentiles different from Jews uses *pagani* and *gentes*.

Digitized by Google

Secondly, we may conclude that from Augustine a very positive attitude towards pagans and gentiles emerges. He rejected their earthly orientation, but as he tells us in his *Confessiones* he, too, had once been likewise orientated. Salvation was only attainable if converted, but conversion is a gift from God. In a very polemical sermon, such as *s.* 198, Augustine always kept an eye on the possible conversion of pagans. He never rejected them and he always exhorted his congregation to facilitate conversions. This positive and open attitude was a characteristic of Augustine's pastoral concerns in his *sermones ad populum*.

Digitized by Google

Relating *Christus Sacerdos* and *Christus Mediator* in St. Augustine's *S.* Dolbeau 26

Daniel JONES, Detroit

This paper will relate the terms *Christus Mediator* and *Christus Sacerdos* in Augustine's *s.* Dolbeau 26.[1] I will argue that Augustine forms and uses these images in complementary fashion to synthesize the mystery of Christ in polemic and for polemic, with polemic shaping his Christology even as Christology shapes his polemic.[2] I do so in response to Gérard Rémy,[3] who has proposed to relate the two hierarchically, giving *Christus Mediator* a certain ontological 'priority' with respect to *Christus Sacerdos*. Just as being determines action, says Rémy, so Christ's identity (which Rémy identifies with *mediator*), makes possible his saving work (identified with *sacerdos*). I will argue that Rémy oversimplifies the meanings Augustine gives to the terms, and fails to see their complementarity. I will first discuss the images themselves, and then their rhetorical function in the sermon.

Christus Mediator

Augustine developed *mediator* into his preferred Christological title, synthesizing the mystery of Christ while also polemicizing other cultic forms of mediation. The concept of mediation was important in both philosophical theurgy – the cultic turn which Platonism had taken in Neoplatonism – and pagan cult in general. That Augustine fashioned the metaphor for use in polemic against these two can be seen in two aspects of how he constructs the image in the sermon.

First, the image answers the scheme of mediation proposed by the African Platonist Apuleius in his *De deo Socratis*. That scheme was popularly used to justify the rites offered to *daemones* which Augustine is opposing in the sermon.

[1] See François Dolbeau, Nouveaux sermons de saint Augustin pour la conversion des païens et des donatistes (IV): *RechAug* 26 (1992) 69-141, reprinted in *Augustin d'Hippone. Vingt-six sermons au peuple d'Afrique*, édités par F. Dolbeau, Institut d'Études Augustiniennes (Paris, 1996), 366-417.

[2] This paper is largely a further synthesis of material from Daniel Jones, *Christus Sacerdos in the Preaching of St. Augustine: Christ and Christian Identity* (Frankfurt, 2004). See especially *ibid.* 34, 62-9, 121-54, 415-20, for elaboration and further references.

[3] See Gérard Rémy, Le Christ Médiateur et Tête de l'Église selon le Sermon Dolbeau 26 d'Augustin: *RevSR* 72 (1998) 3-19.

Studia Patristica XLIX, 197-202.
© Peeters Publishers, 2010.

Digitized by Google

Apuleius proposed a model of mediation whereby two extremes could be connected by means of a third middle reality which shares a characteristic of the two extremes. Between the two extremes of gods and men (the gods immortal and impassible, and men mortal and passible), Apuleius placed the *daemones*, who have immortality like the gods, but passibility like humans. Augustine accepts the epistemological model of connecting diverse realities by means of a third middle term. But he corrects Apuleius' statement of the problem, asserting that the distance to be bridged does not span a continuous, uninterrupted hierarchical scale of being, but instead the abyss between creatures and the one Creator. Moreover, the distance involved is moral even more than ontological. Augustine corrects the portrayal of the extremes accordingly, characterizing God no longer as immortal and impassible but as immortal and just, with man as mortal and unjust. He then answers the problem with his formulation of *Christus Mediator*, who has justice 'from the top' and mortality 'from the bottom'.

A second clue of Augustine's polemical intent is that he places Christ the true Mediator in explicit opposition to the false mediator – a moral-metaphysical image he creates to portray the devil as the unseen spiritual force behind all non-Catholic cult. Moreover, just as Augustine uses *Christus Mediator* to speak of three different aspects of the mystery of Christ, he contrasts the false mediator with Christ in each of these three aspects. First, while the true Mediator in his identity is both God and man, the false mediator is in the middle, but neither God nor man. Second, while Christ in his identity is true man graced with divine justice, the demonic mediators are immoral and so incapable of opening the way to the just God. Third, while Christ in his action as man on earth once humbly suffered, died, and rose again, the proud mediator disdains and refuses suffering. Likewise, while Christ continues to act to intercede for us in heaven, the demonic mediators, like the Donatist bishops, only block the way to God. Thus, all three aspects synthesize Augustine's understanding of Christ while also contrasting Christ with the deficiencies of other forms of mediation.

Christus Sacerdos

Augustine derived the image *Christus Sacerdos* from *Hebrews*, retaining its meaning and conceptual-linguistic field. He uses it to present the entire mystery of Christ in priestly terms for polemical purposes.

The original context of the image in *Hebrews* was the polemical contrast between Christ's priesthood and Old Testament priests. Augustine transposes this original opposition onto a new opposition between Christ and paganism. But because the biblical images Augustine uses contrast Christ with Jewish priesthood, and because he makes few explicit contrasts of Christ with pagan priests, the allusion to pagan priesthoods in Augustine's other works has largely

Digitized by Google

been missed. Yet there are clues of this polemical intent in his construction of the image itself, just as we saw for *Christus Mediator.*

First, Augustine parts with his normal practice of retaining Latin Biblical vocabulary. Although his text of *Hebrews* refers to Christ almost always as *pontifex*, Augustine calls him *sacerdos*. As a master rhetorician, Augustine chose this term conscious of the images it conjured in the minds of his auditors. *Sacerdos* was charged with power to evoke things cultic, and was thus an effective image in Augustine's polemic against Roman civic cults, which had priesthoods at their center, and against the theurgical cult of the Neoplatonists, who conceived of the ideal philosopher in priestly terms. Although the allusion to pagan priesthood is evident to us only with analysis, it would have been clear to Augustine's auditors. Because the false mediator was invisible, Augustine devised a metaphor to call attention to his hidden presence. But since Roman priests were ubiquitous, Augustine could count on his auditors supplying the counterpart as he used the word.

The evocative power of *sacerdos*, however, goes beyond just the ability to evoke the figure of the pagan priest or theurgical practitioner. In evoking these figures, it also evoked the ideals behind these cults. This is because *sacerdos* was potent in the Roman world as a synecdoche, the use of a part to symbolize the whole. This evocative power is clearest in the realm of the traditional Roman civic cults. Visual depictions of sacrifice on Roman monuments show how the figure of the pagan priest stood at the head of a symbolic chain, concentrating first the cult over which he officiated; then, the whole of religion; and finally, the ideals which religion sought to establish. Similarly, within philosophical theurgy, the figure of the priest served as a concentrated symbol of the whole ideal of the philosophical way of life. Thus, *sacerdos* carried a rhetorical load which made it a powerful tool for evoking the purifying work of Christ in contrast with alternative ways of purification; for symbolizing Christian cult versus opposing cults; and for symbolizing the entire Christian religion and its ideals in contrast with opposing religions and ideals.

A final clue of Augustine's polemical intent is that he grafts the original polemical oppositions found in Hebrews between Christ and Old Testament priests, such as *unus / plures*, onto a new, more complex set of oppositions which he uses in anti-pagan polemic. The most primary is that between *vera religio* (the worship of the one true God as he wants to be worshiped) and *superstitio* (religious worship given to 'false gods' – the demons). Following from this distinction concerning the divinity, rites can be distinguished as true or false; religious, or superstitious and sacrilegious. To call Christ's priesthood 'true' in this context is not to contrast it with the devil; the devil is not a 'false priest', since he wants to receive worship rather than give it. Rather, Christ as 'true priest' offering the 'true sacrifice' is opposed to pagan priests who offer *sacra falsa*, or *sacra sacrilega*. The rites are ersatz, false and sacrilegious counterfeits of the true sacrifice, which do not effect what they claim, inspired by

Digitized by Google

worship-craving demons. These subtle oppositions are easily missed when compared to the simpler ones involved with *Christus Mediator.*

The theological definition of *Christus Sacerdos* includes three senses. First, it refers to Christ's unique identity as sinless, divinely just man. The second aspect, its gravitational center, refers to Christ's saving work in its three stages: suffering and death, glorification, and continuing heavenly intercession. Third, the image opens to the shared priesthood of the *Totus Christus.*

The rhetorical function of the images

Augustine exploits the rhetorical oppositions latent in these images as he uses them polemically in *s.* Dolbeau 26. This newly discovered sermon is a remarkable extended argument for the superiority of the Christian religion, moving from a critique of cultured paganism as incapable of providing a purifying mediation (the *via negativa*, §17-37) to a positive presentation of Christ, working through the sacraments of the Church, as the only source of this purifying mediation (the *via positiva*, §38-63). Augustine begins his critique with cultured defenders of the traditional Roman cults (§17-24), but soon turns to the Neoplatonists, whom he considers his greatest threat. He reformulates Apuleius' version of the problem of mediation (§25-37), allowing him then to answer the problem with the positive presentation of Christ in the sermon's second half. He opens the presentation with the *quaestio*: 'But we have to ask what a mediator is', and then answers himself by presenting Christ in contrast to the forces behind all non-Catholic cult.

The presentation of Christ begins with a contrast between *Christus Mediator* and the *falsus mediator.* Only Christ, as God and divinely just man, has the prerequisites of a mediator, since he brings together the two extremes (just and immortal God / unjust and mortal man). The demons, immortal only in a derived sense, and unjust, only block the way. The polemical oppositions here between the true and false mediators are explicit.

Augustine then moves from Christ's identity to his redemptive work. At this point, the symmetrical contrast between the two mediators breaks off, and the preacher begins to weave in a new title: *Christus Sacerdos.* This means that to answer his earlier *quaestio* ('What is a mediator?') he needs both *Christus Mediator* and *Christus Sacerdos.* Why does Augustine now introduce *Christus Sacerdos*?

While it is understandable that Augustine would feature the scriptural language of *Hebrews* to speak of Christ's redemptive work, it would seem that we should look beyond the theological meaning of the image alone for an answer, given that he also uses *Christus Mediator* to speak of the redemption. Here it is useful to ask what rhetorical function *Christus Sacerdos* might play that *Christus Mediator* does not.

Digitized by Google

First, as Augustine begins to present the paschal mystery, the symmetry between the true and false mediators breaks down. While Christ took flesh and suffered, the false mediator did *not* take flesh and suffer. The rhetorical effectiveness of *Christus Mediator* in the previous section lay in its ability to contrast Christ, on the level of his identity, with the demonic mediators. But this ontological contrast no longer serves when dealing with Christ's redemptive work.

Second, Augustine's main polemical concern is cultic – what he calls 'all the sacraments celebrated by the pagans' (*s.* Dolbeau 26.32). Within the context of both the traditional Roman civic cults and philosophical theurgy, *sacerdos* had much greater evocative power than *mediator* as a cultic symbol. At the same time as *sacerdos* synthesized Christ's redemptive work, it also evoked the opposing image of the pagan priest or theurgist, and all that each stood for. If we recall that almost any concept of mediation at the time was sacrificial, we can see that the rhetorical power of *sacerdos* made it more useful symbolically and polemically for speaking about sacrificial mediation than the term *mediator* itself.

A comparison of the images

The theological meanings of the terms are so close, especially in reference to Christ's human nature, that it is sometimes impossible to see a difference between the two on this level. Yet *Christus Mediator* has its center of gravity in the Incarnation and *Christus Sacerdos* in the paschal mystery.

At first glance, *Christus Mediator* seems to embrace a wider breadth of Augustine's understanding of Christ, referring to his identity as God and man as well as his saving work. Yet *Christus Sacerdos* embraces not only Christ's saving work, but also the shared priesthood of the *Totus Christus*. Further, although it does not include Christ's divinity as does *Mediator*, it always presumes the divinity in that his humanity is gifted with a unique, divine justice. While both titles are broad, only the two together present the entire range of Augustine's three senses of the word 'Christ' (eternal Son, God-man, and *Totus Christus*).

The meanings of the titles are theologically complementary in that each is ordered to the other. As regards his earthly life, Christ becomes mediator in order to be priest, but priest in order to remove the separating medium. As regards his heavenly priesthood, Christ is mediator in order to be priest, presenting the whole redeemed Body as an eternal sacrificial offering; but he is also priest in order to mediate, offering the Body to unite it through his humanity to the Father. Because our final end is to be eternally united to God as a loving sacrificial offering, Christ remains forever *Mediator* in joining man to God and *Sacerdos* in offering man to God. For this reason, his mediation and his priesthood can never be split.

Digitized by Google

The titles are also rhetorically complementary. While both were used in philosophical and cultic contexts, *mediator* could serve more easily as an ontological term when used with more abstract, philosophical language, while *sacerdos* carried more evocative power as a cultic symbol.

Conclusion

Attention to the function of the terms helps show that Augustine develops his Christology in the midst of polemic and for polemic. It also helps show why Rémy's proposal to order these terms hierarchically is ill-conceived. Not only does Rémy wrongly constrict the theological meaning of *mediator* to its ontological sense and *sacerdos* to its operative sense. He also puts Augustine's Christology in competition with itself, by making an issue of something that is not an issue. The titles are complementary on the level of their theological meaning as well as their rhetorical function. More useful than ranking the terms is the question of why Augustine uses them to accomplish his purpose. This question will help us see that the bishop is not doing Christology in a vacuum. In this example, even as he seeks to answer opposing ideas with the mystery of Christ, those very opposing ideas help him deepen his understanding of the mystery. As Christ shapes Augustine's polemic, polemic also deepens his knowledge of Christ.

Digitized by Google

Perpetual Felicity: Sermons of Augustine on Female Martyrdom (*s.* 280-282 *auct.* [Erfurt 1])

Dorothee Elm von der Osten, Freiburg i.Br.

The *Passio Perpetuae et Felicitatis* is generally perceived as an account of the North African Christian martyrs who died in Roman Carthage on the seventh of March 203 A.D. The narrative is told by many voices, among them the voice of Perpetua herself (chs. 3-10).[1] She is said to have written or dictated her experiences, four of which were visionary, while in prison. Another voice in the text is that of the anonymous narrator who claims to be the compiler of the first-person narratives told by Perpetua and her fellow martyr Saturus. He provides introductory and closing remarks, an eye-witness account of the deaths in the amphitheatre and theological interpretations of events, thus guiding the reader's and listener's attention.

The *Passio* has exerted a strong influence on later martyr narratives. Liturgical readings have led to the formation and passing down of the abbreviated *Acts*, which are modelled on records of judicial proceedings. Especially at the end of the fourth and the beginning of the fifth century, African Christianity showed great interest in its first martyrs. This interest is still clearly apparent today in a number of sermons on the occasion of the *natale*, celebrating the martyrs in the *Passio*. Several of these given by Augustine and his contemporaries have been handed down to us today.[2] Only recently, in the summer of 2007 a manuscript in Erfurt was found to contain a sermon by Augustine on Perpetua and Felicitas, which was until then only partially known as *s.* 282. The *editio princeps* was published in 2008 (*s.* 282 *auct.* [Erfurt 1]).[3]

[1] Edition by Jacqueline Amat (ed.), *Passion de Perpétue et de Félicité, suivi des Actes*, SC 417 (Paris, 1996).

[2] For a more detailed account and interpretation of these sermons as well as a bibliography, see Dorothee Elm von der Osten, 'Perpetua Felicitas': Die Predigten des Augustinus zur *Passio Perpetuae et Felicitatis* (*s.* 280-2), in: Therese Fuhrer (ed.), *Die christlich-philosophischen Diskurse der Spätantike: Texte, Personen und Institutionen*, Philosophie der Antike 28 (Stuttgart, 2008), 275-98.

[3] Isabella Schiller, Dorothea Weber, Clemens Weidmann, Sechs neue Augustinuspredigten. Teil 1 mit Edition dreier Sermones, *Wiener Studien* 121 (2008) 227-84; *sermo* 282 *auct.* was edited by Clemens Weidmann, 251-64.

Studia Patristica XLIX, 203-209.
© Peeters Publishers, 2010.

Digitized by Google

The *Passio* has received great attention by scholars in the last two decades. The text not only has multiple narrative layers, generically it also contains not only elements of the literature of martyrdom, but also of autobiography and apocalyptic literature. Perpetua's report, which, to use Ian Henderson's phrasing, 'bids to be the oldest extant text written by a Christian woman', is 'one of the texts of Greco-Roman antiquity most clearly and plausibly intended to represent subjective religious experience'.[4] These factors have given rise to an enormous scholarly output exhausting a wide variety of interpretive possibilities.[5] However, the reception and exegesis of this martyr narrative in the sermons of Augustine and his contemporaries has not received due attention.

As to the scholars who deal with the *Passio*, only Brent Shaw actually considers the North African sermons in greater detail. The focus of his work is on the construction of gender roles in Perpetua's report and in the other strata of the text. He is primarily interested in the way the male narrative framing of the anonymous editor and later of the male preachers giving sermons rereads, distorts and ultimately silences the voice of Perpetua as well as the female empowerment and subversive potential inherent in her narrative. In Shaw's view, while the anonymous editor transforms Perpetua 'in behaviour and image [...] into the model of a Roman *matrona*', Augustine belittles her feminine *duritia* to fit his own theological requirements, stating: 'Instead of the real fear evinced in Perpetua's words, one gets divine certainties'.[6]

Although Shaw acknowledges the fact that Augustine and his contemporaries are trying to make 'her experiences concordant [...] with present and future thinking',[7] he does not pursue the question of how their interpretation is embedded in the contemporary discourse of the times. Incidentally, this is also true for Augustinian scholarship, which also does not take up this question.[8]

In the following, I will therefore try to place the North African sermons on Perpetua and Felicitas in their contemporary context in a two-fold manner. On the one hand, I will concentrate on the discourse of martyrdom in general, and on the other, I will mention the regional theological controversies which might have left their traces on Augustine's interpretations.

[4] Ian H. Henderson, Review of Rex Dale Butler, *The New Prophecy and 'New Visions': Evidence of Montanism in the Passion of Perpetua and Felicitas*, Patristic Monograph Series 18 (Washington, 2006): *BMCR* 2006.07.20.

[5] See *e.g.* the bibliography of Peter Habermehl, *Perpetua und der Ägypter oder Bilder des Bösen im frühen afrikanischen Christentum: Ein Versuch zur* Passio Sanctarum Perpetuae et Felicitatis (Berlin and New York, ²2004).

[6] Brent Shaw, The Passion of Perpetua: *P&P* 139 (1993) 3-45, 32.

[7] B. Shaw, *Passion* (1993), 41.

[8] Kenneth Steinhauser, Augustine's Reading of the *Passio Sanctarum Perpetuae et Felicitatis*: *SP* 33 (1997) 244-9 concentrates on Montanism; Gertrude Gillette, Augustine and the significance of Perpetua's words: 'And I was a man': *AugSt* 32 (2001) 115-25 deals mainly with a theological interpretation of *Perp.* 10.7.

Digitized by Google

Performative context

The sermons were delivered on the feast day celebrating the martyr's anniversary. Within the liturgical framework of the *festa Sanctorum*, they were preceded by a reading of the *Passio*. All sermons presuppose the long version of the text and not the abridged *Acta*.

The fact that it was read aloud is quite unusual and is singular to the North African Church. It has been linked to the controversies surrounding the drunken feasting at the martyr's burial site, which was targeted, restricted and eventually forbidden by the presbyter Augustine. It has been suggested that the reading of this non-canonical passion was intended as compensation to the followers of this practice which was still common in the Donatist group.

In keeping with the festive context and the panegyrical genre of the sermons on martyrdom, the main aim of these sermons was to let the Christian communities of Hippo and Carthage rejoice in the victory of Christianity over its enemies; a battle that was paradigmatically fought by the martyrs in the very place where the congregation has gathered. The general tone of the orations is therefore one of lasting and enduring joy; in the words of Augustine, it is one of perpetual felicity. Augustine and Quodvultdeus after him make extensive use of the rhetorical quality of the martyrs' names, stating: *Hoc enim erat nomen ambarum, quod munus est omnium* [...] *ut perpetua felicitate glorientur* (*s.* 281.3, PL 38, 1285).[9] Perpetua and Felicitas, who only interact in the amphitheatre in the *Passio*, become 'one fitting, etymological emblem' of mnemonic quality.[10]

The victorious and festive mood of the sermons and their eschatological perspective of looking at the trials of the martyrs from the vantage point of paradise clearly leave little room for the 'real fear evinced in Perpetua's words' and rather concentrate 'on divine certainties'.

Gender roles

The interplay between the female first person narrative and the male interpretation of events deriving from the composite nature of the *Passio* has been the object of much discussion on Perpetua from the perspective of gender studies. It also comes into play in the Augustinian sermons, as Shaw has noted, since they frame her narrative in the liturgical setting. However, while Shaw sees a denigrating male stance at work, I would rather propose a more balanced view, which might even leave room for a kind of Augustinian feminism.

[9] 'For Perpetua and Felicitas are the names of two, but the reward of all [...] so that we glory in perpetual felicity'. See also *s.* 280.1 (PL 38, 1281).

[10] Erin Ronsse, Rhetoric of Martyrs: Listening to Saints Perpetua and Felicitas: *JECS* 14 (2006) 283-327, 287.

Digitized by Google

Gender is of central importance for the North African sermons. All three by Augustine make extensive reference to the fact that the most important martyrs to be commemorated were women, saying e.g.:

Quid enim gloriosius his feminis, quas viri mirantur facilius, quam imitantur? [...] *secundum interiorem hominem, nec masculus, nec femina inveniuntur; ut etiam in his quae sunt feminae corpore, virtus mentis sexum carnis abscondat, et in membris pigeat cogitare, quod in factis non potuit apparere* (*s.* 280.1, PL 38, 1281).[11]

'What, after all, could be more glorious than these women, whom men can more easily admire than imitate? [...] according to the inner self they are neither male nor female [*Gal.* 3:28; *Eph.* 3:16]; so the sex of the flesh is concealed by the virtue of the mind, and one is reluctant to think about a condition in their members that never showed in their deeds.'[12]

By citing the virtue of the mind as being stronger than the female-connoted body, Augustine employs the topos of the virility of exceptionally courageous women. Since women were seen as the weaker sex in antiquity and since the words *virtus* and *andreia* are also etymologically male in gender, the metaphor of the virile woman can be found in many texts. Perpetua herself famously metamorphoses into a man in the agonistic setting of her last vision in which she fights an Egyptian (*Perp.* 10.7), and the Greek panegyrists adopt this topos. The homilies written by John Chrisostom and Basil of Caesarea concerning female martyrs often make use of it.[13]

While these texts evoke the image of women becoming male or cite the male-connoted virtue of *animus* versus the female-connoted weakness of the body, in some passages Augustine becomes more precise in his wording and thus slightly shifts the emphasis of his interpretation. To Augustine, the *homo interior* is neither male nor female.

The early Christian notion of a woman becoming a man is often tied to redemption, to baptism and resurrection, and is therefore 'inapplicable as an inclusive device already from creation'.[14] Following Clemens of Alexandria and Gregory of Nyssa, Augustine postulates an act of creation which simultaneously consists of two phases in his exegetical work *De Genesi ad Litteram*: First the unsexed *homo interior* is created by God as God's equal, and only then does the difference between the sexes emerge with Adam and Eve (*Gn. litt.* 3.22.34;

[11] *S.* 280 (PL 38, 1281-4); *s.* 281 (PL 38, 1284-5); *s.* 282 (PL 38, 1285-6).

[12] Translations by Edmund Hill, *WSA* 8 (New York, 1994): *s.* 280: 72-7; *s.* 281: 78-80; *s.* 282: 81-2.

[13] See Raphaëlle Ziadé, *Les martyrs Maccabées: De l'histoire juive au culte chrétien. Les homélies de Grégoire de Nazianze et de Jean Chrysostome*, SVigChr 80 (Leiden and Boston, 2007), 246-54.

[14] Kari Elizabeth Børresen, In Defence of Augustine: How *femina* is *homo*, in: Bernhard Bruning, Mathijs Lamberigts, Jozef van Houtem (eds.), *Collectanea Augustiniana. Mélanges Tarsicius Jan van Bavel* (Leuven, 1990), 411-28, 412.

Digitized by Google

6.5.7).[15] Man and woman are therefore equal with regard to their intelligible core of being, their *homo interior*, and have been created equal by God.

Asceticism – Virginity

An ideal which is very present in the Greek homilies on martyrs and also in Augustinian sermons on martyrdom is the ideal of asceticism. By presenting martyrdom as a struggle against the love of life and the weakness of the flesh, the martyrs are depicted as being able to overcome earthly desires. Detached from the events immediately connected with their execution, their renunciation becomes a model to be emulated in daily life – a model even more fitting in times when prosecution is no longer imminent.

The ideal female martyr is a virgin. This is obvious, for example, in the homilies of John Chrysostom on the virgins Thecla, Pelagia, Bernike and Prosdoke. These martyrs are given two crowns: One for the uninterrupted martyrdom of virginity, the other for the martyrdom of death. Augustine also accords the highest rewards to virgin martyrs in his treatise on virginity (*virg.* 46), thus braiding two ideals into one: The manlier ideal of martyrdom and the more feminine one of virginity.[16]

Since the passion is read to the congregation immediately prior to the delivery of the sermon, there is little chance to deny that neither Perpetua nor Felicitas is a virgin. The former is married and a mother, and the latter gives birth to a baby girl in prison.

The preachers react to this by making Perpetua into someone who renounces bodily pleasures. One of the sermons interprets the last vision of Perpetua, in which she, after having turned into a man, fights the Egyptian in the following way:[17]

Merito ille vetus ac veterator inimicus, [...] *quia viriliter secum agentem feminam sensit, per virum eam superare tentavit. Nec maritum supposuit, ne illa quae jam superna cogitatione habitabat in coelis, suspicionem desiderii carnis erubescendo permaneret fortior; sed patrem* [...] (*s.* 281.2, PL 38, 1284).

'That old and crafty enemy [...] sensed that this woman was reacting to him in a manly way, he very sensibly tried to overcome her through a man. And it was not her husband he introduced into the ring, because she was already, in her exaltation of spirit, living in heaven, and the slightest suspicion of carnal desire, would make her, for very shame, all the stronger. Instead, it was her father [...].'

The husband, who is already absent from the *Passio*, is not the threat; it is her father. She herself is already living in heaven and is therefore beyond carnal desire.

[15] *Gn. litt.* (CSEL 28,1, 3-435).
[16] *virg.* (CSEL 41, 235-302).
[17] *S.* 282 *auct.* 4, *Wiener Studien* 121 (2008) 262f., also refers to this vision of Perpetua.

Digitized by Google

Motherhood

The women are not only *mulieres*, but also *matres*. Perpetua has an infant son with her whom she must give away, and Felicitas prematurely and under extreme pain gives birth to a daughter in prison, just in time to be allowed to be executed. Thus, as Ronsse states, 'Bodily experiences of motherhood – both parturition and lactation – pervade the *Passio*'.[18]

How do the sermons deal with the motherhood of the two women? There was a model which was well known to Augustine and was widely expounded by John Chrisostom and Gregory of Nazianzus, and that is the mother of the Maccabee brothers.[19] While it already clearly influenced the depiction of Blandina in the Scilitan martyr narrative, it might also have left its traces on this passion, because Perpetua also inspires the other martyrs like a noble mother.[20] In the sermons, however, this model does not seem to play a role.

Felicitas' pains of parturition are declared the penalty woman must suffer after committing the original sin. This is a concept which is totally absent from the *Passio* itself, and the fact that it is evoked several times in each sermon might be due to the Pelagian controversy. The idea of a 'martyrdom of giving birth', present in the *Passio* itself, in which the birth process is explicitly linked to the execution scene (18.3), is, however, indirectly taken up in the newly discovered parts of *sermo* 282 (*s.* 282 *auct.* 5), where Augustine points to the antithesis between painful parturition and painless execution.[21]

The fact that Perpetua is a mother is not central. It is only mentioned once and seen as an additional handicap which adds to her bodily frailness and serves as an asset against her in the eyes of the 'crafty enemy'. The miracle of her steadfastness is therefore even greater.

Conclusion

Perpetua and Felicitas are meant to inspire the congregation not only by their virile courage and steadfastness, but even more so by serving as allegories for the reward waiting for the martyrs and the other Christians living martyrdoms of asceticism: the reward of perpetual felicity.

[18] E. Ronsse, Rhetoric of Martyrs (2006), 285.

[19] See Catherine Brown Tkacz, The Seven Maccabees, the Three Hebrews and a Newly Discovered Sermon of St. Augustine (Mayence 50): *REA* 41 (1995) 59-78, 62; R. Ziadé, *Les martyrs Maccabées* (2007).

[20] William Clifford Frend, Blandina and Perpetua: Two early Christian heroines, in: *Les Martyrs de Lyon (177), Lyon 20-23 September 1977*, Colloques Internationaux du Centre National de la Recherche Scientifique 575 (Paris, 1978), 167-77.

[21] Transferring the motives of loss of memory and painlessness ascribed to Perpetua, who cannot remember her fight with a cow, to Felicitas' execution (*Perp.* 20.8).

Digitized by Google

In the sermons' reading of the *Passio*, Perpetua and Felicitas have, at least spiritually, already moved on to heaven, even while they are fighting the crafty enemy in the trials of prison and execution. They have become almost genderless, which is underlined by the emphasis put on their *homo interior*. Perpetua and Felicitas are very far removed from earthly emotions – as if they were angels living in heaven. Therefore, such an image does not allow for much emphasis on their status as non-virgins and as mothers and daughters.

The perfomative context of the sermons, their emphasis on the *homo-interior*-concept which derives from an originally anti-manichean Genesis interpretation as well as the importance of original sin might have been influenced by regional controversies.

Digitized by Google

Digitized by Google

Physical Infirmity, Spiritual Strength: Augustine's Female Martyrs

Elena MARTIN, Durham

In his sermons delivered at the festivals of the martyrs Augustine discusses a number of female martyrs, including Perpetua and Felicitas, Crispina, Agnes, Eulalia, the Maccabean mother, Victoria and Perpetua, Valeriana and Victoria, and Donata.[1] These female martyrs are not often included in studies of Augustine's attitudes towards women.[2] Instead, the study of Augustine's views on women has been dominated by three main approaches: surveys of his relationships with the women encountered in the *Confessiones*; analyses of his correspondence with women in his *Epistulae*; examinations of theoretical reflections on women in his theological treatises, such as *De trinitate*. Augustine's sermons on female martyrs have, therefore, been neglected as sources that can provide a fresh perspective on, and enrich our knowledge of, the ongoing debate on Augustine's attitude towards women.

In addition to this, female martyrs are often overlooked in studies of Augustine's interpretation of martyrdom, despite the fact that his sermons are key sources that attest to the presence of women in the North African cult of the saints.[3] As Augustine perceived a distinction between the martyrdom of men

[1] Perpetua and Felicitas, *s.* 159A.11 (WSA III/11, 142); 280-2 (WSA III/8, 72-82). Crispina, *s.* 286.2 (WSA III/8, 102); 313G.3 (WSA III/9, 124); 354.5 (WSA III/10, 158-59); *En. Ps.* 120.8 (WSA III/19, 510-26); 137 (WSA III/20, 242-55); cf. *uirg.* 44.45 (WSA I/9, 98). Agnes, *s.* 273.6 (WSA III/8, 19-20); 286.2 (WSA III/8, 102); 354.5 (WSA III/10, 158-9). Eulalia, *s.* 313G.3 (WSA III/9, 124). The Maccabean mother, *s.* 300 (WSA III/8, 276-81); 301 (WSA III/8, 282-9). Victoria and Perpetua, *s.* 335A.1 (WSA III/9, 211-2). Valeriana and Victoria, *s.* 325.1 (WSA III/9, 167-8). Donata, *s.* 37.1 (WSA III/2, 164-207); 299E.2 (WSA III/8, 265). See also *s.* 294 (WSA III/8, 180-96); 299D.7 (WSA III/8, 261); 299E.1 (WSA III/8, 263-4); 305A.2 (WSA III/8, 325); 345 (WSA III/10, 64); 360.10 (WSA III/9, 23-4).

[2] For example, E. Ann Matter, *De Cura Feminarum*: Augustine the Bishop, North African Women, and the Development of a Theology of Female Nature: *AugStud* 36 (2005) 87-98; Ellen Weaver and Jean Laporte, Augustine and Women: Relationships and Teachings: *AugStud* 12 (1981) 115-31; Jean A. Truax, Augustine of Hippo: Defender of Women's Equality?: *Journal of Medieval History* 16 (1990) 279-99; Kari Elisabeth Børresen, Patristic 'Feminism': The Case of Augustine: *AugStud* 25 (1994) 139-52.

[3] One exception is Perpetua and Felicitas. See Kenneth B. Steinhauser, Augustine's Reading of the *Passio Sanctarum Perpetuae et Felicitatis*: *SP* 33 (1997) 244-9; Gertrude Gillette, Augustine and the Significance of Perpetua's Words: 'And I was a Man': *AugStud* 32 (2001) 115-25; John Kitchen, Going to the Gate of Life: The Archaeology of the Carthage Amphitheatre and

Studia Patristica XLIX, 211-215.
© Peeters Publishers, 2010.

Digitized by Google

and that of women, this exclusive focus on male martyrs erases women from the picture, resulting in a partial and distorted representation of Augustine's vision of martyrdom. A more accurate picture only starts to emerge once we turn our attention towards female martyrs.

These observations present us with a number of interesting avenues of study which have yet to be explored. The remainder of this paper offers one example of how the martyrdom of women enabled Augustine to communicate spiritual truths and provide moral guidance to his Christian audiences.

Classical medical theory asserted the physiological and psychological inferiority of the female sex by explaining the intellectual weakness of the female mind in relation to the physical weakness of the female body.[4] This assumed womanly weakness (*infirmitas sexus muliebris*) was accepted in legal circles and became a popular generalisation, with terms like *infirmitas*, *levitas*, and *imbecillitas* serving as a shorthand stereotype for the female sex.[5] While Augustine asserted the spiritual equality of men and women as human beings (*homines*), he accepted the physical inferiority of women in relation to their embodiment as *feminae* or *mulieres*.[6] This belief in the physical weakness of women informed his understanding of female martyrdom. Augustine affirmed that female martyrs were members of the weaker sex (*sexus infirmior*),[7] they were afflicted with womanly weakness (*muliebris infirmitas*),[8] and they had to battle against female fragility (*fragilitas feminae*).[9] This might seem to be derogatory by modern standards, but the notion of physical weakness is central to Augustine's theological and moral interpretation of female martyrdom.

Augustine believed that, as a result of the fall, all human beings – both male and female – are weak and they require help to do God's will.[10] This aid comes in the form of Christ's incarnation. By humbling himself to become human, Christ assumed the weakness of the flesh in order to redeem the weak by his resurrection.[11] The martyrs, too, were weak human beings in need of divine

Augustine's Sermons on Saints Perpetua and Felicitas, in: Georgiana Donavin, Cary J. Nederman, and Richard Utz (eds.), *Speculum Sermonis: Interdisciplinary Reflections on the Medieval Sermon* (Turnhout, 2004), 29-51.

[4] See examples and discussion in A. Carson, Putting Her in Her Place: Woman, Dirt, and Desire, in: D.M. Halperin, J.J. Winkler, F.I. Zeitlin (eds.), *Before Sexuality: The Construction of Erotic Experience in the Ancient Greek World* (Princeton, 1990), 135-69, esp. 137f.

[5] Suzanne Dixon, Infirmitas Sexus: Womanly Weakness in Roman Law: *Tijdschrift voor Rechtsgeschiedenis* 343 (1984) 343-71.

[6] *Gn. Litt.* 3.22; 11.42.58 (ACW 41, 98-9; ACW 42, 175-6); *diu. qu.* 11 (FC 70, 42); *trin.* 12.3.10-2 (WSA I/5, 327-9).

[7] *s.* 281.1 (PL 38, 1284); 299E.1 (WSA III/8, 263); 282.2 (PL 38, 1285); 313G.3 (WSA III/9, 124); 159A.11 (WSA III/11, 142); *En. Ps.* 120 (PL 37, 1617).

[8] *s.* 286.2(2) (PL 38, 1298); 282.3 (PL 38, 1286).

[9] *s.* 281.1 (PL 38, 1284).

[10] *s.* 299E.1 (WSA III/8, 263); 305A.2 (WSA III/8, 325).

[11] *s.* 279.8 (WSA III/8, 64); 340A.5 (WSA III/9, 298-9); 341A.1-2 (WSA III/10, 30-1).

Digitized by Google

aid: they too were made of flesh, and were afraid of suffering and death.[12] While Christ's death provided an example for imitation and a path for the martyrs to follow, the martyrs also required the interior working of grace to strengthen them.[13] But, as women were considered to be physically weaker than men, female martyrs needed extra help in their battle against the additional obstacle of physical infirmity. For this reason, Augustine says that female martyrs provide a more forceful revelation of Christ. He says: 'If men alone ... stood out as being brave and strong in suffering, their courage would be attributed to their being the stronger sex. The reason the weaker sex too has been able to suffer bravely, is that God was able to make it possible in people of all sorts'.[14] While for men the courageous endurance of torture may be explained by the natural strength of the stronger sex, the image of a naturally weak woman enduring torture points towards Christ's presence and power working within the female body.

Augustine describes this inner working of grace in terms of an intimate loving embrace between the female martyr and the male Christ. So, in her *passio* Crispina is described by her persecutor as stubborn and insolent (*dura et contemprix*), and her words convey a strong, defiant, and resolute faith.[15] But Augustine's Crispina is soft and weak: she is a wealthy and delicate lady (*divitem et delicatam ... delicatae feminae*), physically weakened by her lifestyle (*consuetudine corporali infirmior*), and she is a member of the weaker sex (*sexu infirma*), afflicted with womanly weakness (*muliebris infirmitas*).[16] Identifying her with the bride in the *Song of Songs*, Augustine explains that Crispina was strong because she was protected by Christ: he kept her safe by placing his left hand beneath her head, and embracing her with his right hand.[17]

This mystical and sensual relationship is also found in Augustine's depiction of Perpetua and Felicitas. Here, too, Augustine engages in an auditory rewriting by altering the powerful portraits found in the *passio* to re-present Perpetua and Felicitas as weak women. Christ empties himself, he fills the martyrs with courage, and he dwells in their bodies.[18] Perpetua and Felicitas cling to him (*inhaeserant*), they hold onto his name (*tenentes nomen Christi*), and they draw strength from him (*virtutem traxerant*).[19] Like chaste wives, the female martyrs

[12] *s.* 335H.2 (WSA III/9, 247); 273.9 (WSA III/8, 21).

[13] *s.* 375B.1 (WSA III/10, 332-3); 335.1 (WSA III/9, 208); 284 (WSA III/8, 87-94); 335J.1 (WSA III/9, 252); 280.4 (WSA III/8, 74).

[14] *s.* 299E.1 (WSA III/8, 263).

[15] *Passio Sanctae Crispinae* 1, in: Herbert Musurillo, *Acts of the Christian Martyrs*, vol. 2, Oxford Early Christian Texts (Oxford, 2000), 302f.

[16] *s.* 286.2 (PL 38, 1298); *En. Ps.* 121.13 (PL 37, 1616-7).

[17] *En. Ps.* 121.13 (PL 37, 1616-7); see *Song of Songs* 2:6.

[18] *s.* 280.1 (PL 38, 1281): *semetipsum exinanivit ... fortitudine implevit*; see *s.* 280.4 (PL 38, 1282): *Vicit in eis qui vixit in eis.*

[19] *s.* 281.1 (PL 38, 1284); 280.1 (PL 38, 1281).

Digitized by Google

dedicate their lives to their husband: living not for themselves, but only for him (*non sibi, sed illi vixerunt*).[20]

By recasting these martyrs as weak women, Augustine's female martyrs become visual icons that illustrate the spiritual truths of martyrdom: humility, love, grace, and redemption. They also affirm that femininity is a significant and positive element in a woman's relationship with Christ. Women do not need to deny their femininity or 'become male', as other Church Fathers suggest.[21] Rather, the weakness of the female sex is presented as a central feature in the union between women and Christ. Although Augustine did describe some female martyrs with a gendered language of virtue – they exhibit a manly spirit (*virilis animus*), or die faithfully and manfully (*viriliter et fideliter mori*) –,[22] this virility is understood specifically in terms of their conformation to Christ, the perfect man (*Eph.* 4:13).[23] In fact, it is precisely by responding to Christ as women that female martyrs transcend sexual differentiation in the spiritual realm of the soul (*interiorem hominem*), and even their bodies are transformed in anticipation of the spiritual beauty to which they will be accommodated at the resurrection.[24]

The natural weakness of the female martyrs makes them valuable figures for Augustine to employ in a pastoral context. In all his sermons delivered at martyr festivals Augustine was keen to affirm that imitation was the only proper way to honour the martyrs.[25] In order for this to work, Augustine had to present the martyrs as imitable figures whose actions were admirable and exemplary but still realistic and achievable. He says that it is for this very reason that people of both sexes and all ages have been crowned as martyrs, and it is for this reason that female martyrs are the most universally accessible models for imitation.[26]

[20] *s.* 280.4 (PL 38, 1282); cf. 282.1 (PL 38, 1284): Perpetua and Felicitas cling *uni viro, cui virgo casta unica exhibetur Ecclesia.*

[21] See examples in Elizabeth Castelli, 'I Will Make Mary Male': Pieties of the Body and Gender Transformation of Christian Women in Late Antiquity, in: Julia Epstein and Kristina Straub, *Body Guards: The Cultural Politics of Gender Ambiguity* (New York and London, 1991), 29-49.

[22] *s.* 281.1 (PL 38, 1284).

[23] *s.* 281.2 (WSA III/8, 78).

[24] *s.* 280.1 (PL 38, 1281): *Secundum interiorem hominem, nec masculus, nec femina inveniuntur; ut etiam in his quae sunt feminae corpore, virtus mentis sexum carnis abscondat, et in membris pigeat cogitare, quod in factis non potuit apparere.*

[25] *s.* 325.1 (PL 38, 1447): '[T]o honour (*honorare*), and not to imitate (*imitari*), is nothing other than to flatter falsely (*mendaciter adulari*). For this reason, therefore, these festivals have been established in the Church of Christ, so that through them the congregation of Christ's members might be encouraged (*admoneatur*) to imitate the witnesses of Christ (*imitari martyres Christi*). This alone is the only advantage of these festivals, there is no other'; see *s.* 302.1 (PL 38, 1585); 299D.1 (WSA III/8, 256).

[26] *s.* 305A.2 (WSA III/8, 325); 306.10 (WSA III/9, 23-4); 159A.11 (WSA III/11, 142); *s.* 351.11 (WSA III/10, 132).

Digitized by Google

Achieving glory despite their womanly weakness, female martyrs were role models who encouraged the *physically* weak. Young children, the elderly, and other women were urged not to rely on their own strength but to accept their weakness with humility, and to remember Paul's words: 'what have you got that you did not receive?' (1*Cor.* 4:7).[27] Female martyrs were also appropriate figures for addressing the *spiritually* weak. These people, lacking faith, appealed to human weakness (*humana fragilitas*) to excuse themselves from imitating Christ's example.[28] Augustine rejects this excuse by showing that God had proposed the martyrs as moral exemplars in order to remove all excuses (*tollendas omnes excusationes*) and to strengthen faithless infirmity (*infidelis infirmitas*).[29] If women could follow Christ despite their female weakness then there is no reason why others should not try to do the same. Furthermore, Augustine employs what has been termed the 'rhetoric of shame' to directly address those *men* in his audience who were reluctant to follow Christ.[30] Augustine reminds them that they are called 'man' from the word 'manliness' (*a virtute vir diceris*),[31] but these men should blush for shame (*erubesce, barbate, erubesce*) because they are not able to equal the merits of weak women.[32] By describing this overturned order of woman over man and weak over strong, Augustine encourages, chastises, and shames his audience in an attempt to inspire them to live like martyrs and witness Christ in their daily lives.

In conclusion, this discussion of womanly weakness and female martyrdom has drawn our attention to some of the theological and moral meanings of the martyrdom of women in Augustine's sermons. In this brief overview we have caught glimpses of Augustine's views on Christ's incarnation, death, and resurrection, the centrality of love, and the necessity of grace. Further discoveries can be made by pursuing Augustine's treatment of female martyrs: his figurative explanation of female names, his use of female martyrs in debates on marriage and virginity, his understanding of the role of female martyrs in the course of salvation history (alongside biblical women like Eve, Mary, and Susannah), the importance of women martyrs for the construction of female piety. Augustine's depictions of female martyrs are personal images that embody his own particular take on the Christian faith. Continued research into Augustine's depictions of female martyrs not only has the potential to deepen our knowledge of his attitudes towards women and his interpretation of martyrdom, but also to form a more holistic picture of Augustine's ministry and theology.

[27] *s.* 305A.2 (WSA III/8, 325).
[28] *s.* 325.1 (PL 38, 1448).
[29] *ibid.*
[30] Elizabeth A. Clark, Sex, Shame, and Rhetoric: En-Gendering Early Christian Ethics: *JAAR* 59 (1992) 221-45.
[31] *s.* 345.6 (PL 39, 1521).
[32] *s.* 345.6 (PL 39, 1521); 306.10 (WSA III/9, 23-4).

Digitized by Google

Digitized by Google

Virgil, Cicero and the *rusticanus*: Augustine's *Contra academicos* III 15.34-35

Kenneth B. STEINHAUSER, St. Louis, Missouri

In the summer of 386 Augustine went into retreat at Cassiciacum with some family members and close friends. Three dialogues, *Acad.*, *beata u.* and *ord.*, and his *sol.* reveal his intellectual journey. His very first speculative task was the refutation of skepticism which is recorded in his three books *Against the Academics*. The role of skepticism in Greek philosophy was significant.[1] Here I restrict myself to a brief summary sufficient enough to provide the context for the present study. Pyrrho is considered the father of skepticism.[2] Arcesilaus, who founded the Middle Academy, influenced Cicero's thought on this subject.[3] The driving force behind skepticism is the overwhelming desire never to make a mistake.[4] If a man makes a mistake, he would not know the truth and would not be wise. Since only the wise man can be happy, one who makes a mistake cannot be happy. The solution to the problem is not to assent to error. Since it is impossible to determine whether an assertion is erroneous or not, if one does not assent to any assertion, one can never make a mistake. The argument, present in Cicero's *Hortensius*, is cited by Augustine: 'If, then, nothing is certain and the wise man must not have opinion merely, the wise man will never give assent.'[5] Unfortunately this resolution leads at once to another even more important problem. Being unable to decide, the human being is now doomed to perpetual inertia. The solution, found in the teaching of Carneades, is also taught by Cicero.[6] A person is able to perform a moral action on the basis of probability. The probable is similar to the true and provides sufficient grounds

[1] See, for example, Charlotte Stough, *Greek Skepticism: A Study in Epistemology* (Berkeley, 1969), 18-66; R.J. Hankinson, *The Sceptics* (London, 1995), 52-115.

[2] Previous assumptions regarding the origin of skepticism have been questioned by Richard Bett, *Pyrrho, his Antecedents, and his Legacy* (Oxford, 2000), 14-59.

[3] See Cicero, *Lucullus* V 15 (Loeb 268, 484-5) and *De oratore* III 18.67 (Loeb 349, 54-5).

[4] See Cicero, *Academica* IV 16 (Loeb 268, 426-7): *quod haec esset una omnis sapientia, non arbitrari se scire quod nesciat.*

[5] Augustine, *Acad.* III 14.31 (CSEL 63, 71.10-2; transl. John J. O'Meara, ACW 12, 136): *si igitur nec certi est quidquam nec opinari sapientis est, nihil umquam sapiens approbabit*; see Cicero, *Hortensius* (ed. and transl. Laila Straume-Zimmermann *et al.*, no. 92 [pp. 98f.]).

[6] See Cicero, *Lucullus* XI 33; XXXII 104 (Loeb 268, 408-11; 600-1); see Carlos Lévy, *Cicero Academicus: Recherches sur les Académiques et sur la philosophie Cicéronienne*, Collection de l'École Française de Rome 162 (Rome, 1992), 276-90.

Studia Patristica XLIX, 217-222.
© Peeters Publishers, 2010.

Digitized by Google

for appropriate moral action under normal circumstances. In his *Acad.* Augustine vehemently refutes the doctrine of probability insisting that certainty is absolutely necessary for moral human action.[7] He explicitly identifies and refutes two skeptical principles: 'There are two points put forward by the Academics against which, in so far as we can, we have decided to advance: "Nothing can be perceived", and, "one must not assent to anything".'[8] In the course of his argument Augustine presents two parables to illustrate his contempt for skepticism. The parable of the crossroad refutes the concept that nothing can be perceived. The parable of the adulterous young man refutes the concept that one should assent to nothing. Although the word parable has evangelical overtones, these two parables have little to do with the gospel but are firmly rooted in the classical tradition of Virgil and Cicero. I will now consider each parable separately.

Nihil posse percipi: *The parable of the crossroad* (*Acad.* III 15.34)

In the first parable Augustine speaks of a *bivium* or crossroad, the proverbial fork in the road. When the road splits into two separate directions, the traveler is confronted with a decision regarding which path to take.[9] He must choose either one path or the other, or else remain indefinitely undecided, lingering where he is, going nowhere forever. In the parable two travelers arrive at the crossroad where they encounter a *rusticanus*, who is also twice called *pastor* or shepherd. Some scholars would posit a Christian allusion, identifying the shepherd with Jesus the Good Shepherd or with Ambrose the bishop, who is a shepherd of souls and spiritual guide to Augustine.[10] The traveler asks directions and the rustic responds: 'If you take this road, you will not go wrong.'[11] Actually the *rusticanus* speaks poetically and enigmatically in rhyme: *Si hac ibis, nihil errabis.* One traveler straightaway accepts the statement as true and continues his journey following the directions provided by the rustic. The other traveler remains unconvinced and undecided at the fork in the road. Then, another man comes along who stands in stark contrast to the rustic. The parable calls him an *urbanus*, who is astride a horse, exuding confidence and

[7] For treatments of Augustine's critique of skepticism see Augustine J. Curley, *Augustine's Critique of Skepticism: A Study of Contra Academicos*, Studies in the Humanities 14 (New York, 1997), and Eric Dubreucq, Augustin et le scepticisme academician: *RSR* 86 (1998) 335-65.

[8] Augustine, *Acad.* III 10.22 (CSEL 63, 62.11-3; ACW 12, 122): *duo sunt, quae ab Academicis dicuntur, contra quae, ut ualemus, uenire instituimus: nihil posse percipi et nulli rei debere assentiri.*

[9] Concerning the crossroad see Therese Fuhrer, *Augustin, Contra Academicos (vel De Academicis) Bücher 2 und 3: Einleitung und Kommentar*, PTS 46 (Berlin, 1997), 390.

[10] See J. Curley, *Augustine's Critique of Skepticism* (1997), 122.

[11] Augustine, *Acad.* III 15.34 (CSEL 63, 72.22; ACW 12, 138).

Digitized by Google

dependability. The *urbanus* speaks in prose and is completely logical: '"Go this way", he says. "I have just come from there".'[12] Obviously more sophisticated than the *rusticanus*, the *urbanus* appears more reliable. However, he turns out to be a scoundrel who gives the unsuspecting traveler false advice. According to Augustine both travelers erred because the first made a precipitous judgment and the second a false judgment. Two references in the works of Augustine help shed light upon the meaning of this parable.

The first reference is in Book I of *Acad.*, where there is a conflict between two points of view. On one hand, Licentius declares that one does not attain happiness in the acquisition of the knowledge of truth. The search alone is sufficient. On the other hand, Trygetius states that the perfectly happy man ought to have the power to acquire what he seeks, namely the possession of truth. Licentius speaks: 'If a man, for instance, were going to Alexandria and were going by the direct road, you could not, I take it, say that he was one who was in error. But if, meeting with various obstacles, he should spend a long time upon the way and should be overtaken, while still on the journey, by death, has that man not always sought and never found and still was not in error?'[13] Augustine sometimes mentions Alexandria in contrast to Carthage.[14] Carthage is nearby and known while Alexandria is far away and unknown. Already in Book I the quest for truth is described as a journey to some unknown, distant, obscure place.[15]

The second reference is in Augustine's *ench.*, written in 419 or 420, more than three decades after *Acad.*. A passage, where Augustine refers to an incident in his own life, helps clarify the meaning of the parable.[16] He narrates an episode which took place when he himself was traveling and came to a crossroad where he inadvertently took the wrong path. Because of his mistake he avoided a group of *circumcelliones*, who were lying in wait for him. Augustine ultimately arrived at his destination though in a roundabout way. He congratulated himself for having made the mistake and thanked God. At this point in the *ench.* Augustine cites the eighth *Eclogue* of Virgil: 'In the moment I saw you I lost my heart, and a fatal frenzy swept me away.'[17] 'Fatal frenzy' translates

[12] Augustine, *Acad.* III 15.34 (CSEL 63, 72.31-73.1; ACW 12, 139): *hac perge, ait: nam ego inde uenio.*

[13] Augustine, *Acad.* I 4.11 (CSEL 63, 13.7-11; ACW 12, 49): *nam si quis Alexandriam quaerat et ad eam recto pergat itinere, non opinor potes eum errantem uocare. quid, si eandem uiam uariis impeditus causis longo agat tempore et in ea morte praeueniatur, nonne et semper quaesiuit et numquam inuenit nec errauit tamen?*

[14] See Augustine, *Gn. litt.* XII 6 (CSEL 28, 387.13-5): *aliter enim cogitamus Carthaginem, quam nouimus, aliter Alexandriam, quam non nouimus*; see *c. Faust.* XX 7 (CSEL 25, 541.15-20).

[15] Karin Schlapbach, *Augustin, Contra Academicos (vel De Academicis) Buch I: Einleitung und Kommentar*, PTS 58 (Berlin, 2003), 128 traces the journey motif to Plato's *Menon*.

[16] See Augustine, *ench.* V 17 (CChr.SL 46, 57.19-58.62); see Possidius, *Vita Augustini* XII 1-2 (Verba Seniorum n.s. 4, 76.1-14).

[17] Virgil, *Eclogae* 8.41 (Loeb 63, 76-77): *ut vidi, ut perii, ut me malus abstulit error!*

Digitized by Google

the words *malus error*, literarily a 'bad mistake'. Augustine immediately continues: 'For there is also such a thing as a mistake which is good, one that does no harm but actually brings about some advantage.'[18] Using Virgil's reference to a *malus error*, Augustine posit the possibility of its opposite, namely a *bonus error* or 'good mistake'. Augustine made a good mistake in following the wrong path because he saved his life by avoiding the *circumcelliones*. In the same way the traveler who followed the advice of the *rusticanus* also made a good mistake and arrived at his final destination. This leads to an important distinction between error and sin. Both Augustine and the anonymous traveler made mistakes without committing sin. They reached their goals in spite of or, indeed, because of their mistakes.

Equipped with these references I now return to the *rusticanus* of *Acad.*. Rather than attempting to find a veiled Christian allusion in the word *pastor*, one should look to Virgil where the pastoral muses speak poetically and give advice to their hearers, often describing bucolic scenes such as feasts, animals and landscapes.[19] If a pastoral muse is capable of communicating a *malus error*, he is also capable of communicating a *bonus error*. The point of Augustine's parable is irony. On one hand, the wealthy, sophisticated, equestrian *urbanus* spoke logically but gave false directions. On the other hand, the humble, simple, peasant *rusticanus* spoke poetically but gave accurate directions.

Nulli rei debere assentiri: *The parable of the adulterous young man* (*Acad.* III 16.35)

One also might be tempted to find at the crossroad evidence of the catechetical practice of the church. There is a relationship between the two cities of Augustine and the two ways of catechetical instruction.[20] The link is evident in *cat. rud.* where Augustine mentions the two conflicting cities to his aspiring catechists.[21] Since Augustine was writing his *Acad.* at Cassiciacum soon after his conversion to Christianity yet before his baptism, one might be inclined to conclude that the catechetical instruction, which he had received concerning the two ways, was fresh in mind as he engaged in dialogue shortly thereafter. However, the parable of the adulterous young man clearly demonstrates that the crossroad

[18] Augustine, *ench.* V 17 (CChr.SL 46, 57.43-4; transl. Louis A. Arand, ACW 3, 24-5): *quoniam est et error bonus qui non solum nihil obsit uerum etiam prosit aliquid.*

[19] See Michael von Albrecht, *A History of Roman Literature from Livius Andronicus to Boethius*, vol. 1 (Leiden, 1997), 688-95; A. Perutelli, art. Bucolics: *A Companion to the Study of Virgil*, Nicholas Horsfall (ed.) (Leiden, 1995), 54-9.

[20] See Johannes van Oort, *Jerusalem and Babylon: A Study into Augustine's City of God and the Sources of his Doctrine of the Two Cities* (Leiden, 1991), 175-98.

[21] See Augustine, *cat. rud.* XIX 31; XXI 37 (CChr.SL 46, 155.1-156.23; 161.1-162.52).

Digitized by Google

is not of catechetical origin. In his *De officiis* Cicero writes that the young Hercules had to choose between the way of pleasure and the way of virtue: 'For we cannot all have the experience of Hercules, as we find it in the words of Prodicus in Xenophon: "When Hercules was just coming into youth's estate [....], he went out into a desert place. And as he saw two paths, the path of Pleasure and the path of Virtue, he sat down and debated long and earnestly which one it were better for him to take."'[22] Augustine's second parable concerns a young man, who on the basis of probability, which is not true but merely similar to the truth, decided to commit adultery with another man's wife. At this point Augustine rhetorically addresses Cicero: 'I am asking you, Marcus Tullius – yes, you – for your opinion. We are dealing with the morals and lives of young men, with whose formation and instruction all your writings are concerned. What can you say but that it is not probable to *you*, that the young man would do such a thing? But to *him*, it is probable.'[23] As Augustine speaks, he is clearly referring to a young man standing before a momentous life-changing decision. If the parable were based on the catechesis of the church, Augustine would have no justification in directly attacking Cicero concerning this matter. However, if the parable were based on the story concerning the decision of Hercules, which Cicero specifically relates in his work *On Duties*, then Augustine would have every justification in throwing his objection in the face of Cicero and demanding a response. Augustine has caught Cicero contradicting himself. On one hand, Cicero insists that the wise man will never give assent. On the other hand, he asserts, through the story of Hercules, that a young man has the power to choose his vocation and way of life. Augustine has demonstrated that following the probable, while assenting to nothing, leads to moral disaster. Ultimately, the parable of the adulterous young man describes the absurd situation whereby on the basis of academic skepticism one can commit a sin without making a mistake. Once again the theme of poetic irony is evident.

These two parables illustrate Augustine's disdain for skepticism but more especially his abhorrence for Cicero's solution to the problem of skepticism. Probability is for Augustine not only an insufficient basis for human action but also downright dangerous because it opens the opportunity to justify evil actions logically. His criticism of the academics is extremely harsh. After initially laughing at their flawed logic, Augustine writes: 'Then, indeed, I

[22] Cicero, *De officiis* I 118 (Loeb 30, 120-1): *Nam quod Herculem Prodicus dicit, ut est apud Xenophontem, cum primum pubesceret [....], exisse in solitudinem atque ibi sedentem diu secum multumque dubitasse, cum duas cerneret vias, unam Voluptatis, alteram Virtutis, utram ingredi melius esset.*

[23] Augustine, *Acad.* III 16.35 (CSEL 63, 73.26-30; ACW 12, 140): *te, te consulo, Marce Tulli; de adulescentium moribus uitaque tractamus, cui educandae atque instituendae omnes illae litterae tuae uigilauerunt. quid aliud dicturus es quam non tibi esse probabile, ut id faciat adulescens? at illi probabile est.*

Digitized by Google

discovered so many such fundamental grounds against the Academics that I could no longer laugh, but was half angry and half sorrowful that men so learned and intelligent should have descended to such criminal and shameful doctrine.'[24]

[24] Augustine, *Acad.* III 15.34 (CSEL 63, 73.14-8; ACW 12, 139): *tum uero tam multa mihi et tam capitalia in istos uenerunt in mentem, ut iam non riderem sed partim stomacharer partim dolerem homines doctissimos et acutissimos in tanta scelera sententiarum et flagitia deuolutos.*

Digitized by Google

Truth and Dialectics in Augustine's *Soliloquies*

Tobias UHLE, Freiburg i.Br.

At the beginning of the *Soliloquies*, a dialogue between Augustine and his own *Ratio*, Augustine precisely states what he wants to find out from the conversation (1.7): *Deum et animam scire cupio* ('I want to know God and the soul').[1] It is significant that he speaks of *scire* ('to know'), which he also does only a few lines later, when he says (1.8): *Sed ego quid sciam quaero, non quid credam* ('But I'm looking for what I may know, not what I may believe'). This sentence is typical of Augustine, who, although already professing Christian faith, is not content simply to believe in the Scriptures, but is anxious to explain his beliefs rationally and to obtain certain knowledge.[2] To this end, he makes extensive use of dialectics, which – for Augustine – is nearly identical with Stoic propositional logic.[3] In his theoretical reflections on dialectics Augustine proves to be well-educated in this field. He is able to distinguish between true sentences and valid conclusions, and demonstrates familiarity with the correct use of implications, *i.e.* if-then-clauses, and disjunctions, *i.e.* either-or-clauses.[4] In order to obtain certain knowledge concerning important religious questions, Augustine tries to found his dialectical argumentation on sentences which can be accepted as true either because they are self-evident or based on the consensus of the philosophical tradition that Augustine subscribes to. It is revealing to see the enormous argumentative effort Augustine makes in his early dialogues to obtain his particular goal. This is evident in the *Soliloquies* as well, where the immortality of the soul is the subject matter of inquiry.

After having formulated the goal of the dialogue, to obtain certain knowledge of God and the soul, Augustine states that knowledge can only be certain if it is non-sensual as in, for example, geometry. Although the objects of knowledge

[1] All quotations of the *Soliloquies* are taken from the translation by Gerard Watson (ed.), *Saint Augustine, Soliloquies and Immortality of the Soul, with an Introduction, translation and Commentary* (Warminster, 1990). The Latin text is cited from CSEL 89, ed. by Wolfgang Hörmann (Vienna, 1986).

[2] For Augustine's well-known formula: *crede ut intellegas* (see *Io. eu. tr.* 29,6; 43,4-9; *s.* 118,1), see Eugene TeSelle, Crede ut intellegas: *AL* 2 (1996-2002) 116-9.

[3] See Jean Pépin, *Saint Augustin et la Dialectique* (Villanova, 1976); Theodor G. Bucher, Zur formalen Logik bei Augustinus: *Freiburger Zeitschrift für Philosophie und Theologie* 29 (1982) 3-45.

[4] See *Acad.* 3.29; *doctr. chr.* 2.49-52.

Studia Patristica XLIX, 223-227.
© Peeters Publishers, 2010.

Digitized by Google

– God and geometrical theorems – may appear disparate, the way of gaining knowledge about them is fundamentally the same. Both are the objects of non-sensual, intellectual knowledge. Since God and the soul could only be perceived by means of truth (*per veritatem*), Augustine examines truth itself first (1.27). He distinguishes between true things or sentences (he uses the adjective *verum*) and truth itself (he uses the noun *veritas*), by which all true things or sentences are true (1.27). In the second book, after a detailed discussion of the necessary premises, Augustine finally tries to demonstrate the immortality of the soul by means of a complex argument (2.24).

The argument can be formulated as an implication with four antecedent clauses:

1. If the truth remains for ever
2. If discipline is truth
3. If every discipline is in the soul as its subject
4. If it is true that, if everything which is in a subject lasts for ever, it follows necessarily that the subject lasts for ever

C: then the soul lasts for ever, *i.e.* the soul is immortal.

The argument is valid in terms of Stoic logic. But what about the antecedent clauses which determine the consequent clause? Are they sufficiently justified? I shall now elaborate on the first two antecedents.

The first antecedent ('truth is immortal') is dealt with in the argument at the beginning of the second book (2.2). There it is stated that truth will last even if the world perishes and – even more surprisingly – even if truth itself perishes. For when the world has perished, it must be true that it has perished, because if it is not true that the world has perished, it has not perished.[5] Therefore, truth would survive the hypothetical extinction of the world. The same argument is valid for the extinction of truth itself. For when truth has perished, it must be true that it has perished.[6] Truth, therefore, would even survive its own hypothetical extinction.

This argument has been heavily attacked by modern scholars. As a typical example I quote Eckard König's criticism of it: 'Das erste Beispiel ist sinnlos, weil alle Aussagen stets "in der Welt" gemacht werden und damit "die Welt" voraussetzen; ebensowenig kann man freilich "die Wahrheit geht zugrunde"

[5] 2.2: *Quid? cum interierit [sc. mundus], si interiturus est, nonne tunc id erit verum, mundum interisse? Nam quamdiu verum non est mundum occidisse, non occidit. Repugnat igitur, ut mundus occiderit et verum non sit mundum occidisse* ('Well, when it [sc. the world] perishes, if it is going to perish, will it not then be true that the world has perished? For as long as it is not true that the world has perished, it has not perished. There would be a contradiction, therefore, in saying that "the world has perished" and "it's not true that the world has perished"').

[6] 2.2: *Quid? si ipsa veritas occidat, nonne verum erit veritatem occidisse?* ('And if the truth itself perishes, will it not be true that the truth has perished?').

Digitized by Google

als Aussage behaupten, weil jede Aussage das principium contradictionis, die Unterscheidung zwischen "wahr" und "falsch", schon immer voraussetzt.'[7]

This criticism, justified as it may at first seem, misses, in fact, the point in Augustine's argument. The critics base their allegations on the distinction between ontological and propositional truth, a distinction Augustine himself does not make, even though the translations suggest that. On the contrary, in the cognition of truth, the ontological and the propositional perspective are mixed together, for, as Augustine's argument implies, a thing is only true if it is the case. For that reason, the actual state of affairs and a true proposition about this state of affairs are closely connected with each other. This connection between ontological and propositional truth is especially important for the use of the Ancient Greek verb *einai* ('to be'), as Charles H. Kahn has shown, and this connection can be observed in Augustine as well: 'Now there is a one-to-one-correspondence between what is the case and the truth of the statement that it is the case. The statement that the door is open is true if and only if the door is in fact open.'[8] This means that a thing can only be recognized as true if it is actually the case. Also, a proposition is true if and only if the state of affairs expressed by the proposition is actually the case. Now, if the true knowledge of something is connected with the truth of an actual state of affairs, then the cognition of a true thing or sentence presupposes the truth. To put it another way: A thing is true if it is true. This means that truth is its own criterion.

The second part of the argument thus makes clear that it is pointless to deny the existence of truth. Whoever states 'there is no truth', gets caught in a performative contradiction[9], which means there is a contradiction between the

[7] Eckard König, *Augustinus Philosophus: Christlicher Glaube und philosophisches Denken in den Frühschriften Augustins* (Munich, 1970), 81. See also G. Watson (ed.), *Saint Augustine* (1990), 184: 'The difficulty with this argument is that if the world has perished, who, what or where will "we" be, so that we can be certain that we will be capable of making the statement? Can truth exist without someone to know the truth?'

[8] Charles H. Kahn, The Greek Verb 'to be' and the Concept of Being: *Foundations of Language* 2 (1966) 245-65, 252. See also Charles H. Kahn, A Return to the Theory of the Verb *be* and the Concept of Being: *Ancient Philosophy* 24 (2004) 381-405; Jan Szaif, Die Geschichte des Wahrheitsbegriffs in der klassischen Antike, in: M. Enders and Jan Szaif (eds.), *Die Geschichte des philosophischen Begriffs der Wahrheit* (Berlin and New York, 2006), 1-32, 1-4. In another article, Charles H. Kahn, Why Existence does not Emerge as a Distinct Concept in Greek Philosophy: *Archiv für Geschichte der Philosophie* 58 (1976) 323-34, 323, Kahn shows that the concept of being in Ancient Greek language, as he reconstructs it, *i.e.* that being is mainly used in the sense of 'to be the case' or 'to be true', did not change before the Middle Ages or even early modern times, from which point on being was mostly understood as 'existence'. Therefore, the classical concept of being was also still relevant for Augustine: 'As far as I can see, this development did not take place with Augustine or with the Greek Church Fathers, who remained under the sway of classical ontology'.

[9] I use this term according to the 'Transzendentalpragmatik' developed by Karl-Otto Apel and Wolfgang Kuhlmann. For the transcendental argument, *i.e.* the inconsistency between the speech conditions and the content of speech itself, see Matthias Gatzemeier, *Philosophie als Theorie der Rationalität, Band 2: Reflektierte Praxis. Normentheorie und Anwendungsethik* (Würzburg, 2007), 32.

Digitized by Google

semantic content of the sentence and the pragmatic claim to its validity, which again presupposes truth. From this necessary presupposition of truth, Augustine establishes, in the first part of the argument, the absolute and immortal being of truth. Augustine explains this conclusion with a reflexive definition of truth in 2.2: 'All that is true is true by truth.'[10] This principle recurs many times within the early Augustinian writings.[11] It is the reflexive structure of truth which ensures that truth, while conditioning every thing or proposition, is itself dependent on no prerequisite other than itself.[12]

Of course, though Augustine has shown the impossibility of going beyond the concept of truth (for the claim that there is no truth implies truth in its very claim), he has not yet made clear how he can propose true material sentences, *i.e. vera*, from the firm ground he has secured. He addresses this problem by discussing the second antecedent ('discipline is truth'). This sentence is examined in the long passage about dialectics in 2.19-21. The main line of the argumentation runs as follows: A discipline can only be a real discipline if it teaches true things. If any particular discipline is a true discipline, it can only be true by truth (2.21) – this is exactly what the notion of truth in the above definition says. But it is dialectics, understood as Stoic propositional logic, which is able to verify if a certain discipline is true. By applying dialectical techniques such as valid conclusions or the art of definition to a discipline, one can be sure whether the discipline consists of true sentences or not (2.20-21). In the text, this is illustrated by the discipline of grammar, but Augustine emphasizes that it is true for all disciplines (2.21.2). Now, the sentences of which a discipline consists can be accepted as true sentences if they can be shown to be deduced from other true sentences. In the end, there must be sentences which are true by themselves, which means that they cannot sensibly be doubted.

At this point, the dialectical principles are not only applied to other disciplines, but to dialectics itself. In other words, the truth of the dialectical principles is

[10] 2.2: *Quid illud? videturne tibi verum aliquid esse posse, ut veritas non sit?* ('What about this then: does it seem to you to be possible for something true to exist, while truth does not exist?'); *Verum autem non potest esse, si veritas non sit* ('But there cannot be something true if there is no truth').

[11] See *imm. an.* 19; *sol.* 1.3; 1.27; 1.29; 2.28; 2.29; 2.31; *vera rel.* 66; 73.

[12] If truth is to be perceived as being independent from the world, one may well ask where, in fact, it is. According to Christian doctrine, truth is associated with Christ, the second person of the Trinity. Augustine shares this belief, as can be seen from the juxtaposition of *deus* and *veritas* in the opening prayer of the *Soliloquies* (1.3): *Deus veritas, in quo et a quo et per quem vera sunt, quae vera sunt omnia* ('God, Truth, in whom and from whom and through whom all those things which are true have truth'). For the Trinitarian structure of the prayer, see Dominique Doucet, Recherche de Dieu, Incarnation et philosophie: *Sol.* I, 1, 2-6: *REAug* 36 (1990) 91-119, 111-8. When Augustine locates the truth in an incorporeal 'place', he may have been inspired by Plato's concept of the *noetos topos* (Plat. *rep.* 508b-c; 509d) or the *hyperouranios topos* (Plat. *Phaidr.* 247c-e), the realm of the Forms. For more on the influence of Plato's two-world doctrine on Augustine's thought, see Therese Fuhrer, *Augustinus* (Darmstadt, 2004), 74f.

Digitized by Google

ensured by applying these very principles to themselves. Thus, we can observe here a reflexive structure similar to the structure of truth. Because of this structural similarity of truth and dialectics, they can represent each other. On the one hand, it is dialectics that ensures that the disciplines are true, on the other hand, everything that is true is true by truth. From this point of view, dialectics and truth serve the same purpose, which is precisely why Augustine can identify them as the same thing (2.21): *Quisquamne igitur mirum putabit, si ea [sc. disciplina], qua vera sunt omnia, per se ipsam et in seipsa vera sit veritas?* ('Who will be surprised then if that discipline through which all things are true is through itself and in itself true truth?'). I want to emphasize, however, that it is not an identification in a very strict sense, but rather an identification by analogy. It is simply the structural similarity of truth and dialectics which enables Augustine to identify them *per analogiam*. There remains, nonetheless, an important difference between dialectics and truth: whereas truth presupposes nothing but itself, dialectics always presupposes truth, for even dialectics is only true by truth (2.21).

To sum it up: In the *Soliloquies*, Augustine tries to demonstrate the immortality of the soul by means of a valid implication which is based on four antecedent clauses. A close reading of the first two of these shows that Augustine establishes a reflexive notion of truth, which lays a solid foundation for his further argumentation. In a second step, Augustine shows that dialectics has a structure similar to that of truth, insofar as dialectics is the criterion of truth not only for the other disciplines, but also for itself. This enables Augustine to show not only that truth is always to be presupposed, but also what a particular true thing or sentence, *i.e.* a *verum*, is. By means of dialectics, he can explain any sentence of any discipline by axioms which are accepted as true. In other words, by means of dialectics, Augustine can relate every sentence of the disciplines to truth itself. He thus reaches the goal he set for himself at the beginning of the dialogue: *sed ego quid sciam quaero, non quid credam* (1.8).

Digitized by Google

Digitized by Google

Augustine's Scriptural Exegesis in *De Genesi ad litteram liber unus inperfectus*

Naoki KAMIMURA, Tokyo

Introduction

During about forty years of his writing career Augustine endeavoured to write commentaries on Genesis at least five times.[1] He started writing the second of these, *De Genesi ad litteram liber unus inperfectus* (= *Gn. litt. inp.*), around 393, after his ordination to the priesthood. In *Retractationes* (= *retr.*), 1.18, Augustine describes at length the origin and end of his first literal exegesis of the six days of Creation. When he undertook a literal reading in *Gn. litt. inp.*, he found himself still inexperienced. It is at the very point that he was working his way up to *Gen.* 1:26 that he gave up his plan.[2]

Little attention has been focused on this work. It has been eclipsed by his comprehensive commentary, *De Genesi ad litteram libri duodecim* (= *Gn. litt.*) (401-15).[3] For Augustine advised his readers 'to read the twelve books that I composed much later'[4] in order to judge what he found himself dissatisfied with in the unfinished commentary. When he was revising his minor works in *retr.*, he found it among them and hesitated over whether to destroy it. Why can we read the commentary? Of course, it is because he did not abandon it. In 427 he finally complemented and published it: 'I decided to keep it so that it might serve as evidence, useful in my opinion, of my first attempts to explain and search into the divine Scriptures'.[5] Although for Augustine's early views on

[1] See Marie-Anne Vannier, *"Creatio", "Conversio", "Formatio" chez s. Augustin* (Fribourg, 1991), 83-94; Gilles Pelland, Augustin rencontre le livre de la Genèse, in: *"De Genesi contra manichaeos" "De Genesi ad litteram liber imperfectus" di Agostino d'Ippona* (Palermo, 1992), 15-53; Yoon Kyung Kim, *Augustine's Changing Interpretations of Genesis 1-3* (Lewiston, 2006), 4-7.

[2] See Roland J. Teske, The Image and Likeness of God in St. Augustine's *De Genesi ad litteram liber imperfectus*: *Aug* (1990) 441-51; Bronwen Neil, Exploring the Limits of Literal Exegesis: Augustine's Reading of Gen 1:26: *Pacifica* 19 (2006) 144-55, 148, n. 21.

[3] For the incompleteness of *Gn. litt. inp.*, see Roland J. Teske, *Saint Augustine on Genesis*, FC 84 (1991), 36-9; Marcello Marin, Il "De genesi ad litteram imperfectus liber", in: *"De Genesi contra manichaeos" "De Genesi ad litteram liber imperfectus"* (1992), 118f.; Edmund Hill, *On Genesis*, in: John E. Rotelle *et al.* (eds.), *The Works of Saint Augustine* I/13 (New York, 2002), 110f.; Pierre Monat *et al.* (eds.), *Sur le Genèse contre les manichéens; Sur la Genèse au sens littéral livre inachevé*, BA 50 (Paris, 2004), 387-92.

[4] *retr.* 1.18, FC 60 (1968), transl. Mary Inez Bogan, 77.

[5] *retr.* 1.18, FC 60, 77.

Studia Patristica XLIX, 229-234.
© Peeters Publishers, 2010.

Digitized by Google

Genesis we must take to his first literal exegesis, is there any other significant feature of the unfinished commentary? Does it only fall short of his considered views in the later commentary?

In this paper I first examine Augustine's bilateral commitment to the explanation of a literal exegesis in his works. Next I explore Augustine's way of exposition in *Gn. litt. inp.* Finally I shall argue the significance of his first literal interpretation.

1. Augustine's commitment to a literal interpretation

As he relates in *retr.* 1.18, when Augustine began writing *Gn. litt. inp.*, he seemed to appreciate the importance of the difference between the exegetical method of his present commentary and that of his former one, *De Genesi aduersus Manicheos* (= *Gn. adu. Man.*), which was written about four or five years before at the monastic community in Thagaste. In *Gn. adu. Man.* Augustine intends to explain 'the words of Scripture according to their allegorical meaning, not presuming to explain such great mysteries of natural things literally'.[6] Although at that time a literal interpretation could not avoid the serious danger with which the Manichaeans condemn the ordinary believers of the Catholic faith to accept what they consider blasphemy,[7] he would rather have recourse to an allegorical way of reading. He would not admit that *Gn. adu. Man.* ends in failure.

With regard to *Gn. litt. inp.*, Augustine considers it as a challenging programme for his ability: 'In what sense the statements there made can be interpreted according to their historical signification – I wanted to test my capabilities in this truly most taxing and difficult work'.[8] At the point where he exerts himself to comment on *Gen.* 1:26, he would not resort to an allegorical way of reading. Instead the commentary remains incomplete. It can thus be seen how in *Gn. litt. inp.* the literal interpretation comes to be more highly demanded and more closely linked to his understanding of Genesis story rather than being in conflict with it. Augustine firmly adheres to its exegetical method in *Gn. litt. inp.*

The title words of the commentary, '*ad litteram*' also reveal a higher consciousness of his method-centred approach. At the time of publishing it, Augustine determined its title should be *De Genesi ad litteram inperfectus*.[9] However, nowhere in the commentary does Augustine mention the words '*ad litteram*'.

[6] *retr.* 1.18, FC 60, 76.

[7] See John J. O'Meara, *The Creation of Man in St. Augustine's De Genesi ad Litteram* (Villanova, 1980), 14.

[8] *retr.* 1.18, FC 60, 76.

[9] See *retr.* 1.18.

Digitized by Google

And he never makes clear what he defines by such a phrase. Why did he choose the heading?

Apart from such lexical deficiency, what evidence is there for his view of the literal interpretation around 393? It must be understood that his evaluation of a literal reading has been consistently negative. Reading texts '*ad litteram*' is defined as 'to understand it exactly as the letter sounds'.[10] And if anyone wants to take what is said, 'there is nothing more pernicious than to take whatever is there literally (*ad litteram*)'.[11] Augustine explicitly states his objection to the exposition.

Other crucial texts are found in *Gn. litt.* Augustine repeatedly stresses the need for discovering the literal meaning of texts.[12] Although he does not deny that the meaning intended by the author has an allegorical as well as a literal sense, he is primarily concerned with the literal interpretation. Augustine's creative devotion to a literal reading moves away from his early view. It would correspond to what his small commentary is finally entitled, *De Genesi ad litteram inperfectus*. Hence, I suggest even tentatively that the literal exposition in *Gn. litt. inp.* would comprise another aspect of signification which differs from that of his other early works. For in the small commentary Augustine undoubtedly offers a literal reading for twenty five verses, and he would call it the '*ad litteram*' exegesis later in *retr.* Before promoting the importance of a literal reading, Augustine seems to have appreciated it. If already in *Gn. litt. inp.* he regards it as necessary and useful, what does he consider to be its characteristics and how does he refer to it?

2. Exegetical method in *De Genesi ad litteram liber unus inperfectus*

In *Gn. litt. inp.* Augustine never mentions the words '*ad litteram*'. On the other hand, he offers us four manners of expounding the Scriptures.

> Four ways of expounding the Law are handed down by certain men who treat the Scriptures ... in accord with history, allegory, analogy, and etiology. It is a matter of history when deeds done – whether by men or by God – are reported. It is a matter of allegory when things spoken in figures are understood. It is a matter of analogy, when the conformity of the Old and New Testament is shown. It is a matter of etiology when the causes of what is said or done are reported.[13]

[10] *Gn. adu. Man.* 2.2.3, FC 84, 95.

[11] *De utilitate credendi* 3.9, *Library of Christian Classics* 6 (London, 1953), 298. As to another examples of Augustine's critical assessment, see also *De moribus ecclesiae catholicae* 1.10.17; *Confessiones* 5.14.24; 6.4.6; *De sermone domini in monte* 1.10.26; *Enarrationes in Psalmos* 33.1.7; 33.2.14.

[12] See *Gn. litt.* 2.9.22; 8.1.2; 8.1.4; 8.2.5; 8.4.8; 11.1.2; 11.2.4.

[13] *Gn. litt. inp.* 2.5, FC 84, 147. As to the possible sources of this quadripartite method, see Angelo Penna, *Sant'Agostino, La Genesi* I, NBA 9/1 (Rome, 1988), LXI-LXV; R.J. Teske, FC 84,

Digitized by Google

We find here the idea that, despite its uniqueness in his corpus except in *De utilitate credendi* 3.5, the way of reading 'in accord with history' (*secundum historiam*) attempts to make sense of what is done (*res gesta*) and narrated: Augustine has been mostly applying the '*secundum historiam*' to the texts of *Genesis*. It is noteworthy that this exposition interprets the sentence which provides a narrative account, not a single word which consists of articulated and letter sounds. Whether the word is linked to a particular thing and/or to a transferred sign, its meaning would be conferred by a word-giver, except for mishearing, misunderstanding, and the like. However, none of the words can express one's thought as a mental activity. A diverse combination would rather serve as a starting point for one's thought. This exposition thus should not be confused with the '*ad litteram*' method which intends 'to understand it exactly as the letter sounds'.

It is not only in *Gn. litt. inp.* that the phrase '*res gesta*' occurs. It is an expression which is often mentioned in *Gn. litt.*, applied to the account of events and historical facts.[14]

> In all the sacred books, we should consider the eternal truths that are taught, the facts that are narrated, the future events that are predicted, and the precepts or counsels that are given. In the case of a narrative of events, the question arises as to whether everything must be taken according to the figurative sense only, or whether it must be expounded and defended also as a faithful record of what happened (*res gesta*).[15]

This view of the literal interpretation corresponds to the exposition in *Gn. litt. inp.* referred to above. The idea that the literal interpretation should be designed for the sentence which reports the narrative of events and deeds done would help to pave our way towards the identification of the exposition with the literal exegesis in *Gn. litt.* At this point I suggest that Augustine's literal reading in *Gn. litt. inp.* is a pioneering effort which cannot be paralleled by the '*ad litteram*' exegesis in his other early works.

In his list of four ways of exposition stated above, Augustine first speaks of the method 'according to history' (*secundum historiam*) and then, in turn, gives an explanation of 'history' (*historia*). After offering us the historical interpretation, he does not go on to explain the mode of exposition from the viewpoint of its meaning. Augustine changes the direction of his description: he would rather make his way towards a definition of history. He makes an easy transition from one idea to the next: the one is to clarify that the Scriptures include different kinds of things, and the other is that there are different modes of exposition. What effect does this easy move have?

32, n. 60; M. Marin, Il "De genesi ad litteram imperfectus liber" (1992), 123-7; Martine Dulaey, L'apprentissage de l'exégèse biblique par Augustin (3): Années 393-394: *REAug* 51 (2005) 22-6.

[14] See also *Gn. litt.* 1.1.1; 1.17.34; 6.21.32; 8.1.2; 8.1.4; 8.4.8; 8.5.9; 8.7.13; 9.12.20; 9.12.22; 9.14.24; 9.16.30; 11.31.41; 11.34.45; 11.39.52; 11.41.57.

Digitized by Google

The transition seems to raise an interesting question. Its move clearly reveals the connection between the content of the Scriptures and their expositions and that within the Scriptures there are different kinds of texts.[16] Along with providing the connection, some of the Scriptures treated as 'history' are explained from the viewpoint of its historical exposition. Although in his commentary on *Gen.* 1:1 Augustine would equally refer to different modes of interpretation, then he turns to treat the following passages only in terms of its historical exegesis. Such an effort enables us to assume that Augustine defines Genesis as 'history'. The conception of 'history' thus serves as the ground on which the exposition in *Gn. litt. inp.* has rested.

However, despite his notion of 'history', Augustine does not think it necessary for scriptural exposition to fix the bond between the texts and their exposition later in *Gn. litt.*

> The narrative in these books [*Genesis*] is not written in a literary style proper to allegory, as in the Canticle of Canticles, but from beginning to end in a style proper to history, as in the Books of Kings and the other works of that type. But since those historical books contain matters familiar to us from common human experience, they are easily and readily taken in a literal sense at the first reading, so that the meaning of the historical events in relation to the future may also be subsequently drawn from them. But in Genesis, since there are matters beyond the ken of readers who focus their gaze on the familiar course of nature, they are unwilling to have these matters taken in the literal sense but prefer to understand them in a figurative sense.[17]

Augustine is still saying that there are different types of texts in the Scriptures. And he clearly admits that the *Genesis* story is written 'in a style proper to history'. Notwithstanding the difficulty of finding a literal sense, he stresses the necessity of finding both the literal and figurative sense in *Genesis*. Thus, his emphasis on the modes of exposition would allow him to loosen the connection between them: these books could be simultaneously explained in terms of both past-oriented and future-oriented exegesis. This means Augustine comes close to saying that this division of texts would not function as the basis for exegesis. More interested in the possibility of reading the Scriptures either from the viewpoint of their historical or figurative sense, he will be less interested in distinguishing the different kinds of texts.[18] Augustine is feeling his way towards another conception of texts: if scriptural texts could be less rigidly confined to past and future events, they would come to be mutually merged and be almost synonymous.

[15] *Gn. litt.* 1.1.1, ACW 41 (1982), transl. John Taylor, 19. See also *Gn. litt.* 8.1.4.

[16] See Robert A. Markus, *Saeculum: History and Society in the Theology of St Augustine* (Cambridge, 1970), 187-96.

[17] *Gn. litt.* 8.1.2, ACW 42, 33.

[18] See *De ciuitate dei* 15.8.1; 16.2.3; 18.40.

Digitized by Google

3. Conclusion

Augustine's first literal reading of *Genesis* was not completed. It seems reasonable to suppose that he faced some difficulties in providing a literal reading.[19] At the same time, I indicate another reason: it exists within his view of the aspect of scriptural texts. Although he has already started attempting a literal reading which would anticipate the historical mode of exposition developed later in *Gn. litt.*, Augustine has not yet worked out the idea of the double aspect of the Scriptures. At the time when he started attempting his first literal reading, Augustine could not open himself to the possibility of expounding the Scriptures as both according to history and according to allegory. However, his literal exposition has already realised its essential characteristics in *Gn. litt. inp.* It is the significance and impact of the small commentary.

[19] See R.J. Teske, The Image and Likeness of God (1990), 447-9.

Digitized by Google

Note sulla *Inchoata Expositio ad Romanos* di Agostino

Francesca Cocchini, Roma

Tra il 394 e il 395 Agostino, probabilmente a Ippona dove è prete, inizia a dettare, per non concluderlo, un commento alla *Lettera ai Romani*, appunto l'*Inchoata expositio*.[1] In questa sede mi limito a esaminare la spiegazione che egli propone di *Rm.* 1:4a: 'fu predestinato Figlio di Dio con potenza secondo lo spirito di santificazione per la risurrezione dei morti', un passo che scelgo per il particolare rilievo che Agostino gli riserva, tenendo conto anche del fatto che di esso ci sono scarsissime occorrenze nella sua intera produzione letteraria.[2]

Agostino lo aveva già esaminato pochi mesi prima, introducendolo quale prima *quaestio* nella *Expositio quarundam propositionum ex Epistola ad Romanos*, e così lo aveva spiegato: 'L'espressione: "secondo lo Spirito di santificazione per la risurrezione dei morti", significa che ricevettero il dono dello Spirito dopo la sua [di Cristo] risurrezione; ma [Paolo] ricorda la risurrezione dei morti, perché tutti in lui "siamo stati crocifissi" (*Gal.* 2:20) e siamo risorti'.[3]

La spiegazione già metteva in evidenza uno dei punti fondamentali che Agostino avrebbe poi sviluppato nel commento: la risurrezione menzionata da Paolo va certamente riferita a Cristo, ma concerne anche i credenti. Nella *Inchoata* infatti, dopo aver rilevato come Paolo avesse detto, a proposito di colui '"che secondo la carne è stato fatto dal seme di David", che questo stesso

[1] Per la traduzione, che seguo sostanzialmente, e il commento, cf. Maria Grazia Mara, *Agostino interprete di Paolo* (Roma, 1993); per l'edizione cf. *Sancti Aurelii Augustini Opera, sect.VI, pars I. Epistulae ad Romanos inchoata expositio*, ed. I. Divjak, CSEL 84, con le correzioni apportate da J. Rousselet, *A propos d'une édition critique recente*: REAug 18 (1972) 237-9.

[2] In *en. Ps.* 67.15 Agostino cita *Rm.* 1:3 e 1:4 come espressione che testimonia un uso linguistico particolare soprattutto nell'AT, in cui 'sembrerebbe quasi che un altro fosse il Figlio di Dio che ebbe origine dalla discendenza di David secondo la carne, e un altro fosse Gesù Cristo nostro Signore, mentre sono *unus atque idem*'. *Rm.* 1:4 è di nuovo citato insieme a 1:3 in *trin.* 12.6,7 sia per testimoniare che la Scrittura, pur sembrando che parli di due persone, in realtà menziona *unam eamdemque*, sia per chiarire che *quid est enim 'Filius Dei praedestinatus ex resurrectione mortuorum Iesu Christi' nisi idem Iesus Christus 'qui praedestinatus est Filius Dei'? Ergo quomodo hic cum audimus: 'Filius Dei in virtute Iesu Christi'; aut: 'Filius Dei secundum spiritum sanctificationis Iesu Christi'; aut: 'Filius Dei ex resurrectione mortuorum Iesu Christi'; cum dici potuisset usitate: 'In virtute' sua; aut: 'Secundum Spiritum sanctificationis' suae; aut: 'Ex resurrectione mortuorum' eius, vel 'mortuorum' quorum; non cogimur intellegere aliam personam, sed unam eamdemque, scilicet Filii Dei 'Domini nostri Iesu Christi'.*

[3] *Exp. Prop. Rm.* 1: *Quod autem ait: Secundum Spiritum sanctificationis ex resurrectione mortuorum, id est quia Spiritus donum acceperunt post eius resurrectionem; mortuorum vero resurrectionem memorat, quia in ipso omnes crucifixi sumus et resurreximus.*

Studia Patristica XLIX, 235-239.
© Peeters Publishers, 2010.

Digitized by Google

è "predestinato Figlio di Dio con potenza" non secondo la carne, ma "secondo lo Spirito", e non uno Spirito qualsiasi, ma lo "Spirito di santificazione per la risurrezione dei morti"',[4] Agostino si concentra sulla "risurrezione" e chiarisce come, mediante la risurrezione del Signore – che, riferita a lui morto, ne ha manifestato la *virtus* –, sia *signata* la "vita nuova" scaturita dalla santificazione. Spiega: 'Nella risurrezione infatti si manifesta la potenza di colui che muore, affinché si dicesse "predestinato con potenza secondo lo Spirito di santificazione per la risurrezione dei morti"[5]. Poi la santificazione ha prodotto la vita nuova che *signata est* con la risurrezione del Signore nostro. Per cui lo stesso Apostolo dice in un altro passo: "Se siete risorti con Cristo, cercate le cose di lassù, dove è Cristo seduto alla destra di Dio" (*Col.* 3:1)'.[6]

Con la menzione della 'vita nuova', dunque, Agostino ha trasferito l'enunciato paolino dall'ambito cristologico a quello antropologico-soteriologico, confermando tale valenza con il passo di *Col.* 3:1.[7] Prima però di proseguire in questa linea, avverte che nel testo il riferimento alla "risurrezione dei morti" può leggersi in un duplice modo: o collegato allo "Spirito di santificazione", o collegato al *praedestinatus*, e dichiara quindi, motivandola, la preferenza per la seconda opzione che comporta il ritenere un inciso le parole *Filius Dei in virtute secundum Spiritum sanctificationis*. Scrive: 'Questa costruzione mi sembra più sicura e migliore, in modo che sia Figlio di David nella debolezza secondo la carne, e Figlio di Dio con potenza secondo lo Spirito di santificazione'.[8]

Non vi è dubbio che ad Agostino interessa rilevare la corretta dottrina cristologica delle due nature, mediante cui può risolvere, al tempo stesso, il problema posto dal *praedestinatus est*, un verbo che, connesso al titolo 'Figlio di Dio', avrebbe potuto far pensare – come volevano gli ariani – che la figliolanza divina di Cristo non fosse eterna; in base alla lettura che egli propone, invece,

[4] *Ep. Rm. Inch.* 5.1: *Eumdem sane ipsum, qui secundum carnem factus est ex semine David, praedestinatum dicit Filium Dei in virtute; non secundum carnem, sed secundum Spiritum, nec quemlibet spiritum, sed Spiritum sanctificationis ex resurrectione mortuorum.* Il chiarimento, che intende riferire allo Spirito santo l'espressione 'Spirito di santificazione', potrebbe voler correggere una diversa opinione. Origene, ad es., aveva interpretato in senso cristologico l'espressione, connettendola con 1*Cor.* 1:30: '(Il Figlio di Dio) è detto poi "spirito di santificazione" per il fatto che offre a tutti la santità, come anche altrove di lui sta scritto: "Colui che per noi è stato fatto sapienza e giustizia e santificazione e redenzione"' (*Com. Rom.* 1.5, 850C).

[5] Sull'esegesi attuale del passo, cf. Romano Penna, *Lettera ai Romani. I. Rm 1-5, introduzione, versione, commento* (Bologna, 2004), 101: 'Paolo interviene, con ogni probabilità, aggiungendo il complemento *en dynàmei*, "con potenza", il quale va riferito non al participio "costituito" ma al titolo "figlio di Dio"'.

[6] *Ep. Rm. Inch.* 5.2-3: *In resurrectione enim virus morientis apparet, ut diceretur: Praedestinatus in virtute secundum spiritum sanctificationis ex resurrectione mortuorum. Deinde sanctificatio vitam novam fecit, quae Domini nostri resurrectione signata est. Unde idem Apostolus alio loco dicit: Si consurrexistis cum Cristo, quae sursum sunt quaerite, ubi Christus est in dextera Dei sedens.*

[7] *Ep. Rm. Inch. Inch.* 5.3.

[8] *Ep. Rm. Inch. Inch.* 5.5.

Digitized by Google

ad essere predestinata e ad aver dunque avuto un inizio nel tempo fu la risurrezione di Cristo, dovuta al suo essere 'Figlio di Dio con potenza secondo lo Spirito di santificazione'.[9]

La conferma è trovata in due passi scritturistici richiamati a motivo della presenza, in ciascuno di essi, di un termine che è presente anche in *Rm.* 1:4. Applicando la regola di interpretare la Scrittura con la Scrittura, Agostino cita prima *2Cor.* 13:4, dove ricorre l'espressione *in virtute*, e poi *Sal.* 110:1 per il, sia pure implicito, riferimento a David e spiega: 'In quanto è morto, ha attinenza con ciò il fatto che è Figlio di David; in quanto invece è risorto dai morti, corrisponde a ciò il fatto che è Figlio di Dio e Signore di David stesso, come in altro luogo dichiara il medesimo apostolo: 'Infatti anche se è morto per la debolezza, vive però *in virtute Dei* (*2Cor.* 13:4); sicché la debolezza attiene a David, mentre la vita eterna alla potenza di Dio. E perciò David lo indica come suo Signore appunto in quella espressione in cui dice: "Disse il Signore al mio Signore: siedi alla mia destra finché io ponga i tuoi nemici sotto i tuoi piedi" (*Sal.* 110:1)'.[10] Infatti, è perché è risorto dai morti che egli siede alla destra del Padre. Perciò David, vedendo in spirito che era predestinato per la risurrezione dei morti a sedere alla destra del Padre, non avrebbe osato chiamarlo figlio suo ma suo Signore (cf. *Mt.* 22:42)'.[11]

Ciò che però Agostino vuole evidenziare è, come ho accennato, il fatto che l'Apostolo parla sì di Cristo, ma avendo in mente i futuri risorti. Così commenta: 'Non dice però che egli fu predestinato per la risurrezione *a mortuis*, ma per la risurrezione *mortuorum* ... Fu predestinato Figlio di Dio per una sorta di primato di risurrezione, perché egli fu predestinato per la risurrezione di tutti i morti, fu cioè designato a risorgere su tutti e prima di tutti; così che l'espressione qui posta: "Figlio di Dio", dopo aver detto: "fu predestinato", valga come prova di così eccelsa sublimità. Infatti non avrebbe potuto essere predestinato così se non il Figlio di Dio, in quanto egli è anche il capo della chiesa, per cui in un altro passo lo chiama "Primogenito tra i morti" (*Col.* 1:18)'.[12]

[9] Così fa notare M. G. Mara rinviando a *Io. eu. tr.* 105.8 (*Agostino interprete*, 1993, 170 n. 17). Agostino aveva già proposto una analoga interpretazione ai manichei quando, nel 392, aveva esposto loro l'intera pericope di *Rm.* 1:1-4, pur sapendo che essi non ne riconoscevano l'autorevolezza: cf. *c. Fort.* 19: *Videmus Apostolum de Domino nostro docere, ut et virtute Dei ante carnem praedestinatus fuerit, et secundum carnem factus sit ei ex semine David. Hoc vobis sempre negaveritis et negetis, quomodo Scripturas flagitatis, ut secundum eas potius disseramus?*; si veda pure *c. Faust.* 11.1.

[10] Il richiamo a *Mt.* 22:42-5, dove si allude a *Sal.* 110, si ritroverà in *s.* 51.12,20 (del 417-8) dove ugualmente Agostino lo connette a *Rm.* 1:3: 'Lo stesso Signore propone ai giudei la questione che l'Apostolo risolve con queste stesse parole. Infatti, avendo detto: "Nato dalla stirpe di David", aggiunge: "secondo la carne", appunto per far intendere che, per quanto riguarda la divinità, non è figlio di David ma Figlio di Dio e Signore di David'.

[11] *Ep. Rm. Inch.* 5.7-9.

[12] *Ep. Rm. Inch.* 5.11-12.

Digitized by Google

In questa comprensione del passo paolino, antropologica oltre che cristologica, Agostino è debitore dell'Ambrosiaster, il quale nel suo *Commentario* aveva scritto: 'L'Apostolo però non ha detto: dalla risurrezione di Gesù Cristo, bensì: da quella dei morti, perché la risurrezione di Cristo ha accordato la risurrezione generale. Questa appare appunto in Cristo come il più grande miracolo e la più grande vittoria, in quanto egli operava da morto con la stessa potenza con cui aveva operato anche da vivo. Con questo atto fu manifesto che ingannò la morte per redimerci, onde l'Apostolo lo chiama: Signore nostro".[13] Diversamente però dall'Ambrosiaster, che aveva rilevato la finalità redentiva della risurrezione nell'inganno teso da Cristo nei confronti della morte, Agostino preferisce considerare come finalità il giudizio escatologico. Scrive: 'Occorreva infatti che venisse per giudicare quanti risorgono, egli che li aveva preceduti come modello; e non come modello di tutti quelli che risorgono, ma come modello di coloro che risorgeranno in una condizione tale da vivere e da regnare con lui in eterno. E di costoro egli è anche il capo come del proprio corpo (*Ef.* 4:15). E in effetti egli fu predestinato anche per la risurrezione di costoro, per diventare il loro *princeps;* degli altri, invece, che risorgono nella loro propria condizione, egli non è il *princeps* ma il giudice'.[14]

A conferma della propria interpretazione Agostino fa notare un'altra particolarità di *Rm.* 1:4, l'ultima espressione: *Iesu Christi Domini nostri,* di cui rileva la formulazione al genitivo. Spiega: 'Egli [il Figlio di Dio] pertanto non fu predestinato per la risurrezione di quei morti che avrebbe condannato. Infatti l'Apostolo vuole che si comprenda che fu predestinato per la risurrezione dei morti, perché precedesse la risurrezione dei morti; ma egli precedette coloro che lo seguiranno in quel medesimo regno celeste dove li precedette. Per questo motivo non dice: "il quale fu predestinato Figlio di Dio per la risurrezione dei morti" Gesù Cristo Signore nostro, ma "per la risurrezione dei morti di Gesù Cristo Signore nostro", come se dicesse: il quale fu predestinato Figlio di Dio per la risurrezione dei suoi morti, ossia degli appartenenti a lui per la vita eterna; come se gli fosse posta la domanda: Di quali morti? e rispondesse: Proprio di quelli di Gesù Cristo Signore nostro. Egli infatti non fu predestinato per la risurrezione di quegli altri morti che non precedette verso la gloria della vita eterna e che certo non lo avrebbero seguito'.[15]

L'interpretazione di Agostino, che limita ai risorti giusti la sfera d'azione a cui il Risorto fu predestinato, è peculiare: non si trova nell'Ambrosiaster e neppure in Mario Vittorino, Ambrogio, Girolamo, anche se in nessuno di questi autori *Rm.* 1:4 è così dettagliatamente esaminato.[16] Come spiegare, dunque, questa

[13] Cf. Ambst., *Com. Rom.* 1.4.

[14] *Ep. Rm. Inch.* 5.13.

[15] *Ep. Rm. Inch.* 5.14-16.

[16] Una anticipazione della interpretazione agostiniana si trova forse, sorprendentemente, nel *Commento a Romani* di Origene. A commento di *Rm.* 1:4 l'Alessandrino, dopo aver richiamato,

Digitized by Google

innovativa e personale interpretazione? Di certo, con essa Agostino può dar ragione del testo sul piano grammaticale, giustificando il genitivo dell'espressione: *Iesu Christi Domini nostri,* ma forse si può individuare un motivo più profondo considerando quello che, a mio parere, è il suo maggiore interesse nel commentare *Romani* in questo momento della propria vita. Come ha esplicitato nel "Prologo", egli ha trovato affermato in Paolo il primato della grazia giustificatrice che, escludendo meriti precedenti, si dimostra universale; aveva poi evidenziato come dalla giustificazione per fede e non per meriti, affermata da Paolo, derivasse il far sì che 'gli uomini non perché erano giusti credessero, ma, giustificati a motivo del credere, cominciassero poi a vivere secondo giustizia'.[17]

Dunque: primato della grazia, esclusione dei meriti per la giustificazione, precedenza dell'azione di Dio – giustificatrice o vocatrice – rispetto all'agire umano – sia esso giusto o santo: è questo il nucleo tematico che Agostino vuole evidenziare. Ma accanto a questa certezza, ve ne è un'altra che, a mio parere, egli vuole ugualmente sottolineare: la necessità della risposta da parte di chi è stato gratuitamente giustificato o chiamato.[18] Da qui il non perdere occasione per mostrare come sia possibile che si verifichino distinzioni tra gli uomini, successive all'evento di grazia: se *prima* del vangelo tutti sono uguali davanti a Dio, *dopo* ognuno è responsabile della sua condotta. Forse è per questo che Agostino interpreta *Rm.* 1:4 come abbiamo visto, differenziando tra i risorti coloro che 'dovranno risorgere in una condizione tale da vivere e da regnare con [Cristo] in eterno' e coloro 'che risorgono nella loro propria condizione', trovandosi così di fronte non il 'capo del proprio corpo' ma 'il giudice' da cui 'ricevere i castighi'.

Conclude infatti il commento ribadendo: '[Egli] non fu predestinato in virtù di quegli altri morti che non precedette verso la gloria della vita eterna e che certo non lo avrebbero seguito, dato che gli empi dovranno risorgere per ricevere i loro castighi. Quindi, in qualità di Figlio di Dio unigenito e anche primogenito tra i morti, "fu predestinato per la risurrezione dei morti". E di quali morti se non di quelli "del Signore nostro Gesù Cristo?"'.[19]

come farà Agostino, il titolo cristologico di *Col.* 1:18 'primogenito tra i morti', si chiede se ci furono altri a risorgere con Cristo, forse da identificare con la 'chiesa dei primogeniti' nei cieli (*Com. Rom.* 1.6, 852BC).

[17] *Ep. Rm. Inch.* 1.1.

[18] Cf. Gaetano Lettieri, *L'altro Agostino: Ermeneutica e retorica della grazia dalla crisi alla metamorfosi del De doctrina christiana* (Brescia, 2001), 31.

[19] *Ep. Rm. Inch.* 5.16-17.

Digitized by Google

Digitized by Google

The Human Condition as a Unifying Theme of the *Confessiones*

Johannes BRACHTENDORF, Tübingen

The question concerning the unity of the *conf.* has been discussed from the very beginnings of modern research on Augustine.[1] In this respect, Augustine's most famous work yields many puzzles. Books I through IX appear to exhibit considerable coherency insofar as Augustine narrates his life story from childhood, through his conversion, up to the death of his mother. Nevertheless, these autobiographical passages are altogether brief and embedded in comprehensive reflections on the supposed innocence of children, on their language-acquisition, on the desire to be like God as the root of evil, as well as on a theory of natural law, on Manichaeism, Neo-Platonism, and the proper way to mourn amongst other topics. The tenth Book contains the *memoria*-tractate and an analysis of the temptations Augustine is subject to even after his conversion to Christianity. The contrast of these topics to the autobiographical depictions of the first nine Books has been so strongly perceived that some interpreters have cast Book X as a later insertion into the already completed work.[2] Books XI through XIII indeed demonstrate a certain formal connection to one another by interpreting the first chapter of the *Book of Genesis* (1:1-2:3). But one can still ask how strong the exegetical bond really is that holds the last Books together. For the eleventh Book focuses exclusively on the first words of the Bible: 'In the beginning (in principio)'. Augustine seems to use these words as an occasion to develop a philosophical theory of time by means of an interpretation of the word *beginning* (*principium*). The twelfth Book is concerned with the rest of the first verse, 'in the beginning you made heaven and earth', and considers the second verse as well: 'the earth was invisible and unorganized, and darkness was over the abyss'. With regard to its content, however, Book XII is a matter of metaphysics. Augustine justifies why he believes the Book of Genesis may

[1] For an overview see Erich Feldmann, Das literarische Genus und das Gesamtkonzept der Confessiones, in: Norbert Fischer / Cornelius P. Mayer (eds.), *Die Confessiones des Augustinus von Hippo: Einführung und Interpretationen zu den dreizehn Büchern* (Freiburg, 1998), 11-59; *id.*, art. Confessiones: *AL* 1 (1994) 1143-53. See Aimé Solignac, Doxographies et manuels dans la formation philosophique de saint Augustin: *RechAug* 1 (1998) 19-26; Pierre Courcelle, *Recherches sur les Confessions de Saint Augustin* (Paris, ²1968), 5-11.

[2] See Eduard Willinger, Der Aufbau der Konfessionen Augustins: *ZNW* 28 (1929) 81-106. P. Courcelle (²1968), 19-25.

Studia Patristica XLIX, 241-252.
© Peeters Publishers, 2010.

Digitized by Google

be read as a metaphysical doctrine and offers a metaphysics of the intelligible world and of pure matter that certainly is based on Neo-Platonism. It is Book XIII, which interprets the entire first chapter of *Genesis* through to 2:3, that first roughly conforms to what we would expect from biblical exegesis. But the Book is still strikingly odd due to its figurative interpretation that understands every detail of the creation account in light of the New Testament's redemption narration. Augustine unremittingly connects the *Book of Genesis* to the Gospels and the epistle literature of the New Testament. In none of his other exegetical works does Augustine push the figurative interpretation to such extremes as in the thirteenth Book of the *conf.* While Books XI through XIII demonstrate cohesiveness in a formal respect, since they interpret the beginning of the Bible, their contents and methods are thoroughly heterogeneous. Thus, the coherency of these Books as a whole is utterly problematic.

Particularly questionable is, however, how these exegetical Books are connected with the *memoria*-tractate and the analysis of temptations in Book X. There seems to be a sharp divide between the tenth and the eleventh Books of the *conf.* The connection, moreover, between *conf.* XI through XIII and the autobiographical reports of Books I through IX is in no way obvious. Why should a report of conversion end with a subtle philosophical analysis of time or with metaphysical speculations on the intelligible world or with detailed typological interpretations of the creation account?

Numerous attempts have been undertaken to answer the question of the unity of the *conf.* One attempt, for example, assigns the work to a literary genre and thus ensures its cohesion. Georg Misch made the first such attempt. In his *History of Autobiography* (1907), Misch classified the *conf.* as the first autobiography in the Western history of literature. The problem with this classification is obvious: first of all, it applies only to Books I through to IX; secondly, even these Books are to a small degree autobiographical reports and are to a much greater degree metaphysical, ethical, and linguistic reflections interpreting these reports; and thirdly, even in the autobiographical parts, Augustine is not concerned with highlighting his individual particularity, as would be typical at least for modern autobiographies, but intends rather to portray his life as an exemplification of the human situation and fate after the fall to sin.

A more adequate characterization of the *conf.* is that of a 'Christian Protreptikos' – that is, an exhortation to Christianity in the manner that Aristotle's *Protreptikos* and Cicero's *Hortensius* were for philosophy.[3] Augustine admonishes his reader to seek wisdom and encourages her to faith. He hopes to arouse the heart of his reader so that it does not sink into the sleep of despair upon noticing that the heart's own strength does not suffice but depends on the grace

[3] See E. Feldmann (1998), 11-59; *id.*, art. Confessiones (1994); C. Mayer, Confessiones 12. *Caelum caeli*: Ziel und Bestimmung des Menschen nach der Auslegung von Genesis 1,1f., in: N. Fischer / C.P. Mayer (eds.) (1998), 553.

Digitized by Google

of God (*conf.* X 3.4). This statement in particular seems to place the protreptic aim of the *conf.* within the tradition of antiquity's philosophical exhortations with the difference, however, that Augustine exhorts to a Christian wisdom that exceeds philosophy and includes faith.

However, problems also arise with this view. Augustine does not write, namely, for non-Christians, who perhaps read his confessions merely out of curiosity; he reveals himself rather to those who read in true brotherly love and who reprimand and commend him for the sake of his salvation (*conf.* X 1.1-5.7). Augustine clearly writes for a community of readers who are already Christian and who are, in part, even superior to him in their spiritual maturation. It would be surprising, moreover, if he would first make clear his intention in Book X instead of at the beginning of the work. In addition, the abstract arguments of Books X through XIII hardly match the character of a protreptikos.

Some scholars tried to anchor the unity of the work in individual concepts or in ternaries of concepts belonging together. Such attempts remain unsatisfactory. Early on, Ratzinger (1957), for example, pointed out the equivocation of *confession / confiteri*, which means, first of all, the confession of past and present sins (Books I-VII), secondly, the praise of God in the light of conversion (Books VIII-X), and thirdly, the conviction of faith in the word of God in Scripture (Books XI-XIII).[4] This arrangement clearly represents an overly crude simplification. Books I-VII cannot be reduced to a confession of sin; Book X is more confessional; and the eleventh and twelfth Books have an emphatic philosophical accent and well exceed a conviction of faith in God's word.

Many Augustine-researchers see a tri-partition in the *conf.*, namely in Books I-IX, Book X, and Books XI-XIII, and suggest a conceptual triad that accommodates this arrangement. One such conceptual triad is, for instance, the differentiation of *memoria*, *contuitus*, and *expectatio* taken from the treatise on time (Book XI). According to this division, *memoria* is the title for the Books of memory (I-IX), *contuitus* is understood as the perception of the present condition of the soul (Book X), and *expectatio* describes the expectation of future things in Books XI-XIII.[5] Other such triads are 'narration, reflection, meditation' or 'in time, now, in eternity' or 'faith, seeking, finding' or 'outer, inner, inmost' or even 'world, soul, God'.[6] The problematic of these triads is obvious. At most, the thirteenth Book is a meditation and deals with the future entrance of humans into eternity. In contrast, Books XI and XII are not meditations, but rather systematic analyses. The finding of God occurs in the seventh and eighth

[4] See Heinrich Böhmer, Die Lobpreisungen des Augustinus: *Neue kirchliche Zeitschrift* 26 (1915) 419-38, 487-512; Josef Ratzinger, Originaliät und Überlieferung in Augustins Begriff der confession: *REAug* 3 (1957) 375-92.

[5] See Paul Ludwig Landsberg, La conversion de saint Augustin: *La vie spirituelle*, suppl. 48 (1936) 31-56.

[6] See N. Fischer, *Was ist Zeit? (Confessiones XI/Bekenntnisse 11)*. Eingeleitet, übersetzt und mit Anmerkungen versehen (Hamburg, 2000), XLI.

Digitized by Google

Books more than in the eleventh through thirteenth, and the topics, soul and God, constitute all the Books of the *conf.*, whereas the world as creation does not appear at the beginning of the work but first in Books XI-XIII.

Since all these attempts remain unsatisfying, I would like to propose that the question concerning the unity of the *conf.* should not focus on literary form or on certain concepts but should focus on its content.[7] In particular, I suggest reading the *conf.* as a book on the *conditio humana* or on the anthropological conditions of the relation to God. Who is this human in search of God? Under which premises does this search of happiness take place and what stands in its way? What capacities does the human possess and what are his limitations? Were these conditions always the same, or do they change over time? An interpretation of the *conf.* as a treatise on the human condition may bring out the unity of the work.[8] Let us look first at Books I-IX. Augustine appropriates much here from Hellenistic philosophy, for example, Cicero's thesis that the human is quasi sick in his soul, namely insofar as he does not initially recognize the good, which is objectively the highest and which enlivens him, but rather regards subordinate goods, sometimes even evil, as the final goal. Humans strive after riches, power, and glory, and expect to derive happiness from their possession, but, in truth, their possession does not make them happy but more likely unhappy. Cicero had already stressed the degree to which parents, teachers, and public opinion disseminate and fortify false opinions about the highest good. Whoever is trapped in such misapprehensions is considered sick in the soul and therefore requires a cure, a therapy, a change of heart in order to get on the right path towards happiness.[9]

Augustine takes up this schema and exemplifies it in autobiographical scenes of the *conf.* He does modify this schema, however, in several places. For example, he brings into play the Christian notion of a prehistory of humanity, namely that of the fall, in order to explain why every human soul is sick and requires healing. He also extends the diagnosis by identifying human arrogance or the desire to be like God as the deepest root of all erring orientation. Moreover, in contrast to Cicero, Augustine is of the mind that it is not philosophy that represents an adequate remedy for humans, but rather the grace of God, which is bestowed upon those who believe in Jesus Christ as the son of God become human. He also takes into account life after death.

Furthermore, Augustine distinguishes more sharply than any other author of antiquity between the intellect and the will so that each of these faculties

[7] In the following the Latin text of the *conf.* is taken from Corpus Christianorum Series Latina, vol. 27 (ed. Skutella/Verheijen) (Turnhout, ²1990); Translations are taken from *Saint Augustine, Confessions. Translated with an Introduction and Notes by Henry Chadwick* (Oxford, 1991).

[8] For a full account of the following interpretation see Johannes Brachtendorf, *Augustins Confessiones* (Darmstadt, 2005).

[9] Cicero, *Tusculanae disputationes* in: Marcus Tullius Cicero, *Scripta quae manserunt omnia*, vol. 44, rec. Max Pohlenz (Stuttgart, repr. 1976).

Digitized by Google

requires reform. The seventh Book deals with overcoming the ignorance surrounding the highest good through the adoption of Neo-Platonic metaphysics; the eighth Book deals with the conversion of the will through the grace of God in connection with the reading of Paul. The ninth Book continues the story of conversion. The vision of Ostia (which takes place after his conversion) differs from the Milan visions (which are prior to his conversion) primarily in that, in descending into the world of space, time, and discursive thought, Augustine left captive above 'the first-fruits of spirit' (*Rom.* 8:23).[10] This leaving above of first fruits is not to be understood as an enduring life in the intelligible world (which is first possible after death), but rather as an enduring orientation of temporal life on the trans-temporal reality of God. The converted human lives an earthly life, but he lives it both in the knowledge that God is the highest good and in the love of God – a love that loves God for his own sake and everything else in God.

If one focuses on the *conditio humana*, then a reason becomes apparent why the narrated sections of the *conf.* end with the death of Augustine's mother (*conf.* IX 11.27-13.34). Augustine's emotions, in particular his sadness, compose the subject matter of the end of Book IX. By contrasting this scene to the scene of mourning the death of his friend in the fourth Book (*conf.* IV 4.7-12.19), Augustine shows clearly the influence the conversion of the will has on the emotions. He now learns to love his mother in God. When he (before the conversion) mourned his deceased friend, he wept yet 'before himself'. Now, however, he weeps 'before God' and not only 'because' of the loss but also 'for' his mother (who definitely had flaws) and, conscious of his own weaknesses, he also weeps for himself. Augustine recognized God as the truly beatifying good (Book VII); he turns his will toward God (Book VIII), and, finally, his conversion becomes an effective therapy of his emotions (Book IX). Since the central parts of the soul are reformed, it makes sense to end the story of his life at this point.

Thus, even the autobiographical sections of Books I-IX are carried by theses on the *conditio humana*: the original perversion of humans is elucidated by the story of the milk brothers (Book I); the desire to be like God as the root of evil is illustrated by the narrative of the stolen pears (Book II); the ignorance of the highest good, which is strengthened by parents and teachers, is explicated by Augustine's striving for fame and pleasure as well as by his intellectual odyssey from Cicero to the Manicheans to the Skeptics (Books III-VI); the inability to love above everything else the once recognized highest good is demonstrated by Augustine's weak will (Book VIII); and finally the required reform of the emotions is exemplified by Augustine's mourning of both a dead friend (Book IV) and his dead mother (Book IX).

[10] See Bibliothèque Augustinienne 14, 552-5. Jean Pépin, 'Primitias spiritus': Remarques sur une citation paulinienne des 'Confessions' de saint Augustine: *Revue de l'Histoire des Religions* (1951) 140, 155-201.

Digitized by Google

In this line of interpretation the role of the tenth Book within the project of the *conf.* as a whole becomes clear. While Augustine describes his search for God in Books I-IX, he inquires, in the *memoria*-tractate, into the general-human conditions of possibility for this search. At the beginning of the first Book the famous sentence is found, which can be taken as a heading for the entire work: 'because you have made us toward yourself [*fecisti nos ad te*], and our heart is restless until it rests in you' (*conf.* I 1.1). Accordingly, there is a tendency toward God, a striving for God, or a seeking of God that is inherent to humans and that belongs to our nature. A search is only possible, however, if we already possess a knowledge of what is sought because otherwise we as seekers neither would know what we seek nor would we notice it if we found it. Augustine writes:

'I recall myself to have searched for and found many lost items. From this experience I know that, when I was searching for one of them and someone said to me "Perhaps this is it, perhaps that is", I would always say "No" until I was offered the object which I sought. Unless I had it in my memory, whatever it was, even if an offer was being made to me, I would not have found it because I would not have recognized it. That is what happens when we seek and find something lost.' (*conf.* X 18.27)

This is also true of the search for God. Whoever seeks God must already know him in order to be able to seek him at all. If the human being is created toward God, as Augustine claims, then he first must possess a knowledge of God. The location of the knowledge of principles and of eternal things is, according to Augustine, the *memoria*. One has to analyze the memory, therefore, in order to expound the knowledge of God that we always already possess. And such an analysis is precisely what Augustine accomplishes in the *memoria*-tractate of Book X. This knowledge is not an explicit, metaphysical knowledge of God as Augustine himself possesses after his studies of Neo-Platonism, but an implicit knowledge in which God is known by other names – by the name of 'happiness' and, as Augustine demonstrates, especially by the name of 'truth'. Every human knows the truth and loves it, even if but a few philosophers can define truth, for no one wants to err or be deceived. Augustine interprets this as an implicit knowledge of God. With his analysis of memory, Augustine refers back to the beginning of the *conf.*, explaining why our heart is restless until it rests in God. The restlessness of the heart stems from the preceding knowledge of God, which every human carries in her memory. This knowledge as well as the restless heart belongs to the *conditio humana*. The life-history of Books I-IX recounts how Augustine sought and found God. The *memoria*-treatise of the tenth Book in connection with the beginning of the *conf.* explains that this seeking and finding presupposes a relation to God that the human naturally always already possesses.[11]

[11] See J. Brachtendorf (2005), 202-16.

Digitized by Google

The analysis of the temptations in the second part of Book X makes a further contribution to the elucidation of the *conditio humana*. Augustine offers here a description of the inner constitution of the human being after conversion. He thereby criticizes the Hellenistic image of humans. The Epicureans, the Stoics, and Cicero believed that human perfection – therefore wisdom and happiness – had to be attainable in earthly life. Augustine, on the contrary, advocates the thesis that perfect happiness remains reserved for life after death, for happiness requires, first of all, immortality, and secondly, spiritual quietude. While Augustine treats immortality as a condition of happiness in Book XIX of *De civitate dei*, he addresses spiritual quietude in Book X of the *conf.* but, as is well known, with a negative result. The converted human being is indeed intellectually and voluntarily directed toward God but despite this directedness, there still exist resisting tendencies in her innerness, the passions. Although the passions do not prevail, they do lead the converted human being into temptation. Life under grace, as Augustine calls the existence of the converted human being, is not yet life in peace, but rather a life of inner strife.[12] Whereas antique philosophy believed that the wise person is uniformly directed toward the highest good in his whole being, Augustine states that the person wise in faith indeed no longer succumbs to temptations but is still nonetheless exposed to them. For the depiction of the *conditio humana*, this exposure entails that the polarization of the soul into reason and passions, which has emerged through original sin,[13] cannot be abrogated in earthly life. Book X, therefore, continues the examination of the anthropological conditions under which the human relation to God exists.

The result of the famous treatise on time in Book XI leads to further clarification of the anthropological conditions. These conditions become clear when one sets the concept of *distentio animi* in relationship with the *extensio animi* which Augustine invokes at the end of the eleventh Book. Given the difficulty of argumentation in the time-treatise, it has often been overlooked that the analysis of time composes merely half of Book XI. A long introduction (*conf.* XI 1.1-13.16) precedes the analysis of time, and its topics are taken up again in a coda (*conf.* XI 29.39-31.41). The introduction explains how the principium of the first verse of the Bible, *in principio fecisti caelum et terram*, is to be understood. This *principium* is the word of God, the second trinitarian person, the *aeterna ratio*, the *veritas* in which everything was created. Simultaneously, the second trinitarian person, as the *principium*, is the only true teacher to whom we should turn; he is the groom who calls to us so that we may listen to him (*conf.* XI 5.7-8.10). The *principium*, as the son of God, therefore has, first of all, a metaphysical significance because it comprises the eternal grounds of mutable reality and, secondly, an ethical significance because humans achieve

[12] See *ciu.* XIX 4.10.
[13] See *ciu.* XIV 9.

Digitized by Google

happiness insofar as they participate in the eternal son of God who immutably persists before (*ante*) and beyond (*supra*) all time (*conf.* VII 9.14). To hear the voice of the groom means to give attention to the inner teacher, to turn to eternal truth, and to contemplate the unchanging light. Humans obtain a foothold in the river of time by knowingly and willingly orientating themselves on the eternal and by reaching out to it as much as possible in earthly life. In the time-treatise itself, Augustine explains that time – or better, the measurability of time – comes about through a distention (*distentio*) of the mind which anticipates the future, grasps it when it arrives at the gate of the present, and adheres to it when it has crossed this gate. The human experience of time is necessarily connected to a *distentio animi* (*conf.* XI 26.33).

The human being is situated in a changing, temporal world, but her goal is being in the eternal where there no longer is a *distentio animi* because nothing more comes or goes but everything stands. For this reason, Augustine laments to God in the coda of the eleventh Book: *ecce, distentio est vita mea* ('see how my life is a distention') (*conf.* XI 29.39). Augustine desires to gather himself in order to emerge from the many and aspire toward the one. He does not want to be *distentus* in the coming and going, but rather *extentus*, that is, reaching out toward the eternal son of God, the *principium*, which is before and beyond all time:

> 'Forgetting the past and moving not towards those future things which are transitory but to the things which are before [*ante*] me, not stretched out in distraction but extended in reach, not by being pulled apart but by concentration' [*non in ea quae futura et transitura sunt, sed 'in ea quae ante sunt', non distentus, sed 'extentus', non secundum distentionem, sed secundum intentionem*]. (*conf.* XI 29.39)

Augustine uses *ante* (with reference to *Philippians* 3:12ff) in a particular way. At the end of the treatise on time, like in the vision of Ostia (*conf.* IX 10.23) and in the ascension-reports from Milan (*conf.* VII 9.14), *ante* does not mean a temporal but an objective 'earlier'. The divine reality is not temporally earlier than the changing world, for it is outside of time, but, as the ground of the world, it is objectively earlier. From the human vantage point, which is in time, the divine reality, as eternal, is always present. When Augustine challenges his reader not to be *distentus*, but rather *extentus*, he means that the reader should not bind himself to material reality whose coming and going causes the *distentio* of the mind but should bind herself rather to the eternal, immutable reality of God, which is before all time and therefore always present.

The eleventh Book thus accomplishes a further contribution to the determination of the *conditio humana*. It establishes, first, that the human mind is pulled apart as long as it lives in the temporal world and, second, that the purpose of humans lies in an eternal life in which there will no longer be a *distentio* because the mind will have become wholly one and, third, that, already at present, the human being can momentarily reach out of time toward timeless reality.

Digitized by Google

This reach out of time will be able to occur to the highest degree, however, only if the human being has obtained a knowledge of God and has been converted to the love of God. The analysis of the temptations in the tenth Book and the treatise on time in the eleventh Book complement each other in the description of the condition of the converted human being. Augustine has not yet arrived at complete inner unity because he is still exposed to temptations and because he lives in temporal reality through which his mind is pulled apart. This division and extension cannot be overcome in earthly life. Here, humans can do nothing more than live a life oriented on unity. Practicing *continentia* and attending to the eternal belong to such a life.

O'Donnell and others have proposed a widely-accepted thesis that witnesses a trinitarian creed in Books XI, XII, and XIII. The eleventh Book, they claim, deals with God the father, the twelfth with the son, and the thirteenth with the holy spirit.[14] I cannot subscribe to this interpretation, however. In my opinion, the focus of the eleventh Book is not the father who creates, but rather the *principium* in which the world was created and towards which humans should reach out. This *principium* is, however, the son of God. The twelfth Book, in my judgment, hardly exhibits a trinitarian reference. It is rather concerned with the creation of the intelligible world, *i.e.* the angels and pure matter. The angels Augustine calls created wisdom in contrast to the uncreated wisdom of the son of God. At best, one could concede that the Holy Spirit plays an accentuated role in Book XIII, but even here propositions on the trinity as a whole stand out along with those pertaining to the human being as the image of the divine trinity.

The question concerning the *conditio humana*, however, can clarify the connection of the last Books with the project of the *conf.* as a whole. From the very beginning of the work, Augustine makes clear that he is not interested in his own distinctive individuality, but rather in human destiny in general, which is made visible through the example of his life.[15] The last two Books place human fate in the context of the entire process of creation and redemption. In particular, they explicate the conditions of being human by comparing human life with the existence of angels.

In the twelfth Book, Augustine interprets idiosyncratically the first verse of the Bible ('In the beginning you made heaven and earth.'). The notion that the earth was deserted and empty is, according to Augustine, a figurative expression by which Moses intended to intimate to the philosophically untrained readers that 'earth' means the *materia prima* of antique metaphysics – that is, the formless substrate underlying all material objects (*conf.* XII 3.3-6.6). By 'heaven' Augustine understands the purely intellectual reality, the *caelum intellectuale*, the *mundus intelligibilis* – the world of the angels as pure spirits (*conf.* XII 9.9-13.16).

[14] See James J. O'Donnell, *Augustine, Confessiones*, vol. III (Oxford, 1992), 251.
[15] See P. Courcelle (^{2}1968), 27.

Digitized by Google

With this interpretation of 'heaven and earth', he envisages the outer extremes of created reality – the *materia prima*, which as the lowest created thing immediately borders on nothingness, and the intellectual world, which as the highest created thing stands directly under God.

Both these extremes are important for the question of the human condition. On the one hand, the human being is a material being that lives in the world of space and time; on the other hand, as a being endowed with mind, she is similar to the angels. The angels see God 'face to face' (*1Cor.* 13:12), the earthly human sees God too, but merely in 'analogy and enigma'. The angels think simultaneously, we humans, however, think discursively. Above all, the angels are not subject to time and therefore are not subject to the *distentio animi* ('*nec in ulla tempora distenditur*') (*conf.* XII 11.12). They already possess that unity to which the earthly human being first aspires through *continentia* and *extensio*. The goal of humans thus resides in a form of existence that the angels already realize.

The thirteenth Book also makes the angels the model for ultimate human perfection,[16] but here Augustine reveals that the path to this goal differs for angels and humans. Angels are, from their creation, instantaneously brought to their goal (*conf.* XIII 10.11), whereas humans sinned after their creation and have to traverse a path through time in order to arrive at a timeless life with God. In the thirteenth Book, Augustine suggests that creation is a two-step act of God.[17] The first step is a generation: what is generated is at first yet formless, obscure, and flowing without determinateness. Augustine depicts the second step as a calling-back of what has been generated through the word, an illumination that confers stability, form, and unity upon the creature. The generation bestows being upon the creature, the calling-back its being-something. In the first verse of *Genesis* ('In the beginning you made the heaven'), Augustine sees the generation of the intellectual world expressed. He detects the calling-back in the creation of light which is reported in the third verse: 'Let there be light!' In its original beginning, that is, after its generation, the intellectual creature floats in darkness. Augustine writes: 'It would have been dissimilar to you unless by your Word it had been converted to the same Word by whom it was made, so that illuminated by him, it became light and, though not in an equal measure, became conformed to a form equal to you' (*conf.* XIII 2.3). Augustine's predication of the relationship of the angels to God is thus interesting. Illumination does not make them equal to God but similar to a form equal to God; they are therefore similar to the son of God.

[16] See also *Gn. litt.* I 4.9

[17] See Plotin, *Enn.* V 2.1; 3.11; V 1.7; John Bussanich, *The One and its Relation to the Intellect in Plotinus* (Leiden, 1988), 11-4; Isabelle Bochet, *Saint Augustin et le désir de Dieu* (Paris, 1982), 143-74; J. Brachtendorf, *Die Struktur des menschlichen Geistes nach Augustinus: Selbstreflexion und Erkenntnis Gottes in De Trinitate* (Hamburg, 2000), 245-50; Bibliothèque Augustinienne 14, 613-7.

Digitized by Google

Augustine immediately draws the parallel to humans when he states: 'For we also, we are a spiritual creation in our souls, and have turned away from you our light. In that life we were "at one time darkness" (*Eph.* 5:8). We toil on in the remains of our obscurity until, in your unique Son, we are your "righteousness" (2*Cor.* 5:21)' (*conf.* XIII 2.3). Humans go through the same process as the angels, from the darkness to illumination, from the distance from God to a nearness to God, from dissimilarity to similarity with the son of God. There is, however, an important difference:

For humans, in contrast to the angels, the calling-back that Augustine here speaks about is not only a matter of creation but also of renewal and conversion. With regard to humans, an ethical dimension is added that is missing with regard to angels. The human being has to be renewed. She is far from God in an ethical sense and, as fallen, requires redemption and should convert. The ethical dimension is thus not identical with the process of creation but instead presupposes it, for the human being must first exist before she can fall from God or convert. Augustine nonetheless portrays the two steps of darkness and light – departure from God and return to God – in ethical terms as well. But ethical darkness does not mean a metaphysical aversion due to a not yet eventuated formation, but rather an aversion of an already formed being due to its own willful decision. Furthermore, ethical illumination does not involve the second step of creation, but rather the creature's willful turning towards God. The ethical turning away and turning towards are therefore distinct from the turning away and turning towards of the creation process.

Metaphysics and ethics are connected for Augustine, however. The moral standing of a human being determines the measure of his unity and formativeness.[18] This connection might be the pivotal point of Book XIII because it justifies the figurative interpretation of creation as redemption and allows for the restoration of the human being from sin to be compared with the restoration of the angels from formlessness. The evil human being suffers a loss of stability in her soul. She lags behind the measure of formativeness and unity that can and should be accorded her insofar as she is a human.

When Augustine in Book XIII connects verse for verse the creation account of the Old Testament with the New Testament's redemption narration,[19] the connection is not a product of an excessive fantasy prepared to interpret everything symbolically, losing thereby all sense of methodical control. Rather, the thesis undergirding his figurative interpretation is that the ethical quality of the human being determines his standing in being. For example, Augustine parallels *Genesis* 1:26 ('Let us make humans after our image and likeness'), with *Colossians* 3:10 ('put on the new man, renewed into full knowledge according to

[18] For the link between metaphysics and ethics see J. Brachtendorf, *Augustins Confessiones* (2005), 136-42, 279-82.

[19] For a detailed account see J.J. O'Donnell (1992) vol. III, 416f.

Digitized by Google

the image of him that has created him'). Through faith in Jesus Christ, the human becomes 'renewed in the knowledge of God after the image of him who created him' (*conf.* XIII 22.32). Through redemption and the turning back of the will toward God, the fallen human being receives metaphysical perfection. The image of God according to which the human is renewed is Christ. The human being thus becomes similar to the son of God in the condition of perfection just as the angels are similar to the son of God according to the calling-back. When Augustine therefore states: 'Let there be light. Do penitence, for the kingdom of heaven has drawn near' (*conf.* XIII 12.13), he combines the creation of light from *Genesis* 1:2 with the call to repentance from *Matthew* 3:2 because the converted human being arrives from the darkness to the light and aspires toward that unity and stability, which the angels possess. With the same command, 'Let there be light', God completes the creation of the angels by calling them back to him, and he renews the fallen humans by calling them back to him from sin. Once again Augustine makes clear that the human being has the same goal as the angels, namely the unity and the light, but the human being has to go further. Just as the angels rest before all time in the eternity of God, humans will rest after all time in God. What the intellectual creature is already and always, the bodily-intellectual creature will be some day. As the angels already are like the son of God, humans will be like the son of God. As Books XII and XIII show, the human condition in the afterlife differs from the human condition in this life. Temptations and distention, although inevitable here, are transitory. No imperfection of human nature will hamper our relation to God. In the state of perfection the human condition allows us to see God 'face to face'.

If the *conf.* are understood as a book on the *conditio humana*, the unity of the work becomes apparent. Augustine demonstrates under which anthropological conditions the human search for God takes place, which form of relation to God is possible for the earthly human being, and how the human being will be who rests in the otherworldly vision of God. Thus, I believe, the thematic unity of the *conf.* Book I through XIII is revealed by the question: Who are we?

Digitized by Google

Augustine Becoming Articulate: *Confessions* 1.8.13

Tarmo Toom, Washington, DC

'According to Latin etymology, an infant is an *in-fans*, a nonspeaker, while a boy is a *fans*, one who actually talks'.[1] The very first thing Augustine remembered from his childhood was his becoming a boy who could speak. 'I was no longer a baby (*infans*) incapable of speech but already a boy (*puer*) with power to talk. This I remember.[2] But how I learnt to talk I discovered only later' (*conf.* 1.8.13).[3]

Interestingly, Augustine limited his remarks to the learning of words/nouns.[4] He did not comment on his initial learning of the complexities of grammar and syntax. But he has a good justification for such a narrow focus, even if he did not know about it or had his own reasons for it. Contemporary cognitive scientists have figured out that the language acquisition of two-year-olds is basically limited to nouns,[5] and, in antiquity, the change from infancy to childhood was believed to be approximately at the age of two.[6]

There are a number of issues which deserve careful consideration as one is analyzing Augustine's account of language acquisition. To name a few: 1) innatism and the language of thought hypothesis;[7] 2) the distinction between basic language (*i.e.*, mentalese or the Augustinian *verbum mentis*) and natural language (*e.g.*, Latin) and the implication of this distinction to the argument against private language;[8] 3) the question whether 'uttering in the heart' has certain linguistic,

[1] John M. Quinn, *A Companion to the Confessions of St. Augustine* (New York, 2002), 35.

[2] In Latin text(s), the punctuation links the phrase *et memini hoc* with the subsequent sentence.

[3] Henry Chadwick, *Saint Augustine: Confessions* (Oxford, 1991), 10; Latin: James J. O'Donnell, *Augustine: Confessions*, vol. 1 (Oxford, 1992), 7.

[4] Augustine, *De magistro* 7.20 and the use of the verb *appellare* in *conf.* 1.8.13.

[5] Roberta M. Golinkoff, Carolyn B. Mervis, and Kathryn Hirsh-Pasek, Early Object Labels: The Case for a Developmental Lexical Principles Framework: *Journal of Child Language* 21 (1994) 125-55.

[6] For the stages of human life see Augustine, *De vera religione* 26.48 and Censorinus, *De die natali* 14.

[7] Noam Chomsky, *Language and Mind* (New York, 1972); Jerry A. Fodor, *The Language of Thought*, The Language and Thought Series, Jerrold J. Katz *et al.* (eds.) (Cambridge, Mass., 1975). 'Innatist theories can usually be framed in Augustinian terms, provided that the reference to Christ, the Inner Teacher, is stripped of its explicitly theological meaning', Gareth B. Matthews, *Augustine*, Blackwell Great Minds, ed. Steven Nadler (London, 2005), 32.

[8] The basic language is an innate computational device which is not learned (*i.e.*, it does not presuppose another language). The natural language, however, can be learned as a language

Studia Patristica XLIX, 253-258.
© Peeters Publishers, 2010.

Digitized by Google

that is, syntactic and semantic properties despite the fact that the internal speech 'belongs to no language' and 'is neither Greek nor Latin nor any other language';[9] and 4) the arbitrary conventional character of words and the significance of it for language acquisition.[10] I will limit my observations to the over-all epistemological framework of Augustine's remarks, to his comments on gesturing and on ostensive learning of language.

In his brief account, Augustine did not give much beyond his vote for an innatist theory of language acquisition triggered by referential pointing. But after his account was dismissed as 'primitive' by Wittgenstein,[11] several contemporary experts on language acquisition have come to Augustine's defense. For instance, Paul Bloom writes that 'Augustine's proposal is no longer seen as the goofy idea that it once was'.[12] Jerry Fodor seconds rather partially, 'Augustine was precisely and demonstrably right and... seeing that he was, is a prerequisite to any serious attempts to understand how first languages are learned'.[13]

So, what has to be taken into consideration in assessing *conf.* 1.8.13?

Arguably, the overall *theological* goal of Augustine's *Confessions* is to affirm the priority of God's grace. But *confessing* the priority of God's grace is itself a linguistic activity, and therefore Augustine's pausing to consider language acquisition seems justified.[14]

Augustine wrote: 'I myself acquired this power of speech with the intelligence which you gave me (*mente quam dedisti mihi*), my God' (*conf.* 1.8.13). Although he did not stop here to elaborate on his (sketch of the) theory of illumination, Augustine assumed that learning to speak depended on the God-given innate ability to learn a language[15] rather than on a formal teaching

which is spoken by a given linguistic community. See David E. Zoolalian, Augustine and Wittgenstein: Some Remarks On the Necessity of a Private Language: *AugSt* 9 (1978) 25-34; Ludwig Wittgenstein, *Philosophical Investigations*, third ed., tr. G.E.M. Anscombe (Englewood Cliffs, NJ, 1958), pars. 243-315.

[9] Augustine, *De trinitate* 15.19. In *trin.* 15.18, the bishop explained that 'thoughts are a *kind of* [emphasis mine] utterance of the heart'. See *De catechizandis rudibus* 2.3; *De doctrina Christiana* 1.13; *In Ioannis euangelium tractatus* 14.7; *mag.* 1.2; *sermo* 288.3; *trin.* 15.22-43. For the history of the argument that 'uttering in heart' is non-linguistic see Sephan Meier-Oeser, Thinking as an Internal Speaking: Some Remarks to the Conceptual Changes in the Relation between Language and Thinking from Middle Ages to Condillac, in: *Signs and Signification*, ed. Harjeet S. Gill and Giovanni Manetti, vol. 1 (New Delhi, 1999), 175-94.

[10] For Augustine, language was conventional rather than natural (*doc. Chr.* 2.24).

[11] L. Wittgenstein, *Philosophical Investigations* (1958), par. 2; Christina Erneling, Why First Language Learning Is Not Second Language Learning: Wittgenstein's Rejection of St. Augustine's Conception of Learning: *Interchange* 24 (1993) 341-51.

[12] Paul Bloom, *How Children Learn the Meanings of Words* (Cambridge, Mass., 2000), 61.

[13] J. Fodor, *The Language of Thought* (1975), 64.

[14] God has given infants their lives, bodies, and senses in order that they might 'confess to you and to sing to your name, Most High' (*conf.* 1.7.12).

[15] In *conf.* 1.6.7, Augustine understood even his baby-food as fundamentally God-given *through* his mother and nurses: 'Indeed all good things come from you, O God'.

Digitized by Google

process of 'talk and chalk'.[16] The 'getting it' of anything there is to learn is dependent on one's inherent ability to comprehend rather than on some kind of clever pedagogical device. 'Instructions from outside are kinds of aids and suggestions'.[17] In fact, we may take Augustine's account of language acquisition as a special case of human cooperation with God's prevenient grace: 'I myself acquired this power of speech with the intelligence which you gave me, my God'. 'My God... your mercies make it possible for me to make a confession' (*conf.* 5.10.20).

Now, the ability to express oneself through a language seems to require the existence of the proper mental mechanism with syntactic and semantic properties, which enables an utterance of meaningful words. That is, the competency for linguistic procedures has to be already there so that the process of language acquisition can get going. To use a computational analogy, Augustine's own mind had a preinstalled software of language (*i.e.*, the basic language or the *verbum mentis*), although it was not yet the *Thesaurus linguae Latinae*. Fodor writes,

> One cannot learn a first language unless one already has a system capable of representing the predicates in that language *and their extensions*. And, on pain of circularity, that system cannot be the language that is learned. But first languages *are* learned. Hence, at least some cognitive operations are carried out in language other than natural languages.[18]

What is most interesting, however, is that when Wittgenstein quoted Augustine's *conf.* 1.8.13, he started, perhaps quite deliberately, from the middle of the paragraph, thereby completely ignoring Augustine's innatist epistemological framework, which preceded the bishop's remarks on ostensive learning.[19] In antiquity, language acquisition was a sub-topic of epistemology. Without accepting Augustine's epistemological convictions, his account of language acquisition makes little sense.

Already in the end of his infancy, Augustine started to break out from his communicative isolation. In *conf.* 1.8.13, he described his first communication attempts by mentioning the use of nonverbal acoustic signs, that is, inarticulate 'groans and various sounds', and non-acoustic somatic signs, that is, gestures.

[16] See *conf.* 1.14.23; 4.16.28; 11.8.10; *mag.* 14.36; *Soliloquia* 1.8.15; Plato, *Meno* 81c-d, 85d. 'One clue that Augustine depends on previous accounts of language learning is the omission of any mention of Punic', Brian Stock, *Augustine the Reader: Meditation, Self-Knowledge, and the Ethics of Interpretation* (Cambridge, Mass., 1996), 305, n. 38. However, learning a second language requires a (human) teacher (*De animae quantitate* 18.32).

[17] Augustine, *In epistulam Ioannis* 3.13.

[18] J. Fodor, *The Language of Thought* (1975), 64.

[19] Myles F. Burnyeat, Wittgenstein and Augustine *De Magistro*, in: *Proceedings of the Aristotelian Society*, supp. vol. 61 (Cambridge, 1987), 1-24, 23-4. In addition to the epistemological context, O'Donnell blames Wittgenstein for ignoring the *ethical* context of Augustine's remarks on language acquisition, J.J. O'Donnell, *Augustine: Confessions*, vol. 2 (1992), 58.

Digitized by Google

Earlier, in *conf.* 1.6.8, he had already mentioned his making noises, smiling, weeping, and 'flinging his arms and legs about'. All this was part of his complex nonverbal communicative behavior, a part of the 'last stage of my infant speechlessness' on which Augustine 'was searching out signs by which I made my thoughts (*sensa cordis*) known to others' (*conf.* 1.6.10). In short, the initial communication worked through babbling and gesticulation, through non-articulate 'signs resembling my wishes (*signa similia voluntatibus meis*)' (*conf.* 1.6.8).

In *mag.* 7.19, Augustine asserted that 'gestures themselves are signs'. But gestures as non-verbal signs are by themselves unremittingly ambiguous. Babies cry and flail their limbs for all kind of reasons and often young parents have no clue what their little bundles of joy want to communicate. The gestures, which baby Augustine made, only 'resembled' his wishes. He still needed a language to reduce at least partially the ambiguity of the signs he gave.[20] For adequate communication, he had to learn to speak.

Augustine continued: 'When people gave a name to an object and when, following the sound, they moved their body towards that object, I would see and retain the fact that object received from them this sound which pronounced when they intended to draw attention (*vellent ostendere*) to it' (*conf.* 1.8.13). Augustine seems to say that a child learns to associate words with objects through ostensive definition and by memorization of these conventional associate pairs.[21] However, what is described in *conf.* 1.8.13 is not ostensive learning of language pure and simple.

First, the ostension Augustine described was a complex phenomenon. Please, notice what accompanies the adults' pointing to and naming of objects.

> Moreover, their intention was evident [1] from the gestures which are, as it were, the natural vocabulary of all races, and are made [1a] with the face and [1b] the inclination of the eyes and [1c] the movements of other parts of the body, and [2] by the tone of voice which indicates whether the mind's inward sentiments (*affectionem animi*) are to seek and possess or to reject and avoid (*conf.* 1.8.13).

Although 'traditionally visual speech has been regarded as a redundant signal in verbal communication',[22] contemporary language acquisition theorists have reaffirmed its importance. The so-called visual speech of body language,

[20] Jason P. Drucker, Teaching as Pointing in 'The Teacher': *AugSt* 28 (1997) 101-34. Augustine did not bring up the topic of ambiguity of pointing in *conf.* 1.8.13. But he knew very well that ostension was never unequivocal. By itself, mere ostensive definition did not fix the meaning of a word unambiguously (*mag.* 3.6).

[21] See *conf.* 10.19.28. Unfortunately, Augustine did not distinguish between ostensive learning of words and ostensive definition. Ostensive definition already presupposes linguistic competency and an understanding of what ostensive definition is, Patrick Bearsley, Augustine and Wittgenstein on Language: *Philosophy* 58 (1983), 229-236, 230-3; Katherine Rudolph, Augustine's Picture of Language: *AugSt* 36/2 (2005), 327-358, 338.

[22] Whitney M. Weikum *et al.*, Visual Language Discrimination in Infancy: *Science* 316/5828 (2007) 1159.

Digitized by Google

facial expression, and intonation, which accompanies ostensive definition, either approves or disapproves child's use of words.[23] Augustine, too, understood ostension as a complex behavior which was not limited to mere pointing and naming.

Second, Augustine's account of language acquisition does *not* reduce the learning process to ostensive definition.[24] It is estimated that about seventy percent of the time, a child learns a new word by ostension.[25] But this means that the other thirty percent of the time language is learned without ostension. Furthermore, blind children who cannot make use of ostension, basically learn language as quickly as children with healthy eyes.[26] Therefore, ostensive learning cannot explain all language acquisition. And Augustine never said that it did.[27] In addition to ostension, the bishop mentioned his observing and imitating adults' use of language. In *conf.* 1.14.23, Augustine acknowledged that he had learned to speak Latin 'from my nurses caressing me, from people laughing over jokes, and from those who played games', that is, by 'listening to people talking'.[28] In *conf.* 1.8.13, he added: 'I gradually gathered the meaning of words, occurring in their places in different sentences and frequently heard.' Earlier, in *mag.* 10.33, Augustine said that by observing of how a 'mere sound' of the word *caput* was often used, he was able to associate it to a signified object. In *doctr. chr.* 4.3.5, he concluded: 'Infants only become speakers by learning the speech and pronunciation of speakers'. Baby Augustine was catching on to the conventional use of language.[29]

Third, immediately before mentioning ostensive learning in *conf.* 1.8.13, Augustine, in fact, invoked the second thesis of his *De magistro*: 'Nothing is learned through signs'.[30] Since ostension is a form of sign giving, Augustine, in fact, argued that nothing was learned by mere ostension. Learning a language consisted of correlating the *verbum mentis* with the *verbum vocis*. Once

[23] Dare A. Baldwin, Early Referential Understanding: Infants' Ability to Recognize Referential Acts for What They Are: *Developmental Psychology* 29/5 (1993) 832-43. Curiously, the frequent testing of the association of a word and object through reinforcement or discouragement is also emphasized by behaviorists, such as Burrhus F. Skinner, *Verbal Behavior* (New York, 1957).

[24] Wittgenstein's criticism was not meant to finish off the idea that language was referential, but to show that referring was just one possible use of language (*Philosophical Investigations* [1958], par. 23). Augustine did not disagree. Although he took referring to extra-linguistic objects as the primary function of language, he never claimed that it was the only function of language (*mag.* 2.3-4; 6.18; 8.22).

[25] P. Bloom, *How Children Learn* (2000), 6 and 58.

[26] *Ibid.* 7 and 59.

[27] Adeodatus clarified that ostension applied only to the cases of sensible bodies and when 'the bodies themselves are present' (*mag.* 3.5).

[28] See *Io. eu. tr.* 7.23 – infants actually prefer such child-oriented speech, Eve V. Clark, *First Language Acquisition* (Cambridge, 2003), 39-45.

[29] Augustine, *mag.* 10.32.

[30] *Ibid.* 10.29.

Digitized by Google

again, to assert that Augustine promoted ostensive learning pure and simple is to ignore his illuminationist epistemology.

In the end, it seems that while addressing the issue of language acquisition, Augustine promoted a curious mix of innatism and associationism, of illumination and ostensive learning. He insisted on the God-given innate ability to learn a language, and he also acknowledged that learning language involved association of words and objects through ostensive definition, which activated child's innate ability to learn his/her first language.

Digitized by Google

The Demands of Service: The Turn to Scriptural Exegesis in Book XI of Augustine's *Confessions*[1]

Ron HAFLIDSON, Halifax, Nova Scotia

In this paper I want to consider the question of why Saint Augustine turns to Scriptural exegesis in Book XI of the *conf.* I will attempt to answer this question through an examination of the final chapter of Book X. It is there, I think, that Augustine provides the clearest indication of what role the Scriptural exegesis of Books XI to XIII plays in the *conf.* In particular I will be arguing that Books XI to XIII need to be understood in the light of Augustine's resolution at the end of Book X to serve the Church; it is only through Scriptural exegesis that Augustine can fulfil this resolution.

To understand the turn to Scriptural exegesis, however, we must first have some sense of the logic of the *conf.* as a whole. Following Robert Crouse, I see the *conf.* dividing into three journeys that are all a part of the one journey of Augustine's soul to rest in God.[2] The *conf.* describes how Augustine's soul comes to spiritual maturity, recounted from his earliest days to his life and service in the Church. The first journey described in Books I to IX recounts, autobiographically, the details of Augustine's life from his birth to his early life as a Christian; the second journey described in Book X recounts psychologically Augustine's struggle to live the Christian life; and the third journey described in Books XI to XIII recounts by Scriptural exegesis the life of the Church in the world. The form and content of the journey one to the next changes as Augustine himself changes; that is, the differences between the journeys correspond to differences in Augustine's spiritual life. Thus the critical question in understanding the differences between these journeys is to discern how Augustine has changed in the journey of the *conf.* and what that change effects in him.[3]

[1] Thanks to Professor Peter Widdicombe for his comments on an earlier draft of this paper.

[2] Robert Crouse, *Recurrens in te unum:* The Pattern of St. Augustine's *Confessions*: *SP* 14 (1976) 399-418.

[3] In my reading of *conf.* it is crucial that there is a distinction between Augustine the author and Augustine the narrator. That is, the Augustine (as author) who has constructed the work and knows how it will begin and end, versus Augustine (as narrator) who is describing his past and present immediately and existentially. The shifts that I am describing from biography to psychology to exegesis are necessitated by the development of Augustine the narrator's spiritual maturity, as he is enacting that very development in *conf.*

Studia Patristica XLIX, 259-263.
© Peeters Publishers, 2010.

Digitized by Google

Books IX and X provide points of transition between the three journeys in the *conf.* From Book IX to Book X there is a shift from autobiography to psychology; and from Book X to Book XI there is a shift from psychology to exegesis. Book IX and Book X mark advances in Augustine's spiritual life and indicate how those advances lead to a new journey. We can see this first in the turn from autobiography to psychology. Book VIII describes Augustine's conversion to Christianity, and Book IX his first days living as a Christian. In Book IX there are indications that autobiography cannot capture the realities of the inner life, which is so crucial to Christian living. We can see this in two instances in Augustine's life, which he describes in Book IX – first, his experience while reading the Psalms, and the second, the death of Monica. While reading the Psalms, Augustine relates how he experienced the truth of their words 'inwardly' such that his desire for worldly things lessened and his love for God increased. He writes: 'There within ... you had begun to make me feel your sweetness and had given me joy in my heart.'[4] Augustine reflected then that if certain critics of Christianity, such as the Manichees, could experience what he had experienced, or if he could convey it to them, they would be humbled and persuaded of the truth. Augustine thought that if they were to watch him reading the Psalms, and he were aware of their presence, then they would suspect that he was putting on a show. But, even if they secretly could watch him reading the Psalms, still they would not see how his words while reading 'were the intimate expression of my mind, as I conversed with myself and addressed myself in your presence.'[5] This conversing with himself in God's presence is the very content of Book X, which shows Augustine seeking, through psychology, to describe the inner life that autobiography could not.

The second account in Book IX that points to the limits of autobiography is the death of Monica.[6] After her death, Augustine recounts Monica's life and concludes that, aside from a brief flirtation with alcohol in her youth, she seemed to have lived a blameless life. But, even so, Augustine realized that he could not know everything about Monica, and that breaking just one of God's commandments could lead to damnation. He quotes from the Sermon on the Mount wherein Jesus says that even calling a brother 'fool' makes one worthy of hell. Augustine does not know whether or not Monica ever called anyone a 'fool'; further, that Augustine does not know every word that Monica spoke also points to the fact that he does not know what lies behind her words – her heart. For the judgement of the Sermon on the Mount that Augustine invokes extends to one's thoughts. Augustine's inability to know Monica's every thought and word meant that he could not be certain about her salvation. His trust, and he believes

[4] *conf.* transl. Maria Boulding (New York, 2005) IX 4.10.

[5] *conf.* IX 4.8.

[6] In this I follow Colin Starnes, *Augustine's Conversion: A Guide to the Argument of* Confessions *I-IX* (Waterloo, ON, 1990), 134.

Digitized by Google

hers was also, is in God's mercy, still he prays and asks his readers to pray for her because he has such an imperfect knowledge of what occurred in the depths of her heart.[7] In the journey of the *conf.*, then, Augustine's conversion to Christianity demands a new journey; as Book IX indicates, autobiography cannot describe one's depths, where God effects change and where he judges.

In Book X, then, Augustine describes his life as a Christian psychologically. This journey within himself is appropriate to describe his struggle to live the Christian life; however, just as was the case in Book IX, the conclusion of Book X also points to the limits of psychology and thus signals the shift to exegesis. Much of Book X consists of a self-examination according to the words of 1*John* 2:16. Augustine is judging himself according to the judgement of God as revealed in Scripture. This judgement makes him aware of the depths of his sinfulness so that he questions his ability to continue his life with others in the Church, for the self-examination reveals that his greatest temptation to pride arises through his service of others. He writes that he seriously considered whether to live a life of solitude. Yet Augustine ultimately decided against a life of solitude because, he says, God 'forbade' him from doing so, and 'strengthened' him to live with others.[8] Augustine quotes 2*Corinthians* 5:15 as the way that God did this forbidding and strengthening. This verse reads, 'Christ died for all, that they which live, may now no longer live unto themselves, but unto him that died for all.'[9] How did God forbid Augustine, through 2*Corinthians* 5:15, from being a solitary and strengthen him to live with others? On the face of it the verse seems to state that Christ died so that those who live will live for him. Yet in Augustine's mind the verse is not only counselling him to live for Christ, but is also defining how he should do so. Paul's emphasis in 2*Corinthians* 5:15 on how Christ died for all means that Augustine must also sacrifice himself for all. Life lived alone might, indeed, be easier in many respects; however, such a life would neglect 'the all' for whom Christ died, and thus such a life would not be a life for Christ.

So Book X ends with Augustine resolving to serve the Church. This resolution in itself, however, is not new. Augustine began Book X by stating that what he was about to write was an act of service. People he knew, and others who had contacted him, had been requesting that he describe himself 'now' as he was 'within.'[10] He agreed to their request because he felt called to serve his fellow Christians.[11] His hope was that those who read Book X would praise God for the ways he had been healed, and they would be moved to pray for Augustine's further healing. What changes over the course of Book X, then, is

[7] *conf.* IX 13.36.
[8] *conf.* X 43.70.
[9] *conf.* X 43.70.
[10] *conf.* X 3.4.
[11] *conf.* X 4.6.

Digitized by Google

not Augustine's commitment to serve the Church. Rather the self-examination of Book X changes his understanding of himself and of service so that he turns to Scriptural exegesis in Book XI. After he quotes 2*Corinthians* 5:15, Augustine writes: 'See, Lord, I henceforth cast all my care upon thee, that I may live, and I will consider wonderful things out of thy law.'[12] In Books I to X, Augustine had been the subject of *conf.* Now, in Book XI, we have a new subject: 'the wonderful things out of thy law.'

We saw above that the shift from autobiography to psychology occurred because autobiography could not describe the inner realities of Christian experience; here now Augustine is indicating the shift from psychology to exegesis. What has changed in Augustine over the course of Book X to effect this change? Just as autobiography could not describe the inner realities of Christian experience, so psychology could not meet the demands of Augustine's service to the Church. The resolution to serve all brought about by 2*Corinthians* 5:15 shoves Augustine back out into the world to serve others; this service, however, cannot use his own life as its main frame of reference. In the first ten books he was able to describe the journey to faith and the struggle to live that faith based on his own experience. The self-examination of Book X, however, makes him acutely aware of how service is a great temptation to pride. The problem was that he, rather than God and his neighbours, was often the greatest beneficiary of his acts of service. He prays after examining his pride that God would be the centre of his service: 'Let us be loved on your account, and let it be your word that is honoured.'[13] It makes perfect sense that the way to ensure that God's word is honoured in him is by making God's word central in his service to the Church.

Further, it is also the case that through God's word Augustine can serve all in a way he could not do otherwise.[14] Through interpreting *Genesis*, as he will begin to do in Book XI, Augustine is able to describe how God is making all things new; indeed, for Augustine *Genesis* tells of the creation and, when it is interpreted allegorically, *recreation* of all things. So through Scriptural exegesis the particularities of his own journey are set aside for the grand story of God's creation and redemption. Throughout, the particularities of the *conf.* have been grounded in the universal story of salvation. Indeed, Augustine begins his autobiography by describing the life of a new-born baby, squarely connecting his own life with the life of every human being. Further, he wrote in Book II that he was describing his life prior to conversion so that whoever in the 'human race' happened to read it could 'reflect with me on the depths from which we must cry to you.'[15] Augustine's own distance from God was relevant to all.

[12] *conf.* X 43.70.

[13] *conf.* X 36.59.

[14] Also see Charles Mathews, The Liberation of Questioning in Augustine's *Confessions*: *Journal of the American Academy of Religion* 70 (2002) 539-60.

[15] *conf.* II 3.5.

Digitized by Google

Through the interpretation of Scripture, the desired universality of *conf.* is able to reach its fullest expression so that Augustine serves all through his exegesis. And, indeed, it is through this service that Augustine finally achieves spiritual maturity and comes to rest in God. It is by exegesis for the service of the Church that Augustine is able to contemplate the Trinity in Book XII; and further, in Book XIII, he comes to see how the Holy Spirit is present in all creation enabling all things to rest in God. So it is that through his service – through orienting himself to all by recounting the story of all – Augustine's own journey is completed. The final three books fulfil the resolution to service at the conclusion of Book X, and by so doing they also complete the journey to spiritual maturity begun in Book I.

This service is embodied in the text in the description of the Eucharist that closes Book X. Following *2Corinthians* 5:15, Augustine resolves to sacrificially serve the Church. In order to do so, however, he himself, in his sinful and weak condition, needs to be sustained by God. As he writes: 'You know how stupid and weak I am: teach me and heal me.'[16] God does so through the Eucharist, in which Augustine is reminded of 'my ransom' of Christ's body and blood, and so is assured of his salvation even in his sinful state. He describes not only his own partaking of the body and blood, however, but also his distribution of it: 'I eat it, I drink it, I dispense it to others, and as a poor man I long to be filled with it among those who are fed and feasted.'[17] His own eating and drinking, then, enables him to pass the body and blood onto others; by feeding on Christ he can take part in Christ's work. In this we see the imitation of Christ that Augustine read of in *2Corinthians* 5:15. He is not only sustained in his sinful state by the body and blood, but he also turns to others and shares what he has received. Then, having fed and feasted, together they can 'praise the Lord'.[18] So in the very conclusion of Book X we have this vivid description of the Eucharist which represents Augustine's role in the Church as a servant; one who is both sustained by the body and blood and who dispenses it to others. At the conclusion of Book X this service occurs through a description of the Eucharist, and beginning in Book XI it will be interpretation of the Word.

So as was the case with Book IX, we see that in Book X there are clear indications of why the form and content of *conf.* change. At the end of Book X Augustine sees that he cannot continue within himself as central to his service to others; instead, he turns to Scripture so that God's word is primary and he is secondary. Further, Scriptural exegesis allows him to fulfil his service to all – as described in *2Corinthians* 5:15 – because it enables him to describe how God is making all things new in Christ. When this service ends at the conclusion of Book XIII, Augustine comes to his desired rest.

[16] *conf.* X 43.70.
[17] *Ibid.*
[18] *Ibid.*

Digitized by Google

Digitized by Google

Divine Simplicity in the *De Trinitate* of St. Augustine

Michael L. CARREKER, Forsyth, Georgia

Towards the end of the *De Trinitate*, Augustine explains the great unlikeness between the image of the Trinity in the mind of man and God the Trinity himself. The threefold activity of the human mind in *memoria*, *intellectus*, and *voluntas*, exists in one person, but in the 'simplicity of that highest nature,' which God is, although God is one, nevertheless there are three persons.[1] At this Augustine marvels: in the simplicity of these three persons there is a greater indivisibility than in the threefold activity of the mind of one human being.[2]

By means of the idea of simplicity, Augustine understands the divine nature to be beyond all material division, beyond all psychological and emotional multiplicity, beyond all momentary existence, indeed, incomparably 'more simple than the human mind'.[3] The nature of the human mind is unlike God, because in God 'to be' is the same as 'to be wise'. Whatever attribute one may predicate properly of God is identical with his being, and most importantly, the three persons of the Father and the Son and the Holy Spirit are nothing other than this identity.[4] In man not only is the soul multiple, of which mind is a part, but man is also body, and so we do not speak of man as identical with his mind but rather as having a mind, as he does a soul and body.[5]

With the predicate of simplicity, Augustine has articulated the profound unlikeness between the image of the Trinity in the mind of man and the Trinity which God is. And yet we would be mistaken if at this juncture we were to conclude our analysis of Augustine's conception of divine simplicity.[6] There is more to the unlikeness between the image in mind and the Trinity that God is. If we grasp something of the unlikeness which Augustine discerns, we shall also be in a position to understand something of the likeness he discerns as well. And having understood this likeness we may proceed, as he encourages us to do, to see the Trinity through the image that man is.[7]

[1] Augustine, *De trinitate libri quindecim* XV.xxii.42 (CChr.SL 50A, 519,520), W.J. Mountain (ed.), *Aurelii Augustini Opera*, CChr.SL 50,50A (Turnhout, 1968).

[2] *trin.* XV.xxiii.43 (CChr.SL 50A, 520,521).

[3] *trin.* VI.iv.6 (CChr SL 50, 234).

[4] *trin.* XV.v.7-XV.v.8 (CChr SL 50A, 468-70).

[5] *trin.* VI.vi.8 (CChr SL 50, 470).

[6] See the criticisms of Lewis Ayres, which fall short. Lewis Ayres, *Nicaea and its Legacy* (Oxford, 2004), 372-83.

[7] *trin.* XV.xxiii.44 (CChr.SL 50A, 522).

Studia Patristica XLIX, 265-270.
© Peeters Publishers, 2010.

Digitized by Google

With this point we must cast our gaze back over the argument of the entire *De Trinitate* and then return to our place in book fifteen. In books five through seven, Augustine accepts the teaching of St. Paul, that now we see *'per speculum in aenigmate'*, 'through a mirror in an indistinct image', which for Augustine is a means to understand the meaning of the biblical language of God through the activity of mind.[8] This movement, within, follows Augustine's own experience, when he was guided by the books of the Platonists. Then, prior to his conversion, he had accepted the uncertain and only probable knowledge of Skepticism, which he later forsook when he was led by Platonism, away from the uncertain knowledge of the sensible world, within the soul and upward in mind to a vision of the truth. This vision gave him certain knowledge both of being and of knowledge itself.[9] This same movement, within and upward, he experienced as a converted Christian, along with his mother Monica. This time the vision held all creation by one contiguous and beauteous rational order, leading within, up to and touching the highest wisdom of God by a concentration of the heart.[10]

And now, here, at books five through seven of the *De Trinitate*, laying his mind before the biblical doctrine of the Trinity, given in books one through four, Augustine proceeds according to the authority of Scripture, once again within, *per speculum*. By means of Aristotle's categories and biblical authority, Augustine comes to a logical understanding of how the Father, the Son, and the Holy Spirit are one substance or essence, related to each other, and engaged in a twofold eternal act. The categories of substance and relation are transmuted from what they mean in finite substances, and deemed proper in the predication of God as God is thought of in himself.[11] In addition, while substance and relation are taken from Aristotle's ten categories and used in predication proper to God, Augustine also claims the category of act (*ad faciendum*), since, he says, that to act or to make is most properly said of God as the Creator.[12] It is later in book five; however, that Augustine expands this understanding of God in act where he speaks of God the Father as *Principium*, not only in virtue of creating, but also in begetting (*gignit*) the Son. Moreover, the Father and the Son are both said to be one *Principium* in relation to the Spirit who is given (*datur*) by each to the other in one reciprocal act.[13] The idea of *Principium* subsumes the notions appropriate to act, both as creating and even more primarily as begetting and giving. In these books, Augustine has given the biblical predication of God a logical form for thought.

[8] *trin.*V.i.1 (CChr.SL 50, 206). In XV.ix.16 (CChr.SL 50A, 482,483), Augustine understands this to mean through the image or likeness which appears in the mirror.

[9] Augustine, *Confessionum libri tredecim* VII.17.23 (CChr.SL 27, 107), L. Verheijen (ed.), *Aurelii Augustini Opera*, CChr.SL 27 (Turnhout, 1981).

[10] *conf.* IX.10.24 (CChr.SL 27, 147,148).

[11] *trin.* V.i.2 – V.v.6 (CChr.SL 50, 206-11).

[12] *trin.* V.viii.9 (CChr.SL 50, 215,216).

[13] *trin.* V.xiii.14 – V.xiv.15 (CChr.SL 50, 220-3).

Digitized by Google

When Augustine turns to books eight through fifteen, he does so by moving in an even more interior way. This, for Augustine, begins the way of understanding the Trinity, which he promised in book one[14], and has now been clarified through the categories of substance, relation, and act. In book ten the argument turns in its most concrete form to the activity of mind, wherein Augustine discovers an indubitable truth: the mind knows that it lives. The life of the mind cannot itself be doubted, for the very possibility of doubt presupposes a being which lives, and in living, remembers, and thinks, and finally delights in its life. This activity of the mind, anchored in the memory, is never absent from the mind. Whenever the mind turns away from itself and places something else in its purview, the mind may again return to remember that it lives and that it delights in its living.[15]

Books eleven through fourteen offer a formation of the thinking mind and its certain self-knowledge, away from its confusion in the sensible, finding the power to distinguish and order the mind's activities from *scientia* to *sapientia* through the grace of Christ the Mediator.[16] At each step, the argument moves further within the mind's own activity, and at each step, Augustine discovers a more adequate, though as yet inadequate, image of God. With book fourteen, in the highest image discovered thus far, Augustine contends that mind is dependent *sapientia*, which depends for its wisdom, in memory, intellect, and will, upon God. The mind has come to the formation of the image of God by participation in the wisdom which is God.

And yet this is not the highest image. The highest image is formed when the Trinity comes as fully as possible into view, and the dependent *sapientia* of the human *mens* is seen in relation to absolute *sapientia*, by the way of likeness and unlikeness. And hence we return to the *speculum* in book fifteen.

It is at XV.xxiii.44 (CChr.SL 50A, 522), having shown the profound likeness and unlikeness between the image of the Trinity and the Trinity that God is, that Augustine exhorts his reader to follow his argument and seek the face of God. By contemplating (*conspiciendo*) the image in man and by moving from contemplation of the image through the image by a rational conjecture (*coniciendo*) we may see Him whose image it is.[17] Even though there remains a great distance and unlikeness, there is also likeness by which it is permitted in this life to see something of God. And therefore, given the argument which precedes, *per speculum*, through the purview of the logical categories, and the certainty of mind's self-knowledge, and the progress through *scientia* to *sapientia*, there is a certainty to this likeness, as well as to the unlikeness.

[14] *trin.* I.ii.4 (CChr.SL 50, 31,32).

[15] *trin.* X.x.14-X.x.16 (CChr.SL 50, 327-9); X.xi.17 (CChr.SL 50, 329,330); X.xi.18 (CChr. SL 50, 330,331).

[16] *trin.* XIII.xix.24 (CChr.SL 50A, 415-7).

[17] *trin.* XV.xxiii.44 (CChr.SL 50A, 522).

Digitized by Google

In the discovery of mind's certain self-knowledge,[18] Augustine finds that in the mind's activity of memory, intellect, and will, each power necessarily contains the others: memory not only remembers, it understands that it remembers, and loves what it understands; and intellect not only understands, but remembers that it has known and loved what it has stored in the memory, and so may return to the memory to think it once again; and the love of mind not only wills what it knows (and cannot will what it does not know),[19] but wills to remember what has been known, stored and hidden in memory, when it holds together the knowledge contained in the memory and the thought of that knowledge conceived once more in intellect.[20] This coherence of the mind may be focused on God when it moves from *scientia* to *sapientia*, from faith to understanding, and by the grace of the Incarnate Mediator[21] partakes of God the Trinity.[22] What distances the image from Him whose image it is is not that in God each person is essentially memory, intellect, and will; the human mind finds this necessarily true about each of its powers.[23] Rather, it is the fact that in the human mind, the act of thinking is by nature momentary, and the content of memory is hidden from the others until the act of thought.[24] In God memory, intellect, and will are transparent in their act, and so the fullness and completeness of mutual knowledge and love are eternally true in the life of the divine persons.[25]

Furthermore, for Augustine, the likeness which the image is in relation to God allows for an explicit correspondence between the mind's faculties and the persons of the Trinity. The Father begets all that He is, without lying or error, in His Word, and therein the Father is the divine memory. The Son receives all that the Father is and nothing of what the Father is not and is therein the divine intellect. And the Holy Spirit is the mutual gift and love of the Father to the Son and of the Son to the Father, holding both together as parent and offspring and therein is the divine will. Augustine is clear about this correspondence.[26] Even though in God the simplicity of the eternal relations of the three infinite persons is far above and unlike the faculties of God's created image,[27] these three things which constitute the mind as image are true.[28] Throughout book

[18] *trin.* X.x.14-X.x.16 (CChr.SL 50, 327-9); X.xi.17-X.xi.18 (CChr.SL 50, 329-31).

[19] *trin.* XV.xxvii.50 (CChr.SL 50A, 531-3).

[20] *trin.* XV.xxi.40-XV.xxi.41 (CChr.SL 50A, 517-9).

[21] This is the argument of books XII and XIII.

[22] *trin.* XIV.xii.15 (CChr.SL 50A, 442,443).

[23] With respect to the human mind: *trin.* X.x.14-X.x.16 (CChr.SL 50, 327-329); X.xi.17-X.xii.19 (CChr.SL 50, 329-32); XV.xxi.40 (CChr.SL 50A, 517,518). Lewis Ayres uses this criticism without clarifying how this is and is not so for the human mind. L. Ayres, *Nicaea and its Legacy* (2004), 383.

[24] *trin.* XV.xv.25 (CChr.SL 50A, 498-500); XV.xxi.40 (CChr.SL 50A, 517,518).

[25] *trin.* XV.xvii.28 (CChr.SL 50A, 502,503).

[26] *trin.* XV.xxi.40, 41 (CChr.SL 50A, 517-9).

[27] *trin.* XV.xxii.42-XV.xxiii.43 (CChr.SL 50A, 519-21).

[28] *trin.* XV.xxvii.49 (CChr.SL 50A, 530,531).

Digitized by Google

fifteen, Augustine has sought to see the face of God in the nature of wisdom. Of all the attributes properly attributed to God, he says, *sapientia* may be seen to include them all.[29] It has been Augustine's confidence to discover what wisdom is *per speculum*, how the memory, intellect, and will of the mind are like and unlike God whose image mind is.

Finally, when Augustine brings the argument to a close, he confesses that the knowledge of the Trinity is too great for him.[30] The mind cannot fix its gaze on the eternal light with steady eye. Still, the mind may seek confidently because of the grace of illumination: 'this same light has shown you those three things in yourself, in which you can recognize yourself as the image of that supreme Trinity.'[31] But even then, with the grace of illumination, it is the infirmity of the mind which precludes the contemplation of God. The only means to heal the infirmity, says Augustine, is to seek the forgiveness of mind's iniquity. And so the treatise ends with prayer.

I would suggest this final analysis. To say that the divine simplicity allows us to see memory, intellect, and love as somehow the essential activity of God, proper to each of the divine persons as to the whole of the divine essence, is no less fraught with difficulty than to say that wisdom is essential to God and proper to each of the three persons as to the one divine essence. On the other hand, the divine simplicity also allows us to see that there is a correspondence of the mind as *imago trinitatis* to God the Trinity, wherein memory, intellect, and love are essential to each power of the mind and infinitely more so to each of the divine persons, and that in God as in man, and yet infinitely above man, by virtue of an ordered activity, the Father may be seen as *memoria*, the Son as *intellectus*, and the Spirit as *voluntas* or *amor*. An ordered activity means that while the divine essence is the divine memory, intellect, and love, and while each of the persons possesses these also in himself as his own nature, there exists an order by way of predominance, a predominance which in being is not less than equal in all respects to the divine essence, and which is nothing less than an absolute transparency of being, but which as it were accentuates the person in his place in the order.[32] In which case, by way of the predominance of memory, which includes intellect and will, the Father is memory, and by a predominance of intellect, which includes memory and love, the Son is intellect, and by a predominance of love, which includes memory and intellect, the Holy Spirit is love. For Augustine, according to both the Scriptures and reason, the divine simplicity is the way of understanding how the divine essence

[29] *trin.* XV.v.7-XV.vi.9 (CChr.SL 50A, 468-72).

[30] *trin.* XV.xxvii.50 (CChr.SL 50A, 531-3).

[31] *trin.* XV.xxvii.50 (CChr.SL 50A, 532); Edmund Hill (transl.), *The Trinity*, Augustinian Heritage Institute: The Works of Saint Augustine 5 (Hyde Park, 1991), 435.

[32] I take the idea of predominance from Mary Clark's analysis of Victorinus. Mary Clark (transl.), Marius Victorinus: *Theological Treatises on the Trinity*, FoC 69 (Washington, DC, 1978), 14, 15.

Digitized by Google

is wisdom and love, and each of the persons is wisdom and love, and yet also the Son is properly Wisdom, and the Spirit is properly Love.[33] For Augustine, to understand the simplicity of the Trinity as ordered activity is to approach the problem of seeing the divine essence and the divine persons in one view, one approach to that supreme problem which filled the speculations of the philosophical culture of his day.

[33] *trin.* XV.xvii.27-XV.xix.37 (CChr.SL 50A, 501-14).

Digitized by Google

'Christ, the Wisdom of God' The Logic of Attribution in Augustine's *De Trinitate* 5-7

Wendy ELGERSMA HELLEMAN, Jos, Nigeria

Introductory

Augustine tells us in the *Confessions* (III 4.7-8) that even from youth, his love of wisdom was conditioned on respect for the name of Christ. The *De Trinitate* offers strong evidence of that love for wisdom; the 'wisdom of God' provides the climax of the first seven books, while analogies for the divine trinity in human nature (*trin.* 8-14) focus on wisdom as a crucial aspect of the mind.[1] The accent on wisdom also has a more specific context in Arian debates after the Nicene council. For the wisdom texts, *Prov.* 8:22 'the Lord created me / brought me forth', and 1*Cor.* 1:24, 'Christ the power of God and the wisdom of God'[2] were crucial in these controversies.[3]

The Greek fathers Athanasius and Gregory of Nyssa, and also Hilary and Ambrose (in Latin) devote significant attention to the *Proverbs* text, but far less to that of *Corinthians*,[4] though they must have known that without the latter passage Arian claims to the creaturely status of Christ were less easily demonstrated. While Augustine assumes prior discussion of *Proverbs* 8, he focuses on the *Corinthians* text in *De Trinitate* 6 and 7. His aim is to differentiate between attribution of *Sophia* for Christ (*Sapientia Dei*) and use of the name *Logos* (*Verbum*) for the Son as offspring of the Father.

[1] Abbreviations of the works of Augustine follow *AL*.

[2] Hilary recognizes the use of such texts as 'the greatest billow in the storm they raise', *De Trinitate* 12.1, transl. E.W. Watson, LNPF Ser. 2, Vol. 9. See also P. Widdicombe, *The Fatherhood of God* (Oxford, 1994), 66; on earlier use of these texts see H. Jaeger, The Patristic Conception of Wisdom: *SP* 4 (1961) 90-106, esp. 103-5.

[3] Augustine's focus on wisdom should not be misunderstood in terms of an intellectualist bent for philosophical discussion. According to M.R. Barnes, De Régnon Reconsidered: *Augustinian Studies* 26 (1995) 51-79, modern scholars follow Augustine in preferring the title Wisdom because it suggests a rational analogy similar to that of the Word (68). For appreciation of the role of wisdom, see R. Williams, *Sapientia* and Trinity: Reflections on the *De Trinitate*, in: Bernard Bruning *et al.* (eds.), *Collectanea Augustiniana. Mélanges T.J. Van Bavel* (Leuven, 1990), I 317-32; also G. Madec, Christus, Scientia et Sapientia nostra: *Recherches augustiniennes* 10 (1975) 77-85.

[4] Athanasius mentions 1*Cor.* 1:24 in interaction with Asterius, but devotes seven chapters to *Prov.* 8:22 (*Contra Arianos* II 16-22; see II 19.44); his interpretation greatly influenced Hilary, Ambrose and Gregory of Nyssa.

Studia Patristica XLIX, 271-277.
© Peeters Publishers, 2010.

Digitized by Google

The present essay examines Augustine's argument in order to highlight his contribution on the concept *Sophia / Sapientia*. Thus it begins with 1) use of the Corinthians text before Augustine; 2) examination of the argument and conclusions of *De Trinitate* 5-7; 3) the identity of pro-Nicene discussion partners; and 4) conclusions.

Prior use of the Corinthians text

Examination of representative texts of Athanasius (*Contra Arianos*), Gregory of Nyssa (*Contra Eunomium*), Hilary (*De Trinitate*) and Ambrose (*De Fide*), reveals that all four mention the text, but neither Gregory of Nyssa nor Ambrose provide extended discussion. Athanasius introduces the Arian Asterius (*Contra Arianos* I 9.32-3) speaking of *Sophia* and *Logos* as ingenerate with the Father, but for Christ Asterius is said to indicate 'another wisdom' so named by 'participation', or 'in name' (*metochei, onomati*).[5] Athanasius leads other pro-Nicene authors by responding with an appeal to *John* 1:1, 'the Word was God', to indicate identity of essence (*ousia*);[6] he closely associates Christ as 'Power and Wisdom of God' with Christ as Logos and Son, related to the Father as a son, his offspring, by nature, like the utterance of the mind, or radiance of light (*apaugasma*, *Heb.* 1:3).[7]

The Corinthians text turns up with Phoebadius of Agen (consecrated 357) who attended the council of Ariminum.[8] Claiming that the Latin *virtus* (Gk. *dynamis*) is synonymous with *substantia*, he interpreted its occurrence in 1*Cor.* 1:24 as proof that the divine *ousia* is also that of Christ (see *Col.* 1:29).[9]

[5] Athanasius, *Contra Arianos* I 9, transl. Cardinal Newman, LNPF Ser. 2, Vol. 4; text PG 26. See also *Contra Arianos* II 18.37 and *De Syn.* 18. On Asterius see R.P.C. Hanson, *The Search for the Christian Doctrine of God. The Arian Controversy, 318-381* (Edinburgh, 1988), 33-41, where he lists and translates some important fragments, using the collection given by Gustave Bardy, *Recherches sur saint Lucien d'Antioche* (Paris, 1936). The fragments of Asterius have more recently been edited, translated (into German) and provided with a commentary by Markus Vinzent, *Asterius von Kappadokien, Theologische Fragmente. Einleitung, kritischer Text, Übersetzung und Kommentar*, SVigChr 20 (Leiden, 1993). Vinzent has recognized the significance of 1*Cor.* 1:24 for Asterius, particularly with the fragments 64-72 (see *ibid.* 124-33, and 302-15). On the relevant concepts, see R.D. Williams, The Logic of Arianism: *JTS N.S.* 34 (1983) 56-81, particularly 76f.

[6] See Athanasius, *Contra Arianos* I 9; see Hilary, *De Trinitate* 7.9.

[7] See Athanasius, *Contra Arianos* I 8.28; also *De decr.* 17. The widely accepted derivative sense for Wisdom as Son may account for Augustine's insistence on distinguishing the attribution of 'Son' and 'Word' according to relationship, unlike Wisdom, attributed according to substance. On the derivative sense of *homoousion* in Athanasius see R.P.C. Hanson, *The Search* (1988), 694f.

[8] R.P.C. Hanson, *The Search* (1988), 516-8.

[9] For biblical passages where Phoebadius has identified occurrence of the term *ousia* (as *substantia)* see R.P.C. Hanson, *The Search* (1988), 516-8.

Digitized by Google

Hilary's use of the text is noteworthy for attention to its context in *Corinthians*, the argument on divine wisdom and foolishness; but he mostly cites the text to warn against oversubtle use of philosophical argument, as a type of wisdom which is folly (*stultitia*) in God's sight, while the cross, which is foolishness to Jews and Greeks alike, represents the Power and Wisdom of God (*De Trinitate* 3.8).[10]

Like Hilary, Ambrose in the *De Fide* pays more attention to the *Proverbs* text on Wisdom, than to 1*Cor.* 1:24 and largely reflects the approach of Athanasius.[11] He simply affirms the unity of wisdom and power of Father and Son, a point also made by Hilary; on the basis of unity of substance (*ousia)* he affirms God's wisdom as true wisdom, not of second rank.[12] As for the Cappadocians, not much needs to be said at this point, except that like others, Gregory of Nyssa spends considerable energy on *Prov.* 8:22, for the most part making the same points as Athanasius.[13]

Augustine's *De Trinitate* on 1*Cor.* 1:24

Augustine addresses understanding of the text in *De Trinitate* 6 and 7, but provides the basis for this in 5.2.3 where he states preference for *essentia* to translate *ousia*, citing *Ex.* 3:14, 'I am that I am'. Even so he accepts the traditional Latin *substantia* (from Tertullian) on the condition that Aristotelian usage is avoided, *i.e.* positing an underlying subject of which quantity or quality can be predicated, since this indicates composition (*trin.* 5.2.3, cf. 7.5.10). God is truly simple; He 'is' what he 'has', namely his goodness or greatness (5.2.3; 5.8.9). Such attributes are not 'accidents' but attributed according to substance.[14] There is an important exception for divine attributes like 'father' or 'son', which are attributed according to relationship (*ad aliquid, relative*, 5.5.6).

[10] On the cunning of opponents see Hilary, *De Trinitate* 1.15; 2.8-15; 3.24; 5.1, and 5.2.

[11] Ambrose, *De Fide* 1.15.96-98; see also 3.7.46 and 11.76ff.

[12] On use of *John* 17:10 and 17:21, see Ambrose, *De Fide* 4.3.36. For a brief appeal to the text see *De Fide* 1 and 6.16.194.

[13] We return to Gregory's allusion to the text in the discussion of Augustine's pro-Nicene colleagues below. On wisdom in Gregory, see my paper 'Gregory of Nyssa's Sophia: Christ, the Wisdom of God': *SP* 41 (2006) 345-50, especially 346-8. Alongside fathers discussed above we mention briefly the Pseudo-Athanasian *Contra Arianos* IV, which refers obliquely to 1*Cor.* 1:24 when speaking of Christ as God's Word, Wisdom, Son, and Power (as at IV 1, init.); the text is cited as such at IV 31 in a discussion of Christ as the Word incarnate. Markus Vinzent, who attributes this book to Apollinaris, also argues in his work, *Pseudo-Athanasius, Contra Arianos IV. Eine Schrift gegen Asterius von Kappadokien, Eusebius von Cäsarea, Markell von Ankyra und Photin von Sirmium*, SVigChr 36 (Leiden, 1996), that Marius Victorinus used arguments of Pseudo-Athanasian *Contra Arianos* IV in his work against Arians (309-13); for recognition of the significance of 1*Cor.* 1:24 for Apollinaris see M. Vinzent, *Pseudo-Athanasius*, 37-9, 71-2, 82, 197-204, and especially 384.

[14] Augustine agrees with Arians that anything predicated of God is predicated according to substance (*secundum substantiam*, at *trin.* 5.3.4).

Digitized by Google

Augustine's aim is to determine whether wisdom is predicated according to substance or relationship. He is motivated by pro-Nicene colleagues (*nostri adversus arrianos)* who responded to the Arian view of Christ using the Corinthians text, 'Christ the power of God and the wisdom of God' (*dei virtutum et dei sapientiam*) to prove the eternity of the Son because there never was a time when the Father was without power or wisdom (*trin.* 6.1.1). If Christ is the wisdom of God, they argued, it would be absurd to think of God without his wisdom. Augustine counters by pointing out that the Father is thus represented as the begetter (*genitor* 6.1.2) of his own wisdom. Can the Father be wise (*sapiens*) by the wisdom (*sapientia*) which he has himself begotten?

Augustine recognizes that the position of his colleagues is based on predicating wisdom according to relationship, with the Father as *Sapiens* and the Son as *Sapientia*. In *De Trinitate* 6 he goes out of his way to validate this kind of predication, inasmuch as it implies that what is predicated relationally must be peculiar to the members of the Trinity on the model of Father related to Son, or Mind related to Word (as its expression).[15]

The various proposed alternatives in accepting such predication are resolved in *De Trinitate* 7. Here Augustine compares wisdom with greatness, asking whether the Son represents the greatness of the Father, and in this way the Father may be recognized as the begetter of his own being.[16] In 7.2 he tries to evade such an absurd conclusion, finally recognizing that the only useful solution is to differentiate predicates like 'image' and 'word', as predicates according to relationship, while those like 'wisdom' and 'greatness' represent predicates according to substance, and are therefore to be attributed to all three persons equally.

After arriving at this conclusion he still faces the question why wisdom is typically associated with the Son. In subsequent chapters Augustine, like Athanasius in his analysis of *Prov.* 8:22, says that wisdom as peculiar to the Son represents Him as God incarnate.

The identity of pro-Nicene colleagues

Examination of representative texts of Hilary and Ambrose, whom we might reasonably expect as discussion partners, yields no formulation close to that given in Augustine's *De Trinitate* 6.1.1.[17] Athanasius does provide a similar

[15] The present short paper cannot do justice to the complexity of the argument. Further chapters of *De Trinitate* 6, testing the proposed predication according to relationship, discover that this interpretation reduces discussion of the wisdom of God to absurdity.

[16] Here again the present account is highly abbreviated. Augustine's method of argument remains a matter of controversy and demands separate treatment.

[17] Only a weak allusion is given by Hilary at *De Trinitate* 12.52; cf. 12.23. One other discussion partner might be considered, Apollinaris, as author of Pseudo-Athanasian *Contra Arianos* IV, a

Digitized by Google

argument in *Contra Arianos* I 14, discussing what is generated from the Father as his Word and Wisdom; if Arians maintain that 'once the Son was not', they rob God of his Word, predicating of Him that once He was 'without His proper Word and Wisdom, and that the Light was once without radiance, and the Fountain was once barren and dry (*en pote tou idiou Logou kai Sophia choris, kai to phos en pote choris auges, kai agonos en he pege kai ksera*).'[18]

A closer formulation is given by Gregory of Nyssa, *Contra Eunomium* 3.2, arguing that if the Wisdom of God is created (and Christ is the Power of God and the Wisdom of God), it would follow that God has his Wisdom as a thing imported, receiving afterwards as a result of making something which he did not have at first. Surely He who is in the bosom of the Father does not permit us to conceive of that bosom of the Father as ever void of Himself.[19] Gregory argues for the eternity of the Son by saying that if He were created, God's Wisdom would be alien to himself, whereas we know that Christ is always in the bosom of the Father. To think of God without his Wisdom is absurd. The passage represents a position quite close to the citation of Augustine in *De Trinitate* 6.1.1, emphasizing the eternity of the Son, as Wisdom of God and as Son of God, and affirming that one could not conceive of God the Father ever being without his wisdom, as an important reason why the Father cannot ever be thought of without his Son, and why the Son is not the result of making rather (than an eternal birth).

We should not be surprised to discover Augustine debating with Gregory of Nyssa in this context. Would Augustine have read the work of the Cappadocians? Was he able to read the Greek text? In the present discussion I want to

work which, according to Markus Vinzent, in his *Pseudo-Athanasius* (1996), influenced Marius Victorinus (see above, note 13). The work of Victorinus certainly was known to Augustine; yet it is doubtful whether he is one of the *nostri adversus arrianos* (*trin.* 6.1.1) intended by Augustine. Although Victorinus' four books *Adversus Arium* make repeated citation of the text of 1*Cor.* 1:14 (particularly at I, 38 and 56; II, 2 and 5; III, 4; and IV, 29 and 30), we find Victorinus using the text to prove that, as *Logos*, the Son is consubstantial (*homoousios*) with the Father; none of these citations is accompanied by an argument such as that reported by Augustine.

[18] See also Athanasius, *Contra Arianos* I 3.9: 'For the Father being everlasting, His Word and His Wisdom must be everlasting.' A similar approach is found in I 6.19.

[19] Gregory of Nyssa, *Contra Eunomium* 3.2: 'For if the Wisdom of God is created (and Christ is the Power of God and the Wisdom of God), it would follow that God has His Wisdom as a thing imported, receiving afterwards, as the result of making, something which He had not at first. But surely He Who is in the bosom of the Father does not permit us to conceive the bosom of the Father as ever void of Himself.... He Who is conceived as being in the eternity of the Father's Godhead is always in Him, being Power, and Life, and Truth, and Wisdom...' Transl. *Against Eunomius* 3.2 in LNPF 2.5, 137-142; for the text see W. Jaeger (ed.), *Gregorii Nysseni Opera, Contra Eunomium Libri*, in Vol. II 20-1: *ei gar ktiste tou theou he sophia, Christos de theou dynamis kai theou sophia, epeisakton esche pantos ho theos ten sophian, hysteron ek kataskeues proslabon he me para ten proten eichen. alla men ho en tois kolpois on tou patros oudepote kenon heautou didosi noein ton patroon kolpon.... ho en te aidioteti tes patrikes theotetos einai nooumenos aei en auto esti, dynamis on kai dzoe kai aletheia kai phos kai sophia kai ta toiauta.*

Digitized by Google

leave these questions open, as not wholly determinative for an examination of patterns of approach, of challenge and defense in answering Arian positions, and advance in mutual understanding in the decades after Nicaea. Without actually reading Gregory's work, Augustine could have acquainted himself with the arguments through other sources. In *De Trinitate* 7.4.7-8 he dismisses the 'three man' trinitarian argument closely associated with Gregory of Nyssa.

Given his own leaning to philosophy, Augustine would have respected Gregory's philosophical approach on theological issues; among the Latin fathers he was clearly a match for Gregory. While Hilary, like most, hardly hides his annoyance with Arian logic, complaining of wily debating techniques, Augustine shows rare confidence upon entering a minefield of philosophical argumentation. Certainly, Augustine's education in philosophy prepared him for the tough issues; witness his ease in understanding Aristotle's *Categories*, where others professed great difficulties (*conf.* IV 16.28-9). The significance of our identification of Gregory of Nyssa as 'opponent' is that it shows Augustine in conversation with Greek fathers as he elaborates understanding of 'predication according to relationship' for the Trinity.

Conclusions

The present essay has explored 'Wisdom' as a divine attribute, and an important indication of community of theological discussion on the Trinity throughout the Roman Empire, East and West.[20] The issue of predication was important because Arians claimed Christ as Word or Wisdom in name only (*onomati*). Athanasius and others responded by claiming Christ as truly Word and Wisdom of the Father, fully divine on the model of 'light from light'. It is Augustine's contribution to clarify the way *Verbum* and *Sapientia* are to be attributed, the former relatively and the latter according to substance.

If Augustine did not immediately (in *trin.* 6) question the derivative sense in which pro-Nicene discussion partners understood *sapientia dei*, but allowed for a begetter / begotten relationship, he did so for the sake of the argument, so that by testing it fully he could demonstrate the absurdity of the conclusions to which it led.

Augustine's argument for predicating divine wisdom substantively is, I believe, a response to the formulation of Gregory of Nyssa, if not also that of Athanasius. For centuries Augustine's *De Trinitate* was accepted as a classic statement, in both Eastern and Western branches of Christianity.[21] Such a

[20] See also D. Bentley Hart, The Mirror of the Infinite: Gregory of Nyssa on the *Vestigia Trinitatis*, in: Sarah Coakley (ed.), *Re-Thinking Gregory of Nyssa* (Oxford, 2003), 111-31.

[21] On that influence see Josef Lössl, Augustine's *On the Trinity* in Gregory Palamas's *One Hundred and Fifty Chapters*: *Augustinian Studies* 30 (1999) 61-82.

Digitized by Google

reception was possible because Augustine did not limit himself to issues peculiar to his immediate context of the Western Empire. A traditional discussion of trinitarian theology which accepts strong division between Greek and Latin approaches is simply inappropriate for this period. In spite of the growing division between East and West, the church was still one, and community of discussion on important issues was still possible in Augustine's own time.

Digitized by Google

Digitized by Google

The Structure and Purpose of Book VIII of Augustine's *De Trinitate*

Walter A. HANNAM, Saskatoon

That Augustine's *De trinitate* is a structured whole should hardly be a matter of dispute. Questions as to the nature of that structure, of course, remain a matter for debate, as do related questions as to the relation in Augustine's treatise of philosophy to theology, Scripture and faith to reason, and so forth. It is generally agreed, however, that within the structure of the treatise Book VIII marks a transition in Augustine's argument.[1] We have this, of course, from Augustine's own pen. Near the beginning of Book VIII[2] Augustine proposes that he and his readers examine the same matters treated already in Books I-VII *modo interiore* – a rubric which presumably governs not only Book VIII, but also the remainder of the argument, at least as far as the end of Book XIV. More important, however, are the remarks with which Augustine concludes Book VIII.[3] Here Augustine first gives an indication of where his argument will proceed from this point. The next stage of the argument will have the nature of an ascent (*restat ... hinc ascendere*). If the Trinity is to be known, then as much as is humanly possible Augustine and his reader will have to seek 'such things' (*ista*) above (*superius*). Augustine then takes stock of what his argument has accomplished thus far. What is being sought, he explains, has not yet been found, although the place (*locus*) in which it must be sought has been discovered (*iam inuentum est ubi quaeratur*). What remains to be found (*cetera*) can now be 'woven' from what has been said to this point, *tamquam ab articulo*

[1] *Vide inter alia* Ephraem Hendrikx, introduction to *La Trinité (Livres VIII-XV). 2 Les Images*, transl. Paul Agaësse, notes in collaboration with Joseph Moingt, Bibliothèque Augustinienne, Œuvres de saint Augustin 16 (Paris, 1955), 7; Robert D. Crouse, St. Augustine's *De trinitate*: Philosophical Method: *SP* 16 (1985) 501-10, 508; Edmund Hill, introduction to *The Trinity*, The Works of Saint Augustine. A Translation for the 21st Century I/5 (Brooklyn, NY, 1991), 24f.; Michael L. Carreker, *A Commentary on Books Five, Six, and Seven of the* De trinitate *of Saint Augustine of Hippo* (PhD diss., Dalhousie University, 1992), 23f.

[2] Augustine, *trin.* VIII. Prooemium, ed. William J. Mountain, CChr.SL 50 (Turnhout, 1968), 269.

[3] *Ibid.* VIII 10.14, 291: *Restat etiam hinc ascendere et superius ista quaerere quantum homini datur. Sed hic paululum requiescat intentio non ut se iam existimet inuenisse quod quaerit, sed sicut solet inueniri locus ubi quaerendum est aliquid. Nondum illud inuentum est, sed iam inuentum est ubi quaeratur. Ita hoc dixisse suffecerit ut tamquam ab articulo alicuius exordii cetera contexamus.*

Studia Patristica XLIX, 279-285.
© Peeters Publishers, 2010.

Digitized by Google

alicuius exordii. In other words, the argument of Book VIII has located the place where the Trinity is to be sought, which itself serves as the starting point that grounds the ascent *superius* which constitutes the argument of Books IX to XIV.

In their very brevity, however, these remarks raise two important questions. First, what precisely is this *locus* where the Trinity is to be sought? Second, precisely how does this *locus* ground the process of seeking which constitutes the next stage of Augustine's argument? Both questions can, I think, best be answered by a careful examination of the argument of Book VIII, which will, on the one hand, help identify the *locus* that Augustine has discovered, while at the same time providing an opportunity for examining how, as *articulus exordii*, the position reached at the end of the argument of Book VIII anticipates, in a certain form, the remainder of the argument. The *locus* as understood at this point is itself the *articulus exordii*, precisely because it holds within itself, though in an implicit and unexplicated form, the moments of searching which will become explicit in the rest of the argument. This paper will therefore first turn to an examination of the argument of Book VIII with a view to identifying the *locus* which Augustine has discovered. Once this has been accomplished I will make just a few remarks as to how the later argument is at once anticipated by and held implicitly within this *locus*. It is worth noting at the outset that I do not think that the *locus* which Augustine claims to have identified is the human mind simply. It is important to remember that the human mind is actually identified as *imago dei* in VII 5.12 – that is to say, the mind constituted as *speculum trinitatis* through the process of logical predication of divine names and persons according to the categories of substance, relation, and act in Books V-VII.[4] I will anticipate my argument slightly by saying that the *locus* discovered in Book VIII is in fact the mind's activities of knowing and loving, precisely as they are understood to be causally dependant upon the divine activity of the Trinity who is sought.

Book VIII begins with a recapitulation of the point the argument has reached by the end of Book VII – namely, that whatever is predicated *proprie* of any single divine Person is predicated *relatiue*, while anything predicated of a single divine Person *ad se* is predicated *secundum essentiam*.[5] These same points Augustine will now examine *modo interiore*, while keeping what has not yet been understood in the form of faith. In other words, the starting point of the ascent to understanding is the Faith, *i.e.* the Scriptural revelation of the Trinity understood categorically through the course of Books V-VII.[6] Augustine will move on from what has been predicated logically in these books to the point

[4] I believe M.L. Carreker's analysis of the argument by which Augustine reaches this position to be correct (*A Commentary*, 1992, 96-398).

[5] *trin.* VIII, Prooemium, 268.

[6] See M.L. Carreker, *A Commentary* (1992), 96-398.

Digitized by Google

at which the mind will be capable of discerning the *essentia ueritatis*. What has been predicated of the Trinity in Books V-VII is *true*, though it remains as yet only in a logical form.[7] That is to say, the predication has not led the mind to an understanding of the *essentia ueritatis*. Nevertheless, the truth discerned in logical form through categorical predication is the same truth according to which the mind judges that the categorical predication is true. In other words, truth is always self-authenticating, regardless of the form in which the rational mind encounters it. Moreover, the truth now held in its logical form is also the same truth that Augustine is seeking to *understand* in its essence. This is what Augustine means when he says that what he has treated above and what he will seek in what follows are *eadem*. The single truth, which is both the ground and the proper end of human knowing, is also the ground of the *continuity* of human cognition. That is to say, the one truth is itself both the efficient and the final cause of the human mind's ascent from its most exterior form of knowing to an understanding of the *essentia ueritatis* itself.

In chapter 1.2 Augustine begins to show his reader why it is that the categorical predication of Books V-VII is itself an insufficient form of knowing. Augustine has established in those middle books (among other things) both that divine predication is possible and that everything that can truly be said of any single divine Person *ad se* can equally truly be predicated of the other two. Yet, as he says, the *consuetudo carnalis* – that propensity of fallen human intellect to conceive all reality as material or quasi-material – cannot grasp even this categorical predication fully, precisely *quia uera quae creata sunt sentit ut potest, ueritatem autem ipsam qua creata sunt non potest intueri*.[8] In other words, so long as the mind is not converted to a true understanding of the nature of spiritual, or incorporeal reality, the categorical predications of Books V-VII, although true, must remain a middle ground of cognition. The predications must be recognized as true if one is to make sense of the Scriptural revelation of the Trinity, whereas how they can be so remains simply a nagging question.

The beginning of Augustine's answer lies in the nature of the truth of the categorical predications themselves. As Augustine says: *In substantia ... ueritatis quoniam sola uere est non est maior aliqua nisi quae uerius est*.[9] Since, according to the logic Augustine has presented, any essential predication must be equally true of each Person, there can therefore be no difference of magnitude within the Trinity, for *quidquid ... plus ueritatis non habet non habet*

[7] See R.D. Crouse, St. Augustine's *De trinitate* (1985), 507-9; M.L. Carreker, *A Commentary* (1992), 23 and passim.

[8] *trin.* VIII 1.2, 269: 'Since it conceives the true things which are created as it is able, while the truth itself by which they are created it can in no wise contemplate.'

[9] *Ibid.* VIII 1.2, 269: 'Since ... in the substance of truth, [truth] alone truly is, nothing is greater except that which is more truly.'

Digitized by Google

etiam plus magnitudinis.[10] At this point the argument is still governed by the logic of Book VII. If the mind is to move beyond these logical predications, however, then it must undergo an intellectual conversion by which it is brought to understand the nature of the substance of which these predications can be made. It is precisely through such a conversion that Augustine immediately leads his reader in chapter 2.3. The passage follows the same pattern as Augustine's own intellectual conversion as related in *Confessiones* VII 10.16-17.23. Augustine leads his reader first *ab exterioribus ad interiora* – from exterior, corporeal realities to the nature of his own thinking, itself incorporeal but nonetheless real. The mind then proceeds *ab inferioribus ad superiora* – from the mutable nature of human thought to that unchanging Truth which is the ground of the reader's own thinking. Yet this intellectual conversion cannot in itself lead to an understanding of the *essentia ueritatis*, for, as Augustine himself discovered in his *regio dissimilitudinis*,[11] as soon as one asks '*quid sit ueritas*'[12] the mind, which is still subject to the *consuetudo carnalis*, is dragged back to thinking in (at best) quasi-material terms, in terms of images and phantasms.[13]

This disorder in human knowing, however, is caused by a prior disorder of the will, a disordered love which prefers the created order to its cause. The intellect is drawn away from the vision of the Truth by the *pondus* of disordered love. Yet even this disordered love is attracted only by objects that are good – created and mutable goods, to be sure, but goods nonetheless.[14] As Augustine realizes, however, the recognition of goodness in the created realities which are the objects of fallen desire itself depends upon a cause which is at once the cause of the goodness of these realities[15] and the criterion by which the mind judges them good.[16] By turning to this good, which is God, the mind itself becomes good, in loving above all else that which is most worthy of its love, the cause of its own goodness[17] and of the goodness of all created reality.

To this point Augustine has shown his reader that moving beyond the true but categorical predications of Books V-VII requires an intellectual conversion revealing the nature of the substance concerning which these predications can

[10] *Ibid.*: 'Whatever does not have more truth also does not have more magnitude.'

[11] *Vide* Augustine, *conf.* VII 10.16.

[12] *trin.* VIII 2.3, 271; see *conf.* VII 17.23, ed. Martin Skutella, rev. Heiko Jürgens and Wiebke Schaub, Bibliotheca Scriptorum Graecorum et Romanorum Teubneriana (Leipzig, 1996), 146: *... sed aciem figere non eualui et repercussa infirmitate redditus solitis ...*

[13] *trin.* VIII 2.3, 271: *... statim ... se opponent calignes imaginum corporialium et nubilia phantasmatum ...*

[14] *Ibid.* VIII 3.4, 271-2: *Ecce iterum uide si potes. Non amas certe nisi bonum ...*

[15] *Ibid.* VIII 3.5, 273: *... nulla essent mutabilia bona nisi esset incommutabile bonum.*

[16] *Ibid.* VIII 3.4, 272: *Neque enim in his omnibus bonis ... diceremus aliud alio melius cum uere iudicamus nisi esset nobis impressa notio ipsius boni secundum quod et probaremus aliquid et aliud alii praeponeremus.*

[17] *Ibid.* VIII 3.5, 274: *Ad hoc se igitur animus conuertit ut bonus sit a quo habet ut animus sit.*

Digitized by Google

be made. Moreover, he has demonstrated that any movement beyond a merely abstract conception of an unchanging, incorporeal substance that is the ground of human knowing, requires a conversion of the will by which the mind's love can be redirected towards that supreme Good which is at once the cause of all the created goods which the mind loves in a disordered way, and which, as the mind comes to love it as it ought, is the cause of the mind's own goodness as well. Yet this is still not to understand the divine essence, but simply two truths about God which, though true, remain abstract. God is known as the ground and efficient cause of our acts of true judgement and rightly ordered love, but is not directly apprehended in his essence. Nevertheless, this is a necessary step in Augustine's reasoning, for, to anticipate the argument again, it is through the mind's activities of knowing and loving that the Trinity will come to be known. On the one hand, as the mind ascends through the succession of progressively more adequate objects in Books IX-XIV, the activity of the Trinity as the cause of these activities becomes more and more transparent. On the other hand, it is through this same ascent that the mind is reordered so as to be capable of knowing the Trinity, which is the only adequate object of its knowledge and love.

Love, however, presupposes knowledge. For, as Augustine makes clear through a series of rhetorical questions, nothing can be loved which is not first known.[18] As has just been noted, however, at this point in the argument the reader has not yet come to a direct knowledge of God who is Trinity, but has simply come to know him abstractly as *ueritas* and *ipsum bonum*, the principle of human knowing and loving. The Trinity must therefore first be apprehended by faith, so that the mind can begin to love God, not simply as an abstract cause, but for who he is in himself, even though, at this stage, he is neither known nor loved in his essence.[19] It is not immediately clear, however, how one comes to know God by faith. What is clear is that one must avoid the creation of a phantasm of one's own devising.[20] As Augustine points out, even in the case of human beings known from Scripture, such as Paul, or even Christ himself in his humanity, it is not their imagined appearance that is the object of faith, but rather what can be known and understood about them in terms of genera which can be limited by species.[21] Yet the Trinity cannot be known in this way, for it cannot be limited by either genus or species, which apply only to finite essences.

What then can we learn by faith that would allow us to love God, whom we do not yet know? Augustine answers that we must first return to the question of what we believe and love about other human beings, such as the Apostle Paul.

[18] *Ibid.* VIII 4.6.
[19] *Ibid.*
[20] *Ibid.* VIII 4.6-4.7.
[21] *Ibid.* VIII 4.7-5.7.

Digitized by Google

We believe that Paul was just, and love him on that account.[22] To love a just person is to love a just mind, and we can know both what a mind is (since we are ourselves minds) and what it is to be just. To be just is to love the form of *iustitia*, which is at once the cause of *iustitia*[23] and that by which *iustitia* is known.[24] We therefore love our neighbours either because they are just, or in the hope that they will become just (*i.e.* as either actually or potentially in right relation to themselves, their neighbours, and God). As St John tells us, however, 'God is love' (1*Jn.* 4:16). When we love our neighbour rightly, therefore, we love him by the activity within us of God who is love. Moreover, one who loves *magis ... nouit dilectionem qua diligit quam fratrem quem diligit.*[25] In other words, our knowledge that our neighbour is just is in the form of faith; we can only believe him to be just, for we have no direct knowledge that he *is* just. We can, however, be sure both that we love him and that we love him for the right reason (*i.e.* for being either potentially or actually just). Hence, in this activity of loving our neighbour, we come to know God more than the neighbour we love: *Ecce iam potest notiorem deum habere quam fratrem, plane notiorem quia praesentiorem, notiorem quia interiorem, notiorem quia certiorem.*[26] The activity of loving one's neighbour falls short of the mind's perfect activity, however, precisely because its object is exterior to the mind and our knowledge of it dependent on faith. Nevertheless, Augustine has found the *locus* where the Trinity is to be sought, namely, in the mind's activity of love, grounded in a prior knowledge of its object. Both love and the knowledge of its object, so far as they are true, are causally dependent on the divine truth and goodness. At this stage both activities are imperfect, insofar as love's object is grasped only by faith. Yet the rightly ordered love of neighbour is itself the divine activity working causally within the mind, and hence Augustine is able to discern a vestige of the Trinity in this activity itself.

There is no time now to examine the remainder of the argument of *De trinitate* in any detail. It is important, however, to make a few general remarks. The remainder of the argument is constituted in the discovery of more and more interior activities of knowing and loving. Precisely as God is more and more concretely known as the cause of these created acts, these activities are themselves understood as increasingly adequate images of the divine activity of knowing and loving. Each example of human knowledge and love is in its turn

[22] *Ibid.* VIII 6.9.

[23] *Ibid.* VIII 6.9, 283: *Quod unde [iusti animi] esse poterunt nisi inhaerendo eidem ipsi formae quam intuentur ut inde formentur et sint iusti animi.*

[24] *Ibid.*: *Homo ergo qui creditur iustus ex ea forma et ueritate diligitur quam cernit et intelligit apud se ille qui diligit.*

[25] *Ibid.* VIII 8.12, 286: '[one] knows the love with which he loves more than the brother whom he loves.'

[26] *Ibid.*: 'Behold he can now know God more than his brother; more known because more present, more known because more interior, more known because more certain.'

Digitized by Google

found wanting, and its corresponding image negated, until the human mind reaches its rest in *memoria dei*, *intellectus dei*, *amor dei* in Book XIV. The position reached by the end of Book VIII grounds this whole process of seeking, precisely because it is in Book VIII that the divine truth and goodness, which will come to be concretely known as the divine activity of understanding and love, are first shown, albeit abstractly, as the ground of the activities of human mind. And it is here that the human activities of knowing and loving, albeit in their as yet unperfected states, are discerned as the activities by and in which the divine can be discovered. As such Book VIII holds implicitly all the moments of the dialectic of the argument that follows.

Digitized by Google

Digitized by Google

The Heart as Frame to Reach the Word: Augustine, *De Trinitate* XV 11.20

Kazuhiko DEMURA, Okayama

In *De trinitate* Book XV, Augustine examines the similarity and dissimilarity between the divine Trinity and human image of God based upon interpreting 1*Cor.* 13:12 ('We see now through a mirror in an enigma, but then it will face to face'), and 2*Cor.* 3:18 ('But, we, with face unveiled, looking at the glory of the Lord in a mirror, are being transformed into the same image from glory to glory as by the Spirit of the Lord'). In this book he develops a profound consideration on the nature of human language and understanding. However, the methodological and philosophical continuity and discontinuity of his approach to the Trinity between Books VIII-XIV and Book XV with regard to these image has not been explored well by scholars, and some significant difference of the dimensions of his consideration between them has been ignored.

For instance, E. Hill's pioneering survey on the structure of the whole books of *De trinitate* shows the brilliant diagram of the parabolic structure of series from Book I to Book VII and the series from Book IX to Book XV, emphasizing the pivotal role of Book VIII.[1] But he gave no adequate explanation on the shift from Book XIV to Book XV nor on the correspondences between the first two books and the last two books.

In this paper, first, I will pay attention to the contrast between Augustine's concepts of the mind (*mens, animus*) and of the heart (*cor*) and will argue that such contrast characterizes the different dimensions of Augustine's investigation towards the Trinity in the books before Book XV and in this last book, different dimensions which are already introduced in the end of Book I and the beginning of Book II. I would like to say that this difference is caused by the methodology Augustine uses; he sets a difference between to discover the image of the Trinity within the mind (*invenire*) in Book VIII-XIV and to reach the Word in the heart (*pervenire ad verbum*) in Book XV. And then, I will try to show how this notion of reaching the Word is characteristic for Augustine's investigation on the divine Trinity in Book XV.

Book XV is launched on Augustine's basic motive for seeking His [Lord's] face evermore (*Ps.* 105:4). Here we cannot overlook that this seeking (investigation)

[1] Edmund Hill, *Saint Augustine: The Trinity* (Brooklyn, 1991), 27. On the intention of *De trinitate* and polemical relationship with Platonizing Christian views, see John Cavidini, The Structure and Intention of Augustine's *De Trinitate*: *Aug. Stud.* 23 (1992) 103-23.

Studia Patristica XLIX, 287-291.
© Peeters Publishers, 2010.

Digitized by Google

is for Augustine the matter of the heart (*cor*). He quotes this Psalm together with verse 3 ('Let the heart of those who seek the Lord rejoice'). In contrast, early enough in Book VIII, when he took the more inner way of investigation, he paid attention to the mind (*animus, mens*) attentively and from this book on he tried to discover in the mind the Trinitarian relationship of, say, lover loved and love (Book VIII), mind self-knowledge and self-love (Book IX), memory intelligence and will (Book X) and even sense-object sense-image and intention of mind (Book XI). He suggests that making effort to discover such images of the Trinity within the human mind is rather easier for the feeble capacity of the human mind, and finally comes to point that the most important thing is to find the memory of God, the intelligence of God and the love of God (Book XIV) in it, but that the ultimate attempt to find the image of the divine Trinity within the mind failed because of the miserable weakness of human mind (*animus*).

The need for reforming and restoring the true image is the last point of Book XIV (XIV 17.23). And Book XV begins from here. Augustine says: 'In pursuance of our plan to train the reader, in the things that have been made (*Rom.* 1:20), for getting to know him by whom they were made, we arrived eventually at his image (*jam pervenimus ad ejus imaginem*)' (XV 1.1). In this context, we ourselves have been reformed into the image of God in a proper sense. The human mind (as *homo interior*) is not the thing to find out how to know the image of God, but the mind itself is being reformed according to the image of God. Seeking (by heart) evermore is possible on the basis of this reformation and such approach is occurred as a matter of heart.

After summarizing his own investigation in *De trinitate* on the various activities of the mind (for example, memory and understanding), Augustine points out in Book XV:

> 'We know with complete certainty that these things happen in our consciousness (*in animo*) proceed from our consciousness (*de animo*). But the more we desire to observe closely how they happen, the more our language begins to stagger and our attention fails to perceive until our understanding if not our tongue can arrive at some clear thing (*ut ad liquidum aliquid nostra intelligentia si non lingua, perveniat*).
> ... Seeing that I am not even able to comprehend myself whom you have made; and yet a fire burns up in my meditation (*Ps.* 39:3), causing me to seek your face always (*Ps.* 105:4).'[2]

It confirms that Augustine's investigation in Book XV is carried out in the midst of our feeble human mind, to seek his face evermore and this investigation is explained as arriving at some clear thing. According to Augustine, this seeking is not some objective intellectual observation by the mind, but some holistic turning towards the thing he is yearning for. It is expressed as a movement of arrival. Now, where is such arrival realized? And at which thing shall we arrive?

[2] *trin.* XV 7.13 (CChr.SL 50A, 478-9), transl. E. Hill, 405.

Digitized by Google

Such difference between mind and heart as fundamental dimension in Augustine's investigation is already suggested by him at the end of Book I and in the beginning of Book II. At the end of Book I, Augustine emphasizes the need of the purity of heart to attain the divinity in sight or vision and that the final goal is the face to face vision of God based upon 1*Cor.* 13:12, which is leading scripture for the investigation in Book XV.[3] And at the beginning of Book II he says:

'People who seek God, and stretch their minds (*animum intendunt*) as far as human weakness is able toward an understanding of the Trinity, must surely experience the strain of trying to fix their gaze on light inaccessible, and the difficulties presented by the holy scriptures in their multifarious diversity of form... So they should find it easy, once they do shake off all uncertainty on a point and reach a definite thing, to excuse those who make mistakes in the explorations of so deep a mystery.'[4]

This passage suggests that the whole investigation after Book II is foreseen as diversities of opinion, namely the doctrinal investigation on the scriptures in Book II to Book VII and intellectual and psychological surveys from Book VIII on. And these attempts to reach a definite conclusion failed because of the weakness of the human mind. However, beyond these points, Augustine claims, people can reach a definite thing (*ad aliquid certum ... pervenerint).* This definite thing to reach is nothing but the clear thing to reach (*ut ad liquidum aliquid nostra intelligentia si non lingua, perveniat*), which Augustine points out in Book XV. In these contexts, he uses the movement of reaching or arriving at (*pervenire*) very significantly.

Now if our view on Augustine's intention to write Book XV as already being planned from Book I and Book II is correct, what turn did his investigation in the Trinity take in Book XV? He does not emphasise that saints can achieve a pure contemplative achievement solely through special vision, but turns our attention to the nature of the word which is very close to our experience. In the dimension of the heart, Augustine emphasizes, is where the thing should be reached.

[3] Except Book XV, this biblical citation appears at I 8.16; V 1.1; VI 10.12; XII 14.22; XIII 20.26; XIV 17.23. All these passages are either in the preface or closing passage and they are functioning some foresight to the dimension of the last book. It is true that there lies a difficult question of the dates of composition of each book of *De trinitate.* (See *ep.* 174 and *retr.* 2.15), but all these passage are possibly written at the same stage when Augustine came to restart writing from the last half of Book XII and complete the rest of the books. However, I would argue, such planning was already kept in mind when he launched to write the whole books *On Trinity* originally. The close relationship between Book I and Book XV of *De trinitate* and *Confessiones* (written in 397-401) in terms with the understanding of the heart will give us some clues on this point. On the significance of this Pauline phrase in Augustine's writings, see Frederick Van Fleteren, Per Speculum et in aenigmate: The Use of 1 Corinthians 13,12 in the Writings of Augustine: *Aug. Stud.* 23 (1992) 69-102.

[4] *trin.* II 1.1 (CChr.SL 50, 80), E. Hill, 97, with some modification of mine.

Digitized by Google

In Book XV chapter 11 paragraph 20, he uses *pervenire* three times:

'1. If you wish to arrive (*cupit pervenire*) at some kind of likeness of the Word of God, however unlike it may be in many ways... do not look at that word of ours which sounds in the ears ...

2. We must go beyond all these [bodily things] and arrive (*perveniatur*) at that word of man through whose likeness of a sort the Word of God may somehow or other be seen in an enigma.

3. And so we must arrive (*perveniendum*) at that word of man, the word of a rational animal, the word of the image of God which is not born of God but made by God, the word which is neither uttered in sound nor thought of in the likeness of sound which necessarily belongs to some language, but which precedes all the signs that signify it and is begotten of the knowledge abiding in the consciousness, when this knowledge is uttered inwardly just exactly as it is ...'[5]

The word is the indispensable bridgehead towards the investigation. This word is not the signs uttered in various kinds of language: 'The word which makes a sound outside is the sign of the word which lights up inside and it is this latter primarily that deserves the name of "word"'.[6]

Augustine insists that we have to pay attention primarily to this inner word, and such attention is only achieved through the reaching of our heart to this word. It is the reformation to the image of God that is required here. It is true that Augustine has been interested in the relationship between sign (*signum*) and object (*res*) from his younger days, but now he deals with the essence of the word, how the word is formed as a very word and its significance for our living. From this view point, he explores the fact that 'the thoughts (*cogitationes*) are a kind of utterance of the heart' (XV 10.18).

The utterance of the heart is the thoughts generated from the potential knowledge which is stored in the memory (*memoria*). But we must be cautious. This knowledge is not the thoughts of itself. Our scope is not confined within the mind but open up into the heart. The knowledge comes into the heart from the source of thoughts, and in a sense it is beyond the mind. And it is not formed truly until our thoughts come to reach a definite shape in the heart.

In this respect, the status of this knowledge as s source is similar to the Father and the inner word, the Son. As far as it is truly formed into the word as is exactly in the knowledge, the thoughts are settled as human knowledge uttered inwardly. Whenever we get the truth, such framework lies under it, he insists.

One might suspect that the utterance in one's heart is strictly confined within one's mind or heart and shut out from other minds. It is often mentioned by Augustine that the heart is an abyss.[7] However, the inner utterance at stake is

[5] *trin.* XV 11.20 (CChr.SL 50A, 487-88), E. Hill, 410.
[6] *trin.* XV 11.20 (CChr.SL 50A, 486), E. Hill, 409.
[7] *en. Ps.* 42.13; *conf.* IV 14.22.

Digitized by Google

not something like a private language in one's mind, but clearly discerned when it is manifested to be true as 'yes, yes no, no'. It is a principle of recognition. 'Such a word (or divine Word) is not itself a sign',[8] but it signifies the very truth and we will be able to reach some definite recognition of it. We can see here Augustine's special notion of image based upon his reading of Pauline letters. More importantly, it is manifested in the good deed. It is a principle of behaviour, as well. He says:

'The beginning of every work is a word (*Sir.* 37:16). Here too, if it is a true word, it is the beginning of a good work. And a word is true when it is begotten of the knowledge of how to work well, so that here too one may apply the yes, yes, no, no; so that if it is yes in the knowledge by which one ought to live, it should be yes in the word through which one has to work, and if no, no. Otherwise such a word will be a lie and not the truth, and from it will come a mistake, not a right work.'[9]

Therefore, we will find the similarity between the Son, the Word, and the inner word by which we live in truth and in good. Within this framework we can understand more meaningfully the role of the Holy Spirit, which is depicted in the latter half of Book XV. It works in the relationship between Father and Son similar to the relationship between knowledge and its word. It has not only an ontological significance, but also very a practical one as love in the heart.

Conclusion

If my consideration on the dimension of Augustine's investigation on the divine Trinity in Book XV is correct, we can see that Augustine tries to invite us to investigate it within the frame of the heart. Acknowledging our feebleness, Augustine's prayer in the closing section of his *De trinitate* is not his private one, but takes the heart as a communal place; the movement to reach the word is the breakthrough towards the Trinitarian unity.

[8] John M. Rist, *Augustine: Ancient thought baptized* (Cambridge, 1994), 38.
[9] *De. trin.* XV 11.20 (CChr.SL 50A, 489), E. Hill, 411.

Digitized by Google

Digitized by Google

Die Ostertheologie des Augustinus nach den Briefen *Ad inquisitiones Ianuarii*

Jochen REXER, Tübingen

Ostern als Grund und Ziel christlicher Existenz ist für Augustinus zentral. Als herausragender Zeuge altkirchlicher Zeit informiert er über den Ablauf der Osterfeier und erklärt ihren theologischen Gehalt. Seine Ostertheologie entfaltet der Bischof von Hippo aber nicht nur in seinen Predigten, also im praktischen Vollzug. Vielmehr denkt er auch grundsätzlich über Ostern nach und erörtert sein Osterverständnis in eigenen Schriften, wie vor allem in seinen beiden Briefen *Ad inquisitiones Ianuarii*. Besonders im zweiten und wesentlich längeren Brief formuliert Augustinus seine Ostertheologie.

Der Anlass waren mindestens zwei Briefe (*inq. Ian.* 1,1; 2,1),[1] die um das Jahr 400 ein gebildeter Laie namens Januarius schrieb (*inq. Ian.* 2,39). In ihnen bittet er Augustinus, eine Reihe liturgischer Fragen zu beantworten, welche die tägliche Eucharistiefeier und besonders das Datum des Osterfestes betreffen. Über seine Person ist nichts weiter bekannt, seine Schreiben sind nicht überliefert. Augustinus antwortet seinem Korrespondenten, den er mit Sohn anredet,[2] in zwei Briefen, der kürzeren *ep.* 54 (= *inq. Ian.* 1) und der längeren *ep.* 55 (= *inq. Ian.* 2). Beide Schriften sollten weiteren Kreisen mitgeteilt werden (*inq. Ian.* 2,39) und waren Augustinus so wichtig, dass er sie in seinen *Retractationes* unter dem gemeinsamen Titel *Ad inquisitiones Ianuarii libri duo* selbst verzeichnet und damit seine Verfasserschaft sichert.[3] Rückblickend schreibt er,

[1] Zu den Briefen Augustins vgl. Johannes Divjak, art. Epistulae: *AL* 2 (1996-2002) 893-1057; zu Januarius und den *inq. Ian.* Jochen Rexer, art. *Inquisitiones Ianuarii* (*-Ad*) (= *ep.* 54.55): *AL* 3,3/4 (2006) 620-30.

[2] Augustinus spricht Januarius im Titel mit *dilectissimus filius* an (*inq. Ian.* 1,1), wünscht ihn als einen *ecclesiae prudentem ac pacificum filium* (*inq. Ian.* 1,10) und verabschiedet sich von ihm mit *carissime* (*inq. Ian.* 2,39) in der Überzeugung, dass dessen *caritas* [...] *'quae non aemulatur'* (1*Cor.* 13:4) das Schreiben vielen zu lesen geben werde (*inq. Ian.* 2,39). Die Anrede *filius* könnte darauf hinweisen, dass Januarius noch nicht getauft ist (vgl. J. Divjak, *Epistulae*, 1996-2002, 902f.). Andererseits sprechen seine Fragen bezüglich der liturgischen Praxis wie auch die von Augustinus verwendeten Attribute *prudens* und *pacificus* dafür, dass Januarius mit dem Gemeindeleben im beachtlichen Maße vertraut, vielleicht Katechumene ist.

[3] Vgl. *retr.* 2,20: *Libri duo quorum est titulus Ad inquisitiones Ianuarii multa de sacramentis continent disputata, siue quae uniuersaliter siue quae particulariter, id est non peraeque in omnibus locis, obseruat ecclesia*; dazu Klaus-Detlef Daur, Einleitung, CChr.SL 31 (2004), XXIVf. Possidius nennt in *indic.* 10[3],8 (MA 2, p. 179) als Werktitel *Ad inquisitiones Ianuarii responsio libri duo.*

Studia Patristica XLIX, 293-299.
© Peeters Publishers, 2010.

Digitized by Google

aufgrund der Anschrift sei das kürzere Schreiben zwar ein Brief, aber wegen des zweiten wesentlich umfangreicheren Briefes, der keine Anschrift hat, zähle er „*hoc opus*" zu den Büchern (*retr.* 2,20). Seine *Retractationes* charakterisieren die beiden Briefe als unterbrochenen, aber zusammengehörigen theologischen Traktat mit dem Thema „*de sacramentis*" der Universalkirche und ihrer verschiedenen Lokalkirchen (*retr.* 2,20). *Frederick van der Meer* nannte sie „das wichtigste liturgische Dokument"[4] Augustins. Doch leider ist mit *Martin Klöckener* noch immer zu bedauern, dass die beiden Briefe „in der Forschungsliteratur bisher kaum zusammenhängend behandelt"[5] wurden. Eine Gesamtdarstellung fehlt, die Augustins eigene Reflexion seines Oster- und Sakramentsverständnisses nach den Briefen *Ad inquisitiones Ianuarii* thematisiert.

Daher sollen in der Folge Elemente aufgezeigt werden, die Augustins Ostertheologie charakterisieren. In drei Punkten werden Grund-, Haupt- und Hintergrundthemata der beiden Briefe *Ad inquisitiones Ianuarii* hervorgehoben und wichtige Nebenthemen angedeutet.

1. Der transitus als Grundthema der Ostertheologie Augustins

Die Frage nach dem Osterdatum im zweiten Brief nimmt Augustinus zum Anlass, um sein Osterverständnis zu erklären. Januarius fragte, warum die Christen Ostern anders als Weihnachten nicht an einem fixen Datum feierten und warum sich die Berechnung des Osterfestes nach dem Mond richte. Augustinus antwortet zuerst grundsätzlich: Das Osterfest sei nicht nur eine *memoria* wie der Geburtstag des Herrn, sondern auch eine *celebratio in sacramento* (2,2/9-19).[6] Auf der Grundlage von *Rom.* 4:25 führt Augustinus dann seine These aus: Die Kirche gedenke an Ostern nicht nur der Tatsache, dass Christus gestorben und auferstanden sei, sondern feiere zugleich den Rest (*cetera*), die Vergebung der Sünden und die Rechtfertigung (2,2/19-25). An Ostern gehe es nämlich um unseren Übergang vom Tod zum Leben, um jenen *transitus*, der durch den Tod und die Auferstehung Christi geheiligt worden ist. Ostern sei also nicht allein Gedächtnis des *transitus Christi*, sondern vielmehr

[4] Frederik van der Meer, *Augustinus der Seelsorger: Leben und Wirken eines Kirchenvaters* (Köln, 1951), 293 (die ursprüngliche Ausgabe ist 1946 in holländischer Sprache erschienen); vgl. Cornelius P. Mayer, *Die Zeichen in der geistigen Entwicklung und in der Theologie Augustins II. Die antimanichäische Periode*, Cass. 24,2 (Würzburg, 1974), 399.

[5] Martin Klöckener, Augustins Kriterien zu Einheit und Vielfalt in der Liturgie nach seinen Briefen 54 und 55: *LJb* 41 (1991) 24-39, 25 Anm. 5.

[6] Der Grund, warum Augustinus Weihnachten und Ostern unterscheidet (vgl. *inq. Ian.* 2,2), ist in der spezifischen Detailfrage des Januarius zu sehen. In anderen Zusammenhängen beschreibt Augustinus das Weihnachtsfest als Teil des österlichen Erlösungsgeheimnisses (vgl. *s.* 190,1; 192,3; 194,2; 196,1); dazu auch Hubertus R. Drobner, Christmas in Hippo: Mystical Celebration and Catechesis: *AugStud* 35 (2004) 55-63.

Digitized by Google

sakramentale Feier des *transitus noster*.[7] Diese Auffassung von Ostern geht auf Philo zurück, der das Wort *Pesach* (פסח) mit διάβασις, *transitus* wiedergegeben hatte. Augustinus selbst weist auf den hebräischen Ursprung von *pascha* hin, löst sich vom griechischen πάσχειν und übersetzt mit *transitus*. Indem er sich auf die Worte *Io* 5:24 und 13:1 stützt, erklärt er den Inhalt der Osterfeier als den *transitus noster* „*a morte ad uitam*" aufgrund des *transitus Christi* (2,2/25-38).[8] Folglich beinhalte der Terminus *pascha* die *memoria* des Todes und der Auferstehung Christi so, dass darin unser eigener noch ausstehender Übergang vom Tod zum Leben transparent werde.

Das Motiv vom „Übergang" ist nah verwandt mit dem von der „Pilgerschaft" aus diesem Leben zum anderen (2,17/327-332). Dieser *transitus noster ad requiem* ist für Augustinus eine eschatologische Wirklichkeit, die sich schon jetzt (*nunc*) in der Kraft des Heiligen Geistes ereignet, im *sacramentum paschale* anschaulich ist und sich im Namen der Dreifaltigkeit vollendet (2,30/659-662).

2. *De sacramentis* als Hauptthema der beiden Briefe an Januarius

Indem Augustinus seine Ostertheologie entwickelt, erklärt er in den beiden Briefen sein Sakramentsverständnis. Er unterscheidet dabei zwei Ebenen des *sacramentum*:[9] Erstens wie die *sacramenta* zu feiern sind, also ihre liturgische Praxis, die er hauptsächlich im ersten Brief ausführt; zweitens wie die *sacramenta* zu verstehen sind, also ihre hermeneutische Bedeutung, die er im zweiten Brief erklärt.

Grundsätzlich gibt es nach Augustinus *sacramenta* der Universal- und der Teilkirchen (vgl. *retr.* 2,20), die der Universalkirche untergliedern sich in *scripta* und *tradita*. In seinem ersten Brief unterscheidet er daher drei Arten von liturgischen Gebräuchen (1,1f). Die erste Art wird in den kanonischen Schriften empfohlen und umfasst die wenigen, einfach und leicht verständlichen *sacramenta*, wie Taufe und Eucharistie. Die zweite Art von *sacramenta* sind „*non scripta sed tradita*" und werden von der gesamten Kirche eingehalten. Sie beruhen auf der Empfehlung der Apostel oder der allgemeinen Konzilien, wie die Feste, die jährlich überall gefeiert werden (1,1). Die Gebräuche der dritten Art sind verschieden nach Gegenden und Orten, wie das Fasten am Samstag, die tägliche Kommunion, die nur sonntägliche Eucharistiefeier. Obwohl die Lokalgebräuche keinesfalls zwingend sind, rät Augustinus einem

[7] Vgl. *inq. Ian.* 2,3/39: *transitus a nobis modo agitur.*

[8] Zum *transitus Christi per passionem* vgl. *en. Ps.* 120,6; ähnlich *inq. Ian.* 2,2/36-38.

[9] Vgl. *inq. Ian.* 1,6/125f: *non quomodo faciendum, sed quomodo sacramentum intellegendum sit disputemus*, dazu Charles Couturier, „sacramentum" et „mysterium" dans l'œuvre de saint Augustin, in: H. Rondet, M. Le Landais, A. Lauras, and C. Couturier (eds.), *Études Augustiniennes* (Paris, 1953), 161-334, 171, der seine Textsammlung unterscheidet in Texte „celui des rites et celui des figures symboliques".

Digitized by Google

besonnenen und klugen Christen, sich an das Brauchtum des Ortes zu halten, an dem er sich gerade befindet, sofern es nicht verstößt „*contra fidem neque contra bonos mores*" (1,2)[10].

In seinem zweiten Brief entfaltet Augustinus seine Theorie der *sacramenta*. So werde das Osterfest „*in sacramento*" gefeiert. Denn es sei nicht nur eine Gedächtnisfeier, sondern verweise auf eine geistige Wirklichkeit: Die *res* dieses *sacramentum* sei der *transitus noster ad uitam* und beruhe auf einer anderen Wirklichkeit. Ostern als Fest des Übergangs sei ein *dies a transitu Christi consecratus*. Der *transitus noster* sei aber noch nicht vollendet, für ihn gelte das *nunc* und *tunc*. Die Osterfeier hat nach Augustinus also eine dreifache Verweisfunktion: Sie symbolisiert die Rechtfertigung, erinnert an Tod und Auferstehung Christi und lässt auf das ewige Leben hoffen (vgl. 2,2f).

Die Osterfeier vollzieht sich aber nicht in einem einfachen Sakrament. Die Neuheit des christlichen Lebens kommt nach Augustinus vielmehr in einer Vielfalt von Symbolen zum Ausdruck. So entfaltet er den österlichen Symbolismus des Frühjahrs, der Woche vom 14. bis 21. Tag des ersten Monats, der Wochentage, der drei oder vierzig oder fünfzig Tage. Über die Vielfalt dieser Zeitsymbole, die in der Frage des Januarius nach dem Osterdatum begründet sind, drückt sich auch Augustins Vorliebe für den Zahlensymbolismus aus.

3. Der Zusammenhang mit der biblischen Exegese

Die liturgische Frage des Januarius nach dem Osterdatum beantwortet Augustinus zunächst mit Hilfe biblischer Sprache. In paulinischen Zitaten erklärt er sein Osterverständnis und sagt: Der *transitus noster* ereigne sich jetzt im Glauben an den *transitus Christi* und vollende sich dann in der Hoffnung an die zukünftige Auferstehung (2,3/39-71). Dabei verweist Augustinus auf die *signa* von Ostern: die drei Phasen Kreuz, Grab und Auferstehung (2,3/44-59), die zu seiner Zeit liturgisch an Karfreitag, Karsamstag und an Ostern begangen werden (vgl. 2,24/479-26/560). Er erklärt den Inhalt von Ostern, die Lebenserneuerung, als Übergang (*transitus*) vom Tod zum Leben, indem er die österliche *res* mit Bildern aus der Schrift erklärt und sie dann mit seiner Zeit- und Zahlensymbolik auf kosmologische Erscheinungen, also auf Bilder der Schöpfung bezieht (2,5/86-103). Für Augustinus bezeichnen sowohl Worte und Bilder der Schrift, als auch Bilder der Schöpfung die *res* von Ostern und offenbaren das *sacramentum paschale*. Biblische und liturgische Zeichen sind nach Augustinus eine *manifestatio sacramenti*.[11]

[10] Augustins Überzeugung geht auf seine Katechumenenzeit in Mailand zurück, vor allem auf den Rat des damaligen Bischofs Ambrosius; vgl. *inq. Ian.* 1,3/38-52; *ep.* 36,32; *conf.* 6,2. Dazu auch Ernst Dassmann, Ambrosius: *AL* 1 (1986-94) 270-85, bes. 273.

[11] Vgl. *inq. Ian.* 2,5/98f: *manifestatio est sacramenti prius occulti in prophetico aenigmate.*

Digitized by Google

Um Januarius den Sinn des beweglichen Osterfestes zu erklären, thematisiert Augustinus in Abgrenzung zu den Manichäern auch astronomische (2,6-10) und astrologische Fragestellungen (2,11-15), ohne wie damals üblich beide Bereiche klar voneinander abzugrenzen. Er veranschaulicht theologische Sachverhalte, indem er allgemein gültige astronomische Kenntnisse unselbständig und eher unkritisch als Hilfe aufnimmt. Um astronomische Gegebenheiten als Gleichnis aus der sichtbaren Schöpfung für eine unsichtbare Wirklichkeit aufnehmen zu können, nennt Augustinus als wichtiges Kriterium: *similitudines* müssen *congruae* (passend; 2,8) und *aptae* (angemessen; 2,13) sein. Selbst astrologische Phänomene im späteren Sinne wie etwa das Sternzeichen des Widders kann Augustinus nutzen, wenn eine „*congruentia figurae*" (Übereinstimmung des Bildes; 2,14) mit dem Frühlingsmonat, also eine vernünftige Übereinstimmung mit der astronomischen Berechnungsgrundlage besteht. In derselben Art versteht Augustinus seine Zahlensymbolik (2,28-31). Wissenschaftliche Erkenntnisse dienen Augustinus, um vernünftige, passende und angemessene Symbole aus dem menschlich erforschten Raum und der menschlich gemessenen Zeit zu finden für die geistliche Wirklichkeit Gottes, des Schöpfers von Raum und Zeit (vgl. 2,14f).

Die praktische Frage nach dem Frühlingsvollmond veranlasst Augustinus, über Symbolik allgemeiner nachzudenken und eine Theorie der *sacramenta* darzulegen (2,11-15). Den ganzen Komplex der österlichen *sacramenta* bezeichnet er dabei als eine „*eloquentia doctrinae salutaris*" und stellt fest: „Wenn aber bei der Ausspendung der Sakramente (*dispensatio sacramentorum*) einige Gleichnisbilder (*figurae similitudinum*) nicht nur vom Himmel und von den Gestirnen, sondern auch von niedrigeren Dingen abgeleitet sind, so liegt darin eine Art Beredsamkeit der heilbringenden Lehre, die passend ist, um die Gefühle der Schüler zu bewegen vom Sichtbaren zum Unsichtbaren, vom Leiblichen zum Geistigen, vom Zeitlichen zum Ewigen" (2,13/277-282). Damit wendet Augustinus für sein Liturgieverständnis die gleichen rhetorischen Grundsätze an, die er in *De doctrina christiana* für die biblische Auslegung und Verkündigung rezipiert hatte. In seiner Ostertheologie deutet Augustinus an, dass der Symbolismus der Bibel und derjenige der Liturgie in ähnlicher Weise zu verstehen ist. Auffällig ist, dass er diesen Zusammenhang von Bibel und Liturgie in der Reflexion über das christliche Osterfest entwickelt.

Die Nähe von Augustins biblischer und liturgischer Exegese zeigt sich vor allem in seiner Zuordnung von *similitudo* und *sacramentum* (vgl. *inq. Ian.* 2,8f.11-14.21). In seinem späteren Brief 98 an Bonifacius sagt Augustinus dann ausdrücklich, dass es ohne *similitudo* kein *sacramentum* gibt.[12] Gleichnisse und Bilder in Predigt und Liturgie sind für Augustinus die *eloquentia* der *res* (vgl. *inq. Ian.* 2,13f). Gott, der große Redner, brauche in der Bibel die Mittel

[12] Vgl. *ep.* 98,9: *Si enim sacramenta quandam similitudinem rerum earum, quarum sacramenta sunt, non haberent, omnino sacramenta non essent.*

Digitized by Google

der Rhetorik, um den heiligen Text anziehend zu machen (vgl. *doctr. chr.* 4,9). Ebenso bilde die Liturgie einen Komplex von Zeichen und Symbolen, die in ähnlicher Weise erfreuen und erbauen. Das Fest mit seinen vielen Symbolismen ist nach Augustinus eine *eloquentia diuina*, die *sacramenta* und *similitudines* entfalten den einen großen Festgedanken von Ostern.

Wie am Osterfest als Beginn und Erneuerung des Lebens, das die Christen mit Glaube, Hoffnung und Liebe in der Kirche vollziehen (vgl. auch *Io. eu. tr.* 19,7-10), der Festgedanke in *sacramenta* und *similitudines* entfaltet wird, so geschieht nach Augustinus die Feier in ähnlicher Weise auch am Sonntag, dem wöchentlichen Osterfest (*inq. Ian.* 2,23). Schließlich betrifft der österliche Festgedanke nicht nur die Taufe, sondern selbst die tägliche Eucharistiefeier, welche die *memoria passionis et resurrectionis dominicae* beinhalte (vgl. *s.* 229D,1f).

Augustinus verbindet mit *similitudo* als dem übergeordneten Begriff für *sacramentum* drei Fäden: Er nimmt den Terminus *similitudo* erstens aus seiner rhetorischen Tradition, zeigt durch ihn zweitens sein Schrift- und Sakramentsverständnis auf und wendet ihn drittens in Predigt und Liturgie auch konkret an. Augustins Gebrauch der *similitudo* betrifft folglich zwei Bereiche: die Hermeneutik, da *similitudo* eine Hilfe für die Erkenntnis ist, und die Rhetorik, da *similitudo* zugleich auch eine Hilfe für die Kommunikation der Erkenntnis ist.[13] Über den methodischen Weg der *similitudo* erklärt Augustinus im Zusammenhang seiner Ostertheologie die biblischen Schriften und die liturgischen Gegebenheiten.

Schluss

Augustinus fragt in seinem zweiten Brief an Januarius, wie die Auferstehung der Christen, das *pro nobis* des Osterfestes, sakramental, also symbolisch zum Ausdruck gebracht werden kann. Er erörtert, wie die *sacramenta* hermeneutisch zu verstehen sind, um den *transitus noster* in Symbolen zu erklären. Eng damit verbunden ist sein erster Brief, in dem er zuvor thematisierte, wie *sacramenta* liturgisch, also rituell zu feiern sind.

Augustinus betont, dass die äußere Gestalt der liturgischen Feier, die Symbole oder *sacramenta*, die tiefere Bedeutung des Festes figurativ hervorhebt, auf den geistigen Gehalt der Feier hinweist. Er beschreibt also einen intelligiblen *transitus* vom sinnlichen Element zur geistigen Wirklichkeit. Hinter diesem liturgischen Symbolismus für die Erklärung des Gottesdienstes, der Riten und der Feste, die vom sinnlich wahrnehmbaren zum geistigen Gehalt

[13] Leider fehlt eine wünschenswerte Arbeit, die den Zusammenhang von Schriftverständnis und Verkündigung, also von *inventio* und *expositio* vor dem historischen Hintergrund vertieft, besonders am Beispiel der *similitudo* als einem hermeneutischen Zentralbegriff; vgl. Basil Studer, *Augustinus De Trinitate. Eine Einführung* (Paderborn, 2005), 120 Anm. 45.

Digitized by Google

führen will, steht ein platonisches Verständnis für die Bewegung von der sichtbaren zur unsichtbaren Ordnung der Wirklichkeit (vgl. 2,8 in Verbindung mit Plato, *Phaedrus* 250B).[14] Die zeitlichen, das christliche Osterfest umkreisenden Symbole erklärt er dann aber in seinem rhetorischen Verständnis als *sacramenta* entsprechend den *sacramenta* der Heiligen Schrift. Damit stellt er die *sacramenta* der Liturgie und der Bibel auf eine Ebene. Besonders fällt auf, dass er die Zahlen der Bibel und der Liturgie in gleicher symbolischer Weise deutet (vgl. *inq. Ian.* 2,28-31).[15]

Augustins Ostertheologie führt in bemerkenswerter Weise die beiden Hauptströmungen der frühchristlichen Geschichte des Osterfestes zusammen: den christologischen Ansatz der Pascha-Passio-Tradition (*Ex.* 12; 1*Cor.* 5:7) und den anthropologischen der Pascha-Transitus-Tradition (*Ex.* 13f). Ostern ist nach Augustinus Erinnerung an das heilbringende Leiden Christi und Feier des Übergangs vom Tod zum Leben (2,2-5.17).[16] Das wahre Ostern sei Passion und Auferstehung Christi und hätte den Gläubigen den Übergang vom Tod zum Leben eröffnet (2,2/24f): den „*transitus noster de morte ad uitam*" (2,3/55f). Bedeutsam an seinem zweiten Brief ist der besondere theologische Akzent, den er setzt, wenn er ins Zentrum seiner Reflexion über Ostern nicht den *transitus Christi*, sondern den *transitus noster*, nicht die Auferstehung, sondern die Sakramentalität (*sacramenta*) der Auferstehung stellt. Mit ausgewählten *uerba et signa* bezeichnet Augustinus die *res* von Ostern. Den *transitus noster* beschreibt er in seiner Ostertheologie als Heiliges Wort und Sakrament.

[14] Vgl. Robert Dodaro, *Christ and the Just Society in the Thought of Augustine* (Cambridge, 2004), 124.

[15] Vgl. C.P. Mayer, *Die Zeichen* (1974), 411-4.

[16] Vgl. Raniero Cantalamessa, *Ostern in der alten Kirche*, TC 4 (Bern, 1981), XXI.

Digitized by Google

Digitized by Google

Movements of a Putrefying Carcass: On Augustine's Use of 'Arians' in *Tractatus in evangelium Iohannis*

Hildegund MÜLLER, Notre Dame

Haec illo loquente multi crediderunt in eum. Utinam et me loquente multi qui aliud sapiebant intellegant et credant in eum! Quidam enim fortasse sunt in ista multitudine Ariani. Non audeo suspicari esse Sabellianos qui ipsum patrem dicunt esse qui filius est; haeresis quippe ista nimis antiqua est et paulatim eviscerata. Arianorum autem adhuc videtur habere aliquas motiones quasi cadaveris putrescentis: aut certe, ut multum, quasi hominis animam agentis; oportet inde reliquos liberari, sicut inde multi liberati sunt. Et quidem ista civitas eos non habebat; sed posteaquam multi peregrini advenerunt, nonnulli et ipsi venerunt. Ecce haec domino loquente multi Iudaei crediderunt in eum; ecce et me loquente Ariani credant non in me, sed mecum! (Aug., *Io. eu. tr.* 40,7)

The famous and well-discussed testimony for the presence of Arians in Africa before the Vandal invasion[1] is from the fortieth sermon on the Gospel of St John, which Augustine preached in Hippo Regius sometime in the years from 412-7.[2] Read closely, it raises a puzzling question. What is the speaker's intention in addressing two groups of heretics that, according to his own words, are either dying or long dead? Why does he wish there to be at least Arians, if not Sabellians, so that he may convert them? Of the two traditional opponents of orthodox trinitarian doctrine, the Sabellians possibly never existed as a serious religious group and in any case did not exist in the fifth century.[3] The western homoians, who by their Orthodox opponents were still called *Ariani*, are harder to judge. As the passage just quoted implies, Augustine seems to have regarded or at least described them as a partly historical, partly

[1] See Marie-François Berrouard, *La présence d'Ariens à Hippone: Homélies sur l'évangile de saint Jean XXXIV-XLIII*, Bibliothèque augustinienne 73A (Paris, 1988), 485f., with previous literature.

[2] On the place and date of Augustine's *In Iohannis evangelium tractatus* see the controversial results of Anne-Marie La Bonnardière, *Recherches de chronologie augustinienne* (Paris, 1965), 43-50, and M.-F. Berrouard, esp. La date des Tractatus I-LIV in Iohannis Evangelium de saint Augustin: *RechAug* 7 (1971) 105-68, as well as Hildegund Müller, art. In Iohannis euangelium tractatus CXXIV: *AL* III (2008), 704-730.

[3] On the historical Sabellius and the use of his name for the representatives of several different Monarchian sects, see Charles Kannengiesser, art. Sabelliani: *LThK* 8 (1999) 1407f., with further literature.

Studia Patristica XLIX, 301-305.
© Peeters Publishers, 2010.

Digitized by Google

foreign phenomenon, not indigenous to the province of Numidia, but imported from overseas in the course of the political upheavals of the 410s. This fits in with the biographical evidence. Arians were never a major pastoral concern for Augustine. There are three relevant incidents where he had dealings with them, the discussion with the high official Pascentius, the conflict with the Arian bishop Maximinus, who according to Possidius had come to Africa with the Goths, and the *Liber contra sermonem Arrianorum*, a response to an anonymous Arian treatise.[4] What these three incidents have in common is that they were not instigated by Augustine himself and that they had nothing to do with his congregation. The persons involved were high-ranking and from abroad, very probably (in Maximinus' case certainly) connected to the Germanic élite in Italy, and their confrontation with the bishop of Hippo may well have been in the nature of a staged fight of political rather than religious significance. Whatever the number and power of homoians in the heart of the Roman Empire, whatever their later fortune in Africa itself, it seems hard to imagine that these few isolated forerunners could pose a serious threat to the harmony or even the salvation of Augustine's congregation.[5]

Yet Arians are present over the whole corpus of the Sermons on the Gospel of St John, more than in any other work, either alone or together with the extinct Sabellians. No other heresy is mentioned nearly as often as these two, except for the Donatists, who posed a very real threat.[6] Why does Augustine insist on fighting a sect that did not really concern him and certainly did not concern his parishioners? The simple answer – that the Gospel of John deals frequently with trinitarian matters and thus Augustine had to point out trinitarian errors more frequently – falls short: if this were the reason, Augustine's *De trinitate* would be full of anti-Arian polemic, but over the whole fifteen books, the sect or its founder is mentioned in exactly four places.[7]

It seems that Augustine's use of 'Arians' and 'Sabellians' in his *Tractates on John* had little or nothing to do with the real presence of any of these groups in his vicinity. He was not warning the faithful against the lures of heresy. He was not even instructing them about it. Rather, he was making use of a teacher's strategy, or, to put it more bluntly, a rhetorician's trick.

[4] See Maria Grazia Mara, art. Arriani, Arrius: *AL* I (1988) 450-9; Poss., *Vit.* 17,1-6 (on Pascentius), 17,7-9 (on Maximinus); André Mandouze, *Prosopographie chrétienne du bas-empire I* (Paris, 1982), 731, s. v. Maximinus 10; 827-9, s. v. Pascentius.

[5] This view is shared by M.-F. Berrouard, *Introduction: Homélies sur l'évangile de saint Jean XVII-XXXIII*, Bibliothèque augustinienne 72 (Paris, 1988), esp. 26-34: Discussions sur l'Arianisme, against La Bonnardière.

[6] The anti-Donatist propaganda in *Io. eu. tr.* is restricted to the first thirteen treatises; with a much later reference in *Io. eu. tr.* 47,4. The anti-Arian propaganda is present throughout, starting from the exegesis of prologue of the Gospel in *Io. eu. tr.* 1-3.

[7] *Trin.* 2,15; 5,3; 6,1. 9.

Digitized by Google

This trick can best be explained by a parallel from a text that at first glance has nothing at all in common with the *Tractates on John*, namely, Cicero's speech *Pro Murena*.[8] In the year of 63 before Christ, the Consul Cicero defended his own successor-to-be, a man called Licinius Murena, against the specifically Roman accusation of *ambitus*, that is, canvassing for votes by means of bribery and other misuse of money.[9] The situation was precarious, the Catilinarian conspiracy being not yet over, and Cicero had every reason for wanting the succession to run smoothly, which was probably why he defended Murena.[10] The opposition was formidable: Murena was being prosecuted by the highly respected younger Cato, and by Sulpicius Rufus, the best-known jurist of the day, who, to make matters worse, was a close personal friend of Cicero's as well as the Consular candidate he himself had backed in public. The result is the speech *Pro Murena*, one of the most accomplished and most enjoyable pieces of Ciceronian rhetoric, especially famous for the outrageous fun he pokes at Sulpicius' profession of jurisprudence[11] and for the cleverly distorted image of the rigid Stoic beliefs the other prosecutor, Cato, adhered to.[12] It needed a philosopher, an experienced lawyer and a cynic to hold both persuasions so adroitly up to ridicule.

Yet there is more to it than the simple intention of getting the better of the opposing side by making fun of them; in fact, this is a cunning piece of court-room strategy. Over a safe distance, not being dazzled by Ciceronian rhetoric, we get the impression that the defendant Murena was guilty as charged. Despite Cicero's protestations to the contrary, he was certainly not the most probable candidate to win a consular election: a military officer of middle rank and no great personal merit, he had spent most of his adult life away from Rome and had little recent political experience. His private life, too, may not have been

[8] On the Mureniana: Cicero, *Pro Murena*. Edited with Introduction, Notes and Vocabulary by Coll Macdonald (Bristol, 1969; 2nd ed. 1982); Joachim Adamietz, Marcus Tullius Cicero, *Pro Murena*. Mit einem Kommentar herausgegeben von Joachim Adamietz, Texte zur Forschung 55 (Darmstadt, 1989). The most thorough and satisfying analysis of the Mureniana is by Anton D. Leeman, The technique of persuasion in Cicero's Pro Murena, in: Walther Ludwig (ed.), *Éloquence et rhétorique chez Cicéron*, Entretiens sur l'Antiquité classique XXVIII (Vandœuvres-Genève, 1981), 193-228. The scope of this paper does not allow a detailed examination of Leeman's thesis. See also Joachim Adamietz, Ciceros Verfahren in den Ambitus-Prozessen gegen Murena und Plancius: *Gymnasium* 93 (1986) 102-17.

[9] On the circumstances: C. Macdonald (1969) XV-XXII, J. Adamietz (1989) 1-30. On the crime of *ambitus*, see Christian Gizewski, art. Ambitus: *Der neue Pauli* I (1996) 578f.

[10] Mur. 80: *sed moneo, iudices: in exitu iam est meus consulatus; nolite mihi subtrahere vicarium meae diligentiae, nolite adimere eum cui rem publicam cupio tradere incolumem ab his tantis periculis defendendam*; 83.

[11] Alfons Bürge, *Die Juristenkomik in Ciceros Rede Pro Murena. Übersetzung und Kommentar* (Diss. Zürich, 1974).

[12] Christopher P. Craig, Cato's Stoicism and the Understanding of Cicero's Speech for Murena: *TAPhA* 116 (1986) 229-240.

Digitized by Google

above criticism, judging from the half-hearted way Cicero dodges the accusers' attacks. Consequently, if he did win the election, it may well have been by resorting to dubious means. In any case, Murena was a man even his own attorney found difficult to praise.

However, things look very different for Murena if we put him in comparison, as Cicero insinuates, with his two prosecutors: compared to a ridiculously pedantic and impractical jurist, the soldier Murena looks very well suited to a career in politics; compared to an uncompromising Stoic, his moral flaws, even the crimes he is accused of, seem nothing but human. This is why Cicero spends so much time making fun of Sulpicius and Cato. Implicitly, without having to stress it directly, he makes his unremarkable client out as a man of the middle: both his abilities and his morals are put into perspective, that is, the perspective Cicero wants us to see, by the framework of two laughable extremists. Far from regarding the prosecution as stumbling-blocks he has to get over, Cicero unscrupulously uses them for his own tactical ends. It is not hard to imagine the anger of those two worthy men when they found themselves reduced to puppets on a stage of their adversary's making; Cato, for one, is said to have left the court with a sharp humourless jest on his lips: ὡς γελοῖον ὕπατον ἔχομεν 'what a funny consul we have'.[13]

What has all this to do with Augustine and his Arians? Augustine, like Cicero, found himself in a rhetorical predicament, although a totally different one, and he used similar means to resolve it. His problem was how to introduce his faithful, but unschooled congregation to the intricacies of trinitarian theology, a subject which he knew to be difficult, but which he couldn't escape when preaching on the Gospel of St John. His solution was Ciceronian: clarify the difficult matter by way of indirect characterization, by setting it in a framework between two extreme positions. Compared to Arians, we believe in the identity of Father and Son, compared to Sabellians, we stress their separateness. Like Cicero, Augustine did not just cope with his opponents, but rather made use of them as parts of his own rhetorical strategy, even if this meant evoking them from the dead and putting them forward on his didactic stage as counter-examples to the one true belief. Unlike Cicero, he could afford to be open about his strategy. I quote a typical passage (*Io. eu. tr. 37,6*, on *Ioh* 10,30):

In errore Sabellianorum unus est solus, ipse est pater qui filius; in errore Arianorum alius est quidem pater, alius filius; sed ipse filius non solum alius, sed etiam aliud est. Tu in medio quid? Exclusisti Sabellianum, exclude et Arianum ... cum audit, ‚sumus', abscedat confusus Sabellianus; cum audit ‚unum', abscedat confusus Arianus. Gubernet catholicus inter utrumque fidei suae navigium, quoniam cavendum est in utroque naufragium.

[13] Plut., *Cat. Min.* 21.

Digitized by Google

It is evident how this strategy of indirect characterization works: Arians and Sabellians are landmarks in a virtual landscape that are used to triangulate, as it were, the exact position of Augustine's own doctrine on Trinity. Although this is very probably a traditional technique, as the comparison with Cicero has shown, it seems to have no name or description in Classical rhetorics.

Where does all this leave us with Augustine's sermons on the Gospel of John? For one thing, historical, especially chronological arguments drawn from anti-heretical remarks should meet with a good deal of scepticism. In his sermons at least, Augustine does not tell us how much he really knew about Arianism but only what he needed for his argument. His grasp of homoian thought was purely utilitarian; other than that, he was probably not much interested. In Augustine's, as in Paul's view,[14] the existence of heresies had a reason: they were here to be useful to the true believers, to clarify the orthodox thought to them.[15] It is only logical that as a teacher, he should not only have fought them, but made good use of them as well.

[14] See 1*Cor.* 11:19.

[15] A typical passage is *en. Ps.* 54,22: *ergo multi qui optime possent scripturas dignoscere et pertractare, latebant in populo dei; nec asserebant solutionem quaestionum difficilium cum calumniator nullus instaret. Numquid enim perfecte de trinitate tractatum est, antequam oblatrarent Ariani? numquid perfecte de paenitentia tractatum est, antequam obsisterent Novatiani? Sic non perfecte de baptismate tractatum est, antequam contradicerent foris positi rebaptizatores; nec de ipsa unitate Christi enucleate dicta erant quae dicta sunt, nisi posteaquam separatio illa urgere coepit fratres infirmos, ut iam illi qui noverant haec tractare atque dissolvere, ne perirent infirmi sollicitati quaestionibus impiorum, sermonibus et disputationibus suis obscura legis in publicum deducerent.*

Digitized by Google

Digitized by Google

New Perspectives on St Augustine and Priscillianism*

Alicia Soler Merenciano (Director) & Ramon Panach Rosat, Valencia

We can state, with almost total certainty, that one of the most brilliant treatises that St Augustine wrote against heresy is the one entitled *Contra Priscillianistas*: Against the Priscillianists. The treatise was written because Paul Orosius, a brilliant young priest, arrived in Hippo in 414 from his native Hispania with the aim of asking St Augustine for help against the heresies of Priscillianism and Origenism.

In his *Memorandum* (*Commonitorium*), Orosius refers primarily to various elements of the Priscillianist myth, probably derived from the diatribe that was written against Priscillian by his enemy, Ithacius, bishop of *Ossonuba*, who tried to link Manichaeism to the leader of the lay aesthetic movement. Later, Orosius reported on the seven Origenist errors, brought to Hispania by Avitus, who had studied theology in the East. Orosius asked Augustine to help him, and so Augustine wrote him an answer, which we suppose he wanted to take back to Spain. In the treaty *Contra Priscillianistas*, a treatise written in 415, Augustine apologizes for not being able to answer each one of the points listed by Orosius, and he refers to his own anti-Manichaean writings, in which he had already refuted the main Priscillianist error on the issue of the human soul as divine. Augustine confronts the problem that the people of Hispania still had on the creation of the soul from nothing, an affirmation which they understood to mean that the will of God did not intervene at all in this matter.

Augustine affirms that the Origenist doctrine on the Trinity was correct, but he shows that the Priscillianists maintained the Sabellianist doctrine. Going back to the Origenist errors, Augustine speaks out against the idea that the world we perceive was created as a place for the purification of souls. He severely advises Orosius against the opinion that the fire of hell is not eternal, and that sinners, including the devil and his angels, will eventually be saved. He insists on the eternity of hell, and he bases his arguments on the meaning that the term αἰῶνιον has in scripture. Against the Origenist idea that the resurrected Christ has no body, Augustine states that the real nature that Christ received as man will have no end, according to *Luke* 1:33. He rejects the supposition that the world we perceive would not have existed at all if all spiritual beings had not sinned. And to justify this idea, he points out the promise of a new heaven and

* This paper is presented by the Patristic Group of Vincentine Studies of Valencia, Spain.

Studia Patristica XLIX, 307-312.
© Peeters Publishers, 2010.

Digitized by Google

a new earth, formulated in 2*Peter* 3:13. He rejects the Origenist notion that sinners are punished by being shut up in bodies that are bigger, in proportion, to the magnitude of their sins, and they maintain that God, who is good, made all creatures good, from the biggest to the smallest. He discards as frivolous the idea that all creatures existed in the wisdom of God because they were created in it, even before they came to this world. He also takes on the Origenist affirmation that the celestial bodies have souls, rejecting the Origenist argument that the fact that all creation was groaning in expectation of the resurrection indicates that all kinds of bodies have souls.

Augustine explains that all creation cries out for the resurrection, because all kinds of creatures are present among human beings. In the same way, the impurity of the stars, in *Job* 25:4-6, does not show that stars have souls, because the words that justify this were not pronounced by Job, but by one of his bad friends. In the end, Augustine claims ignorance on the difference between Thrones, Denominations, Principalities and Dominions, claiming that such knowledge is not necessary for salvation.

After a brief digression, we want to concentrate on two points that we consider key to our study. In the first place, there is the well known *Epistle* 11, *From Consencius to St Augustine*. The theme is very well known. They are the instructions of the above-mentioned Consencius to his friend Fronton, asking him to investigate and detect crypto-priscillianists, following the orders of Patroclus, bishop of Arles. These sects extended from Gaul to Hispania, like a dreadful contagious disease. In the above-mentioned *letter* 11, we are told an adventure story that sometimes has marvellous aspects, in which our Fronton establishes his head quarters in Terraco. After all kinds of adventures, he manages to achieve almost all his objectives. He confronts the situations with bravery, even though his life is in danger.

The text, the veracity of which we do not doubt, often resembles a detective story, full of intrigues and sometimes even amusing, but we should not forget that it is about the tragic aspect of heresy that was trying to destroy the true faith. As a summary we can say that Consencius tries to inform Augustine on the situation, so that he may be able to form his own judgments and conclusions; above all, the main objective is that the heretics may be dealt with doctrinally, in order to defend the true One, Roman, Catholic, and Apostolic Orthodox Faith. So in return, Augustine answers Consencius. In fact, his *Epistle* 120 about reason and revelation deals with these issues. When confronted with the myths of the heretics, the Saint goes more deeply into the mystery of God who is both One and Three, which is a fundamental aspect of our faith. And it is well known that this mystery contains revealed truths that human reason could never fully understand.

St Augustine never admitted, the possibility of a rational demonstration of something so mysterious. Even so, he applied all his energy as a genius to formulate these ideas – but one must say that he did so first as a theologian on

Digitized by Google

the contents of this dogma, and then as a contemplative on the ideas related to the mystery of the Holy Trinity using above all the image of the luminosity of the human soul. We know that one of those who turned to St Augustine on dogmatic difficulties was someone called Consencius. Historians and scholars think that he was a layman who was very knowledgeable in theology and on anti-Priscillianism. He lived at the beginning of the fifth century, probably on the Balearic islands, where there were many Priscillianists. We know that an illness suffered by Augustine prevented him from meeting them in Hippo. We have to mention that both Consencius, in *letter* 119, and Augustine in *epistle* 118, written by Dioscorus at the same time (410), make reference to the fact that they could not meet. St Augustine defends the dogma, combating tritheism and subordinationism, and fighting against heresies. He recalls what the prophet said: 'If you do not believe, you will not understand'.

We can thus distinguish two topics. The main advice is to believe first, so that then we can understand what we believe. So it is reason that asks faith to come first in the order of things. 'So you see, if this precept is not rational, then it has to be irrational, and God must free you of thinking such things. So if the precept is rational, then there is no doubt that reason, which needs faith to precede it on certain major points if they cannot be understood, must itself precede faith.' This is clever way of playing on words. 'Make me understand you that I may love'. We only need to add some words on the spiritual dimension, which must be a consequence of intellectual investigation of the mystery of the Holy Trinity. 'There is not any matter ... which yields more fruit'. We said before that love is incorporated in the doctrinal system of St Augustine. That is why he says that no thing is perfectly known, if it is not perfectly loved. *Nullum bonum perfecte noscitur, quod non perfecte amatur.* We have to seek the truth with love. The will has a clear preponderance in the doctrinal system of St Augustine. The advancement of intellectual knowledge must be linked to a moral improvement. The dynamism of this double operation, that both intellectual and volitional, is geared towards pure contemplation of the truth, and the restoration and perfecting of the image of God, according to which we were created.

A special aspect of this need to renovate is human effort, but this must be sustained and elevated by the grace of God. That is why St Augustine recommended Constancius to pray fervently and to persevere and why he insists on prayer and a good life, as a key to perceiving with intelligence what is believed with faith: *Agant orando et quaerendo mente quod tenetur fide.* It is to this end that St Augustine ends his great work *De trinitate*, with a beautiful sentence that reads as follows: 'I have looked for you, with my strength, and in the measure to which you gave me power, and I have sought to see my reason what I believed in faith, but I tried too hard. My Lord and my God, my only hope, hear me, so that I may not succumb in the desert and therefore stop seeking you: I always sought your Image ardently. Give me strength to seek you, you who make yourself be sought, and who have given me hope of more perfect

Digitized by Google

knowledge ... May I remember thee, may I understand and love thee. Increase these gifts in me until my reformation is complete.'

It is true that, with these and other arguments, the Saint rebuts the Priscillianists and other heretical sects which attacked and denied the Holy Trinity. As a personal comment, we have to add that these texts are interesting, especially because they are clear and easy to understand. We think that it is important to ensure that all of those who, like us, are thinking almost for the first time about this mystery, should have a solid basis which can bring us closer to the Trinity. As far as faith and reason are concerned, we are completely in accordance with the view that it is faith that must precede reason; because it is faith which gives us an insight into the sacred mysteries. And it is very rational that this should be the case. We also agree with the saint on the proper use of intelligence and will. Moreover, we should not forget prayer and love: we ask for strength so as not to abandon the quest, and to fight against the loss of hope, laziness, ignorance and evil, in the embrace of the Holy Trinity.

Conclusions

As we begin this part, we examine some ideas related to the conclusions of what has been put forward.

Firstly, we believe that the image of Priscillian that emerges from our study is unclear, blurred or even distorted. Secondly, many interesting legends and myth have arisen around him. Thirdly, we put forward some interesting questions and issues. Historians who like Priscillian surround him with the aureole of a martyr, while others who are less sympathetic accept the black legend that darkens his figure even today. Another fundamental aspect is that practically everything that was written by Priscillian is lost. So one can ask oneself: What did Priscillian really write and say? But this question will never have a full answer. Moreover, we only know about him through indirect citation. All of this does not change his cultural and historical situation, or at least has not done so until today. To be sincere, we dare not call him a martyr, even thought his fervent followers do.

On the other hand, we can say, because it is evident, that he died like a hero, defending what he believed. Wrong or not, he was always faithful to himself and to his own thinking, and he was never inconsistent. We would also like to make it clear that the Priscillianist problem became politicized very quickly. Why was this so? Our opinion is that we shall never be able to know. It is yet another enigma. We now know that all heretics want their ideas to become political and internationalized, because this can benefit them personally: conferences, articles, books, magazines and media attention, *etc.* Today, with talent and luck people can be catapulted to fame. But this was not the case in the fourth century. On the contrary, after justice had dealt with the heretic, the

Digitized by Google

Imperial guards destroyed all his writings. This was no doubt the case with Priscillian. But we suspect that there was more to it. And our initial suspicion takes on more certainty when we consider all the hands which manipulated and maneuvered behind the scenes, so now after all the manipulation it is very difficult to see what the genuine ideas of Priscillian were.

As for the indirect citation, we have to take into account the fact that the dead – especially those that have fallen out of favor, can no longer defend themselves, so all kinds of suggestions appear about what they supposedly did and said. Another hypothesis maintains that Priscillianism was a social movement as well as a heresy. We think that it was probably both things. But we know that these options are not mutually exclusive, but complementary. We know that all of this gained more strength, in a society in which religion and society were very much interlinked. It is true that there are many questions to be answered. The reader must see and weigh them up, even though they are hard to answer. We do not seek to consider them all, because time and space are limited.

We perceive, however, that we do not have all the pieces of this puzzle that this strange and disturbing story offers, and that we do not even have total knowledge of each one of the people at the heart of this drama, who constitute its very essence. We confirm, because tragically, it is obvious, that all of this was a very mysterious and dark affair, leading our supposed heretic into a deadly trap. The hypocritical pain of his false friends, and the hate and envy of his enemies did the rest. There are just two or three more ideas, such as the following. Firstly, we must not forget that, only Priscillian's enemies have written on the figure of Priscillian: so this should make us more confident in him, and we should in a certain sense give him the benefit of the doubt. Secondly his dark, mysterious, tortured figure emerges from generation to generation instead of being consigned permanently to oblivion. It is as if his brave, tormented spirit refused to rest in peace, as if it managed to escape, again and again through some crack in eternity, clamoring silently for justice and rehabilitation. And one has to say that his figure is gaining stature as his biography is continually lengthening.

Having said all this, it is also true that to our own day no one has been able to change his status as heretic, which has been projected across the centuries. It is indisputable that a lasting reputation grew around Priscillian which he himself would probably never have expected. It is also true that when, on one dark day in the mid-fourth century, the executioner dealt the mortal blow in Treveris, an exceptional figure entered both History and Mythology.

Bibliography, Editions and Translations

Ad Orosium contra Priscilianistas et Origenistas, ed. K.D. Daur (CChr.SL 49, 165-78; PL 42, 669-78; BAC: XXXVIII, A Orosio contra los Priscilianistas y Origenistas).

Digitized by Google

H. Chadwick, *Priscillian of Avila: The occult and the charismatic in the Early Church* (Oxford, 1976).
Johannes Alphons Davids, *De Orosio et sancto Augustino priscillianistarum adversariis: commentatio historica et philological*, Diss. (Hagae Comitis, 1930).
O' Connell, St. Agustine's criticism of origen in the Ad Orosium: REA 30 (1984) 84-99.
R.J. Teske, *To Orosius in refutation of the priscillianists and origenists*, a translation with introduction and notes, in Arianism and other Heresis, Augustinian Heritage Institute 1, 18 (Hyde Park, N.Y., 1995).
G. Morin, *Études, textes, découvertes* (Maredsous, 1913), 151-201.
B. Segura Ramos, *Prisciliano. Tratados y cánones* (Madrid, 1975).

Studies

J. Pérez de Urbel, La teología trinitaria en la contienda priscilianista: *RET* 6 (1946) 589-606.
J. M. Ramos Loscertales, *Prisciliano: 'Gesta rerum'* (Salamanca, 1952).
J. Madoz, Arrianismo y Priscilianismo en Galicia: *Bracara Augusta* 8 (1957) 68-87.
P. Vollmann, *Studien zum Priszillianismus* (St. Ottilien, 1965).
R. López Caneda, *Prisciliano: Su pensamiento y su problema histórico* (Salamanca, 1966).
A. Orbe, Doctrina trinitaria del anónimo priscilianista De Trinitate fidei catholicae: *Gr.* 49 (1968) 510-62.
H. Chadwick, *Prisciliano de Ávila*, trad. Esp. (Madrid, 1978).
P.M. Sáenz de Argandoña, *Antropología de Prisciliano* (Santiago de Compostela, 1982).
M.V. Escribano, Estado actual de los estudios sobre el priscilianismo, en: J. Santos Yanguas (ed.), *Symposium sobre el cristianismo: Problemas históricos de su origen y difusión en Hispania, (Vitoria 1966)* (Vitoria, 2000), 259-83.
M. Barahona Simoes, Prisciliano e Prudencio: perfis culturais de dois pensadores hispanicos do século IV: *Cult Lish* 12 (2000-1) 11-35.
A. Olivares Guillem, Prisciliano entre la ortodoxia y la heterodoxia. Influencia del ambiente político y religioso en la evolución histórica del priscilianismo (ss. IV-VI d. C.): *Ilu* 7 (2002) 97-120.
M. Veronese, Le citazione del De Trinitate di Ilario nella raccolta atribuita a Prisciliano: *Vetera Christianorum* 40 (2003) 133-57.

Digitized by Google

La correspondance antipélagienne de l'Afrique avec Rome: Présentation d'un dossier de l'Épistolaire augustinien (416-8)

Laurence DALMON, Brest

Entre le printemps 416 et l'automne 418, l'Église d'Afrique obtint de Rome, au prix d'une correspondance régulière et fournie, la condamnation de l'hérésie pélagienne.[1] Il nous reste de cet échange une dizaine de lettres, dont la plupart figurent dans la *Correspondance* d'Augustin. Ces différentes pièces, qui présentent une unité thématique et chronologique, sont éditées, mais de façon éparse, au CSEL. Je propose, dans l'étude qui va suivre, de les rassembler en un corpus homogène, dont la clé de lecture serait d'abord et proprement épistolographique. Après avoir rappelé les caractéristiques formelles de la lettre de chancellerie au début du Vème siècle, je souhaiterais montrer quel usage, et en fonction de quelle stratégie rhétorique, chaque correspondant fait des codes et attentes du genre. Je mettrai ensuite en évidence la façon dont les contraintes inhérentes à l'épistolographie officielle conditionnent la forme et la conduite des échanges doctrinaux.

1. Les cadres épistolographiques[2]

Le noyau principal du corpus soumis à l'étude se compose des synodales respectivement adressées, en 416, par les conciles provinciaux de Carthage et de Milève[3] au pape Innocent Ier, ainsi que d'une missive à contenu plus doctrinal, incluse dans le même envoi.[4] Chacun de ces trois documents a donné lieu à une

[1] Est-il encore besoin de présenter, à Oxford, le célèbre ascète originaire de Bretagne ayant vécu et prêché à Rome, en Afrique et en Orient dans la première moitié du Vème siècle, et dont la pensée passait pour minimiser la grâce et nier le péché originel? On trouvera (bibliographie comprise) un exposé de la doctrine (genèse, «auteurs» et programme, corollaires théologiques, implantation et réception) dans Flavio Nuvolone – Aimé Solignac, art. Pélagianisme: *DSp.* 12.2 (Paris, 1986), col. 2889-2935.

[2] Se trouvent ici résumées les grandes lignes d'une communication donnée au Colloque *Epistulae Antiquae* V (Université François Rabelais de Tours, 6-8 septembre 2006): Laurence Dalmon, Entre pragmatisme et souci d'édification doctrinale: le genre de la lettre ecclésiastique officielle d'après la correspondance anti-pélagienne de l'Afrique avec Rome (Louvain et Paris, 2008), 239-57.

[3] *Ep.* 175 et 176 (CSEL 44, 652-68).

[4] *Ep.* 177 (CSEL 44, 669-88). Les signataires en sont Aurelius de Carthage, primat d'Afrique, Alypius de Thagaste, Augustin d'Hippone, Evodius d'Uzalis et Possidius de Calama.

Studia Patristica XLIX, 313-318.
© Peeters Publishers, 2010.

Digitized by Google

réponse pontificale, en janvier 417.[5] Nous disposons également, pour la période allant de l'automne 417 au printemps 418, de trois lettres du pape Zosime[6] à l'épiscopat d'Afrique (la partie africaine de la correspondance s'est malheureusement perdue).

La qualité des correspondants autorise à ranger ces lettres, qui relèvent d'une littérature conciliaire très formalisée, dans la catégorie des *epistulae negotiales*,[7] ou *amtliche Briefe*.[8] Extérieurement, ces 'écrits si importants, d'intérêt ecclésiastique, qui vont et viennent entre le Siège apostolique et les évêques d'Afrique'[9] se coulent dans un moule aisément identifiable. Les évêques se placent en effet dans la situation de fonctionnaires qui consultent et attendent un rescrit.[10] Partant, le vocabulaire courant de l'épistolarité (*scripta* / *rescripta*) se double d'une référence assumée à la phraséologie administrative de l'Empire tardif.[11] Outre ces harmoniques diffuses, lettres épiscopales et pontificales respectent la plupart des conventions propres à l'écriture en chancellerie, telles qu'on les observe dans les constitutions impériales contemporaines.[12] Parmi les plus topiques figurent la modélisation du discours,[13] un *ornatus* particulier fait d'abstraction et de circonlocution, enfin le recours au *cursus* rythmique. Autant d'éléments qui inscrivent la correspondance africano-romaine dans une tradition (même si

[5] *Ep.* 181, 182, 183 (CSEL 44, 701 à 730).

[6] *Ep.* 45, 46 et 50 de la Collection *Auellana* (Otto Günther *ed.*) (CSEL 35.1, 99-108, 115-7).

[7] D'après la typologie de Julius Victor, *Ars rhetorica* 27.

[8] Hermann Peter, *Der Brief in der römischen Literatur* (Leipzig, 1901), 198. La traduction la moins insatisfaisante, dans le cas qui nous occupe, serait non pas «lettres d'administration» (vocable impropre à rendre compte de leur contenu et visée doctrinale), mais bien «lettres officielles».

[9] *c. ep. Pel.* II. 3, 5 (trad. E. Bleuzen) Bibliothèque Augustinienne (BA) 23 (Paris, 1974), 407-8.

[10] D'après Jean-Pierre Coriat, *Le Prince législateur*, BEFAR 294 (Rome, 1997), 73, le rescrit se définit comme une réponse circonstanciée aux différents rapports envoyés par les fonctionnaires palatins ou provinciaux. Ces rapports soulèvent des problèmes ponctuels et requièrent des autorités consultées une solution elle-même ponctuelle.

[11] C'est ainsi que les Africains, à l'instar des préfets et gouverneurs civils, qualifient ou voient qualifiée leur démarche d'*insinuatio* (176.3), *petitio* (177.6; 177.15; 182.2), *intimatio* (175.1), *querela* (182.1), *suggestio* (176.1), *consultatio* (182.1; 182.2), *expectatio* (45.2) enfin et surtout de *relatio* (181.1; 181.9; 182.2; 182.4; 183.1). Voir les études lexicologiques de Ake Josefsson Fridh, *Terminologie et formules dans les Variae de Cassiodore: Études sur le développement du style administratif aux derniers siècles de l'Antiquité* (Göteborg, 1956) et de Gunhild Viden, *The Roman Chancery Tradition: Studies in the Language of Codex Theodosianus and Cassiodorus' Variae* (Göteborg, 1984).

[12] *Cf.* note *supra*.

[13] Phénomène perceptible non pas tant dans la mise en oeuvre d'un schéma diplomatique rigoureux (au sens où l'entendent les médiévistes), qu'au travers de faits de composition récurrents et cohérents, preuves d'une rédaction standardisée. Voir L. Dalmon, *La correspondance échangée entre les Églises d'Afrique et de Rome à l'occasion de la controverse pélagienne (416-418): traduction, commentaire et annotations d'un dossier de l'Épistolaire augustinien* (thèse soutenue en vue de l'obtention du Doctorat *Langues, Histoire et Civilisations des Mondes Anciens* de l'Université Lyon 2, 18 novembre 2006), 144-52.

Digitized by Google

cette dernière se trouve christianisée) administrative et bureaucratique: celle des chancelleries du Bas-Empire, illustrée en Occident par les écrits d'un Symmaque et d'un Cassiodore.[14]

Mais bien qu'il suive, à première vue, une partition réglée et imposée par le protocole civil officiel (la dynamique *relatio* / *rescriptum*), le duo entre les évêques et le pape recèle, pour un lecteur attentif, des dissonances susceptibles d'être éclairées par l'analyse rhétorique.

2. De la consultation à l'*agôn* épistolaire

Afin de pleinement saisir les tenants diplomatiques de cette correspondance, il convient tout d'abord de rappeler les évènements immédiats qui motivèrent l'initiative africaine de 416. Controverse avant tout théologique, l'affaire pélagienne prend également la forme (et l'on ne saurait, pour la bonne compréhension de notre dossier, occulter cette dimension) d'un imbroglio judiciaire. Après avoir été en effet condamné une première fois en la personne de son disciple, Célestius, lors d'un concile carthaginois réuni à l'automne 411, Pélage dut lui-même répondre de ses thèses en décembre 415 devant le synode palestinien de Diospolis (aujourd'hui Lydda ou Lod en Israël), à la suite d'une virulente campagne d'opinion menée contre lui par Jérôme et quelques émigrés latins proches d'Augustin.[15] La nouvelle de son acquittement, aggravée par la menace que faisait peser sur l'unité ecclésiale un tel verdict contradictoire, décida aussitôt l'Afrique à alerter le Siège apostolique.

Venant d'un épiscopat réputé jaloux de son autonomie, la démarche a d'autant moins manqué d'alimenter les querelles d'interprétation[16] que le correspondant romain n'entend pas se priver de retourner les choses à son avantage, feignant de voir dans cette adresse une invitation à imposer son arbitrage. Sans vouloir verser dans l'anachronisme, il est de fait indubitable que le corpus nous renseigne sur l'émergence d'une idéologie qui, dans les lettres pontificales, commence à revendiquer, au détriment de la collégialité épiscopale, l'établissement d'un primat dont jouirait le Siège apostolique; quant aux lettres synodales, elles nous permettent d'entrevoir l'accueil circonspect que les évêques africains réservent à ces prétentions. Semblables lignes de tension et rapports de pouvoir ont du reste été fort bien analysés, tant sur le plan juridictionnel qu'ecclésiologique, par les historiens.[17] Je voudrais pour ma part tenter d'étudier stylistiquement,

[14] On pourrait sans difficulté faire remonter la filiation plus loin, certaines formules étant déjà usitées dans la correspondance de Pline avec Trajan (*Lettres*, t. X, Marcel Durry ed., Paris, 1964).

[15] Pour un historique plus détaillé, voir l'introduction au tome 21 de la BA (Paris, 1994), 14 *sqq*.

[16] Entre école protestante et catholique, et, au sein de cette dernière, entre courants gallican et ultramontain.

[17] Voir les travaux de Otto Wermelinger, *Rom und Pelagius: Die theologische Position der römischen Bischöfe im pelagianischen Streit in den Jahren 411-432* (Stuttgart, 1975); Charles

Digitized by Google

c'est-à-dire sur le plan du protocole et de l'étiquette, la façon dont les correspondants composent avec leurs divergences. Nous allons voir que le dialogue donne lieu à un exercice rhétorique subtil, aux ressources parfois volontairement ambiguës.

La première ambiguïté réside dans la qualification de la démarche africaine. De prime abord en effet, et conformément aux attendus du genre, les lettres épiscopales demandent aux papes Innocent et Zosime de se prononcer simultanément sur un point de droit (l'acquittement puis la réhabilitation du *tandem* Pélage-Célestius à Diospolis) et sur un point de doctrine (la recevabilité des thèses pélagiennes sur la grâce et le libre arbitre, la prière, le baptême des enfants, *etc.*). En réalité, sur ces deux points, les évêques africains en leurs synodes ont déjà tranché souverainement. Leurs lettres, qui se concevraient plutôt comme une campagne de sensibilisation à l'hérésie, ne constituent donc pas une *appellatio stricto sensu* (c'est-à-dire au sens où les évêques attendraient du pape une solution législative ou juridique au conflit de compétence qui les oppose aux évêques de Palestine). Mais elles dépassent en même temps le simple avis d'information, et s'accompagnent d'un certain nombre de requêtes.[18] Elles véhiculent en d'autres termes un discours d'ambassade, émanant d'un organe de collégialité qui se positionne par rapport à Rome, et qui attend d'elle en retour une prise de position dans un contexte extraordinaire de crise intra-ecclésiale. S'étant intéressé de près aux multiples inflexions du πρεσβευτικὸς λόγος, L. Pernot[19] fait remarquer que tout discours d'ambassade se situe par nature à la confluence de deux genres: encomiastique (puisqu'il ne peut décemment faire l'économie de compliments ou de bons vœux à l'égard du destinataire), et symbouleutique (dans la mesure où il a pour vocation la plus fréquente de porter un avis ou de présenter une requête, voire un conseil). Après avoir rappelé l'artifice classique qui consiste, pour un courtisan, un consultant ou un impétrant, à travestir ses conseils en ἐγκώμια, l'auteur précise que ces derniers peuvent ressortir de deux formes, répertoriées dans la rhétorique ancienne comme les deux branches voisines du genre délibératif (ou de l'éloquence symbouleutique): la παραίνεσις, qui prêche des convaincus et ne souffre aucune contradiction; la συμβουλή proprement dite, qui porte sur une matière contestée et vise à emporter l'adhésion dans le cadre d'un débat.[20] Il nous semble que nous tenons dans cette ambivalence παραίνεσις / συμβουλή le levier d'Archimède de la rhétorique africaine. Car le ton d'évidence courtoise dont usent les synodales pour présenter aux papes leur cause comme une cause entendue

Pietri, *Roma Christiana: Recherches sur l'Église de Rome, son organisation, sa politique, son idéologie*, BEFAR 224 (Rome, 1976); Jane E. Merdinger, *Rome and the African Church in the Time of Augustine* (New Haven, 1997).

[18] La principale étant la convocation de Pélage devant le tribunal romain, procédure que Ch. Pietri, *Roma Christiana* (1976), 1193, n. 1, juge 'bien insolite'.

[19] *La rhétorique de l'éloge dans le monde gréco-romain* (Paris, 1993), 713 *sqq.*

[20] *Ibid.* 719.

Digitized by Google

revient à conditionner par avance toute forme d'action pontificale dans un sens antipélagien. N'ayant de consultants que l'apparence, les évêques se constituent plutôt en groupe de pression.[21] *Inversement*, et de façon tout à fait significative, c'est bien au titre d'une consultation que, de bonne guerre rhétorique, leurs interlocuteurs sont tentés de recevoir cette sollicitation, la traduisant volontiers dans les termes romains de la primauté romaine, à l'aide d'un *ethos* et de formules de souverain.[22]

Ainsi la subversion, sinon la perversion calculée de l'*accommodatio* épistolaire révèle à mes yeux une parfaite maîtrise, et partagée, des codes du πρεσβευτικὸς λόγος. Loin de mériter le nom péjoratif de «double discours», cet art de contraindre discrètement l'interlocuteur nous met en présence d'un pur morceau de langage diplomatique, croisement de deux rhétoriques non symétriques: d'un côté une rhétorique africaine courtoise envers Rome, conformément aux codes du genre épistolaire, mais dont la courtoisie est sans excessive portée ecclésiologique; de l'autre, une rhétorique pontificale impérieuse sinon impériale, et où perce l'insinuation d'un pouvoir hiérarchique.[23]

Il est un autre domaine où les paramètres de l'épistolographie officielle jouent à plein.

3. L'influence des contraintes épistolographiques sur l'exposé doctrinal

Dans la langue et le support formatés qu'elles utilisent, ces lettres témoignent à mon sens d'une 'mise en mots', d'une 'mise en équation' particulière de l'épisode pélagien, en tout cas différente de la mise en équation théologique classique – telle qu'elle se donne notamment à lire dans les traités parallèles d'Augustin. Les évêques se livrent moins à une réfutation d'ordre spéculatif qu'à un réquisitoire, au sens où l'entend la justice ecclésiastique. Ils entreprennent à la fois d'instruire une affaire, en mobilisant la rhétorique judiciaire appropriée, mais également d'instruire ou d'édifier leur correspondant romain, par le biais d'un exposé qui exploite, outre les motifs traditionnels du discours hérésiologique, toute une pédagogie de la vulgarisation doctrinale. Celle-ci comprend la mise en relief des thèmes polémiques de la controverse ainsi que de leur orchestration

[21] Ch. Pietri, *Roma Christiana* (1976), 1187, parle d'une 'mise en condition de l'opinion pontificale'.

[22] A.-J. Fridh, *Terminologie et formules dans les Variae de Cassiodore* (1956), 61, qualifie 'd'appropriation des formules de souverains' l'acte qui consiste pour une chancellerie (la chancellerie cassiodorienne par exemple) à revêtir ses actes et sentences d'un cachet exécutif qui puise directement sa force dans le formulaire impérial.

[23] Là encore, gardons-nous de toute extrapolation: on ne saurait comparer les prétentions voilées et informelles d'Innocent et Zosime, papes du premier quart du Vème siècle, avec les prérogatives empiriques revendiquées puis conquises par les pontifes médiévaux. Pour n'être pas contestable, l'aspiration au centralisme romain est ici avant tout rhétorique.

Digitized by Google

scripturaire, un recours abondant aux données liturgiques concrètes, de forts accents homilétiques.[24] En accord avec sa finalité pratique (ici obtenir, ou plutôt *maintenir*, l'exclusion de l'hérétique), la lettre de chancellerie impose donc à l'argumentation un traitement condensé et simplifié: afin de convaincre Rome du caractère nuisible de l'hérésie, les points force de la pensée augustinienne sont convoqués sous la forme «digeste» d'un *compendium*. Une lecture peu amène pourrait y voir la marque d'un faible crédit accordé au sens théologique des correspondants pontificaux. Plus probablement, cette approche semble dictée par la précaution ou la prudence. Car si Rome est explicitement d'accord pour promouvoir un discours orthodoxe opposé au pélagianisme, ses réponses à l'Afrique laissent transparaître quelques décalages dans l'appréhension doctrinale. *Or* la relative neutralité de ton, le moule pour ainsi dire convenu de la lettre de chancellerie, permettent d'atténuer ces aspérités en un *statu quo* d'autant plus nécessaire, qu'il aurait été malvenu de laisser transparaître la moindre division du collège épiscopal face aux ennemis pélagiens.

Conclusion

Sans que s'en trouve contredite ou minimisée la portée documentaire que lui assignent les historiens, le dossier présenté m'a paru légitimer une approche rhétorique et discursive. Parce qu'elle invite en quelque sorte à relire l'épisode pélagien à travers les stéréotypes de ce qu'on nomme «littérature de chancellerie», une telle approche ajoute, me semble-t-il, à l'intelligence de la crise. Minutieusement examiné pour lui-même, dans son essence générique et dans sa facture stylistique, le texte de la correspondance achève de mettre en lumière, sous les accents consensuels imposés par la courtoisie épiscopale – et plus globalement par les correspondances du Bas-Empire – des tensions diplomatiques palpables, ainsi qu'un écart effectif de position doctrinale entre l'Afrique et Rome.

[24] Voir L. Dalmon, *La correspondance échangée* (2006), 230-41, 617 *sqq.*

Digitized by Google

Le commentaire sur les Psaumes de Julien d'Éclane et le texte du Psautier

Bengt ALEXANDERSON, Jörlanda, Suède

Nous savons tous qu'on a toujours porté le plus grand intérêt au Psautier, qu'on a écrit des commentaires, qu'on l'a cité abondamment. Un des commentateur est Théodore de Mopsueste, presque exactement le contemporain de St. Augustin; son ouvrage a été traduit en latin par Julien d'Éclane, aussi un contemporain d'Augustin, mais plus jeune d'environ une génération. Je vais me concentrer sur Julien, mais Théodore entre aussi dans ce qui suit; je prépare un ouvrage sur le texte de son commentaire et sur celui de la traduction.

Mon intention était originalement de trouver ce qu'écrivaient Théodore et Julien dans leurs commentaires du Psautier, tout simplement de lire et de chercher à comprendre les textes. Mais un problème se pose immédiatement: de quel texte du Psautier partent-ils? Pour l'étude de ce problème-là, je me suis concentré sur les psaumes 1-16 et 43-49, parce que ces parties nous sont transmises d'une manière plus fiable que le reste.

Julien d'Éclane est connu comme un représentant des opinions proches de Pélage, notamment sur le péché original. Il niait ce péché, et à cause de cela il est devenu l'adversaire de Saint Augustin, dont il combattait les idées dans des ouvrages volumineux (quatre livres *Ad Florum*, huit livres *Ad Turbantium*). Augustin a bien sûr répondu, aussi copieusement, par ses livres *Contra Julianum* et par l'ouvrage qu'on appelle *Contra Julianum opus imperfectum*, dont la composition fut interrompue par la mort d'Augustin. On sait que Julien séjournait quelque temps à Antioche et qu'il était en rapport avec Théodore.

Manuscrits et éditions

Le commentaire, tant en grec qu'en latin, est loin d'être préservé complètement à nos jours. Voici ce que je pense est l'essentiel pour les manuscrits et les éditions:

Robert Devreesse[1] a édité le texte grec en 1939, un texte qui est préservé dans des chaînes. L'édition est fondée sur le manuscrit parisien Coislinianus 12 (XIII[e] s.), mais elle présente aussi des fragments provenant d'une dizaine

[1] *Le Commentaire de Théodore de Mopsueste sur les Psaumes (I-LXXX)*, ed. Robert Devreesse, Studi e Testi 93 (Città del Vaticano, 1939).

Studia Patristica XLIX, 319-324.
© Peeters Publishers, 2010.

Digitized by Google

d'autres manuscrits, notamment de Parisinus 139 et de Vaticanus 1682/3; ces deux vont de pair. Heureusement, nous avons aussi pour le texte grec une partie, le commentaire sur les psaumes 43-49, qui est préservée d'une seule traite dans ce codex Coislinianus. Celui qui a composé cette chaîne dit n'avoir pas trouvé les exégèses de Théodore sur les psaumes 43-49, mais après en avoir trouvé un texte, il ne l'a pas découpé pour insérer les fragments sous les lemmes différents de la chaîne, mais il présente le commentaire comme il l'a trouvé. Pour le grec, nous ne connaissons pas de fragment après *Ps.* 80.

Luc De Coninck[2] a édité le texte latin en 1977. Ce commentaire latin a été préservé en premier lieu dans un codex Ambrosianus C 301 inf. (IXe s.?) où il y a (je simplifie un peu) le commentaire intégral des premiers psaumes jusqu'à *Ps.* 16, des fragments d'autres psaumes, et aussi un épitomé qui va de *Ps.* 17 jusqu'à la fin du Psautier. Le codex Taurinensis Univ. F. IVB. 1, fasc. 5-6 (IXe s.?) contient beaucoup moins du texte de Julien: il y a des parties, notamment des fragments des *Ps.* 17-40 qui se trouvent dans les deux manuscrits. Ces manuscrits, l'Ambrosianus et le Taurinensis, ne dérivent pas l'un de l'autre. Pour l'épitomé, c'est dans l'Ambrosianus qu'on le trouve en premier lieu, mais il y en a des fragments dans quelques autres manuscrits. Après *Ps.* 40, il faut se contenter de l'épitomé.

On constate donc que les bonnes parties sont pour le grec le commentaire sur *Ps.* 43-49 et pour le latin le commentaire sur 1-16, et que ces deux parties ne correspondent pas. La tradition latine nous a joué un mauvais tour: là, où on peut comparer les textes, celui de l'Ambrosianus, qui contient beaucoup plus, présente le plus souvent un texte qui est clairement inférieur à celui du Taurinensis. Pour la fin du Psautier, nous n'avons que l'épitomé en latin, qui est fortement remanié et qui ça et là dérive aussi d'autres sources que de Théodore ou de Julien. Le texte de l'épitomé, qui entre peu dans ce qui suit, laisse beaucoup à désirer.

Les fondements de mon travail sont les éditions déjà mentionnées. Celle de Devreesse est très proche des manuscrits avec peu d'améliorations; par conséquent, elle a incité à beaucoup de propositions. De Coninck est plus critique envers les manuscrits, mais notamment pour l'épitomé, il a souvent accepté un texte peu probable.

Thème

Un but de ces études est donc de trouver quel texte Théodore et Julien ont lu, mais aussi les rapports entre ces textes et les traditions qu'on connaît déjà, d'un côté de la Septante, de l'autre des traditions latines. Je ne vais pas m'enfoncer

[2] *Theodori Mopsuesteni Expositionis in Psalmos Iuliano Aeclanensi interprete in latinum versa quae supersunt* ..., ed. Lucas De Coninck, CChr.SL 88A (Turnholti, 1977).

Digitized by Google

plus profondément dans ces traditions; il faudrait encore une vie ou plusieurs vies; je regarde ce travail comme des études préparatoires pour une meilleure connaissance de la Septante et des traditions latines. Il s'agit donc de constater, et nous parlons maintenant de Julien, ce qu'il a lu et le comparer avec les traditions, pour la Septante avec l'édition de Rahlfs,[3] pour les traditions latines avec les éditions qui existent de ces Psautiers, à savoir: du Psautier Romain et les autres psautiers latins, entre autres le Psautier de Vérone et le Psautier de Milan ou d'Ambroise; du Psautier mozarabe ou visigoth; du Psautier Gallican de Jérôme; du Psautier de Jérôme qu'on appelle *iuxta Hebraeos*.[4]

Problèmes généralement

Le Psautier est un texte particulier. On le savait par coeur, et on était toujours tenté de remplacer le texte qu'on lisait chez le commentateur par la version qu'on connaissait. Il faut donc toujours soupçonner l'interpolation et le remaniement.

Julien a aussi composé un commentaire[5] sur les douze prophètes, et là, il dit qu'il suit le texte de Jérôme qu'on appelle *iuxta Hebraeos*. De Coninck, qui est l'éditeur aussi de ce commentaire, remarque qu'en effet, Julien s'écarte souvent de ce texte, et que, pour les autres livres de l'Ancien Testament, il cite tantôt d'après des autres versions, tantôt d'après Jérôme. Dans *c. Iul. imp.* 1, 138, 12, Julien cite une version d'un passage d'Isaïe (*Is.* 45:8 sqq.) qui est proche de la Septante, et peu après (1, 140, 7), ce qu'il appelle une *interpretatio recens*, une nouvelle interprétation, proche de la Vulgate.

Lemmes

Les lemmes grecs que j'ai vus, ceux du manuscrit Coislinianus, sont fortement abrégés, parfois au milieu d'un mot, et cela vaut aussi pour ces psaumes dont le commentaire se lit d'une traite. Devreesse dit ne pas vouloir présenter un

[3] *Septuaginta*. Societatis Scientiarum Gottingensis auctoritate edidit A. Rahlfs. 10. *Psalmi cum Odis* (Göttingen, 1931).

[4] *Le Psautier Romain et les autres anciens Psautiers latins*. Édition critique par Robert Weber, Collectanea Biblica Latina 10 (Città del Vaticano, 1953). *Psalterium Uisigothicum-Mozarabicum*. Editio critica curante Theophilo Ayuso Marazuela, Biblia polyglotta Matritensia, Series 7, Uetus Latina 21 (Matriti, 1957). *Liber Psalmorum ex recensione sancti Hieronymi*... Biblia Sacra iuxta Latinam Vulgatam versionem ... cura et studio monachorum Abbatiae pontificiae sancti Hieronymi in Urbe... edita (Romae, 1953). *Sancti Hieronymi Psalterium iuxta Hebraeos*. Édition critique par Henri de Sainte-Maire, Collectanea Biblica Latina 11 (Roma et Città del Vaticano, 1954).

[5] *Iuliani Aeclanensis expositio libri Iob, tractatus prophetarum Osee, Iohel et Amos...*, ed. Lucas De Coninck, CChr.SL 88 (Turnholti, 1977).

Digitized by Google

commentaire du Psautier sans Psautier, mais comme les lemmes des manuscrits ne peuvent être le point de départ, il les a mis selon l'édition du Psautier de Swete[6], mais il a aussi parfois établi un texte qui part des citations qu'on trouve dans le texte du commentaire, et il ne dit pas quand il fait cela. Donc, il faut se méfier totalement des lemmes de l'édition! Il faut chercher le texte du Psautier dans les citations et dans le commentaire.

Dans l'édition du texte latin, les lemmes sont présentés selon la tradition manuscrite, à savoir le plus souvent d'après l'Ambrosianus. Les lemmes sont plus complets, mais souvent on n'a que les premiers mots et, après *usque*, le dernier mot. Lemme et commentaire ne s'accordent pas toujours, notamment pour l'épitomé.

Quant à l'épitomé, De Coninck a montré qu'il emprunte ses idées le plus souvent à Théodore. Il se peut quand même qu'il apporte de la matière qui ne dérive pas du commentaire de Théodore. L'épitomé peut donner de l'appui à un texte qui est préservé chez Théodore ou Julien, mais si son texte reste isolé, on ne peut pas s'en servir pour reconstruire le texte de Julien, encore moins celui de Théodore. Cela n'empêche pas que pour le texte du Psautier, on peut trouver des variantes intéressantes dans l'épitomé.

Comment constater la vraie leçon de Julien? Il faut partir, je viens de le dire, des citations et du commentaire. En voilà un exemple:

Ps. 5:4[2]. Rahlfs: ἐπόψομαι, 'je verrai' (entre autres dans les codices Vaticanus et Sinaiticus); 'je regarderai' qui? Évidemment Dieu; la variante est ἐπόψει με, 'toi, Dieu, me verras', 'tu me regarderas, moi' (généralement, cette leçon se trouve dans les autres traditions de la Septante). Les traditions latines ont *videbo* ou *contemplabor*, donc ἐπόψομαι. Le lemme de Julien a aussi *videbo*. Quand même, le commentaire montre qu'il a lu *videbis me*, 'toi, Dieu, me verras'; le commentateur ne le dit pas expressément, mais chez lui c'est Dieu qui agit, il doit accepter, dit-il, ma prière avec bonté; donc toi, Dieu, tu dois me regarder avec bienveillance. Et comment l'homme peut-il regarder Dieu, et du dessus, en surveillant (ἐπόψομαι)? Il y a aussi d'autres exemples qu'on a manipulé le lemme, mais en effet, ils ne sont pas très nombreux. On s'étonne plutôt que les lemmes du commentaire ont souvent résisté aux autres traditions (la manipulation est beaucoup plus évidente pour l'épitomé). Un exemple d'une telle résistance est le verset suivant:

Ps. 10:4[3] dit chez Rahlfs que les yeux de Dieu regardent le pauvre, dans le latin *pauperem*, mais il y a une tradition, représentée par entres autres la version syriaque, Théodoret et Jean Chrysostome, qui veut que Dieu regarde le monde, chez Julien *orbem terrae*. Cette leçon se trouve dans le lemme, et le commentaire montre que Julien l'a lue: il dit que l'extrême limite de la terre est sous les yeux de Dieu. Dans les traditions latines, Julien est le seul qui connaît cette

[6] *The Old Testament in Greek*, ed. Henry Barclay Swete, vol. 2 (Cambridge, 1907).

Digitized by Google

leçon. On doit donc noter que le lemme n'est pas remanié selon la tradition latine dominante. Si une telle leçon unique se trouve dans le lemme, je pense qu'on peut y avoir confiance.

Citations

Il va sans dire que généralement, les citations sont plus dignes de foi, et je ne crois pas qu'il soit nécessaire d'en donner des exemples. Mais il faut être circonspect: les citations peuvent être manipulées, notamment s'il s'agit d'un passage très bien connu. Le meilleur exemple pour Julien est *Ps.* 8:6.[1] Ce verset est cité dans *Hébr.* 2:7: 'tu l'as un moment abaissé au-dessous des anges'. Julien cite ce verset quatre fois; une fois comme *minuisti eum paulum ab angelis*, ce qui correspond mot à mot au texte de la Septante, publié par Rahlfs sans variante, mais trois fois on trouve *minuisti eum paulo minus ab angelis*, ce qui correspond aux traditions latines. Est-ce qu'il faut croire que Julien ait cité de manières différentes, ou les citations, ont-elles été manipulées? Je crois plutôt à la manipulation.

Le texte du commentaire

Je viens de montrer que pour *Ps.* 10:4[3], la manière de commenter montre comment Julien a lu le verset. Dans un autre passage, il s'agit de *Ps.* 7:2,[2] le commentaire montre que Julien n'a pas lu le petit mot καί/*et*. Cela semble peu de chose, mais comme Julien ne lit pas ce mot, il arrive à un autre contexte et arrange la phrase d'une autre manière. Cette leçon n'est pas connue dans la Septante, et dans les traditions latines, seul le Psautier Sangallensis 912 la présente.

Fiabilité

Généralement, je pense que le texte qu'on peut déduire du commentaire est le plus fiable; après viennent un texte unique ou presque unique d'une citation et d'un lemme, ensuite les citations qui ne sont pas de caractère unique; il va sans dire qu'un lemme sans appui dans le commentaire ou dans une citation est peu fiable.

Affinités avec les autres traditions

Quant aux affinités avec les autres traditions, nous n'avons pas parlé beaucoup de Théodore et de la Septante, mais je peux dire que le résultat est très clair et

Digitized by Google

n'étonne pas après les travaux bien connus de Vaccari[7] et de Groβe-Brauckmann[8]; le travail de ce dernier est resumé dans l'édition de Rahlfs. Les leçons de Théodore s'accordent donc avec Théodoret, avec la version syriaque et avec la tradition dite lucianique; de l'autre côté se trouvent les codd. Vaticanus et Sinaiticus; entre les extrêmes se place la tradition de cod. Alexandrinus.

Quant aux affinités du texte latin de Julien, c'est la tradition dite lucianique et la version syriaque qui prévalent. Pour les rapports entre ce texte et les autres traditions latines, la situation est très compliquée, pour ne pas dire inextricable. Il est évident que Julien a été influencé par les trois traditions, c'est-à-dire par la Vetus Latina, par la tradition de Ps. Gall. et par celle de Ps. Hebr., et plus par Ps. Hebr. que par Ps. Gall. Il est clair qu'il suit parfois une tradition, parfois une autre. Les rapports avec Ps. Sang. 912 sont évidents. On se demande s'il a traduit lui-même les lemmes de Théodore, mais nous ne savons pas comment étaient constitués ces lemmes, peut-être beaucoup abrégés dans le texte qu'a vu Julien. Comme il suit le plus souvent l'une ou l'autre des traditions latines connues, on dirait généralement qu'il n'a pas traduit lui-même mais qu'il se tenait à quelque texte qui lui était familier, trouvé dans des manuscrits ou rappelé de mémoire.

Et, pour conclure, j'espère qu'on a trouvé avec moi que rien n'est sûr. Il faut s'attendre à des interpolations et à des remaniements partout. Pour contrebalancer, on n'a que deux choses, une connaissance très insuffisante de ces langues et un jugement vacillant.

[7] A. Vaccari, Testo dei Salmi nel commento di Teodoro Mopsuesteno: *Biblica* 23 (1942) 1-17.

[8] Emil Groβe-Brauckmann, *Der Psaltertext bei Theodoret*, Mitteilungen des Septuaginta-Unternehmens 3 (Berlin, 1911).

Digitized by Google

A Last Apology for Pelagianism?

Gerald BONNER, Durham

The received picture of Pelagianism, as bequeathed to posterity by generations of heresiologists, is of a religious system which denies or minimises the Fall and leaves human nature capable of living righteously of its own created resources, without any impulsion of efficacious grace. Grace, for this system, is a matter of illumination and prescription: God reveals to man how he should live; it is for man to obey the divine command by the exercise of his free will. The reception of the sacrament of baptism facilitates this exercise and is essential for incorporation in the Church of Christ; but it remains possible for the unbaptised to live righteously, as is shown by the cases of pious men and women in the Old Testament. Those who fail to do so will be justly punished at the Last Day.

Understandably, such a system will offend many Christians as attributing too much to the human will and too little to the Grace of Christ and be deservedly rejected. I would however suggest that it is a synthetic creation, drawn largely from the works of Augustine and from the individual theologians against whom they were directed. The Pelagians were never a group held together by a common system, as were, for example, the Manichees. Indeed, we really know very little about them. Even their numbers cannot be estimated. Augustine came to believe that there were many in Africa; there were enough of them in Rome to alarm the government in 418; but that is all we can say about their numbers. An attempt by J.-M. Salamito to estimate the known Pelagian membership, apart from its most prominent members – Pelagius, Caelestius, the Sicilian Anonymous, Julian of Eclanum, and the renegades Timasius and James – produced only two other names,[1] to whom may be added the eighteen Italian bishops who protested against the condemnation of Pelagius and Caelestius, who included Julian of Eclanum. There are later reports of a Pelagian presence in Britain, which was favoured by the upper classes; and a suggestion that early Irish Christianity may have been influenced by Pelagianism. But even if this last is true, such allegations are too vague to have any value as demographic evidence. The truth is that there is no reason to think that Pelagians were ever numerous in the West; and Pelagian theology had no influence in the East. At best, only one of Augustine's writings – the *De Gestis Pelagii* – was ever translated into Greek.

[1] J.-M. Salamito, *Les Virtuoses et la multitude: Aspects sociaux de la controverse entre Augustin et les pélagiens* (Grenoble, 2005), 155-62.

Studia Patristica XLIX, 325-328.
© Peeters Publishers, 2010.

Digitized by Google

In Africa it was Caelestius, rather than Pelagius, who created a disturbance. Pelagius soon departed for Palestine, where he could find friends among the upper-class fugitives from Rome. Caelestius, a declared enemy of the doctrine of Original Sin, carried out propaganda, which Augustine suggests found many hearers, until he was attacked in 411 by Paulinus of Milan, significantly not an African, was condemned by a Carthaginian tribunal at which Augustine was not present, and departed to Ephesus, where he was favourably received and ordained. Augustine's first theological anti-Pelagian treatise, *De peccatorum meritis et remissione*, written at the request of Count Marcellinus, was a refutation of Caelestius rather than Pelagius, whom Augustine had not read when he composed it. The Latin theologian who initiated the attack on Pelagius at Jerusalem in 415 was Paul Orosius, who bungled the prosecution. At Diospolis, at the end of the year, Pelagius declined to answer for any of the views attributed to Caelestius. However, for the African bishops his theology was already linked to that of the latter, and his vindication at Diospolis seemed to them, and particularly to Augustine, their theologian, to represent an endorsement of the theology with which he was credited. But more: Pelagius' acquittal seemed to challenge the principle which Augustine had repeatedly urged against the Donatists: the universality of Catholic belief. It was therefore necessary to have African orthodoxy re-affirmed by the Bishop of Rome, and to do this, Pelagius and Caelestius, the one a revivalist moralist, the other a self-assured disciple of the views of Rufinus 'of Syria'[2], had to be condemned. For Augustine himself, there was a personal factor: in his *De natura et gratia*, written in 415 in answer to Pelagius' *De natura*, he had had to deal with Pelagius' use of a quotation from Augustine's *De libero arbitrio* (3, 18, 50), in support of his own views. Augustine at this time still refrained from mentioning Pelagius by name, but referred to him only as 'a man on fire with zeal against those who sought to excuse their sins by an appeal to human nature'. By 416 the decisions of the councils of Jerusalem and Diospolis had persuaded Augustine of the danger that he himself might be numbered among those who agreed with Pelagius. Accordingly, he was prominent among those who supported an appeal to Rome to condemn Pelagius and Caelestius. Significantly, Pope Innocent had not heard of any Pelagians at Rome; but the reading of Pelagius' treatise *De natura*, sent to him by the Africans, led him on 27 January 417 to declare Pelagius and Caelestius excommunicate until they should give satisfactory proof of their orthodoxy.

This African triumph was short-lived. Innocent died on 12 March and his successor Zosimus, when appealed to by Caelestius, was disposed to reopen the case. The evaluation of Zosimus' impartiality is a difficult matter, since he could combine a declared desire of fairness for Caelestius and Pelagius with an

[2] On this mysterious author, if he ever indeed existed, see Walter Dunphy, Rufinus the Syrian: myth and reality: *Augustiniana* 59 (2009) 79-157.

Digitized by Google

unconcealed hostility to Pelagius' Palestinian accusers, Heros and Lazarus; but he was not unreasonable to declare that they had the right to present their defence. It is in this light that the imperial condemnation of 30 April 418 becomes significant. There was, by the fifth century, no reason why a Christian emperor should not intervene in ecclesiastical matters; but the expertise which the African Catholics had gained over the years in their campaign against Donatism would certainly have been of service to them in pursuing their vendetta against less formidable opponents. One may reserve judgement on Julian of Eclanum's allegation of bribes of Numidian stallions to cavalry officers for their support.[3] What cannot be doubted is African Catholic confidence in its own understanding of the doctrine of the universal Church, and its mastery of *Realpolitik* to gain its own ends.

Over the last century and a half a large amount of literature with a Pelagian flavour has been identified, outstandingly the treatises of the so-called 'Sicilian Pelagian' or 'Sicilian Anonymous', which in their rigorism harmonise very well with Pelagius, but are hardly heretical in the strict sense. The major 'Pelagians' are Caelestius and Julian of Eclanum; but these are at heart more controversialists than constructive theologians. The only surviving work of Caelestius, the *Definitiones* (which may not certainly be by him), sought to show by argument that men may live without sinning, which is the essence of any theology to be called Pelagian. Julian of Eclanum, who only entered the controversy after the condemnation of Pelagius, is its most substantial and effective apologist; but to many readers, Julian will seem to be motivated by a sense of fair play, and a notion of divine justice,[4] rather than by the desire to oppose Original Sin theologically as a doctrine of the Catholic Church. He and his supporters, exiled to the East, kept up the struggle until the Council of Ephesus finally and definitively condemned Caelestius, regarded as the leading Pelagian, in 431. In practice Cyril of Alexandria, the dominating figure at the Council, seems to have had little interest in Pelagianism. His intention was to secure the destruction of Nestorius, and to this end he was willing to please the Latins. Augustinian predestinarian theology made no impact in the East. Significantly, Socrates Scholasticus, a younger contemporary of Augustine, made no reference to either Augustine or to Pelagius in his Church History.

Furthermore, despite the imperial rescripts of 418 and 419 and Zosimus' *Epistola tractoria*, Augustinianism did not achieve an immediate victory in the West. The opposition in Provence to Augustine's theology in his last years, and the need for Pope Celestine to defend him after his death, show that his

[3] Service in a cavalry regiment which still, in 1948, had a mounted squadron in addition to its armoured cars, makes the present writer question the theological interests of these cavalry officers; but cavalrymen will traditionally do a great deal for desirable horseflesh.

[4] To which may be added the self-assurance of a Roman aristocrat. See G. Bonner, review of J.-M. Salamito, *Les Virtuoses et la multitude* (2005): *JTS N.S.* 57 (2006) 741-4.

Digitized by Google

influence was not unchallenged, and debate in Gaul continued, requiring the intervention of Caesarius of Arles in 529. The story of Germanus of Auxerre's mission to Britain suggests Pelagian influence there in the fifth century, while the Pope-elect John IV, in a letter to the northern Irish *circa* 640, speaks of a revival of Pelagianism in that region in the 630s;[5] but this evidence hardly points to a great and continuing influence of Pelagius and his associates in the West after 418, while the movement had no influence in the East.

In short, there was no Pelagian crisis in Christendom in the fifth century, and the importance which has been attached to the alleged movement derives, paradoxically, from the writings of its greatest enemy, Augustine of Hippo. Augustine's enormous literary output, the influence which it exercised over so many minds, and the fascination of his personality, meant that Augustine's anti-Pelagian treatises were read and reread over the centuries, appealing to intellects as diverse as Gottschalk of Orbais, Thomas Bradwardine, John Calvin and Cornelius Otto Jansen. If metaphysics dominated Christian theologizing in the Greek East, inherited guilt and human psychology exercised a fascination for minds in the Latin West, a fascination which has continued to the present day. Paradoxically, it may be that the man who created the received Pelagian system was Augustine of Hippo. Without him Pelagius and Caelestius, the Sicilian Anonymous and Julian of Eclanum, would have lived and died unremarked by posterity. Pelagius, at least, might have preferred it that way.

[5] Bede, *H.E.* II 19 (200, 202 Colgrave and Mynors).

Digitized by Google

Beobachtungen zu Augustinus' *Locutiones in Heptateuchum*

Dorothea WEBER, Wien

Die *Locutiones in Heptateuchum*[1] stehen nicht eben im Mittelpunkt der Aufmerksamkeit der Augustinusforschung: Die Auflistung und Erklärung sprachlicher Auffälligkeiten des lateinischen Texts der ersten sieben Bibelbücher lassen kein Bemühen des Autors erkennen, den Stoff in einer leserfreundlichen Form aufzubereiten; wir erfahren zwar viel über verschiedene Textformen der Vetus Latina, da Augustinus unzählige sprachliche Besonderheiten der vor-hieronymianischen Übersetzungen durch Rückgriff auf die Septuaginta verständlich macht, erhalten aber nirgends eine Systematisierung der Detailbeobachtungen, ja werden nicht einmal durch interne Querverweise auf das Vorliegen desselben Phänomens an anderen Stellen hingewiesen. Der Eindruck, es handle sich um eine reine Materialsammlung, wird verstärkt durch das Fehler jeglicher Literarisierung: So hat das Werk weder Praefatio noch Epilog. Es hängt wohl mit der skizzierten Charakteristik zusammen, dass die Sekundärliteratur hauptsächlich Probleme im Zusammenhang mit den lateinischen und griechischen Bibelversionen behandelt hat, die Augustinus vorlagen.[2] Im Folgenden sollen nach einleitenden Bemerkungen zwei Fragen diskutiert werden, nämlich ob die Schrift vollständig ist und welche Absicht Augustinus mit ihr verfolgte.

Über die Entstehung der *loc.* gilt nur als gesichert, dass Augustinus im Jahr 419 mit der Arbeit begann, und zwar wahrscheinlich während eines drei- oder viermonatigen Aufenthalts in Karthago;[3] parallel verfasste er die *qu.*, in denen er inhaltlich-exegetische Probleme derselben Bibelbücher diskutierte.[4] Es hat

[1] Ein guter Überblick über die Hauptfragen der Forschung bei Luigi Carrozzi in der Einleitung zu Sant'Agostino, *Locuzioni sull'Ettateuco, introduzione, traduzione e note* di L.C., NBA 11, 1 (Roma, 1997), 9-49. Zuletzt Dorothea Weber, Art. *Locutiones*, *AL* 3 (2010, in Druck).

[2] Wilhelm Rüting, *Untersuchungen über Augustins Quaestiones und Locutiones in Heptateuchum* (Paderborn, 1916); Albert V. Billen, *The Old Latin Text of the Heptateuch* (Cambridge, 1927); Wilhelm Süss, *Studien zur lateinischen Bibel 1: Augustins Locutiones und das Problem der lateinischen Bibelsprache* (Tartu, 1933).

[3] Dies ist einerseits aus der Stellung der zugehörigen *Retractatio* (2, 54), andererseits dem Fehlen von *loc.* in der Aufzählung der nach der Rückkehr aus Karthago entstandenen Schriften (*epist.* 23A*, 3) zu schließen, s. Alessandra Pollastri, *Introduzione generale alle* Questioni, NBA 11, 1 (Roma, 1997), 283-384 (290-7); vgl. ferner Othmar Perler, *Les voyages de Saint Augustin* (Paris, 1969), 363.

[4] Siehe A. Pollastri, *Introduzione* (1997) (wie o. Anm. 3).

Studia Patristica XLIX, 329-334.
© Peeters Publishers, 2010.

Digitized by Google

sogar den Anschein, als habe er die beiden Schriften in einem einzigen Arbeitsgang erstellt, denn ab und zu geriet ihm irrtümlich eine sprachliche Erörterung, die ja zu den *Locutiones* gehört, unter die *Quaestiones* und umgekehrt.[5] Auf jeden Fall aber stellen *loc.* für den Autor wie für den Leser die erste Stufe im Verstehen des Bibeltexts dar, *qu.* die zweite, da, wie aus *retr.* 2, 54 zu erschließen,[6] dem Autor als inhaltliches Problem nur diejenige unklare Wendung gilt, die sich weder als Gräzismus infolge der Übersetzung aus der Septuaginta noch als bereits in letzterer vorliegender Hebraismus erklären lässt. Zu dieser Hierarchie zwischen *loc.* und *qu.* passt es im Übrigen, dass Augustinus zwar in *loc.* auf *qu.* verweist,[7] nicht aber umgekehrt. Den Charakter einer Art Vorstudie für *qu.* zeigen *loc.* auch darin, dass jenes Werk, anders als dieses, mit einer Praefatio ausgestattet wurde. Dazu kommt, dass Augustinus' eigener Aussage zufolge die Schrift keinen Titel hatte: *retr.* 2, 54 bezeugt ausdrücklich, dass nur jedes einzelne der sieben Bücher betitelt war, und zwar als *Locutiones de Genesi, Locutiones de Exodo etc.*, es aber keinen alle Bücher umfassenden Titel gab. All dies scheint für die Hypothese zu sprechen, dass *loc.* ursprünglich nicht als ein Werk geschlossen publiziert werden sollten, sondern Buch für Buch dem jeweils entsprechenden Buch von *qu.* vorangestellt waren. Tatsächlich gibt es einen – zugegeben vagen – Anhaltspunkt für eine derartige Abfolge: Während nämlich ein Großteil der Textzeugen *qu.* geschlossen auf *loc.* folgen lässt, was ihrer Reihung in den *Retractationes* (2, 54 und 55) entspricht, sind in drei Codices *loc.* und *qu.* buchweise kombiniert: Im ältesten Codex vom Ende des 8. Jh.s folgt auf ein Buch *qu.* jeweils das entsprechende Buch der *loc.*,[8] in zwei weiteren vom 9. bzw. 10. Jh. steht jeweils ein Buch *loc.* vor einem Buch *qu.*[9] Es ist demnach denkbar, dass sich diese ursprüngliche Anordnung nur vereinzelt erhalten hat und das Gros der Codices die Bücher so umgruppiert hat, dass zwei geschlossene Werke entstanden. In Zusammenhang mit einer derartigen Anordnung kann eine Beobachtung stehen, die Clemens Weidmann gemacht hat:[10] Er hat aufgrund ins Leere gehender interner Querverweise festgestellt, dass der Anfang von Buch 3 der *qu.* verloren ist; sollte es ein Zufall

[5] Z.B. *loc.* 2, 2 bzw. *qu.* 7, 56.

[6] *Septem libros de septem libris divinarum scripturarum ... feci notatis locutionibus singulorum quae minus usitatae sunt linguae nostrae, quas parum advertendo sensum quaerunt qui legunt divinorum eloquiorum, cum sit locutionis genus, et nonnumquam exculpunt aliquid quod a veritate quidem non abhorreat, non tamen hoc sensisse auctor a quo id scriptum est invenitur, sed genere locutionis hoc dixisse credibilius apparet. multa autem in litteris sacris obscura cognito locutionis genere dilucescunt.*

[7] *Loc.* 1, 35. 54; 2, 64; 6, 29; 7, 50. 52.

[8] Corbie, heute Paris, BN 12168; erhalten sind nur die Bücher 1-4.

[9] Diese Abfolge in den Codices aus Padua (Cod. 182, 9. Jh.) und Novara (Cod. 82, 9./10. Jh.) für die Bücher 3-7, die ersten beiden Bücher sind in der Abfolge *qu.* 1-2 und *loc.* 1-2 gereiht.

[10] Zwei Lücken in den *Quaestiones in Heptateuchum* des Augustinus: *REAug* 53 (2007) 113-39.

Digitized by Google

sein, dass der Anfang von Buch 3 der *loc.* nur in einem einzigen Überlieferungszweig erhalten ist?[11] Details allerdings bleiben unklar: Der Textausfall betrifft jedenfalls nicht denselben Umfang: In *qu.* fehlt die Kommentierung der ersten vier Kapitel von *Leviticus*, in den meisten Codices der *loc.* jene der ersten zwölf Kapitel von *Leviticus*.

Eine weitere äußerliche Ähnlichkeit zwischen beiden Schriften steht wohl nicht in Zusammenhang mit der möglicherweise ursprünglichen Buchfolge: Beide enden mit Erklärungen zum 16. Kapitel des Buchs *Iudices*, lassen also die letzten fünf Kapitel aus. Dass diese weder für *loc.* noch für *qu.* irgendwelche erklärungsbedürftigen Lemmata enthalten sollten, ist auszuschließen. Anders aber als im Fall der Lücke zu Beginn des dritten Buchs ist hier der Umfang des Bibeltexts in beiden Schriften derselbe, nämlich *Iudices* 17-21 – dies macht die Annahme sehr unwahrscheinlich, dass die beiden Textlücken ursächlich miteinander in Zusammenhang stehen – z.B. durch Blattausfall im Archetypos zu Beginn und Ende; darüber hinaus spricht gegen einen mechanischen Verlust der allgemein gehaltene, für einen Schluss geeignete letzte Satz von *qu.* 7.[12] Natürlich könnte Augustinus aus welchen Gründen auch immer beschlossen haben, seine Arbeit am Heptateuch vorzeitig bei cap. 16 zu beenden, allerdings findet sich in *retr.* 2, 54 bzw. 2, 55 kein Anhaltspunkt dafür, ja vielmehr berichtet Augustinus dort, dass er bereits mit *Reges* begonnen habe, doch durch dringende andere Aufgaben von der Weiterarbeit abgehalten worden sei.[13] Warum aber ließ er dann das Ende von *Iudices* und das ganze Buch *Ruth* unkommentiert? Eine Antwort darauf könnte mit Augustinus' Bibeltext zusammenhängen:

In der alexandrinischen griechischen Bibel konnte *Ruth* als letzter Teil des Buchs *Iudices* bezeichnet werden, wie man beispielsweise aus Origenes, Hilarius und Hieronymus erfahren kann.[14] Augustinus scheint gegen diese Ansicht in jener Stelle in *doctr. chr.* (2, 8 Martin = 2, 26 Green) Stellung zu beziehen, wo er den biblischen Kanon festhält: Er spricht dort ausdrücklich davon, dass *Ruth* eher in den Beginn der Königszeit gehört;[15] in *spec.* 4 springt er bei der

[11] Es handelt sich um den Corbeiensis (s. o. Anm. 8) und um die Handschriften Reims Ms. 83 (9. Jh.) sowie Dijon Ms. 138, Syracuse, University Library Smith ms. 1 und Troyes Ms. 197 (alle 12. Jh.)

[12] 7, 56: *Haec est enim vis generalis omnium locutionum, ut quemadmodum ipsae linguae non intellegantur, nisi audiendo vel legendo discantur.* – Der Satz wurde von C. Weidmann (s. o. Anm. 10) aus Codex Cambrai, BM 545 (s. XIII) um die Worte *ita nec modi locutionum* ergänzt.

[13] *retr.* 2, 55: *Regnorum quoque libros eodem modo iam considerare coeperamus; sed non multum progressi in alia, quae magis urgebant, animum intendimus.*

[14] Euseb., *hist. eccl.* VI 25, 2; Hil., *psalm. instr.* 15 (... *ut Moysi sint libri quinque, Iesu Nave sextus, Iudicum et Ruth septimus* ...); Hier., *prol. reg.* (364, 28 Fischer).

[15] *Totus autem canon scripturarum ... his libris continetur: quinque Moyseos, id est Genesi, Exodo, Levitico, Numeris, Deuteronomio; et uno libro Iesu Nave, uno Iudicum, uno libello, qui appellatur Ruth, qui magis ad Regnorum principium videtur pertinere; deinde quattuor Regnorum ...*

Digitized by Google

Aufzählung der Bibelbücher über *Ruth* hinweg von *Iudices* direkt zu *Reges*. – Was die letzten fünf Kapitel von *Iudices* betrifft, so stellen sie im Urteil der modernen Bibelforschung innerhalb des Buchs einen Fremdkörper dar:[16] sie gelten als späte Additamente, die kaum vor dem 4. Jh. v. Chr. hinzugetreten sind. Die beiden als Anhänge bezeichneten Episoden (*Iud.* 17sq. und 19-21) werden durch den sogenannten königsfreundlichen Kehrvers[17] zusammengehalten. Die Erzählungen unterstreichen die Notwendigkeit des Königtums und setzen sich damit deutlich vom Corpus des Buchs *Iudices* ab, in dem jenes kritisch beurteilt wird. Nun gibt es zwar keine Primärquellen wie etwa Bibelhandschriften, die bezeugen würden, dass zur Zeit der Septuaginta oder danach das Buch *Iudices* ohne diese Kapitel überliefert wurde, doch wäre es vorstellbar, dass sie als Präludium der Königszeit nicht als Teil von *Iudices* empfunden wurden; es gibt dafür zwar keine beweiskräftigen Argumente, doch verstreute Anhaltspunkte: So etwa überging Ps.-Athanasios, *Synopsis scripturae sacrae* (PG 28, 312) in seiner Nacherzählung von *Iudices* den Inhalt der Anhänge; Ambrosius, der die zweite Episode zweimal referierte, zitierte in der ausführlicheren Stelle (*ep.* 57) zwar *capp.* 19 und 20, vermengte aber in so auffälliger Weise den Bibeltext mit Erweiterungen aus Flavius Josephus' *Antiquitates*, dass der Eindruck entsteht, er haben jenen Text durch diesen vermittelt gelesen.[18] Augustinus selbst zitiert nirgends aus den sogenannten Anhängen, während er den Hauptteil von *Iudices* selbst außerhalb von den *loc.* und *qu.* in verschiedenen Schriften und Predigten verwendet,[19] wie überhaupt auffällig ist, dass sich die lateinische Patristik abgesehen von Hieronymus kaum für diese Texte interessierte; die Zugehörigkeit der letzten Kapitel von *Iudices* wurde allerdings offenbar nirgends diskutierte. – Es wäre wohl zu gewagt zu behaupten, dass in Augustinus' Bibelexemplaren zwischen Iud. 16 und 17 eine Buchgrenze verlief, doch scheint es vorstellbar, dass Augustinus aus inhaltlichen Gründen das Ende von *Iudices* ebenso wie das Buch *Ruth* zu *Reges* rechnete, der Heptateuch für ihn daher mit *Iud.* 16 aufhörte.

Den Abschluss der Erörterungen sollen Überlegungen zu der Frage einnehmen, welchen Zweck Augustinus mit seinem Doppelwerk zum Heptateuch verfolgte; der *communis opinio* zufolge stehen sie nicht nur zeitlich in Zusammenhang mit Buch 15 und 16 von *civ.*,[20] wo Augustinus die biblische Geschichte

[16] Mein Dank gilt Herrn Uwe Becker (Jena) für kompetenten Rat. Siehe z.B. seine Ausführungen in: *Richterzeit und Königtum. Redaktionsgeschichtliche Studien zum Richterbuch*, Beihefte zur Zeitschrift für die alttestamentliche Wissenschaft 192 (Berlin etc., 1990), 226-99.

[17] *In diebus illis non erat rex in Israel sed unusquisque quod sibi rectum videbatur hoc faciebat* (17, 6; 21, 24).

[18] Vgl. den Similienapparat in CSEL 82/2 mit detaillierten Verweisen auf Flavius Iosephus, *Antiquit.* 5, 136-74.

[19] Ein Überblick bei Anne-Marie La Bonnardière, *Biblia Augustiniana, A.T., II.: Livres historiques* (Paris, 1960), 31-53.

[20] Dazu A. Pollastri, *Introduzione* (1997) (o. Anm. 3), 297 und Anm. 50.

Digitized by Google

entlang dem Heptateuch nachzeichnet. Diese Erklärung greift freilich zu kurz, denn zumindest die *loc.* spielen für *civ.* eine sehr untergeordnete Rolle.[21] Dies wird u.a. daraus einsichtig, dass Augustinus hier aus mindestens vier verschiedenen Vetus-Latina-Codices[22] sprachlich auffällige Lemmata auswählt, um sie entweder durch einen Vergleich mit der Septuaginta zu erklären oder anderenfalls unkommentiert stehen zu lassen; dies soll, wie *retr.* 2, 54 (s. Anm. 6) angibt, die Leser mit verschiedensten Phänomenen des lateinischen Alten Testaments vertraut machen und sie befähigen, sprachliche Probleme, die eine Folge der Übersetzung aus dem Griechischen sind, von inhaltlichen, die sich ebenso Lesern der Septuaginta stellen, zu scheiden. Dass Augustinus dafür mehrere Vetus-Latina-Versionen heranzieht, kann nur bezwecken, jeden Leser, gleichgültig über welche Übersetzung der Septuaginta er verfügt, mit den möglichen Gräzismen bzw. durch die Septuaginta vermittelten Hebraismen seines jeweiligen Bibeltexts vertraut zu machen, ein Ansinnen, das in auffälliger Weise die Vulgata außer Acht lässt. Dass auf sie höchst spärlich verwiesen wird,[23] passt zu Augustinus' Vorbehalten gegenüber Hieronymus' Bibelübersetzung.[24] Leser, die über die Fähigkeit verfügen, die der als inspiriert geltenden Septuaginta nahestehenden lateinischen Versionen zu interpretieren, sind auf die Neuübersetzung aus dem Hebräischen nicht angewiesen. Darin steht Augustins Intention in dezidierter Antithese zu jener, die Hieronymus in der Praefatio seiner *Hebraicae Quaestiones in Genesin* angibt: er wolle die zahllosen Fehler, die es in der Septuaginta und in den lateinischen Bibelhandschriften gebe, durch Erklärung des hebräischen Texts korrigieren.[25]

Eine Beziehung zwischen Hieronymus' *Quaestiones* und Augustinus' *Quaestiones* war bereits von Ferdinando Cavallera[26] erkannt worden, ein Vergleich der beiden Werke führte ihn dazu, neben sachlichen Berührungspunkten[27] die unterschiedlichen exegetischen Grundpositionen herauszuarbeiten. Wenn man

[21] Die Berührungspunkte sind: *loc.* 1, 30 (*civ.* 16, 4). 50 (*civ.* 16, 24). 51 (*civ.* 16, 34). 54 (*civ.* 16, 26). 102 (*civ.* 16, 38).

[22] Vgl. 1, 42 (... *unde Latini codices paene omnes non transtulerunt istam locutionem ...; ipsa est enim per omnia in Graeca scriptura, ubi tale aliquid dicitur*); ähnlich 1, 203 (... *aliqui codices habent ‚vexatur', aliqui ‚aestuatur' et aliud alii ...*).

[23] *loc.* 7, 37; zu den Stellen aus *qu.* vgl. Anne-Marie La Bonnardière, Augustin a-t-il utilisé la ‚Vulgate' de Jerôme?, in: *Saint Augustin et la bible*, ed. Anne-Marie La Bonnardière (Paris, 1986), 303-12 (305sq., Anm. 12-5).

[24] Dazu zuletzt Anne-Isabelle Bouton-Touboulic, Autorité et tradition. La traduction latine de la bible selon saint Jerôme et saint Augustin: *Augustinianum* 45 (2005) 185-229 und Alfons Fürst, Art. Hieronymus: *AL* 3 (2006) 317-36 (323-30).

[25] *Studii ergo nostri erit vel eorum, qui de libris Hebraicis varia suspicantur, errores refellere vel ea, quae in Latinis et Graecis codicibus scatere videntur, auctoritati suae reddere, etymologias quoque rerum, nominum atque regionum, quae in nostro sermone non resonant, vernaculae linguae explanare ratione* (2, 8 Lagarde).

[26] Les »Quaestiones hebraicae in Genesim« de saint Jérôme et les »Quaestiones in Genesim« de saint Augustin, in: *Miscellanea Agostiniana II* (Roma, 1931), 359-72.

[27] In *qu.* 1, 26 nimmt Augustinus explizit auf Hieronymus' Schrift Bezug.

Digitized by Google

aber *loc.* und *qu.* als Doppelwerk versteht, gewinnt die Haltung des Augustinus gegenüber Hieronymus an Konturen: Beide Autoren gehen vom Text der Vetus Latina aus, Hieronymus korrigiert ihn sprachlich mit Rückgriff auf das Hebräische und gibt darüber hinaus Sacherklärungen, Augustinus erklärt ihn sprachlich mit Rückgriff auf die Septuaginta (*loc.*) und diskutiert die verbleibenden inhaltlichen Probleme (*qu.*). Augustinus scheint demnach auf Hieronymus' Schrift zu reagieren in der Absicht, die Vetus Latina verständlich zu machen und sie dadurch der Vulgata als zumindest ebenbürtig gegenüberzustellen. Hatte Augustinus im Zuge der Auseinandersetzung mit Hieronymus in *ep.* 28 aus den Jahren 394/5 diesen aufgefordert, Abweichungen vom Text der Septuaginta in seiner Übersetzung zu markieren, und in *ep.* 71 aus dem Jahr 403 die Notwendigkeit einer neuen Übersetzung der Septuaginta vertreten,[28] scheint er etwa 15 Jahre später in dem Konzept der beiden Kommentare zum Heptateuch eine apologetische Position gegenüber den traditionellen lateinischen Versionen einzunehmen. Wie eingangs festgehalten, fällt die Arbeit an dem Doppelwerk in den Frühherbst des Jahres 419, als Augustinus sich mehrere Wochen in Karthago aufhielt. In Karthago konnte er Hieronymus' Schrift benutzen:[29] Aus *ep.* 27*, 2, 3 geht hervor, dass dieser in den frühen 90er Jahren des 4. Jh.s einen Codex seiner *Quaestiones Hebraicae in Genesin* an Bischof Aurelius von Karthago geschickt hatte. Es erscheint somit möglich, dass Augustinus während seines langen Aufenthalts in Karthago dieses Werk kennenlernte und darauf mit dem Doppelwerk *Locutiones* und *Quaestiones in Heptateuchum* zu replizieren beschloss.

[28] Darüber siehe Alfons Fürst, Veritas Latina. Augustins Haltung gegenüber Hieronymus' Bibelübersetzungen: *REAug* 40 (1994) 105-26.

[29] Siehe A.-M. La Bonnardière, Augustin a-t-il utilisé la ‚Vulgate' de Jerôme? (1986), 307.

Digitized by Google

'*Quos uulgo moriones uocant*' (*Contra Iulianum* III 4, 10): Le traitement des *moriones* (débiles) dans les œuvres antipélagiennes d'Augustin

Mickaël RIBREAU, Paris

Dans la marge d'un des manuscrits du *Contra Iulianum*, le *Vaticanus Latinus* 500,[1] le scribe a ressenti le besoin d'indiquer, en face de *moriones*, *stulti*. Cette explication, dans un manuscrit pauvre en remarques marginales, est significative. Au XVème siècle, le terme de *morio*, que nous traduirons par «débile», n'était plus compris, et pour cause. En effet, nous n'avons conservé qu'une petite dizaine d'occurrences de ce terme,[2] dont cinq chez Augustin, dans des œuvres antipélagiennes, ou qui appartiennent à cette même période, de 411 à 421. Nous tenterons de voir en quoi l'emploi du terme *morio* permet à Augustin de remettre en cause certains points de doctrine du courant pélagien et en quoi il est symptomatique de l'opposition entre les théologies augustinienne et pélagienne.

Notons tout d'abord qu'à la lecture de sources classiques, la *Lettre* 17 du livre IX de Pline[3] et les *Epigrammes* VIII 13[4] et VI 39[5] de Martial, on constate que le *morio*[6] était caractérisé par son physique, proche de l'âne, sa sottise, et qu'il faisait partie du personnel domestique de divertissement de la cour impériale ou de certains riches particuliers, prêts à dépenser des sommes importantes pour acquérir des *moriones*.

On trouve cinq occurrences de ce terme chez Augustin, dans des œuvres écrites de 411 à 421. Trois emplois majeurs se distinguent: un emploi ornemental, proche de la digression, un emploi heuristique, et un emploi argumentatif. Nous étudierons en particulier trois de ces cinq occurrences.[7]

Examinons tout d'abord l'emploi digressif. Dans le *De peccatorum meritis et remissione*,[8] daté de 411-2, au livre I 35, 66, Augustin utilise l'exemple des

[1] Fol. 67v.

[2] Art. *4 Morio, onis*, *Thesaurus linguae latinae, vol. VIII, M* (Leipzig, 1966), 1491.

[3] Pline, *Lettres, livres VII-IX*, éd. et trad. par Anne-Marie Guillemin (Paris, 1959), 110-1.

[4] *Epigrammes, livres VIII-XII*, VIII 13, éd. et trad. par Henri-Jean Izaac (Paris, 1969), 7.

[5] *Epigrammes*, livres I-VII, VI 39, éd. et trad. par H.-J. Izaac (Paris, 1973), 187-8.

[6] Voir art.'*Mori*', *Dictionnaire des Antiquités grecques et romaines*, 7, dir. Charles Daremberg et Edmond Saglio (Paris, 1877), 2005; Robert Turcan, *Vivre à la cour des Césars d'Auguste à Dioclétien (I^ème^-IIIème siècles ap. J.-C.)* (Paris, 1987), 60, 267.

[7] Nous laissons de côté les *Lettres* 143 et 166, éd. Alosius Goldbacher (Vienne, 1904), 250-62 (surtout 253, emploi topique) et 545-85 (surtout 570, emploi heuristique).

[8] *Pecc. mer.*, éd. par Carol F. Urba et Josef Zycha (Vienne, 1913), 66.

Studia Patristica XLIX, 335-339.
© Peeters Publishers, 2010.

Digitized by Google

moriones dans une digression, de type moral, sur le vain amusement des hommes qui se veulent sages. Dans une réflexion sur les péchés propres des enfants, l'évêque d'Hippone en vient à prendre en compte le problème de leurs cris, voire des violences que l'enfant fait subir à sa mère.[9] Il montre combien l'homme peut s'amuser de tels agissements. Il continue cette digression placée au cœur du discours argumentatif sur les péchés propres des enfants, et envisage le cas des *moriones* qui font rire même les sages:

Ipsos quoque fatuos uidemus, quos uulgo moriones uocant, ad cordatorum delicias adhiberi et in mancipiorum aestimatione pretiosiores esse cordatis; tantum ualet carnalis affectus etiam minime fatuorum in delectatione alieni mali.[10]

L'emploi de l'exemple des *moriones*, dans une digression, n'obéit pas ici à une véritable argumentation, mais sert plutôt d'élément de moralisation. Il permet aussi, contre un mouvement qui recherche la sagesse,[11] le pélagianisme, de montrer que celui-ci n'est pas sans contradiction. Même chez les sages, ce désir charnel, cette délectation du mal d'autrui sont présents. Ainsi, partant de la misère des enfants, Augustin parvient à la misère des hommes. L'exemple des *moriones* dans le cadre de la controverse pélagienne n'est donc pas anodin car il permet de revenir sur cet idéal de perfection et de sagesse prôné par les pélagiens, afin d'en montrer la vanité. De plus, Augustin, comme le montre l'insistance sur le prix que ces riches sages sont prêts à payer, semble s'adresser en particulier à ce milieu sénatorial, du moins fortuné, qui a été séduit par le pélagianisme.[12] Si cette remarque peut ainsi sembler hors de propos, digressive, elle est cependant au cœur de la controverse pélagienne.

Examinons l'emploi à valeur heuristique. Il s'agit ici moins d'argumenter que de poser un problème. Augustin prend, dans un autre passage du *De peccatorum meritis et remissione*, I 22, 32,[13] qui traite de la chute des âmes,[14] l'exemple de ceux *quos uulgo moriones uocant* pour remettre en cause cette conception. Qu'ont fait ces *moriones* pour mériter un tel châtiment: 'perdre la lumière de l'esprit au point de venir au monde dotés de sens proches de la bête'?[15] Lorsqu'il parle de ces débiles, Augustin propose une étymologie.[16] L'évêque d'Hippone considère que le terme vient d'un mot grec, sans doute *môros*, qui signifie

[9] Voir Waclaw Eborowicz, La misère des enfants d'après les *Confessions* de St. Augustin et les écrits anti-pélagiens: *SP* 14 (1976) 410-6.

[10] *De peccatorum meritis et remissione* I 35, 66, 66.

[11] Voir par exemple Pélage, *Exp. xiii ep. Pauli: In Colossenses* 1, 10, éd. Alexander Souter (Cambridge, 1926), 453; *In Romanos* 16, 27, 126.

[12] Voir Jean-Marie Salamito, *Les virtuoses et la multitude* (Grenoble, 2006).

[13] *Pecc. mer.* I 22, 32, 31-2.

[14] Sur la question de l'origine des âmes voir Ronnie J. Rombs, *Saint Augustine and the fall of the soul: Beyond O'Connell and his critics* (Washington, 2006).

[15] *Pecc. mer.* I 22, 32, 31: *Qui mentis lumen sic amittere meruerant ut sensu uicino pecoribus nascerentur ...*

[16] *Pecc. mer.* I 22, 32, 31: *Quorum nomen ex graeco deriuatum moriones uulgus appellat.*

Digitized by Google

«émoussé», puis «imbécile».[17] C'est pourquoi nous traduisons *moriones* par «débiles», plutôt que par «fous», qui désigne, de nos jours, un état pathologique, différent de cette absence de raison décrite par notre auteur. Autre thème fréquent dans l'emploi du cas des *moriones*, la quasi-assimilation aux bêtes, ici *pecus*, comme on pouvait la trouver chez Martial, dans la comparaison avec l'âne. Ainsi les *moriones* sont-ils placés entre deux genres, le genre humain et le genre animal; ils sont donc un *monstrum*[18] et posent problème, nous invitent à nous interroger. Augustin continue en prenant un cas précis: un *morio christianus*. Ce dernier, alors qu'il souffrait les injures qu'on lui faisait, s'enflammait violemment dès que le nom du Christ était outragé. Il conclut cet exemple, tiré de son expérience, en revenant sur l'idée de chute des âmes à laquelle Augustin s'oppose; il propose alors la prédestination:

Tales ergo praedestinari et creari arbitror ut qui possunt intellegant Dei gratiam et Spiritum, qui ubi uult spirat (*Jean* 3:8), *ob hoc omne ingenii genus in filiis misericordiae non praeterire itemque omne ingenii genus in gehennae filiis praeterire, ut* qui gloriatur in Domino glorietur (1*Cor.* 1:31).[19]

Ainsi, dans un raisonnement sans doute inspiré du récit évangélique de l'aveugle né, créé tel pour rendre manifestes les œuvres de Dieu,[20] Augustin utilise cet exemple d'un *morio christianus* pour montrer que la chute des âmes ne saurait expliquer ce paradoxe: ce *morio* souffre certes d'un état proche de la démence, mais il reçoit l'appui de la grâce de Dieu. Comment peut-il ainsi mériter à la fois le châtiment et l'aide divine? Augustin refuse, par cette observation de la vie quotidienne, l'idée de la chute des âmes. Il souhaite également montrer, par cet exemple, que le peuple chrétien comprend aussi les plus petits, et pas seulement une certaine élite, comme tendent à le penser les pélagiens,[21] car la grâce de Dieu, selon Paul,[22] est entièrement gratuite. Augustin fait ici appel aux *moriones* pour remettre en cause deux éléments de la doctrine pélagienne. Tout d'abord, le *morio* est pour lui une preuve de la force de la grâce de Dieu, et aussi de la prédestination. L'évêque d'Hippone, par cet exemple, comme la citation de 1*Cor.* 1:31, capitale dans sa doctrine de la grâce,[23] le montre, insiste sur un des points fondamentaux qui l'opposent aux pélagiens: la doctrine de la grâce.[24] Il répond ainsi à la question de l'origine de l'âme par

[17] Par exemple, Sophocle, *Electre*, 1326.

[18] Sur cette notion, voir Claude Moussy, Esquisse de l'histoire de *monstrum*: *REL* 55 (1977) 345-69.

[19] *Pecc. mer.* I 22, 32, 32.

[20] *Jean* 9:3.

[21] Voir J.-M. Salamito (2006), 89 sqq.

[22] *Rom.* 11:6.

[23] Étudiée notamment par Pierre-Marie Hombert, Gloria gratiae: *Se glorifier en Dieu, principe et fin de la théologie augustinienne de la grâce* (Paris, 1996).

[24] Sur ce point voir Josef Lössl, Intellectus gratiae: *Die erkenntnistheorische und hermeneutische Dimension der Gnadenlehre Augustinus von Hippo* (Leiden, 1997).

Digitized by Google

sa conception de la grâce, et partant par sa doctrine de la prédestination, qu'il sera amené à préciser à la fin de sa vie. De plus, dans cet exemple du *De peccatorum meritis et remissione*, les *moriones* sont utilisés comme argument pour montrer aux pélagiens, hérauts d'une morale volontariste, inspirée notamment du stoïcisme,[25] que même des êtres dénués de raison peuvent être appelés chrétiens, car le peuple de Dieu n'est pas un peuple d'aristocrates. Ainsi, dans cet emploi à valeur heuristique, Augustin discute, grâce à une observation de la vie quotidienne, des points théologiques importants et qui font débat, à savoir la chute des âmes, afin d'en montrer les limites; mais il va ici plus loin, car il présente aux pélagiens les *moriones* comme une preuve de la gratuité de la grâce et de la prédestination, et de l'universalité du peuple de Dieu, qui ne tient nullement compte des capacités intellectuelles, puisque seule la grâce divine est puissante. Les *moriones* sont ainsi envisagés de deux manières, de façon heuristique, puisqu'ils permettent à Augustin de s'interroger sur l'origine des âmes, sans pour autant donner de solution, mais aussi comme argument, puisqu'ils permettent de prouver des points de doctrine importants.

Examinons enfin l'emploi argumentatif. Dans le *Contra Iulianum* III 4, 10,[26] Augustin utilise une nouvelle fois le cas des *moriones* pour prouver l'existence du péché originel. En effet, face à la position d'origine stoïcienne de Julien, qui considère que le corps peut être maîtrisé par l'âme, Augustin montre que les petits enfants ne peuvent le maîtriser, et que, bien que considérés comme innocents par les pélagiens, ils connaissent cependant les tourments de la chair, et parfois diverses infirmités. Parmi celles-ci, Augustin cite la surdité, l'aveuglement, et la débilité des *moriones*. Il écrit:

Iam uero quis ferat quod ad ipsum spectat animum, imaginem Dei "innocentiae", sicut asseris "dote locupletem", fatuam nasci, si nulla ex parentibus mala merita in paruulos transeunt? An ita est quisquam uestrum fatuus, ut fatuitatem nullum malum putet, cum Scriptura dicat: mortuum septem diebus, fatuum uero omnibus diebus esse lugendum (*Eccli.* 12:22)*? Quis autem nesciat quos uulgo moriones uocant natura ita fatuos ut quibusdam eorum pene sensus pecorum conferatur?*[27]

De même que dans le *De peccatorum meritis et remissione* I 35, 66, les enfants et les *moriones* sont ici associés, car, comme Augustin l'expliquait dans le premier ouvrage antipélagien, un *morio* est un enfant qui a cessé de grandir, qui n'a plus évolué.[28] Ainsi, à la suite de plusieurs traditions philosophiques,

[25] Robert F. Evans, *Pelagius' inquiries and reappraisals* (New York, 1968), 64 sqq.; Georges de Plinval, *Pélage, ses écrits, sa vie et sa réforme: Etude d'histoire littéraire et religieuse* (Lausanne, 1943), 205 sqq.

[26] Comme introduction à cet ouvrage voir Nello Cipriani, *Contra Iulianum*, in *Opere di sant'Agostino, polemica con Giuliano*, int. et notes par N. Cipriani, trad. Ermanno Cristini (Rome, 1985), 401-26.

[27] *C. Iul* III 4, 10, 707.

[28] *Pecc. mer.* I 35, 66, 66.

Digitized by Google

rapportées notamment par Cicéron,[29] les enfants sont un laboratoire privilégié pour étudier l'homme à son origine; de même, les *moriones*, sorte d'enfants adultes, entre l'homme et la bête, sont pour Augustin un lieu privilégié d'observation et de questionnement pour comprendre l'existence du péché originel. En effet, comment expliquer leur débilité, si ce n'est comme un effet de la faute des premiers hommes, puisqu'ils n'ont pas mérité cette peine? Les *moriones* forment ainsi un argument opposé à Julien pour lui montrer que l'on ne peut maîtriser son corps par l'âme, parce que l'homme est atteint par le péché originel, qui parfois le marque de débilité. Ils sont au coeur de la controverse pélagienne, puisque les pélagiens considéraient que le baptême des enfants était inutile; selon Julien, en particulier, la conception du péché originel présentée par Augustin n'était, en effet, qu'une invention de ce dernier, proche du manichéisme. Le cas des *moriones* est donc ici, pour l'évêque d'Hippone, un argument clair pour prouver l'existence du péché originel, et partant la nécessité du baptême.

Ainsi, cet examen des divers exemples du traitement des *moriones* dans les œuvres antipélagiennes d'Augustin nous a permis de constater qu'il se référait à cette réalité, attestée par Martial et Pline, et toujours présente en Afrique au Vème siècle, pour lutter contre certaines doctrines des pélagiens, et les remettre en cause. Les *moriones,* selon Augustin, servent à prouver trois éléments fondamentaux, auxquels les pélagiens se sont opposés, de façon plus ou moins explicite: l'universalité du peuple chrétien, et partant la vanité d'un idéal de sagesse et de perfection en ce monde; la gratuité de la grâce et la prédestination; enfin le péché originel. Ainsi, face à certains systèmes dialectiques, comme celui de Célestius ou de Julien, Augustin oppose une donnée de la vie concrète, connue de tous, comme la périphrase sans cesse utilisée, *quos moriones uulgo uocant*, le montre bien. Les *moriones* se trouvent ainsi au cœur de la controverse qui opposa Augustin et les pélagiens: ils sont un exemple qui questionne, qui permet d'argumenter, ou, comme dans le cas du *christianus morio*, de rester humble devant le dessein mystérieux de Dieu. Plus largement, l'attitude de l'évêque d'Hippone, son attention à cette débilité, n'est pas sans annoncer les conceptions médiévales de la folie. Car, comme l'écrivait Michel Foucault dans son *Histoire de la folie à l'âge classique*, 'la folie fascine parce qu'elle est savoir. (...) Ce savoir si inaccessible, et si redoutable, le Fou, dans sa niaiserie innocente, le détient '.[30]

[29] Par exemple dans le *De finibus* I 21, 71; III 4, 15; 19, 62.
[30] Michel Foucault, *Histoire de la folie à l'âge classique* (Paris, 1972), 37.

Digitized by Google

Digitized by Google

Textual Cohesion in Augustine's *De cura pro mortuis gerenda*

Paula Rose, Amsterdam

1. Introduction

Augustine tells a few stories about dreams and visions in which he played the rescuing part.[1] In one story his former pupil Eulogius, rhetoric teacher in Carthage, dreams that Augustine explains to him a thorny rhetorical problem. In another story a man named Curma, fatally ill and in a comatose condition, has a vision in which he sees himself baptized by Augustine. These two stories are narrated in Augustine's *De cura pro mortuis gerenda*, a short treatise about the burial of the deceased.[2] The dating of this treatise is still subject to discussion, but a date between 421 and 424 is quite probable.[3] The starting point of the treatise is a question by Augustine's fellow-bishop Paulinus of Nola, who wants Augustine's opinion on whether a burial in the vicinity of a saint's memorial can benefit the deceased:

(1) ... *utrum prosit cuique post mortem, quod corpus eius apud sancti alicuius memoriam sepelitur.* (*cura mort.* 1.1)

('Whether it benefits a man after his death that his body is buried near the memorial of a saint').

Paulinus' question has been provoked by the burial of a young man named Cynegius, whose mother Flora had requested Paulinus to bury her dead son near the grave of St. Felix, patron of Nola. Burial near a saint's grave or, in Latin, *depositio ad sanctos* had been in vogue since the 4th century.[4] Paulinus receives more of an answer than he had asked for. In the treatise Augustine sends him in reply, several subjects are discussed which are related to the question Paulinus raised. This paper deals with the complex coherence between these separate subjects.

[1] I thank my supervisors Caroline Kroon and Jan den Boeft for their thorough feedback on an earlier version of this paper, and my colleagues at the Vrije Universiteit Amsterdam for their helpful remarks.

[2] CSEL 41, 619-60.

[3] For a summary of this discussion, see Martin Klöckener, art. Cura pro mortuis gerenda (De -): *AL* 2 (2002), 182.

[4] See Ulrich Volp, *Tod und Ritual in den christlichen Gemeinden der Antike* (Leiden and Boston, 2002), 119.

Studia Patristica XLIX, 341-346.
© Peeters Publishers, 2010.

Digitized by Google

In the Augustinus-Lexikon Klöckener divides the treatise into four sections.[5] The contents of these separate parts can be summarized as follows:

The first section (1.2-1.3) contains Augustine's answer to a preliminary question. Is it possible at all to give the deceased assistance, since every human will eventually be held responsible for his or her own deeds, as Paul teaches in 2*Cor.* 5:10? According to Augustine the effect of assistance to the deceased, for instance by means of burial *ad sanctos* or commemoration prayers, depends on the deceased's merits during his earthly life. Those who have lived a flawless life do not need any assistance, and those rotten to the core are past saving anyway. For all those in between assistance might be profitable.

In the second part (2.3-9.11) not only Paulinus' question about the place of burial is discussed, but also the necessity of burial in general, and the relation between burial and bodily resurrection. Paulinus' question provides Augustine with an opportunity to take a close look at ideas about death and burial current in his days among Christians. The burial customs traditional among Christians and sanctioned by the Church are reconsidered in the light of Augustine's own theological views.

In the third section (10.12-17.21) Augustine moves on to a different subject, the state of body and soul after death. In this section he narrates some stories about appearances of both deceased and living persons in dreams and in visions during illness.

Section four (18.22-23) contains a summary of the discussion and the customary courtesies.

2. The cohesion of the distinct parts

At first sight, these four sections in *cura mort.* seem to form two more or less separate discussions. The first discussion, in section one and two, is about death and burial; the second, which coincides with section three, deals with the appearances in dreams and other visions. In figure (2) the two divisions are combined:

(2) Division of *De cura pro mortuis gerenda*

First discussion:		
section 1	1.2-1.3	Paulinus' question; answer to a preliminary question
section 2	2.3-9.11	place of burial; necessity of burial in general; bodily resurrection
Second discussion:		
section 3	10.12-17.21	appearance of deceased and living persons in dreams and visions
Conclusion:		
section 4	18.22-23	summary and conclusion

[5] M. Klöckener, Cura pro mortuis gerenda (De -) (2002), 183.

Digitized by Google

The relation between the first and the second discussion has not been treated satisfactorily until now. Klöckener, for instance, states in the *Augustinus-Lexikon* that the subject matter of *cura mort.* has been composed 'in an associative way'. In his lemma about the treatise he discerns the burial of the deceased and the appearances as distinct themes.[6]

Kotila in his monograph about the commemoration of the departed in Augustine considers the latter part of Augustine's treatise (10.12-12.15, about the appearances) a digression.[7] According to Kotila this digression 'has no direct links to the main theme of the treatise'. The digression is evoked because in some of the dream stories a deceased appears and asks to be buried. However, according to Kotila this request for burial is not the most important reason for Augustine to discuss the dream stories. Augustine's main aim is to explain his opinion on the nature of the deceased's appearance in dreams and visions.[8]

3. A discourse linguistic approach to the text

I think there is more to say about the function of the dream narratives in the treatise as a whole. In my opinion they are not a digression, but they are employed as an essential argument in the discussion about the necessity of burial.

This thesis can be corroborated by a careful investigation of the linguistic and rhetorical means used in the text. For this investigation of Augustine's argumentation I make use of a discourse linguistic approach.[9] In this approach the analysis of the thematic coherence of the text is combined with an examination of the linguistic signals that explicitly indicate the textual cohesion. Furthermore the text might also be examined for specific linguistic devices that articulate the communicative interaction between the writer and his audience, such as particles and word order patterns.

In a somewhat different way the analysis of the rhetorical devices used by the author, for example litotes and rhetorical questions, also reveals how he directs his communication with his audience. The combined analysis of the text in these various ways yields insights into the structure and meaning of the text that otherwise would remain unnoticed.

An extensive illustration of these various ways of analysis would go beyond the limits of this paper. In the next paragraph I will discuss one example of this approach.

[6] *Ibid.*

[7] 'Augustine digressed from his original task', Heikki Kotila, *Memoria Mortuorum: Commemoration of the Departed in Augustine* (Roma, 1992), 145.

[8] H. Kotila, *Memoria Mortuorum* (1992), 145f.

[9] For Latin, this approach is most clearly illustrated in Caroline Kroon, *Discourse Particles in Latin: A Study of* nam, enim, autem, vero *and* at (Amsterdam, 1995).

Digitized by Google

4. *cura mort.* 10.12 as a hinge in the text

I would like to discuss the transition from the second to the third section of *cura mort.* Here the text switches from the first discussion, about death and burial, to the second, about appearances in dreams and visions. The opening paragraph of the third section will turn out to have a transitory function in the text as a whole.

In the second section of *cura mort.* (2.3-9.11) Augustine discusses the question whether a specific place of burial might benefit the deceased. Before answering this question, he states first that being buried is not a necessary condition for the deceased's soul to find eternal rest.

Augustine disagrees with Virgil about this issue, as he states directly at the beginning of *cura mort.* 2.3. He quotes the statement in the Aeneid that a shade cannot enter the underworld unless its body has been buried:

(3) *nec ripas datur horrendas et rauca fluenta*
transportare prius, quam sedibus ossa quierunt. (Verg. *Aen.* 6.327-8)
('He [*i.e.* Charon] may not carry them over the dreadful banks and hoarse-voiced waters until their bones have found a resting place).[10]

Augustine considers this statement an invention of poetical imagination:

(4) *Quis cor christianum inclinet his poeticis fabulosisque figmentis ...* (*cura mort.* 2.3)
('Who would win a Christian heart for these poetic inventions?')

Having rejected this pagan opinion, Augustine explains his own ideas about the meaning of burial. He considers burial as a token of humanity and, moreover, as a testimony of belief in bodily resurrection. For these reasons rather than any other, the internment of the deceased's body has to be taken care of properly. However, the Gospel teaches that the bodies of the departed and their souls are taken care of even if they have not been buried. Those deceased who, due to circumstances of war, persecution or other disasters, do not rest in a grave at all, will yet share in the resurrection of the body.

After this balanced judgment of the necessity of burial, Augustine discusses in *cura mort.* 10.12-12.15 stories about appearances of shades in a dream, asking for the burial of their bodies. The subject matter of these stories links up with the question discussed in 2.3-9.11, whether a burial is necessary for the deceased to find eternal rest. If the answer to this question is no, then what are we to think about requests for burial made by the deceased?

(5) *Narrantur uisa quaedam, quae huic disputationi non neglegendam uideantur inferre quaestionem.* (*cura mort.* 10.12)
(There are stories about visions, which seem to introduce a question into this discussion that must not be neglected).

[10] Translation Henry Rushton Fairclough / George P. Goold (Cambridge and London, 1999).

Digitized by Google

The content of this particular *quaestio* is not made explicit, but can be reconstructed on the basis of the two possible answers Augustine provides. The most obvious but wrong answer would be "these appearances are not real":

(6) *Haec si falsa esse responderimus, contra quorundam scripta fidelium et contra eorum sensus, qui talia sibi accidisse confirmant, impudenter uenire uidebimur.* (*cura mort.* 10.12)

('If I would answer that these visions are not real, I will seem to be indelicate towards the writings of certain faithful, and towards the experience of those who confirm that such things have happened to them').

The better answer is to acknowledge the appearance in itself, but not the idea that the deceased is hindered by the fact that he has not been buried.

(7) *Sed respondendum est non ideo putandum esse mortuos ista sentire, quia haec dicere uel indicare uel petere uidentur in somnis.* (*cura mort.* 10.12)

('Rather I should answer that we should not suppose the deceased to perceive this [*i.e.* not being buried] because they seem to say or mention or demand these things [*i.e.* a burial] in our dreams').

Given these answers, the implicit question must be something like: 'The shade of the deceased asks for a burial; does this request imply that the deceased himself still has feelings about the fact that he has not been buried?'

A careful reading of the introductory sentence of the third section (quotation 5) reveals that the narratives about the appearances are more relevant to the treatise as a whole than the labels of 'digression' and 'association' suggest.

The introductory sentence contains a presentative clause, *narrantur uisa quaedam*. In presentative sentences an entirely new element is introduced. The predicate is usually placed in front, followed by the subject.[11] At the beginning of the third section of *cura mort.*, the predicate *narrantur*, serving as a presentative verb, is followed by the subject *uisa quaedam*. With this noun phrase a new thematic unit is introduced, the question about the appearances. Leaving any author unmentioned, the passive predicate *narrantur* implies that stories about appearances of the departed are widespread. The new subject matter might almost be seen as an imaginary objection, which will be refuted in the following section.

The very phrasing of the introductory sentence already indicates that this new subject matter is linked closely with the foregoing discussion. This link is made explicit by the verb *inferre*, with dative constituent *huic disputationi*: the question (about the appearances) has to be introduced into the ongoing discussion about the necessity of burial. The litotes *non neglegendam* underlines Augustine's opinion that the new subject matter, dreams in which the deceased occur to demand a burial, is an important element in the treatise as a whole.

[11] See further Harm Pinkster, *Latin Syntax and Semantics* (London and New York, 1990), 183f.

Digitized by Google

Finally, the coherence between both sections is made explicit by means of a ring composition. In *cura mort.* 2.3, at the beginning of the section about the place of burial, Augustine has already made clear that a burial is not necessary for the deceased's soul to acquire rest. He rejected Virgil's *poetica figmenta* about this issue (see quotes 3 and 4). At the end of *cura mort.* 10.12 Augustine returns to Virgil's story of Aeneas in the underworld. He refers to the ghost of Palinurus waiting on the shore of the river Styx. His body lying bare on the Italian seaside, the helmsman begs Aeneas either to prepare it a proper burial or to take himself with him into Hades immediately.[12] With this reference to the Palinurus-episode Augustine at the same time winds up his discussion of the necessity of burial and takes up a new subject, dreams and visions in which both living and deceased are seen leaving a message to the dreamer. *cura mort.* 10.12 turns out to have a hinge function in the whole treatise.

Augustine accepts as a fact that people sometimes have dreams in which a deceased, like Palinurus, asks to be buried. However, anyone who assumes that therefore a deceased will not find rest before being properly buried, is according to Augustine led astray. After all, there are also examples of dreams in which living people appear. Comparing the appearances of the deceased and the living in a dream Augustine concludes that neither of them is really present to the dreamer. Therefore it is not the deceased himself who asks for a burial. On account of dreams in which a deceased asks for burial we cannot assume that a deceased definitely needs to be buried before acquiring eternal rest.

In the last dream narrative discussed in *cura mort.*, about the comatose peasant Curma being baptized, Augustine will make clear what is essential for a happy afterlife. Burial of the body is not necessary for resurrection, but baptism is necessary for the soul to enter Paradise.

5. Conclusion

In *De cura pro mortuis gerenda* the section with the narratives about dreams and visions in which both deceased and living persons appear, is connected tightly with the foregoing part of the treatise. Linguistic devices are used to make the cohesion between the two sections explicit. The third section turns out to be not a digression, but an essential element in the argumentation. It shows that dreams about the departed asking for burial do not cogently indicate that the departed have to be buried before they can attain rest. This conclusion of Augustine's constitutes the relevance of the dream narratives.

[12] *Aen.* 6.337-83.

Digitized by Google

Augustine and the Western Dimension of the Nestorian Controversy

George A. BEVAN, Kingston

On 19 November 430 the emperor Theodosius issued a *sacra* to Cyril of Alexandria and other metropolitan bishops to request their attendance at a synod to convene at Ephesus on Pentecost (7 June) of the next year.[1] In addition to the obvious eastern invitees, the emperor Theodosius issued an invitation to Augustine of Hippo to attend.[2] But unbeknownst to the emperor and his advisors Augustine had died on 28 August 430 while Hippo was besieged by Vandals. When the council finally met at Ephesus on 22 June, some two weeks after its planned opening, neither Augustine nor his metropolitan, Capreolus, could attend. In their stead a deacon of the church of Carthage, the presbyter Bessula, announced Augustine's death to the assembled bishops.[3]

Why was Augustine singled out among western bishops to attend this eastern council? The question does not admit of an easy answer and has not been raised directly in most literature on Ephesus.[4] To say that Augustine's unquestioned prestige as a doctor of the church led to his summons is anachronistic. Hippo was not a metropolitan see, Augustine was not current with the eastern christological debates, and, what is more, he barely knew Greek. It seems unlikely, in any event, that Augustine would even have attended had he lived to hear the summons. In the last years of his life Augustine spent his time, his health failing, in his library putting his literary legacy into its final shape while his city was besieged.[5] An abstruse eastern controversy over the status of a Marian epithet, *Theotokos*, would not have, on the face of it, commanded Augustine's attention.

The invitation of Augustine finds at least a partial explanation in a hitherto understudied dimension of the Nestorian controversy. It is widely accepted that

[1] *Coll. Vat.* 25, ACO I 1.1, p. 114.

[2] *Coll. Ver.* XVIII ACO I 2, p. 64.

[3] *Coll. Vat.* 61, ACO I 1.2, pp. 52-4.

[4] Joanne McWilliam, Augustine at Ephesus?, in: Marsha L. Dutton and Patrick Terrell Gray (eds.), *One Lord, One Faith, One Baptism: Studies in Christian Ecclesiality and Ecumenism in Honor of J. Robert Wright* (Grand Rapids, Michigan/Cambridge, U.K, 2006), 56-67 suggests that fundamental doctrinal sympathies between Augustine and the Antiochenes, in particular Theodore of Mopsuestia, lay behind the invitation to Ephesus. On this point cf. J.A. McGuckin, Did Augustine's Christology depend of Theodore of Mopsuestia?: *Rivista di storia e litteratura religiosa* 25 (1989) 444-57.

[5] Peter Brown, *Augustine of Hippo: a biography* (London, 2000), 431-7.

Studia Patristica XLIX, 347-352.
© Peeters Publishers, 2010.

Digitized by Google

Cyril of Alexandria, a sworn opponent of the see of Constantinople and its bishop, lured the West into the eastern controversy and antipathy towards Nestorius.[6] A dossier of incriminating sermons delivered to Rome by Cyril's deacon Posidonius in August of 430 served as the evidentiary basis for Nestorius' condemnation by a Roman synod and for Celestine's subsequent support of Cyril's machinations at Ephesus.[7] Yet the documentary evidence argues against this sequence of events and reveals instead that the West had its own reasons for condemning Nestorius, and had passed judgment even before Cyril contacted the pope.

By late in the fall of 428 the growing controversy over *Theotokos* in Constantinople had reached the monasteries of Egypt and prompted Cyril's first response.[8] Cyril's letter to the monks was followed by a brief but rancorous epistular exchange with Nestorius himself. The first reaction of Rome to Nestorius cannot so easily be tracked, but Cyril's First Letter to Nestorius, securely dated to 429, provides the crucial evidence. Cyril tells Nestorius that a Roman synod had *already* convened to condemn him for the same writings that Cyril had seen circulating among Egyptian monasteries:[9]

'But what shall I do now? Since the most pious and most God-loving Bishop of Rome, Celestine, and the most God-loving bishops with him denounced them, I must take counsel with your reverence concerning the documents which were brought here, I don't know how, as to whether at any time they are your reverence's or not.'[10]

This synod must have convened well over a year before the Roman synod of early August of 430.[11] Could Cyril have had contact with Rome even before 430 and steered the direction of this earlier meeting? When Cyril contacts pope Celestine directly about Nestorius, however, it is well into the year 430 and he claims emphatically that he has not hitherto raised the matter of Nestorius:[12]

'... But since God also demands of us warniness in these matters, and the long-standing customs of the churches persuade me to communicate with your holiness, I write of necessity revealing this, that Satan is even now turning everything topsy-turvy...

[6] Most influential was E. Schwartz, Cyril und der Mönch Viktor: *Sitzungsberichte der Akademie der Wissenschaften in Wien*, philosophisch-historische Klasse 208.4 (1928) 1-51.

[7] *Coll. U* 4, ACO I 1.7, pp. 171f., CPG 5311.

[8] *Coll. Vat.* 1 ACO I 1.1, pp. 10-23.

[9] *Coll. Vat.* 3, ACO I 1.1, pp. 23-5, CPG 5302. Cyril's Second Letter to Nestorius is dated in the acts of Chalcedon to 26 Jan. – 24 Feb. of 430 (ACO II 1, p. 104). E. Schwartz, *Konzilstudien*, Schriften der Wissenschaftlichen Gesellschaft in Strassburg 20 (Strassburg, 1914), 3f. observes the chronological significance of this passage, but does not further draw conclusions.

[10] Transl. J. McEnerney, *St. Cyril of Alexandria. Letters 1-50* (Washington D.C., 1987), 34f.

[11] *E.g.* J. Hefele and H. Leclerq, *Histoire des Conciles*, vol. 2.1 (Paris, 1908), 255-9, who conflate the synod of 429 with that of August 430. For a recent attempt to work around this chronological problem, see Bernard Green, Leo the Great and the Heresy of Nestorius: *SP* 43 (2006) 373-80.

[12] *Coll. Vat.* 144, ACO I 1.5, pp. 10-2.

Digitized by Google

Accordingly I was silent during the time past, and I have written absolutely nothing either to your reverence concerning one who is now in Constantinople and administers the church...'[13]

To claim that Cyril had already, covertly, influenced Rome through his emissaries, is to beg the question of Cyril's involvement in the West. In the absence of contradictory evidence, Cyril's statements must be accepted.

There is no direct evidence from the West of the synod referrerd to by Cyril in his First Letter to Nestorius. Its judgment, it seems, was entirely superseeded by the Roman synod that convened in August of 430 to give Cyril license to proceed against Nestorius. There survives, however, a vivid, though often neglected, work that attests to the early Roman reaction: the *De Incarnatione contra Nestorium* of John Cassian. According to the work's preface, Cassian had been commissioned by the deacon Leo, the future pope, to write a work against Nestorius.[14]At the same time, he may have provided Cassian the material to build his case: four sermons of Nestorius, a copy of Eusebius' *Contestatio*, and Nestorius' first letter to Celestine.[15] The result of Cassian's labours was a polemic that has been characterized as 'a piece of monstrous daring' in its prejudice against its target.[16] Given the severity of Cassian's condemnation of Nestorius for adoptianism and psilanthropism – that Christ was a 'mere man' and shared in the glory of the father only as an adopted son –, his judgments were not only founded upon precious little evidence, but were expressed in terms clumsy by eastern standards.[17]

The *terminus ante quem* for the *De Incarnatione* may be inferred from the translations Cassian had available to him. The texts of the four sermons he used have been conclusively proven not to be the same as those that came with Posidonius in 430.[18] Although Marius Mercator would appear a likely candidate, for he was active in the years 428 to 433 near Constantinople translating Greek ecclesiastical documents into Latin, and a close observer of the Nestorian controversy, his translations are markedly different from those used by Cassian.[19] Just where Cassian got his translations remains uncertain, but their independence from those of 430 places the inception of *De Incarnatione* in 429.

[13] Transl. McEnerney, *St. Cyril of Alexandria* (1987), 60.

[14] *De Incarn. Praef.* 1 (CSEL XVII 235) and Gennadius, *De viris illustribus* 62.

[15] E. Schwartz, *Konzilstudien* (1914), 6-13.

[16] F. Loofs, *Nestorius and his place in the history of Christian Doctrine* (Cambridge, 1914), 43.

[17] A. Grillmeier, *Christ in Christian Tradition. From the Apostolic Age to Chalcedon (451)*, Vol. 1., Second Edition, Engl. transl. John Bowden (Atlanta, 1974), 467-72, and O. Chadwick, *John Cassian* (Oxford, 1968), 146f. See D. Fairbairn, *Grace and Christology in the Early Church* (Oxford, 2003), 169-99.

[18] O. Chadwick, *John Cassian* (1968), 145.

[19] O. Chadwick, *John Cassian* (1968), 141 and 143; M.-A. Vannier, *Traité de l'Incarnation* (Paris, 1999), 30 suggests that Mercator himself may actually have been dependent on Cassian. On Mercator see E. Amann, L'affaire Nestorius vue de Rome: *RevSR* 23 (1949) 5-37 and 207-44, at 6-17.

Digitized by Google

Striking and odd in *De Incarnatione* is Cassian's apparent attempt to draw the heresy of Nestorius into the proximity of Pelagianism. After his preface outlining the circumstances that brought about the work, Cassian begins in the first book not with a consideration of Nestorius, but with the recantation of the reformed western heretic Leporius. Leporius, a Gallic monk, had put forth Pelagian views a decade earlier, but after he had been expelled from Gaul and traveled to Africa he was won over to orthodoxy by Augustine.[20] Cassian, however, deliberately misrepresents Leporius' views, which find their most accurate representation in Augustine's *Ep.* 219, in order to make them appear closer to Nestorius' by having him distinguish the natures of Christ to such an extent that the divinity abandoned the human nature at the crucifixion. By pronouncing Leporius' name alongside Nestorius' Cassian could insinuate ties with the Pelagians, ties that were then finding circumstantial proof in Nestorius' actions.[21]

Four Pelagians from the West – bishop Julian of Eclanum (an enemy of Augustine), Florus, Orontius, and Fabius – sought refuge with bishop Theodore in Mopsuestia in 423.[22] In response to Theodore's acceptance of these notorious refugees, Theodotus of Antioch communicated to Rome his condemnation of Pelagianism, which led to a split between Theodore and Theodotus.[23] Theodore, for reasons that remain unclear, turned on his guests not long before his death in 428. Although Theodore had apparently written earlier in support of Pelagius' doctrine, according to Marius Mercator, the bishop of Mopsuestia convened a local synod shortly after Julian's departure to condemn his doctrine.[24]

When the four reached the capital, they were soon joined by none other than the notorious Pelagian Caelestius.[25] This same Caelestius was soon put to work by Nestorius in the persecution of his opponents. Cyril writes to the deacon Posidonius that Nestorius had ordered Caelestius to publish pamphlets against the presbyter Philip, probably to be identified with the ecclesiastical historian and future bishop of Side, because he had refused communion with his bishop.[26] Cyril states that when Philip was called to the synod, Caelestius failed to present any substantive evidence and Philip left the council, not to return.[27]

[20] O. Chadwick, *John Cassian* (1968), 137f.

[21] L. Wickham, Pelagianism in the East, in: R. Williams (ed.), *The Making of Orthodoxy: Essays in Honour of Henry Chadwick* (Cambridge, 1989), 200-13, at 208-11.

[22] B.R. Rees, *Pelagius: a Reluctant Heretic* (Suffolk, 1988), 101.

[23] *Coll. Pal.* 14, ACO I 5, p. 19:25-8.

[24] *Coll. Pal.* 15, ACO I 5, p. 23:23-5.

[25] Nestorius to Caelestius: *Coll. Pal.* 35, ACO I 5, p. 65. For discussion of these prominent Pelagians in Constantinople, see M. Lamberigts, Les évêques pélagiens déposés: Nestorius et Éphèse: *Augustiniana* 35 (1985) 264-80.

[26] ACO I 1.7, pp. 171:31-172:8. See also L. Wickham, *Cyril of Alexandria. Select Letters* (Oxford, 1983), 15, n. 4.

[27] Cyril *Ep.* 11a, ACO I 1.7, p. 171:31-3.

Digitized by Google

Caelestius, under Nestorius' commission, turned to other clerics present with the charge that they had been celebrating rival masses in private houses. When they responded that they had done this because of Nestorius' heresy, the synod resolved to remove Philip, their ringleader, from the priesthood.

Though Nestorius gave the Pelagians hospitality, he must have realized the potential for scandal. The example of John Chrysostom's welcoming of the Tall Brothers from Egypt three decades earlier, and the great antagonism with the see of Alexandria that resulted must have bulked large in the new bishop's thinking. Nestorius wasted no time in soliciting Celestine's opinion in the matter and wrote to the pope to request information about Pelagianism so as to have some grounds for judging their case late in 428 or early in 429.[28]

No quick answer was forthcoming from the West, but not for want of trying, as Nestorius would send a second letter, again with no response.[29] When at last the pope replied in August of 430 to a third letter, he tried to extenuate his failure to respond by claiming a lack of qualified translators to render Nestorius' Greek into Latin, although it is hardly credible that such a process would have taken more than a couple of months. In reality, Celestine had turned against Nestorius well over a year earlier for his apparent support of the Pelagian heresy, a perception that John Cassian had only reinforced in *De Incarnatione*. Moreover, unlike Cyril in the same year, the pope and his synod in 429 did not diplomatically pretend to be in doubt as to the authorship of the documents sent from the East. Cassian and pope Celestine seemed willing to pursue a case against Nestorius by name from a very early date.

A confluence of Eastern and Western interests was realized at Ephesus. The Roman delegates – Arcadius, Projectus and the presbyter Philip – arrived at Ephesus in early July.[30] At the fifth session (17 July) Cyril and his synod resolved to exclude John and thirty-three other bishops from any ecclesiastical jurisdiction and the fellowship of the church.[31] As a clear gesture to the West, Cyril also marked out the followers of Caelestius and Pelagius for condemnation.[32] When the seventh and last session of the council of Ephesus convened on 31 July, Pelagianism was explicitly condemned as a heresy, the first time at an eastern council.[33] That all of these measures would have pleased the absent Celestine Cyril was very well aware. As Augustine's *Ep.* 4* to Cyril has shown,

[28] *Coll. Ver.* 3, ACO I 2, pp. 12-4. See also J. Speigl, Der Pelagianismus auf dem Konzil von Ephesus: *Annuarium Historiae Conciliorum* 1 (1969) 1-14, at 7f. E. Schwartz, *Konzilstudien* (1914), 17, claims Nestorius 'poured oil on the fire' by sending the letters.

[29] Second Letter to Celestine, *Coll. Ver.* 4, ACO I 2, pp. 14f. Third Letter to Celestine: *Coll. Pal.* 55, ACO I 5, p. 182, dated to the summer of 430.

[30] *Coll. Vat.* 106, ACO I 1.3, pp. 53-63.

[31] *Coll. Vat.* 90, ACO I 1.3, pp. 24f. Cyril's own personal statement of orthodoxy at the same session also condemns Pelagius and Caelestius by name (ACO I 1.3, p. 22).

[32] *Coll. Vat.* 90, ACO I 1.3, pp. 24f.

[33] *Coll. Vat.* 81, ACO I 1.7, pp. 118-22, and ACO I 1.3, p. 9: 14-8.

Digitized by Google

Cyril was far from ignorant of the importance of Pelagianism in the West and that he must have had more than a passing acquaintance with the doctrinal issues at stake.[34]

The invitation to Augustine must be explained in terms of the obvious western alarm over Pelagianism in Constantinople. It is clear from Cassian's work and the Roman synod of 429 that well before Cyril's diplomatic *démarche* of 430 Rome was perturbed about Nestorius, not only for what his sermons contained but for his acceptance of notorious Pelagians in the capital. Cyril, already aware of the importance of Pelagianism, saw an existing opportunity and capitalized on it. From the perspective of Nestorius and his patron Theodosius the best way to put a wedge between Rome and Alexandria would have been to clear the bishop from any suspicion of Pelagian sympathies. It was Augustine of Hippo who had the gravitas to do just this. Though it is impossible to speculate on just what would have transpired had Augustine attended Ephesus, the fact that the papal envoys and the Carthaginian presbyter all sided with the Cyrillians, strongly suggest that his presence would not have availed Nestorius. While Nestorius might have been cleared of the taint of Pelagianism – his beliefs on original sin were orthodox –, Augustine would not have helped Nestorius against the charges that he rejected *Theotokos*, an appellation that he, like most westerners, would have accepted largely without question.[35]

[34] J. Divjak (ed.), *Sancti Aureli Augustini Opera*, CSEL 88 (Vienna, 1981), 26-9. See also L. Wickham, Pelagianism in the East (1989), 202f., and Geoffrey D. Dunn, Augustine, Cyril of Alexandria, and the Pelagian Controversy: *Augustinian Studies* 37 (2006) 63-88.

[35] While Augustine did not use the exact Latin equivalent of *Theotokos*, *Dei genetrix*, in his own writings he did accept that God was born to a woman. On this point, with references, see Philip L. Barclift, The Shifting Tones of Pope Leo the Great's Christological Vocabulary: *Church History* 66 (1997) 221-39, at 224, n. 9.

Digitized by Google

A Reinterpretation of Prosper of Aquitaine's Theological Development

Alexander Y. HWANG, St. Louis, Missouri

The importance of Prosper of Aquitaine for the history of dogma – his defense and interpretation of Augustine's doctrine of grace – and for early medieval historiography – his continuation of Jerome's chronicle to 455 – have long been acknowledged by both historians and theologians; however, the limited scholarship exclusively devoted to Prosper has not reflected his importance.[1] Prosper has also suffered from a too narrow understanding of his theological development, which views his development exclusively in terms of his relationship with Augustinianism.

This workshop on Prosper will help address the lack of scholarly attention and, hopefully, draw others to the study of the neglected saint. This paper will address the traditional view of Prosper's theological development, which views Prosper as an enthusiastic follower of Augustine who over time moved away from the more controversial elements of Augustine's later views on grace.[2] Although Prosper's relationship with Augustinianism is significant, it is subordinate to Prosper's primary identification as a disciple and defender of the Church. When viewing Prosper's whole life, it is not Augustinianism, but his dedication to the Church that is at the center of his life and works. Prosper's theological development must be seen primarily through his evolving ecclesiology, in which his relationship with Augustinianism comprises but a stage in that development.

Prosper's theological development is marked by his evolving understanding of the Church. There are five stages in this development. First, Prosper initially had a very limited understanding of the Church. Second, came a period of study and encounter with south Gallic monasticism, Augustine, and the Church. Third, as a result, Prosper naively assumed Augustine represented the catholic

[1] Since the twentieth century only three books on Prosper have been published: L. Valentin, *Saint Prosper d'Aquitaine: Étude sur la littérature latine ecclésiastique au cinquième siècle en Gaule* (Paris, 1900); Lionello Pelland, *S. Prosperi Aquitani doctrina de predestinatione et voluntate Dei salvifica* (Montreal, 1936) [written in Latin]; Arturo Elberti, *Prospero d'Aquitania: Teologo e Discepolo* (Rome, 1999); see now: Alexander Hwang, *Prosper of Aquitaine: A Study of His Life and Works*, Ph.D. diss., Fordham University (2007).

[2] This view of Prosper's theological development into a tripartite division was first established by D. Cappuyns, Le premier représentant de l'augustinisme médiéval, Prosper d'Aquitaine: *RTAM* 1 (1929) 309-37.

Studia Patristica XLIX, 353-367.
© Peeters Publishers, 2010.

Digitized by Google

Church's view and defended him accordingly. Fourth, Prosper's understanding of the catholic Church then became increasingly identified with the Roman Church and Prosper attempted to synthesize Augustine's doctrine to conform to his emerging appreciation of the Roman Church. Fifth, the final stage in his development, Prosper identifies the Roman Church as the authoritative center of the catholic Church. Thus, Prosper's final position on the question of grace is that of the Roman Church – the pronouncements of its popes and its liturgical practices.

Uninformed Christian

Prosper was born around 388 into the Gallo-Roman aristocracy in Aquitaine. He received the benefits associated with his class and region, including the finest education available in the West. The barbarian invasions of Gaul, beginning in 406, forced Prosper to relocate to Marseilles, around 415, and it was shortly afterward that he wrote his first known work, *De providentia Dei*.[3]

Prosper wrote *De providentia Dei* to assure the exiled community of God's existence, power, goodness, and care. *De providentia Dei* contains his initial view of grace, but also, more importantly, his general view of theology in relation to the Church. The poem does not draw significantly from other sources, save Scripture, and there is no evidence of Augustine's influence in the poem. The work is primarily Prosper's own theological expression, guided entirely by his own interpretation of contemporary events and Scripture.

Prosper's understanding of grace is dominated by his emphasis on human free will. God's grace is relegated to a secondary role in the order of salvation. Salvation is the result of human decision, followed by the movement of God. Salvation achieved, there appears to be a cooperating grace, in which human wills and grace are enjoined.[4] There is also a sense of the universality of salvation, that is, the light of God's illumination and offer of salvation are given to all, equally.

Prosper's view of the human will is extremely optimistic, but still within the acceptable limits of the prevailing theological views of southern Gaul and most of the Church. Prosper's view of the order of salvation is none other than the *initium fidei*, a chief characteristic among certain ascetic circles in southern Gaul, which places the beginning of faith as a purely human act, without the aid of God.[5] The idea of cooperating grace and the theme of universal salvation

[3] *De providentia Dei* [Critical edition and facing translation], see *Prosper of Aquitaine, De providentia Dei: Text, Translation and Commentary*, transl. and ed. Miroslav Marcovich, SVigChr 10 (Leiden and New York, 1989).

[4] *De prov. Dei* 12 (64-5 Marcovich).

[5] For a summary of the term, see Marianne Djuth's article, Initium Fidei, in: *Augustine through the Ages: An Encyclopedia*, ed. Allan Fitzgerald (Grand Rapids, 1999), 447-51.

Digitized by Google

are also common elements found among these same circles. That Prosper shared these views can hardly suggest a direct influence, since Prosper had been in Marseilles only a very short time before writing the poem. Rather, these ideas were, at the least, uncontroversial for most of the Church. In general, in its moderate form, the optimistic view of human nature and ability, along with God's desire to save all of humanity, appear to be the norm. It was not until Augustine and his small faction began to present a much different view of grace that these assumptions began to be questioned. Prosper's general view of grace in *De providentia Dei* merely reflected what Prosper and most of the Church assumed to be true about the relationship between God's grace and human free will.

Noticeably absent from the work are any explicit appeals or references to Church pronouncements or authorities besides Scripture. Prosper's theological method consisted of joining past events with perceived relevant scriptural passages. Prosper never explicitly mentioned a theologian, theological work, Church council or synod, or Rome anywhere in *De providentia Dei*. Most telling of all is the absence of the word *ecclesia*, be it in regards to the local or universal church, from the work. *De providentia Dei* is a theological work that attempted to explain God's actions without regard to the Church – its traditions or its theologians. Prosper wrote as a Christian certainly, but as an 'independent' Christian with no sense of belonging to or appreciating the Church and its role in theology.

Period of study and encounter with south Gallic monasticism, Augustine, and the Church

After *De providentia Dei*, Prosper's next work was written nearly a decade later. Although much of his life during these years remains a mystery, the writings that follow this period indicate that Prosper underwent a radical and lasting religious transformation: he became a catholic Christian. From this period on, Prosper will identify himself with the Church, broadly defined at this point, and seek only to defend her views and judgments.

In this decade of a long period of literary silence, Prosper was exposed to the three most significant influences in his life: Augustine, the anti-Augustine ascetic circles in and around Marseilles, and a sense of a catholic Church. Prosper came into contact with these influences in the context of the Pelagian controversy. Prosper was an observer of the controversy, participating in the intellectual discussions while reading, discussing, and reflecting on the issues involved in the conflict.

It is in this context that Prosper became enamored of the old bishop, as many will in the history of the Church, at the same time he formed his understanding of the Church. Augustine was leading the Church's fight against Pelagianism and, in this context, Augustine could be easily mistaken as a universally acclaimed

Digitized by Google

authority of the catholic Church. Thus, Prosper's initial understanding of the Church was directly connected with Augustine. Prosper, unlike most of his fellow ascetics, was fully convinced about two related points: the correctness and authority of Augustine *in toto* and the catholicity of Augustine's doctrine of predestination.

The general view of the ascetics in and around Marseilles was that the Pelagians were clearly in error. With regards to Augustine, they held him in respect, and sided with Augustine in so far as he represented the Church's condemnation of Pelagianism. It was on Augustine's doctrine of predestination that many of the Gauls parted company.[6] There were several levels of reactions to Augustine's doctrine of predestination in Provence, not one unified voice of opposition as has been traditionally maintained. There were some who zealously admired and defended Augustine and his doctrine, some who became convinced in the course of discussions, and then there were those opposed to the doctrine.[7] This last group was the largest and consisted of three varying levels of opposition: those adamant in their opposition, those who simply followed the opinions of the powerful and respected ascetics, and those who raised objections, but wished to remain silent on such a great mystery.[8] In general, their opposition to the doctrine of predestination was essentially centered on three objections – it was novel, fatalistic, and removed free will – all of which seemed to undermine their monastic program.[9]

During this period, those who opposed Augustine's doctrine remained rather unconcerned, if not unimpressed. Apart from Cassian's rather benign rebuttal in the *De institutis*, the discussions on Augustine's doctrine in Provence were restricted to debates within and among the various ascetic circles.[10] Those who opposed Augustine's doctrine of grace – bishops and other ecclesiastics, as well as monks – appear to have been secure enough in their positions and tradition to tolerate Augustine and his supporters in Provence, while engaging with them and among themselves in a lively, but still restrained, oral debate, at least for the moment.

[6] Mathisen has gone so far as to describe the Gallic view of Augustine as 'schizophrenic' (Ralph Mathisen, *Ecclesiastical Factionalism in Fifth-Century Gaul* [Washington, 1989], 124).

[7] Prosper, *Ep. ad Rufinum* (PL 51, 79).

[8] For the various reactions against Augustine's doctrine of predestination, see Prosper, *Ep.* 225.2-4 (CSEL 57, 456, 459, 460); Hilary, *Ep.* 226.8 (CSEL 57, 478).

[9] *Ep. ad Rufinum* 3 (PL 51, 79); *id.*, *Ep.* 225.2 (CSEL 57, 455); Hilary, *Ep.* 226.2 (CSEL 57, 469).

[10] Knowing that his monks were being exposed to two opposing views, equally in error in his opinion, Cassian informed them of the proper view on grace and free will, but in a limited and cursory manner. Cassian approached the problem of grace and free will from a different perspective than the Pelagians or Augustine, who saw the issue as either grace or free will. Instead, Cassian believed it was grace and free will – a relationship of cooperation between the two. John Cassian, *De institutis coenobiorum* (CSEL 17, 3-231). On Cassian's prior knowledge of the pro-Augustine faction in Marseilles to the writing of *De institutis*, see Columba Stewart, *Cassian the Monk* (New York, 1998), 79.

Digitized by Google

Commitment to the Catholic Church, broadly defined, and defense of Augustine

Prosper emerged from this 'study' period as a committed member of the catholic Church, broadly defined, which included the churches of the East and West. Prosper interpreted the opposition to Augustine's doctrine of predestination as a new form of Pelagianism and proceeded to defend Augustine's doctrine based on his assumptions about Augustine's authority and the catholicity of his doctrine.[11] Thus, in Prosper's mind, he was defending the Church against the assaults of a new form of Pelagianism.

The restrained debate perhaps would have remained so had it not been for an unrelated series of events in a little known monastery in North Africa – Hadrumetum.[12] Augustine's doctrine of grace caused a disturbance in the monastery and Augustine seemed to have resolved the situation with two works, *De correptione et gratia* and *De gratia et libero arbitrio*.[13] The two works may have settled the controversy among the monks of Hadrumetum, but the works had the opposite effect in Provence. The furious reaction over these two works in Provence caused Prosper and Hilary, another member of the pro-Augustine party, to appeal to Augustine for assistance.[14]

Prosper's letter to Augustine and his *Carmen de ingratis*, written while he waited for a response from Augustine, reflects his fidelity to Augustine and his teaching on grace. Prosper assumed Augustine was synonymous with authority and orthodoxy – that Augustine's doctrines were the expressions of the catholic Church:

> Augustine also, at the time the first and foremost among the bishops of the Lord. ... Among many other divine gifts showered on him by the Spirit of truth, he excelled particularly in the gifts of knowledge and wisdom flowing from his love of God, which enabled him to slay with the unconquerable sword of the word. ... Resplendent with the glory of so many palms and so many crowns which he gained for the exaltation of the Church and the glory of Christ. ... The greatest man in the Church today.[15]

Prosper must have been surprised, if not disappointed, by Augustine's response to his letter in *De praed. sanct.* and *perseu.*[16]. According to Augustine, Prosper's enemies were not enemies at all, but rather 'brothers' in the faith, and not at all related to the Pelagians. These 'brothers' were in error, but could be easily

[11] Prosper, *Ep.* 225.4, 7 (CSEL 57, 460, 465).

[12] Hadrumetum (modern day Sousse, Tunisia) was a small coastal town about 120 km south of Carthage and about 300 km to the east of Hippo. See Rebecca Harden Weaver, art. Hadrumetum, in: *Augustine through the Ages* (1999), 411f.

[13] Augustine, *corrept.* (CSEL 92, 219-80); *id., gr. et lib. arb.* (PL 44, 881-912).

[14] Prosper, *Ep.* 225 (CSEL 57, 454-68); Hilary, *Ep.* 226 (CSEL 57, 468-81).

[15] Prosper, *Ep. ad Rufinum* 3, 18 (PL 51, 78-79, 89; *Letter to Rufinus* in *Defense of St. Augustine*, transl. P. de Letter, ACW 32 [Westminster MD, 1963], 23, 36).

[16] Augustine, *De praed. sanct.* (PL 44, 959-92); *id., perseu.* (PL 45, 993-1034).

Digitized by Google

corrected. The error of these brothers stemmed from them not having read Augustine's books carefully enough to have progressed along with him in the understanding of predestination, or not having read his books to begin with.[17] Augustine acknowledges that these brothers have progressed in the truth, but not enough. Augustine's goal is to correct them so that they will be able to progress to the truth of predestination and perseverance. It proved a spectacular failure. The treatise did not persuade the brothers, but, in fact, provided the occasion for even further and more serious disagreements – literary responses.

Augustine's involvement in the affair came to an end with his death in 430, which left Prosper with the daunting task of defending Augustine's doctrine of predestination against these brothers and others beyond the monastic confines of Marseilles. The debate became increasingly polemical, with each side caricaturing the views of the other, as well as branding one another with the charge of heresy.

After the death of Augustine, two priests, Camillus and Theodore, wrote to Prosper seeking clarification on some passages from Augustine's *praed. sanct.* and *perseu.*. Prosper responded to their request with *Pro Augustino responsiones ad excerpta Genuensium*.[18]

Prosper answered the two priests, faithfully reiterating Augustine's arguments made in *praed. sanct.* and *perseu.*. Prosper's response demonstrates his absolute endorsement of and fidelity to Augustine's doctrine of predestination. For Prosper, Augustine's doctrine of predestination was catholic and sensible, and thus one is either with Augustine and the Church or with the Pelagians.

Prosper and Hilary then turned their attention to the increasingly volatile situation at home. Although their opponents in Marseilles had yet to produce a direct literary response, they sensed the need for a papal decision on this contentious matter. While they were warmly received by Pope Celestine, Celestine's response was far from what they had hoped for.

In response to Prosper's and Hilary's appeal, in May of 431, Celestine wrote a letter to the bishops of Gaul, commonly known as the *Apostolici verba*.[19] Celestine was no more convinced than Augustine was that the opponents of Augustine were Pelagians. Celestine refused to take sides in any definitive way and only provides a general defense of Augustine.[20]

Prosper's and Hilary's appeal, like their appeal to Augustine, failed to convince the pope that the opponents of Augustine were Pelagians. They had gone to Rome with the belief that Augustine's doctrine of grace would be affirmed as catholic and his opponents as Pelagian, yet they were effectively told otherwise. Rome could not affirm Prosper's and Hilary's theological *raison d'être*.

[17] *praed. sanct.* 4.8 (PL 44, 965-6).

[18] *Pro Augustino responsiones ad excerpta Genuensium* (PL 51, 187-202).

[19] Celestine, *Epistola* 21, *ad episcopos Galliarum* [*Apostolici verba*] 1 (PL 50, 528).

[20] Celestine, *Ep.* 21.3 (PL 50, 530): *Unde resistatur talibus, quos male crescere videmus*?

Digitized by Google

The effect of the trip to Rome on Prosper has been given too little attention. What did Prosper witness in Rome? While the West was adjusting to the new and often times traumatic circumstances brought about by the collapse of imperial authority, the Roman Church, as Brown puts it, 'stood for a sense of order and for a width of horizons, stretching even beyond the frontiers of the Roman Empire, which seemed to make the bishops of Rome, as successors of Peter and Paul, the true heirs of a Roman world order'.[21] Rome conveyed the sense of catholicity – permanence, stability, tradition, and authority – which stood in sharp contrast to the Church of Gaul. 'Or l'atmosphère religieuse de Rome n'offrait rien de semblable à l'effervescence théologique de la Gaule méridionale. Rome n'aimait pas la controverse; son role était de juger les doctrines, non de les discuter.'[22]

Prosper would continue to defend Augustine, but his original convictions about the authority of Augustine and the catholicity of his doctrine of grace increasingly diminishes after that trip to Rome. The seeds of Prosper's growing identification of catholicity with the Church of Rome, and the reevaluation of Augustine's authority and the catholicity of his teaching on grace were sown during that visit.

Growing appreciation of the Roman Church and initial break with Augustinianism

Prosper's arrival back to Marseilles marks the beginning of a series of responses to the growing literary criticisms to Augustine's doctrine of predestination. Prosper will continue to defend Augustine, but with some significant alterations.

In response to Cassian's *Conlatio* 13, Prosper writes the *Contra collatorem*.[23] There are two changes evident: prominence placed on the Roman pontiffs and the manner in which Augustine and his doctrine are defended.

Prosper had earlier claimed Augustine as the chief defender of the catholic faith against the Pelagians, but now it was the Roman pontiffs who were the principle figures in the fight against Pelagianism.[24] According to Prosper's new view, Augustine's role in the conflict was limited, restricted to that of a spokesman for the Roman pontiffs, reflecting the views of the pontiffs. Thus, Augustine should not be attacked because he reflected the views already established by the Roman pontiffs.

[21] Peter Brown, *The Rise of Western Christendom: Triumph and Diversity, A.D. 200-1000* (Oxford, ²2003), 114f.

[22] D. Cappuyns, Le premier représentant (1929), 326.

[23] *De gratia Dei et libero arbitrio liber contra collatorem* (PL 51, 213-76).

[24] *Contra collatorem* 21.1-2 (PL 51, 271).

Digitized by Google

Throughout the treatise Prosper remains consistent with Augustine's view of anthropology and the general relationship between grace and human free will, but he does not go any further. The discussion of predestination is uncharacteristically absent. It is the earliest work in which Prosper does not argue for predestination, after embracing Augustine, terms that were so consistently and zealously defended in his previous works.[25]

Further instance of a movement away from Augustine is the absence of Augustine's name in a short work composed of a little more than two dozen lines entitled *Epitaphium Nestorianae et Pelagianae haereseon*, written sometime after 431, but before 433.[26] In condemning the two heresies, and in linking the Nestorian to the Pelagian heresy, Prosper does not include any mention of Augustine. If, as asserted by Le Brun and Mangeant, Prosper had his Gallic opponents in mind, the absence of Augustine's name is significant.[27] In condemning, indirectly, his Gallic opponents, Prosper thought it unnecessary to appeal to Augustine.

In 433, Prosper wrote the first edition of his *Epitoma Chronicon*.[28] Augustine's place in the *Chronicon* reflects Prosper's diminished estimation of Augustine. Augustine's elevation to bishop is noted under the year 395: 'Augustine, the disciple of the blessed Ambrose and eminent in eloquence and learning, was made bishop at Hippo in Africa', and his role in the condemnation of the Pelagians under the year 416: 'At this time the Pelagians, already condemned by Pope Innocent, were resisted by the diligence of the Africans and especially by the knowledge of Bishop Augustine'.[29] The last entry is listed under the year 430:

'Aurelius Augustine, a bishop most outstanding in every respect, died 28 August. In his very last days he was responding to the books of Julian [of Eclanum] amidst the attacks of besieging Vandals and persevering gloriously in defense of Christian grace.'[30]

Although the mention of Augustine is necessary limited by such a short work, the absence of any mention of the conflict in Gaul is alarming. Neither Cassian nor any of the persons associated with opposing Augustine in Gaul are mentioned. Prosper was in the middle of a heated battle with well known Gauls over Augustine's teaching on grace, yet Prosper fails to include this information.

[25] O. Chadwick, *John Cassian: A Study in Primitive Monasticism* (Cambridge, ²1968), 134.

[26] *Epitaphium Nestorianae et Pelagianae haereseon* (PL 51, 153-4); Muhlberger, *Fifth-Century Chroniclers: Prosper, Hydatius, and the Gallic Chronicler of 452* (Leeds, 1990), 85, no. 77, places the date of the work shortly before the first edition of Prosper's *Chronicon*, 433.

[27] J.B. Le Brun des Marettes and Luc Urbain Mangeant, *Epitaphium Nestorianae et Pelagianae haereseon* (PL 51, 153a).

[28] *Epitoma Chronicon* (MGH, AA 9, 385-499). There were at least four versions that Prosper produced between 433 and 455; see Muhlberger, *Fifth-Century Chroniclers* (1990), 56.

[29] *Epitoma Chronicon*, sub ann. 395, 416 (MGH, AA 9, 463, 468).

[30] *Epitoma Chronicon*, sub an. 430 (MGH, AA 9, 473).

Digitized by Google

The omission seems to indicate, at the very least, Prosper's wavering estimation of the catholicity of Augustine's doctrine of predestination. Moreover, Prosper now maintains that Pope Innocent had condemned Pelagianism prior to Augustine's anti-Pelagian campaign.

Prosper has restricted Augustine's teachings on grace to the Pelagian conflict. Prosper's primary concern is the theological and disciplinary authority of the Apostolic See in the struggle against heresy.[31] In the larger struggle, Augustine was a contributor, but not the decisive voice or authority in the fight against Pelagianism.

The once zealous defender of Augustine took even further steps away from Augustine in his last two works of this period, *Responsiones ad capitula obiectionum Gallorum calumniantium* and *Responsiones ad capitula obiectionum Vincentiarum*.[32] There are two significant changes evident in the two works: the presentation of predestination and the nature of the defense of Augustine.

In both works, Prosper adds an element foreign to Augustine's predestination, which Augustine and Prosper had condemned: non-predestination based on God's foreknowledge.[33] Prosper maintains the Augustinian view of predestination to salvation, but introduces the view that God's withholding of predestination is based on foreknowledge. The reason God does not predestine someone is because God foreknew that the person would lead an evil life.[34]

It is unclear what Prosper's intention was in presenting this innovative view under the teaching of Augustine. Given Prosper's familiarity with Augustine's teaching, it is impossible that he genuinely believed that Augustine held this position. Perhaps Prosper was reinterpreting Augustine's teaching to conform to his own developing understanding of catholicity.

In addition to the doctrinal change, the description and defense of Augustine in *Responsiones ad capitula obiectionum Gallorum calumniantium* are significantly toned down – Augustine is mentioned in the preface without the characteristic zeal, and his connection to and endorsement by the apostolic tradition are absent. *Responsiones ad capitula obiectionum Vincentiarum* does not contain any mention of Augustine at all, seeking only to rely on the authority of the Apostolic See.

In the course of his struggle against his opponents, Prosper has moved away from a strict adherence to Augustine toward what has become more certain: the catholic position, as defined by the Roman Church.

[31] S. Muhlberger, *Fifth-Century Chroniclers* (1990), 86.

[32] *Pro Augustino responsiones ad capitula obiectionum Vincentiarum* (PL 51, 177-86); *Pro Augustino responsiones ad capitula obiectionum Gallorum calumniantium* (PL 51, 155-74).

[33] See Aug., *praed. sanct.* 13.25 (PL 44, 978-9); *Contra collatorem* 21.3 (PL 51, 272).

[34] *Res. Gall.* 1.2, 1.3 (PL 51, 158-9); *Res. Vinc.* 12 (PL 51, 184).

Digitized by Google

Full awareness, appreciation, and defense of the Roman Church

With Cassian's death around 435, Prosper enters a second period of literary inactivity, in which he reexamines his understanding of catholicity and Augustine. As a result, Prosper will no longer defend the doctrine of predestination or even mention the word *praedestinatio*. By the beginning of the next period in his life, 440-55, Prosper restricts his defense exclusively to the Roman Church.

When Prosper next emerges in 440, he would find himself under the peaceful theological sky of Rome in the service of the Roman Church, when he moved to Rome to serve as an advisor to the newly elected Pope Leo. Once there, Prosper quickly assimilated into the Roman Church. Prosper was convinced that Augustine's authority and doctrine of grace were not the measure of catholicity; however, Prosper could not completely abandon his old master, but whereas he had attempted to conform the catholic faith to Augustine in the past, he now attempted to conform Augustine to the catholic faith – as expressed by the Roman Church.

There are three significant works during this period that reveal his fidelity to the Roman Church: *Liber sententiarum ex operibus sancti Augustini delibatarum*, the 455 edition of the *Chronicon*, and the *Praeteritorum episcoporum sedis apostolicae auctoritates de gratia Dei et libero voluntatis arbitrio*.[35]

The *Liber sententiarum* is composed of three hundred and ninety two brief statements primarily drawn from Augustine's works.[36] Prosper remains faithful in general to Augustine's thoughts on grace.[37] However, although he includes Augustine's expressions on foreknowledge, perseverance, and the priority of grace to good works, there is nothing on predestination.[38] And the characteristic polemical tone of his expressions on grace are absent, replaced by 'l'amour du prochain, du pardon, de la patience'.[39] According to Prosper, Augustine's thoughts are summarized in these works, but in truth they are in strict accordance to Prosper's perceived catholic faith. The reason for Prosper's summary of Augustine's thoughts was because Prosper wanted to present the 'correct' view of Augustine against the claims of his opponents and of those who blindly followed Augustine *in toto*. The work protected Augustine's memory from the

[35] *Liber sententiarum ex operibus sancti Augustini delibatarum* (CChr.SL 68A, 257-365); *Praeteritorum episcoporum sedis apostolicae auctoritates de gratia Dei et libero voluntatis arbitrio* (PL 51, 205-12; 67, 270-4).

[36] For the sources, see P. Callens, 'Index Auctorum' (CChr.SL 68A, 385). On the Augustinianism of the *Liber sententiarum*, see L. Valentin, *Saint Prosper d'Aquitaine* (1900), 350-63; L. Pelland, *S. Prosperi Aquitani doctrina* (1936), 80f., 91, 98.

[37] *Liber sententiarum* 22, 45, 124, 126, 131, 152, 226, 293, 299, 310, 314, 318, 325, 340, 378, 383 (CChr.SL 68A, 262, 268, 285, 286, 292, 310, 329, 331, 334, 335, 337, 339, 344, 358, 360).

[38] Foreknowledge: *sent.* 293, 383 (CChr.SL 68A, 329, 360); perseverance: *sent.* 131, 235 (CChr.SL 68A, 286, 312); priority of grace to good works: *sent.* 22, 56, 260, 299, 310, 340 (CChr.SL 68A, 262, 272, 317, 331, 334, 344).

[39] L. Valentin, *Saint Prosper d'Aquitaine* (1900), 367.

Digitized by Google

charge of heresy, and also served as a deterrent for naïve followers enthralled by the bishop, as he had been, not to follow Augustine's teachings beyond what Prosper deemed the acceptable catholic limits. This was how Augustine's teachings were to be understood, this was the version of Augustine that was acceptable to the Church.

Prosper wrote the *Praeteritorum episcoporum sedis apostolicae auctoritates de gratia Dei et libero voluntatis arbitrio*, between 450 and 455.[40] He appended the work to Celestine's letter (May, 431), the *Apostolici verba*, which then passed in tradition as one decree.[41] The theology of the *Auctoritates* and Prosper's purpose for appending the work to Celestine's letter reveals Prosper's final position on grace, reflecting the conclusion to his doctrinal development. According to Prosper, it is the Church, properly interpreting Scripture through the teaching of the Apostolic See and the liturgical practices of the Church, which defines catholic grace. Prosper submits completely to the authority of the Roman Church in the *Auctoritates*, and by his deliberate and bold action of appending the work to an earlier letter, Prosper rewrites the history of the conflict, making it appear that the Roman Church made a definitive pronouncement on the catholic view of grace as early as 431.[42]

Prosper provides a summary of what catholics are to believe concerning grace.[43] Prosper's summary of the catholic view on grace is selective, but systematic, revealing what he considers to be catholic. For Prosper, the catholic doctrine of grace is expressed in what the Apostolic See proclaimed and what the Church practices in its liturgy, consistent with Scripture.

Prosper's theology of grace can be reduced to the belief in the priority of and the absolute need for God's grace to accomplish anything good, and that free will is set free in order that it may cooperate with God's grace. The issues related to God's discrimination – predestination, election, foreknowledge, and the like – are not included in Prosper's definition of grace. Prosper sees no need to explore or even reiterate these 'more profound' and 'more difficult' questions.[44] What is

[40] Prosper, *Auctoritates* (PL 51, 205-12).

[41] Celestine, *Epistola* 21 (PL 50, 528). See Dionysius Exiguus, *Decreta Coelestini papae* 1-2 [*Apostolici verba*], 3-13 [*Auctoritates*] (PL 67, 267-74).

[42] The argument for this claim comes from the fact that beginning of the *Auctoritates* details, in present language, the criticisms directed at Augustine and his supporters by their – implied – Gallic opponents, which is the very context of the *Apostolici verba*. Moreover, there is a smooth and logical transition from the ending of the *Apostolici verba* and the beginning of the *Auctoritates*. The *Apostolici verba* ends with an affirmation of Augustine's Catholic standing, and it is the challenge to this affirmation that is detailed in the beginning of the *Auctoritates*. The strongest argument for the work to be seen as a deliberate attempt to be passed on as Celestine's is that the documents cited in the *Auctoritates* are from pontificates that predate Celestine's: the pontificates of Innocent (401-17) and Zosimus (417-8).

[43] *Auctoritates*, Praef. (PL 51, 205-6).

[44] *Auctoritates* 10 (PL 51, 211): *Profundiores vero difficilioresque partes incurrentium quaestionum, quas latius pertractarunt qui haereticis restiterunt. Sicut non audemus contemnere, ita non necesse habemus astruere.*

Digitized by Google

essential for the proper understanding of the catholic view on grace is what is contained in this document.[45] Thus, according to Prosper, the catholic view of grace need only express the priority of and absolute need for God's grace to do good, and the cooperation of the redeemed free will with God's grace.

Prosper's commitment to the Roman Church is also evident in the importance he places on liturgy. When Prosper addresses the controversial text of *1Tim.* 2:4, he approaches it from the perspective of liturgy. The catholic understanding of God's universal salvific will in *1Tim.* 2:4 is expressed by the prayer of the Church: the 'Prayers of the Faithful'.[46] Prosper may have had found the inspiration from Augustine's reference to the Church's prayer.[47] However, whereas Augustine used the 'Prayers of the Faithful' in support of his doctrine of grace, Prosper uses the prayers in support of his doctrine of the Church. Since the Church prays for the salvation of all people, *ut lex supplicandi statuat legem credendi.*[48] It is the 'law of supplication' that determines the 'law of believing', thus the theological controversy over the interpretation of this text has been settled by the practice of the Church.

Prosper also refers to another practice of the Church, the rite of baptism, as further proof of the redeeming power of Christ.[49] The Apostolic decrees and the Church's liturgical practices represent the *ecclesiasticae regulae.*[50] Together with Scripture, these two reveal Prosper's understanding of the catholic faith on grace. Prosper's ecclesiology determines Prosper's theology of grace. In its composition and intent, the *Auctoritates* bear witness to Prosper's overriding ecclesiological concerns.

Prosper's understanding of grace evolved as he increasingly came to understand the Church to be the Roman Church. Prosper had always sought to reflect the Church's views in his writings on grace, and it was only toward the end of his life that he concluded the Church was the Roman Church. The laws of the Church – apostolic decrees and Church practices – and Scripture are the only and sufficient expressions of the Catholic faith on the issue of grace.

[45] *Auctoritates* 10 (PL 51, 212).

[46] See above.

[47] Augustine had referred to this prayer in a few places, including *perseu.* 23.63-64 (PL 45, 1031-2).

[48] *Auctoritates* 8 (PL 51, 209): *Obsecrationum quoque sacerdotalium sacramenta respiciamus, quae ab apostolis tradita, in toto mundo atque in omni catholica Ecclesia uniformiter celebrantur, ut legem credendi lex statuat supplicandi.* This well known maxim has been misquoted as *lex orandi, lex credendi.* See Paul de Clerck, 'Lex orandi, lex credendi': The Original Sense and Historical Avatars of an Equivocal Adage: *Studia Liturgica* 24 (1994) 178-200; Daniel G. Van Slyke, *Lex orandi lex credendi*: Liturgy as *Locus Theologicus* in the Fifth Century?: *Josephinum Journal of Theology* 11 (2004) 130-51; and Walter Durig, Zur Interpretation des Axioms Legem credendi lex statuat supplicandi, in: *Veritati Catholicae: Festschrift für Leo Scheffczyk zum 65. Geburtstag*, Anton Ziegenaus *et al.* (eds.) (Aschaffenburg, 1985), 226-36.

[49] *Auctoritates* 9 (PL 51, 210).

[50] *Ibid.*

Digitized by Google

The *Auctoritates* are Prosper's *Retractationes*, but, in keeping with Prosper's personality, the admission of mistakes is not explicit, but only inferred. Looking back on those years of struggle, misguided by his naïve zeal for Augustine and the lack of understanding of catholicity, Prosper finally concluded that the Church defines catholic grace, and that personal speculations do not. Prosper was content with the parts that were illuminated by the Church and his insatiable curiosity and fascination with the more hidden aspects of grace was finally satisfied.

The final edition of his *Chronicon*, 451 to 455, reflects Prosper's fully developed ecclesiology. The message of the *Chronicon* is a theological one. Though the world may suffer material destruction at the hands of sinful men and spiritual threats from heretics, God's power intervenes to protect Christian lives and faith through holy men. And there is no greater instrument of God's power on earth than Leo, whom Prosper casts in the most saintly light.

The *Chronicon* as a whole is Prosper's view of salvation history, containing what Prosper viewed was essential to that story. What is included and excluded in the *Chronicon* reflects Prosper's final theological views, including the doctrine of grace.

The years of Prosper's last edition of the *Chronicon* are filled with extraordinary events for the empire. In the years 441 to 455, three wars were fought, two emperors murdered, an ecumenical council held, and Rome threatened with invasion twice – the latter one resulting in the sack of the city. All of these events are connected to the role of Leo, whose actions led to peace. The two primary concerns for Prosper in *Auctoritates* – the Apostolic See, and Church liturgy – are continued in the *Chronicon*.

According to Prosper's account, Leo, through the help of God, was solely responsible for the protection of Rome while the secular powers stood by helplessly. It was Leo's presence alone, with the help of God, which dissuaded Attila from attacking Rome.[51] In 455, though Rome's material wealth was emptied and many captives taken by Gaiseric, Leo's supplication, through the power of God, mollified Gaiseric to the extent that Rome was spared from fire, death, and torture.[52] And at the Council of Chalcedon, Leo's definition of faith (*Tome*) was confirmed universally.[53]

[51] *Chronicon*, sub an. 452 (MGH, AA 9, 482): *Nam tota legatione dignanter accepta ita summi sacerdotis praesentiam rex gavisus est, ut et bello abstinere praeciperet et ultra Danuvium promissa pace discederet.*

[52] *Chronicon*, sub an. 455 (MGH, AA 9, 484): *Occurrente sibi extra portas sancto Leone episcopo, cuius supplicatio ita eum deo agente lenivit, ut, cum omnia potestati ipsius essent tradita, ab igni tamen et caede atque suppliciis abstineretur.*

[53] *Chronicon*, sub an. 453 (MGH, AA 9, 482): *Omnes autem, qui se ab eis retraxerunt, in communionem recepti, confirmata universaliter fide, quae de incarnatione verbi secundum euangelicam et apostolicam doctrinam per sanctum papam Leonem praedicabatur.*

Digitized by Google

The importance of the Apostolic See and Roman liturgy are evident in the last entry – both of which are fundamental to Prosper's ecclesiology. Prosper notes that Easter was celebrated that year on April 24, but Leo protested that it should have been celebrated on April 17, according to the proper calculations.[54] In Prosper's estimation, Leo tolerated the Eastern date for the sake of peace and unity, but did not approve of the Eastern opinion, while working to establish the proper date of Easter for the entire Church.[55]

The appearance of a liturgical matter in a chronicle reflects the importance which Prosper placed on the Church liturgy and highlights Leo's role as teacher of the Church, East and West. Despite the almost hagiographical depiction of Leo, Prosper is careful not to present Leo as an individual acting by his own personal judgment and charisma. When Leo dissuaded Attila and mollified Gaiseric, Prosper attributed the success to God's help.[56] The faith proclaimed by Leo, and confirmed at Chalcedon, was drawn in accordance to the *evangelica et apostolica doctrina*.[57] And Leo's suggestion for the proper date of Easter is based on the correct calculation of the full moon and the demarcation of the first month, not Leo's personal judgment.[58]

Prosper's praise of Leo is consistent with his ultimate regard for the Apostolic See. In his continuation, Prosper avoids even the hint of impropriety, scandal, misjudgment, or anything else that detracts from the dignity and authority of the office.[59] Leo, though given special attention for his actions, is not praised because of his personal holiness, but because he is the pope *par excellence*, who protected Rome and promoted the peace within the Church.

What is surprising is what Prosper left out of the *Chronicon*. That is, the *Chronicon* is Prosper's view of salvation history up to his time, and contained what was significant to that story. Yet, an entire episode in the history of the Church, one in which he stood in the very center, is passed over in silence.

What is essential is the Church which plays the central role in salvation history. Through its leadership, the Apostolic See, the Church is protected from both physical and spiritual assaults. The story of the Church's spiritual struggle is limited to the Pelagian, Nestorian, Manichean, and Eutychian heresies, and

[54] *Chronicon*, sub an. 455 (MGH, AA 9, 484): *Eodem anno pascha dominicum die VIII kal. Maias celebratum est pertinaci intentione Alexandrini episcopi, cui omnes Orientales consentiendum putarunt, cum sanctus papa Leo XV kal. Mai. potius observandum protestaretur, in quo nec in ratione plenilunii nec in primi mensis limite fuisset erratum.*

[55] *Chronicon*, sub an. 455 (MGH, AA 9: 484): *Extant eiusdam papae epistolae ad clementissimum principem Marcianum datae, quibus ratio veritatis sollicite evidenterque patefacta est et quibus ecclesia catholica instrui potest, quod haec persuasio studio unitatis et pacis tolerata sit potius quam probata.*

[56] *Chronicon*, sub an. 452, 455 (MGH, AA 9, 482, 484).

[57] *Chronicon*, sub an. 453 (MGH, AA 9, 482).

[58] *Chronicon*, sub an. 455 (MGH, AA 9, 484): *Potius observandum protestaretur, in quo nec in ratione plenilunii nec in primi mensis limite fuisset erratum.*

[59] See S. Muhlberger, *Fifth Century Chroniclers* (1990), 71.

Digitized by Google

the proper date of Easter.[60] In other words, these were the struggles of the Church that were essential to the story, worthy of inclusion in salvation history. These, then, were the theological conflicts that were worthy and necessary to leave to posterity. By implication, the Augustinian controversy was not essential to salvation history.

In the larger picture of salvation history, the conflict over Augustine's doctrine of grace within the Church was deemed unnecessary. Prosper had gone beyond the *Auctoritates*' view of the conflict, which Prosper attempted to resolve anachronistically. Here, Prosper omits it entirely. What the Church has declared on matters of faith is authoritative. On the issue of grace, the Church declared the Pelagians in error and rightly condemned them; that is all that needs to be included in a description of salvation history.

The esteem of Prosper's life and works was expressed shortly after his death. In 494, Gelasius listed Prosper's name after Jerome's and before Leo's.[61] In addition, neither Gelasius nor Gennadius (490s) explicitly mentioned Prosper's relationship to Augustine.[62] These two accounts viewed Prosper apart from Augustine. Prosper's theological erudition is emphasized by Gennadius, and his faith emphasized by Gelasius. Both attach him to the papacy. What is apparent in the two early estimations of Prosper is that they viewed him as a worthy catholic Christian – who was saintly and theologically sophisticated – without regard to his relationship to Augustine. That is, Prosper was exclusively recognized as a theologian and saint who served the Church, the Roman Church. This was how Prosper would have wished to be remembered.

[60] The Pelagian heresy is mentioned under the years 413, 416, 429, 430, and 439; the Nestorian heresy under 428 and 431; the Manichean heresy under 443; and the Eutychian heresy under 448 and 453; and the date of Easter discussed under 455. *Chronicon*, sub ann. 413, 416, 428, 429, 430, 431, 439, 443, 448, 453, 455 (MGH, AA 9: 467, 468, 472, 473, 476, 479, 480-81, 482 484-85).

[61] Gelasius, 'Concilium Romanum I' (PL 59, 160).

[62] Gelasius ('Concilium Romanum I' [PL 59, 160]): *Prosperi viri religiosissimi.* Gennadius (*De viris inlustribus*, ed. E.C. Richardson, TU 14/1 [Leipzig, 1896], 90): *Prosper, homo Aquitanicae regionis, sermone scholasticus et adsertionibus nervosus.... Epistulae quoque Papae Leonis... ad diversos datae ab isto dictatae creduntur.*

Digitized by Google

Digitized by Google

Prosper the Controversialist

Augustine CASIDAY, Lampeter

Introduction

In this article, I offer an evaluation of some major negative consequences, both theological and historical, that derive ultimately from the controversial writings that characterize the third and fourth periods of Prosper of Aquitaine's literary career (as identified by Dr Hwang in his work on Prosper). Although I cheerfully acknowledge that there is more to Prosper than is within my remit, I want to insist that critical attention to the limits of and problems in Prosper's polemics can serve to complement critical attention to his developments and insights. The primary sources for this evaluation are Prosper's polemical writings in which he offers an account of Augustine of Hippo's theology and a spirited defence of the same. After evaluating key features of those writings, I will contrast Prosper's reception of Augustine with other contemporary, or near-contemporary, writers who were also receptive of Augustine's works. The panoramic survey of Prosper's controversial works will enable me to work up an account of Prosper's own position; the comparison with other writers will allow me to isolate and to evaluate the distinctive features of Prosper's Augustinian project.

On this basis, my aim is to refine and develop some earlier, provisional findings;[1] namely, that Prosper is a maladroit critic of some of his contemporary theologians, that his defence of Augustinian theology attempts to reduce the frame of reference for Augustine's writings and that his reputation as a synthesizer of Augustianism (which may require revision in the light of other findings about his theological acumen) needs to be qualified by the recognition that several of his contemporaries were also busy synthesizing Augustine's writings in ways that may not have been as historically influential but may well have other merits to recommend them.

1. Prosper's polemical Augustinianism

Augustine, bishop of Hippo Regius, would have been roughly seventy-four years old when Prosper first wrote to him in about 428. Even though his see

[1] See Augustine Casiday, Rehabilitating John Cassian: An evaluation of Prosper of Aquitaine's polemic against the 'Semipelagians': *Scottish Journal of Theology* 58 (2005) 270-84; *id.*, *Tradition and Theology in St John Cassian*, OECS (Oxford, 2007), 17-28.

Studia Patristica XLIX, 369-380.
© Peeters Publishers, 2010.

Digitized by Google

was a rural place of no great significance (a fact that at least one adversary had noted with some scorn),[2] Augustine was a prolific writer and through his writings he enjoyed an influence, it would seem, all out of proportion to the dignity of his episcopal post. This is not to say that Augustine was in any sense beyond reproach: his *ep.* 194 (to Sixtus, written c. 418) had already caused a stir in the North African monastery at Hadrumetum,[3] not to mention the allegations of heresy that opponents made against him on the basis of his writings. Allegations of Manichaeism were particularly common[4] – and not just against Augustine: Jerome in writing to Eustochium bemoans the ease with which doctrinally upright Christians of ascetic inclination could be maligned as Manichean,[5] as he himself was disparaged by Pelagius, who consistently and pointedly denounces Manichaeaism while rebutting Jerome's theology.[6] But the disclosures of his *conf.* made such allegations against Augustine especially pungent.

Prosper knew these allegations and was gravely offended by them. Not only did he take offence, he also took the opportunity to launch out on a spirited defence of Augustine as an authoritative and unimpeachably orthodox teacher of the catholic faith.[7] Some of his earliest efforts, now lost, seem to have been treatises in the style of the master, in order to overwhelm the opposition of those who tenaciously insisted on the priority of human merit in the process of

[2] Julian of Eclanum, *ap.* Augustine, *Opus imperfectum c. Julianum* 5.11 (PL 45, 1440).

[3] The primary sources are Augustine's *Retractationes* 2.59 (CSEL 36, 170-2) and *ep.* Morin, see Germain Morin, Lettres inédites de S. Augustin et du prêtre Januarien dans l'affaire des moines d'Adrumète: *RBen* 18 (1901) 241-56; and Evodius, *ep.* Morin, see D.G. Morin, Lettre inédite de l'évêque Evodius aux moines d'Adrumète sur la question de la grâce: *RBen* 13 (1896) 481-6. The secondary literature is vast: see, *inter alia*, Vittorino Grossi, La crisi antropologica nel monastero di Adrumeto: *Aug* 19 (1979) 103-33; Clemens M. Kasper, Der Beitrag der Mönche zur Entwicklung des Gnadenstreites in Südgallien, dargestellt an der Korrespondenz des Augustinus, Prosper und Hilarius, in: Adolar Zumkeller (ed.), *Signum Pietatis: Festgabe für Cornelius Petrus Mayer zum 60. Geburtstag* (Würzburg, 1989), 153-82, 154-6; Dunstan O'Keeffe, The *Via Media* of Monastic Theology: The Debate on Grace and Free Will in Fifth-Century Southern Gaul: *DR* 112-3 (1994-5) 264-83, 54-73 and 157-74 at 113 (1995), 59-61; Adolar Zumkeller, *Augustine's Ideal of the Religious Life*, transl. Edmund Colledge (New York, 1986), 156-8.

[4] Prosper, *Ad Rufinum* 3.4 (PL 51, 79): *et prout sibi obnoxias aliquorum aures opportunasque repererint, scripta ejus, quibus error Pelagianorum impugnatur, infamant; dicentes eum liberum arbitrium penitus submovere, et sub gratiae nomine necessitatem praedicare fatalem. Adjicientes etiam, duas illum humani generis massas, et duas credi velle naturas:* ut scilicet tantae pietatis viro paganorum et Manichaeorum ascribatur impietas. See the allegations by Julian of Eclanum that are preserved in Augustine's *c. Iul. imp.*, passim (books I-III: CSEL 85; books IV-VI: PL 45, 1337-1608).

[5] Jerome, *Letter* 22.13, ed. Jérôme Labourt, *Saint Jérôme. Lettres* (Paris, 1949-54), I 123.11-4.

[6] Pelagius, *Fragmenta de libero arbitrio* 1-4 (PLS 1, 1539-43).

[7] The extent to which Prosper's early understanding of Augustine and of normative doctrine were coterminous is an important theme in Alexander Y. Hwang's *Intrepid Lover of Perfect Grace: The Life and Thought of Prosper of Aquitaine* (Washington, D.C., 2009).

Digitized by Google

salvation and who for that reason objected to Augustine's anti-Pelagian writings. In his letter to Augustine, Prosper describes his early written contributions to the debates in this way:

'When we show them the writings of Your Holiness which abound in countless unanswerable proofs from Holy Scripture, when we ourselves try, after the pattern of your tracts, to construct some new arguments to counter them, they take cover for their obstinacy by appealing to the ancient teaching.'[8]

Prosper was not the only person interested in propagating a robust doctrine of God's grace. Without supposing that he and these people formed a cohesive 'school', we can nevertheless find evidence that other parties were active and that their activity is the context in which Prosper set to work.[9] It may even be the case that Prosper's initial exposure to Augustine's writings came through informal contacts with some of those other 'intrepid lovers of grace' and it seems quite likely, given his massive interest in grace, that Prosper *first* became involved in theological conversations where grace was a prominent topic and *then* began to familiarize himself with Augustine's writings. This is to conjecture, but even so it is important to remember that Prosper was not an isolated figure with an unusual predilection for North African theology.

The fight was already on by the time Prosper undertook his defence of Augustine; hence, the polemical style. Prosper very sensibly stakes out a limited territory and defends it. Although he asserts Augustine's pre-eminence as teacher of catholic theology in the round, it is specifically on Augustine's career as a slayer of heresy that he focuses. After summary allusions to conciliar decisions at Diospolis and Carthage as well as Pope Zosimas' letter of 418, Prosper introduces his chief protagonist in this way:

'Augustine also, at the time the first and foremost among the bishops of the Lord, refuted them abundantly and effectively in a number of tracts. Among many other divine gifts showered on him by the Spirit of truth, he excelled particularly in the gifts of knowledge and wisdom flowing from his love of God, which enabled him to slay with the unconquerable sword of the word not only this [*sc.* Pelagian] heresy, still alive now in some of its offshoots, but also many other previous heresies.'[10]

Prosper is chiefly interested in Augustine's writings on grace and the network of related topics, to which he repeatedly returns. Augustine's authority is very much to the fore on Prosper's presentation: he may be harried by critics, but this is no more shameful than is the fact that the Church herself is beleaguered by heresies.

[8] Prosper, *Ad Augustinum* 3 (PL 51, 70): *Et cum contra eos scripta beatitudinis tuae validissimis et innumeris testimoniis divinarum Scripturarum instructa proferimus, ac, secundum formam disputationum tuarum, aliquid etiam ipsi quo concludantur astruimus.*

[9] See further A. Casiday, *Tradition and Theology* (2007), 43f.

[10] Prosper, *Ad Rufinum* 3 (PL 51, 78-9; transl. ACW 32, 23, slightly modified).

Digitized by Google

Actually, Augustine's personal standing in these debates is indirect (*i.e.* it is *mediated through his writings*). The debates were less about Augustine's authority than about the authority of Augustine's writings. To go further, what is at stake in these debates is less Augustine's reputation, or even Augustine's understanding about grace (in both of which scenarios Augustine is personally central), than Augustine's writings about grace and how to understand and apply them. For all the recurrence of his name, Augustine had in fact been decentred and displaced by the need to interpret his writings. In effect, Augustine is already well on his way to becoming the figurehead for catholic teaching, his name a cipher for orthodoxy and his writings a depository for the Church's treasures – if not the armoury for her weapons.

The conclusion to this paper will provide an opportunity to weigh the costs of this transformation and the reductions that made it possible. For now, we need to attend to the characteristics of Prosper's Augustinianism.[11] The first and most important feature is that Augustinian theology is an authoritative statement of catholic doctrine pertaining to salvation. Despite his overwhelming concern to get salvation right, Prosper has relatively little to say about the Saviour. Clearly Prosper regards Christ as the agent of salvation (his bowdlerized account of John Cassian's Christology makes that much clear).[12] But, as Dr Hwang has demonstrated in his contribution to this series and in his monograph, Prosper is far more interested in the Body of Christ – the Church – as the locus of salvation. Even here, though, the primary importance of the Church is that within her God is at work and the truth about God's work is proclaimed.

The truth about God's work is proclaimed always with reference to the sovereignty of divine grace. The litmus test for Prosperian Augustinianism is whether or not one affirms that 'the grace of God is given according to human merit'.[13] This proposition is simply inconsistent with orthodox teaching and goes to the heart of the matter. Many fine sounding phrases can be endorsed, duplicitously, to disguise the belief that humans can merit God's grace: Pelagians are capable of 'disingenuously retaining [this proposition] in their bosom as they profess that the grace of God is necessary for man in beginning, advancing and persevering in the good'.[14]

[11] On Prosper's Augustinianism, see further Maïeul Cappuyns, Le premier représentant de l'augustinisme médiéval, Prosper d'Aquitaine: *RTAM* 1 (1929) 309-37; Georges de Plinval, Prosper d'Aquitaine interprète de saint Augustin: *RAug* 1 (1958) 339-55; Robert Lorenz, Der Augustinismus Prospers von Aquitanien: *ZKG* 73 (1962) 217-52; Lionel Pelland, *S. Prosperi Aquitani doctrina de praedestinatione et voluntate Dei salvifica* (Montreal, 1936).

[12] See Prosper, *Contra Collatorem* 18 (PL 51, 261-5).

[13] Prosper, *Ad Rufinum* 1.2 (PL 51, 77): *Ex his tamen una est blasphemia, nequissimum et subtilissimum germen aliarum, qua dicunt 'Gratiam Dei secundum merita hominum dari'.*

[14] Prosper, *Ad Rufinum* 1.2 (PL 51, 78): *Hoc apud se ingenio servaverunt, ut ad incipiendum, et ad proficiendum, et ad perseverandum in bono necessariam homini Dei gratiam profiterentur.*

Digitized by Google

The Pelagians' error is that they will insist that God's grace responds to human merit. In fact, God's grace is radically prior. It is this radical priority that Prosper is keen to safeguard. He hotly rejects the implication that it implies fatalism.[15] According to Prosper, the working out of God's grace is unpredictable (as he puts it: 'the predestination of God is always uncertain and hidden from us as long as we live among the perils of this life').[16] The impossibility of a programmatic description of God's grace in action explains Prosper's predisposition to moralizing. Since he cannot offer an account of how God's grace works, instead he warns people away from mistakes and uses judgmental language to encourage appropriate behaviour: it's better to be safe than sorry. At the same time, Prosper insists that grace does not undermine freedom. To the contrary, God's grace *creates* freedom and sustains it. Hence, Prosper requested of Augustine that he should show 'in what manner free will is not hindered by the grace with precedes its activity and co-operates with it.'[17]

That request points to a shortcoming in Prosper's writings. They tend to be short on explanation, and long on assertion: as in this example, Prosper may be unwilling or unable to clarify how or why a theological proposition holds together – but that does not keep him from insisting on its truth. Occasionally, his arguments give the impression that understanding the truth is essentially a matter of adequately grasping the definitions (and, on that basis, the possible combinations) of several key terms. The most important example is that God's grace by definition cannot be 'given according to merit'; otherwise, to borrow a line from St Paul, grace would not be grace.

There is something admirable about such a no-nonsense approach to theology. It is clearly good to avoid needless obscurity. And yet Prosper's readers may worry about some noticeable absences in his writings. Even making allowance for the fact that the works we are dealing with are responses in a controversy, it is startling that Prosper seems to take for granted that being a doctrinally sound member of the Catholic Church is in itself sufficient. Sympathetic readers may well agree on the great importance of catholicity and doctrinal soundness, and not even a hard-bitten critic would insist that Prosper's life as a Christian (or understanding of Christianity) was deficient simply because in controversy he seems to prefer the stick far more than the carrot. But even so it remains the case that Prosper has very little to say about the particulars of Christian theology beyond a fairly simple (I hesitate to say crude) assertion of the primacy of God's grace.

To give a sense for what more he could have done with his inheritance from Augustine, we may consider two of his peers who left behind books that also made use of Augustine's thinking.

[15] See Prosper, *Ad Rufinum* 18 (PL 51, 87-8); *Answers to the Gauls* 1 (PL 51, 157).
[16] Prosper, *Answers to the Vincentian Articles* 12 (PL 51, 183; transl. ACW 32, 172).
[17] Prosper, *Ad Augustinum* 8 (PL 51, 73; transl. ACW 32, 46).

Digitized by Google

2. Varieties of the Augustinian experience

Possidius of Calama and Vincent of Lérins were two conspicuous early interpreters of Augustine. There were, of course, other figures who are relevant to the study of Augustine's aftermath at the dawn of the Middle Ages (notably, Faustus of Riez, Caesarius of Arles and Gregory the Great), but what sets Possidius and Vincent apart from the rest is that, like Prosper, they were Augustine's contemporaries. In point of fact, Possidius was a long-time resident of Augustine's clerical house.[18] Another point in favour of Possidius and Vincent for our purposes is that their interests in Augustine were, as we shall see, quite distinct, so that the three figures – Prosper, Possidius and Vincent – when taken together give a good sense for the scope of early appropriations of Augustine's writings. In other words, they indicate the varieties of the Augustinian experience.

Possidius, like Prosper, was manifestly concerned for the state of the Catholic Church: his hagiographic account of Augustine's deeds gives a great deal of space to Augustine's altercations with the Donatists (cc. 9-14), in addition to briefer accounts of his conversion of Manichaeans (cc. 15-6), debates with Arians (c. 17) and inevitably controversies with Pelagians (c. 18). Roughly half of Possidius' account of Augustine's life describes his dealings as a Catholic bishop with heretics. As a North African, Possidius was understandably most interested in the *pars Donati* in much the same way that Prosper was interested in Pelagianism. Again like Prosper, Possidius shows little interest in the technical details of theological debate. Where Possidius differed, obviously, is that he documents all of Augustine's major religious confrontations.

But Possidius is concerned not merely to catalogue Augustine's successes as a Catholic bishop. The second half of the *Life of Augustine* depicts the bishop's daily life. Possidius returns to a theme that he announced earlier in the work, when with the benefit of hindsight he presents Augustine's renunciation of 'all the hopes which he had for this world' upon his baptism as laying the foundation for Augustine's monastic life.[19] Throughout the *Life*, Possidius uses the expression '*servire Deo*' and cognates to refer to Augustine's monastic vocation: 'As soon as he was made a priest, he established a monastery within the church and began to live with the *servants of God* according to the manner and rule of life set down by the holy Apostles ...'[20] The usage of this term is more

[18] Possidius, *Life of Augustine* 31.11, ed. Antonius A.R. Bastiaensen, *Vita di Cipriano; Vita di Ambrogio; Vita di Agostino* (Milan, [4]1997), 240: *... illius quondam viri, cum quo ferme annis quadraginta Dei dono absque amara ulla dissensione familiariter ac dulciter vixi.*

[19] Possidius, *Life of Augustine* 2.1 (136 Bastiaensen): *Moxque es intimis cordis medullis spem omnem quam habebat in saeculo dereliquit, iam non uxorem, non filios carnis, non divitias, non honores saeculi quaerens, sed Deo cum suius servire statuit et in illo et ex illo pusillo grege esse studens ...*

[20] Possidius, *Life of Augustine* 5.1 (140 Bastiaensen): *Factusque presbyter monasterium intra ecclesiam mox instituit et cum Dei servis vivere coepit secundum modum et regulam sub sanctis Apostolis constituam: maxime, ut nemo quicquam proprium in illa societate haberet, sed eis*

Digitized by Google

precise than what we find in the Latin translations of the *Life of Anthony*, where *servus Dei* may be used generically to refer to any Christian,[21] precisely because Possidius is writing about a monastery established by Augustine. His descriptions of life within Augustine's monastery can in many cases be cross-referenced to Augustine's own writings (especially his *s.* 355 and 356, and *reg. 3*)[22]. Monasticism was an important factor in Augustine's life and thinking, though of course we must not think anachronistically as though Western monasticism were slouching its way toward Monte Cassino.[23]

Now according to Possidius, serving God was not a matter of withdrawing into a coterie of like-minded friends and then closing the door on the world; it implies service to God by serving God's people as well. In this way, Possidius' *Life* integrates Augustine's two major roles within the Christian community: as a monk and as a bishop.[24] The dominant theme is the social dynamics of Augustine's religious life, whether the society in question is North Africa at large or the smaller group of monastic clergy living within the Bishop's House. So Possidius is, as it were, a late ancient Peter Brown. But Possidius' *Augustine of Hippo* has a clear ethical agenda: as he says in his conclusion, Possidius himself aims to 'emulate and imitate' Augustine's good example[25] – and his book, as a testament to the course of Augustine's life, enables other to do so, too.

If Possidius and Prosper were both largely preoccupied with Augustine's public refutations of heresies without being overly concerned with the theological underpinnings of those refutations, the important thing about Vincent of Lérins by contrast is the use that he made of Augustine's writings for systematic theological purposes. The best evidence for Vincent's usage of Augustinian themes is a work that was rediscovered in the last century. In 1940, José Madoz signalled the discovery of a manuscript containing a series of Vincent's extracts from Augustine's writings[26] – a series, incidentally, that was prepared well before Prosper made his own comparable collection, the *Sentences*.

essent omnia communia, et distribueretur unicuique sicut opus erat; quod iam ipse prior fecerat, dum de transmirinis ad sua remeasset.

[21] See further Ludovicus Th.A. Lorié, *Spiritual Terminology in the Latin Translations of the Vita Antonii* (Nijmegen, 1955), 87f.

[22] On the *Rule*, see above all Luc Verheijen, *La Règle de s. Augustin* (Paris, 1967) and, more recently, George Lawless, *Augustine of Hippo and his monastic rule* (Oxford, 1987); Sr. Agatha Mary's translation and commentary, *The Rule of St Augustine: An Essay in Understanding* (Villanova, PA, 1992), deserves special notice – and see now Gerald Bonner *et al.*, *Augustine of Hippo: The Monastic Rules* (New York, 2004).

[23] On monasticism in Augustinian perspective, see Andres Manrique, *Teologia agustiniana de la vida religiosa* (Escorial, 1964) and A. Zumkeller, *Augustine's Ideal of the Religious Life* (1986).

[24] See Siver Dagemark, *Augustinus – Munk och Biskop: Idealbild gentemot självbild i* Vita Augustini *och* Confessiones (Göteborg, 1995).

[25] See Possidius, *Life of Augustine* 31.11 (240 Bastiaensen); see now Louis I. Hamilton, Possidius' Augustine and Post-Augustinian Africa: *JECS* 12 (2004) 85-105.

[26] José Madoz, Un tratado desconocido de San Vicente de Lerins: *Gregorianum* 21 (1940) 75-94. The same year, Madoz' edition of the *Excerpta* was published: *Excerpta Vincentii Lirinensis, según el códice de Ripoll, N. 151 con un estudio crítico introductorio* (Madrid, 1940).

Digitized by Google

On the basis of an anonymous ninth-century witness, Vincent's *Excerpta* can be dated to the papacy of Sixtus III (432-40).[27] Madoz sees the *Excerpta* as the fulfilment of Vincent's stated intention in the *Commonitorium* to return to Christology and treat the subject at length in a subsequent writing.[28] Apart from the introduction, the conclusion and a few occasional remarks penned by Vincent himself, the *Excerpta* consist in lengthy extracts from an array of Augustine's works: *c. Max.*, *cons. eu.*, *doctr. chr.*, *preseu*, *pecc. mer.*, *praed. sanct.*, *ench.*, *ep.* 137 and 205 and especially *trin.* Particularly noteworthy are *preseu* and *praed. sanct.* – two works which Augustine had despatched to Southern Gaul precisely because his earlier writings were stirring up trouble. Vincent cites them without indicating in any way that they are theologically suspect.

The very existence of a carefully integrated selection of extracts from Augustine's work indicates that Vincent's attitude to Augustine was more appreciative than previous scholarship on the *Commonitorium* had allowed.[29] In fact, it bolsters the minority view that the *Commonitorium* itself demonstrates receptivity to Augustine's theology.[30] But what is especially interesting is Vincent's striking interpolation on the matter of grace and Christology that is found between the excerpts from *ep.* 187 and from *praed. sanct.* 15:

'Such a medicine therefore came from heaven to overcome and remove the life-threatening tumor. God who is humble descended in mercy to man who was swollen with pride, depositing a unique and extraordinary grace with that man [*ille homo*; *scil.* Christ's humanity] whom he received with such love on account of his associates. And it is not the case that the very Word of God was conjoined due to the antecedent merits of his will so that he became one Son of God and again one Son of man by the conjoining. To be sure, it is fitting that he be one. And yet, if this could come to be, not through a unique gift from God, but through the free will that is common to all men, there would be two or three or more.'[31]

[27] Anon., *Expositio Diuinae Legis* 16, ed. Paul Lehmann, *Erforschung des Mittelalters* 2 (Stuttgart, 1959), 76; reprinted from Lehmann, Ein mittelalterliches Kompendium der *Institutiones diuinarum litterarum*: *Philologus* 73 (1914-6) 268: *Et liber Vincentii presbyteri Lyrinensis insulae quem de libris beati Augustini composuit et misit sancto Xisto pape utilis est pro hac re legi.*

[28] See Vincent, *Commonitorium* 16.9 (CChr.SL 64, 169): *Haec in excursu dicta sint, alias, si Deo placuerit, uberius tractanda et explicanda.* See Madoz, *Excerpta* (1940), vii.

[29] Thus, Jules Lebreton, Saint Vincent de Lérins et Saint Augustin: *RSR* 30 (1940) 368f.

[30] Thus, Adalbert Hamman, St Vincent of Lérins, in: Angelo di Berardino (ed.), *Patrology, iv: The Golden Age of Latin Patristic Literature* (Westminster, MD, 1986), 546-50.

[31] Vincent, *Excerpta* 8 (CChr.SL 64, 224): *Ad conuincendum igitur atque auferendum tumorem mortalium talis medicina caelitus uenit, ad elatum hominem per superbiam Deus humilis descendit per misericordiam, gratiam singularem praecipuamque commendans in illo homine, quem tanta prae participibus suis caritate suscepit. Neque enim et ipse ita Verbo Dei coniunctus ut ea coniunctione unus Filius Dei et idem ipse unus filius hominis fieret, praecedentibus suae uoluntatis meritis fecit. Vnum quippe illum esse oportebat. Essent autem et duo et tres et plures, si hoc fieri non posset per singulare Dei donum, sed per commune hominum liberum arbitrium.*

Digitized by Google

Vincent presents salvation as the merciful descent of a humble God in order to cure 'man swollen with *pride*'. Interestingly, Vincent is keen to make a principled distinction between the relationship of God and 'that man' which obtains in Christ on the one hand, and God's relationships to other people on the other.

But most interesting of all the features of the passage are the following four key expressions: *gratiam singularem praecipuamque, neque... praecedentibus suae uoluntatis meritis fecit, per singularem Dei donum*, and *non... per commune hominum liberum arbitrium*. These phrases describe and delimit the relationship which '*ille homo*' enjoys with God. At the most basic level, they stipulate that the relationship between deity and humanity in Christ was unique. But they do so by invoking the language of grace and by explicitly precluding the possibility that the 'assumed man' deserved to be assumed 'due to the antecedent merits of his will'. Since the relationship existed as 'a unique gift from God', it cannot be replicated 'through the [exercise of] free will that is common to all men'. These clauses represent a thoroughly Augustinian interpolation by Vincent, through which Vincent advances Augustine's own thinking about 'assumed man'-Christology.[32]

Of the three inheritors of Augustine's legacy that we have surveyed, Vincent stands apart as the most theologically accomplished. Like Prosper and Possidius, he was an outspoken foe of heresy and used Augustine's writings to further the catholic cause (in the *Excerpta*, Vincent denounces Arius, Apollinarius and Photinus by name).[33] But unlike Prosper and Possidius, Vincent makes his case through sustained theological argumentation.

3. Prosper the gatekeeper

The overviews of Possidius' and Vincent's uses of Augustinian themes and writings have provided us with concrete alternatives contemporaneous to Prosper's polemical writings. With reference to these alternative projects, we can make some meaningful comparisons with Prosper's defence of St Augustine and assess its significance.

All three of our authors were dedicated to the promotion of catholic Christianity and so employed Augustine's works to check the spread of heresy and combat it. Prosper's primary target was recidivist Pelagianism; Possidius' was in all likelihood the Arian Christianity of the Vandal invaders who had swept into Roman North Africa, though his biographical sketch of Augustine naturally includes other opponents of Catholicism (specifically, Manichaeans, Arians,

[32] See further Augustine Casiday, Grace and the humanity of Christ according to St Vincent of Lérins: *VC* 59 (2005) 298-314.

[33] Vincent, *Excerpta* prol. 10 (CChr.SL 64, 199 and 231).

Digitized by Google

Pelagians and Donatists); Vincent took aim at several heresies: Arianism, Apollinarianism and Photinianism in his *Excerpta*, in his *Commonitorium* Nestorianism as well.

Vincent's *Excerpta* lacks the immediacy of Possidius' *Life* and Prosper's several writings; in comparison to their rootedness in specific social and political circumstances (which gives them vibrancy), Vincent's seems nearly timeless: even Vincent's opponents are classical. On the other hand, vibrant resonance is not the only thing that the *Excerpta* lacks: the *Excerpta* also lacks the narrow provincialism that often comes in the train of charming anecdotes and hot-blooded denunciations.

Prosper's Augustine also seems timeless in an important way: he is much what we might expect on the basis of potted histories of Christian doctrine (particularly Western histories with a strong confessional element, whether Catholic or Protestant). But this is not necessarily a recommendation. Historical eventuality has made strong emphasis on divine grace a stable characteristic of Augustinianism as generally understood these days, but that does not make divine grace the royal road to understanding Augustine's writings. It is entirely possible that a construal of Augustine's theology that strikes us as unexceptional may well have been deeply idiosyncratic in its time.

To approach the same topic from a different angle, consider a major factor that sets Prosper's Augustinianism apart from Possidius' and Vincent's: its exclusivity. Possidius admired Augustine's commitment to the Catholic Church and willingness to convert (or at least confute) non-Catholics and identified Pelagianism as one of the heresies against which Augustine struggled – so, whether he would have agreed with Prosper's anti-Pelagian polemic or not, he was solidly opposed to Pelagianism. Possidius also admired Augustine as a Catholic teacher – so, whether or not he would have subscribed to Vincent's efforts at developing an Augustinian Christology, he understood the value of orthodox doctrine. As for Vincent, he was a pugnacious critic of several Christological heresies – so, whether or not he would have accepted that Pelagianism is Christologically defective, his claim that 'Jesus was predestined' in the context of a *homo assumptus*-Christology set him solidly within the stream of anti-Pelagian Christology.[34] And Vincent was unsparingly critical of moral laxity – so, whether or not he would have endorsed Augustinian clerical monasticism, he recognized the need for moral seriousness and ethical action.

Without intending to suggest that Prosper was uninterested in doctrine or hostile to morality, what I want to point out by contrast to Possidius and Vincent is that Prosper's polemic obscures a rich variety of theological positions by introducing a single doctrine as the criterion for orthodoxy. There are two

[34] Vincent, *Excerpta* 8 (CChr.SL 64, 225), quoting Augustine, *De praedestinatione sanctorum* 15.31 (PL 44, 981-2): *Singulariter ergo adsumptus, singulariter 'praedestinatus est Iesus ...'*. See further A. Casiday, Grace and the humanity of Christ (2005).

Digitized by Google

problems here. The first problem is that some good things within the Augustinian heritage were overshadowed (possibly precluded). The reason it is easier to see how Possidius and Vincent could accommodate the particular insights of other Christians who were making use of Augustinian resources is that their projects were open-ended and basically positive. Their use of Augustine's ideas and writings creates a space in which more of Augustine's ideas and others of his writings can be introduced, organised and developed. With Prosper, we can certainly suppose that such a thing is possible – but his polemical Augustinianism does not provide the broad basis for expansion and further integration that Possidian (social) Augustinianism and Vincentian (Christological) Augustinianism do.

The second problem is that Prosper's strategy made it considerably more difficult to identify and to correct excesses within the Augustinian tradition. Provided that one affirms the absolute priority of God's grace, the theological resources are lacking (or perhaps just dormant) to criticise or to reject further objectionable developments that are consistent with the absolute priority of God's grace. The most notable such development is Predestinationism, or fatalistic Augustinianism.[35] Prosper was deeply opposed to fatalism. As his *Responses to the Vincentian Objections*, *Responses to the Genoese* and *Responses to the Gauls* indicate very clearly, he was no Predestinationist. But because of the way he asserted Augustinian grace strategically against the Pelagians, Prosper had in effect manoeuvred into a situation from which he was obliged to defend himself against the claims that Augustinian grace entailed Predestinationism.

Even though his defence clearly indicates that he objects to being called a Predestinationist, that objection is not the same thing as a refutation of Predestinationist tendencies within post-Augustinian theology. Furthermore, such arguments as he does offer against conflating Augustinian theology *toute simple* with Predestinationism have an *ad hoc* feeling. This is precisely because his major theological insight is shared with Predestinationists, who likewise affirm the absolute priority of God's grace. To distinguish himself from them,

[35] See the recantation by Lucidus in Faustus of Riez' *Letter* 2 (CSEL 21, 165-6). The main principles outlined, then rejected, by Lucidus are as follows: 1) 'that the work of divine grace is not bound to human obedience'; 2) 'that after the fall of the first man the inclination of the will was totally extinguished'; 3) 'that Christ our Lord and Saviour did not suffer death for everyone'; 4) 'that the foreknowledge of God violently compels some to death or that those who perish, perish by the will of God'; 5) 'that anyone who fell away after receiving a legitimate baptism died in Adam' – that is, in the state of original sin; 6) 'that some are set aside for death, others predestined to life'; 7) 'that from Adam to Christ, no pagan was saved by the first grace of God, that is, by the law of nature until the coming of Christ, because they had completely lost free will in the first parent'; 8) 'that the Patriarchs and Prophets or any of the pre-eminent saints went to their heavenly home before the time of the redemption'; 9) and 'there is no fire and no pit'. For further discussion of Lucidus, see A. Casiday, *Tradition and Theology* (2007), 37-9; and for other evidence of contemporary and near-contemporary Predestinationism in Southern Gaul, see *ibid.* 43f.

Digitized by Google

he has to engage in analysis that is ancillary to his main purpose and that he never quite manages to integrate.

So much for assessing theologically some of the losses that Prosperian Augustinianism entails. But before concluding this paper, I would like to say a few words about some of the historiographical problems that this material poses. Prosper's doctrinally simplified Augustinianism is elegant and easy enough to understand, which makes it seductive. It also approximates to a layman's understanding of the place of Augustinian theology in the Reformation and Counter-Reformation, which makes it even more seductive because those theological traditions are much more readily available to us than are the traditions of the ancient era. But, important though its simplicity and its familiarity no doubt are, neither of these factors makes Prosper's Augustinianism a historical norm. His polemic writings invite us to suppose that Augustinian theology was monolithic – at base, a single position on one all-important question – and that it was identical to Catholic theology. The evidence that we have considered demonstrates, to the contrary, that Augustinian theology was polymorphous (I do not intend to speak about late ancient Catholic theology as such).

Prosper's polemics distort that evidence. The collapse of a multilateral theological debate into a sharp dichotomy obscures a great deal about the past. Any pedagogical gains that might accrue by applying this simplified approach to the controversies of that era are outweighed by the difficulties of introducing refinements. Since Prosper's Augustininan polemic attempts to de-legitimate all other programmes of theology, it is a very bad frame for historical research into the Augustinian heritage and its transmission.

Digitized by Google

Prosper's Theological Legacy and Its Limits

Rebecca WEAVER, Richmond, Virginia

My goal is somewhat less ambitious than the title suggests. I intend to examine two related documents within the Augustinian tradition. Both are permeated by assumptions about divine grace and human agency; yet the two sets of assumptions differ markedly from each other. Each represents, I am convinced, a strand of the Augustinian legacy in late sixth and early seventh-century Gaul. I intend to ask where, if at all, there is evidence of Prosper's influence on either of these two expressions of Augustine's legacy.

The two documents are the two biographies of one sixth-century Merovingian saint: Radegund, a queen of the Franks who became the founder and a resident of Holy Cross convent in Poitiers. The choice of the *Vitae Radegundis* requires some explanation. The *vitae* of the saints are, I believe, attempt to show forth the gospel by describing its enactment in the circumstances and actions of specific individuals. Sacred biographies have other dimensions, of course, *e.g.*, political, historical, ecclesiastical, cultural. At their core, however, I believe that they are theological documents.

The two biographies of Radegund[1] differ from each other theologically in significant ways. What I think that we shall find is that each *vita* operates with an implicit but identifiable theological pattern ultimately derived from Augustine. Thus before we look at the *vitae* we need to consider Augustine's teaching and legacy regarding grace.

Augustine's teaching on grace

In broad outline, we should note that Augustine actually taught a double form of predestination, as J. Burns has argued.[2] First, God elects some persons to be freed from the condemned mass of humanity contained in Adam. God predestines them to the grace of baptism. This predestination is utterly gratuitous;

[1] The critical edition actually indicates one *vita* in two books, although because of their significant theological differences, I shall treat the two books as two *vitae*. *De Vita Sanctae Radegundis Libri Duo* (MGH SRM 2, 358-95). Quotations from scripture will be taken from the NRSV.

[2] J. Patout Burns, *The Development of Augustine's Doctrine of Operative Grace* (Paris, 1980), 166, 175, 181, 185f. See also Rebecca Weaver, *Divine Grace and Human Agency: A Study of the Semi-Pelagian Controversy* (Macon, GA, 1996), 21-3.

Studia Patristica XLIX, 381-394.
© Peeters Publishers, 2010.

Digitized by Google

God's reasons for electing some and passing over others are inscrutable.[3] Those who receive baptism can rejoice in their undeserved election and begin their pursuit of the good: love of God and neighbor. Those passed over remain enslaved to their disordered love.[4]

From among those predestined to baptism God further predestines some (a smaller number) to glory. God's reasons for this second election are as inscrutable as were the reasons for the first election. Again, the divine choice is utterly gratuitous. Those who are elected to glory are given the unmerited gift of perseverance in the good such that they can never fall away.[5] They may and do sin and thus must pray daily that God forgive them their trespasses. Before death, however, they will be restored to the pursuit of the good.[6] Those who have been predestined to baptism but not further predestined to glory do not receive the gift of perseverance. Without that gift, they inevitably and permanently fall away.[7]

Those who are baptized do have the reassurance that they have been predestined to grace. Whether they have also been predestined to glory remains uncertain. One may look at one's life and see evidence of the work of grace; however, the baptized have no certainty that they will not fall away.[8] Moreover, from baptism until death perseverance in the good remains a struggle. The saints experience perseverance as hard work.[9] It is only in beatitude that they can recognize that it was actually by grace that they persevered.

In the last years of Augustine's life objections were raised about both forms of predestination, as they appeared to call into question the divine will for universal salvation (1*Tim.* 2:4).[10] Moreover, his critics argued, if predestination (in both forms) is entirely gratuitous, the character of one's life would appear to have no connection to one's eternal destiny. These objections were voiced off and on for much of a century, primarily in southern Gaul.

Augustine's legacy: Prosper

One of the most notable defenders of Augustine's views on grace and human nature, both during the bishop's life and afterward, was Prosper of Aquitaine. As A. Hwang has so effectively demonstrated, Prosper's several-decades preoccupation with the doctrine of grace manifests evidence of his own theological

[3] Augustine, *corrept.* 7.12-13; 10.28; 23.45 (PL 44, 915-46).
[4] Augustine, *gr. et lib. arb.* 23.45 (PL 44, 881-912).
[5] *corrept.* 12.34.
[6] *corrept.* 7.13,16; 9.21; 12.35.
[7] *corrept.* 6.10; 7.11; 9.20.
[8] *corrept.* 10.27.
[9] *corrept.* 11.29-31.
[10] *corrept.* 14.44.

Digitized by Google

evolution.[11] To summarize Prosper would be to repeat much of Professor Hwang's argument. I shall simply call attention to several elements of Prosper's work that pertain to our investigation.

1. From beginning to end, as Professor Hwang has argued, it was catholic truth, the voice of the church, that Prosper sought to present. What changed over time was his understanding of where one should look for authoritative expressions of the faith of the church. The shift of that locus of truth, from Augustine to the apostolic see and the liturgy, led to a shift in his understanding of the relationship of divine grace and human agency. Nevertheless, he remained preoccupied with the framework established by Augustine and did not relinquish it.

2. At least initially, the critical issue for him was the gratuity of grace. This issue was connected with his convictions of human depravity and divine sovereignty.[12] At this point we can find in Prosper a coherent, if inflexible, position.

3. Gradually, however, perhaps because of charges that predestination undermined human agency, he came to acknowledge the possibility that the gift of perseverance (or predestination to glory) was affected by foreknowledge of merit or its lack.[13] He further granted that electing and prevenient grace (predestination to grace) were in some way dependent on foreknowledge.[14] In so doing, he was certainly allowing the doctrine of predestination (even in its double form as taught by Augustine). On the other hand, his willingness to consider divine foreknowledge of human sin as affecting the gift of either type of predestination undercut his previous commitment to the utter gratuity of grace. At this point we find that Prosper's attempts to compensate for perceived shortcomings in Augustine's framework led him into inconsistency, even incoherence.

4. At least for a time Prosper opted for silence on difficult issues, such as predestination and irresistible grace, about which the church had not spoken authoritatively.[15] The church had endorsed, however, the priority of grace to merit.[16] That was settled.

5. In mid-century Prosper sought unsuccessfully in the *De vocatione omnium gentium* to reconcile the doctrine of the gratuity of grace with the teaching of the divine will for universal salvation. In doing so, he emphasized the genuineness of human participation. Yet Prosper was finally inconsistent regarding

[11] Alexander Y. Hwang, A Reinterpretation of Prosper of Aquitaine's Theological Development: *SP* 49 (2010) 353-67. This paper was also delivered in the workshop on Prosper of Aquitaine.

[12] Prosper, *Epistula ad Rufinum* 13, 15, 17 (PL 51, 77-90).

[13] Prosper, *Pro Augustino responsiones ad capitula objectionum Gallorum calumniantium* 1.2; 1.3; 2.2; 2.3 (PL 51, 155-74).

[14] *Resp. Gall.* 1.11; 1.13; 2.11; 2.13.

[15] Prosper, *Praeteritorum episcoporum sedis apostolicae auctoritates de gratia Dei et libero voluntatis arbitrio* 10 (PL 51, 205-12).

[16] *Auctoritates* 7-9.

Digitized by Google

human agency. The sovereignty of grace prevailed. Prosper's attempt to reconcile views that perhaps could not be reconciled hardly brought him back full circle to his early thoroughgoing acceptance of Augustine. On the other hand, the *De vocatione* does reveal that for Prosper the commitment to divine sovereignty controlled any argument.[17]

6. His greatest contribution to the Semi-Pelagian controversy may well have been his compilation of the *Liber sententiarum ex operibus s. Augustini delibatarum*, which had no reference to predestination but provided important language for the Second Council of Orange in 529.[18] In particular, it provided the language, with some modification by Caesarius of Arles, for sixteen of the twenty-five canons of the Council of Orange.

The point to be made is that, despite the evolution of Prosper's thought, his inconsistencies, and his deviations from Augustine, he did stand within the broad Augustinian legacy regarding nature and grace. That said, it is difficult to see that Prosper staked out any clear scheme, even at the end, to which others might readily turn to try to understand the relationship of grace and human agency. What he did do, however, was to provide a collection of about 392 quotations from Augustine, at least part of which Pope Felix IV sent to Caesarius for use in the Council of Orange.

The Augustinian legacy: Caesarius of Arles

We must now turn to the strand of Augustinianism that can be found in the canons and decrees of the Second Council of Orange (529).[19] The work of this council, led by Caearius, bishop of Arles, is generally seen as providing a resolution to the Semi-Pelagian controversy. By insisting that grace must precede human agency for the good,[20] the council implicitly accepted Augustine's teaching of predestination to grace (or baptism). The reason why some persons receive the grace that brings them to baptism and others do not lies hidden in the utterly gratuitous and inscrutable divine will.

For our purposes, what is important is that the council departed from Augustine in its implicit rejection of predestination to glory. According to the canons of Orange, the free will is restored at baptism so that it is capable of choosing the good.[21] Perseverance in the good does require the gift of grace, but it is a grace that assists but does not compel human effort.[22] Reception into glory,

[17] Prosper, *De vocatione omnium gentium* 2.37 (PL 51, 647-722).
[18] Prosper, *Liber sententiarum ex operibus s. Augustini delibatarum* (PL 51, 427-96).
[19] *Canones Arausicorum, Concilia Galliae A.D. 511-695* (CChr.SL 148A, 53-76).
[20] *Conc. Arausicorum, Canones* 3-8.
[21] *Conc. Arausicorum, Canon* 13, *Definitio fidei.*
[22] *Conc. Arausicorum, Canones* 9-10.

Digitized by Google

therefore, is not the result of a gratuitous predestination but of human effort in the good as assisted by grace.

It would seem that Caesarius of Arles, in presiding at this council, steered the participants toward a resolution that, for all practical purposes, he had developed in his own preaching and employed as the theological framework for the *Regula virginum*, a monastic Rule that he had developed for the convent he had established in Arles.[23]

Caesarius' scheme and that of the council was a modified form of Augustinianism. The sixteen canons based in Prosper's *Liber sententiarum* emphasize the necessity of grace for the good will and good actions.[24] Grace brings persons to baptism; beyond baptism grace assists the good will but does not determine the outcome. Judgment Day looms over everyone: all will be required to give an account to Christ and will be eternally rewarded or punished on the basis of the way that they have lived. In Caesarius' scheme, the connection between the character of one's life following baptism and one's eternal reward or punishment is clear. This position was imminently suitable for preaching (as his many sermons demonstrate) and utterly practical (as his *Regula virginum* makes clear).

As we turn to the two *vitae* of Radegund, it is important to recognize that each of them is deeply shaped by conceptions of the interaction of grace and human agency. Both are in some form Augustinian. As such they tell us something of the reception of Augustinianism in Gaul in the late sixth and early seventh centuries.

The *vitae Radegundis*

The author of the first of the two biographies of Radegund, Venantius Fortunatus (*ca.* 535 - *ca.* 610), was a recognized writer. Although he was from Italy and had studied in Ravenna, it was as a poet in Merovingian Gaul that he achieved prominence. By the time that Fortunatus became acquainted with Radegund, she had established her convent in Poitiers and he had achieved a measure of literary success with members of the Merovingian court. The relationship between the two was mutually advantageous. Fortunatus produced poems, hymns, and letters that championed her causes, celebrated her saintly victories, and kept Radegund in contact with the broader world. These activities

[23] Caesarius of Arles, *Regula virginum* (SC 349, 170-273).

[24] G. Fritz, art. Orange, deuxième concile d': *DThC* 11/1 (1931) 1087-1103. Fritz argues that a small number of the Sentences had been sent from Rome. Caesarius offered them to the participants with slight emendations, most significantly the emphasis on the restoration of the health of the will at baptism (canon 13). See also D.M. Cappuyns, L'origine des Capitula d'Orange 529: *RTAM* 6 (1934) 121-42; Robert Markus, The legacy of Pelagius: Orthodoxy, Heresy and Conciliation, in: *The Making of Orthodoxy*, ed. Rowan Williams (Cambridge, 1989), 214-34, 225f.

Digitized by Google

on Radegund's behalf strengthened and enlarged the poet's ties to the Merovingian court, which continued to seek his services.[25] About the time of Radegund's death, Fortunatus was ordained a priest. Sometime afterward he was consecrated bishop.[26] It was probably as a bishop that Fortunatus wrote his *Vita Radegundis*.[27]

The author of the second *vita*, Baudonivia, was a nun, most likely Frankish, in the convent that Radegund had founded. She had been reared at Holy Cross under the maternal care of Radegund herself[28] and within the framework of Caesarius' *Regula virginum*. The modified Augustinianism of that Rule colored her perception of the saint. Apart from her work as author of this *vita*, we know nothing about Baudonivia. She stated that she was writing at the urging of the nuns with whom she lived. Presumably they had found Fortunatus' account inadequate. Baudonivia indicated that her own narrative, limited in scope, would supplement the material provided by Fortunatus.[29] There is no suggestion that she was offering a competing version of the saint, and until recently the two *vitae* have been treated as one.[30]

In addition to these *vitae*, we have access to other contemporary sources pertaining to Radegund. The *Historia Francorum* by Gregory of Tours provides information about her as well as a letter that is attributed to her.[31] Gregory also

[25] R.A. Meunier, L'intérêt politique de la correspondence de saint Fortunat, in: *Études mérovingiennes: Actes des Journées de Poitiers 1952* (Paris, 1953), 239-48; D. Tardi, *Fortunat: Étude sur un dernier représentant de la poésie latine dans la Gaule mérovingienne* (Paris, 1927), 78-88.

[26] Judith W. George, *Venantius Fortunatus: A Poet in Merovingian Gaul* (Oxford, 1992), 2, 15-34, 161-78, 212-4; see Brian Brennan, The Career of Venantius Fortunatus: *Traditio* 41 (1985) 67-70, 78. Brennan suggests an earlier date for the ordination.

[27] A number of his poems demonstrate familiarity with Radegund and Agnes, the woman whom Radegund had chosen as abbess. See Fortunatus, *Opera poetica* 2.1, 2; 5.2; 8.1, 2, 3, 4, 5, 6, 7; 11.6, 8, 11, 13, 14, 23, 25, 26, Appendices 10, 15, 26, 31 (MGH AA 4.1).

[28] *Vita Radegundis* 2, Prologue. Elsewhere she speaks of Radegund as mother for all the nuns. L. Coudanne, Baudonivie, moniale de Sainte-Croix et biographe de sainte Radegonde, in: *Études mérovingiennes: Actes des Journées de Poitiers 1952* (1953), 45-51.

[29] *Vita Radegundis* 2 Prologue, referring to 1.39.

[30] John Kitchen, *Saints' Lives and the Rhetoric of Gender: Male and Female in Merovingian Hagiography* (Oxford, 1998), 134-7. *Ibid.* 22, n. 5, Kitchen provides a survey of the medieval treatment of the two *vitae*. Bruno Krusch (ed.), MGH AA 3.2, 17, treats them as two books of one *vita*. For a comparison of the two *vitae* in terms of themes drawn from the literature related to Martin of Tours, see Jacques Fontaine, Hagiographie et politique, de Sulpice Sévère à Venance Fortunat: *Revue d'histoire de l'église de France* 62 (1976) 127-40. *Ibid.* 114f. Fontaine also briefly reviews scholarship of the mid-twentieth century on the differences between the two *vitae*.

[31] Radegund had supported the selection of Gregory as Bishop of Tours in 573, and he presided at her burial in the absence of the local bishop. See Gregory of Tours, *Liber Historiae Francorum* 3.4, 7; 6.29, 34; 7.36; 9.2; 9.39-43; 10.15-6 (MGH SRM 1). For a letter attributed to Radegund, see Gregory, *Hist.* 9.42. See Raymond Van Dam, *Leadership and Community in Late Antique Gaul* (Berkeley, 1985), 214.

Digitized by Google

discussed Radegund in his *Liber in gloria confessorum*.[32] Finally, there are two poems that may have been written by Radegund herself, although they have regularly been attributed to Fortunatus: *De excidio Thuringiae* and *Ad Artachis*.[33]

Biographical outline

From these sources an outline of Radegund's life (*ca.* 518-87) emerges. She was born a princess of the Thuringians, a Germanic people, who at the beginning of the sixth century occupied territory that extended from modern lower Bavaria far north into the area between the Rhine and Elbe Rivers. The Thuringians were allies of the Ostrogoths against the Franks.[34] Radegund, who was the granddaughter, daughter, and niece of Thuringian kings, was orphaned when her father died at the hand of his own brother. She then lived in the home of this same uncle until he and almost all the Thuringian ruling family were murdered by the Franks.[35]

Radegund and a brother survived and were carried off as plunder. Clothar, one of the sons of Clovis, gambled with his brothers for her and won. As she was too young to be married, Clothar placed her under the care of guardians, who educated her.[36] It may be assumed that if Radegund had not already been baptized she would have been during this time so that she might be a suitable wife for a Christian king.[37] Radegund herself became a remarkable Christian. Having been robbed of home and family and thrust into the unwanted role of future Frankish queen, she seems to have found in the Christian faith not only

[32] Gregory of Tours, *Liber in gloria confessorum* 104 (MGH SRM 1, 744-820).

[33] The question of authorship of both epistolary poems remains open, as both have been attributed to Radegund and both to Fortunatus. They are included among the poems of Fortunatus in MGH AA 4.1, Appendices 1, 3. For a discussion of scholarly debate on authorship, see Jo Ann McNamara and John E. Halborg, *Sainted Women of the Dark Ages* (Durham, NC, 1992), 65, n. 22; Charles Nisard, Des poésies de Sainte Radégonde attribuées jusqu'ici à Fortunat: *RH* 37 (1888; repr. 1965) 49-57; René Aigrain, *Sainte Radegonde* (Poitiers, 1917), 22, n. 49; 126, n. 36; Judith W. George, *Venantius Fortunatus: Personal and Political Poems* (Liverpool, 1995), 116, n. 21. For George's discussion of the poems, see *id.*, *Venantius Fortunatus: A Poet in Merovingian Gaul* (1992), 164-7. See also Peter Dronke, *Women Writers of the Middle Ages* (Cambridge, 1984, repr. 1991), 27f., 85f.

[34] Herwig Wolfram, *History of the Goths*, transl. Thomas J. Dunlap, 2nd ed. rev. (Berkeley, 1988), 318f.

[35] Gregory, *Hist.* 3.4-7; *Vita Radegundis* 1.2; '*De excidio Thuringiae*'. For likely dates for the time of Radegund's capture by the Franks and subsequent marriage to Clothar, see Suzanne F. Wemple, *Women in Frankish Society: Marriage and the Cloister 500 to 900* (Philadelphia, 1981), 38f.; see R. Aigrain, Sainte Radegonde (1917), 20.

[36] *Vita Radegundis* 1.2; R. Aigrain, *Sainte Radegonde* (1917), 34-8.

[37] The biographies do not indicate whether she had been baptized prior to her capture. It is possible that the Thuringians were Christians. See R. Aigrain, *Sainte Radegonde* (1917), 25-7; Ian Wood, *The Merovingian Kingdoms 450-751* (London, 1994), 50f.

Digitized by Google

solace but also an identity. Deeds of charity toward the neighbor and acts of devotion to God characterized her existence from childhood on.

Eventually Clothar sent for her, and they were married, despite her reluctance. Radegund was now queen of the Franks. The couple lived together for ten to fifteen years, although without producing offspring.[38] It was Clothar's murder of her brother that finally induced Radegund to flee.[39] She went to a bishop and sought consecration as a nun. The bishop, fearing the wrath of God if he did not protect her but also the wrath of the king if the queen should become a nun, consecrated Radegund, probably as a deacon, a role that she could exercise while remaining a wife.[40] In her new status, however, Radegund did manage to avoid a return to domestic life. For the next several years she maintained a hospice where she cared for the poor, the sick, and the hungry.[41] Shortly before Clothar's death she established a convent where she spent the remainder of her life engaging in acts of charity and devotion.[42] Soon after her death a cult developed around her memory. Both before and after her death, miracles were attributed to her.[43]

Although Baudonivia's Prologue suggests that the two *vitae* are but parts of a single whole, there are genuine differences in these two portrayals of the saint. In the last few decades some scholars have sought to explain them by reference to the difference in gender of the authors.[44] Their efforts have proved fruitful;[45] nevertheless, they do not account for the marked theological divergence of the two biographies. It is that theological divergence on which we shall focus.

[38] *Vita Radegundis* 1.3-7; for the difficulty of dating her departure from Clothar, see R. Aigrain, *Sainte Radegonde* (1917), 54f.

[39] *Vita Radegundis* 1.12; *Hist.* 1.7; see '*De excidio Thuringiae*'. For a discussion of the motives of both Clothar and Radegund, see Yvonne Labande-Mailfert *et al.*, *Histoire de l'abbaye Sainte-Croix de Poitiers: Quatorze siècles de vie monastique* (Poitiers, 1986), 30-3.

[40] *Vita Radegundis* 1.12; J. McNamara and J. Halborg, *Sainted Women* (1992), 75, n. 53; S. Wemple, *Women in Frankish Society* (1981), 142.

[41] *Vita Radegundis* 1.15-20.

[42] *Vita Radegundis* 2.5,8.

[43] *Vita Radegundis*, *e.g.* 1.20, 37-9; 2.11-2, 25-8. For later evidence as to a cult, see A. Perrier, Manifestations populaires du culte de sainte Radegonde en Limousin, in: *Études Merovingiennes* (1953), 249-52.

[44] E.g. Lynda L. Coon, *Sacred Fictions: Holy Women and Hagiography in Late Antiquity* (Philadelphia, 1997), 126-35. See J. Kitchen, *Saints' Lives* (1998), 135-9 on the history of interpretation of the two *vitae*, including current literature; for a survey of current literature on the second *vita*, see Jane Tibbets Schulenberg, Saints' Lives as a Source for the History of Women, 500-1100, in: *Medieval Women and the Sources of Medieval History*, ed. Joel Rosenthal (Athens, GA, 1990), 297-301. For Baudonivia's employment of Fortunatus' work as well as that of other hagiographers, see J. Kitchen, *Saints' Lives* (1998), 138-41; for her use of the *Vita Caesarii*, see William E. Klingshirn, Caesarius's Monastery for Women in Arles and the Composition and Function of the Vita Caesarii: *R. Bén.* 100 (1990), 441-481, 478, n. 138.

[45] For an invaluable analysis of this approach and its limitations, see J. Kitchen, *Saints' Lives* (1998), 134-53.

Digitized by Google

A comparison of the *vitae Radegundis*

There are four elements of the two *vitae* that will help us to recognize the dynamics of grace as presented in each. From our consideration of these we should be able to discern the dominant influence on each biography.

1. *Identification of the victor*

Both biographies portray Radegund's life as a victory, but they disagree on the identity of the victor. For Fortunatus the victory was that of Christ through a woman. For Baudonivia the victory was that of a woman who, intently focused on Christ, strove to please God. Two different victors correspond with two different portrayals of the operation of grace.

Fortunatus secured Christ as victor in his introduction by a combination of two Pauline images: (*a*) *in vasis fictilibus thesaurus caeli reconditos* ('heavenly treasure hidden in earthen vessels') (see 2*Cor.* 4:7) and (*b*) *in quarum visceribus cum suis divitiis ipse rex habitator est Christ* ('in whose inmost parts Christ the king with his riches dwells') (see *Col.* 3:16). Like an earthen vessel, Radegund, as a woman, was externally fragile and of little apparent value; yet internally she possessed the *virtute mentis inclitae* ('strength of a glorious mind') provided by the indwelling Christ.[46]

This combination of Pauline images established the tension between external and internal that was to mark Fortunatus' portrayal of Radegund. An audience familiar with Paul would have inferred two further elements. First, what Radegund would accomplish for good was really the work of God within her, for Paul's point in characterizing his ministry in terms of 'earthen vessels' was, in the Apostle's words, 'that it may be made clear that this extraordinary power [of our ministry] belongs to God and does not come from us' (2*Cor.* 4:7). Second, the victory of internal over external was assured, for in the words of Christ to the Apostle: 'My grace is sufficient for you, for power is made perfect in weakness' (2*Cor.* 12:9).

Fortunatus' introduction has given away the conclusion: the indwelling grace of Christ would prevail. The ultimate outcome had been decided by grace before the battle was joined. Nevertheless, strenuous effort would be required of the saint, and, unlike the audience of the *vita*, she possessed no assurance as to the ultimate outcome.

The second *vita Radegundis* presented the saint as a woman who devoted herself entirely to the goal of pleasing God.[47] This characterization shifted the emphasis from the work of the indwelling Christ to the work of Radegund herself.

[46] *Vita Radegundis* 1.1. See J. Kitchen, *Saints' Lives* (1998), 115-24, for an analysis of Fortunatus' treatment of Radegund's gender.

[47] *Vita Radegundis* 2. Prologue.

Digitized by Google

Baudonivia duly acknowledged the divine operation within the saint,[48] but focused her attention on Radegund's own activity. For example, rather than speaking of Christ indwelling Radegund, as Fortunatus had done, Baudonia spoke of Radegund *Christum in pectore gestans* ('bearing Christ in her heart'),[49] and she repeatedly used the phrase *mens intenta ad Christum* ('her mind fixed on Christ').[50] The repetition served to describe and even to explain the character of the saint's actions.

The difference in emphasis extended beyond the saint's death. Whereas Fortunatus assured the reader that now *cuius est vita cum Christo* ('her life is now with Christ'),[51] Baudonivia stated that *inspirante divina potentia cui beata Radegundis placere studuit in saeculo et cum quo regnat post saeculum* ('inspired by divine power the blessed Radegund now reigns in the next world with him whom she wished to please in this one').[52] Even in beatitude she exercised more authority in the second *vita* than in the first.

2. *Grace: electing and prevenient*

Fortunatus' emphasis on Christ's indwelling is reinforced by his description of Radegund's virtuous childhood in Clothar's custody. An allusion to young Samuel, the child called by God and reared by the prophet Eli to be a prophet himself (1*Sam.* 2-4) provides an explanation of her sanctity. She, too, had been set apart or elected by God. Whatever the future might bring, Christ had already made the child his own, although she, painfully aware of her weakness, might not rest secure in that knowledge.

Baudonivia's account began after Radegund had become the wife of Clothar and queen of the Franks. She described Radegund as engaging in almsgiving, the redemption of captives, and obedience to God's servants during her years with Clothar and during her stay in the villa at Saix, as well as after she entered the convent. She had always lived an exemplary Christian life.

For both authors the implication seems to be that the fundamental regenerative activity of grace had taken place prior to any activities of Radegund that they knew about. Perhaps it is significant in this regard that neither biography mentions Radegund's baptism. It may have taken place while she was still in Thuringia. It may have taken place after she became the ward of Clothar so that she might be a Christian wife of a Christian king. Regardless, this definitive

[48] *Vita Radegundis* 2.10, 16, 18.

[49] *Vita Radegundis* 2.2; the biography does speak of Radegund's conviction that *Christum in se habitatorem esse* ('Christ indwelt her') (2.5). This claim comes after Radegund has left Clothar, built the monastery at Poitiers, and surrendered herself to her *caelesti... Sponso* ('her heavenly spouse'). The emphasis remains on her activity rather than on that of Christ.

[50] *Vita Radegundis* 2.2, 5, 9, 13. Similarly she speaks of *mens intenta Deo* (2.8).

[51] *Vita Radegundis* 1.1.

[52] *Vita Radegundis* 2. Prologue.

Digitized by Google

act, which is fundamental to any Augustinian view of grace, was assumed by both authors. Her election and preparation by grace could be taken for granted. They had made possible all that followed.

3. *Perseverance in the Good*

Both biographers described what amounts to perseverance in the good. Both characterized it as a struggle. For Fortunatus it was the tension between the internal (the indwelling Christ) and the external (Radegund's powerlessness) that he had called attention to at the beginning of his account. For Baudonivia it was a struggle between two loves: love for the goods of this life (marriage and her Frankish subjects) and love for the ultimate good (eternity with Christ).

For Fortunatus it was Radegund's years of cohabitation with Clothar that brought into greatest tension the twin realities of her life. Externally, she served at the good pleasure of her husband, the *terreno principi* ('earthly prince'). Internally, *se plus inclinavit voluntas* ('her will inclined more') to Christ, the *caelesti [principi]* ('the heavenly prince'). Even more to the point, the power and privilege accorded to her external status as queen placed in jeopardy the humility essential to her submission to Christ.[53]

After she left Clothar, the struggle continued, although the external became increasingly transparent to the internal reality. Late in the first biography when Radegund engaged in acts of self-mutilation, the torments could be construed as attempts to make the external consistent with the internal. Specifically, as Christ dwelt within her, her own act of branding her flesh with the cross, may well have been a means, appallingly literal, of fulfilling the words of the Apostle, who 'carr[ied] the marks of Christ branded on [his] body' (*Gal.* 6:17).[54] The external now was a true manifestation of the internal.[55]

The external was not simply her mutilated body, however, but also her way of life. Increasingly, Radegund's actions corresponded with the gospel accounts of Christ himself. Healing the sick, exorcising demons, rescuing those in distress, raising the dead: Christ, working through Radegund, did not fail (1.27-35, 37).[56] The treasure was no longer hidden. The earthen vessel had become transparent to the one who indwelt it. In her life, and finally in her death, what one finds is the victory of Christ. Her perseverance, God's gift, was a matter of complete conformity to Christ.

The struggle is far more complex in Baudonivia's account. The two most dramatic episodes occur when Radegund, after having left Clothar, hears that

[53] *Vita Radegundis* 1.3.

[54] *Vita Radegundis* 1.25-6.

[55] J. Kitchen, *Saints' Lives* (1998), 117-22, argues that in Fortunatus' portrayal of the saint, 'self-inflicted suffering, graphically detailed, is the distinguishing feature of Radegund's holiness'. He sees Fortunatus' emphasis on 'self-torture' as directly related to the gender of his subject, 117-22.

[56] *Vita Radegundis* 1.27-35, 37.

Digitized by Google

he wants to reclaim her as his queen: the first episode while she was at Saix in a villa that Clothar had given her and the other after she had entered the monastery at Poitiers that she had built with Clothar's agreement.[57] On both occasions Radegund prevailed against her husband; yet Clothar's attempts to win her back provoked a crisis within the queen.[58]

She was caught between competing loves: Radegund's love for Christ and her love for the *dulcedo* ('sweetness') of her marriage and for her *patria* ('fatherland').[59] She feared that because of the goods of this world she *peregrinaretur a Christo* ('would be walking away from Christ').[60] The tension within her could be resolved only when she, with Clothar's consent, turned completely to Christ. Baudonivia described that choice as a decision for exile. It was a voluntary act, taken with personal anguish, for the sake of her salvation.

4. *Assurance of salvation*

As we have noted, both biographies begin by telling the end, union with God in paradise. The audience, unlike Radegund, knows the outcome. In Fortunatus' account, although Radegund worked with Christ to make the external congruent with the internal, the tension of working toward that outcome was never relaxed – by either party.

In contrast, in Baudonivia's account Radegund was granted two visions, both assuring her that ultimately she would join Christ in paradise. These visions did not lessen her efforts to remain focused in her devotion to Christ, but there was a turn in her devotion from herself to the community of nuns. Freed from her responsibility to Clothar she was able to accept the community of women as her new family and to devote her energies to their preparation for beatitude. At this point, the influence of Caesarius' *Regula virginum* becomes unmistakable. The Rule begins with the image of the wise virgins who are prepared for the arrival of the bridegroom (see *Matth.* 25:1-13).[61] Near the conclusion of the Rule Caesarius assures the nuns that wholehearted vigilance in keeping the Rule will enable the nuns to obtain eternal beatitude.[62] Even more vividly, Radegund assured the nuns that service to Christ would enable them to say *Da, Domine, quod promisisti, quia fecimus quod iussisti* ('Give, Lord what you have

[57] *Vita Radegundis* 2.4-7; Gregory of Tours, *Hist.* 9.42. Gregory included a copy of the letter that Radegund had written to the bishops, in which she had described the foundation of the convent.

[58] *Vita Radegundis* 2.4-7.

[59] Baudonivia portrays Radegund as considering the land of the Franks as her fatherland, not Thuringia. Fortunatus' account of the marriage has often been used as authoritative for the interpretation of Baudonivia's account. In what follows I offer an alternative perspective on Baudonivia's account.

[60] *Vita Radegundis* 2.4.

[61] Caesarius, *Regula virginum* 1 (SC 345).

[62] *Regula Virginum* 63.

Digitized by Google

promised, as we have done what you have commanded').[63] Radegund's attentions gave her daughters confidence that at their own death she who has gone before them would greet them and lead them into the heavenly community. Radegund's perseverance was shaped by the choices she had made and the community that she had chosen to serve.[64]

The difference from Fortunatus' account is striking. The poet had expressed no interest in the community of nuns to which Radegund was bound. We find no evidence of her personal attachment, except to Christ. The saint served those in need, whoever they were. There was an impersonal character to Fortunatus' Radegund; she was a vehicle for the work of sovereign grace.

Two perspectives on grace

In our look at these two *vitae* we have identified two distinctive theological perspectives. The first presents the saint as the vehicle of the unerring work of sovereign grace. Fortunatus from beginning to end portrayed Radegund through an unabashedly Augustinian lens. In Baudonivia's account, the victory was that of Radegund as aided but not compelled by grace. Both portrayals are Augustinian. The question is one of influences.

Is there any reason to think that Fortunatus' particular strand of Augustinianism was taken from Prosper? It is certainly possible. Fortunatus, an Italian who migrated to Gaul, could have had access to Prosper's work either in Italy or in Gaul. Nevertheless, attributing Fortunatus'Augustinianism to acquaintance with Prosper seems unnecessarily complicated. Fortunatus presumably had little, if any, acquaintance with Lerinian monasticism or the Semi-Pelagian controversy. The fact that his biography seems unaware of the canons and decrees of the Second Council of Orange of 529 as well as the *Regula virginum* of Caesarius, which ordered the lives of the nuns of Holy Cross, suggests that he was unfamiliar with or uninterested in the battles over grace of the fifth and early sixth centuries. He took his Augustine neat. One result of that was that the Radegund whom he portrayed was something of a saint for all seasons, a container for the work of grace, not a highly individualized figure.

Baudonivia's portrayal of human agency as assisted by grace was consistent with the modified form of Augustinianism preached by Caesarius, contained in his *Regula virginum*, and accepted in 529 at the Second Council of Orange as the resolution of the Semi-Pelagian controversy. Can we detect the influence of Prosper here? Yes. A majority of the canons of Orange were based on Prosper's *Liber sententiarum*, although the emphasis in this document on the capacity of the will following baptism was decidedly Caesarian.

[63] *Vita Radegundis* 2.8.
[64] *Vita Radegundis* 2.20, 22.

Digitized by Google

The differences in the dramatizations of these two theological patterns may also help to explain differences from one biography to the other in what we might call the personality of the saint. As we have noted, Baudonivia's Radegund was a far more complex figure than was Fortunatus' Radegund.

In the first biography Radegund in life and death served those around her; yet she remained a somewhat isolated and impersonal figure even when performing the most intimate of services for those in need.[65] Nor did Fortunatus provide evidence that Radegund had a close tie to anyone in the convent. Her bond was to the indwelling Christ, who worked in and through her to achieve good for others.

In contrast, the second biography presented a woman who was tied by bonds of affection primarily to Christ but also to her husband, to the Franks, and to the nuns who gathered around her. Baudonia's saint retained her integrity as a complex human person. The *mens intenta ad Christum* was still her own mind with its peculiar preoccupations. She was a saint precisely for the Franks. This specificity was connected, I believe, to the second theological pattern with its emphasis on human agency following baptism. It is not simply the grace of Christ working through a saint, but a woman working her saintly way with the support of Christ. Nor is it the grace of Christ working with a particular individual in specific circumstances, but the baptized female who made her choices in the oppressive and difficult situations of her life, imbued by grace, but steering her way in and through all the difficulties.

What can we learn about the legacy of Prosper from this look at the two *vitae* of Radegund? Is there any significance to be attached to his apparent lack of influence on the first biography and his, at most, indirect influence on the second? I think that there is. Prosper had invested years trying to sort out the tangles of grace and human agency. His work was in Gaul and in Italy. He was not an obscure figure. People knew of him, at least from his *Liber sententiarum* and *Chronicon*. Yet in these two *vitae*, in which divergent assumptions about divine grace and human agency play such a significant part in shaping the strikingly different presentations of the saint, there is no evidence that either Fortunatus or Baudonivia drew upon the work of Prosper.

Baudonivia, the cloistered nun living under the Caesarian Rule, would presumably have had no reason to know of him. Bishop Fortunatus' apparent ignorance of Prosper is more surprising. The *vita* he composed reveals a knowledge and appropriation of Augustine's teachings of nature and grace. They provided him with an explanatory framework in which to place the saint. That he did not need or perhaps even know of either Prosper's teaching or Caesarius's teaching on these topics suggests that it would be Augustine himself, not his interpreters, who would become the reference point on this convoluted topic in the years to come.

[65] *Vita Radegundis* 1.17, 19.

Digitized by Google

The Authorship of the Ps.-Augustinian *Hypomnesticon*, Part II

Alexander Y. HWANG, St. Louis, Missouri

The authorship of the fifth century work, *Hypomnesticon contra Pelagianos et Caelestianos haereticos*, has been attributed to various figures including Augustine, Marius Mercator, Pope Sixtus III, Augustine of Aquileia, and Prosper of Aquitaine. Forty years ago, John Edward Chisholm presented a paper at this conference in support of Prosper's authorship.[1] This short communication revisits Chisholm's arguments and offers a new theory on the identity of the author: that the author was not Prosper, but another member of the pro-Augustine party in southern Gaul.

The question of the authorship of the *Hypomnesticon* has progressed in three phases.[2] The first phase (ninth century) was limited to the question of whether or not Augustine was the author, and ended with a denial of his authorship. The second phase (seventeenth to twentieth century) has sought to identify the author, but although several possible authors were proposed, the authorship remained unresolved. The third phase was initiated by Chisholm, who, in 1967, gave a short communication at this conference, which was based on the first volume of his work on the *Hypomnesticon*, published in that same year. The long promised second volume containing the critical edition of the *Hypomnesticon* was published in 1980.[3] Only one direct response to Chisholm's argument for Prosper's authorship has appeared since – Jean de Savignac's 1983 brief critique in the journal *Scriptorium*.[4] Dekkers listed the work among the Ps.-Augustinian works and, quoting Savignac, concluded the *Hypomnesticon non est Prosperi Aquitani, ut quidam proponunt*.[5] Dekkers omitted the *Hypomnesticon* even among the spurious works of Prosper.

[1] John Edward Chisholm, The Authorship of the pseudo-Augustinian *Hypomnesticon* against the Pelagians and Celestians: *SP* 11 (1972) 307-10.

[2] The first two phases in the debate on its authorship are detailed in John Edward Chisholm's first volume of his work on the *Hypomnesticon* (*The Pseudo-Augustinian Hypomnesticon Against the Pelagians and Celestians*, vol. 1 [Fribourg, Switzerland, 1967], 41-62), which contributes to the third stage.

[3] John Edward Chisholm (ed.), *The Pseudo-Augustinian Hypomnesticon Against the Pelagians and Celestians*, vol. 2 (Fribourg, Switzerland, 1980).

[4] Jean de Savignac, Une attribution nouvelle et une édition critique de l'*Hypomnesticon*: *Scriptorium* 37 (1983) 134-40.

[5] Eligius Dekkers, *Clavis patrum latinorum: qua in corpus christianorum edendum optimas quasque scriptorum recensiones a Tertulliano ad Bedam*, 3rd ed. (Turnhout, 1995), 151.

Studia Patristica XLIX, 395-399.
© Peeters Publishers, 2010.

Digitized by Google

Chisholm concluded in favor of Prosper's authorship based on the similarities between the *Hypomnesticon* and Prosper's known works, especially *De vocatione omnium gentium*, in the title, doctrine, scriptural quotations, style, vocabulary, and in light of the weak objections to Prosper's authorship.[6]

Savignac disagreed with Chisholm's conclusion for two main reasons. First, the comparison of the *Hypomnesticon* to the *De vocatione omnium gentium* could not be used in support of Prosper's authorship of the *Hypomnesticon*. Second, George de Plinval did not endorse Chisholm's argument for Prosper's authorship.

Savignac objected to Chisholm's comparison of the *De vocatione omnium gentium* to the *Hypomnesticon* because Savignac did not believe Prosper to be the author of the *De vocatione omnium gentium*.[7] However, Prosper's authorship of the *De vocatione omnium gentium* has since been firmly established.[8]

Savignac's second objection remains. Chisholm had eagerly pointed out that in a private conversation, de Plinval came to agree with his dating of the work, between 430 and 435, but Chisholm was silent on whether de Plinval agreed with his conclusion of Prosper's authorship, which was the more significant issue.[9] The weight of de Plinval's favorable opinion would have no doubt strengthened Chisholm's conclusion. Savignac suggested, and I believe rightly so, that the absence of such an approval was indicative of an unfavorable response from de Plinval.[10]

Thus, the question of Prosper's authorship seems unresolved. The argument in favor of Prosper's authorship for the *Hypomnesticon* based on similarities to Prosper's other known works is tenable, but textual similarities do not necessarily point to a single author. The implication of de Plinval's inferred disapproval carries considerable weight, but this alone is not conclusive. There is, however, one more argument that neither Chisholm nor Savignac fully considered. The purpose and composition of the *Hypomnesticon* are inconsistent with Prosper's concerns and method of argumentation.

The preface of the *Hypomnesticon* explicitly states that the work will answer five blasphemies from the heresy of the Pelagians and Caelestians.[11] A sixth

[6] J.E. Chisholm, *Pseudo-Augustinian Hypomnesticon*, vol. 1 (1967), 77-129; Prosper, *De vocatione omnium gentium* (PL 51, 647-722).

[7] J. de Savignac, Une attribution nouvelle (1963), 140.

[8] See R.A. Markus, Chronicle and Theology, in: *The Inheritance of Historiography 350-900*, Christopher Holdsworth and T.P. Wiseman (eds.) (Exeter, 1986), 31-43, 36.

[9] J.E. Chisholm, *Pseudo-Augustinian Hypomnesticon*, vol. 1 (1967), 24, n. 5: 'Since writing the above, I had the pleasure of meeting M. Georges de Plinval and of discussing with him the date of Hypomnesticon. I am happy to be able to say now (1965) M. de Plinval agrees with me in saying the Hypomnesticon was written prior to 435'.

[10] J. de Savignac, Une attribution nouvelle (1963), 138: 'Georges de Plinval n'a pas ratifié cette opinion (see Vol. 1, p. 129, note). Elle se heurte en effet à des difficultés insurmontables'.

[11] *Hypomnesticon*, Praef. (101-3 Chisholm).

Digitized by Google

response was later added to deal with a new situation, that of the objections to predestination.[12] Thus the work was originally limited to the refutation of the Pelagian heresy.

This could not have been the work of Prosper for three related reasons. Prosper never limited his attention to the Pelagians; he began his polemical writing career over the issue of predestination, which became his primary concern; and he was in the habit of prefacing his attacks on his Gallic opponents by first establishing the error of the Pelagians, thereby linking his opponents with the heresy. This was his consistent method of opposing his enemies, which is at odds with the approach taken by the author of the *Hypomnesticon*.

Therefore, on the question of whether Prosper was the author of the *Hypomnesticon*, the weight of de Plinval's implied disapproval, Dekkers's judgment, the reasons stated above, and the general scholarly consensus for anonymity favors the conclusion that Prosper was not the author of the *Hypomnesticon*.

While Prosper was not the author, there are good reasons to believe that the work may have come from a member of the pro-Augustine party in southern Gaul, of which Prosper was the leader. The date of the work and the peculiar re-interpretation of Augustine's doctrine of predestination are consistent with three other works written by Augustine's supporters in southern Gaul – the *perfectae gratiae intrepidi amatores*.[13]

The three works are Prosper's *Pro Augustino responsiones ad capitula obiectionum Gallorum calumniantium* and *Pro Augustino responsiones ad capitula obiectionum Vincentiarum*, and the anonymous *Capitula sancti Augustini in urbem Romam transmissa*.[14] These three works were written around the same period as that of the *Hypomnesticon*, between 430 and 435.

In addition to the date of composition, the three works share a peculiar defense of Augustine's doctrine of predestination with the *Hypomnesticon*. All four works defend Augustine, but each contains an explanation for non-predestination that is completely at odds with Augustine's later teachings: non-predestination based on God's foreknowledge.[15]

In *Responsiones ad capitula obiectionum Gallorum* Prosper refutes fifteen objections to Augustine's teachings on predestination by drawing faithfully from Augustine's works, except in the answers to objections two and three.[16] At the end of the answer to objection two Prosper states, 'since God's prescience was

[12] *Hypomnesticon* 6.1 (191 Chisholm): *Addere etiam hoc quam maxime huic operi oportet ut et vestra calumnia... revincatur.*

[13] Prosper (Aug.), *Ep.* 225.7 (CSEL 57, 465).

[14] Prosper, *Pro Augustino responsiones ad capitula obiectionum Gallorum calumniantium* (PL 51, 155-74); *id.*, *Pro Augustino responsiones ad capitula obiectionum Vincentiarum* (PL 51, 177-86); *Capitula sancti Augustini in urbem Romam transmissa* (CChr.SL 85A, 243-73).

[15] See Aug., *praed. sanct.* 13.25 (PL 44, 978-9).

[16] *Res. Gall.*, Praef. (PL 51, 156-7): *In nullo recedens a tramite earum definitionum quae in sancti viri disputationibus continentur.*

Digitized by Google

neither uncertain nor mistaken about the future actions of this man, He never elected nor predestined him, nor did He set apart from eternal damnation him who was to be a reprobate'.[17] The same view is expressed in the answer to objection three: 'Rather, the reason why they were not of the predestined is that God foreknew they would be impenitent through their own fault'.[18] This is also repeated again in the conclusion to the answer: 'And though they were reborn from sinfulness and made just, yet they were not predestined by God, who foreknew that they would be impenitent'.[19] Prosper maintains the Augustinian view of predestination to salvation in the work, but introduces the view that God's withholding of predestination is based on God's foreknowledge.

In *Responsiones ad capitula obiectionum Vincentiarum* Prosper maintains the same view of predestination expressed in his responses to the Gauls. Prosper answers the objections faithfully adhering to Augustine's teachings, except in the answer to objection twelve where he explains: 'And because God foresaw that they would fall, they were not predestined'.[20]

The anonymous *Capitula* presents twenty statements selected from the works of Augustine concerning the issue of grace. Like Prosper's two responses, the *Capitula* is faithful to Augustine's doctrine of predestination, except in explaining the reason for non-predestination. In explaining why some are not predestined, the *Capitula* answered that God excludes on the basis of God's foreknowledge of future sins. God's foreknowledge does not cause the free will to sin; rather, God foreknows the sins that will be committed by the free will.[21]

The same peculiar explanation for the withholding of predestination is expressed in the *Hypomnesticon*.[22] Like the three works just mentioned, Augustine's doctrine of grace is defended, but, in two places in the work, the author asserts that God's decision to withhold predestination is based on God's foreknowledge of the sinful lives they would have led.[23]

Thus, we have four documents written around the same time, most likely in the same location, that share a common understanding and defense of Augustine's doctrine of grace. The evidence suggests that all the authors were members of the pro-Augustine party in southern Gaul. At this point in the debate

[17] *Res. Gall.* 1.2 (PL 51, 158): *Quod quia Dei praescientiam nec latuit, nec fefellit, sine dubio talem numquam elegit, numquam praedestinavit, et periturum numquam ab aeterna perditione discrevit.*

[18] *Res. Gall.* 1.3 (PL 51, 158; *Answers to Gauls*, 141): *Sed ideo praedestinati non sunt, quia tales futuri ex voluntaria praevaricatione praesciti sunt.*

[19] *Res. Gall.* 1.3 (PL 51, 159): *Atque ab hoc licet fuerint renati, fuerint justificati, ab eo tamen qui illos tales praescivit non sunt praedestinati.*

[20] *Res. Vinc.* 12 (PL 51, 184): *Et quia praesciti sunt casuri, non sunt praedestinati.*

[21] *Capitula* 14.17 (CChr.SL 85A, 260-1): *a numero fidelium prorsus excluditur – non quod praescientia dei liberum nostrum peccare cogat arbitrium, quamuis per ipsum liberum arbitrium nos peccaturos esse praescierit.*

[22] *Hypomnesticon* 6.2, 6.5 (192, 198 Chisholm).

[23] See *Hypomnesticon* 6.2, 6.5 (192, 198 Chisholm).

Digitized by Google

involving the pro-Augustine party and those opposed to Augustine's doctrine of predestination, the pro-Augustine party appears to have made modifications in their defense of Augustine's doctrine of predestination. Those who opposed Augustine's doctrine of predestination made the logical connection between single and double predestination; that is, if God was active in salvation, God must also be active in damnation. Augustine and the pro-Augustine party argued for the former, but appealed to the mysterious nature of God's will when it came to the latter. This explanation failed to satisfy their opponents, and perhaps themselves over time. Instead of leaving non-predestination as a divine mystery, the pro-Augustine party softened their stance and insisted that those not predestined were rightly denied this gift because God foresaw they would live an evil life.

The author of the *Hypomnesticon* was a member of the pro-Augustine party, but the specific author remains unknown. There are a few possibilities from what we know of the makeup of the group. By 427, when Prosper and Hilary wrote their letters to Augustine, the circle consisted of at least three persons: Prosper, Hilary, and the deacon Leontius.[24] Prosper's and Hilary's letters to Augustine mentioned Leontius – Prosper sent an earlier letter to Augustine (now lost) through Leontius, and Hilary passed on greetings from Leontius to Augustine in his letter.[25] Nothing is known about the deacon Leontius except that he was an admirer and acquaintance of Augustine's, and knew both Prosper and Hilary. In addition to the three, there may be four more. Hilary sent greetings from his parents to Augustine in the same letter and asked Augustine to pray for his brother and his brother's wife as they lead a life of continence; however, the extent of their involvement in the defense of Augustine is unclear.[26]

The author of the *Hypomnesticon* could be Leontius, Hilary, Hilary's parents, Hilary's brother, or sister-in-law. It is equally possible that the author could have come from another member of the pro-Augustine party not mentioned specifically by Hilary or Prosper.

Prosper was not the author of the *Hypomnesticon*, but the work points to an author who was a member of the pro-Augustine party in southern Gaul.

[24] Prosper (Aug.), *Ep.* 225 (CSEL 57, 454-68); Hilary (Aug.), *Ep.* 226 (CSEL 57, 468-81). It is uncertain if this was the same Hilary who wrote to Augustine in 414-5 from Sicily; (Aug.), *Ep.* 156 (CSEL 44, 448-9). M. Tillemont (*Mémoires pour sevir à l'histoire ecclésiastique des six premiers siècles*, 13 [Paris, 1702], 640) argued in favor of the identification. Prosper's personal circle of friends included Rufinus, to whom he wrote a letter, and an unnamed mutual friend mentioned in the same letter. These two friends do not appear to have been part of Prosper's Augustinian circle, see *Ep. ad Rufinum* 1.1 (PL 51, 77).

[25] Prosper (Aug.), *Ep.* 225.1 (CSEL 57, 454-5); Hilary (Aug.), *Ep.* 226.10 (CSEL 57, 480).

[26] Hilary (Aug.), *Ep.* 226.10 (CSEL 57, 480-1).

Digitized by Google

Digitized by Google

Table of Contents of Vols. XLIV-XLIX

Vol. XLIV

I. Archaeologica, Arts, Iconographica

James A. FRANCIS, Lexington, Kentucky
Biblical not Scriptural: Perspectives on Early Christian Art from Contemporary Classical Scholarship 3
Peter WIDDICOMBE, Hamilton, Ontario
The Drunkenness of Noah and the Patristic Legacy in Text and Art 9
Lee M. JEFFERSON, Danville, Kentucky
Superstition and the Significance of the Image of Christ Performing Miracles in Early Christian Art 15
Rocco BORGOGNONI, Firenze
No Animals in the New Paradise? The 'Hall of Philia' from Antioch and the Patristic Exegesis of Isaiah's 'Peaceable Kingdom' 21
Anne KARAHAN, Stockholm
The Issue of περιχώρησις in Byzantine Holy Images 27
István M. BUGÁR, Debrecen
Images of Jews and Christians in the Seventh Century: The *Narratio de Imagine in Beryto* and its Context 35
Vladimir BARANOV, Novosibirsk
The Doctrine of the Icon-Eucharist for the Byzantine Iconoclasts.... 41

II. Tools

Martin GEORGE, Bern & Katharina BRACHT, Munich
Mneme Database Church History: A Presentation 49

III. Historica

Josef RIST, Bochum
Das Orakel des Apollon in Daphne und das Christentum 57
Thomas HEYNE, Oxford
Were Second-Century Christians 'Preoccupied' with Physical Healing and the Asclepian Cult? 63
Dennis Paul QUINN, Pomona, California
Roman Household Deities in the Latin Christian Writers: Tertullian, Arnobius, and Lactantius 71

Digitized by Google

Claire SOTINEL, Tours
Ancient Christianity and the Techniques of Information 77
David WOODS, Cork
The Deathbed Conversion of Galerius Maximianus to Religious Tolerance: Fact or Fraud? 85
Mikhail M. KAZAKOV, Smolensk, Russia
Letters of Western Bishops to the Emperor Theodosius I and Relations between Eastern and Western Churches at the End of the Fourth Century 91
David L. RIGGS, Marion, Indiana
Apologetic Performance and Saint Stephen as Civic Patron in Late Roman Africa 105
Vincenzo MESSANA, Palermo
Aspetti istituzionali e riferimenti normativi in Salviano di Marsiglia 111
Salvatore COSTANZA, Agrigento
Fonti patristiche sulla Sicilia nella valutazione degli studiosi contemporanei 119
Geoffrey GREATREX, Ottawa
The Fall of Macedonius Reconsidered 125

IV. Biblica

Benoît GAIN, Grenoble
Le respect dû au Livre des Écritures: Quelques témoignages patristiques 133
Eric SCHERBENSKE, Chapel Hill
The Vulgate *Primum Quaeritur*, Codex Fuldensis and the Hermeneutical Role of Early Christian Introductory Materials 139
Joseph VERHEYDEN, Leuven
Before Embarking on an Adventure: Some Preliminary Remarks on Writing the NTP Commentary on the *Gospel of Mark* 145
Enrica RUARO, Caprauna
Flying with Fleshy Wings: Ps.-Basil's Demonology in the Exegesis of *Isaiah* 2:20 157
Paul M. BLOWERS, Johnson City, Tennessee
Making Ends Meet: Variable Uses of the Psalm Title *Unto the End* (εἰς τὸ τέλος) in Greek Patristic Commentators on the Psalter 163
Hanneke REULING, Haarlem
Rabbinic Responses to Christian Appropriation of the Hebrew Bible: The Case of *Psalm* 22:1 (MT) 177
Catherine Brown TKACZ, Spokane, Washington
Esther as a Type of Christ and the Jewish Celebration of Purim 183

Digitized by Google

Hannah HUNT, Leeds
Sexuality and Penitence in Syriac Commentaries on Luke's Sinful Woman 189
Stephen MORRIS, New York
Blood and Holy Communion: Late Antique Use of *Luke* 8:42-8 195
Mark EDWARDS, Oxford
Orthodox Corruption? *John* 1:18 201
Hellen DAYTON, Washington DC
On the Use of *Luke* 10:38-42 – Jesus in the House of Mary and Martha – for Instruction in Contemplative Prayer in the Patristic Tradition 207
Jonathan YATES, Villanova, Pennsylvania
The Use of *Rom.* 2:14-5 in the Christian Latin Tradition ca. 365-ca. 411 – Augustine Excepted 213
Marco RIZZI, Milan
Romans 13 in Early Christian Exegesis 227
Judith L. KOVACS, Charlottesville, Virginia
A Letter 'Weighty and Powerful': The Importance of 1*Corinthians* in the Early Church 235
Riemer ROUKEMA, Zwolle
Paul's Admonitions on Idol Offerings (1*Cor.* 8 and 10) in Patristic Interpretation 249
Ilaria RAMELLI, Milan
In Illud: Tunc et ipse Filius...: Gregory of Nyssa's Exegesis, its Derivations from Origen, and Early Patristic Interpretations Related to Origen's 259
Dominika A. KUREK-CHOMYCZ, Leuven
Scenting the Aroma of Christ: 2*Cor.* 2:15-6 in Origen's Interpretation 275
Blossom STEFANIW, Erfurt
Exegetical Curricula in Origen, Didymus, and Evagrius: Pedagogical Agenda and the Case for Neoplatonist Influence 281

V. Theologica, Philosophica, Ethica

Marie-Odile BOULNOIS, Paris
'Dieu jalous': Embarras et controverses autour d'un nom divin dans la littérature patristique 297
Kari KLOOS, Regis University, Denver
Christ the Revealer: Patristic Views of the Mediation of Christ in the Old Testament 315
Columba STEWART, Collegeville
Monastic Attitudes toward Philosophy and Philosophers 321

Digitized by Google

Jennifer NIMMO SMITH, Edinburgh
From Gorgias to Gregory of Nazianzus – a Platonic Formula Revisited 329
Frances YOUNG, Birmingham
Creation and Human Being: The Forging of a Distinct Christian Discourse 335
Julia KONSTANTINOVSKY, Oxford
Soul and Body in Early Christian Thought: A Unified Duality? 349
Stefanie FROST, Göttingen
How the Early Christians Discovered the Soul 355
Richard SORABJI, Oxford
Graeco-Roman Origins of the Idea of Moral Conscience 361
Vít HUŠEK, Olomouc, Czech Republic
Human Freedom According to the Earliest Latin Commentaries on Paul's Letters 385
Rowan WILLIAMS, Canterbury
'Tempted as we are': Christology and the Analysis of the Passions 391
Kevin UHALDE, Athens, Ohio
The Sinful Subject: Doing Penance in Rome 405
Hennie STANDER, Pretoria
The Church Fathers on Pity 415
Karin SCHLAPBACH, Ottawa
Spectaculum naturae as 'Theatrical' Experience: New Uses of an Old Comparison 421
Carol HARRISON, Durham
Transformative Listening: Constructing the Hearer in Early Christianity 427
Geoffrey D. DUNN, Brisbane
The Functions of Mary in the Christmas Homilies of Augustine of Hippo 433
Antonia ATANASSOVA, Boston College
Theological and Cultic Components of Mariology in the Context of Ephesus 447
Elena GIANNARELLI, Firenze
Body, Clothing and Female Identity 461
Valeria NOVEMBRI, Siena
Philosophia and Christian Culture: An Antidote for Female Weakness in Jerome's Letters 471
Leena Mari PELTOMAA, Vienna
Roles and Functions of Mary in the Hymnography of Romanos Melodos 487
Francesca DI MARCO, Firenze
Undressed: The Naked Female Body as a Sign of Holiness in Apocryphal and Hagiographical Literature 499

Digitized by Google

Stephen J. SHOEMAKER, Eugene, Oregon
Asceticism in the Early Dormition Narratives 509
Niki TSIRONIS, Athens
Desire, Longing and Fear in the Narrative of Middle-Byzantine Homiletics 515
Peter GEMEINHARDT, Göttingen
Holiness and Education in Late Antique Hagiography 521
Piotr ASHWIN-SIEJKOWSKI, Chichester
Porphyry's *Sententiae* an Ethical/Spiritual Guidebook to the Neoplatonic Life 527
Bronwen NEIL, Brisbane
Blessed are the Rich: Leo the Great and the Roman Poor 533
Brian MATZ, Leuven
Alleviating Economic Injustice in Gregory of Nyssa's *Contra usurarios* 549

Vol. XLV

VI. Ascetica

Liviu BARBU, London
'Charisma' vs. 'Institution'? The Ascetics and the Church 3
Richard FINN, Oxford
Early Christian Asceticism and Almsgiving: Origen's Ascetic Beginnings 9
D.F. BUMAZHNOV, Tübingen
Some Further Observations Concerning the Early History of the Term MONAXOΣ (Monk) 21
Graham GOULD, London
The Collection of *Apophthegmata Patrum* in *Palladii Lausiaca* 20 (PL 74, 377-82) 27
Per RÖNNEGÅRD, Lund
The Use of Scripture in *Apophthegmata Patrum* in Light of the *Ergasia* Pattern 35
Kristi UPSON-SAIA, Los Angeles
Gender and Narrative Performance in Early Christian Cross-Dressing Saints' *Lives* 43
Marianne SÁGHY, Budapest
AMATOR CASTITATIS: Pope Damasus and the Politics of Asceticism 49
Andreas E.J. GROTE, Würzburg
No *scriptorium* in the Monastery of Carthage? Observations on Writing and Manual Labour in Augustine's *De opere monachorum* 55

Digitized by Google

Paula BARATA DIAS, Coimbra
The *Libellus De Regularibus Obseruantiis* (Bib. Vat. Reginensis lat. 17, ff. 146r-154v): New Perspectives Concerning the Permanence of the *Regula Mixta* Monastic System after the Carolingian Age 61

VII. Liturgica

Joseph G. MUELLER, Milwaukee, Wisconsin
Jewish Roots of Ancient Episcopal Election 71
Robin JENSEN, Nashville
'With Pomp, Apparatus, Novelty, and Avarice': Alternative Baptismal Practices in Roman Africa 77
Liuwe H. WESTRA, Lollum
How Did *Symbolum* Come to Mean 'Creed'? 85
Charles A. BOBERTZ, Collegeville, Minnesota
Ritual Eucharist Within Narrative: A Comparison of *Didache* 9-10 with *Mark* 6:31-44; 8:1-9 93
Peter LEE, Bishop Auckland
The Eucharist and Reservation in Early Centuries 101
Michael ZHELTOV, Moscow
The Sanctus and the First Epiclesis in the Anaphoras of the Egyptian Type 105
Jonathan J. ARMSTRONG, Oxford
The Paschal Controversy and the Emergence of the Fourfold Gospel Canon 115
Rita ZANOTTO, Bologna
Liturgia ariana: tracce nei monumenti e mosaici di Ravenna 125
Oleh SHCHURYK, Leuven
The Christological Position of Acacius of Melitene in the Context of the Council of Ephesus 431 131
Hagit AMIRAV, Amsterdam
Political and Social Networks in the Council of Chalcedon: The Imperial Commission 139
Thomas GRAUMANN, Cambridge
Towards the Reception of the Council of Ephesus (431): Public Sentiment and Early Theological Responses 147
Raúl VILLEGAS MARÍN, Barcelona
Lucidus on Predestination: The Damnation of Augustine's Predestinationism in the Synods of Arles (473) and Lyons (474) 163
Patrick T.R. GRAY, Port Hope, Ontario
Disappearing Acts: The Greek Acts of Constantinople II 169
A. Edward SIECIENSKI, Dallas
Avoiding the Sin of Ham: Dealing with Errors in the Works of the Fathers 175

Digitized by Google

VIII. Orientalia

Sebastian P. BROCK, Oxford
Dramatic Narrative Poems on Biblical Topics in Syriac 183
Michael Philip PENN, South Hadley, Massachusetts
Piety and the Pumice Stone: Erasure in Syriac Manuscripts 197
Colette PASQUET, Paris
L'homme, lien de l'univers, dans la tradition syro-orientale 203
Glen W. BOWERSOCK, Institute for Advanced Study, Princeton
Helena's Bridle, Ethiopian Christianity, and Syriac Apocalyptic 211
Thomas KREMER, Trier
Gute und böse Tiere im Genesiskommentar Ephräms des Syrers 221
Jan Willem DRIJVERS, Groningen
The Emperor Jovian as New Constantine in the Syriac *Julian Romance* 229
Christian LANGE, Bamberg
'From that Moment Rome, even like the Church, was Rent in Twain' – Syriac Chronographers on the End of the Western Empire 235
Nestor KAVVADAS, Tübingen
On the Relations between the Eschatological Doctrine of Isaac of Nineveh and Theodore of Mopsuestia 245
Lela KHOPERIA, Tbilisi
One Georgian Witness and the Literary Heritage of John Xiphilinos 251
Tina TSERADZE, Tbilisi
Georgian Manuscripts of Kelliotic Type 257
Peter BRUNS, Bamberg
Wer war Paul der Perser? 263

IX. Critica et Philologica

Hugh A.G. HOUGHTON, Birmingham
'Flattening' in Latin Biblical Citations 271
Jean REYNARD, Lyon
Le *Mystère des lettres grecques*: Un inédit à paraître aux Sources Chrétiennes 277

X. The First Two centuries

Earl MULLER, Detroit
A Distinctive Feature of Early Roman Angelomorphic Christology. 285
Carol DOWNER, Redhill
The Nature of the Resurrection Scenes in M581, the Martyrdom of St Pteleme, and Other Early Christian Hagiographic Texts 291

Digitized by Google

Taras KHOMYCH, Leuven
The Motif of Gathering in *Didache* 14 Reconsidered 297
David Charles ROBINSON, Stouffville, Ontario
The Problem of διψυχία in the *Shepherd* of Hermas 303
Karl F. MORRISON, New Brunswick, New Jersey
How to Feed on Empty Images: The Shepherd of Hermas and the Witch of Endor 309
David O'BRIEN, Melbourne
Entering the Kingdom with Difficulty: The Self-sufficient Life as the Quest for Wealthy Believers in the *Shepherd of Hermas* and Clement of Alexandria's *Quis Dives Salvetur* and *Paedagogus* 325
Tim HEGEDUS, Waterloo, Ontario
Midrash in the Letter of Barnabas 331
Charles E. HILL, Orlando, Florida
Serapion of Antioch, the *Gospel of Peter*, and a Four Gospel Canon 337
Helen RHEE, Santa Barbara, California
Wealth and the Wealthy in the *Acts of Peter* 343
Jerónimo LEAL, Roma
Nota Martyrologica: el sueño de Dinócrates en la *Passio Perpetuae* y las fuentes de la *Passio Fabii Vexilliferi* 349
Denis MINNS, Oxford
The Text of Justin's *Apologies* 355
John A. ADAIR, Dallas
The Power and Will of God: Justin's Christological Confession 361
Michael J. SVIGEL, Dallas
The Center of Ignatius of Antioch's Catholic Christianity 367
David M. REIS, Bridgewater, Virginia
Surveillance, Interrogation, and Discipline: Inside Ignatius' Panopticon 373
Ferdinando BERGAMELLI, Turin
'Lasciatemi ricevere la pura luce! Là giunto, sarò uomo' (*Romani* 6.2). Lineamenti essenziali di antropologia ignaziana 379
Timothy MCCONNELL, Charlottesville, Virginia
Ignatius of Antioch: Death Wish or Last Request of a Condemned Man? 385
Paul HARTOG, Des Moines, Iowa
Polycarp's Martyrdom 'According to the Gospel' and Paul's Philippians 391
Anthony BRIGGMAN, Round Lake Beach, Illinois
Dating Irenaeus' Acquisition of Theophilus' Correspondence *To Autolycus*: A Pneumatological Perspective 397
Christopher T. BOUNDS, Marion, Indiana
Competing Doctrines of Perfection: The Primary Issue in Irenaeus' Refutation of Gnosticism 403

Digitized by Google

Josef LÖSSL, Cardiff
Hermeneutics and Doctrine of God in Tatian's *Ad Graecos* 409
László PERENDY, Budapest
The Outlines of Systematic Theology in the *Ad Autolycum* of Theophilus of Antioch 413
David RANKIN, Brisbane
Athenagoras, Philosopher and First Principles 419
D. Jeffrey BINGHAM, Dallas
Scripture as Apology in Athenagoras of Athens 425
Ronald KYDD, Lakeport, Ontario
Polemics and the Gifts of the Spirit in Tertullian, Irenaeus, and the *Excerpts from Theodotus* 433
Reidar AASGAARD, Oslo
The Gospel for Early Christian Children: A Re-assessment of the Infancy Gospel of Thomas 439
Marek STAROWIEYSKI, Varsovie
La figure de Judas dans la littérature apocryphe 445

Vol. XLVI

XI. Tertullian to Tyconius

Annemieke D. TER BRUGGE, Kampen
Between Adam and Aeneas: Tertullian on Rejection and Appropriation of Roman Culture 3
Richard D. TOMSICK, Richmond Heights, Ohio
Structure and Exegesis in Tertullian's *Ad Uxorem* and *De Exhortatione Castitatis* 9
Matthew C. STEENBERG, Leeds
Sinful Nature as Second Nature in Tertullian of Carthage 17
Elizabeth DEPALMA DIGESER, Santa Barbara, California
Methodius and Porphyry 21
Octavian Gheorghe GORDON, Bucureşti
Is *De mortibus persecutorum* an Orphan Indeed? 27
Annemarie C. MAYER, Tübingen
Cyprian's Notion of Unity – an Ecumenical Aim? 33
Gábor KENDEFFY, Budapest
Lactantius on the Function of the Two Ways 39
Stefan FREUND, Regensburg
Laktanz und die Johannesoffenbarung 45
Aaron P. JOHNSON, Chicago
Rethinking the Authenticity of Porphyry, *Contra Christianos*, fr. 1 .. 53

Digitized by Google

Sébastien MORLET, Paris
La *Démonstration évangélique* d'Eusèbe de Césarée contient-elle des fragments du *Contra Christianos* de Porphyre? À propos du frg. 73 Harnack 59
Roger P.H. GREEN, Helensburgh
Constantine as Patron of Christian Latin Poetry 65
Kristina SESSA, Columbus, Ohio
Exceptionality and Invention: Silvester and the Late Antique 'Papacy' at Rome 77
Daniel H. WILLIAMS, Waco, Texas
New Light on Hilary of Poitiers' *In Matthaeum* 95
Dominique BERTRAND, Lyon
L'argumentation hilarienne dans les Livres 4-7 du *De Trinitate* 99
Mark EDWARDS, Oxford
Marius Victorinus and the *Homoousion* 105
Lenka KARFÍKOVÁ, Prague
Time According to Marius Victorinus, *Adversus Arium* IV 15 119
John VOELKER, Viking, Minnesota
Marius Victorinus' Latin Witness of *Filioque* 125
Joshua PAPSDORF, Wichita, Kansas
Filastrius of Brescia's *Diversarum Hereseon Liber*: A Study in Patristic Mediocrity 131
Francesco BRASCHI, Milan
A Comprehensive Reading of Ambrose's *Explanatio psalmorum XII* 137
Finbarr G. CLANCY, SJ, Dublin
Repairing the Torn Garments of our Nature: Redemption in St Ambrose's *Expositio evangelii secundum Lucam* 143
Angela Russell CHRISTMAN, Baltimore, Maryland
Biblical Exegesis and Virgil's *Aeneid* in Ambrose of Milan's *Expositio Psalmi CXVIII* 149
Jean-Marc VERCRUYSSE, Arras
Tyconius a-t-il lu Origène? 155
Pamela BRIGHT, Montreal
Scripture, the Loom of the Spirit: Genre and Species in the *Book of Rules* of Tyconius of Carthage 161

XII. Egypt before Nicaea

Henny Fiskå HÄGG, Kristiansand
Deification in Clement of Alexandria with a Special Reference to his Use of *Theaetetus* 176B 169

Digitized by Google

Andrew DINAN, Ave Maria, Florida
Αἴνιγμα and αἰνίττομαι in the Works of Clement of Alexandria.... 175
Jana PLÁTOVÁ, Olomouc
Bemerkungen zu den *Hypotyposen*-Fragmenten des Clemens Alexandrinus 181
Shawn W.J. KEOUGH, Leuven
Eschatology Worthy of God: The Goodness of God and the Groaning of Creation in Origen's *De Principiis* 189
J. José ALVIAR, Pamplona
A Second Look at Origen's Notion of 'Rationality' 195
David G. ROBERTSON, Fort Lee, New Jersey
Origen on Inner and Outer *Logos* 201
Heidi MARX-WOLF, Santa Barbara, California
Third-Century Daimonologies and the *Via Universalis*: Origen, Porphyry and Iamblichus on *daimones* and Other Angels 207
Anna TZVETKOVA-GLASER, Berlin
Polemics against Judaeo-Christian Practices in Origen's *Homilies*... 217
Allan E. JOHNSON, Minnesota
In the Name of Jesus: Consequences of Preaching in Origen's *Homilies on Joshua* 223
Mathilde AUSSEDAT, Paris
La récriture des *Homélies sur Jérémie* d'Origène dans la tradition caténique 229
Karl SHUVE, Hamilton, Ontario
Entering the Story: Origen's 'Dramatic' Approach to Scripture in the *Homilies on Jeremiah* 235
Joseph S. O'LEARY, Tokyo
Platonic Dissolution of History in Origen's *Commentary on John* X 5-34 241
Sarah SPANGLER, New York
Christology as the Basis of Metaphysics in Origen's *Commentary on John* 247
Susanna DRAKE, Durham, North Carolina
Images of Jewishness in Origen's *Letter to Africanus* 253
Manuel BELDA, Roma
La oración continua en el tratado Περὶ Εὐχῆς de Orígenes..... 267

XIII. Athanasius and his Opponents

Thomas G. WEINANDY, Washington, DC
Athanasius' Letter to Marcellinus: A Soteriological Praying of the Psalms 275

Digitized by Google

Andrew TEAL, Oxford
Athanasius and Apollinarius: Who Was the Chicken and Who Was the Egg? 281
David M. GWYNN, Oxford and Royal Holloway
Eusebius of Nicomedia: A 'Court Bishop' for Constantine? 289
Kenneth NOAKES, Wimborne, Dorset
Cyril of Jerusalem and the Spectrum of Renunciation 295
Anthony GELSTON, Durham
Cyril of Jerusalem's Eucharistic Prayer: The Argument from Silence 301
Mark DELCOGLIANO, Atlanta, Georgia
The Significance of George of Laodicea in the Fourth-Century Trinitarian Debates 307
Timothy D. BARNES, Toronto/Edinburgh
Notes on the Letter of Eusebius to Constantia (*CPG* 3503) 313
Michael B. SIMMONS, Montgomery, Alabama
Universalism in the *Demonstratio evangelica* of Eusebius of Caesarea 319
Thomas HEYNE, Oxford
The Devious Eusebius? An Evaluation of the *Ecclesiastical History* and Its Critics 325
Satoshi TODA, Tokyo
The Syriac Version of Eusebius' *Ecclesiastical History* Revisited 333
Harold A. DRAKE, Santa Barbara, California
Playing With Words: Is There a Corpus in the *Vita Constantini*? 339
Christine SHEPARDSON, Knoxville, Tennessee
Burying Babylas: Meletius of Antioch and the Shape of Christian Orthodoxy 347
Everett FERGUSON, Abilene, Texas
Baptism in the Messalian Controversy 353

Vol. XLVII

XIV. Cappadocian Writers

Anthony MEREDITH, London
Divine Incomprehensibility in Gregory of Nyssa and Augustine 3
Johan LEEMANS, Leuven
Reading *Acts* 6-7 in the Early Church: Gregory of Nyssa's First and Second Homilies on Stephen the Protomartyr 9
Andrew RADDE-GALLWITZ, Chicago
Epinoia and Initial Concepts: Re-assessing Gregory of Nyssa's Defense of Basil 21

Digitized by Google

Charlotte KÖCKERT, Heidelberg
The Concept of Seed in Christian Cosmology: Gregory of Nyssa, *Apologia in Hexaemeron* 27
Nathan D. HOWARD, Martin, Tennessee
Familial *Askêsis* in the *Vita Macrinae* 33
Martin LAIRD, O.S.A., Villanova, Pennsylvania
Gregory of Nyssa and Divinization: A Reconsideration 39
Sandra LEUENBERGER-WENGER, Zürich
Ethics and Christian Identity in Gregory of Nyssa 45
Giulio MASPERO, Rome
Remarks on Eros in Plato and Gregory of Nyssa 51
Ilaria RAMELLI, Milan
Αἰώνιος and Αἰών in Origen and in Gregory of Nyssa 57
Terttu HAIKKA, Helsinki
Gregory of Nyssa's *Canticum* behind the *Akathistos* Hymn? 63
Matthieu CASSIN, Paris
Réfuter sans lasser le lecteur: Pratique de la réfutation dans le *Contre Eunome* de Grégoire de Nysse 71
Marcello LA MATINA, Macerata, Italy
Analytic Philosophy of Language and the Revelation of Person. Some Remarks on Gregory of Nyssa and Maximus the Confessor... 77
Anne Gordon KEIDEL, Boston
Basil of Caesarea and Free Will 85
Darren SARISKY, Cambridge
The End of Interpretation in Basil of Caesarea's *De spiritu sancto*.. 91
Manuel MIRA IBORRA, Roma
About the Structure of *De Spiritu Sancto* by Basil of Caesarea 97
Shigeki TSUCHIHASHI, Tokyo
Homotimia and *synarithmēsis* in Basil of Caesarea's *De Spiritu Sancto* 105
Claudio MORESCHINI, Pisa
Tritheism in Basil and Gregory of Nazianzus 111
Jaclyn MAXWELL, Ohio
The Attitudes of Basil and Gregory of Nazianzus toward Uneducated Christians 117
Suzanne ABRAMS REBILLARD, Ithaca, New York
The Autobiographical *Prosopopoeia* of Gregory of Nazianzus 123
Thomas BRAUCH, Mount Pleasant, Michigan
Gregory of Nazianzus' *Letters* 24 and 38 and Themistius of Constantinople 129
Verna E.F. HARRISON, Kansas City, Missouri
The Logos Cries Out from the Virgin's Womb: Gregory of Nazianzus, *Oration* 45.13 135

Digitized by Google

Peter BOUTENEFF, Crestwood, New York
Whatever That Was! Paradise According to Gregory of Nazianzus. 141
Brian E. DALEY, Notre Dame, Indiana
Who is the Real Bishop of Constantinople? A Reconsideraton of Gregory of Nazianzus' Will 147

XV. The Second Half of the Fourth Century (Greek Writers)

Maxine WEST, London
Jesus Speaks to/in Us: A Connection of Theme between Serapion of Thmuis' *Against the Manichees* and *Sacramentary* 155
Young Richard KIM, Grand Rapids, Michigan
Bad Bishops Corrupt Good Emperors: Ecclesiastical Authority and the Rhetoric of Heresy in the *Panarion* of Epiphanius of Salamis ... 161
Peter D. STEIGER, Honolulu, Hawaii
Peter and Paul in the Commentaries of Didymus the Blind 167
Byard BENNETT, Grand Rapids, Michigan
The Person Speaking: *Prosopopoeia* as an Exegetical Device in Didymus the Blind's Interpretation of *Romans* 7 173
Andrew LOUTH, Durham
Evagrios on Anger 179
Monica TOBON, Canterbury
The Health of the Soul: Ἀπάθεια in Evagrius Ponticus 187
Antony D. RICH, London
Discerning Evagrius Ponticus Discerning: Διάκρισις in the Works of Evagrius 203
Luke DYSINGER, Valyermo, California
Exegesis and Spiritual Guidance in Evagrius Ponticus 209
Augustine CASIDAY, Lampeter
Universal Restoration in Evagrius Ponticus' 'Great Letter' 223
Elias MOUTSOULAS, Athens
La personne du Christ dans l'histoire selon Saint Jean Chrysostome.. 229
David RYLAARSDAM, Grand Rapids, Michigan
On Earth as if in Heaven: John Chrysostom on Christ, Priests, and the Making of Angels 237
Constantine BOSINIS, Thessaloniki
What does Paganism Mean for a Church Father? An Inquiry into the Use of the Term εἰδωλολατρεία in the Rhetoric of John Chrysostom 243
Cyrille CRÉPEY, Strasbourg
Le vrai sens de la littéralité de l'exégèse dans les *Homélies sur la Genèse* de Jean Chrysostome: Illustration à partir de l'exégèse de *Gn* 1:1 249

Digitized by Google

Chris L. De Wet, Pretoria
John Chrysostom on Envy 255
Silke Sitzler, Brisbane
Deviance and Destitution: Social Poverty in the Homilies of John Chrysostom 261
Livia Neureiter, Graz
Health and Healing as Recurrent Topics in John Chrysostom's Correspondence with Olympias 267
Ulrich Volp, Mainz
'That Unclean Spirit Has Assaulted You from the Very Beginning': John Chrysostom and Suicide 273
Emilio Bonfiglio, Oxford
Notes on the Manuscript Tradition of Anianus Celedensis' Translation of John Chrysostom's *Homiliae in Matthaeum* [CPG 4424] 287
Lee Blackburn, Johnson City, Tennessee
'Let the Men be Ashamed': Public Insults, Angry Words, and Figures of Shame in Chrysostom's *Homilies on Acts* 295
Walt Stevenson, Richmond, Virginia
John Chrysostom, Maruthas and Christian Evangelism in Sasanian Iran 301
Turhan Kaçar, Denizli
The Election of Nectarius of Tarsus: Imperial Ideology, Patronage and *Philia* 307

Vol. XLVIII:
From the Fifth Century

XVI. Greek Writers

Susan Wessel, Washington, DC
Human Action and the Passions in Nemesios of Emesa 3
Andreas Westergren, Lund
'Fellow-lovers of God': Participation in the Desire for God in Theodoret's *Historia Philotheos* 15
Paul Parvis, Edinburgh
Theodoret's Bias: The Aim of the *Historia Ecclesiastica* 21
Brent A. Smith, Claremont, California
Theodoret and the Aesthetics of Ascetics 27
Andrew Teal, Oxford
How Authentic is the Antiochene Construction of Athanasius and His Theology in Nestorius and Theodoret? 33
Dimitrios Zaganas, Paris
Deux fragments inédits de l'*In Isaiam* de Cyrille d'Alexandrie 41

Digitized by Google

Gregory K. HILLIS, Louisville, Kentucky
New Birth through the Second Adam: The Holy Spirit and the Miraculous Conception in Cyril of Alexandria 47
Daniel KEATING, Detroit
Christology in Cyril and Leo: Unnoticed Parallels and Ironies 53
George KALANTZIS, Wheaton, Illinois
Single Subjectivity and the Prosopic Union in Cyril of Alexandria and Theodore of Mopsuestia 59
George C. BERTHOLD, Manchester, New Hampshire
Aspects of the Will in Maximus the Confessor 65
Kostake MILKOV, Oxford
Renunciation According to Maximus the Confessor 71
Andrew LOUTH, Durham
St Maximos' Doctrine of the *logoi* of Creation 77
Torstein Theodor TOLLEFSEN, Oslo
Causality and Movement in St. Maximus' *Ambiguum* 7 85
Vladimir CVETKOVIC, St Andrews
St Maximus on Πάθος and Κίνησις in *Ambiguum* 7 95
Vladimir CVETKOVIC, St Andrews
On the Identity of ἀλλότριος and His Definition in *Ambiguum* 7 of St Maximus 105
Adrian GUIU, Chicago
Christology and Philosophical Culture in Maximus the Confessor's *Ambiguum* 41 111
Ladislav CHVÁTAL, Olomouc
Maxime le Confesseur et la tradition philosophique: À propos d'une définition de la *kinêsis* 117
Thomas CATTOI, Berkeley, California
The Symphonic Church: Chalcedonian Themes in Maximos the Confessor's Liturgical Theology 123
Philippe BLAUDEAU, Paris
Le *documentum* symmachien consacré à Polychronius de Jérusalem: Enseignements géo-ecclésiologiques d'un faux romain 131
Dana-Iuliana VIEZURE, New Jersey
Philoxenus of Mabbug and the Controversies over the 'Theopaschite' Trisagion 137
Karl PINGGÉRA, Marburg
Der Leib Christi und das eucharistische Brot. Philoxenus von Mabbug zu *Joh.* 6:51 147
Susan L. GRAHAM, Jersey City, New Jersey
'I Have Bested You, Solomon': Justinian and the Old Testament 153
Henrik Rydell JOHNSÉN, Lund
Training for Solitude: John Climacus and the Art of Making a Ladder 159

Digitized by Google

Barbara MÜLLER, Hamburg
Nautische Metaphern bei Gregor dem Grossen 165
Rosemary A. ARTHUR, Wakefield, West Yorkshire
The Dating of the Dionysian Corpus 171
Michael HARRINGTON, Pittsburgh
What Are the 'Hypothetical Logoi' of Dionysian Mystical Theology? 177
Ari OJELL, Helsinki
The Most Evident Idea in Theology? Gregory of Nyssa and Pseudo-Dionysius Areopagita on the Theological Significance of Incarnation 183
Ysabel DE ANDIA, Paris
Moïse et Paul, modèles de l'expérience mystique chez Grégoire de Nysse et Denys l'Aréopagite 189
Joost VAN ROSSUM, Paris
Holy Communion as 'Symbol' in Pseudo-Dionysius and Theophanes of Nicaea 205
David NEWHEISER, Chicago
Ambivalence in Dionysius the Areopagite: The Limitations of a Liturgical Reading 211
Cyril HOVORUN, Kiev
Controversy on Energies and Wills in Christ: Between Politics and Theology 217
Richard PRICE, London
Monotheletism: A Heresy or a Form of Words? 221
Ketevan BEZARASHVILI, Tbilisi
Michael Psellos: The Interpreter of the Style of Gregory the Theologian and the New Aspects of the Concepts of Rhetorical Theories 233
Nicholas BAMFORD, St Albans
Gregory Palamas' Energetic Approach to Person: Existential and Ontological Implications 241
Rebecca WHITE, Oxford
The Mystery of the Cross in the Theology of St Gregory Palamas .. 247
Job GETCHA, Paris
Christology and Pneumatology in Symeon of Thessalonica's Commentary on Baptism 253
Kallistos WARE, Oxford
Prayer According to St Symeon of Thessalonica 259

XVII. Latin Writers

Gertrude GILLETTE, O.S.B., Ave Maria, Florida
The Alignment of Anger and Friendship in Cassian's *Conference* 16 267

Digitized by Google

Giselle DE NIE, Halle Heide, The Netherlands
'Let All Perceive What Mysteries Miracles May Teach Our Souls': Poetry and Sacrament in Sedulius' *Paschale Carmen* 273
Thomas S. FERGUSON, Riverdale, New York
Sidonius Apollinaris and the Muses: Reception of an Epic Tradition in the Poems and Letters 289
Joseph GRZYWACZEWSKI, Paris
The Passage from *Romanitas* to *Christianitas* According to Sidonius Apollinaris († *c.* 486) 295
Chiara O. TOMMASI MORESCHINI, Pisa
Roman and Christian History in Dracontius' *De Laudibus Dei* 303
Alberto FERREIRO, Seattle
Profuturus of Braga, Pope Vigilius and Priscillian 309
Oliver EHLEN, Aachen
Venantius Fortunatus und das Heilige Kreuz: Das Figurengedicht *Carmen II 4* 315
Hector SCERRI, Msida, Malta
Gregory the Great Deposes a Disobedient Bishop 321
Pere MAYMÓ I CAPDEVILA, Barcelona
Gregory the Great and the Religious Otherness: Pagans in a Christian Italy 327
George E. DEMACOPOULOS, New York
Gregory the Great and the Appeal to Petrine Authority 333

XVIII. *Nachleben*

Yuliyan VELIKOV, Veliko Turnovo, Bulgaria
Claudius of Turin and the Veneration of Images after the *Libri Carolini* 349
Petr BALCÁREK, Olomouc, Czech Republic
Some Remarks on the Response to Iconoclasm in the Old Slavonic *Vita Constantini* 355
Elizabeth HASTINGS, Cape Town
Augustine of Hippo and William of Saint-Thierry on the Relation between the Holy Spirit's Personal Identity (*Rom.* 5:5) and His Sovereign Freedom *ad extra* 361
William RANKIN, Abilene, Texas
'Mo fyguratif spechis than gramerians moun gesse': Wycliffite Transformations of Augustine's Semiotics 367
Goran SEKULOVSKI, Paris
The Social Aspects of Fourteenth-Century Hesychasm 373
Giancarlo PANI, Rome
Patristic Commentaries on Pauline Epistles from 1455 to 1517 379

Digitized by Google

Manuela GHEORGHE, Olomouc, Czech Republic
A Patristic Figure in Early Romanian Literature: Neagoe Basarab and His Teachings to His Son Theodosie 385
Sara BROOKS, Princeton
English and Dutch Polemical Use of Patristics and the Question of *via media* Reformed Protestantism, *c.* 1580-1615 391
Nicolas KAZARIAN, Paris
The Use of the Church Fathers by Jeremiah II *Tranos* in His Examination of Free Will 397
Elizabeth A. CLARK, Durham, North Carolina
Happiness in Hell, Virtue in the Middle State: The Church Fathers and Some Nineteenth-Century Debates 403
Charles KANNENGIESSER, Montreal
Divine Trinity in Interreligious Debate: Ancient Foundations and Current Issues 419
Charles D. ROBERTSON, Saskatoon
Augustine and Vatican II: A Broadening Conception of the Church? 431
Timothy MCCONNELL, Charlottesville, Virginia
The Presbyterian Church's Liturgical Use of Patristic Metaphors for the Trinity 437

Vol. XLIX

XIX. St. Augustine and his Opponents

Pauline NUGENT, Springfield, Missouri
Patristics and Pedagogy: Jerome and Augustine 3
Matthias SMALBRUGGE, Aerdenhout
Beauty and Grace in Augustine 9
Michael W. TKACZ, Spokane, Washington
Augustine, the *Timaeus* and the Cosmogonical Fallacy 15
Timo NISULA, Helsinki
Continuities and Discrepancies in Augustine's View on Concupiscence and Baptism (410-30) 21
Joshua C. DAVIES, Chattanooga, Tennessee
Signs of the Fall: Exilic Vision in Augustine 27
Larry DURAN, Fort Worth, Texas
Augustine on Begotten but Coeternal – Theological Rationale for the Athanasian Creed 33
Jane E. MERDINGER, Incline Village, Nevada
Conversations and Peregrinations of Augustine with his Closest Friends 39

Digitized by Google

Christine McCann, Northfield, Vermont
Physician of the Soul: Augustine and Spiritual Mentoring 45
Paul van Geest, Tilburg and Amsterdam
Sensory Perceptions as a Mandatory Requirement for the *via negativa* towards God. The Skilful Paradox of Augustine as Mystagogue 51
Marie-Anne Vannier, Metz
Light and Illumination in Augustine: Revisiting an Old Theme 59
Vittorino Grossi, Rome
Sul ruolo metodologico del vocabolario nella lettura della teologia agostiniana della grazia (397-428) 65
John Paul Hoskins, Bakewell
Acts 4:32 in Augustine's Ecclesiology 73
Carles Buenacasa Pérez, Barcelona
Augustine on Donatism: Converting a Schism into an Heresy 79
J. Patout Burns, Nashville
The Holiness of the Church in North African Theology 85
Ryan Topping, Oxford
Christ as *disciplina dei* in Augustine's Early Educational Thought .. 101
Peter Burnell, Saskatoon
Justice and War in and before Augustine 107
Siver Dagemark, Mölnlycke, Sweden
Medical Art: Some Remarks on Its Limitation and Verification in Augustine 111
Pier Franco Beatrice, Padua
Augustine's Longing for Holiness and the Problem of Monastic Illiteracy 119
M. Burcht Pranger, Amsterdam
Frozen Time: The Problem of Perseverance 135
John Peter Kenney, Colchester, Vermont
Pagan Monotheism and Augustine's Early Works 147
Susan Blackburn Griffith, Oxford
The Figure of Adam in the Sermons of Augustine 161
Stanley P. Rosenberg, Oxford
Orality, Textuality, and the Memory of the Congregation in Augustine's Sermons 169
Geoffrey D. Dunn, Brisbane
Poverty as a Social Issue in Augustine's Homilies 175
Anthony Dupont, Leuven
The Position of Gentiles and Pagans and Their Relation to Grace in Augustine's *sermones ad populum* 181
Daniel Jones, Detroit
Relating *Christus Sacerdos* and *Christus Mediator* in St. Augustine's *S.* Dolbeau 26 197

Digitized by Google

Dorothee ELM VON DER OSTEN, Freiburg i.Br.
Perpetual Felicity: Sermons of Augustine on Female Martyrdom (*s.* 280-282 *auct.* [Erfurt 1]) 203
Elena MARTIN, Durham
Physical Infirmity, Spiritual Strength: Augustine's Female Martyrs 211
Kenneth B. STEINHAUSER, St. Louis, Missouri
Virgil, Cicero and the *rusticanus*: Augustine's *Contra academicos* III 15.34-35 217
Tobias UHLE, Freiburg i.Br.
Truth and Dialectics in Augustine's *Soliloquies* 223
Naoki KAMIMURA, Tokyo
Augustine's Scriptural Exegesis in *De Genesi ad litteram liber unus inperfectus* 229
Francesca COCCHINI, Roma
Note sulla *Inchoata Expositio ad Romanos* di Agostino 235
Johannes BRACHTENDORF, Tübingen
The Human Condition as a Unifying Theme of the *Confessions* 241
Tarmo TOOM, Washington, DC
Augustine Becoming Articulate: *Confessions* 1.8.13 253
Ron HAFLIDSON, Halifax, Nova Scotia
The Demands of Service: The Turn to Scriptural Exegesis in Book XI of Augustine's *Confessions* 259
Michael L. CARREKER, Forsyth, Georgia
Divine Simplicity in the *De Trinitate* of St. Augustine 265
Wendy ELGERSMA HELLEMAN, Jos, Nigeria
'Christ, the Wisdom of God'. The Logic of Attribution in Augustine's *De Trinitate* 5-7 271
Walter A. HANNAM, Saskatoon
The Structure and Purpose of Book VIII of Augustine's *De Trinitate* 279
Kazuhiko DEMURA, Okayama
The Heart as Frame to Reach the Word: Augustine, *De Trinitate* XV 11.20 287
Jochen REXER, Tübingen
Die Ostertheologie des Augustinus nach den Briefen *Ad inquisitiones Ianuarii* 293
Hildegund MÜLLER, Notre Dame
Movements of a Putrefying Carcass: On Augustine's Use of 'Arians' in *Tractatus in evangelium Iohannis* 301
Alicia SOLER MERENCIANO & Ramon PANACH ROSAT, Valencia
New Perspectives on St Augustine and Priscillianism 307
Laurence DALMON, Brest
La correspondance antipélagienne de l'Afrique avec Rome: Présentation d'un dossier de l'Épistolaire augustinien (416-8) 313

Digitized by Google

Bengt ALEXANDERSON, Jörlanda, Suède
Le commentaire sur les Psaumes de Julien d'Éclane et le texte du Psautier 319
Gerald BONNER, Durham
A Last Apology for Pelagianism? 325
Dorothea WEBER, Wien
Beobachtungen zu Augustinus' *Locutiones in Heptateuchum* 329
Mickaël RIBREAU, Paris
'*Quos uulgo moriones uocant*' (*Contra Iulianum* III 4, 10): Le traitement des *moriones* (débiles) dans les œuvres antipélagiennes d'Augustin 335
Paula ROSE, Amsterdam
Textual Cohesion in Augustine's *De cura pro mortuis gerenda* 341
George A. BEVAN, Kingston
Augustine and the Western Dimension of the Nestorian Controversy 347
Alexander Y. HWANG, St. Louis, Missouri
A Reinterpretation of Prosper of Aquitaine's Theological Development 353
Augustine CASIDAY, Lampeter
Prosper the Controversialist 369
Rebecca WEAVER, Richmond, Virginia
Prosper's Theological Legacy and Its Limits 381
Alexander Y. HWANG, St. Louis, Missouri
The Authorship of the Ps.-Augustinian *Hypomnesticon*, Part II 395

Digitized by Google

Index Auctorum

Reidar AASGAARD	Vol. XLV, 439
Suzanne ABRAMS REBILLARD	Vol. XLVII, 123
John A. ADAIR	Vol. XLV, 361
Bengt ALEXANDERSON	Vol. XLIX, 319
J. José ALVIAR	Vol. XLVI, 195
Hagit AMIRAV	Vol. XLV, 139
Jonathan J. ARMSTRONG	Vol. XLV, 115
Rosemary A. ARTHUR	Vol. XLVIII, 171
Piotr ASHWIN-SIEJKOWSKI	Vol. XLIV, 527
Antonia ATANASSOVA	Vol. XLIV, 447
Mathilde AUSSEDAT	Vol. XLVI, 229
Petr BALCÁREK	Vol. XLVIII, 355
Nicholas BAMFORD	Vol. XLVIII, 241
Vladimir BARANOV	Vol. XLIV, 41
Paula BARATA DIAS	Vol. XLV, 61
Liviu BARBU	Vol. XLV, 3
Timothy D. BARNES	Vol. XLVI, 313
Pier Franco BEATRICE	Vol. XLIX, 119
Manuel BELDA	Vol. XLVI, 267
Byard BENNETT	Vol. XLVII, 173
Ferdinando BERGAMELLI	Vol. XLV, 379
George C. BERTHOLD	Vol. XLVIII, 65
Dominique BERTRAND	Vol. XLVI, 99
George A. BEVAN	Vol. XLIX, 347
Ketevan BEZARASHVILI	Vol. XLVIII, 233
D. Jeffrey BINGHAM	Vol. XLV, 425
Lee BLACKBURN	Vol. XLVII, 295
Philippe BLAUDEAU	Vol. XLVIII, 131
Paul M. BLOWERS	Vol. XLIV, 163
Charles A. BOBERTZ	Vol. XLV, 93
Emilio BONFIGLIO	Vol. XLVII, 287
Gerald BONNER	Vol. XLIX, 325
Rocco BORGOGNONI	Vol. XLIV, 21
Constantine BOSINIS	Vol. XLVII, 243
Marie-Odile BOULNOIS	Vol. XLIV, 297
Christopher T. BOUNDS	Vol. XLV, 403
Peter BOUTENEFF	Vol. XLVII, 141
Glen W. BOWERSOCK	Vol. XLV, 211
Katharina BRACHT	Vol. XLIV, 49
Johannes BRACHTENDORF	Vol. XLIX, 241
Francesco BRASCHI	Vol. XLVI, 137

Digitized by Google

Thomas Brauch Vol. XLVII, 129
Anthony Briggman Vol. XLV, 397
Pamela Bright Vol. XLVI, 161
Sebastian P. Brock Vol. XLV, 183
Sara Brooks Vol. XLVIII, 391
Peter Bruns Vol. XLV, 263
Carles Buenacasa Pérez Vol. XLIX, 79
István M. Bugár Vol. XLIV, 35
D.F. Bumazhnov Vol. XLV, 21
Peter Burnell Vol. XLIX, 107
J. Patout Burns Vol. XLIX, 85
Michael L. Carreker Vol. XLIX, 265
Augustine Casiday[bis] Vol. XLVII, 223, Vol. XLIX, 369
Matthieu Cassin Vol. XLVII, 71
Thomas Cattoi Vol. XLVIII, 123
Angela Russell Christman Vol. XLVI, 149
Ladislav Chvátal Vol. XLVIII, 117
Finbarr G. Clancy Vol. XLVI, 143
Elizabeth A. Clark Vol. XLVIII, 403
Francesca Cocchini Vol. XLIX, 235
Salvatore Costanza Vol. XLIV, 119
Cyrille Crépey Vol. XLVII, 249
Vladimir Cvetkovic[bis] Vol. XLVIII, 95, 105
Siver Dagemark Vol. XLIX, 111
Brian E. Daley Vol. XLVII, 147
Laurence Dalmon Vol. XLIX, 313
Joshua C. Davies Vol. XLIX, 27
Hellen Dayton Vol. XLIV, 207
Ysabel de Andia Vol. XLVIII, 189
Mark DelCogliano Vol. XLVI, 307
George E. Demacopoulos Vol. XLVIII, 333
Kazuhiko Demura Vol. XLIX, 287
Giselle de Nie Vol. XLVIII, 273
Elizabeth DePalma Digeser Vol. XLVI, 21
Chris L. De Wet Vol. XLVII, 255
Francesca Di Marco Vol. XLIV, 499
Andrew Dinan Vol. XLVI, 175
Carol Downer Vol. XLV, 291
Harold A. Drake Vol. XLVI, 339
Susanna Drake Vol. XLVI, 253
Jan Willem Drijvers Vol. XLV, 229
Geoffrey D. Dunn[bis] Vol. XLIV, 433, Vol. XLIX, 175
Anthony Dupont Vol. XLIX, 181
Larry Duran Vol. XLIX, 33
Luke Dysinger Vol. XLVII, 209
Mark Edwards[bis] Vol. XLIV, 201, Vol. XLVI, 105
Oliver Ehlen Vol. XLVIII, 315

Digitized by Google

Wendy ELGERSMA HELLEMAN Vol. XLIX, 271
Dorothee ELM VON DER OSTEN Vol. XLIX, 203
Everett FERGUSON Vol. XLVI, 353
Thomas S. FERGUSON Vol. XLVIII, 289
Alberto FERREIRO Vol. XLVIII, 309
Richard FINN Vol. XLV, 9
James A. FRANCIS Vol. XLIV, 3
Stefan FREUND Vol. XLVI, 45
Stefanie FROST Vol. XLIV, 355
Benoît GAIN Vol. XLIV, 133
Anthony GELSTON Vol. XLVI, 301
Peter GEMEINHARDT Vol. XLIV, 521
Martin GEORGE Vol. XLIV, 49
Job GETCHA Vol. XLVIII, 253
Manuela GHEORGHE Vol. XLVIII, 385
Elena GIANNARELLI Vol. XLIV, 461
Gertrude GILLETTE Vol. XLVIII, 267
Octavian Gheorghe GORDON Vol. XLVI, 27
Graham GOULD Vol. XLV, 27
Susan L. GRAHAM Vol. XLVIII, 153
Thomas GRAUMANN Vol. XLV, 147
Patrick T.R. GRAY Vol. XLV, 169
Geoffrey GREATREX Vol. XLIV, 125
Roger P.H. GREEN Vol. XLVI, 65
Susan Blackburn GRIFFITH Vol. XLIX, 161
Vittorino GROSSI Vol. XLIX, 65
Andreas E.J. GROTE Vol. XLV, 55
Joseph GRZYWACZEWSKI Vol. XLVIII, 295
Adrian GUIU Vol. XLVIII, 111
David M. GWYNN Vol. XLVI, 289
Henny Fiskå HÄGG Vol. XLVI, 169
Ron HAFLIDSON Vol. XLIX, 259
Terttu HAIKKA Vol. XLVII, 63
Walter A. HANNAM Vol. XLIX, 279
Michael HARRINGTON Vol. XLVIII, 177
Carol HARRISON Vol. XLIV, 427
Verna E.F. HARRISON Vol. XLVII, 135
Paul HARTOG Vol. XLV, 391
Elizabeth HASTINGS Vol. XLVIII, 361
Tim HEGEDUS Vol. XLV, 331
Thomas HEYNE(bis) Vol. XLIV, 63, Vol. XLVI, 325
Charles E. HILL Vol. XLV, 337
Gregory K. HILLIS Vol. XLVIII, 47
Hugh A.G. HOUGHTON Vol. XLV, 271
John Paul HOSKINS Vol. XLIX, 73
Cyril HOVORUN Vol. XLVIII, 217
Nathan D. HOWARD Vol. XLVII, 33

Digitized by Google

Hannah HUNT Vol. XLIV, 189
Vít HUŠEK Vol. XLIV, 385
Alexander Y. HWANG(bis) Vol. XLIX, 353, 395
Lee M. JEFFERSON Vol. XLIV, 15
Robin JENSEN Vol. XLV, 77
Henrik Rydell JOHNSÉN Vol. XLVIII, 159
Aaron P. JOHNSON Vol. XLVI, 53
Allan E. JOHNSON Vol. XLVI, 223
Daniel JONES Vol. XLIX, 197
Turhan KAÇAR Vol. XLVII, 307
George KALANTZIS Vol. XLVIII, 59
Naoki KAMIMURA Vol. XLIX, 229
Charles KANNENGIESSER Vol. XLVIII, 419
Anne KARAHAN Vol. XLIV, 27
Lenka KARFÍKOVÁ Vol. XLVI, 119
Nestor KAVVADAS Vol. XLV, 245
Mikhail M. KAZAKOV Vol. XLIV, 91
Nicolas KAZARIAN Vol. XLVIII, 397
Daniel KEATING Vol. XLVIII, 53
Anne Gordon KEIDEL Vol. XLVII, 85
Gábor KENDEFFY Vol. XLVI, 39
John Peter KENNEY Vol. XLIX, 147
Shawn W.J. KEOUGH Vol. XLVI, 189
Taras KHOMYCH Vol. XLV, 297
Lela KHOPERIA Vol. XLV, 251
Young Richard KIM Vol. XLVII, 161
Kari KLOOS Vol. XLIV, 315
Charlotte KÖCKERT Vol. XLVII, 27
Julia KONSTANTINOVSKY Vol. XLIV, 349
Judith L. KOVACS Vol. XLIV, 235
Thomas KREMER Vol. XLV, 221
Dominika A. KUREK-CHOMYCZ Vol. XLIV, 275
Ronald KYDD Vol. XLV, 433
Martin LAIRD Vol. XLVII, 39
Marcello LA MATINA Vol. XLVII, 77
Christian LANGE Vol. XLV, 235
Jerónimo LEAL Vol. XLV, 349
Peter LEE Vol. XLV, 101
Johan LEEMANS Vol. XLVII, 9
Sandra LEUENBERGER-WENGER Vol. XLVII, 45
Josef LÖSSL Vol. XLV, 409
Andrew LOUTH(bis) Vol. XLVII, 179, Vol. XLVIII, 77
Elena MARTIN Vol. XLIX, 211
Heidi MARX-WOLF Vol. XLVI, 207
Giulio MASPERO Vol. XLVII, 51
Brian MATZ Vol. XLIV, 549
Jaclyn MAXWELL Vol. XLVII, 117

Digitized by Google

Annemarie C. MAYER Vol. XLVI, 33
Pere MAYMÓ I CAPDEVILA Vol. XLVIII, 327
Christine MCCANN Vol. XLIX, 45
Timothy MCCONNELL(bis) Vol. XLV, 385, Vol. XLVIII, 437
Jane E. MERDINGER Vol. XLIX, 39
Anthony MEREDITH Vol. XLVII, 3
Vincenzo MESSANA Vol. XLIV, 111
Kostake MILKOV Vol. XLVIII, 71
Denis MINNS Vol. XLV, 355
Manuel MIRA IBORRA Vol. XLVII, 97
Claudio MORESCHINI Vol. XLVII, 111
Sébastien MORLET Vol. XLVI, 59
Stephen MORRIS Vol. XLIV, 195
Karl F. MORRISON Vol. XLV, 309
Elias MOUTSOULAS Vol. XLVII, 229
Barbara MÜLLER Vol. XLVIII, 165
Hildegund MÜLLER Vol. XLIX, 301
Joseph G. MUELLER Vol. XLV, 71
Earl MULLER Vol. XLV, 285
Bronwen NEIL Vol. XLIV, 533
Livia NEUREITER Vol. XLVII, 267
David NEWHEISER Vol. XLVIII, 211
Jennifer NIMMO SMITH Vol. XLIV, 329
Timo NISULA Vol. XLIX, 21
Kenneth NOAKES Vol. XLVI, 295
Valeria NOVEMBRI Vol. XLIV, 471
Pauline NUGENT Vol. XLIX, 3
David O'BRIEN Vol. XLV, 325
Ari OJELL Vol. XLVIII, 183
Joseph S. O'LEARY Vol. XLVI, 241
Ramon PANACH ROSAT Vol. XLIX, 307
Giancarlo PANI Vol. XLVIII, 379
Joshua PAPSDORF Vol. XLVI, 131
Paul PARVIS Vol. XLVIII, 21
Colette PASQUET Vol. XLV, 203
Leena Mari PELTOMAA Vol. XLIV, 487
Michael Philip PENN Vol. XLV, 197
László PERENDY Vol. XLV, 413
Karl PINGGÉRA Vol. XLVIII, 147
Jana PLÁTOVÁ Vol. XLVI, 181
M. Burcht PRANGER Vol. XLIX, 135
Richard PRICE Vol. XLVIII, 221
Dennis Paul QUINN Vol. XLIV, 71
Andrew RADDE-GALLWITZ Vol. XLVII, 21
Ilaria RAMELLI(bis) Vol. XLIV, 259, Vol. XLVII, 57
David RANKIN Vol. XLV, 419
William RANKIN Vol. XLVIII, 367

Digitized by Google

David M. Reis Vol. XLV, 373
Hanneke Reuling Vol. XLIV, 177
Jochen Rexer Vol. XLIX, 293
Jean Reynard Vol. XLV, 277
Helen Rhee Vol. XLV, 343
Mickaël Ribreau Vol. XLIX, 335
Antony D. Rich Vol. XLVII, 203
David L. Riggs Vol. XLIV, 105
Josef Rist Vol. XLIV, 57
Marco Rizzi Vol. XLIV, 227
Charles D. Robertson Vol. XLVIII, 431
David G. Robertson Vol. XLVI, 201
David Charles Robinson Vol. XLV, 303
Per Rönnegård Vol. XLV, 35
Paula Rose Vol. XLIX, 341
Stanley P. Rosenberg Vol. XLIX, 169
Riemer Roukema Vol. XLIV, 249
Enrica Ruaro Vol. XLIV, 157
David Rylaarsdam Vol. XLVII, 237
Marianne Sághy Vol. XLV, 49
Darren Sarisky Vol. XLVII, 91
Hector Scerri Vol. XLVIII, 321
Eric Scherbenske Vol. XLIV, 139
Karin Schlapbach Vol. XLIV, 421
Goran Sekulovski Vol. XLVIII, 373
Kristina Sessa Vol. XLVI, 77
Oleh Shchuryk Vol. XLV, 131
Christine Shepardson Vol. XLVI, 347
Stephen J. Shoemaker Vol. XLIV, 509
Karl Shuve Vol. XLVI, 235
A. Edward Siecienski Vol. XLV, 175
Michael B. Simmons Vol. XLVI, 319
Silke Sitzler Vol. XLVII, 261
Matthias Smalbrugge Vol. XLIX, 9
Brent A. Smith Vol. XLVIII, 27
Alicia Soler Merenciano Vol. XLIX, 307
Richard Sorabji Vol. XLIV, 361
Claire Sotinel Vol. XLIV, 77
Sarah Spangler Vol. XLVI, 247
Hennie Stander Vol. XLIV, 415
Marek Starowieyski Vol. XLV, 445
Matthew C. Steenberg Vol. XLVI, 17
Blossom Stefaniw Vol. XLIV, 281
Peter D. Steiger Vol. XLVII, 167
Kenneth B. Steinhauser Vol. XLIX, 217
Walt Stevenson Vol. XLVII, 301
Columba Stewart Vol. XLIV, 321

Digitized by Google

Michael J. SVIGEL Vol. XLV, 367
Andrew TEAL(bis) Vol. XLVI, 281, Vol. XLVIII, 33
Annemieke D. TER BRUGGE Vol. XLVI, 3
Catherine Brown TKACZ Vol. XLIV, 183
Michael W. TKACZ Vol. XLIX, 15
Monica TOBON Vol. XLVII, 187
Satoshi TODA Vol. XLVI, 333
Torstein Theodor TOLLEFSEN Vol. XLVIII, 85
Chiara O. TOMMASI MORESCHINI Vol. XLVIII, 303
Richard D. TOMSICK Vol. XLVI, 9
Tarmo TOOM Vol. XLIX, 253
Ryan TOPPING Vol. XLIX, 101
Tina TSERADZE Vol. XLV, 257
Niki TSIRONIS Vol. XLIV, 515
Shigeki TSUCHIHASHI Vol. XLVII, 105
Anna TZVETKOVA-GLASER Vol. XLVI, 217
Kevin UHALDE Vol. XLIV, 405
Tobias UHLE Vol. XLIX, 223
Kristi UPSON-SAIA Vol. XLV, 43
Paul VAN GEEST Vol. XLIX, 51
Marie-Anne VANNIER Vol. XLIX, 59
Joost VAN ROSSUM Vol. XLVIII, 205
Yuliyan VELIKOV Vol. XLVIII, 349
Jean-Marc VERCRUYSSE Vol. XLVI, 155
Joseph VERHEYDEN Vol. XLIV, 145
Dana-Iuliana VIEZURE Vol. XLVIII, 137
Raúl VILLEGAS MARÍN Vol. XLV, 163
John VOELKER Vol. XLVI, 125
Ulrich VOLP Vol. XLVII, 273
Kallistos WARE Vol. XLVIII, 259
Rebecca WEAVER Vol. XLIX, 381
Dorothea WEBER Vol. XLIX, 329
Thomas G. WEINANDY Vol. XLVI, 275
Susan WESSEL Vol. XLVIII, 3
Maxine WEST Vol. XLVII, 155
Andreas WESTERGREN Vol. XLVIII, 15
Liuwe H. WESTRA Vol. XLV, 85
Rebecca WHITE Vol. XLVIII, 247
Peter WIDDICOMBE Vol. XLIV, 9
Daniel H. WILLIAMS Vol. XLVI, 95
Rowan WILLIAMS Vol. XLIV, 391
David WOODS Vol. XLIV, 85
Jonathan YATES Vol. XLIV, 213
Frances YOUNG Vol. XLIV, 335
Dimitrios ZAGANAS Vol. XLVIII, 41
Rita ZANOTTO Vol. XLV, 125
Michael ZHELTOV Vol. XLV, 105

Digitized by Google

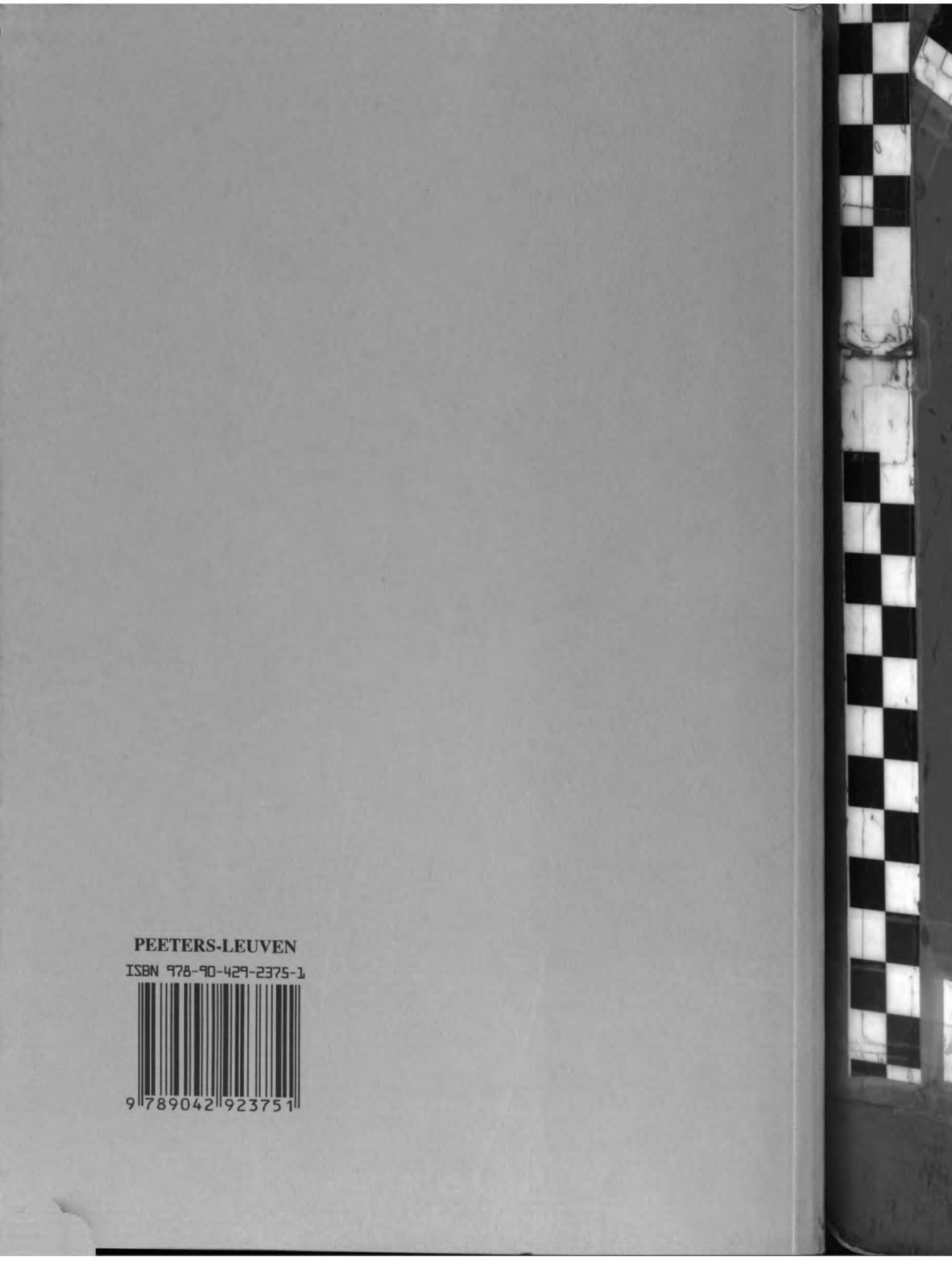
Digitized by Google

Digitized by Google

PRINTED ON PERMANENT PAPER • IMPRIME SUR PAPIER PERMANENT • GEDRUKT OP DUURZAAM PAPIER - ISO 9706
N.V. PEETERS S.A., WAROTSTRAAT 50, B-3020 HERENT

Digitized by Google

Digitized by Google



PEETERS-LEUVEN
ISBN 978-90-429-2375-1

Digitized by Google

Digitized by Google

PEETERS-LEUVEN
ISBN 978-90-429-2375-1



Digitized by Google